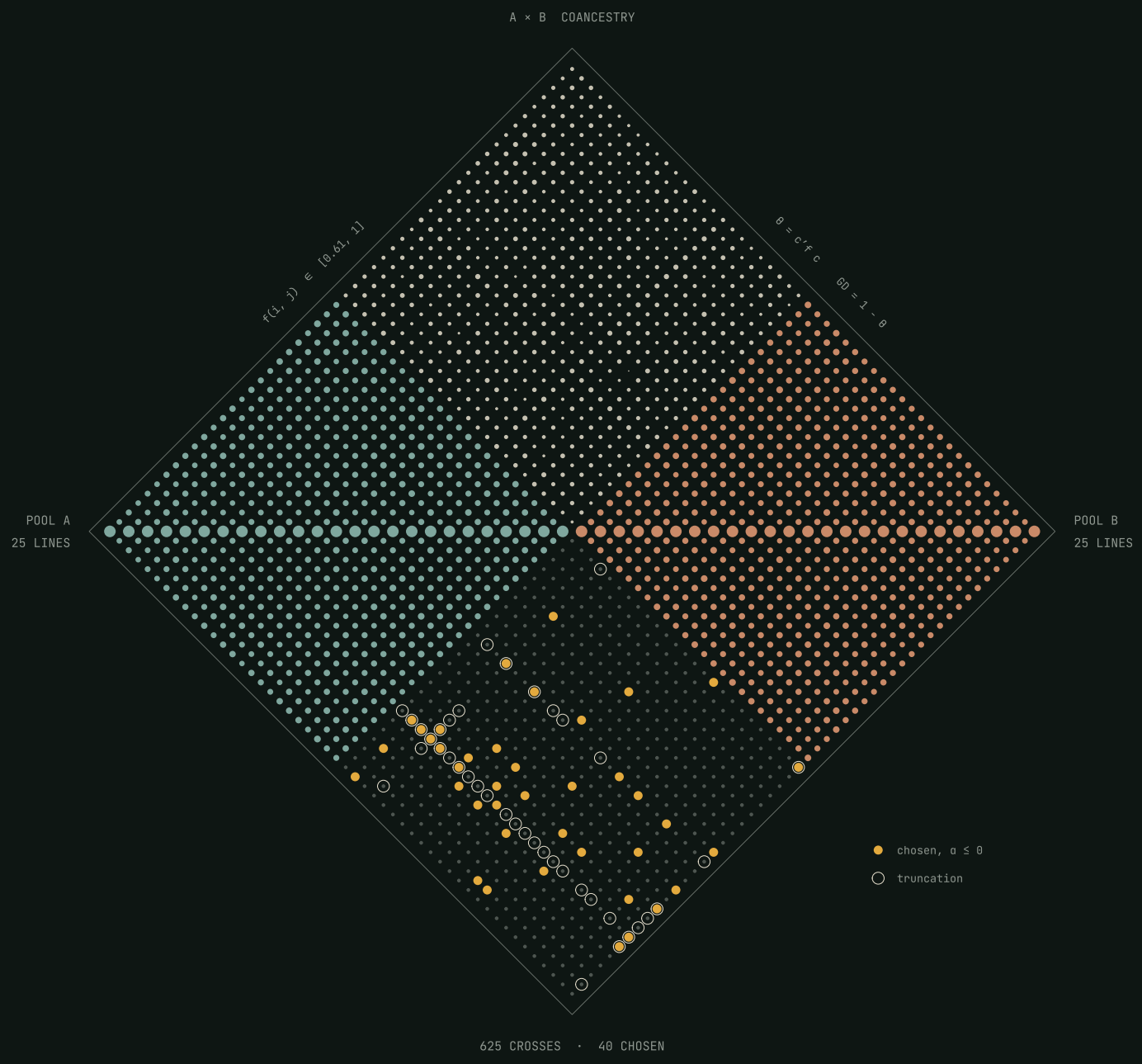

Genetic Diversity *in Hybrid Breeding*

Measuring it, constraining it, and optimising against it, with R

EDER D. B. S.

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Preface

A hybrid breeding programme has two objectives that pull against each other. The first is short-term: pick the crosses with the highest predicted performance. The second is long-term: do not spend the germplasm that will be needed to make the next round of gain possible. Every programme knows this. Very few can say, in a number, how much of the second they traded away to buy the first.

This book is about producing that number, defending it, and putting it inside an optimiser.

The problem, stated once

Given a set of N candidate F1 hybrids – each a cross between one line from heterotic group A and one from group B, each with a predicted multi-trait index – choose n_{sel} of them so that the mean index is as high as possible, subject to losing no more than a fraction $\alpha_{\max}$ of the molecular gene diversity that a *random* set of the same size carries on average.

Three of those words carry the entire argument.

Molecular. The coancestry-based diversity metrics are computed on the Caballero & Toro molecular coancestry matrix $\mathbf{f}$, never on a VanRaden genomic relationship matrix $\mathbf{G}$. This is not a stylistic preference. G is centered on its own population by construction, so the sum of all its elements is exactly zero; the group coancestry and the status number computed from it are zero and divergent by construction, and carry no information about the set. Chapter 2. shows this happening.

Random. The reference for "no loss" is the mean over random subsets of size n_{sel}, not the full candidate set. Comparing a selected set of 100 against a candidate set of 2500 confounds a selection effect with a sampling effect, and the sampling effect alone can look like a loss of half a percent. Section 11.9 separates them.

Subject to. The loss α is held under a *constraint*, not priced as a term in a weighted sum. When you write $\alpha_{\max} = 0.05$ you are saying "I accept losing five percent", which is a statement a breeding committee can approve. A weighted sum says "diversity is worth λ index units", which is a statement nobody can approve because nobody knows what λ means. Chapter 15. makes the distinction precise, and shows the standard optimal-contribution formulation it specialises.

What is unusual here

Most treatments of diversity management come from animal breeding, where the population is randomly mating and the unit of selection is an individual. Plant hybrid breeding departs from that setting in three ways:

- The parents are **inbred lines**, so their within-individual diversity is zero by construction, and the interesting heterozygosity lives in the F1 product, not in the parents.
- The population is **permanently subdivided** into heterotic groups, and the divergence between them is not a problem to be minimised – it is the engine of heterosis, to be *maintained*. A single pool-wide statistic cannot express "conserve within, hold between". Chapter 5. derives that claim as an identity (under flat dominance, inbred parents and the complete factorial), and then bounds it: divergence pays only where it coincides with dominance, and drifting the pools apart buys no expected heterosis.
- The candidates are **crosses of fixed lines**, so the progeny variance term that drives cross-selection criteria elsewhere collapses to zero, and the hybrid-by-hybrid coancestry matrix turns out never to be needed at all (Section 12.1).

Each of these changes what should be measured. None of them changes the underlying theory, which is why the book builds the theory first (the second half of the Introduction, then Foundations).

How to read this

The book is meant to be run, not only read. Every derivation that could be checked numerically is checked numerically, in a code block you can execute. Where a result is an exact algebraic identity, the code asserts it against a simulated oracle or a second computation with a stated tolerance, so that the book does not render if the identity fails; the achieved deviation is printed where a chapter reports one, not for every assertion. Where a result is a Monte Carlo agreement, the estimate is given with its dispersion and the value it is compared with.

The argument of the book is a chain, worth stating before the table that lists the parts. It is given in logical order, not reading order, and not every chapter is a link in it:

1. Diversity between the pools adds to the value of the hybrid only where it falls on loci with dominance, and diversity within them is what the next cycle has to select on (Chapter 3., Chapter 5.).
2. Those two can move in opposite directions: under drift alone the first rises while the second falls, an argument that does not cover selection. The partition derived in Chapter 3. and reported in Chapter 11. is what makes that visible.
3. Within-pool diversity is worth protecting because it is the raw material of *response*: among A × B hybrids, genic variance is a sum over loci of the within-pool part of gene diversity, weighted by squared effect (Chapter 4.). The between-pool part of gene diversity does not enter it, and neither quantity sees linkage disequilibrium, so a diversity constraint protects variance only through its within-pool part and only if effect sizes are unrelated to which loci lose diversity. Restricting rather than pricing is not specific to this book: restricted selection indices and optimum contribution selection with a bound on a group coancestry both have that form (Chapter 4.), which is a precedent for the constraint, not a proof that it is the right one.
4. So the loss of gene diversity, α, is held under a **budget** $\alpha_{\max}$: the loss is the relative shortfall of the selected hybrids' $GD_T = 1 - \theta$, with θ their group coancestry (Chapter 2.), below that of a random selection of the same size (Section 11.9), not a term traded off inside an objective (Chapter 15.). With inbred parents that total is the within-pool term plus the between-pool term (Table 3.6): the budget does not isolate the within-pool loss of item 3, which is why the pools are monitored separately (Chapter 13.).
5. How much diversity there is to spend depends on how the candidates were generated: a panel cannot be selected back up to variation it never sampled (Chapter 7.), and a set of near-copies cannot be rescued by any optimiser (Chapter 8.). Chapter 6. and Chapter 9. build that panel two different ways, and everything downstream is blind to which – Chapter 9. from the primitives up, so the generative model is something a reader can rebuild rather than accept. Before any of it, the crossing plan decides which candidates are seen at all (Chapter 18.), and the trial layout which locations each one is seen in (Chapter 19.).
6. Spending the budget optimally is a combinatorial problem with structure worth naming (Chapter 16., Chapter 17.).
7. The budget is worth paying because of what it leaves for later cycles, which is a claim about trajectories and is checked as one (Chapter 23., with Chapter 22. pointing the same AlphaSimR primitives at an inbred-line programme, where the diversity cost of running faster is measured directly) – and then predicted, which turns out to work only where the constraint holds (Chapter 24.).

The parts are ordered so that each is readable after the ones before it:

Part	What it establishes
Introduction	The hybrid programme end to end, and the population genetics the rest of the book assumes
Foundations	The coancestry kernel, the partition of diversity in a subdivided population, the equation that says what selection buys, and what divergence between the pools buys through heterosis
Simulation	How the candidates are generated, and how large a segregating population has to be
Metrics and prediction	What can be measured, what it costs, which measurements are redundant, and how the index being selected on is predicted
Optimisation	How the constraint enters an optimiser, and which optimiser to use

Part	What it establishes
Mating and testing design	Which few hundred of the 40,000 possible crosses to grow, what each design can estimate, and how to spread them over locations
Evidence and practice	What the literature does and does not establish, what a whole programme spends across cycles (Chapter 22. is an inbred-line scheme, Chapter 23. the two-pool one), and a worked end-to-end run

Readers new to hybrid breeding or to population genetics should start with Chapter 1.. Readers who only want the operational answer can read Chapter 12. (which metrics), Chapter 13. (at which stage) and Chapter 25. (the whole pipeline in one script), then come back for the derivations.

Running the code

All code is in the `hybdiv` package that ships with this book.

```
# from the repository root
install.packages(c("DEoptim", "quadprog"))
devtools::install(".")

library(hybdiv)
st1 <- stage1_simulate()                                  # lines -> X, f, hybrids
res <- stage2_select(st1$X, st1$f, st1$hybrids, n_sel = 100, fL = st1$fL)
res$metrics
```

The teaching scale of the live examples (assumption A8 of Chapter 1.) is deliberately small – 25 lines per pool and 2000 markers, giving 625 candidate hybrids – so that a full render takes minutes. It is set once, in `_common.R`; chapters that need another scale (for example Chapter 13., at 30 lines per pool and 3000 markers) set it in their own chunks:

```
str(book_cfg)
#> List of 6
#>  $ n_pool_A: num 25
#>  $ n_pool_B: num 25
#>  $ m       : num 2000
#>  $ n_traits: num 3
#>  $ fst     : num 0.15
#>  $ seed    : num 1
```

Results that are expensive to compute are precomputed and shipped in `book/data` and `book/figs`. They differ in where they came from, and not all of them can be remade from this repository (Appendix C. tabulates most of these files):

- **Written by `book/scripts/regenerate.R`:** the population-sizing grid (`f2_*`), the genomic-prediction sweep (`genomic_prediction_*`), the advanced-selection benchmark (`search_*`), the recurrent-selection trajectories (`cycles_*`), the variance limits of Chapter 24. (`limits_*`), the joint allocation sweep (`joint_*`), and the two phenotypic core sweeps, `mating_core_sweep.csv` and `sparse_core_sweep.csv`. `limits_linked.csv` starts from MaCS (Markovian coalescent simulator) founders, so a re-run writes a new draw, not the cached numbers.
- **Written by `inst/scripts/run_mabc.R`:** the backcross tables and figures (`mabc_*`). Three of the tables and both figures are cached from the predecessor of the current driver, and no full re-run has been compared with them (Section 8.8).
- **Cached from external studies, and not regenerable here:** the `mating_*` tables and figures of Chapter 18. and the `sparse_*` tables of Chapter 19., apart from the two core sweeps and the three literature tables listed separately here. The code of those studies is not in this repository, so the headline results of both chapters cannot be reproduced from it; only their phenotypic cores can be re-run.
- **No writer in this repository:** `de_constraints.csv` and `de_convergence.png` (the differential-evolution sweeps), `cost_per_eval.csv` and `cost_scaling.png` (the cost benchmark; `regenerate.R` and `inst/scripts/run_benchmark.R` write other cost tables, to `report/`), `metric_redundancy.csv` and `metric_redundancy.png`, `pipeline_loss_ledger.csv` and

`pipeline_loss.png`, `fst_definitions.csv`, `dist_vs_variance.csv`, `theta_identity_check.csv` and `metric_pitfalls.png`.

- **Not simulation output, and not regenerated:** the literature screens `bibliography_*.csv`, `plant_metric_usage.csv` derived from them, `plant_lit_landscape.png`, `sparse_primary_studies.csv` and `sparse_literature_parameters.csv`, compiled from the primary papers, and `mating_core_findings.csv`, extracted from the published literature and read by no chapter. The source record of that last file, which is not in this repository, marks some papers as read in full text and leaves the rest to their abstracts; the file itself carries no such marker.

A note on numbers: a number from a simulation is not a fixed constant. Change the simulation configuration or a random seed and it moves. Nor does a seed pin every number: founders drawn through MaCS are not reproducible from `set.seed()`, and the results computed from them are marked where they appear (Chapter 9., Chapter 24.). An exact identity holds at any seed and configuration that satisfy its assumptions. An empirical relationship – which metrics are redundant, how much index a constraint costs – is measured at the settings its chapter states; Chapter 12. says how far its redundancy result transfers, and that it should be re-run on real genotypes before its recommendation is treated as final.

I Introduction

1 The hybrid breeding programme, and the population genetics it rests on 19

1. The hybrid breeding programme, and the population genetics it rests on

The preface states the optimisation problem. This chapter states what that problem is a part of. Its first half follows a hybrid programme through one cycle, names the four stages that Chapter 13. measures, and marks where in that cycle diversity can be lost. Its second half gives the population genetics the later chapters assume: allele frequency, Hardy-Weinberg proportions, gene diversity, identity by descent and by state, coancestry, the inbreeding coefficient and its namesakes, drift and effective size. Each is defined here, with the identity that later chapters lean on checked numerically. Derivations stay in the chapters that use them; this one points to them.

Section 10.1 declares assumptions A1–A8 for the numbers of that chapter. This chapter describes the kind of programme they refer to, and its examples use them, restated here because they are used before that section is reached:

- the species is allogamous and the product an F1: two heterotic pools, A and B, whose single crosses are the product (A1);
- parent lines fully inbred, by doubled-haploid (DH) induction or by selfing to fixation (A2);
- germplasm recycled only within its own pool, only information crossing the pool boundary (A3);
- cycles discrete, with constant pool sizes and no overlap of generations (A4);
- markers neutral and biallelic, coded $0/0.5/1$ as the within-individual frequency x_{ik} of the reference allele, as in Equation (2.2), and in linkage equilibrium within pool because `simulate_lines()` draws each locus independently (A5);
- the frequency base frozen at the founding cycle (A6);
- no dominance in any diversity metric (A7);
- the teaching scale of `_common.R` (A8).

Neutrality holds in the diversity examples of this chapter because nothing in them selects on a trait. It is not a property of the book's data in general. The combining-ability example of Section 1.1 gives every marker a dominance effect, so there the marker set is the set of quantitative trait loci; and the traits of `simulate_data()` have effects at every marker (Chapter 6.), so wherever the book selects on that index, the markers its metrics read are themselves under selection.

The live examples on the book's simulated lines and hybrids run at the teaching scale: 25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, every A × B single cross formed, pool frequencies drawn by the Balding-Nichols model of Chapter 6.. The two Monte Carlo checks of Equation (1.3) and Equation (1.4) do not use these data and state their own parameters.

```
ctx  <- simulate_data(book_cfg)                # hybrids: X, f; lines: fL
GL   <- simulate_lines(book_cfg) / 2           # the same lines, coded 0/1
pool <- ctx[["pool"]]
fL   <- ctx[["fL"]]
# exact identities: the tolerance is the rounding of a sum over m markers
tol_id <- 2 * ctx[["m"]] * .Machine$double.eps
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(fL, molecular_coancestry(GL), tolerance = tol_id)))
# verification echo: the text reports these values; not a results table
c(lines_A = sum(pool == "A"), lines_B = sum(pool == "B"),
  hybrids = ctx[["N"]], markers = ctx[["m"]])
#> lines_A lines_B hybrids markers
#>      25      25     625    2000
```

1.1 The programme, end to end

Heterotic pools. A hybrid programme maintains two (sometimes more) sets of lines, the heterotic pools or groups, and makes its product by crossing a line of one pool with a line of the other. Lines are not

crossed within a pool to make a product; within a pool they are crossed only to make new lines. The pools are kept apart because the value of an A × B single cross depends on the complementarity of the two parents. Allele-frequency divergence between the pools adds to that value only where it falls on loci with dominance: under neutral divergence expected heterosis does not move (Chapter 5.). How lines come to be assigned to a pool is itself an unsettled empirical question (Chapter 21.); this book takes the assignment as given.

Inbred parent lines. The parents are homozygous lines. Selfing from a non-inbred plant ($F^{(0)} = 0$) raises the inbreeding coefficient after t generations of selfing as $1 - F^{(t)} = (1/2)^t$, because each generation of selfing halves the probability that the two alleles at a locus are not identical by descent [1, ch. 5]; after six generations $F^{(6)} = 0.9844$. The superscript counts generations of the mating system under discussion, here selfings, not filial generations: the filial generation F_{t+1} has inbreeding coefficient $F^{(t)}$. A doubled haploid reaches $F = 1$ in one step: it is a single gamete with its chromosome set doubled. Either route delivers a line with no heterozygous locus, and that fact carries much of the algebra of the book.

The product: the F1 single cross. Because both parents are homozygous, the genotype of the F1 between lines a and b is determined without sampling: at each locus it carries one allele from each parent, and it is heterozygous exactly where the two parents differ (Equation (2.1)). Seed of the same single cross produced in two seasons is genetically the same hybrid. The commercial product carries heterozygosity; neither parent does.

Testing in cross, and combining ability. A line is not worth what it yields on its own; it is worth what its hybrids yield. Lines are therefore evaluated in cross with lines of the opposite pool – either against one or a few fixed **testers** (a testcross, Section 18.3) or in a sparse factorial among the candidates of both pools (Section 18.4). The cross means are read through the partition into general and specific combining ability defined by G. F. Sprague and L. A. Tatum [2], written as a linear model for a factorial between two sets of lines (the North Carolina Design II of R. E. Comstock and H. F. Robinson [3]; the notation g, s is that of B. Griffing [4]),

$$\bar{y}_{ij} = \mu + g_i^A + g_j^B + s_{ij} + \bar{e}_{ij}, \tag{1.1}$$

with $\bar{y}_{ij}$ the mean of hybrid $i \times j$ over its plots, μ the mean of the reference set of crosses, g_i^A the general combining ability (GCA) of pool-A line i (what it carries into every cross it enters), g_j^B that of pool-B line j, s_{ij} the specific combining ability (SCA) of the pair (what depends on which two lines met), and $\bar{e}_{ij}$ the plot error of the mean. Equation (1.1) is the model of Section 18.2, where its estimation is treated.

Both effects are defined **relative to a reference set of crosses**, and so against a tester pool. Section 18.2 writes the GCA of a pool-A line as $\sum_k [a_k + d_k(1 - 2p_{Bk})]\,\delta u_{ik}$, and Section 5.11 derives its dominance part $\sum_k d_k(1 - 2p_{Bk})\,\delta u_{ik}$: an average effect of substitution evaluated at **pool B's** frequencies p_{Bk}, with a_k and d_k the additive effect and the dominance effect at locus k and δu_{ik} line i's centred 0/1 genotype. Without dominance ($d_k \equiv 0$) the GCA of a line is the same against every tester set; with dominance it moves with the testers' frequencies. The chunk takes the dominance part alone, on the book data with every marker treated as a dominance locus and a gamma-distributed d_k (the draw Chapter 5. uses; an illustrative assumption, not an estimate), and computes the GCA of the same 25 pool-A lines against two disjoint halves of pool B.

```
U <- GL[pool == "A", , drop = FALSE]; V <- GL[pool == "B", , drop = FALSE]
set.seed(4)
d <- rgamma(ncol(GL), 2, 4)                       # dominance effects, d_k > 0
half <- seq_len(nrow(V)) <= nrow(V) / 2
g1 <- heterosis_gca_sca(U, V[half, , drop = FALSE],  d)[["gca_A"]]
g2 <- heterosis_gca_sca(U, V[!half, , drop = FALSE], d)[["gca_A"]]
# GCA is the row effect of the complete factorial against those testers
V1 <- V[half, , drop = FALSE]
H1 <- outer(drop(U %*% d), drop(V1 %*% d), "+") - 2 * U %*% (d * t(V1))
gca_err <- max(abs(g1 - (rowMeans(H1) - mean(H1))))
stopifnot(gca_err < 1e-10)
gca_cor  <- cor(g1, g2)
top5_shr <- length(intersect(order(-g1)[seq_len(5)], order(-g2)[seq_len(5)]))
# verification echo: the text reports these values; not a results table
c(correlation = gca_cor, top5_shared = top5_shr)
#> correlation top5_shared
#>   0.8587374   3.0000000
```

Result. Against the first half of pool B (12 lines; the second has 13) the GCA equals the row effect of the factorial to within 3.7×10^{-13}; the correlation between the dominance parts of the GCA computed against the two halves is 0.859, and 3 of the five best lines are the same. Interpretation. Under dominance, the same line, with the same genotype, has a different general combining ability against a different tester set: GCA is then a property of a line against a tester pool, not of the line alone; with $d_k \equiv 0$ it would not depend on the testers. The size of the disagreement here belongs to the dominance part alone ($a_k \equiv 0$), one dominance draw, one seed and testers of 12 and 13 lines, and is not a general estimate. The additive part $\sum_k a_k \, \delta u_{ik}$ is the same against both halves. With additive effects independent of the dominance effects, and the two dominance parts of similar variance (s.d. 5.90 and 5.84 here), it tends over draws of the a_k to raise the correlation. On a single draw it can lower it, because on 25 lines the realised additive part is not orthogonal to the difference between the two dominance parts, so the correlation shown is not a lower bound for the case with additive effects.

The four stages. Chapter 13. divides a cycle of the programme into four stages and measures diversity at each. The names, listed in Table 1.1, are the ones Chapter 13. uses; the chapters of the last column treat the stages, and not all of them use the names. They are not the package's stage 1 and stage 2 (Chapter 6.), which are steps of the data flow, nor the trial stages of Chapter 19., which are steps of field testing.

Table 1.1: The four stages of a cycle of a hybrid programme, what is selected at each, and the chapters of this book that treat it.

Stage	What is selected	Where the book treats it
S1	conserving the heterotic groups (pool level)	Chapter 3., Chapter 13.
S2	choosing parents and crosses for DH induction	Chapter 13.
S3	selecting lines per se	Chapter 13.
S4	hybrid mining	Section 12.1, Chapter 15., Chapter 16., Chapter 17., 3

The selection problem stated in the preface – choose n_{sel} of N candidate hybrids under a diversity budget $\alpha_{\max}$ – is S4. Testing in cross (Equation (1.1)) and genomic prediction (3) supply the predicted values that S4 selects on; which crosses are grown and where is the subject of the Mating and testing design part.

The four stages do not exhaust the cycle. S3 comes before testing in cross: it reduces the DH lines to those that enter crosses, on what a line shows per se, and the value of a line that survives it is then read in cross (Equation (1.1)). Testing in cross, between S3 and S4, and recycling, after S4, are not stages.

Recycling. The lines that prove themselves in cross are intercrossed **within their own pool** to start the next cycle, and new DH lines are derived from those within-pool crosses. Selection information crosses the pool boundary; germplasm does not. A DH derived from an A × B hybrid would carry both pools' alleles and erode their divergence, which pays in heterosis where it falls on loci with dominance (assumption A3 of Section 10.1; Chapter 5.).

On inbred lines this is the scheme R. Kadoumi *et al.* [5] describe as tester-based, or modified, reciprocal recurrent selection: each group of inbreds is the source material for selection within it and provides testers for hybrid selection in the other. They trace it to F. H. Hull [6] and cite R. E. Comstock, H. F. Robinson, and P. H. Harvey [7] for the heterotic structure it builds.

Figure 1.1 draws one cycle. In the book's model of the step from S4 to the next cycle, the parents of the selected hybrids found the next pools, each in proportion to its use, so the choice made at S4 under $\alpha_{\max}$ acts on within-pool diversity in the next cycle. `run_cycles()` in Chapter 23. implements that loop in reduced form: recycling is driven by line usage in the selected hybrids (`line_weights()`, `next_pool()`), but there are no trials and no S3, and the index is known without error (its assumptions C7 and C8).

```
op <- par(mar = c(0, 0, 0, 0)); plot.new(); plot.window(c(0, 100), c(0, 64))
box_ <- function(x, y, w, h, lab, col) {
  rect(x, y, x + w, y + h, col = adjustcolor(col, 0.18), border = col)
  text(x + w / 2, y + h / 2, lab, cex = 0.62, col = book_pal[["ink"]])
}
arr  <- function(x0, y0, x1, y1, ...) arrows(x0, y0, x1, y1, length = 0.06, lwd
= 1.4, ...)
loss <- function(x, y) points(x, y, pch = 25, cex = 0.9,
                              bg = book_pal[["loss"]], col = book_pal[["loss"]])
```

```
for (g in c("A", "B")) {
  y  <- if (g == "A") 44 else 8
  cl <- book_pal[[g]]
  box_(1,  y, 17, 12, paste0("S1\npool ", g, "\ninbred lines"), cl)
  box_(23, y, 19, 12, paste0("S2\ncrosses within ", g, "\nto DH lines"), cl)
  box_(47, y, 15, 12, "S3\nlines\nper se", cl)
  arr(18, y + 6, 23, y + 6, col = cl); arr(42, y + 6, 47, y + 6, col = cl)
  arr(62, y + 6, 67, if (g == "A") 36 else 28, col = cl)
  loss(32.5, y + 13.8); loss(54.5, y + 13.8)
}
box_(67, 24, 13, 16, "A \u00d7 B crosses\nin trials:\ntestcross or\nfactorial\n(GCA,
SCA)",
     book_pal[["mid"]])
box_(85,    24,    14,    16,    "S4\nhybrid\nmining:\nselect    single\ncrosses",
book_pal[["mid"]])
arr(80, 32, 85, 32, col = book_pal[["mid"]]); loss(92, 41.8)
arr(90, 24, 90, 22, col = book_pal[["ink"]])
text(90, 20.5, "commercial F1", cex = 0.62, font = 2)
# recycling leaves S4, within pool only
# dashed shafts; the heads are drawn solid, since arrows() dashes the head too
segments(c(98, 98, 9.5), c(40, 61, 61), c(98, 9.5, 9.5), c(61, 61, 57.2),
         lty = 2, lwd = 1.4, col = book_pal[["A"]])
arr(9.5, 57.2, 9.5, 56, col = book_pal[["A"]])
segments(c(98, 98, 9.5), c(24, 3, 3), c(98, 9.5, 9.5), c(3, 3, 6.8),
         lty = 2, lwd = 1.4, col = book_pal[["B"]])
arr(9.5, 6.8, 9.5, 8, col = book_pal[["B"]])
text(41, 62.6, "recycle selected A lines within pool A (next cycle)", cex = 0.58,
     col = book_pal[["A"]])
text(41, 1.2, "recycle selected B lines within pool B (next cycle)", cex = 0.58,
     col = book_pal[["B"]])
loss(13, 58.5); loss(13, 5.5)
par(op)
```

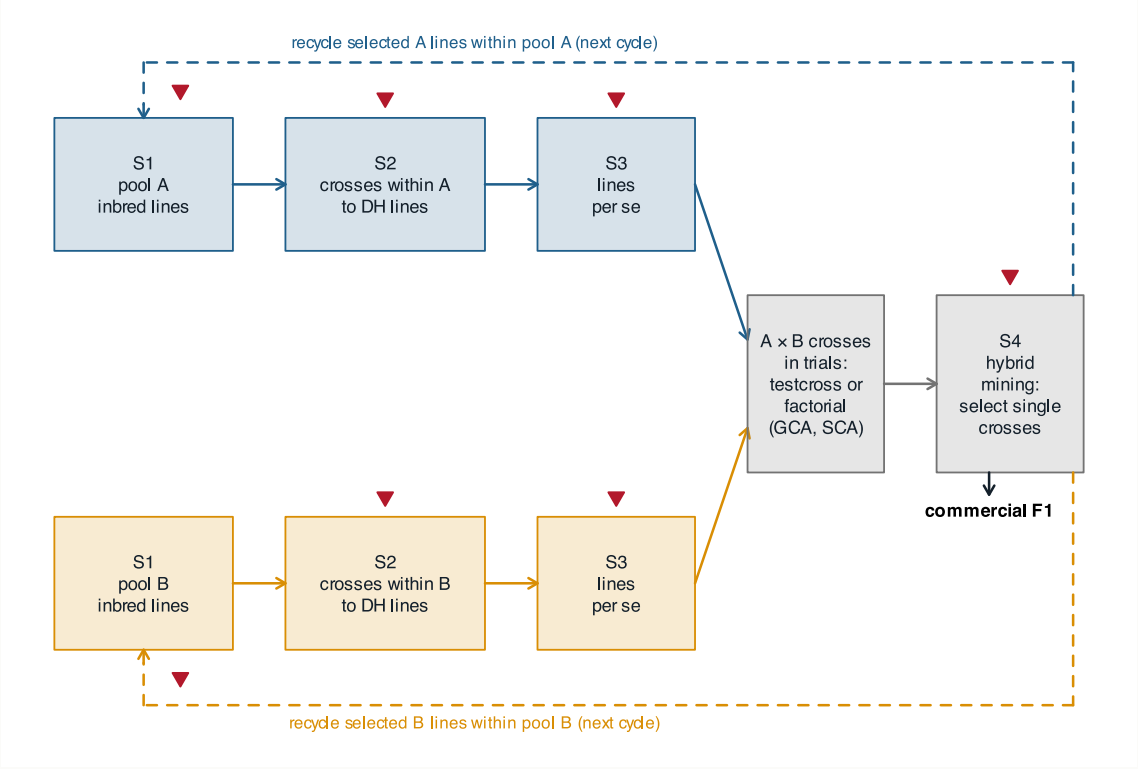

Figure 1.1: One cycle of a two-pool hybrid programme. Blue: pool A; amber: pool B; grey: the stages that act on A × B crosses. S1–S4 are the stages of Chapter 13.. Solid arrows carry lines forward within a cycle; dashed arrows leave S4 and return the parent lines of the selected hybrids to their own pool for the next cycle, so only selection information crosses the pool boundary. Red triangles mark the steps that sample or select, at which diversity can be lost: within a pool at S2, S3 and recycling; at S4 in the selected hybrid set and, through line usage, in the next cycle's pools. A schematic, not a simulation output.

Where diversity can be lost. At every step marked in Figure 1.1 the set passed on is a part of the set received or descends from it, so without mutation the number of alleles can stay the same or fall, never rise. Gene diversity behaves differently. The worked case is S4, where the set received is the N candidate hybrids, not a heterotic pool, and the set passed on is a subset of n_{sel} of them. A subset drawn *at random* has an expected group coancestry θ_S (the mean of all pairwise coancestries in the set, diagonal included; defined in Section 1.2) larger than that of the candidate set by $(1/n_{sel} - 1/N)(\bar{f}_d - \bar{f}_o)$, with $\bar{f}_d$ the candidate set's mean self-coancestry and $\bar{f}_o$ its mean coancestry between distinct members, so its expected gene diversity $GD_S = 1 - \theta_S$ (Equation (1.2)) is lower by the same amount (Section 11.9). A subset *selected* on some criterion carries no such guarantee, and one selected for diversity can exceed the candidate set. The chunk measures both on the book's hybrids, with the diversity-only greedy `sel_greedy(w = 0)` as the selected subset.

```
n_sub   <- 20
gd_cand <- gene_diversity(seq_len(ctx[["N"]]), ctx)   # the candidate set
fd <- mean(diag(ctx[["f"]])); fo <- mean(ctx[["f"]][upper.tri(ctx[["f"]])])
set.seed(5)
gd_rnd  <- replicate(200, gene_diversity(sample.int(ctx[["N"]], n_sub), ctx))
S_div   <- sel_greedy(ctx, n_sub, w = 0)
gd_div  <- gene_diversity(S_div, ctx)
sub_gd  <- c(candidates = gd_cand, random_mean = mean(gd_rnd),
             random_se = sd(gd_rnd) / sqrt(length(gd_rnd)),
             random_expected = gd_cand - (1 / n_sub - 1 / ctx[["N"]]) * (fd - fo),
             random_max = max(gd_rnd), diversity_greedy = gd_div)
stopifnot(abs(sub_gd[["random_mean"]] - sub_gd[["random_expected"]]) <
            3 * sub_gd[["random_se"]],
          sub_gd[["diversity_greedy"]] > sub_gd[["candidates"]])
```

```
# verification echo: the text reports these values; not a results table
fmt(sub_gd, 4)
#>       candidates      random_mean        random_se  random_expected
#>           0.3281           0.3209           0.0001           0.3210
#>       random_max diversity_greedy
#>           0.3251           0.3296
```

Result. The 625 hybrids have GD = 0.3281; 200 random subsets of 20 average 0.3209 (s.e. 0.00013, expected 0.3210), the largest of them 0.3251; the 20 hybrids chosen for diversity alone have 0.3296, above the full candidate set. Interpretation. At S4 a loss of gene diversity in the merged hybrid set is guaranteed only in expectation and only for sampling; selection can move a subset either way, and the comparison that isolates what selection did is against random subsets of the same size, not against the candidate set. That is why the diversity loss $\alpha = (GD_{\text{ref}} - GD_S)/GD_{\text{ref}}$, the quantity the budget $\alpha_{\max}$ bounds, is measured against GD_{ref}, the mean gene diversity of random subsets of the same size (Section 11.9). The subset algebra holds for any finite set, so also for the lines of one pool at S3, but not at S2, where each line is a new gamete; within-pool diversity is not measured in this chunk. The numbers belong to one pair of pools, one subset size and one seed.

At S2 a few crosses are chosen among all within-pool pairs and each DH line is one gamete of its cross; at S3 and S4 lines and hybrids are truncated on merit; at recycling the next cycle is founded by the few lines that won in cross. In the end-to-end simulation of Chapter 13., whose ledger covers S2, S3 and S4 and not recycling, where the largest share of the loss falls depends on how the crosses are chosen at S2: under merit-only cross selection it falls at S2, and with a diversity term added S2 and S4 carry shares that its founder pools do not separate. That result is the simulation's, at its scale, read from a cached table, and is reported there with its conditions.

Between the pools the movement under drift is the opposite. Under drift alone in two closed pools of equal weight, between-pool coancestry is unchanged in expectation while within-pool coancestry rises, so between-pool divergence rises while within-pool diversity falls (Chapter 3.). That argument does not cover selection, and this chapter gives none for a selection target common to both pools, which is what `run_cycles()` applies. There the rise in divergence is a simulation result: the between-pool term of gene diversity (GD_{BS}, defined in Section 1.2) rises in every run of Chapter 23., with drift and selection acting together, so neither is isolated.

Genotyped germplasm gives a less simple picture. Over forty years of a private European dent maize programme, R. Kadoumi *et al.* [5] report F_{ST} between Stiff Stalk (SS) and Non-Stiff Stalk (NSS) lines rising from 0.178 to 0.223, while the mean between-group Hamming distance fell slightly, from 0.430 to 0.420 (-2.33%). Between inbred parents that distance is the heterozygosity of their hybrid on the markers used, the H_o of Section 1.2, so the quantity nearest the product did not rise with F_{ST}. The within-group decline is concentrated in NSS (H_e from 0.371 to 0.279, with SS stable). The authors attribute the main germplasm-wide loss to the merging and homogenisation of the Iodent and Lancaster groups into NSS, so NSS was not a closed pool over that period, and say they can only speculate that selection caused the rise in divergence. J. van Heerwaarden, M. B. Hufford, and J. Ross-Ibarra [8] report increasing separation of breeding pools across the history of North American maize lines, and attribute little of the genome-wide pattern to selection. Neither study establishes drift in closed pools, alone or with selection, as the cause of the divergence it reports. Chapter 21. reads R. Kadoumi *et al.* [5] within its corpus, which begins in 2017 and so excludes J. van Heerwaarden, M. B. Hufford, and J. Ross-Ibarra [8]. A single pool-wide statistic sees the sum of the within-pool and between-pool terms, which is why the book partitions it.

1.2 The population genetics the book assumes

Shared symbols follow 2; those local to this chapter are defined where they appear. p_k is the frequency of the reference allele at marker k in a stated set of individuals, $q_k = 1 - p_k$; p_{Ak}, p_{Bk} are the frequencies among the lines of pool A and pool B, $\bar{p}_k$ a group mean, and $p_{0,k}$ the frozen base frequency of the founding candidate set.

1.2.1 Allele frequency and Hardy-Weinberg proportions

For a set of n individuals with within-individual frequencies x_{ik}, the allele frequency at marker k is $\bar{p}_k = n^{-1} \sum_i x_{ik}$: every individual contributes equally, and a homozygous line contributes one allele identity counted twice. In a large population with random union of gametes and no selection, migration

or mutation, one generation of random mating sets the genotype frequencies to p^2, $2pq$ and q^2, the Hardy-Weinberg proportions [1, ch. 1]. Neither of the two sets a hybrid programme measures is in those proportions. A pool of inbred lines has genotype frequencies p, 0, q; a set of A × B single crosses has every allele from pool A paired with one from pool B, never with another from A. Hardy-Weinberg is used in this book as a reference, the heterozygosity a set *would* have under random union of its gametes, not as a description of any set in it.

1.2.2 Gene diversity, expected and observed heterozygosity

The expected heterozygosity of a set is that Hardy-Weinberg reference, averaged over loci, and with θ_S the group coancestry of set S (the mean of the coancestry submatrix, diagonal included; defined in Section 1.2.3) it is exactly gene diversity:

$$GD_S = 1 - \theta_S = \frac{1}{m}\sum_{k=1}^{m} 2\,\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k = H_e. \tag{1.2}$$

m is the number of markers and $\bar{p}_k$ the frequency in S. H_e is Nei's gene diversity [9] in its plug-in form, without the small-sample correction, on the base of the set's own frequencies; Section 11.2 derives the identity. For a set spanning the two pools, GD_S is the total of the partition of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] and is written GD_T: $GD_T = GD_{WI} + GD_{BI} + GD_{BS}$ (Equation (3.9)), the three terms being diversity within individuals, between individuals within a pool, and between pools. For a set of hybrids the partition is taken over their parent lines, each weighted by its use, so with inbred parents $GD_{WI} = 0$. Observed heterozygosity H_o is the fraction of heterozygous loci actually present, averaged over the individuals of the set. The two coincide in expectation only under Hardy-Weinberg proportions, and the hybrid programme violates them in both directions:

```
pA <- colMeans(GL[pool == "A", , drop = FALSE])
all_h <- seq_len(ctx[["N"]])
gp    <- gd_partition(all_h, ctx)
het <- c(Ho_lines  = mean(GL == 0.5),
         He_pool_A = mean(2 * pA * (1 - pA)),
         Ho_hybrid = mean(ctx[["X"]] == 0.5),
         He_hybrid = he_nei(all_h, ctx),
         GD_hybrid = gene_diversity(all_h, ctx))
stopifnot(het[["Ho_lines"]] == 0,   # coding guard: GL is 0/1 by construction (A2)
          isTRUE(all.equal(het[["He_pool_A"]],
                           1 - mean(fL[pool == "A", pool == "A", drop = FALSE]),
                           tolerance = tol_id)),
             isTRUE(all.equal(het[["GD_hybrid"]], het[["He_hybrid"]], tolerance =
tol_id)),
            isTRUE(all.equal(gene_diversity(S_div, ctx), he_nei(S_div, ctx),    # a
proper subset
                           tolerance = tol_id)),
          isTRUE(all.equal(het[["He_hybrid"]], gp[["GD_T"]], tolerance = tol_id)),
          isTRUE(all.equal(het[["Ho_hybrid"]], gp[["GD_T"]] + gp[["GD_BS"]],
                           tolerance = tol_id)),
          abs(gp[["GD_WI"]]) < tol_id)                # inbred parents
# verification echo: the text reports these values; not a results table
fmt(het, 4)
#>  Ho_lines He_pool_A Ho_hybrid He_hybrid GD_hybrid
#>    0.0000    0.2953    0.3617    0.3281    0.3281
```

Result. The lines are heterozygous at no locus, by construction (A2: they are coded 0/1; the assertion guards the coding, it measures nothing), while pool A's expected heterozygosity is 0.295, equal to one minus pool A's group coancestry. Over all 625 hybrids, $1 - \theta_S$ equals H_e (Equation (1.2)), and the observed heterozygosity 0.362 exceeds the expected 0.328 by exactly GD_{BS} = 0.0336, the between-pool term of the partition of Chapter 3.. Interpretation. In inbred lines observed heterozygosity is a purity check and carries no information on diversity; in the hybrids it exceeds the Hardy-Weinberg reference by the divergence between the pools. That excess is the identity $H_o = GD_T + GD_{BS}$, derived as Equation (5.7) in Section 5.5 (Section 5.4 gives the per-locus expectation, Equation (5.5)), which holds for the complete factorial; the decomposition is exact, the magnitudes are those of one simulated pool pair.

1.2.3 Identity by descent, identity in state, coancestry

Two alleles are **identical by descent** (IBD) if both are copies of one allele in a defined base population; they are **identical in state** (IBS) if they are the same allele, whatever their origin. IBD is defined only relative to a base: change the base and the probabilities change. Markers observe state, not descent.

The **coancestry** of individuals i and j is the probability that an allele drawn at random from i and one drawn at random from j, at the same locus, are IBD [11]. Computed from a pedigree it is $A_{ij}/2$, half the pedigree relationship, relative to the pedigree's base; the inbreeding coefficient of a progeny of $i \times j$ equals the coancestry of its parents [1, ch. 5]. Replacing IBD by IBS gives the molecular coancestry f_{ij} of Equation (2.5), whose matrix $\mathbf{f}$ the coancestry-based metrics of the book are computed on [10]; frequency-based metrics such as F_{drift} are not. The two are related. Let the alleles that are not IBD be independent draws from the frequencies $p_{b,k}$, $q_{b,k} = 1 - p_{b,k}$ of the pedigree's base (no mutation, neutral loci), which need not be the frozen $p_{0,k}$. Then two alleles are IBS either because they are IBD or, failing that, by chance, and in expectation over Mendelian sampling and loci

$$\mathbb{E}[f_{ij}] = \frac{A_{ij}}{2} + \left(1 - \frac{A_{ij}}{2}\right) \frac{1}{m} \sum_{k=1}^{m} \left(p_{b,k}^2 + q_{b,k}^2\right), \tag{1.3}$$

the form H. Eding and T. H. E. Meuwissen [12] use to estimate kinship from marker similarity. The chunk checks Equation (1.3) on full sibs ($A_{ij}/2 = 1/4$) and on unrelated individuals ($A_{ij} = 0$): each replicate draws two parents in Hardy-Weinberg proportions from a base with uniform $p_{b,k}$, breeds two full sibs from them, and uses the two parents themselves as the unrelated pair, at unlinked loci.

```
m_ibs <- 2000; n_pair <- 200; pb_lim <- c(0.05, 0.95)
set.seed(21)
p_b <- runif(m_ibs, pb_lim[1], pb_lim[2])              # base frequencies p_{b,k}
ibs_base <- mean(p_b^2 + (1 - p_b)^2)
dip <- function() (rbinom(m_ibs, 1, p_b) + rbinom(m_ibs, 1, p_b)) / 2   # 0/0.5/1
gam <- function(g) ifelse(g == 0.5, rbinom(m_ibs, 1, 0.5), g)        # one gamete
f_fs <- f_un <- numeric(n_pair)
for (r in seq_len(n_pair)) {
  mo <- dip(); fa <- dip()
  o1 <- (gam(mo) + gam(fa)) / 2; o2 <- (gam(mo) + gam(fa)) / 2
  f_fs[r] <- molecular_coancestry(rbind(o1, o2))[1, 2]
  f_un[r] <- molecular_coancestry(rbind(mo, fa))[1, 2]
}
ibs <- c(full_sib = mean(f_fs), full_sib_se = sd(f_fs) / sqrt(n_pair),
         full_sib_expected = 1/4 + 3/4 * ibs_base,
         unrelated = mean(f_un), unrelated_se = sd(f_un) / sqrt(n_pair),
         unrelated_expected = ibs_base)
stopifnot(abs(ibs[["full_sib"]]    -    ibs[["full_sib_expected"]])    <    3    *
ibs[["full_sib_se"]],
                  abs(ibs[["unrelated"]]  -  ibs[["unrelated_expected"]])  <  3  *
ibs[["unrelated_se"]]))
# verification echo: the text reports these values; not a results table
fmt(ibs, 4)
#>           full_sib        full_sib_se  full_sib_expected          unrelated
#>             0.7264             0.0004             0.7264             0.6351
#>       unrelated_se unrelated_expected
#>             0.0004             0.6352
```

Result. Over 200 replicates, 2000 loci and $p_{b,k} \sim U(0.05, 0.95)$, the mean molecular coancestry of full sibs is 0.7264 (s.e. 0.00039) against 0.7264 from Equation (1.3), and that of unrelated pairs 0.6351 against 0.6352. Interpretation. Rearranged, Equation (1.3) says that molecular coancestry is the floor $m^{-1} \sum_k (p_{b,k}^2 + q_{b,k}^2)$ set by the base frequencies plus the pedigree coancestry $A_{ij}/2$ scaled by one minus that floor, not plus the pedigree coancestry itself. Full sibs are therefore expected to exceed unrelated pairs by one quarter of one minus the floor, 0.0912, not by $1/4$, and unrelated individuals do not have $f_{ij} = 0$ but f_{ij} near the floor. That is why $\mathbf{f}$ is read as a comparison between sets measured on the same markers, and why it is never centred to make that floor vanish (Section 2.2, Section 2.3). The agreement is a Monte Carlo one, under unlinked loci and a known base, from one seed.

The diagonal of $\mathbf{f}$ is the **self-coancestry** $s_i = f_{ii}$, the probability that two alleles drawn with replacement from i are identical: $s_i = (1 + F_i)/2$ (F_i the inbreeding coefficient of 1), which is 1 for an inbred line and 0.5 for an individual heterozygous at every marker (Section 2.3). **Group coancestry** θ_S is the mean of all f_{ij} over pairs in S, the diagonal included [13]; including the diagonal is what makes Equation (1.2) exact.

1.2.4 The inbreeding coefficient, and the quantities that share its letter

The **inbreeding coefficient** F_i of an individual is the probability that its two alleles at a locus are IBD; S. Wright [14] introduced it as the correlation between uniting gametes. Its molecular counterpart in this book is the fraction of markers at which i is homozygous. For a single cross the molecular F_i is exactly the molecular coancestry of its two parent lines, $F_{(ab)} = f^L_{ab}$, because two homozygous lines agree in state exactly where their F1 is homozygous:

```
F_hyb <- rowMeans(ctx[["X"]] != 0.5)
ped   <- ctx[["ped"]]
lw    <- line_weights(S_div, ctx)
w     <- (lw[["A"]] + lw[["B"]]) / 2                # usage of each line in S_div
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(F_hyb,  fL[cbind(ped[["a"]],  ped[["b"]])],  tolerance =
tol_id)),
          # s_i = (1 + F_i) / 2
          isTRUE(all.equal(diag(ctx[["f"]]), (1 + F_hyb) / 2, tolerance = tol_id)),
          # theta_S as a quadratic form in line usage
          isTRUE(all.equal(mean(ctx[["f"]][S_div, S_div, drop = FALSE]),
                           drop(crossprod(w, fL %*% w)), tolerance = tol_id)))
# verification echo: the text reports these values; not a results table
c(max_abs_diff = max(abs(F_hyb - fL[cbind(ped[["a"]], ped[["b"]])])))
#> max_abs_diff
#>            0
```

With inbred parents, individual F carries no management information: it is 1 for every line by construction (A2 of Section 10.1), and for a hybrid it is a property of the pair of parents, already in $\mathbf{f}^L$. Other quantities share the letter and are not the same thing:

- F_{drift} (Chapter 10.) is a property of a set *against the frozen base*: the standardised squared change of allele frequencies from $p_{0,k}$, averaged over markers [15]. It is never negative. F_{hom}, its homozygosity-lens companion, is the proportional loss of expected heterozygosity against the same base and can be negative. The book computes both on the merged frequencies of a hybrid set, a notional pool, so F_{hom} reads the H_e of that pool, not the heterozygosity H_o of the product, and applies them to trajectories across cycles and to single selections alike.
- F_{ST} is a property of a set of subpopulations *at one time*: here, as in Chapter 3., GD_{BS}/GD_T, the between-pool share of gene diversity [10, Eq. 8]. Chapter 13. names that form G_{ST}, after M. Nei [9], and also logs $(\theta_w - \theta_{AB})/(1 - \theta_{AB})$, with θ_w and θ_{AB} the mean within-pool and between-pool coancestry, under the name F_{ST}. The two are different quantities, the second near twice the first, and a value of one is never read against the other.
- F_{BN}, `fst` in the code, is the Balding-Nichols parameter with which the simulations draw the two pools' frequencies [16]. It is a setting of the simulation, not a statistic computed on it, and 2 shows that the two differ.

1.2.5 Drift and effective size

In a finite population, the allele copies passed to the next generation are a sample of those present, so allele frequencies change by chance alone. This is **drift**. Let n_{gam} be the number of allele copies sampled per generation, drawn independently from the current frequencies, with discrete generations (A4) and no selection, mutation or migration. Then expected heterozygosity decays geometrically,

$$\mathbb{E}[H_t] = H_0 \left(1 - \frac{1}{n_{gam}}\right)^t, \qquad \Delta F = \frac{1}{n_{gam}}, \qquad N_e = \frac{1}{2\Delta F}, \tag{1.4}$$

with H_t the expected heterozygosity $m^{-1}\sum_k 2p_kq_k$ of the set at generation t, on that generation's frequencies, ΔF the fraction of it lost per generation, and N_e the **effective size**: the number of individuals

of an idealised random-mating diploid population, which passes $n_{gam} = 2N_e$ copies, that would drift at the same rate [1, ch. 3–4]. In a random-mating population ΔF is the per-generation rate of inbreeding, $(\bar{F}^{(t)} - \bar{F}^{(t-1)})/(1 - \bar{F}^{(t-1)})$, with $\bar{F}^{(t)}$ the mean inbreeding coefficient after t generations of random mating. In a pool of DH lines that ratio is $0/0$, because $F_i = 1$ for every line. There ΔF is a different object, the rate of rise of the pool's group coancestry θ_t, $(\mathbb{E}[\theta_{t+1} \mid \theta_t] - \theta_t)/(1 - \theta_t)$, which by Equation (1.2) is the same fraction of H_t.

In a hybrid programme the sampling unit matters by a factor of two. A crossing block of n plants, each offspring formed from two parents drawn at random from all n with selfing allowed, passes $2n$ allele copies per locus ($N_e = n$); excluding selfing slows the decay slightly, so without selfing $N_e = n$ is an approximation. A pool re-derived as n DH lines, each one gamete of a random pair of parents, passes n, one per line ($N_e = n/2$), because a homozygous line contributes a single allele identity (Section 10.7.4). The chunk simulates the three schemes on individuals, from founders with $p = 0.5$ at every unlinked locus: each generation one draw of parents serves all loci, and gametes are formed from the parents' two haplotypes. The copy counts $2n$ and n are not supplied; they follow from who is crossed. Loci of one pedigree share its parents, so the pedigree is the replicate and standard errors are taken across pedigrees. Without selfing the two gametes of a plant come from distinct parents, so the copies are not independent draws and Equation (1.4) does not apply; the expected value there comes from the coancestry recursion in the chunk.

```
n_ped <- 1000; m_dr <- 200; t_gen <- 10; n_plants <- 10    # n_plants even: p =
0.5 exactly
gamete <- function(h1, h2) {                    # one per row, loci unlinked
  from_h2 <- runif(length(h1)) < 0.5
  h1[from_h2] <- h2[from_h2]
  h1
}
retained <- function(scheme, n = n_plants) {   # H_t / H_0 of one pedigree
  dh <- scheme == "DH_pool"
  h1 <- matrix(if (dh) rep(0:1, length.out = n) else 0L, n, m_dr)
  h2 <- if (dh) h1 else 1L - h1              # block founders: heterozygous throughout
  for (t in seq_len(t_gen)) {
    a <- sample.int(n, n, replace = TRUE)
    b <- if (scheme == "block_selfing") sample.int(n, n, replace = TRUE)
         else (a + sample.int(n - 1, n, replace = TRUE) - 1) %% n + 1   # any but a
    if (dh) {                                   # a new line: one gamete of the F1 a
x b
      h1 <- h2 <- gamete(h1[a, , drop = FALSE], h1[b, , drop = FALSE])
    } else {
      g_a <- gamete(h1[a, , drop = FALSE], h2[a, , drop = FALSE])
      h2  <- gamete(h1[b, , drop = FALSE], h2[b, , drop = FALSE])
      h1  <- g_a
    }
  }
  p <- colMeans(h1 + h2) / 2
  mean(2 * p * (1 - p)) / 0.5
}
pedigrees <- function(scheme) {
  vapply(seq_len(n_ped), function(r) retained(scheme), numeric(1))
}
# No selfing: on the scale 2 P(IBS) - 1 at p = 0.5, with c_t the coancestry of distinct
# plants and within_t the correlation of the two alleles of a plant (it can be -1):
# c_{t+1} = (1 - 1/n) c_t + (1 + within_t) / (2n), within_t = c_{t-1}, H_t / H_0 =
1 - c_{t+1}.
# Heterozygous founders: within_0 = -1, c_0 = 0.
c_t <- c(-1, 0)
for (t in seq_len(t_gen + 1)) {
  c_t <- c(c_t[2], (1 - 1 / n_plants) * c_t[2] + (1 + c_t[1]) / (2 * n_plants))
}
set.seed(11); r_self   <- pedigrees("block_selfing")
set.seed(12); r_noself <- pedigrees("block_no_selfing")
set.seed(13); r_dh     <- pedigrees("DH_pool")
```

```
dr_row <- function(r, expected) {
  c(simulated = mean(r), se = sd(r) / sqrt(n_ped), expected = expected)
}
dr <- rbind(block_selfing    = dr_row(r_self, (1 - 1 / (2 * n_plants))^t_gen),
            block_no_selfing = dr_row(r_noself, 1 - c_t[2]),
            DH_pool          = dr_row(r_dh, (1 - 1 / n_plants)^t_gen))
stopifnot(all(abs(dr[, "simulated"] - dr[, "expected"]) < 3 * dr[, "se"]),
          dr["block_no_selfing", "simulated"] > dr["block_selfing", "simulated"])
# verification echo: the text reports these values; not a results table
round(dr, 4)
#>                  simulated     se expected
#> block_selfing       0.5971 0.0014   0.5987
#> block_no_selfing    0.6116 0.0012   0.6131
#> DH_pool             0.3458 0.0018   0.3487
```

Result. Over 1,000 pedigrees of 200 loci, after 10 generations, a crossing block of 10 plants retains 0.597 of its heterozygosity (expected 0.599), the same block without selfing 0.612 (expected 0.613), and a pool of 10 DH lines 0.346 (expected 0.349), each within three standard errors. Interpretation. Under neutrality the same number of parents drifts twice as fast when the next generation is a set of DH lines, and excluding selfing moves the block far less than that. Selection is outside Equation (1.4), and this chapter does not measure what it does to the rate. Chapter 23. fits rates across cycles, but every arm there is selected and its F_{drift} is taken on merged hybrid frequencies, a different level from Equation (1.4), so those rates are not read against the values here; Section 10.7.4 shows how to read ΔF off a trajectory. N_e is a size defined by a rate, $N_e = 1/(2\Delta F)$ in Equation (1.4), and so projects drift forward. The status number $N_s = 1/(2\theta_S)$ of Section 11.3 is a static description of one set and does not project drift. On molecular $\mathbf{f}$ it is not a head count either: at biallelic loci $\theta_S = m^{-1}\sum_k(\bar{p}_k^2 + \bar{q}_k^2) \in [1/2, 1]$, so $N_s \in [1/2, 1]$ whatever the size of the set, a monotone decreasing rescaling of θ_S.

1.3 Why the animal-breeding setting does not transfer directly

Most theory for managing diversity under selection – optimal contributions [17], the rate of inbreeding as the managed quantity, the comparison of relationship matrices [15] – was developed for a randomly mating population of non-inbred individuals in which the selection candidate is an individual. A hybrid programme departs from that in three ways, each stated in the preface and each made precise elsewhere:

1. **Parents are inbred.** Within-individual diversity of a parent is zero, so $GD_{WI} = 0$ exactly and individual F is uninformative; the managed quantity is an allele frequency in a pool (Chapter 3., and A2 of Section 10.1).
2. **The population is permanently subdivided, and the subdivision is part of the product.** Between-pool divergence GD_{BS} is to be maintained, not minimised as a symptom of drift; what it buys, and the conditions under which it buys nothing, are derived in Chapter 5..
3. **Candidates are crosses of fixed lines.** The coancestry of a set of single crosses is a quadratic form in how often each parent line is used, so the hybrid-by-hybrid matrix is never needed (Section 12.1).

Chapter 21. sets these differences against what the applied plant literature does, and Section 10.9 lists which assumptions of the simulation of T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] fail in a hybrid crop.

1.4 A reading map

Table 1.2 pairs each question the book answers with the part and the chapters that answer it.

Table 1.2: Reading map: the questions the book answers, the part of the book in which each is answered, and the chapters that answer it, in reading order.

Question	Part	Where
How is diversity measured, and why on $\mathbf{f}$ and not $\mathbf{G}$?	Foundations	Chapter 2.
How does diversity split within and between pools?	Foundations	Chapter 3.
What does diversity buy in response to selection, and in heterosis?	Foundations	Chapter 4., Chapter 5.
How are candidate lines and pools generated, and how large must a segregating population be?	Simulation	Chapter 6., Chapter 7., Chapter 8., Chapter 9.
Which metrics to compute, against which baseline, at which stage, and how is the index predicted?	Metrics and prediction	Chapter 10., Chapter 11., Chapter 12., Chapter 13., 3
How does the diversity budget enter an optimiser, and which optimiser?	Optimisation	Chapter 15., Chapter 16., Chapter 17.
Which crosses to grow, and in which locations?	Mating and testing design	Chapter 18., Chapter 19., Chapter 20.
What does the literature establish, what does a whole programme spend across cycles (Chapter 22. is an inbred-line scheme, outside A1; Chapter 23. the two-pool one), and how does one run end to end?	Evidence and practice	Chapter 21., Chapter 22., Chapter 23., Chapter 24., Chapter 25.

The Preface tabulates the same order, one sentence per part. 2 collects the book's shared symbols and, where a function computes one, that function.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **00-hybrid-programme.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

II Foundations

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3 Diversity in a subdivided population 43

4 Response to selection: the other half of the objective 61

5 Heterosis, dominance, and what divergence buys 75

2. Coancestry, and the two matrices

Section 1.2 has already defined, in words and with the identities the book leans on, identity by descent and by state, coancestry, the self-coancestry s_i, the molecular inbreeding coefficient F_i and gene diversity $GD_S = 1 - \theta_S$, and it points here for the equations (Equation (2.2), Equation (2.1), Equation (2.5)). This chapter supplies that computation and the contrast that justifies it. The lines are inbred, as in assumption A2 of Chapter 1., and markers are biallelic.

Two matrices are built from the same marker data and they are not interchangeable. One predicts traits. The other measures diversity. Using the first for the second fails silently: it returns a number, and for the whole population that number is not a coancestry (Section 2.2). This chapter builds both, shows the failure, and defines in full the matrix used for diversity in the rest of the book. Where a conclusion rests on a published comparison of the two kinds of matrix, the source is cited with what it does and does not say.

2.1 From line to hybrid

Let $\mathbf{M}^L$ be the $L \times m$ matrix of line genotypes (L lines, m markers), with $M^L_{ik} \in \{0, 2\}$ the count of the reference allele at marker k. Inbred lines are homozygous, so the value 1 never occurs – residual heterozygotes must be imputed or discarded beforehand.

The F1 hybrid between lines a and b – the product of the cycle laid out in Section 1.1 – receives one gamete from each parent. Since both parents are homozygous, the gamete from a carries $M^L_{ak}/2$ copies of the reference allele, so the row of the hybrid dosage matrix $\mathbf{M}^H$ (one row per hybrid, m columns) for the cross (ab) is

$$M^H_{(ab)k} = \frac{M^L_{ak} + M^L_{bk}}{2} \in \{0, 1, 2\}. \tag{2.1}$$

The value 1 appears exactly at markers where the two lines differ. Those are the hybrid's heterozygous loci. In the absence of epistasis, the heterosis of an F1 between two inbred lines (F1 minus mid-parent) is the sum of the dominance effects d_k, the departure of the heterozygote from the homozygote midpoint at locus k, over exactly these loci [1, , ch. 14]; Chapter 5. develops that model (Equation (5.3) there).

Predicting the hybrid's *genotype* is deterministic, not statistical. Given the homozygous parents declared above, it requires no further assumption – unlike its phenotype, which requires a great many.

From here on we work with the **within-individual reference-allele frequency**,

$$x_{ik} = \frac{M^H_{ik}}{2} \in \{0{,}0.5{,}1\}, \tag{2.2}$$

collected for the N hybrids in the $N \times m$ hybrid marker matrix $\mathbf{X} = \mathbf{M}^H/2$ (rows hybrids, columns markers). It is the natural quantity for coancestry: it is the probability that an allele drawn at random from individual i at marker k is the reference allele.

```
ctx <- simulate_data(book_cfg)
ctx[["X"]][1:4, 1:8]
#>      [,1] [,2] [,3] [,4] [,5] [,6] [,7] [,8]
#> [1,]  0.5  0.5  0.5    1    0    1  0.5  0.5
#> [2,]  0.5  0.0  0.0    1    0    1  1.0  0.0
#> [3,]  0.0  0.0  0.5    1    0    1  1.0  0.5
#> [4,]  0.0  0.0  0.0    1    0    1  1.0  0.5
```

Rows are hybrids, columns markers. A 0.5 is a heterozygous locus. The data are the teaching scale (A8, Chapter 1.): 25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, 625 hybrids; every number of this chapter that says "the book data" is computed on them.

2.2 The VanRaden matrix, and why it cannot measure diversity

With p_k the reference-allele frequency in the hybrid population, $\mathbf{1}$ a vector of ones of conforming length (N for $\mathbf{1}\,2\mathbf{p}'$ and for $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{1}$ below), and $\mathbf{Z} = \mathbf{M}^H - \mathbf{1}\,2\mathbf{p}'$ the centered matrix,

$$\mathbf{G} = \frac{\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}'}{2\sum_k p_k(1-p_k)}. \tag{2.3}$$

This is VanRaden's first parametrisation [18]. It estimates realised additive relationship and it is the right matrix for genomic best linear unbiased prediction (GBLUP). It is implemented as `vanraden_G()`, which takes the 0/1/2 dosage matrix $\mathbf{M}^H$, not the 0/0.5/1 matrix $\mathbf{X}$ that `molecular_coancestry()` takes, and returns a list holding $\mathbf{G}$, $\mathbf{Z}$ and $\mathbf{p}$:

```
args(vanraden_G)
#> function (M)
#> NULL
```

Now the failure. Centering on $2\mathbf{p}$ uses frequencies from the population itself, so every column of $\mathbf{Z}$ sums to zero:

$$\mathbf{Z}'\mathbf{1} = \mathbf{0} \quad \Rightarrow \quad \mathbf{1}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{1} = \frac{\|\mathbf{Z}'\mathbf{1}\|^2}{2\sum_k p_k(1-p_k)} = 0. \tag{2.4}$$

The sum of **all** elements of $\mathbf{G}$ is identically zero. The group coancestry θ_S of a set S of n individuals, the mean of all n^2 entries of $\mathbf{f}$ over S with the diagonal included (Section 1.2.3), is $\theta_S = n^{-2}\,\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{f}_{SS}\mathbf{1}$, with $\mathbf{f}$ the matrix of Section 2.3. $\mathbf{G}$ is on the relationship scale, twice a coancestry, so substituting it gives $\theta_S = (2n^2)^{-1}\,\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{G}_{SS}\mathbf{1}$ (`theta_S_on_G` in Table 2.1, for S the whole population). That is zero, and the status number $N_s = 1/(2\theta_S)$ [19] diverges on $\mathbf{G}$. On $\mathbf{f}$ it does not diverge, but it is not a head count either: at biallelic loci $\theta_S \in [1/2, 1]$ and so $N_s \in [1/2, 1]$ for every set (Section 11.3), a monotone rescaling of θ_S:

```
G <- ctx[["G"]]
g_sums <- c(sum_G        = sum(G),
            theta_S_on_G = mean(G) / 2,
            Ns_on_G      = 1 / (2 * mean(G) / 2),
            min_G        = min(G))
knitr::kable(data.frame(Quantity = names(g_sums),
                        Value = vapply(g_sums, format, "", digits = 4)),
             row.names = FALSE, align = "lr")
N <- nrow(G)
stopifnot(abs(sum(G)) < 1e-6 * N^2)            # 1'G1 = 0 up to round-off
```

Table 2.1: Quantities computed on the VanRaden matrix $\mathbf{G}$ of the whole population: total sum, θ_S and N_s obtained by substituting $\mathbf{G}$ for $\mathbf{f}$, and the smallest element of $\mathbf{G}$. Values to four significant digits.

Quantity	Value
sum_G	−4.179e-11
theta_S_on_G	−5.348e-17
Ns_on_G	−9.349e+15
min_G	−0.1389

The sum is zero in exact arithmetic. The `sum_G` of Table 2.1 is floating-point residue, and `Ns_on_G` is the reciprocal of that residue: its magnitude and sign carry no information about the data. The zero itself is not a rounding artefact to be worked around; it is what centering means.

On $\mathbf{f}$ the same quantity is finite and inside the stated interval, for the whole population and for random subsets (Table 2.2):

```
Ns_all <- status_number(seq_len(N), ctx)
set.seed(3)
```

```
Ns_sub <- vapply(seq_len(1000), function(r)
  status_number(sample(N, sample(2:N, 1)), ctx), numeric(1))
Ns_tab <- fmt(c(Ns_all = Ns_all, min_Ns_subsets = min(Ns_sub), max_Ns_subsets =
max(Ns_sub)))
knitr::kable(data.frame(Quantity = names(Ns_tab), Value = unname(Ns_tab)),
             row.names = FALSE, align = "lr")
stopifnot(Ns_all >= 0.5, Ns_all <= 1, Ns_sub >= 0.5, Ns_sub <= 1)
```

Table 2.2: Status number $N_s = 1/(2\theta_S)$ computed on $\mathbf{f}$: the whole population, and the smallest and largest value over 1000 random subsets of random size.

Quantity	Value
Ns_all	0.7442
min_Ns_subsets	0.6943
max_Ns_subsets	0.7445

In a *subset* S of size n the sum is not zero. Because $\mathbf{G}$ is a Gram matrix, $\mathbf{1}_S'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{1}_S = \|\mathbf{Z}'\mathbf{1}_S\|^2/(2\sum_k p_k(1-p_k)) \geq 0$, with $\mathbf{1}_S$ the indicator vector of S, so a subset sum is never negative, even though individual off-diagonal elements are (`min_G` in Table 2.1). For S drawn at random without replacement from the N hybrids, the finite-population sampling variance of a total gives $\mathrm{E}[\mathbf{1}_S'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{1}_S] = n\,\frac{N-n}{N-1}\,\overline{G}_{ii}$, with $\overline{G}_{ii}$ the mean diagonal: the factor $n(N-n)/(N-1)$ is not a function of n/N alone, and the expectation returns to zero at $n = N$. It is n^2 times the scaled squared distance between the mean of the subset's centred genotypes and the population centroid, which is the point that fixed $\mathbf{p}$. It is therefore a well-defined distance, but it measures the subset against the sample's own frequencies and is not a coancestry of the subset (Table 2.3 checks the expectation by Monte Carlo at a fixed n).

```
set.seed(1)
S_sum <- vapply(seq_len(1000), function(r) {
  S <- sample(N, sample(2:(N - 1), 1))
  sum(G[S, S, drop = FALSE])
}, numeric(1))
stopifnot(min(S_sum) > -1e-8)                  # Gram matrix: 1_S'G1_S >= 0

# E[1_S'G1_S] = n (N - n)/(N - 1) mean(diag G), at fixed n = 100: Monte Carlo
n100 <- 100
set.seed(11)
S100 <- vapply(seq_len(20000), function(r) {
  S <- sample(N, n100)
  sum(G[S, S, drop = FALSE])
}, numeric(1))
E100 <- n100 * (N - n100) / (N - 1) * mean(diag(G))
se100 <- sd(S100) / sqrt(length(S100))
mc_tab <- fmt(c(mean_MC = mean(S100), formula = E100, se = se100))
knitr::kable(data.frame(Quantity = names(mc_tab), Value = unname(mc_tab)),
             row.names = FALSE, align = "lr")
stopifnot(abs(mean(S100) - E100) < 4 * se100)
# the same expectation in closed form, exact given sum(G) = 0
E100_exact <- n100 * mean(diag(G)) +
  n100 * (n100 - 1) * (sum(G) - sum(diag(G))) / (N * (N - 1))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(E100_exact, E100, tolerance = 1e-12)))
```

Table 2.3: Expected $\mathbf{1}_S'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{1}_S$ for a random subset of fixed size $n = 100$: Monte Carlo mean over 20000 draws, the formula $n, (N-n)/(N-1), \overline{G}_{ii}$, and the Monte Carlo standard error.

Quantity	Value
mean_MC	75.7129
formula	75.5192
se	0.1065

⚠ The root cause is the implicit base population

G measures relatedness *relative to the current population*: its centering constant $2\mathbf{p}$ is estimated from the individuals being measured, so the reference moves with the set. The diversity of a set needs a reference that does not depend on that set. Any matrix whose centering constant is estimated from the same data whose diversity you are measuring will have this problem, whatever it is called. The reference that **f** uses is of a different kind, and Section 2.3 states what it is and what it is not.

2.3 Molecular coancestry

Malécot's coancestry [11] between i and j is the probability that two alleles, one drawn from each individual at the same locus, are identical by descent relative to a base population (Section 1.2.3). Replacing identity *by descent* with identity *by state* – which is what markers actually observe – yields molecular coancestry [10, p. 292]:

$$f_{ij} = \frac{1}{m}\sum_{k=1}^{m}\Big[x_{ik}\,x_{jk} + (1-x_{ik})(1-x_{jk})\Big]\,. \tag{2.5}$$

The first term is the probability that both sampled alleles are the reference allele; the second, that both are the alternative. Three properties follow immediately:

- $f_{ij} \in [0,1]$ always. **A negative value is a symptom of the wrong matrix.**
- Self-coancestry, the diagonal element of **f**, is $s_i = f_{ii} = (1+F_i)/2$ (Section 1.2.3), with F_i the molecular inbreeding coefficient of
  1. What this chapter adds is that F_i is numerically the fraction of markers at which i is homozygous, which the chunk below checks; it is an individual quantity, not the population-level F_{hom} of
  2. For a fully heterozygous F1, $s_i = 0.5$.
- No centering and no scaling: no constant in **f** is estimated from the set being measured. This is not the same as having no reference, as the paragraph "What the scale of **f** is" below states.

What the scale of f is. f_{ij} is identity in state, not an unbiased estimate of the identity-by-descent coancestry. A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10, p. 292] state that molecular and pedigree coancestry give the same result only if the base population has "an infinite number of loci ... with all the alleles in each locus being different", which biallelic markers cannot satisfy; H. Eding and T. H. E. Meuwissen [12] report in their abstract a bias from alleles alike in state in the founder population. Under the assumptions declared in Section 1.2.3 for Equation (1.3) (neutral, unlinked loci, no mutation, a base population with allele frequencies $p_{b,k}$), $\mathbb{E}[f_{ij}]$ is the pedigree coancestry $A_{ij}/2$ plus $(1 - A_{ij}/2)$ times the base-population floor $m^{-1}\sum_k (p_{b,k}^2 + q_{b,k}^2) \geq 1/2$. Unrelated individuals are therefore not expected at 0, and the minimum of **f** (Table 2.4), above 0.5 for the book data, is consistent with that; the level of **f** is set by the allele frequencies of the marker panel: the same individuals scored on another panel have another mean **f**. This is why, as in Section 1.2.3, **f** is read as a comparison between sets measured on the same markers, and is not an absolute coancestry. What the construction avoids is a reference estimated from the set that is being compared, which is the failure of Section 2.2.

2.3.1 Computable form

Computed literally, with interpreted loops over pairs and markers, the double sum of Equation (2.5) costs $O(n^2 m)$ scalar operations. Expanding,

$$\sum_k \left[\, x_{ik}x_{jk} + (1-x_{ik})(1-x_{jk})\right] = 2\sum_k x_{ik}x_{jk} - \sum_k x_{ik} - \sum_k x_{jk} + m, \tag{2.6}$$

so, in matrix form,

$$\mathbf{f} = \frac{1}{m}\left(\, 2\,\mathbf{X}\mathbf{X}' - \mathbf{X}\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}' - \mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{X}' + m\,\mathbf{J}\,\right), \tag{2.7}$$

with $\mathbf{1}$ a vector of ones of conforming length (m or N) and $\mathbf{J} = \mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}'$ the $N \times N$ matrix of ones. This is a single matrix product. It is still $O(n^2 m)$ – the same order and cost as building $\mathbf{G}$ – and the gain over the literal sum is the constant factor of an optimised Basic Linear Algebra Subprograms (BLAS) product, not a lower order.

```
cat(deparse(molecular_coancestry), sep = "\n")
#> function (X)
#> {
#>     m <- ncol(X)
#>     s <- rowSums(X)
#>     f <- (2 * tcrossprod(X) - outer(s, rep(1, nrow(X))) - outer(rep(1,
#>         nrow(X)), s) + m)/m
#>     dimnames(f) <- NULL
#>     f
#> }
```

```
f <- ctx[["f"]]
f_tab <- fmt(c(minimum       = min(f),
               maximum       = max(f),
               diagonal_mean = mean(diag(f)),
               offdiag_mean  = mean(f[upper.tri(f)])))
knitr::kable(data.frame(Quantity = names(f_tab), Value = unname(f_tab)),
             row.names = FALSE, align = "lr")
X <- ctx[["X"]]
m <- ncol(X)
f_sum <- matrix(0, 5, 5)                       # literal double sum, 5 x 5
for (i in 1:5) for (j in 1:5)
  f_sum[i, j] <- mean(X[i, ] * X[j, ] + (1 - X[i, ]) * (1 - X[j, ]))
stopifnot(min(f) >= 0, max(f) <= 1,
          isTRUE(all.equal(f[1:5, 1:5], f_sum, tolerance = 1e-12)),
          isTRUE(all.equal(f, tcrossprod(cbind(X, 1 - X)) / m, tolerance = 1e-12)))
```

Table 2.4: Summary of the molecular coancestry $\mathbf{f}$ of the book data: minimum, maximum, mean of the diagonal and mean of the off-diagonal.

Quantity	Value
minimum	0.6448
maximum	0.8318
diagonal_mean	0.8192
offdiag_mean	0.6717

Everything in Table 2.4 is inside $[0, 1]$, as it must be.

The level of $\mathbf{f}$ is the panel floor, a quantity distinct from the base-population floor above. Summing Equation (2.5) over all N^2 pairs at marker k gives $N^2(p_k^2 + q_k^2)$ exactly, with p_k the frequency in the N hybrids, so the mean of all entries of $\mathbf{f}$ is the panel floor $m^{-1}\sum_k (p_k^2 + q_k^2)$, which uses the frequencies of these N hybrids and not those of a base population (it is an identity of the set, not a measurement of

the base-population floor), and the off-diagonal mean differs from it only by the diagonal. Recomputing $\mathbf{f}$ on the same hybrids with a subset of the markers moves it (Table 2.5):

```
p <- colMeans(X)
floor_p <- mean(p^2 + (1 - p)^2)
offdiag_mean <- function(f) mean(f[upper.tri(f)])
maf <- pmin(p, 1 - p)
pf_tab <- fmt(c(floor           = floor_p,
                offdiag_mean    = offdiag_mean(f),
               offdiag_maf_gt_30 = offdiag_mean(molecular_coancestry(X[, maf > 0.3,
drop = FALSE])),
                  offdiag_maf_lt_15 = offdiag_mean(molecular_coancestry(X[, maf <
0.15, drop = FALSE]))))
knitr::kable(data.frame(Quantity = names(pf_tab), Value = unname(pf_tab)),
             row.names = FALSE, align = "lr")
stopifnot(floor_p >= 0.5, min(f) > 0.5,
          isTRUE(all.equal(mean(f), floor_p, tolerance = 1e-12)),
          # off-diagonal mean from the all-entries mean and the diagonal
          isTRUE(all.equal(offdiag_mean(f),
                           (N^2 * floor_p - N * mean(diag(f))) / (N * (N - 1)),
                           tolerance = 1e-12)))
```

Table 2.5: Panel floor and off-diagonal mean of $\mathbf{f}$ on all markers, and the off-diagonal mean recomputed on the markers with minor allele frequency above 0.30 and below 0.15.

Quantity	Value
floor	0.6719
offdiag_mean	0.6717
offdiag_maf_gt_30	0.5271
offdiag_maf_lt_15	0.8710

2.3.2 Reading the diagonal

The value 0.5 is the minimum of the diagonal, reached by a hybrid heterozygous at *every* marker. The excess above 0.5 is $s_i - 0.5 = F_i/2$: half the fraction of markers at which the two parent lines carry the same allele. At those loci the F1 is homozygous and, in the absence of epistasis, contributes no dominance effect to heterosis.

```
fd <- mean(diag(ctx[["f"]]))
F_i <- rowMeans(X != 0.5)                       # molecular inbreeding F_i
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(diag(f), (1 + F_i) / 2, tolerance = 1e-12)))
# heterozygous fraction = 1 - mean(F_i) = 1 - mean coancestry between A and B lines
fL <- ctx[["fL"]]
fL_AB <- mean(fL[ctx[["pool"]] == "A", ctx[["pool"]] == "B"])
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(2 * (1 - fd), 1 - mean(F_i), tolerance = 1e-12)),
          isTRUE(all.equal(2 * (1 - fd), 1 - fL_AB, tolerance = 1e-12)))
diag_tab <- fmt(c(diagonal_mean         = fd,
                  molecular_F           = 2 * fd - 1,     # s_i = (1 + F_i) / 2
                  heterozygous_fraction = 2 * (1 - fd),
                  one_minus_fL_AB       = 1 - fL_AB))
knitr::kable(data.frame(Quantity = names(diag_tab), Value = unname(diag_tab)),
             row.names = FALSE, align = "lr")
```

Table 2.6: The mean diagonal of $\mathbf{f}$, the molecular inbreeding $\bar{F} = 2\bar{s} - 1$, the heterozygous fraction $2(1 - \bar{s})$, and one minus the mean coancestry between a pool-A and a pool-B line.

Quantity	Value
diagonal_mean	0.8192
molecular_F	0.6383
heterozygous_fraction	0.3617
one_minus_fL_AB	0.3617

The `heterozygous_fraction` of Table 2.6 is $2(1 - \bar{s})$, with $\bar{s}$ the mean diagonal, that is $1 - \bar{F}$ with $\bar{F}$ the mean molecular F_i. On the complete A × B factorial of inbred lines (assumption A2) it equals one minus the mean coancestry between a pool-A and a pool-B line, $1 - \bar{f}^{L}_{AB}$, because $F_{(ab)} = f^{L}_{ab}$ for every cross (1); this is an identity of the realised factorial, not an expectation. It is not set by how far apart the heterotic pools are, provided the pools diverge neutrally from a common ancestral population in the Balding-Nichols model, with divergence parameter F_{BN} (`fst` in the code). Given the ancestral frequency p^{*}_{k} (Equation (6.1), stated later, in Chapter 6.; a quantity of the draw, never observed, and not the frozen base $p_{0,k}$ of the candidate set) the two pools' frequencies are independent, each with mean p^{*}_{k}, so the F1 is heterozygous at marker k with expected probability $2p^{*}_{k}(1 - p^{*}_{k})$ whatever F_{BN}. What GD_{BS} gains, GD_{T} loses (Section 1.2, Section 5.4, Section 5.8). Chapter 6. measures the heterozygous fraction flat across its grid of F_{BN}, one simulated pair of pools per point. Nothing is claimed here for divergence that is not neutral.

2.4 `f` is not an ad hoc substitute

Two published lines of work use this matrix, or an affine function of it, to manage diversity. This section reports what each says, and what each says against it, because it is otherwise easy to read $\mathbf{f}$ as "the thing we used because $\mathbf{G}$ broke".

A. Nejati-Javaremi, C. Smith, and J. P. Gibson [20] proposed the *allelic-similarity* method, $f_{ij} = \frac{1}{4}\sum_{k=1}^{2}\sum_{l=1}^{2}\delta_{kl}$ with $\delta_{kl} = 1$ when the k-th allele of i equals the l-th of j (the formula as reproduced by F. Gómez-Romano, B. Villanueva, J. Fernández, J. A. Woolliams, and R. Pong-Wong [21], p. 3). At a biallelic locus that is the term in brackets of Equation (2.5), so the genome-wide mean over loci is the identity-by-state average of Equation (2.5).

F. Gómez-Romano, B. Villanueva, J. Fernández, J. A. Woolliams, and R. Pong-Wong [21], in their discussion, compare this matrix with matrices built from the cross-product of centred genotype scores, normalised or not by the allele frequency. They report that the values of such relationship estimates "range from −1 to x, where x can be substantially larger than 1", so that they can lie outside the interval $[0, 1]$ valid for a coefficient of coancestry, and in the next sentence that "estimates of the average coancestry across the whole genome tend to be within the valid range" but that this may not hold for a small region with few genotyped single-nucleotide polymorphisms (SNPs). They add two objections: the cross-product of centred scores gives a pair homozygous for the minor allele a higher relationship than a pair homozygous for the most frequent allele, so carriers of rare alleles would be penalised in the optimisation, and centring makes the matrix non-invertible. For the allelic-similarity method they say that it has a "natural" interpretation in relation to the definition of coancestry, and that positive definiteness should hold. The guarantee of staying in $[0, 1]$ for $\mathbf{f}$ is the present book's inference from Equation (2.5), whose terms are probabilities, not a statement of the paper. The zero total of Equation (2.4) is not a range violation. It comes from centring on the sample frequencies and it implies $\mathbf{G1} = \mathbf{Z}(\mathbf{Z}'\mathbf{1})/(2\sum_{k} p_k(1 - p_k)) = \mathbf{0}$, so $\mathbf{G}$ is singular, which is the non-invertibility the authors name.

The same matrix arrives, up to a fixed affine map, from a second direction. T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] (p. 3), citing M. A. Toro, B. Villanueva, and J. Fernández [22], state that using 0.5 as the base frequency for all loci, instead of the base-generation frequency $p_{0,k}$, gives a relationship matrix – written there $\mathbf{G}_{VR0.5}$ and here $\mathbf{G}_{0.5}$ – that is "proportional to homozygosity and molecular coancestry". The paper gives no formula or normalisation for it: the map below is derived in this chapter. With the 0/1/2 coding of Equation (2.1), $2\sum_{k} p_k(1 - p_k) = m/2$ at $p_k = 0.5$ and

$$\mathbf{G}_{0.5}=\frac{(\mathbf{M}^{H}-\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}')(\mathbf{M}^{H}-\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}')'}{m/2}=4\,\mathbf{f}-2\,\mathbf{J}, \tag{2.8}$$

with $\mathbf{J}$ as in Equation (2.7). $\mathbf{G}_{0.5}$ is therefore an affine function of $\mathbf{f}$, not $\mathbf{f}$ itself: its entries lie in $[-2, 2]$, negative exactly where $f_{ij} < 0.5$; on the book data every f_{ij} exceeds 0.5, so the range in Table 2.7 is positive. For a vector of contributions $\mathbf{c}$ with $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{c} = 1$, $\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{J}\mathbf{c} = 1$ and $\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{G}_{0.5}\mathbf{c} = 4\,\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{c} - 2$, so under that normalisation the two matrices order selections identically. Replacing $2p_k$ with 1 removes the population-dependent term that forced $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{1} = 0$.

The constant that Equation (2.8) removes is $\mathbf{G}_{0.5} = 4(\mathbf{f} - \frac{1}{2}\mathbf{J})$: one half is the base-population floor of Equation (1.3) for a base at $p_{b,k} = 0.5$ at every marker, since then $p_{b,k}^2 + q_{b,k}^2 = 1/2$. It is a convention fixed in advance, not an estimate from the set being measured, and that is why $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{G}_{0.5}\mathbf{1}$ does not vanish. It is not the panel floor of the marker panel at hand, which is at least $1/2$ and is generally larger, so $\mathbf{G}_{0.5}$ is not zero for unrelated individuals either.

```
G05 <- tcrossprod(2 * X - 1) / (m / 2)          # M^H - 11' = 2X - 1
set.seed(2)
c_vec <- runif(N); c_vec <- c_vec / sum(c_vec)
stopifnot(min(f) > 0.5, all(abs(G05) <= 2),
          isTRUE(all.equal(G05, 4 * f - 2, tolerance = 1e-12)),
          isTRUE(all.equal(drop(crossprod(c_vec, G05 %*% c_vec)),
                           4 * drop(crossprod(c_vec, f %*% c_vec)) - 2,
                           tolerance = 1e-12)))
g05_tab <- fmt(c(minimum = min(G05), maximum = max(G05)))
knitr::kable(data.frame(Quantity = names(g05_tab), Value = unname(g05_tab)),
             row.names = FALSE, align = "lr")
```

Table 2.7: Smallest and largest entry of $\mathbf{G}_{0.5}$ on the book data.

Quantity	Value
minimum	0.579
maximum	1.327

So, under normalised contributions, $\mathbf{f}$ orders selections exactly as $\mathbf{G}_{0.5}$, the VanRaden matrix centred at the fixed frequency 0.5. The two derivations of this section, the allelic-similarity route and the fixed-base route, are independent, and both land on the same matrix up to Equation (2.8). That is a consistency between two published treatments and this chapter's algebra; it is not a proof that $\mathbf{f}$ is the right matrix to constrain.

A limit of constraining this matrix. The sources of this section state one. T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] classify the molecular kinship matrix as homozygosity-based and report, in their abstract, that managing inbreeding with a homozygosity-based relationship "resulted in allele frequency changes toward 0.5 giving a low rate of increase in homozygosity for the panel used for management, but not for unmanaged neutral loci, at the expense of a high genetic drift". In their Methods they state that with $\mathbf{G}_{0.5}$ in optimal contributions "there will be pressure to move allele-frequencies toward 0.5", with the covariance between the allele-frequency change and the base frequency negative (their Supplementary Information 1). F. Gómez-Romano, B. Villanueva, J. Fernández, J. A. Woolliams, and R. Pong-Wong [21] reach the same direction by intuition, not by a measurement, for allelic-similarity matrices, and say that the choice between matrices depends on the objective. A constraint on θ_S computed from $\mathbf{f}$ pins the homozygosity lens only; it does not pin F_{drift}, which is computed from the allele frequencies against the frozen base (Section 1.2.3 for the scope, Chapter 10. for F_{hom}, F_{drift} and their gap). The consequence of that gap for this book's selections is measured where those metrics are reported, not here.

2.5 The division of labour

Table 2.8 sets the two matrices side by side.

Table 2.8: The two matrices built from the same hybrid marker data and the job of each. $\mathbf{G}$: VanRaden genomic relationship (Equation (2.3)); $\mathbf{f}$: molecular coancestry (Equation (2.5)). They must not be substituted for one another.

Matrix	Centering	Range	Sum of all elements	Use
`G` (VanRaden)	sample allele frequencies	no fixed bound, signed	0 in exact arithmetic	trait prediction (GBLUP)
`f` (molecular coancestry)	none	[0, 1]	positive, informative	coancestry-based diversity metrics

This split is the convention throughout `hybdiv`: the coancestry-based diversity metrics (`theta_group()` and those built on it, `gene_diversity()` and `status_number()`) take `ctx[["f"]]`, and `ctx[["G"]]` appears only where traits are predicted. The frequency-based metrics (`theta_from_freq()`, `he_nei()` and the `He`, `alleles_lost`, `F_hom` and `F_drift` of `freq_metrics()`) are computed from `colMeans(ctx[["X"]][idx, ])` and the frozen base frequencies `ctx[["p0"]]`; they never read `ctx[["f"]]`, so a substitution of $\mathbf{G}$ for $\mathbf{f}$ cannot reach them (Section 1.2.3). `tests/testthat/test-metrics.R` asserts that every element of `ctx[["f"]]` lies in $[0, 1]$, which fails if a centered matrix is stored in its place; that $|\sum \mathbf{G}| < 10^{-6}N^2$, the centering identity of Equation (2.4) up to floating-point tolerance; and that `theta_group()` over the whole population returns the mean of $\mathbf{f}$, a value well away from the zero that $\mathbf{G}$ would give, so a switch to $\mathbf{G}$ inside `theta_group()`, and hence in the metrics built on it, fails the suite. Metrics that read `ctx[["f"]]` directly, without going through `theta_group()`, are not covered by that assertion.

Chapter 3. takes $\mathbf{f}$ and asks what happens when the population it describes is not one population, but several.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **01-coancestry.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

3. Diversity in a subdivided population

A breeding programme is never one population. It is heterotic groups, or accessions, or landraces, or cycles – and the diversity of the whole is not the average of the diversity of the parts. A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] give the partition that makes this precise, and it is the analytical backbone of everything that follows: the diversity-loss constraint α (Equation (11.15), used in Chapter 15.) bounds its total (Table 3.6), and the within/between asymmetry that makes plant hybrid breeding different from animal breeding is a statement about which term of it you are allowed to minimise (the second of the three departures of Section 1.3).

This chapter follows Chapter 2.. There the molecular coancestry $\mathbf{f}$ is defined between single individuals; here the same quantity is averaged over the individuals of subpopulations, and the partition of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] is stated in those terms. Chapter 1. states the partition for a set of hybrids (Equation (1.2)); the step from subpopulations of individuals to hybrids partitioned over their parent lines is made in Section 3.11 below.

The paper's central claim is uncomfortable and worth stating first: **a method that ranks accessions by distance alone can invert the correct conclusion.** In the paper's own imaginary example, an accession can be the most distant while having so high an internal coancestry that removing it *raises* the diversity of the pool. Section 3.7.1 reproduces that result numerically.

3.1 Notation

- A metapopulation of n subpopulations; subpopulation i has N_i individuals, $N_T = \sum_i N_i$. In this chapter n and N count subpopulations and individuals, not the selected and candidate hybrids of 2.
- A tilde, $\tilde{x}$, is a weighted mean **within** subpopulations: $\tilde{f} = \sum_i f_{ii} N_i/N_T$, $\tilde{F} = \sum_i F_i N_i/N_T$, $\tilde{s} = \sum_i s_i N_i/N_T$. On an allele frequency, $\tilde{p}_{k,i}$ is the frequency of allele k in subpopulation i (the mean over its individuals).
- A bar, $\bar{x}$, is a mean over **all pairs** in the metapopulation, between-subpopulation pairs included: $\bar{f} = \sum_{i,j} f_{ij} N_i N_j/N_T^2$.
- Always $\bar{f} \le \tilde{f} \le \tilde{s}$. The differences between those three numbers *are* the partition of diversity. $\bar{D} = \sum_{i,j} D_{ij} N_i N_j/N_T^2$, the mean over all pairs of the Nei distance D_{ij} of Equation (3.5), equals $\tilde{f} - \bar{f}$ and enters Equation (3.7).
- Sums and means (f_{ij}, s_i, $\bar{f}$, $\tilde{f}$, $\tilde{s}$, the gene diversity (GD) terms) are computed per locus and then averaged over loci; never average frequencies first. The ratios (α_i, G_i, G, F_{IS}, F_{ST}, F_{IT}) are formed **from those locus-averaged numerators and denominators** (a ratio of means), not averaged locus by locus; the identities of Equation (3.10) hold in that form and not for the mean of per-locus ratios.
- Quantities with the subscript i or ij (f_{ii}, f_{ij}, s_i, F_i) refer to **subpopulations**: f_{ij} is the mean of the individual coancestry matrix of Chapter 2. over the block of an individual of i with an individual of j, and s_i the mean self-coancestry of the individuals of i. A single individual is the case $N_i = 1$, which is the meaning these symbols have in Chapter 2. and Section 1.2.3. $\mathbf{f}$ in bold is, in the worked example, the $n \times n$ matrix of subpopulations.
- k indexes the alleles of one locus in the formulas below (they are written for a multiallelic locus; at a biallelic locus the sum has two terms). The first bullet of Section 3.7.2 uses k for a biallelic locus instead, as Chapter 2. does for a marker.

> ⚠ The subtle point, and the one most often got wrong
>
> Every coancestry here includes the pairs of an individual with **itself** – group coancestry in the sense of C. C. Cockerham [13]. That is what makes $1 - f_{ii}$ exactly Nei's gene diversity $1 - \sum_k \tilde{p}^2_{k,i}$ [9] – the plug-in form, without the small-sample correction $2N_i/(2N_i - 1)$ (the factor that removes the bias derived under Equation (3.3)) – and it is what makes the algebra close. The identity $1 - f_{ii} = H_e$ for a set is Equation (1.2), derived in Section 11.2. Drop the diagonal and none of the identities of this chapter hold.

3.2 The three coancestry blocks

3.2.1 f_{ij}, between subpopulations

The probability that two alleles, one sampled at random in subpopulation i and one in j, are identical. From markers, $f_{ij} = \sum_k \tilde{p}_{k,i}\tilde{p}_{k,j}$.

Read it as **redundancy** between two materials. If you cross plants of i with plants of j, the progeny has expected inbreeding $F = f_{ij}$. It answers: what do I gain by recombining these two accessions?

On this molecular scale no fixed level of f_{ij} marks two materials as redundant. f_{ij} is identity in state, and it equals the pedigree coancestry only if the base population has all its alleles different [10, , p. 292], which a biallelic panel cannot satisfy: for unrelated lines the expected f_{ij} is the base-population floor of the panel, $m^{-1}\sum_k (p^2_{b,k} + q^2_{b,k}) \geq 1/2$, and the observed level of a set is the panel floor of its own frequencies, which moves with the markers retained (Section 2.3, Table 2.5). The book's simulated pools (`book_cfg`, Chapter 2.) show a level well above zero for lines of different pools:

```
ctx <- simulate_data(book_cfg)
fL  <- ctx[["fL"]]
inA <- ctx[["pool"]] == "A"
fAB <- fL[inA, !inA]
fWI <- c(fL[inA, inA][upper.tri(fL[inA, inA])],
         fL[!inA, !inA][upper.tri(fL[!inA, !inA])])
fl_rng <- c(between_min = min(fAB), between_max = max(fAB),
            between_mean = mean(fAB), within_min = min(fWI),
            within_max = max(fWI), within_mean = mean(fWI))
```

The coancestry between two inbred lines from *opposite* heterotic pools ranges from 0.608 to 0.663 (mean 0.638), and between two lines of the *same* pool from 0.668 to 0.719 (mean 0.693). What separates complementary from redundant material is therefore the contrast between the two distributions, measured on one panel, and not a threshold carried over from another panel. The ranges above come from one simulated draw at the teaching scale and are not a property of maize pools.

3.2.2 f_{ii}, within a subpopulation

The case $i = j$. From markers $f_{ii} = \sum_k \tilde{p}^2_{k,i}$, the expected homozygosity, so

$$1 - f_{ii} = H_{e,i} = \text{Nei's gene diversity of accession } \ i. \tag{3.1}$$

A landrace accession regenerated twenty times with forty ears per cycle accumulates coancestry and watches f_{ii} rise silently. It is the cheapest alarm for genetic erosion *inside* a genebank – and it is precisely what a distance tree cannot see.

3.2.3 s_i and F_i, self-coancestry and molecular inbreeding

$$s_i = \sum_k \sum_l \frac{p^2_{k,l,i}}{N_i}, \qquad F_i = 2s_i - 1, \qquad 2(1 - s_i) = 1 - F_i = H_{o,i} \tag{3.2}$$

with $p_{k,l,i}$ the frequency of allele k *within* individual l of subpopulation i: 0, 0.5 or 1 for a diploid, that is, the 0/1/2 dosage divided by 2 (`ct_partition()` does exactly this). For a biallelic marker and the

reference allele, $p_{k,l,i}$ is the within-individual frequency that 2 writes x; there x_{ik} indexes an individual and a marker, here k indexes an allele. On the 0/1/2 scale itself s_i would leave $[0.5, 1]$ and F_i would leave $[0, 1]$. $H_{o,i}$ is the observed heterozygosity, the mean over individuals of the fraction of loci at which the individual is heterozygous. A heterozygote has self-coancestry 0.5 at the locus, so $1 - s_i$ is *half* the observed heterozygosity, not all of it.

> ⚠ F_i here is molecular, and is not F_{IS}
>
> By Equation (3.2) $F_i = 1 - H_{o,i}$ is the observed fraction of homozygous loci of the individuals of i, a function of their genotypes alone; it is not measured against a base. It is therefore not an inbreeding coefficient relative to a pedigree base, which would need the base to have all its alleles different (Section 3.2.1), and its level depends on the allele frequencies of the marker panel (the H_o of an outbred individual does), so it is **not** comparable across studies using different marker panels. For the question "is this population mating at random?", use α_i of Equation (3.3), read against its baseline (Equation (3.4)).

In soybean, rice and wheat, pure lines have $s_i \to 1$, so $F_i \to 1$ and $H_o \to 0$. That is expected, not a symptom. It changes only *where* the diversity resides.

3.3 Two per-subpopulation metrics

$$\alpha_i = \frac{F_i - f_{ii}}{1 - f_{ii}}, \qquad G_i = \frac{s_i - f_{ii}}{1 - f_{ii}} = \frac{1 + \alpha_i}{2} \tag{3.3}$$

α_i is the subpopulation's analogue of F_{IS}, not the diversity-loss constraint α of Chapter 15., and G_i is not a genomic relationship matrix $\mathbf{G}$. A positive α_i means an excess of homozygotes (selfing, mating among relatives, a Wahlund effect from internal substructure, null alleles); negative means an excess of heterozygotes (dioecy, self-incompatibility, selection, or a freshly formed F1 or synthetic) – but both are read against the baseline of the plug-in form, which is not zero.

The baseline under random mating. Take N_i diploid individuals whose genotypes are drawn independently at Hardy-Weinberg proportions from a population with allele frequencies p_k at a locus, and let $\tilde{p}_k$ be the sample frequency, over the $2N_i$ alleles. Then $\mathbb{E}[F_i] = \sum_k p_k^2$ (the Hardy-Weinberg homozygosity) and $\mathbb{E}[f_{ii}] = \mathbb{E}\sum_k \tilde{p}_k^2 = \sum_k p_k^2 + (1 - \sum_k p_k^2)/(2N_i)$, because $\mathrm{Var}(\tilde{p}_k) = p_k(1 - p_k)/(2N_i)$. So $\mathbb{E}[F_i - f_{ii}] = -(1 - \sum_k p_k^2)/(2N_i)$, $\mathbb{E}[1 - f_{ii}] = (1 - \sum_k p_k^2)(2N_i - 1)/(2N_i)$, and the ratio of these locus-averaged expectations (the form in which the chapter computes α_i, Section 3.1) is

$$\mathbb{E}[F_i - f_{ii}] \,/\, \mathbb{E}[1 - f_{ii}] = -\frac{1}{2N_i - 1}, \qquad \text{so} \quad G_i = \frac{1 + \alpha_i}{2} \to \frac{N_i - 1}{2N_i - 1} < \frac{1}{2}. \tag{3.4}$$

This is exact for the ratio of expectations and a first-order statement for the expectation of the ratio. Under exact random mating a negative α_i and a G_i below $1/2$ are therefore the null for a small accession, not evidence of an excess of heterozygotes: $\alpha_i = -1/7$ for $N_i = 4$ plants and $-1/23$ for $N_i = 12$, vanishing only as N_i grows. The same $2N_i/(2N_i - 1)$ that multiplies $1 - f_{ii}$ in the unbiased gene diversity removes this bias. Only the departure of α_i from $-1/(2N_i - 1)$ is read in the mating column of Table 3.1. Two limits of the derivation: it assumes independent sampling of individuals from a Hardy-Weinberg population (no subdivision inside the sample, no linkage effect on the expectation). It is algebra, so the chunk `alpha-baseline-check` checks it twice: by exact enumeration of the Hardy-Weinberg samples, and by simulating random-mating samples and passing them through `ct_partition()`.

```
# (1) Exact. One biallelic locus, N diploids at Hardy–Weinberg: enumerate every
#     genotype count (n0, n1, n2) with its multinomial probability. Per count,
#     F = homozygous fraction and f_ii = pt^2 + (1 - pt)^2, pt = (n1 + 2 n2)/(2N).
enum_alpha <- function(N, p) {
  n <- as.matrix(expand.grid(n0 = 0:N, n1 = 0:N))
  n <- cbind(n, n2 = N - rowSums(n))
  n <- n[n[, "n2"] >= 0, , drop = FALSE]
  pr <- exp(lfactorial(N) - rowSums(lfactorial(n)) +
            drop(n %*% log(c((1 - p)^2, 2 * p * (1 - p), p^2))))
```

```
  pt <- (n[, "n1"] + 2 * n[, "n2"]) / (2 * N)
  c(total = sum(pr), EF = sum(pr * (n[, "n0"] + n[, "n2"]) / N),
    Ef = sum(pr * (pt^2 + (1 - pt)^2)))
}
N_chk  <- c(4, 12, 50)
p_grid <- c(0.05, 0.2, 0.5, 0.7, 0.95)
enum_dev <- vapply(N_chk, function(N) {
  e <- vapply(p_grid, function(p) enum_alpha(N, p), numeric(3))
  stopifnot(all.equal(e["total", ], rep(1, length(p_grid)), tolerance = 1e-12))
  a_loc <- (e["EF", ] - e["Ef", ]) / (1 - e["Ef", ])         # every locus
  a_avg <- mean(e["EF", ] - e["Ef", ]) / mean(1 - e["Ef", ]) # ratio of locus means
  c(max(abs(a_loc + 1 / (2 * N - 1))), abs(a_avg + 1 / (2 * N - 1)),
    abs((1 + a_avg) / 2 - (N - 1) / (2 * N - 1)))
}, numeric(3))
stopifnot(all(enum_dev < 1e-12))

# (2) Simulation: 60 random-mating samples of N = 4, 12, 50 plants at 3000 loci
#     through ct_partition(); mean over samples against the baseline, with the
#     Monte Carlo s.e. (samples are independent). Tolerance: 4 s.e.
m_sim <- 3000; R_sim <- 60
pop_sim <- rep(sprintf("N%02d", N_chk), N_chk)
set.seed(5)
p_sim <- stats::runif(m_sim, 0.05, 0.95)
sim <- vapply(seq_len(R_sim), function(r) {
  g <- do.call(rbind, lapply(N_chk, function(N)
         matrix(stats::rbinom(N * m_sim, 2, rep(p_sim, each = N)), N)))
  bs <- ct_partition(g, pop_sim)[["by_subpop"]]
  c(bs[["alpha_i"]], bs[["G_i"]])
}, numeric(6))
sim_mean <- rowMeans(sim); sim_se <- apply(sim, 1, stats::sd) / sqrt(R_sim)
sim_th   <- c(-1 / (2 * N_chk - 1), (N_chk - 1) / (2 * N_chk - 1))
sim_z    <- (sim_mean - sim_th) / sim_se
stopifnot(all(abs(sim_z) < 4))
```

The enumeration reproduces $-1/(2N_i-1)$ and $(N_i-1)/(2N_i-1)$ to 4×10^{-15} (machine precision), at every locus and for the locus-averaged ratio. The simulation gives a mean α_i of −0.142, −0.043 and −0.01 for $N_i = 4, 12, 50$ (baseline −0.143, −0.043, −0.01; largest deviation 1.0 Monte Carlo standard errors) and a mean G_i of 0.429, 0.478, 0.495, which is the baseline $(N_i-1)/(2N_i-1)$ and not 0.5.

G_i is the proportion of the accession's diversity that sits **between** individuals rather than inside them, and it is probably the most underused quantity in the paper. It is a mating-system meter (Table 3.1):

Table 3.1: G_i (Equation (3.3)), the share of an accession's gene diversity that lies between individuals rather than within them, read as a mating-system meter: its value under each mating situation and the material in which that situation is typical. G_i tends to 0.5 under random mating only as N_i grows (Equation (3.4)); N_i is the number of plants sampled.

G_i	Situation	Typical material
$\approx (N_i-1)/(2N_i-1)$, below 0.5	random mating (plug-in baseline)	maize, sunflower, open populations
below that baseline	excess of heterozygotes	F1 synthetics, heterozygous clones, self-incompatibles
$\to 1$	all homozygous	inbred lines, doubled haploids, selfing species

Operationally, $1-G_i$ is the fraction of the diversity of the sample stored *inside* each plant. This is a qualitative guide to the sampling design, not a sample-size calculation (none is made here). With $G_i \to 1$ (selfers), the diversity lies between plants, one plant carries almost none of it and many plants per accession are needed. With G_i near its random-mating baseline (maize), about half of the sample's diversity lies inside each plant, so fewer plants are needed.

3.4 Distances, and what they actually are

Nei's minimum distance between subpopulations [23, §3a] is

$$D_{ij} = \frac{f_{ii} + f_{jj}}{2} - f_{ij} = \sum_k \frac{1}{2}(\tilde{p}_{k,i} - \tilde{p}_{k,j})^2. \tag{3.5}$$

Note what that is: **half the sum of squared allele-frequency differences** – a variance component, not an evolutionary distance calibrated in time. It is the piece that enters F_{ST}, and it is legitimate. The error in a distance-only method is not using D_{ij}; it is using *only* D_{ij}.

No double sum over individuals is needed

Between individuals l and l' the distance is $d_{ll'} = (s_l + s_{l'})/2 - f_{ll'}$, with s_l and $f_{ll'}$ the self-coancestry and coancestry of single individuals (Equation (3.2) with $N_i = 1$); at a biallelic locus it equals $(p_l - p_{l'})^2$, p_l the within-individual frequency, and over loci it is averaged. The mean of $d_{ll'}$ over all pairs of an individual of i and an individual of j, $\bar{d}_{ij}$, computed literally as a double sum over all pairs of individuals, costs $O(N_i N_j m)$. The identity $\bar{d}_{ij} = (s_i + s_j)/2 - f_{ij}$ is exact and needs only the subpopulation frequencies and self-coancestries, at cost $O(N_T m + n^2 m)$. $\bar{d}_{ij}$ is not the D_{ij} of Equation (3.5): its diagonal $\bar{d}_{ii} = s_i - f_{ii}$ is not zero, and Nei's distance is recovered as $D_{ij} = \bar{d}_{ij} - (\bar{d}_{ii} + \bar{d}_{jj})/2$. Both identities follow by substituting the definitions of $d_{ll'}$, s_i (Equation (3.2)) and f_{ij}. No timing at genebank scale was run for this chapter.

3.5 The equation that matters most in practice

$$\bar{f} = \sum_i \frac{N_i}{N_T} \Big[\underbrace{f_{ii}}_{\text{internal coancestry}} - \underbrace{\sum_j D_{ij} N_j / N_T}_{\text{mean distance to the others}} \Big] \tag{3.6}$$

In Equation (3.6), each accession's contribution to global coancestry – that is, to the *loss* of diversity in the pool – has **two terms of opposite sign**:

- **Term 1 (+).** The more internally fixed an accession is, the more it *raises* global coancestry: it dilutes the pool with copies of the same allele.
- **Term 2 (−).** The more distant it is from the others, the more it *reduces* global coancestry.

A distance-only method sees term 2 alone. That is the whole mechanism of the inverted conclusions.

3.6 F statistics and the partition

$$F_{IS} = \frac{\tilde{F} - \tilde{f}}{1 - \tilde{f}}, \qquad F_{ST} = \frac{\tilde{f} - \bar{f}}{1 - \bar{f}} = \frac{\bar{D}}{1 - \bar{f}}, \qquad F_{IT} = \frac{\tilde{F} - \bar{f}}{1 - \bar{f}} \tag{3.7}$$

with $(1 - F_{IT}) = (1 - F_{IS})(1 - F_{ST})$. $\tilde{F}$ is the N_i-weighted mean of the F_i of Equation (3.2); the subscripts follow the usual reading, I for individual, S for subpopulation, T for the whole metapopulation. Eq. 6 of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] writes these formulas, which they call Wright's (1969) F-statistics (*Evolution and the Genetics of Populations*, vol. 2, as cited there); M. A. Toro and A. Caballero [23, §3a] credit the form $F_{ST} = \bar{D}/(1 - \bar{f})$ to C. C. Cockerham [25]. Those are the attributions this chapter reports; the original papers were not read for it.

What this F_{ST} is, in heterozygosity terms. With the plug-in form of Section 3.1, $1 - \bar{f} = H_T$ (= GD_T, Equation (3.9) below) is the gene diversity of the pooled sample's frequencies $\bar{p}_k$, $1 - \tilde{f} = H_S$ (= GD_{WS}) is the N_i-weighted mean of the $H_{e,i}$ of Equation (3.1), and $\tilde{F} = 1 - H_o$ with H_o the N_i-weighted observed heterozygosity. Hence

$$F_{ST} = \frac{H_T - H_S}{H_T}, \qquad F_{IS} = 1 - \frac{H_o}{H_S}, \qquad F_{IT} = 1 - \frac{H_o}{H_T}, \tag{3.8}$$

each H averaged over loci first, so that F_{ST} is a ratio of locus-averaged numerator and denominator (Section 3.1). It is also GD_{BS}/GD_T (Equation (3.10)).

```
# The same 30 random hybrids as `tbl-keystone-check` (same seed, same draw).
set.seed(7)
idx_f <- sample(ctx[["N"]], 30)
tp    <- theta_pools(idx_f, ctx)
ft    <- (tp[["theta_A"]] + tp[["theta_B"]]) / 2                # f-tilde
fb    <- (tp[["theta_A"]] + 2 * tp[["theta_AB"]] + tp[["theta_B"]]) / 4  # f-bar
fst_this    <- (ft - fb) / (1 - fb)                             # @eq-f-stats
fst_between <- (ft - tp[["theta_AB"]]) / (1 - tp[["theta_AB"]])  # between-referenced
stopifnot(all.equal(gd_partition(idx_f, ctx, tp)[["F_ST"]], fst_this, tolerance =
1e-12))
fst_cmp <- c(this = fst_this, between = fst_between, ratio = fst_between / fst_this)

# One biallelic locus, two populations of equal weight, from the coancestries:
# the closed forms of the prose, over 200 random (p_A, p_B), and the worked case.
one_locus <- function(pA, pB) {
  f1  <- function(p) p^2 + (1 - p)^2                    # f_ii at a biallelic locus
  fAB <- pA * pB + (1 - pA) * (1 - pB)
  tw  <- (f1(pA) + f1(pB)) / 2
  fb1 <- (f1(pA) + f1(pB) + 2 * fAB) / 4
  pb  <- (pA + pB) / 2; dp <- pA - pB
  this <- (tw - fb1) / (1 - fb1); btw <- (tw - fAB) / (1 - fAB)
  stopifnot(all.equal(this, dp^2 / (4 * pb * (1 - pb)), tolerance = 1e-12),
            all.equal(btw, dp^2 / (2 * pb * (1 - pb) + dp^2 / 2), tolerance = 1e-12),
            all.equal(btw / this, 4 * pb * (1 - pb) / (2 * pb * (1 - pb) + dp^2 / 2),
                      tolerance = 1e-12),
             all(btw / this >= 1 - 1e-12), all(btw / this <= 2))
  rbind(this = this, between = btw)
}
set.seed(11)
invisible(one_locus(stats::runif(200), stats::runif(200)))
stopifnot(all.equal(unname(one_locus(0.2, 0.6)[, 1]), c(1 / 6, 2 / 7), tolerance
= 1e-12))
```

It is not the only statistic written F_{ST}. A statistic referenced to the coancestry *between* populations, $(\theta_w - \theta_{AB})/(1 - \theta_{AB})$ with θ_w the mean coancestry within populations and θ_{AB} between populations, is also written F_{ST}; 1 records that the book computes both and that they differ. This chapter cites no external source for that usage and does not use the statistic. The two take different values on the same data. At one biallelic locus with allele frequency p_A in one population and p_B in the other, equal weights, $\bar{p} = (p_A + p_B)/2$ and $\Delta p = p_A - p_B$, the statistic of Equation (3.7) is $\Delta p^2/(4\bar{p}\bar{q})$ and the between-referenced one is $\Delta p^2/(2\bar{p}\bar{q} + \Delta p^2/2)$; their ratio, $4\bar{p}\bar{q}/(2\bar{p}\bar{q} + \Delta p^2/2)$, lies in $[1, 2]$ and tends to 2 as $\Delta p \to 0$. For $p_A = 0.2$, $p_B = 0.6$ the two are $1/6$ and $2/7$. On the 30 random hybrids of the book's simulated pools used in Section 3.11, the between-referenced statistic, computed from locus-averaged coancestries, is 0.224 against 0.126 for the statistic of Equation (3.7), a ratio of 1.78 (one draw, seed 7). A value of F_{ST} must therefore be read with its reference stated; in this chapter it is always Equation (3.7).

The partition itself, of gene diversity (GD) into the terms named in Table 3.2, is the heart of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10]:

$$(1 - \bar{f}) = \underbrace{(1 - \tilde{s})}_{GD_{WI}} + \underbrace{(\tilde{s} - \tilde{f})}_{GD_{BI}} + \underbrace{(\tilde{f} - \bar{f})}_{GD_{BS}} \tag{3.9}$$

Table 3.2: The partition of gene diversity of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] (Equation (3.9)): each component, its definition in coancestries and its biological reading. $\bar{f}$: mean coancestry over all pairs; $\tilde{f}$, $\tilde{s}$: within-subpopulation weighted means of coancestry and self-coancestry; H_e, H_o: expected and observed heterozygosity.

Component, defined in coancestries	Name	Biological reading
$GD_T = 1 - \bar{f}$	total diversity	H_e of the whole pool if everything were recombined
$GD_{WI} = 1 - \tilde{s}$	within individuals	half the observed heterozygosity inside each plant, $H_o/2$
$GD_{BI} = \tilde{s} - \tilde{f}$	between individuals, within accession	segregating variation available to within-population selection
$GD_{WS} = 1 - \tilde{f}$	within subpopulations	$GD_{WI} + GD_{BI}$
$GD_{BS} = \tilde{f} - \bar{f}$	between subpopulations	divergence; the only component a distance method sees

The four components satisfy the identities

$$\frac{GD_{WI}}{GD_T} = (1-G)(1-F_{ST}), \quad \frac{GD_{BI}}{GD_T} = G(1-F_{ST}), \quad \frac{GD_{WS}}{GD_T} = 1 - F_{ST}, \quad \frac{GD_{BS}}{GD_T} = F_{ST}, \tag{3.10}$$

where $G = (\tilde{s} - \tilde{f})/(1 - \tilde{f})$ is the metapopulation analogue of G_i (Equation (3.3)). Since $s_i - f_{ii} = G_i(1 - f_{ii})$, $G = \sum_i N_i(1 - f_{ii})G_i / \sum_i N_i(1 - f_{ii})$: a mean of the G_i weighted by $N_i(1 - f_{ii})$, not the census mean $\sum_i (N_i/N_T)\, G_i$. The two coincide when all G_i are equal or all f_{ii} are equal, and the first two identities then hold with either; when both the G_i and the f_{ii} differ the two means generally differ, and the first two identities fail with the census mean (the chunk of Table 3.3 exhibits one such case). They follow from $1 - F_{ST} = (1 - \tilde{f})/(1 - \bar{f})$.

Every identity of this chapter so far needs individual genotypes, so the chunk below draws a toy metapopulation – two random-mating subpopulations and one of inbred lines, 400 biallelic loci – runs `ct_partition()` on it, and asserts each identity, the distance identities against a literal double sum over pairs of individuals; the resulting partition is printed in Table 3.3:

```
tol    <- 1e-12                                                  # exact identities:
machine precision
m_toy <- 400
N_toy <- c(10, 6, 8)
pop   <- rep(c("a_out", "b_out", "c_inbred"), N_toy)
set.seed(1)
p_toy <- matrix(stats::runif(3 * m_toy), 3)          # subpopulation frequencies
geno  <- rbind(                                       # 0/1/2 dosage
   matrix(stats::rbinom(N_toy[1] * m_toy, 2, rep(p_toy[1, ], each = N_toy[1])),
N_toy[1]),
   matrix(stats::rbinom(N_toy[2] * m_toy, 2, rep(p_toy[2, ], each = N_toy[2])),
N_toy[2]),
  matrix(2 * stats::rbinom(N_toy[3] * m_toy, 1, rep(p_toy[3, ], each = N_toy[3])),
N_toy[3]))

ct  <- ct_partition(geno, pop)
gl  <- ct[["global"]]; GD <- ct[["diversity"]]; bs <- ct[["by_subpop"]]
s_i <- bs[["s_i"]]; f_ct <- unname(ct[["f"]])

# 2(1 - s_i) = 1 - F_i = H_o, with H_o counted from the genotypes
H_o <- as.vector(tapply(rowMeans(geno == 1), factor(pop), mean))
stopifnot(all.equal(2 * (1 - s_i), H_o, tolerance = tol),
          all.equal(1 - bs[["F_i"]], H_o, tolerance = tol),
          identical(s_i[3], 1))                       # inbred lines: 1 - s_i = 0
stopifnot(mean(geno^2 + (1 - geno)^2) > 1)             # 0/1/2 used as p: s leaves
[0.5, 1]
stopifnot(all.equal(bs[["G_i"]], (1 + bs[["alpha_i"]]) / 2, tolerance = tol))
```

```
# f_bar <= f_til <= s_til, and f_bar = sum_i w_i [f_ii - sum_j D_ij w_j]
stopifnot(gl[["f_bar"]] <= gl[["f_til"]], gl[["f_til"]] <= gl[["s_til"]],
          all.equal(sum(bs[["contrib_fbar"]]), gl[["f_bar"]], tolerance = tol))

# census weights: f_bar is the mean of the individual coancestry matrix over all
# pairs, diagonal included (the group coancestry of the whole set)
stopifnot(all.equal(mean(molecular_coancestry(geno / 2)), gl[["f_bar"]], tolerance
= tol))

# F statistics
stopifnot(all.equal(gl[["F_ST"]],   (gl[["f_til"]]   -   gl[["f_bar"]])   /   (1   -
gl[["f_bar"]]),
                    tolerance = tol),
            all.equal(1 - gl[["F_IT"]], (1 - gl[["F_IS"]]) * (1 - gl[["F_ST"]]),
tolerance = tol))

# @eq-f-stats-het: the same statistics from heterozygosities. Pooled frequencies
# (census weights) give H_T; H_S is the N_i-weighted mean of 2 p_i q_i; H_o is
# counted from the genotypes. Everything averaged over loci first.
p_i   <- t(vapply(split(seq_len(nrow(geno)), factor(pop)),
                  function(ix) colMeans(geno[ix, , drop = FALSE]) / 2, numeric(m_toy)))
p_all <- colMeans(geno) / 2
H_T_l <- 2 * p_all * (1 - p_all)                        # per locus
H_S_l <- colSums(ct[["w"]] * 2 * p_i * (1 - p_i))
H_T   <- mean(H_T_l); H_S <- mean(H_S_l); H_o_all <- mean(rowMeans(geno == 1))
stopifnot(all.equal(1 - gl[["f_bar"]], H_T, tolerance = tol),
          all.equal(1 - gl[["f_til"]], H_S, tolerance = tol),
          all.equal(gl[["F_ST"]], (H_T - H_S) / H_T, tolerance = tol),
          all.equal(gl[["F_IS"]], 1 - H_o_all / H_S, tolerance = tol),
          all.equal(gl[["F_IT"]], 1 - H_o_all / H_T, tolerance = tol))

# ratio of locus means (the chapter's F_ST) against the mean of per-locus ratios
stopifnot(all(H_T_l > 0))
fst_means <- c(ratio_of_means = (H_T - H_S) / H_T,
               mean_of_ratios = mean((H_T_l - H_S_l) / H_T_l))
stopifnot(!
isTRUE(all.equal(fst_means[["ratio_of_means"]], fst_means[["mean_of_ratios"]])))

# the partition and the ratio identities, with the metapopulation G
stopifnot(all.equal(GD[["GD_T"]], GD[["GD_WI"]] + GD[["GD_BI"]] + GD[["GD_BS"]],
tolerance = tol),
          all.equal(GD[["GD_WS"]], GD[["GD_WI"]] + GD[["GD_BI"]], tolerance = tol))
G_meta  <- (gl[["s_til"]] - gl[["f_til"]]) / (1 - gl[["f_til"]])
G_wmean <- sum(ct[["w"]] * bs[["G_i"]])
w_he    <- ct[["w"]] * (1 - diag(f_ct))                 # G is the (1 - f_ii)-
weighted mean
stopifnot(all.equal(G_meta, sum(w_he * bs[["G_i"]]) / sum(w_he), tolerance = tol))
F_ST    <- gl[["F_ST"]]
stopifnot(all.equal(GD[["GD_WI"]] / GD[["GD_T"]], (1 - G_meta) * (1 - F_ST),
tolerance = tol),
           all.equal(GD[["GD_BI"]] / GD[["GD_T"]], G_meta * (1 - F_ST), tolerance
= tol),
          all.equal(GD[["GD_WS"]] / GD[["GD_T"]], 1 - F_ST, tolerance = tol),
          all.equal(GD[["GD_BS"]] / GD[["GD_T"]], F_ST, tolerance = tol),
         # negative control, at the default tolerance 1.5e-8: the census mean fails
       !isTRUE(all.equal(GD[["GD_WI"]] / GD[["GD_T"]], (1 - G_wmean) * (1 - F_ST))))

# d_bar_ij = (s_i + s_j)/2 - f_ij against the literal double sum; per locus the
# distance between individuals l, l' is (s_l + s_l')/2 - f_ll' = (p_l - p_l')^2
P     <- geno / 2
idv   <- split(seq_len(nrow(P)), factor(pop))
```

```
d_lit <- matrix(0, 3, 3)
for (i in seq_along(idv)) for (j in seq_along(idv)) {
  for (l in idv[[i]]) for (l2 in idv[[j]])
    d_lit[i, j] <- d_lit[i, j] + mean((P[l, ] - P[l2, ])^2)
  d_lit[i, j] <- d_lit[i, j] / (length(idv[[i]]) * length(idv[[j]]))
}
d_bar <- outer(s_i, s_i, "+") / 2 - f_ct
stopifnot(all.equal(d_lit, d_bar, tolerance = tol),
          all.equal(unname(ct[["D_nei"]]),
                    d_bar - outer(diag(d_bar), diag(d_bar), "+") / 2, tolerance
= tol))

toy_tab <- fmt(c(G_meta = G_meta, G_wmean = G_wmean, GD))
toy_lab <- c(G_meta = "$G$, weighted by $N_i(1 - f_{ii})$", G_wmean = "$G$, census
mean",
             GD_T = "$GD_T$", GD_WI = "$GD_{WI}$", GD_BI = "$GD_{BI}$",
             GD_WS = "$GD_{WS}$", GD_BS = "$GD_{BS}$")
knitr::kable(data.frame(Quantity = unname(toy_lab[names(toy_tab)]),
                        Value = unname(toy_tab)), row.names = FALSE, align = "lr")
```

Table 3.3: Toy metapopulation of the chunk (two random-mating subpopulations of 10 and 6 plants and one of 8 inbred lines, 400 biallelic loci, one draw, seed 1): the metapopulation G of Equation (3.10), weighted by $N_i(1 - f_{ii})$, and the census mean $\sum_i (N_i/N_T) G_i$, which does not satisfy the identities; and the components of the gene-diversity partition (Equation (3.9), Table 3.2). Dimensionless.

Quantity	Value
G, weighted by $N_i(1 - f_{ii})$	0.6441
G, census mean	0.6490
GD_T	0.4304
GD_{WI}	0.1097
GD_{BI}	0.1986
GD_{WS}	0.3083
GD_{BS}	0.1221

The identities of Equation (3.8) and the mean of the individual coancestry matrix hold to machine precision in the chunk. The ratio of locus means and the mean of the per-locus ratios are not the same number: for F_{ST} on this toy they are 0.2836 and 0.2715, and only the first obeys Equation (3.10).

3.6.1 Why the partition changes the strategy by species

The three bullets below are this book's reading of what the partition implies for different reproductive systems, not results of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10], whose examples are livestock breeds and a diploid, randomly mating setting. The first two follow from the definitions ($\tilde{s} = 1$ for inbred lines gives $GD_{WI} = 0$, which the chunk of Table 3.3 exhibits); the third and the regeneration advice are judgement.

- **Outcrossers** (maize, sunflower, forages, forest trees): GD_{WI} is large. The diversity is literally *inside* the plants. Conserving means maintaining heterozygosity – regenerate with many individuals and balanced contributions.
- **Selfers** (soybean, wheat, rice, beans) **and doubled-haploid or line collections**: $GD_{WI} \approx 0$. All diversity is $GD_{BI} + GD_{BS}$. Conserving means maintaining the *number of distinct lines*; heterozygosity is not a target. Regenerating with few plants per line is acceptable; losing lines is not.
- **Clonal crops** (potato, sugarcane, fruit trees): GD_{WI} is high and **frozen** – it does not decay by drift while the clone exists. The N_e algebra does not apply without adaptation.

This is the reason a hybrid maize programme cannot manage diversity with a single pool-wide number: it needs GD_{WS} and GD_{BS} reported separately. Under drift alone in two closed pools of equal weight (f_{AA}, f_{BB}, f_{AB} in the notation of this chapter, $\theta_A, \theta_B, \theta_{AB}$ in the code (`theta_pools()`, chunk `fst-two-forms`) and in 2, equal when the usage weights equal the census weights), f_{AB} is unchanged in expectation while

f_{AA} and f_{BB} rise, so an expected rise Δ in $\tilde{f}$ raises $\bar{f}$ by $\Delta/2$: GD_{WS} falls by Δ, GD_{BS} rises by $\Delta/2$, and GD_T falls by only $\Delta/2$. A single total understates the within-pool loss; Section 5.8 shows what the between-pool gain is worth. The argument is for neutral drift in closed pools; selection is not covered by it, and the pools are closed, so it is not the asymptotic regime of Equation (3.11).

3.7 The worked example, reproduced

The metapopulation of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10, p. 292, Tables 1 and 2]: four subpopulations of N = 12, 4, 8, 6, three loci with 5, 3 and 3 alleles. The authors describe it as "an imaginary example based on allele frequencies of neutral genetic markers that could resemble allozyme data"; it is a teaching matrix, not a measured population, and the multiallelic loci put it outside the biallelic setting of the rest of the book. Its coancestry matrix, typed from Table 2a of the paper (the ten distinct entries compared with the printed table; the genotypes of its Table 1 are not reproduced here, so nothing below recomputes $\mathbf{f}$ from genotypes):

```
f <- matrix(c(0.3391, 0.3021, 0.2535, 0.3229,
              0.3021, 0.8750, 0.3073, 0.3889,
              0.2535, 0.3073, 0.4766, 0.2483,
              0.3229, 0.3889, 0.2483, 0.3704), 4, 4, byrow = TRUE,
            dimnames = list(paste0("Sub", 1:4), paste0("Sub", 1:4)))
N <- c(12, 4, 8, 6)
w <- N / sum(N)
```

Note subpopulation 2: $f_{22} = 0.875$, so $H_e = 0.125$. It is nearly fixed internally. Now the global quantities, with the paper's published values beside them (Table 3.4):

```
f_bar <- drop(w %*% f %*% w)
f_til <- sum(w * diag(f))
s_til <- 0.7056                       # published; needs individual genotypes

computed  <- c(f_bar = f_bar, f_til = f_til, GD_T = 1 - f_bar,
               GD_WI = 1 - s_til, GD_BI = s_til - f_til, GD_BS = f_til - f_bar,
               F_ST = (f_til - f_bar) / (1 - f_bar))
published <- c(f_bar = 0.3256, f_til = 0.4535, GD_T = 0.6744, GD_WI = 0.2944,
               GD_BI = 0.2521, GD_BS = 0.1279, F_ST = 0.1897)
# rows computed from f alone must match to half a unit of the 4th decimal
from_f <- c("f_bar", "f_til", "GD_T", "GD_BS", "F_ST")
stopifnot(max(abs(computed[from_f] - published[from_f])) < 5e-5)
# the published partition must close: three 4-dp roundings, at most 1.5e-4
stopifnot(abs(sum(published[c("GD_WI", "GD_BI", "GD_BS")]) -
              published[["GD_T"]]) < 1.5e-4)
# the prose: GD_BS is less than a fifth of the total (F_ST = GD_BS / GD_T)
stopifnot(computed[["F_ST"]] < 0.2)
ct_glob <- data.frame(quantity = names(computed),
                      computed = round(unname(computed), 4),
                      published = unname(published))
```

Table 3.4: Global quantities of the worked example of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] (four subpopulations, N = 12, 4, 8, 6), computed from the published coancestry matrix $\mathbf{f}$ and census weights N_i/N_T, beside the published values. $\bar{f}$: mean coancestry over all pairs; $\tilde{f}$: within-subpopulation weighted mean coancestry; GD_T, GD_{WI}, GD_{BI}, GD_{BS}: the components of Equation (3.9); F_{ST}: Equation (3.7). Computed GD_{WI} and GD_{BI} use the published $\tilde{s}$, which needs individual genotypes, and therefore agree with the published values by construction.

Quantity	Computed	Published
$\bar{f}$	0.3256	0.3256
$\tilde{f}$	0.4535	0.4535
GD_T	0.6744	0.6744
GD_{WI}	0.2944	0.2944
GD_{BI}	0.2521	0.2521
GD_{BS}	0.1279	0.1279
F_{ST}	0.1897	0.1897

The five values computed from $\mathbf{f}$ alone ($\bar{f}$, $\tilde{f}$, GD_T, GD_{BS}, F_{ST}) reproduce the published ones within half a unit of the fourth decimal, and the chunk asserts it. The chunk also asserts that the published GD_{WI}, GD_{BI} and GD_{BS} sum to the published GD_T, a check of the paper's internal consistency. The computed GD_{WI} and GD_{BI} are not a check: they are derived from the published $\tilde{s}$, which needs individual genotypes this chapter does not have, so they agree by construction. Note that GD_{BS} is only 19 % of the total: the between-subpopulation divergence – the only thing a distance method measures – accounts for less than a fifth of the diversity in this metapopulation.

3.7.1 Removing an accession can *increase* diversity

Table 3.5 gives the effect on GD_T of removing each subpopulation in turn.

```
res <- list(f = f, by_subpop = data.frame(N = N))
lg  <- cbind(ct_loss_gain(res),
             delta_pct_equal = ct_loss_gain(res, "equal")$delta_pct)
D_nei   <- outer(diag(f), diag(f), "+") / 2 - f
lg$dist <- drop(D_nei %*% w)                # mean distance to the pool
# the prose: f_22 is the largest diagonal entry, subpopulation 2 is the most
# distant, and removing it raises GD_T (census and equal weights) while removing
# any other lowers it
stopifnot(which.max(diag(f)) == 2, which.max(lg$dist) == 2,
          lg$delta_pct[2] > 0, all(lg$delta_pct[-2] < 0),
          lg$delta_pct_equal[2] > 0, all(lg$delta_pct_equal[-2] < 0))
```

Table 3.5: Effect of removing each subpopulation of the worked example of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] on pool gene diversity $GD_T = 1 - \bar{f}$, computed from the published $\mathbf{f}$. The change is relative to GD_T of all four subpopulations, with census weights N_i/N_T or equal weights; a positive change means removal raises diversity. The last column is the mean Nei minimum distance to the pool, $\sum_j D_{ij}N_j/N_T$ (Equation (3.5)).

Subpopulation	GD_T without it (census)	Change, census (%)	Change, equal (%)	Mean distance to the pool
Sub1	0.6296	−6.65	−6.92	0.0882
Sub2	0.6869	1.84	6.47	0.2670
Sub3	0.6481	−3.91	−6.94	0.1459
Sub4	0.6690	−0.81	−3.56	0.0906

The number to look at is subpopulation 2. Its mean distance to the pool, $\sum_j D_{2j}N_j/N_T$ (last column of Table 3.5), is the largest of the four, so a method that ranks accessions by distance alone would rank it first. The Weitzman approach discussed by M. A. Toro and A. Caballero [23, §3d] is such a method; the paper's own Weitzman analysis uses Reynolds' distance, not the Nei distance of this table, and gives subpopulation 2 the largest loss (−65.5 %) with subpopulation 3 close behind (−63.3 %) [10, Table 3, column 5]; the

authors report that Nei's minimum and standard distances gave very similar results, not shown. The ranking by mean Nei distance in Table 3.5 is the book's. The coancestry analysis says removing it **raises** pool diversity by 1.8 % (census weights) or 6.5 % (equal weights).

The arithmetic is in Equation (3.5): D_{2j} contains $f_{22}/2$, and $f_{22} = 0.875$ is far above the other diagonal entries, so the subpopulation is distant from the others in part because it is internally nearly fixed, and the same f_{22} is what raises global coancestry in the first term of Equation (3.6). What produced the near-fixation (a small sample of $N_2 = 4$ plants, a founder effect, drift in the source population, selection) cannot be inferred from a coancestry matrix, and the example is imaginary; the chapter does not claim a cause. The same pattern is reported for the reanalysis of eleven European pig breeds of G. Laval *et al.* [26] in A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10, Table 5, column 3]: FRBA (Basque, France; the breed codes are defined in the footnote to Table 4 of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10]), the breed with the largest Weitzman loss (-15.2 %), shows +0.67 % when removed, the value also given in the corrected form of M. A. Toro and A. Caballero [23, Table 4]. These values are quoted from the tables, not recomputed. In that column the subpopulations are not weighted by their effective sizes; in the column that is (column 6), FRBA is −0.0 %, and the authors argue that weighting by size is desirable [10, p. 295]. The +0.67 % is therefore the result without effective-size weighting, and not the only one the paper reports.

> **i** What this does and does not license
>
> For a genebank: a rare accession with few plants and high homozygosity – the archetypal "unique" accession on a distance tree – may be contributing *negatively* to the pool. That does **not** mean discard it. It means the correct priority may be to **regenerate it at larger N**, not to replicate it into a core collection. Storing seed is cheap; extinction is irreversible.

3.7.2 Optimal contributions

Maximising $GD_T = 1 - \sum_{i,j} f_{ij} c_i c_j$ subject to $c_i \geq 0$ and $\sum_i c_i = 1$ is a quadratic programme:

```
oc <- optimal_contributions(f)
stopifnot(identical(unname(round(oc[["c_i"]], 3)), c(0.522, 0, 0.270, 0.208)),
          oc[["c_i"]][2] == 0)
```

Subpopulation 2 receives weight **zero** (computed $\mathbf{c} = (0.522, 0.000, 0.270, 0.208)$), and total diversity rises from 0.6744 to 0.6874, a gain of 1.9 %. Rounded to three decimals the solution equals the published $\mathbf{c} = (0.522, 0, 0.270, 0.208)$ of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10]; the chunk asserts it.

Three direct uses in plant breeding:

- **Base population for recurrent selection.** c_i gives the seed proportion from each source that maximises the neutral-marker GD_T of the base. (In this bullet k indexes biallelic loci.) With f_{ij} built from population frequencies as above, $GD_T = 1 - \sum_{i,j} f_{ij} c_i c_j$ is the mean over loci of $2\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k$, where $\bar{p}_k = \sum_i c_i p_{ik}$ is the frequency of the mixture and $\bar{q}_k = 1 - \bar{p}_k$; it keeps the between-source term in full. If the mixture is intermated to Hardy-Weinberg proportions, the variance of the 0/0.5/1 genotype at locus k is $\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k/2$, so the genic variance of the base (Equation (4.2), additive action; the variance is that of the mean of two alleles, each Bernoulli($\bar{p}_k$)) is $\sum_k \beta_k^2 \bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k/2$. With effects of equal size β at every one of the m loci and markers whose frequencies represent those of the quantitative trait loci, that is $m\beta^2 GD_T/4$: maximising GD_T maximises genic variance; with unequal effects the two differ by the squared-effect weighting. The case is different when the candidates are A × B hybrids of two pools that are never intermated: Chapter 4., which derives the hybrid case and restates the case above as its limit with equal pool frequencies, shows that their genic variance contains only the within-pool part of gene diversity, not the between-pool term. In both cases neither GD_T nor the genic variance, being functions of allele frequencies and not of haplotypes, sees linkage disequilibrium.
- **Core collection.** Instead of clustering heuristics plus proportional sampling, solve the quadratic programme directly with operational constraints ($c_i \leq$ multiplication capacity, $c_i \geq$ a policy minimum for accessions of cultural importance).
- **Optimal contribution selection.** Here $\mathbf{c}$ and $\mathbf{f}$ change object: $\mathbf{c}$ is the vector of contributions of the N *candidates* and $\mathbf{f}$ their $N \times N$ coancestry matrix, not the contributions and the $n \times n$ matrix of subpopulations above. T. H. E. Meuwissen [17] maximises $\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{u}$ subject to a bound on the group coancestry $\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{c}$, with $\mathbf{u}$ the vector of the candidates' selection-criterion values (estimated breeding values in T. H. E. Meuwissen [17], the multi-trait index u_i in Chapter 15.); its Lagrangian form is $\max \mathbf{c}'\mathbf{u} - \lambda\,\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{c}$,

$\lambda \geq 0$. This chapter is the case $\lambda \to \infty$, pure diversity. A breeder operates in the middle of the curve – which is Chapter 15..

3.8 Equal contributions and effective size

Minimising $\bar{f}$ maximises the status number $N_s = 1/(2\bar{f})$ [19] by definition. With census weights N_i/N_T, $\bar{f}$ is the mean of the individual coancestry matrix over all pairs, diagonal included, which is the group coancestry θ_S of the whole set S (Chapter 2.) whatever the subdivision; this N_s is then the $1/(2\theta_S)$ of that chapter, and Table 3.6 writes $GD_T = 1 - \bar{f}$ as $1 - \theta_S$ (asserted in `tbl-keystone-check`). That chapter's range $N_s \in [1/2, 1]$ is a property of biallelic markers ($\theta_S \geq 1/2$); the multiallelic worked example of this chapter is not on it: $N_s = 1/(2\bar{f}) = 1.54$ for its 30 individuals, and in neither case is N_s a head count. N_s is a static function of the current coancestry; the effective size N_e is defined from the *rate* at which inbreeding or coancestry rises across generations, so the two are not the same quantity, and lowering $\bar{f}$ today does not by itself fix N_e.

What links contributions to N_e is the asymptotic metapopulation effective size of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10, Eq. 14], in the form restated by M. A. Toro and A. Caballero [23, §5a]:

$$N_e \approx \frac{2Nn}{(V_W + V_B + 1)(1 - F_{ST})}, \tag{3.11}$$

with n subpopulations of equal size N, and V_W and V_B the variances of the long-term contributions of individuals within and between subpopulations. Eq. 14 of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] has $(1 - F_{IT})$ in place of $(1 - F_{ST})$, and $(1 - F_{IT}) = (1 - F_{IS})(1 - F_{ST})$: Equation (3.11) is the case $F_{IS} = 0$, random mating within subpopulations, which is its stated assumption. The model is a metapopulation of n subpopulations of constant size N with "any constant degree of migration" among them, discrete generations, and the formula holds only after enough generations for N_e and F_{ST} to reach their asymptotes. Two consequences. First, F_{ST} here is the asymptotic value of that metapopulation; it depends itself on the contribution variances and on migration, and for closed pools (the drift paragraph of Section 3.6.1) it tends to 1 and Equation (3.11) has no meaning. Second, the statement below holds the same F_{ST} on both sides. It does not apply as written to pools of inbred or doubled-haploid lines, where $F_{IS} \neq 0$ and where the sampling unit is one allele copy per line rather than two per plant (Section 1.2). With random (Poisson) contributions within subpopulations and equal contributions of the subpopulations ($V_W = 1$, $V_B = 0$) Equation (3.11) gives $Nn/(1 - F_{ST})$; equalising contributions within subpopulations ($V_W = 0$, $V_B = 0$) gives $2Nn/(1 - F_{ST})$, **double** at the same F_{ST}.

```
ne_fm  <- function(N, Vk) 4 * N / (2 + Vk)            # Falconer & Mackay, ch. 4
ne_ct  <- function(N, VW) 2 * N / (VW + 1)            # @eq-ne-meta, n = 1, F_ST = 0
N0     <- 100
V_k     <- c(random = 2, mother_once = 1, both_once = 0)   # variance of gametes
per plant
ne_th  <- ne_ct(N0, V_k / 2)
# the two forms agree: algebra with V_W = V_k / 2, not evidence about N_e
stopifnot(all.equal(ne_fm(N0, V_k), ne_th, tolerance = 1e-12))
ne_gain <- c(seed_only = ne_th[["mother_once"]] / ne_th[["random"]],
             both      = ne_th[["both_once"]]   / ne_th[["random"]])
stopifnot(all.equal(ne_gain[["seed_only"]], 4 / 3, tolerance = 1e-12),
          all.equal(ne_gain[["both"]], 2, tolerance = 1e-12))
```

The chunk `ne-equal-seed` is the formula. The chunk `ne-gene-dropping` is the oracle: literal gene dropping in $N = 100$ monoecious diploids with $L = 500$ unlinked biallelic loci starting at $p = 1/2$, and $T = 25$ generations. In each generation every offspring takes one gamete (a random one of the two alleles at each locus, independently across loci) from its mother and one from its father; the schemes differ only in how mothers and fathers are chosen (selfing is possible in all three): independently at random ($V_k = 2$), every plant mother of exactly one offspring and the father at random ($V_k = 1$), every plant mother of exactly one offspring and father of exactly one ($V_k = 0$). The gene diversity H_t (the mean of $2pq$ over loci) decays as $(1 - 1/(2N_e))^t$, so N_e is read from the slope of $\log H_t$, one slope per independent pedigree ($R = 30$ per scheme), inverted exactly: $N_e = 1/(2(1 - e^{\text{slope}}))$. The comparison is made on the slope, against its Monte Carlo standard error over the 30 pedigrees, with tolerance 3 standard errors.

```
drop_genes <- function(N, L, T, scheme) {
   Z <- apply(matrix(rep(0:1, each = N), 2 * N, L), 2, sample)    # p = 1/2 at
every locus
  A <- Z[seq_len(N), , drop = FALSE]; B <- Z[N + seq_len(N), , drop = FALSE]
  het    <- function() { p <- (colSums(A) + colSums(B)) / (2 * N); mean(2 * p * (1
- p)) }
  gamete <- function(par) {
    u <- matrix(stats::runif(N * L) < 0.5, N, L)
    ifelse(u, A[par, , drop = FALSE], B[par, , drop = FALSE])
  }
  H <- numeric(T + 1); H[1] <- het()
  for (t in seq_len(T)) {
   mo <- if (scheme == "random") sample.int(N, N, replace = TRUE) else sample.int(N)
    fa <- if (scheme == "both_once") sample.int(N) else sample.int(N, N, replace
= TRUE)
    nA <- gamete(mo); nB <- gamete(fa); A <- nA; B <- nB
    H[t + 1] <- het()
  }
  H
}
R_ne <- 30; T_ne <- 25; L_ne <- 500
ne_of_slope <- function(s) 1 / (2 * (1 - exp(s)))
ne_obs <- vapply(names(V_k), function(sc) {
  set.seed(100 + match(sc, names(V_k)))                    # one seed per scheme
  slope <- vapply(seq_len(R_ne), function(r)
    stats::cov(0:T_ne, log(drop_genes(N0, L_ne, T_ne, sc))) / stats::var(0:T_ne), 0)
  s_hat <- mean(slope); s_se <- stats::sd(slope) / sqrt(R_ne)
   s_th  <- log(1 - 1 / (2 * ne_th[[sc]]))                    # slope implied by
the formula
  c(Ne = ne_of_slope(s_hat),
    se = abs(ne_of_slope(s_hat - s_se) - ne_of_slope(s_hat + s_se)) / 2,
    z  = (s_hat - s_th) / s_se)
}, numeric(3))
stopifnot(all(abs(ne_obs["z", ]) < 3))
```

The measured N_e is 98.2 ($\pm$ 1.6) for random contributions, 133.9 ($\pm$ 1.7) when each plant is mother once and 199.0 ($\pm$ 2.5) when it is mother once and father once, against 100.0, 133.3 and 200.0 from the formula; the largest deviation of the slope is 1.1 standard errors. That is the single-population case ($n = 1$, $F_{IS} = 0$) of Equation (3.11), and nothing more.

The doubling assumes that each individual's contribution is equalised as both female and male parent, which needs controlled pollination. In the single-population case Equation (3.11) reduces to $2N/(V_W + 1)$, which is $N_e = 4N/(2 + V_k)$ [1] with $V_W = V_k/2$, V_k the variance of the number of gametes an individual contributes. Harvesting the same number of seeds from every plant of an open-pollinated population equalises only the maternal contribution; with a maternal variance of 0 and a Poisson paternal variance of 1, $V_k = 1$ and $N_e = 4N/3$, a gain of 1.333 over Poisson contributions, not 2.

> **Equal contributions of both parents double N_e**
>
> Under controlled pollination, equal numbers of seeds from every plant as female and as male parent, and the same number of plants from every family, double the effective size ($V_W = 0$ against $V_W = 1$). Equal seed numbers from open-pollinated plants alone give a factor of 4/3. Neither needs genotyping.

It is an intervention in germplasm management. The opposite – bulk harvest from a plot, which in practice samples the most productive plants disproportionately – inflates V_W and collapses N_e.

3.9 The honest caveats

A breeder should take these seriously.

Criteria based on within-population variation **favour the largest populations**, which are often the commercial and least endangered ones [23, §3e]. A $\bar{f}$ criterion can push a genebank toward abundant elite material – the opposite of the conservation objective. Beyond that:

- Neutral markers do not measure adaptive value, disease resistance, stress adaptation or cultural value. A fixed accession may carry the only resistance allele to an emerging rust.
- **Allelic richness** (which A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10, p. 297] call allelic diversity) is, they write, more sensitive to bottlenecks than average heterozygosity, and is often the more relevant criterion for pre-breeding. The argument that minimising $\bar{f}$ maximises allelic richness in the long run (via the effective number of alleles being, by definition, the inverse of mean coancestry; [23, §2]) is valid asymptotically but does **not** protect rare alleles in the short term. This is why allelic richness survives the redundancy analysis in Chapter 12. as the one genuinely independent axis.
- Weighting between-group variation more heavily is arbitrary. A more defensible fix is to optimise $\mathbf{c}$ with per-accession minimum constraints, as M. A. Toro and A. Caballero [23, §3e, Table 5] do for five Iberian pig strains.

Rule of thumb: use $\bar{f}$ to decide *proportions and regeneration effort*; never use $\bar{f}$ alone to decide *discard*.

3.10 A correction published by the authors

M. A. Toro and A. Caballero [23, Table 4, footnote a] republish the pig-breed reanalysis of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] and mark one entry (breed DESH, Schwäbisch-Hällisches, Germany) as correcting a mistake in the 2002 paper. Any value from that reanalysis should be read from the 2005 table; the 0.67 % of FRBA quoted in Section 3.7.1 is the same in the 2002 paper (Table 5, column 3) and in the 2005 table. The same review restates the effective-size result of Equation (3.11): equalising contributions within subpopulations doubles N_e [10, Eq. 14], [23, §5a].

What was compared with what, for this chapter. The full text of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] was read: the matrix of Table 2a, $\tilde{s}$, $\tilde{f}$, $\bar{f}$, $\bar{D}$, the F statistics and the GD components of Table 2b, the removal analysis and the contributions of Table 3, Eq. 6, 7, 8 and 14, and the pig-breed Table 5 were checked against the chapter, and the typed values agree. One difference is open: the chapter's equal-weights column of Table 3.5 gives -6.92 and -6.94 % for subpopulations 1 and 3 where the paper's unweighted column (Table 3, column 4) prints -6.8 and -7.0 %; the other two entries agree to the printed digit, the cause of the difference was not established, and the chapter does not rest on it. The 2005 review was consulted in excerpts (its section headings, Table 4 and the passages cited), not in full. Not read for this chapter, and therefore reported only as the secondary sources above attribute them: S. Wright [24], C. C. Cockerham [25], C. C. Cockerham [13], M. Nei [9] beyond its abstract, D. Lindgren, L. D. Gea, and P. A. Jefferson [19], D. S. Falconer and T. F. C. Mackay [1], and T. H. E. Meuwissen [17] beyond its abstract.

3.11 What manages this quantity, and where

This chapter is the book's keystone, and it is easy to read it as a self-contained treatment of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10]. The partition it derives (Equation (3.9)) is not background: it is the object every later chapter operates on. Stated once, so the rest of the book can refer back rather than re-introduce it (Table 3.6):

Table 3.6: The three terms of the gene-diversity partition (Equation (3.9)), what each measures, and the chapter of this book in which each is managed. $\tilde{s}$, $\tilde{H}_o$: within-pool means of self-coancestry and observed heterozygosity; θ_S: mean coancestry of the selected hybrids (the set S); α: the diversity-loss constraint.

Term	What it is	Where it is managed
GD_{WI}	diversity within individuals, $1-\tilde{s}=\tilde{H}_o/2$	exactly zero with inbred parents (Chapter 11.); the hybrid-level $GD_{WI\text{ - }hyb}$, half the mean heterozygosity of the selected hybrids, is what carries signal
GD_{BI}	between individuals, within pool	eroded by drift (Section 3.6.1); within-pool diversity also falls in the simulated cycles of Chapter 23., where drift and selection act together and are not separated; with inbred parents α (Chapter 15.) budgets $GD_T=1-\theta_S=GD_{BI}+GD_{BS}$, not GD_{BI} alone
GD_{BS}	between pools	with flat dominance ($d_k\equiv 1$), inbred parents and the complete A × B factorial, expected F1 heterozygosity per locus is exactly GD_T+GD_{BS} (Equation (5.5), Table 5.4): there GD_{BS} is the divergence term of heterosis, to be **preserved** not minimised; outside those conditions it is not an identity

For a set of hybrids the partition is taken over their parent lines. The "individuals" of Equation (3.9) are then the parent-line slots of the hybrids (one line of pool A and one of pool B per hybrid), the two pools are the subpopulations, and the weights are the usage weights of the lines, equal across the two pools by construction (Equation (1.2) and the identity $F_{(ab)}=f_{ab}^{L}$ of 1; `gd_partition()` implements it). Within a pool the weights are the usage of each line, which is unequal in a random sample of hybrids (the chunk of Table 3.7 asserts it for its sample): a line used twice counts twice, so the individuals are the 30 line slots of each pool and not its 25 distinct lines. GD_{WI} (lines) and $GD_{WI\text{ - }hyb}$ (hybrids) are the same expression, $1-\tilde{s}$, over different individuals. The statements of the first row, and the identity $GD_T=1-\theta_S=GD_{BI}+GD_{BS}$ of the second, are checked on 30 random hybrids of the book's simulated pools with `gd_partition()` (Table 3.7):

```
set.seed(7)
idx_h <- sample(ctx[["N"]], 30)
gp    <- gd_partition(idx_h, ctx)
theta_S <- mean(ctx[["f"]][idx_h, idx_h])
H_hyb <- mean(rowMeans(ctx[["X"]][idx_h, , drop = FALSE] == 0.5))
use_A <- tabulate(ctx[["ped"]][["a"]][idx_h], nbins = ctx[["n_lines"]])
stopifnot(identical(idx_h, idx_f),                    # the draw of `fst-two-forms`
          length(unique(use_A[use_A > 0])) > 1,       # usage of the lines drawn is unequal
          abs(gp[["GD_WI"]]) < 1e-12,                 # inbred parents
          all.equal(gp[["GD_WI_hyb"]], H_hyb / 2, tolerance = 1e-12),  # half the F1 heterozygosity
          all.equal(1 - theta_S, gp[["GD_T"]], tolerance = 1e-12),
          all.equal(gp[["GD_T"]], gp[["GD_BI"]] + gp[["GD_BS"]], tolerance = 1e-12))
kt <- fmt(gp)
kt_lab <- c(GD_WI_hyb = "$GD_{WI\\text{-}hyb}$", GD_T = "$GD_T$", GD_WI = "$GD_{WI}$",
            GD_BI = "$GD_{BI}$", GD_BS = "$GD_{BS}$", F_ST = "$F_{ST}$")
knitr::kable(data.frame(Quantity = unname(kt_lab[names(kt)]), Value = unname(kt)),
             row.names = FALSE, align = "lr")
```

Table 3.7: Gene-diversity partition of 30 random hybrids of the book's simulated pools (`gd_partition()`, one draw, seed 7, 25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers). $GD_{WI\text{ - }hyb}$: within individuals, hybrids; GD_T, GD_{WI} (parent lines; zero for inbred parents), GD_{BI}, GD_{BS}: the components of Equation (3.9); F_{ST}: Equation (3.7). Dimensionless.

Quantity	Value
$GD_{WI\text{ - }hyb}$	0.1806
GD_T	0.3215
GD_{WI}	0.0000
GD_{BI}	0.2809
GD_{BS}	0.0406
F_{ST}	0.1263

Three consequences follow, and each is a chapter.

A single pool-wide statistic cannot express "conserve within, hold between". That is why Chapter 11. reports the partition rather than only GD_T, and why Chapter 13. makes stage S1 (conserving the heterotic groups, Table 1.1) a separate monitoring stage instead of folding pool conservation into the hybrid-selection constraint.

The between term is not a bonus to be maximised. Under the conditions of the GD_{BS} row (flat dominance, inbred parents, complete factorial, equal pool weights) expected F1 heterozygosity per locus is $2\bar{p}\bar{q} + y^2/2$ (Equation (5.5)), with $2\bar{p}\bar{q}$ the "shared" term, which is GD_T, and $y^2/2$ the divergence term, which is GD_{BS}. When the pools are redrawn further apart by neutral divergence from the same ancestral frequencies (Balding-Nichols draws, Section 5.8), the expectation of the sum does not change, so in expectation every unit of GD_{BS} gained is paid for, unit for unit, by GD_T, and pushing the pools apart buys no heterosis. This is a statement about GD_T and GD_{BS}, not about GD_{WS}: by the drift accounting of Section 3.6.1 GD_{WS} falls by twice what GD_{BS} gains. It does not hold for non-flat dominance or for divergence that is aligned with the dominance effects, which Section 5.9 treats. The partition tells you where diversity *is*, not which direction to move it.

The within term is the one with a future. GD_{BI} is the raw material of next cycle's response, which Chapter 4. makes precise: among A × B hybrids genic variance is a sum over loci of the within-pool part of gene diversity, weighted by squared effect, while GD_T also carries the between-pool term that genic variance does not contain. Gene diversity is therefore a proxy for genic variance only through its within-pool part, only if effect sizes are unrelated to which loci lose diversity, and blind to disequilibrium; Chapter 24. is where the proxy is pushed until it breaks.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **02-subdivided.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

4. Response to selection: the other half of the objective

The preceding chapters define what a selection programme spends: coancestry (Chapter 2.) and its partition over the two heterotic pools (Chapter 3.), within the programme of Chapter 1.. None of them writes down what selection *buys*. This chapter follows Chapter 3. because that chapter leaves two things to it: it names the component GD_{BI} of gene diversity (GD) as the raw material of the next cycle's response without saying how response depends on it, and it defers the genic-variance argument for a mixture base. Section 4.2 carries both, and item 3 of the Preface (the diversity that protects response is the within-pool part) is what that section establishes.

The asymmetry is not cosmetic. Chapter 23. will report a constrained programme overtaking an unconstrained one after several cycles, at a crossover cycle that varies with the simulation seed. The book can report that because it simulated it, not because anything in the preceding chapters predicts it, and this chapter does not predict it either: a reader who wants to know when a crossover arrives in *their* programme still has to re-run the simulation with their own parameters. What this chapter installs are the pieces a prediction would be built from: the variance selection acts on, the equation that turns that variance into response, and the restricted selection index, which is set beside the book's α constraint at the end of the chapter (as a comparison, not as its proof).

The data come from `simulate_pools()`, the generator that Chapter 6. sets beside its own `simulate_lines()` and `simulate_data()`: it uses the same pool allele frequencies, drawn under the Balding-Nichols model [16] with parameter `fst` from ancestral frequencies, the same homozygous lines `GL` (0/1) and the same complete A × B factorial of hybrids `X` (0/0.5/1), but a different trait. Its trait has `n_qtl` markers taken at random as quantitative trait loci (QTL) with independent standard-normal effects `beta` (zero elsewhere), and an `index` equal to the standardised true genetic value plus independent normal noise of variance $1/h^2 - 1$, then standardised: before that last step the genetic value has unit variance, so h^2 is the share of the index variance it contributes in expectation. Table 4.1 gives the size of the draw used in the rest of the chapter.

```
# @sec-simulating-crosses calls the generators with book_cfg's fst and seed
stopifnot(cfg$fst == book_cfg$fst, cfg$seed == book_cfg$seed)
sim <- simulate_pools(n_A = book_cfg$n_pool_A, n_B = book_cfg$n_pool_B,
                      m = book_cfg$m, fst = cfg$fst, n_qtl = cfg$n_qtl,
                      h2 = cfg$h2, seed = cfg$seed)
X  <- sim$X                          # N x m hybrids, 0/0.5/1
stopifnot(nrow(X) == N_hyb)
# the lines are those of @sec-simulating-crosses' simulate_lines() at this fst
and seed
stopifnot(identical(2 * sim$GL, simulate_lines(utils::modifyList(
  book_cfg, list(fst = cfg$fst, seed = cfg$seed)))))
gv <- drop(X %*% sim$beta)           # true genetic value, known here by construction
I  <- sim$index                      # what the breeder actually sees
```

```
data.frame(quantity = c("hybrids", "markers", "QTL (markers with non-zero effect)"),
           count = c(nrow(X), ncol(X), sum(sim$beta != 0)))
```

Table 4.1: Size of the simulated data set of this chapter: hybrids of the complete 25 × 25 factorial of pools A and B, markers, and quantitative trait loci (markers with a non-zero effect) of the `simulate_pools()` draw with seed 1 (`fst` = 0.15, $h^2 = 0.5$). Counts.

quantity	count
hybrids	625
markers	2000
QTL (markers with non-zero effect)	300

4.1 The breeder's equation, and how well it does here

Response to one round of truncation selection is

$$R = i\, r\, \sigma_A \tag{4.1}$$

with i the selection intensity (a property of the selected fraction alone), r the accuracy of the criterion as a predictor of genetic value, and σ_A the additive standard deviation [1].[1] The equation is used here in the accuracy form $i\, r\, \sigma_A$, which for $r = h$ is the familiar $i\, h\, \sigma_A$. Here the genetic value of the hybrids is the vector $\mathbf{X}\beta$ (`gv`), purely additive in the marker coding by construction of `simulate_pools()` (no dominance, $d_k \equiv 0$), so the genotypic value of a hybrid equals its additive value and σ_A is estimated by `sd(gv)`. `sel_intensity()` returns i; later chapters use it inside the usefulness criterion (Chapter 13.) and, in Chapter 9., in a replicated check of an equation of this form on a different object. Table 4.2 sets the predicted response of Equation (4.1) beside the realised one for the top 60 hybrids on the index.

What "response" means in this chapter. The realised response is the mean genetic value of the selected hybrids minus the mean over all candidates: the genetic selection differential on the hybrids that were selected, not the change transmitted to a next generation. In the programme of Chapter 1. the hybrids are not recycled, lines are (assumption A3 there), so what a cycle transmits is a line's value against a tester pool, a different object from the differential measured here. The comparison of Table 4.2 therefore asks one thing: whether Equation (4.1) reproduces the genetic selection differential of truncation selection on this generator. It is not a test of the response transmitted across cycles.

```
n_sel <- cfg$n_sel
N     <- nrow(X)
i_norm <- sel_intensity(n_sel / N)
r      <- cor(I, gv)
sel    <- order(I, decreasing = TRUE)[seq_len(n_sel)]

fmt(data.frame(
  quantity = c("intensity i", "accuracy r", "additive s.d. (sim. units)",
               "predicted response (sim. units)", "realised response (sim. units)"),
  value    = c(i_norm, r, sd(gv), i_norm * r * sd(gv), mean(gv[sel]) - mean(gv))), 3)
```

Table 4.2: One round of truncation selection of the top 60 of the 625 hybrids on the index (`simulate_pools()`, 25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, 300 QTL, $h^2 = 0.5$, Balding-Nichols `fst` = 0.15, seed 1). i: normal-theory selection intensity of the selected fraction; r: correlation between index and true genetic value; σ_A: standard deviation of the true genetic value; predicted: i, r, σ_A (Equation (4.1)); realised: mean genetic value of the selected minus that of all hybrids. Genetic values in simulation units.

quantity	value
intensity i	1.774
accuracy r	0.702
additive s.d. (sim. units)	4.742
predicted response (sim. units)	5.908
realised response (sim. units)	5.116

[1] No chapter locator is given: the book was not available to check one.

In this single draw (seed 1) the equation overpredicts, by about 13 percent. Table 4.3 splits that gap into the intensity and the regression parts.

```
i_real <- (mean(I[sel]) - mean(I)) / sd(I)
b      <- cov(gv, I) / var(I)                 # regression of value on criterion
fmt(data.frame(
  quantity = c("intensity, normal theory", "intensity, realised",
               "response with realised intensity (sim. units)",
               "response from regression (sim. units)",
               "realised response (sim. units)", "index skewness"),
  value    = c(i_norm, i_real, i_real * r * sd(gv),
               b * (mean(I[sel]) - mean(I)), mean(gv[sel]) - mean(gv),
               mean(scale(I)^3))), 3)
```

Table 4.3: The gap of Table 4.2 split into intensity and regression parts (same draw, seed 1). Intensities: normal-theory value of the selected fraction and realised standardised selection differential on the index. Responses: Equation (4.1) with the realised intensity; the regression of genetic value on the index times the selection differential; the realised response. Last row: skewness of the standardised index. Responses in simulation units.

quantity	value
intensity, normal theory	1.774
intensity, realised	1.701
response with realised intensity (sim. units)	5.662
response from regression (sim. units)	5.662
realised response (sim. units)	5.116
index skewness	−0.170

Two identities can be read off it. (1) The response from regression and the response with realised intensity are the same quantity written twice, since $b\,S_I = i_{\text{real}}\,r\,\sigma_A$ identically (with $b = \mathrm{Cov}(\mathrm{gv}, I)/\mathrm{Var}(I)$, S_I the selection differential on the index, $i_{\text{real}} = S_I/\mathrm{sd}(I)$, $r = \mathrm{Cov}(\mathrm{gv}, I)/(\mathrm{sd}(\mathrm{gv})\mathrm{sd}(I))$ and $\sigma_A = \mathrm{sd}(\mathrm{gv})$, all on the $N-1$ scale, which cancels). (2) The regression residual $e = \mathrm{gv} - \overline{\mathrm{gv}} - b\,(I - \bar{I})$ has mean zero over the candidates, so the realised response minus the response from regression is exactly the mean residual over the selected set, $\bar{e}_{\text{sel}}$: the part of the gap that is not an intensity effect is the selected hybrids' average departure from the linear regression of genetic value on the index. The chunk below asserts both, to the relative tolerance 1×10^{-12} of the setup.

```
S_I  <- mean(I[sel]) - mean(I)
e    <- (gv - mean(gv)) - b * (I - mean(I))
dev1 <- dev_rel(b * S_I, i_real * r * sd(gv))
dev2 <- dev_rel((mean(gv[sel]) - mean(gv)) - b * S_I, mean(e[sel]))
stopifnot(dev1 < tol_exact, dev2 < tol_exact, abs(mean(e)) < tol_exact)
```

Deviations: identity (1) exactly 0, identity (2) 1.1×10^{-16}; the mean residual over the selected hybrids is −0.546 simulation units.

With $N = 625$ candidates and $n = 60$ selected, $i = \varphi(z)/(n/N)$, with z the standard-normal truncation point that leaves a fraction n/N above it and φ the standard-normal density, is the intensity of an infinitely large normal population [1]. At this finite N the expected standardised mean of the top n of N independent normal draws is smaller. A single draw cannot tell whether the remaining gap is structural or sampling, so Table 4.4 repeats the same `simulate_pools()` call over 30 seeds, and the finite-N intensity is estimated from 4000 normal samples.

```
one_seed <- function(s) {
  sm <- simulate_pools(n_A = book_cfg$n_pool_A, n_B = book_cfg$n_pool_B,
                       m = book_cfg$m, fst = cfg$fst, n_qtl = cfg$n_qtl,
                       h2 = cfg$h2, seed = s)
  g  <- drop(sm$X %*% sm$beta)
  Ix <- sm$index
  top <- order(Ix, decreasing = TRUE)[seq_len(n_sel)]
```

```
  pred <- sel_intensity(n_sel / length(Ix)) * cor(Ix, g) * sd(g)
  c(rel_gap = 1 - (mean(g[top]) - mean(g)) / pred,
    i_real  = (mean(Ix[top]) - mean(Ix)) / sd(Ix),
    skew    = mean(scale(Ix)^3))
}
rep_seeds <- t(vapply(seq_len(cfg$n_seeds), one_seed, numeric(3)))
n_rep  <- nrow(rep_seeds)
gap_se <- sd(rep_seeds[, "rel_gap"]) / sqrt(n_rep)
stopifnot(abs(mean(rep_seeds[, "rel_gap"])) < 2 * gap_se)   # the claim below

set.seed(cfg$seed_mc)
i_finite <- replicate(cfg$n_mc, {
  z <- rnorm(N)
  (mean(sort(z, decreasing = TRUE)[seq_len(n_sel)]) - mean(z)) / sd(z)
})

fmt(data.frame(
  quantity = c("relative gap 1 - realised/predicted", "realised intensity",
               "index skewness"),
  `mean over seeds` = colMeans(rep_seeds),
  `s.e.`            = apply(rep_seeds, 2, sd) / sqrt(n_rep),
  minimum           = apply(rep_seeds, 2, min),
  maximum           = apply(rep_seeds, 2, max),
  row.names = NULL, check.names = FALSE), 3)
```

Table 4.4: The single draw of Table 4.2 repeated over seeds 1 to 30 of the same `simulate_pools()` call (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, 300 QTL, $h^2 = 0.5$, Balding-Nichols `fst` = 0.15; top 60 of 625 hybrids on the index). Per quantity: mean over seeds, standard error of that mean (s.d./$\sqrt{30}$), minimum and maximum. Relative gap: 1 − realised/predicted response (Equation (4.1)), dimensionless; realised intensity: standardised selection differential on the index; skewness of the standardised index.

quantity	mean over seeds	s.e.	mini-mum	maxi-mum
relative gap 1 - realised/predicted	0.006	0.016	−0.211	0.134
realised intensity	1.776	0.010	1.677	1.883
index skewness	−0.001	0.024	−0.292	0.241

The `stopifnot()` in that chunk asserts the chapter's own claim, not an identity, so its error rates are computed, not assumed. The rule is $|\bar{g}| < 2\,\text{s.e.}$ with the s.e. estimated from the same $n = 30$ seeds. If the true mean gap is zero and the per-seed gaps are normal, $\bar{g}/\text{s.e.}$ follows a t distribution with $n - 1$ degrees of freedom, and the rule fails to hold (a false alarm that stops the render under a different seed set) with probability $P(|t_{n-1}| > 2)$. Against a true bias δ the ratio is non-central t with parameter $\delta\sqrt{n}/s$, s the per-seed s.d. of the gap.

```
s_gap    <- sd(rep_seeds[, "rel_gap"])
p_accept <- function(delta) {          # P(rule holds) at a true mean gap delta
  ncp <- delta * sqrt(n_rep) / s_gap
  pt(2, n_rep - 1, ncp = ncp) - pt(-2, n_rep - 1, ncp = ncp)
}
false_alarm <- 1 - p_accept(0)
delta80     <- uniroot(function(d) (1 - p_accept(d)) - 0.8, c(0, 10 * s_gap))$root
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(false_alarm, 2 * pt(-2, n_rep - 1))))
```

That is a false-alarm rate of 5.5 percent, about one seed set in 18. The assertion fails (flags a bias) with probability 0.8 only when the true mean gap is 0.046 in relative gap (4.6 percent of the predicted response), using this sample's per-seed s.d. of 0.088; smaller true biases are flagged less often. A passing assertion therefore excludes biases of about that size and above, not smaller ones.

Over the 30 seeds the mean relative gap is 0.006 (standard error 0.016), the prediction exceeds the realised response in 19 of 30 seeds, and the mean realised intensity is 1.776 against a finite-N normal expectation of 1.771 (s.d. 0.044) and the infinite-population value 1.774.

The replicated mean gap is within two standard errors of zero, so at this scale the seed-1 overprediction is consistent with sampling variation. What 30 seeds can resolve is limited: two standard errors of the mean gap are 0.032, so a mean relative gap smaller than about that cannot be excluded, and the result is the absence of a detectable gap above that size, not a proof that the gap is zero. The two sizes, 0.046 and 0.032, answer different questions and are not two estimates of one bound: the first is the true mean gap that the rule above flags with probability 0.8 (its power, at this sample's per-seed s.d.), the second is two standard errors of the observed mean gap, the threshold of the rule itself. In a normal approximation the first is the threshold plus 0.84 standard errors, that is 1.42 times the second; the non-central t computation above gives 1.43 times. (The seed-1 draw is one of the 30 seeds, not an independent replicate.) Limits of scope: only the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, 300 QTL, $h^2 = 0.5$, Balding-Nichols `fst` = 0.15) was measured, so nothing here says how the gap behaves at production scale or under selection across cycles; the object is the genetic selection differential of the selected hybrids on an additive trait (see the definition of response before Table 4.2), not a transmitted response. The replicated sweep of Chapter 9. tests the equation on a different object, the change in the progeny mean, with r taken against the breeding value because that trait has dominance, so it is not a replication of this check and its numbers are not reproduced here.

4.2 Genic variance, and what it has to do with gene diversity

The additive variance in Equation (4.1) is not a fixed property of the population. Split it in two.

Genic variance is what the loci would contribute if they were independent:

$$V_{\text{genic}} = \sum_k \beta_k^2 \, \mathrm{Var}(x_k) \tag{4.2}$$

with β_k the effect of marker k and x_k its hybrid genotype. This is a definition of the chapter, not a result attributed to a source.

Realised variance is what the population actually has, $\mathrm{Var}(\mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\beta})$, which is the sum of the *whole* covariance matrix rather than only its diagonal. The difference is exactly the covariance term of Equation (4.3), an identity of the covariance matrix that needs no source:

$$\mathrm{Var}(\mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\beta}) - V_{\text{genic}} = 2 \sum_{k<l} \beta_k \beta_l \, \mathrm{Cov}(x_k, x_l) \tag{4.3}$$

M. G. Bulmer [27] is the reference for the mechanism by which *selection* makes this term negative (negative gametic-phase disequilibrium among trait loci, which lowers the additive variance below its genic value); the primary text was not read for this book, and the statement is reported, not checked. The term that Table 4.5 evaluates for the seed-1 draw is a different thing, and three assumptions decide what it is. (i) In `simulate_pools()` the genotypes of the lines are drawn independently across loci given the pool frequencies. (ii) No selection precedes the evaluation. (iii) Each pool has finitely many lines (25 + 25 here). Over the complete A × B factorial, an identity of the design, $\mathrm{Cov}(x_k, x_l) = [\mathrm{Cov}_A(u_k, u_l) + \mathrm{Cov}_B(v_k, v_l)]/4$, with Cov_A and Cov_B the covariances across the lines of each pool (up to the N against $N - 1$ divisor), so no between-pool term enters. Under (i) and (ii) each of the two pool covariances has expectation zero, so the term of the table is the sampling covariance among loci of 25 + 25 founder lines, with expectation zero; by (iii) it is not zero in a draw, and its sign and size change with the seed. The seed-1 value therefore cannot be read as the size or the sign of a Bulmer effect. Measuring a selection-induced term needs a control in which the same founders are selected at random, which is what Chapter 24. does.

```
Cx  <- cov(X)
ld  <- sum(outer(sim$beta, sim$beta) * Cx) - sum(sim$beta^2 * diag(Cx))
V_genic <- genic_var(X, sim$beta)
dev_ld     <- dev_rel(var(gv) - V_genic, ld)
dev_oracle <- dev_rel(V_genic, ref_genic_var(X, sim$beta))
stopifnot(dev_ld < tol_exact, dev_oracle < tol_exact)
fmt(data.frame(
  quantity = c("realised variance", "genic variance", "covariance term"),
  `value (sim. units squared)` = c(var(gv), V_genic, var(gv) - V_genic),
  check.names = FALSE), 4)
```

Table 4.5: Realised variance $\mathrm{Var}(\mathbf{X}\beta)$, genic variance (Equation (4.2), `genic_var()`) and their difference, the covariance term of Equation (4.3) (here the sampling covariance among loci of the 25 + 25 founder lines, expectation zero), over the 625 hybrids of the seed-1 draw (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, 300 QTL). Variances in squared simulation units.

quantity	value (sim. units squared)
realised variance	22.4837
genic variance	25.2051
covariance term	−2.7214

Deviations, relative to the larger of 1 and the quantity (tolerance 1×10^{-12}): of the covariance term from the sum of the off-diagonal covariance matrix (Equation (4.3)) 1.4×10^{-14}; of `genic_var()` from the literal oracle `ref_genic_var()` 4.2×10^{-16}.

The design identity for $\mathrm{Cov}(x_k, x_l)$ is asserted next in population-divisor form on the seed-1 draw, and the distribution of the term is computed over the 30 seeds of Table 4.4 and over a disjoint block of 200 seeds, so that the reading of the seed-1 value does not rest on a block that contains it.

```
U <- sim$GL[sim$pool == "A", ]
V <- sim$GL[sim$pool == "B", ]
pop_cov <- function(M) cov(M) * (nrow(M) - 1) / nrow(M)       # divisor n
dev_fact <- dev_rel(Cx * (N - 1) / N, (pop_cov(U) + pop_cov(V)) / 4)
stopifnot(dev_fact < tol_exact)

ld_seeds <- seq_len(cfg$n_seeds + n_blk)
ld_by_seed <- t(vapply(ld_seeds, function(s) {
  sm <- simulate_pools(n_A = book_cfg$n_pool_A, n_B = book_cfg$n_pool_B,
                       m = book_cfg$m, fst = cfg$fst, n_qtl = cfg$n_qtl,
                       h2 = cfg$h2, seed = s)
  g  <- drop(sm$X %*% sm$beta)
  vg <- genic_var(sm$X, sm$beta)
  c(term = var(g) - vg, share = (var(g) - vg) / vg)
}, numeric(2)))
blk1 <- ld_by_seed[seq_len(cfg$n_seeds), , drop = FALSE]
blk2 <- ld_by_seed[cfg$n_seeds + seq_len(n_blk), , drop = FALSE]
term_se  <- sd(blk2[, "term"]) / sqrt(n_blk)
z_term   <- mean(blk2[, "term"]) / term_se
# Claim "expectation zero": |z| < 3, false alarm P(|z| > 3) ~ 0.003 per seed set.
stopifnot(abs(z_term) < 3)
stopifnot(dev_rel(ld_by_seed[cfg$seed, "term"], var(gv) - V_genic) < tol_exact)
```

On the pool covariances, the factorial identity holds to a relative deviation of 1.5×10^{-15} (tolerance 1×10^{-12}). Over seeds 1 to 30 the term has mean −0.138 (s.e. 0.835) and is negative in 18 of them. Over the disjoint seeds 31 to 230 its mean is −0.212 (s.e. 0.326, so $z = -0.65$, inside the ± 3 the chunk asserts; false alarm 0.3 percent per seed set), and its share of the genic variance has mean −0.009 and s.d. 0.205. The seed-1 value, a share of −0.108, lies 0.53 s.d. from zero: it is the spread of the sampling covariance among loci, not an effect.

How does V_{genic} relate to gene diversity? Let p_{Ak} and p_{Bk} be the frequencies of the allele coded 1 at locus k among the inbred lines of pools A and B, $q = 1 - p$ (so $\bar{q}_k = 1 - \bar{p}_k$), and $\bar{p}_k = (p_{Ak} + p_{Bk})/2$ the hybrid-pool frequency. A hybrid of the complete A × B factorial carries $x_k = (u_k + v_k)/2$, with $u_k \in \{0, 1\}$ the allele of its pool-A parent and $v_k \in \{0, 1\}$ that of its pool-B parent (the u_{ik}, v_{jk} of Section 5.11 without the line index), drawn independently from the two pools, so over the factorial (population-variance scale)

$$\mathrm{Var}(x_k) = \frac{p_{Ak}q_{Ak} + p_{Bk}q_{Bk}}{4} = \frac{\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k}{2} - \frac{(p_{Ak} - p_{Bk})^2}{8}. \tag{4.4}$$

```
pA <- colMeans(U)
pB <- colMeans(V)
pH <- (pA + pB) / 2
```

```
v_pop <- colMeans(X^2) - colMeans(X)^2                    # population scale
(divisor N)
dev_var1 <- dev_rel(v_pop, (pA * (1 - pA) + pB * (1 - pB)) / 4)
dev_var2 <- dev_rel(v_pop, pH * (1 - pH) / 2 - (pA - pB)^2 / 8)
# scale: genic_var() and var(gv) use the divisor N - 1
dev_scale <- dev_rel(V_genic, N / (N - 1) * sum(sim$beta^2 * v_pop))
# equal effects (beta = 1 at all m loci): sum(v_pop) = m * GD_WS / 4, GD_T = GD_WS
+ GD_BS
m_loc <- ncol(X)
GD_WS <- mean(pA * (1 - pA) + pB * (1 - pB))
GD_BS <- mean((pA - pB)^2 / 2)
GD_T  <- mean(2 * pH * (1 - pH))
dev_eq1 <- dev_rel(sum(v_pop), m_loc * GD_WS / 4)
dev_eq2 <- dev_rel(GD_T, GD_WS + GD_BS)
stopifnot(c(dev_var1, dev_var2, dev_scale, dev_eq1, dev_eq2) < tol_exact)
# special case (a), pA = pB = pbar: Var(x_k) = pbar qbar / 2, equal effects m GD_T / 4
dev_mix <- dev_rel(sum(pH * (1 - pH) / 2), m_loc * GD_T / 4)
stopifnot(dev_mix < tol_exact)
ok <- pH > 0 & pH < 1
ratio <- v_pop[ok] / (pH * (1 - pH))[ok]
```

Deviations (tolerance 1×10^{-12}, relative to the larger of 1 and the quantity): the two forms of Equation (4.4) against the empirical population variance of the hybrids, 1.8×10^{-16} and 1.8×10^{-16}; the scale factor below, 5.6×10^{-16}; the two equal-effect statements below, 2.5×10^{-15} and 5.6×10^{-17}; and the mixture-base limit, 3.1×10^{-15}.

The formula is on the population-variance scale (divisor N); `genic_var()` and `var(gv)` use the divisor $N-1$, so for this factorial `genic_var(X, beta)` equals $N/(N-1)\sum_k \beta_k^2\,(p_{Ak}q_{Ak} + p_{Bk}q_{Bk})/4$ exactly (the factor $N/(N-1)$ on the population-scale genic variance): here 25.1648 on the population scale and 25.2051 from `genic_var()`, a ratio of 1.0016 against $N/(N-1) = 1.0016$. The per-locus variance entering V_{genic} (Equation (4.2)) is therefore not proportional to $\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k$: the ratio $\mathrm{Var}(x_k)/(\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k)$ ranges from 0.107 to 0.5 across these loci. Gene diversity of the hybrid pool, $\frac{1}{m}\sum_k 2\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k$, is GD_T of Equation (1.2) for the complete factorial of inbred lines with equal pool weights (Chapter 3., Table 3.6). It contains the between-pool term $GD_{BS} = \frac{1}{m}\sum_k (p_{Ak} - p_{Bk})^2/2$ that Equation (4.4) removes (since $2\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k = p_{Ak}q_{Ak} + p_{Bk}q_{Bk} + (p_{Ak} - p_{Bk})^2/2$), while V_{genic} among hybrids sees only the within-pool part $GD_{WS} = \frac{1}{m}\sum_k (p_{Ak}q_{Ak} + p_{Bk}q_{Bk})$, weighted by squared effect. $GD_{WS} = GD_{WI} + GD_{BI}$ (Equation (3.9)), so with inbred parents ($GD_{WI} = 0$) it is the GD_{BI} that Chapter 3. names: the two symbols are one number here, and this chapter writes GD_{WS} because the sum over the two pools is what enters V_{genic}. The inference is that gene diversity is a proxy for genic variance only through GD_{WS}, and only if effect sizes are unrelated to which loci lose diversity; this chapter does not test the second condition.

Two special cases of the same formula fix the scope, each under stated conditions. (a) A mixture base: with $p_{Ak} = p_{Bk} = \bar{p}_k$ (equivalently, a mixture of sources intermated to Hardy-Weinberg proportions, x_k the mean of two independent alleles each Bernoulli($\bar{p}_k$)), $\mathrm{Var}(x_k) = \bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k/2$ and $V_{\text{genic}} = \sum_k \beta_k^2\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k/2$. With effects of equal size β at all m loci, and markers whose frequencies represent those of the trait loci, that is $m\beta^2 GD_T/4$, so maximising GD_T then maximises V_{genic}; with unequal effects the two differ by the squared-effect weighting. This is the statement that Chapter 3. uses for a base population and defers here. (b) Hybrids of two pools never intermated, equal effects: $V_{\text{genic}} = m\beta^2 GD_{WS}/4$, which equals $m\beta^2 GD_T/4$ only when $GD_{BS} = 0$, the case (a). The trait of this chapter (300 loci, $N(0,1)$ effects) satisfies neither equal-effects condition, so (a) and (b) are statements about the proxy, not about the `gv` above. Neither GD_T nor V_{genic}, being functions of allele frequencies and not of haplotypes, sees linkage disequilibrium.

The proxy is incomplete in two further ways. Gene diversity weights every locus equally, so it cannot distinguish a marker carrying half the genetic variance from one carrying none. And – more seriously – no frequency-based metric sees the covariance term, as the next box sets out.

> ⚠ The frequency-based metrics cannot see the covariance term
>
> θ_S, GD_S (and GD_T), N_s, allelic richness, F_{hom} and F_{drift} – including θ_S, the only metric the differential evolution (DE) selector constrains – are all functions of allele frequencies **one locus at a time**. The covariance term of Equation (4.3) does not move a single allele frequency. `eff_dim()` is the exception: it is computed from the spectrum of the double-centred f, a multilocus quantity, so it does respond to disequilibrium, but it weights loci by nothing, not by effect. A flat gene diversity trajectory therefore does not imply flat additive variance, for two separate reasons. First, $GD_T = GD_{WS} + GD_{BS}$ and only GD_{WS} enters V_{genic} among hybrids, so a flat GD_T can accompany a falling GD_{WS} whenever GD_{BS} rises (Chapter 3. gives the drift case). Second, the covariance term of Equation (4.3) is invisible to every one-locus metric, and enters σ^2_A and from there the predicted R of Equation (4.1). Chapter 24. tests the second reason only: it measures, against a random-selection control, whether selection builds this term and how quickly it decays, and does not compare a gene-diversity trajectory with a variance trajectory.

4.3 Combining ability against a tester pool

Additive variance is the variance of *breeding values*, not of genotypic values. Two statements about combining ability separate the chapter's additive trait from the dominance case, and the dominance assumption is declared where each is made. The model of Equation (1.1) splits a hybrid value into general combining ability (GCA) of the two parent lines and specific combining ability (SCA) of the pair; the concepts are those of G. F. Sprague and L. A. Tatum [2], and the exact orthogonal split used here is the book's own, derived in Section 5.11.

Without dominance ($d_k \equiv 0$, the case of `gv`): the effect on the hybrid value of substituting one allele at locus k is $\beta_k/2$ whatever the pool it is substituted into (a parental allele fixes one half of the hybrid coding $x_k \in \{0, 1/2, 1\}$, so one substitution moves x_k by $1/2$ and gv by $\beta_k/2$; this is the additive effect a_k of Chapter 1. and Chapter 5. for $d_k \equiv 0$, since the two homozygotes, worth $\pm a_k$ there, differ by $2a_k = \beta_k$ here), a line's GCA does not depend on the tester set (Chapter 1.), the value of a hybrid is $\text{gv}_{ij} = a_i + b_j$ with $a_i = \sum_k \beta_k u_{ik}/2$ and $b_j = \sum_k \beta_k v_{jk}/2$; the GCAs are a_i and b_j centred on their means and the SCA is zero up to rounding. Over the complete factorial a_i and b_j are uncorrelated, so $\text{Var}(\text{gv}) = \text{Var}(\text{GCA}_A) + \text{Var}(\text{GCA}_B)$: the whole σ^2_A of Equation (4.1) is GCA variance, with no interaction part. The chunk below computes the split from the factorial table of `gv` itself (row and column means, the interaction as the residual), asserts these statements, and also estimates the GCA of the pool-A lines against only five of the pool-B lines as testers.

```
nA <- nrow(U); nB <- nrow(V)
GV <- matrix(gv, nA, nB)                        # ped varies pool A fastest
a_i <- drop(U %*% sim$beta) / 2                 # a_i = sum_k beta_k u_ik / 2
b_j <- drop(V %*% sim$beta) / 2
gca_A_add <- rowMeans(GV) - mean(GV)           # GCA of A lines against all of pool B
gca_B_add <- colMeans(GV) - mean(GV)
sca_add   <- GV - mean(GV) - outer(gca_A_add, gca_B_add, "+")
tester    <- seq_len(5)                         # a five-line tester set from pool B
gca_A_sub <- rowMeans(GV[, tester]) - mean(GV[, tester])
dev_a_b   <- dev_rel(GV, outer(a_i, b_j, "+"))
dev_gca   <- dev_rel(c(gca_A_add, gca_B_add), c(a_i - mean(a_i), b_j - mean(b_j)))
dev_sca0  <- dev_rel(sca_add, 0)
dev_vadd  <- dev_rel(var(gv), var(rep(gca_A_add, times = nB)) +
                              var(rep(gca_B_add, each  = nA)))
dev_tstr  <- dev_rel(gca_A_sub, gca_A_add)
stopifnot(c(dev_a_b, dev_gca, dev_sca0, dev_vadd, dev_tstr) < tol_exact)
```

Deviations (tolerance 1×10^{-12}): $\text{gv}_{ij} = a_i + b_j$, 7.8×10^{-16}; GCAs equal to the centred a_i, b_j, 5.9×10^{-16}; largest SCA, 1.1×10^{-14}; $\text{Var}(\text{gv}) = \text{Var}(\text{GCA}_A) + \text{Var}(\text{GCA}_B)$, 7.9×10^{-16}, both sides being 22.4837; GCA of the pool-A lines against 5 testers instead of all 25, 4.9×10^{-16}.

With dominance ($d_k \not\equiv 0$): the dominance part of a line's GCA is an average effect evaluated at the **opposite** pool's allele frequencies (Chapter 1.), so combining ability is then a property of a line against

a tester pool, never of the line alone, and an SCA component appears. The chunk below applies the split to an illustrative, dominance-only value H = `heterosis_value(X, d)`, with dominance effects $d_k \sim N(0.3, 0.1^2)$ drawn here and unrelated to β. The draw is not the one of Chapter 5. (a gamma-distributed d_k, seed 4); that chapter owns the decomposition and its tests, and the shares below depend on the draw of d. They are shares of that illustrative heterosis, not of the genetic variance of `gv`. The GCA and SCA of this half are those of H (Equation (5.14)), not those of the cross mean `gv` of the paragraph above.

```
set.seed(cfg$seed_d)
d  <- rnorm(ncol(X), cfg$d_mean, cfg$d_sd)      # dominance effects
gs <- heterosis_gca_sca(U, V, d)
H  <- heterosis_value(X, d)

gA <- rep(gs$gca_A, times = nB)                 # ped varies pool A fastest
gB <- rep(gs$gca_B, each  = nA)
sc <- as.vector(gs$sca)

cc <- cor(cbind(gA, gB, sc))
dev_recon <- dev_rel(H, gs$mu + gA + gB + sc)
dev_vsum  <- dev_rel(var(H), var(gA) + var(gB) + var(sc))
dev_orth  <- max(abs(cc[upper.tri(cc)]))        # correlations, scale free
stopifnot(c(dev_recon, dev_vsum, dev_orth) < tol_exact)
```

The three components are orthogonal, so their variances add exactly. Deviations (tolerance 1×10^{-12}): reconstruction $H = \mu + \mathrm{GCA}_A + \mathrm{GCA}_B + \mathrm{SCA}$, 2.2×10^{-15}; $\mathrm{Var}(H)$ against the sum of the three variances (both 38.1131), 2.4×10^{-15}; largest absolute correlation between two components, 3.1×10^{-17}. Table 4.6 gives the shares.

```
p <- c(gca_A = var(gA), gca_B = var(gB), sca = var(sc))
fmt(data.frame(component = names(p),
               `variance (sim. units squared)` = p,
               share = p / sum(p), row.names = NULL, check.names = FALSE), 3)
```

Table 4.6: Variance of the illustrative dominance-only value H = `heterosis_value(X, d)` (dominance effects $d_k \sim N(0.3, 0.1^2)$, seed 7; one draw, 25 × 25 factorial of the seed-1 pools) split into the general combining ability of pool A and pool B lines and the specific combining ability of their crosses. Variance in squared simulation units; share: fraction of the summed variance. These are shares of the illustrative heterosis, not of the genetic variance of the selected trait.

component	variance (sim. units squared)	share
gca_A	9.064	0.238
gca_B	8.673	0.228
sca	20.376	0.535

`gca_A` and `gca_B` are the part of H that main effects of the parent lines, each against the opposite pool, can express; `sca` is the line-by-line interaction they cannot. How each share responds to recurrent selection across cycles is not measured in this chapter.

4.4 What `weights = NULL` is assuming

`stage2_select()` defaults (`weights = NULL`) to equal weight on every trait, and every chapter of this book including Chapter 25. takes that default. The criteria it weights are not phenotypes but the *predicted* trait values $\hat{\mathbf{g}}$ of the hybrids (`hybrids` columns, passed to `build_ctx()` as `traits`). `build_ctx()` standardises each column before weighting, so the default index is $\sum_j \hat{g}_j / \mathrm{sd}(\hat{g}_j)$, up to a positive affine transformation that does not change the ranking. In trait units that is the index $\mathbf{a}'\hat{\mathbf{g}}$ with economic weights $a_j = 1/\mathrm{sd}(\hat{g}_j)$. What the default assumes is therefore an economic statement: one standard deviation of predicted value is worth the same in every trait. It is a choice, not a neutral one.

Whether $\mathbf{a}'\hat{\mathbf{g}}$ is the best index for those $\mathbf{a}$ is a separate question, and the answer depends on what $\hat{\mathbf{g}}$ is. Let $W = \mathbf{a}'\mathbf{g}$ be the aggregate genotype (the breeding objective), with $\mathbf{g}$ the vector of the traits'

genetic values (one entry per trait; not a vector over individuals). The weights $\mathbf{b}$ on a vector of criteria $\boldsymbol{\xi}$ that maximise the correlation between $\mathbf{b}'\boldsymbol{\xi}$ and W are $\mathrm{Var}(\boldsymbol{\xi})^{-1}\mathrm{Cov}(\boldsymbol{\xi}, \mathbf{g}')\,\mathbf{a}$. When $\boldsymbol{\xi} = \hat{\mathbf{g}}$ is the multi-trait best linear unbiased predictor (BLUP) of $\mathbf{g}$, $\mathrm{Cov}(\hat{\mathbf{g}}, \mathbf{g}') = \mathrm{Var}(\hat{\mathbf{g}})$ (a standard property of BLUP, used here without a citation and verified for the example below), so $\mathbf{b} = \mathbf{a}$: weighting the predictions by the economic weights is then the optimum, not a departure from it. The condition fails in general for predictions that are not BLUP of $\mathbf{g}$, single-trait BLUPs of genetically correlated traits included.

When $\boldsymbol{\xi}$ is instead the vector of phenotypic records $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{g} + \mathbf{e}$, $\mathbf{e}$ independent of $\mathbf{g}$, with $\mathrm{Var}(\mathbf{y}) = \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P$ and $\mathrm{Cov}(\mathbf{y}, \mathbf{g}') = \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G$, the same expression is the Smith-Hazel index [28], [29] (the two papers were not read for this book: the expression is checked here by algebra and by the BLUP chunk below, not against them, and the matrix notation is modern, not theirs), displayed in Equation (4.5):

$$\mathbf{b} = \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P^{-1}\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G\mathbf{a}, \tag{4.5}$$

with $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P$ and $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G$ the phenotypic and genetic covariance matrices of the traits (`P` and `G` in the code; $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G$ is not the relationship matrix $\mathbf{G}$) and $\mathbf{a}$ the economic weights. Table 4.7 evaluates Equation (4.5) for a two-trait example.

```
P <- matrix(c(4.0, 1.2, 1.2, 1.0), 2)      # phenotypic covariance
G <- matrix(c(2.0, 0.3, 0.3, 0.3), 2)      # genetic covariance
a <- c(1, 1)                               # equal economic weight
stopifnot(all(eigen(G, only.values = TRUE)$values > 0),      # G is a covariance
          all(eigen(P - G, only.values = TRUE)$values > 0))  # so is P - G
```

```
fmt(data.frame(trait = c("yield", "moisture"),
               `economic weight` = a,
               `Smith-Hazel weight` = index_smith_hazel(P, G, a),
               check.names = FALSE), 3)
```

Table 4.7: Smith-Hazel index weights (Equation (4.5)) for an illustrative two-trait example with equal economic weights. Phenotypic covariance $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P$: variances 4.0 and 1.0, covariance 1.2; genetic covariance $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G$: variances 2.0 and 0.3, covariance 0.3. Values are invented for illustration, not estimated.

trait	economic weight	Smith-Hazel weight
yield	1	0.617
moisture	1	−0.141

Equal economic weights do **not** give equal index weights on phenotypes here. $\mathbf{b}$ is proportional to $\mathbf{a}$ if and only if $\mathbf{a}$ is an eigenvector of $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P^{-1}\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G$. A sufficient condition is $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G = c\,\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P$ – every trait with heritability c and genetic correlations equal to the phenotypic ones – which requires neither equal variances nor uncorrelated traits.

```
b_sh <- index_smith_hazel(P, G, a)
dev_prop <- dev_rel(index_smith_hazel(P, 0.5 * P, a), 0.5 * a)
# BLUP of g from one record per trait (known means): ghat = G P^-1 y.
K <- G %*% solve(P)
dev_blup1 <- dev_rel(drop(solve(K %*% P %*% t(K), K %*% G) %*% a), a)
dev_blup2 <- dev_rel(drop(t(K) %*% a), b_sh)
stopifnot(c(dev_prop, dev_blup1, dev_blup2) < tol_exact)
```

The first statement is the sufficient condition, checked for $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G = 0.5\,\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P$ (deviation of $\mathbf{b}$ from $0.5\,\mathbf{a}$: 2.2×10^{-16}; tolerance 1×10^{-12}). The chunk also checks the two statements that tie the phenotypic and the predicted index together, for the BLUP from one record per trait with known means, $\hat{\mathbf{g}} = \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P^{-1}\mathbf{y}$: $\mathrm{Var}(\hat{\mathbf{g}})^{-1}\mathrm{Cov}(\hat{\mathbf{g}}, \mathbf{g}')\,\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{a}$, and $\mathbf{a}'\hat{\mathbf{g}}$ is the Smith-Hazel index $\mathbf{b}'\mathbf{y}$ of Table 4.7. So the gap between $\mathbf{b}$ and $\mathbf{a}$ in that table is a property of an index on phenotypes; it is not a defect of `weights = NULL`, whose criteria are predictions. What the default does assume is the economic weighting $a_j = 1/\mathrm{sd}(\hat{g}_j)$, and that the predictions behave as multi-trait BLUP; this chapter tests neither against a real breeding objective. The deviations of the two BLUP statements are 2.2×10^{-16} and 1.1×10^{-16}.

4.5 The α constraint beside the restricted index

Chapter 15. argues that a diversity *budget* is approvable where a weighted sum is not: a breeding committee can approve a statement that the loss of diversity will be no more than a stated fraction, and cannot approve a price of λ index units per unit of diversity.

That argument is usually presented as a point about human decision-making. The constrained form has two earlier lineages, reported here with what was and was not read.

Restricted selection indices. O. Kempthorne and A. W. Nordskog [30] is the reference the book cites for the index that maximises aggregate gain subject to zero expected change in specified traits. The paper is not open access and was not read for this book, so what it contains, and whether it solves the problem in the form below, is not verified here. The matrix form is the book's own statement, in the $\mathbf{C} = \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G\mathbf{R}$ form used by `index_restricted()` (not claimed to be their notation), with $\mathbf{R}$ the $n_t \times n_r$ matrix of restricted directions for n_t traits and n_r restrictions and $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P$, $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G$, $\mathbf{a}$ as in Equation (4.5):

$$\mathbf{b} = \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P^{-1}\left[\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G\mathbf{a} - \mathbf{C}(\mathbf{C}'\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P^{-1}\mathbf{C})^{-1}\mathbf{C}'\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P^{-1}\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G\mathbf{a}\right], \qquad \mathbf{C} = \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G\mathbf{R} \tag{4.6}$$

By direct substitution $\mathbf{C}'\mathbf{b} = \mathbf{0}$, that is $\mathbf{R}'\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G\mathbf{b} = \mathbf{0}$. The chunk below checks it for a two-trait example, and that is all that is checked: the derivation of Equation (4.6) as the maximiser is not given here.

Constraining a group coancestry while maximising gain. In optimum contribution selection, as set out in the Methods of T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15], the genetic level of the selected parents $\bar{g} = \mathbf{c}'\hat{\mathbf{g}}$ is maximised over the vector of contributions $\mathbf{c}$, with the rate of inbreeding constrained through the group coancestry of the selected parents, $K = \frac{1}{2}\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{c}$, where $\mathbf{G}$ is the relationship matrix chosen for managing diversity; that paper compares several, among them molecular ones ($\mathbf{G}_{0.5}$ and VanRaden's). Its Introduction credits T. H. E. Meuwissen [17] with optimum contribution selection that maximises gain for a given rate of inbreeding; the 1997 paper itself was not read for this book. The paper gives no formula for $\mathbf{G}_{0.5}$; Chapter 2. derives one (Equation (2.8)), from which, for contributions summing to one, the group coancestry of the molecular matrix $\mathbf{f}$ behind θ_S is an affine function of the $\mathbf{G}_{0.5}$ group coancestry, so the two order selections identically. So restricting a group coancestry while maximising gain is not new to this book, and the restricted direction is not its contribution. What the book adds, as far as the sources read here go, is stated in the text of Section 11.9 and Chapter 15. (a budget measured against random subsets of the same size, applied to hybrids of two pools); this chapter has not checked that against the wider literature.

Table 4.8 compares the restricted index with the unrestricted index of Table 4.7 when moisture is held at zero.

```
R  <- cbind(c(0, 1))                       # hold moisture at zero gain
b_r <- index_restricted(P, G, a, R)
b_u <- index_smith_hazel(P, G, a)
cov_m <- c(drop(crossprod(R, G %*% b_u)), drop(crossprod(R, G %*% b_r)))
sd_I  <- sqrt(c(drop(b_u %*% P %*% b_u), drop(b_r %*% P %*% b_r)))   # sd of b'y
gain_m <- i_norm * cov_m / sd_I           # expected gain in moisture per round
# restricted: zero in expectation, to the tolerance; Smith-Hazel: clearly not
stopifnot(abs(cov_m[2]) < tol_exact, abs(gain_m[2]) < tol_exact, gain_m[1] > 0)

fmt(data.frame(
  quantity = c("weight on yield", "weight on moisture",
               "covariance of index with moisture",
               "expected gain in moisture per round"),
  `Smith-Hazel` = c(b_u, cov_m[1], gain_m[1]),
  restricted    = c(b_r, cov_m[2], gain_m[2]),
  check.names = FALSE), 4)
```

Table 4.8: Unrestricted (Smith-Hazel, Equation (4.5)) and restricted (Equation (4.6)) index weights for the two-trait example of Table 4.7, with the restriction on moisture ($\mathbf{R} = (0, 1)'$). Covariance row: $\mathbf{R}'\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G\mathbf{b}$, the covariance of the index $\mathbf{b}'\mathbf{y}$ with moisture; it depends on the scale of $\mathbf{b}$ and is not a gain. Last row: the expected gain in moisture per round, $i, \mathbf{R}'\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G\mathbf{b}/\sqrt{\mathbf{b}'\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P\mathbf{b}}$, at the normal-theory intensity $i = 1.774$ of the top 60 of 625 (the selected fraction of Table 4.2), in trait units.

quantity	Smith-Hazel	restricted
weight on yield	0.6172	0.6538
weight on moisture	−0.1406	−0.6538
covariance of index with moisture	0.1430	0.0000
expected gain in moisture per round	0.2195	0.0000

Zero here is exact to the tolerance of the setup: the restricted index has covariance 2.6×10^{-17} and expected gain 4.4×10^{-17} (tolerance 1×10^{-12}), against 0.22 for the Smith-Hazel index. As an independent check of the formula, a literal Monte Carlo selection on traits drawn from the two covariance matrices ($\mathbf{g} \sim N(\mathbf{0}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G)$, $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{g} + \mathbf{e}$, $\mathbf{e} \sim N(\mathbf{0}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P - \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G)$) selects the top fraction on each index.

```
set.seed(cfg$seed_gain)
n_mc_gain <- 4e5
gm <- matrix(rnorm(2 * n_mc_gain), ncol = 2) %*% chol(G)
ym <- gm + matrix(rnorm(2 * n_mc_gain), ncol = 2) %*% chol(P - G)
mc_gain <- mc_se <- numeric(2)
for (k in 1:2) {
  Ik  <- drop(ym %*% list(b_u, b_r)[[k]])
  top <- Ik >= quantile(Ik, 1 - cfg$n_sel / N_hyb)
  mc_gain[k] <- mean(gm[top, 2])
  mc_se[k]   <- sd(gm[top, 2]) / sqrt(sum(top))
}
# 4 s.e.: false-alarm probability 6e-5 per index
stopifnot(abs(mc_gain - gain_m) < 4 * mc_se)
```

Monte Carlo against formula, in trait units (400000 draws; the Monte Carlo s.e. is the s.d. of the selected moisture values over the square root of their count): Smith-Hazel 0.217 (s.e. 0.003) against 0.22; restricted −0.002 (s.e. 0.003) against zero. Both lie within the 4 s.e. the chunk asserts.

For the restricted index the covariance with moisture is zero, and for the Smith-Hazel index it is not. The expected gain in moisture per round of selection with intensity i is $i\,\mathrm{Cov}(\mathbf{b}'\mathbf{y}, \text{moisture})/\sqrt{\mathbf{b}'\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P\mathbf{b}}$ (the slope of the regression of the genetic value on the index times the selection differential $i\,\mathrm{sd}(\mathbf{b}'\mathbf{y})$), so it is zero exactly when the covariance is. That is a statement about an **expectation**: it holds for known $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P$ and $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G$ and a linear regression of genetic value on the index, and the realised change of the restricted trait in a finite selected sample, or with estimated covariance matrices, is not zero.

Four differences keep the restricted index from being the α constraint, or a proof of it.

1. *Form.* The restriction is an equality, linear in the index weights, with a closed form under the assumptions above. The α constraint is an inequality, $\alpha(S) \leq \alpha_{\max}$, on the loss of gene diversity of a selected set S relative to the mean over random subsets of the same size (Section 11.9); θ_S is a quadratic form in the contributions of a discrete selection, which the book solves by search (Chapter 15.), not by a closed form.
2. *Expectation against realisation.* The restricted index fixes an expected gain. $\alpha(S)$ is a deterministic function of the selected set, so the bound holds on the realised set itself, given the reference value it is measured against.
3. *Which quantity is restricted.* The budget acts on $GD_T = 1 - \theta_S$, which contains the between-pool term GD_{BS} that Section 4.2 showed does not enter V_{genic} among hybrids. The restricted direction is therefore not the one that carries response, as item 3 of the Preface also notes; it protects variance only through GD_{WS}.
4. *Equality against inequality.* What changes when the equality becomes an inequality is not worked out in this chapter, and Chapter 15. does not work it out either: it states the constraint as $\alpha \leq \alpha_{\max}$ (bounded relative to a resampling baseline, not held at zero) and notes that a budget above the attainable maximum restricts nothing.

i What the lineage does and does not show

Constraining rather than pricing is not specific to this book: the restricted selection index (for a trait, reported from O. Kempthorne and A. W. Nordskog [30], not read) and optimum contribution selection with a bound on a group coancestry (T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15], whose optimum-contribution paragraph and Introduction were read; T. H. E. Meuwissen [17] reported through it) both have that form. The α constraint is closest to the second, and the four differences above are why neither is a proof that it is the right constraint; whether to prefer a budget to a price remains the argument of Chapter 15..

4.6 Where this connects

Chapter 10. and Chapter 11. report the frequency-based metrics whose link to variance this chapter limited to the within-pool part (Equation (4.4)); neither computes V_{genic}. 3 measures a prediction accuracy for a different object from the r here, which this chapter constructs as the correlation between the index and the true genetic value, set by $h^2 = 0.5$; Finding 5 of Chapter 12. shows what happens when accuracy is assumed rather than measured. Chapter 15. states the α constraint as an inequality and sets the budget; it does not derive the constraint from the restricted index, and nothing here does. Chapter 24. tests whether selection builds the covariance term of Equation (4.3), against a random-selection control: it finds a term that is significant against that control, largest in early cycles and decaying with recombination, and it argues from the decay that constraining allele frequencies and ignoring this term is justified. It ranks that cost below the permanent cost of changed allele frequencies, on the condition that the decay is fast. Chapter 5. completes the Foundations part with the dominance side of the hybrid value; the Simulation part then opens with Chapter 6., which builds step by step the generators, one of which (`simulate_pools()`) drew the data here in one call.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **02b-response.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

5. Heterosis, dominance, and what divergence buys

Since Chapter 3. this book has repeated a claim without proving it: that the divergence between the heterotic pools is the engine of heterosis, and is therefore to be maintained rather than minimised. Chapter 11. will decompose diversity on that basis and Chapter 13. will build a monitoring panel around it. The claim has carried a lot of weight for an assertion.

The chapters before this one announce what it supplies. Chapter 1. states the identity numerically and hands its derivation here (Section 5.4) together with the dominance part of the combining-ability model of Equation (1.1) (Section 5.11); Chapter 2. introduces the dominance effects d_k and the heterosis H_i of Equation (5.3), derived below; Chapter 3. gives the partition the identity is stated in (Table 3.6); and Chapter 4. states two facts about combining ability – without dominance a line's GCA is the same against any tester set, with dominance it is evaluated at the other pool's frequencies – and refers the derivation to Section 5.11.

This chapter derives the claim, and then corrects it. The derivation is short and the identity is exact, under the conditions stated at each use: flat dominance, inbred parents and the complete $A \times B$ factorial. It has two halves. At a given GD_T (total gene diversity) – the quantity the α budget constrains (Table 3.6) – expected heterosis is $GD_T + GD_{BS}$ (Equation (5.6)), so a loss of GD_{BS} (the between-pool component) is a loss of expected heterosis, one for one: that is the sense in which the divergence is *maintained*. The correction concerns the other half: the reading of the identity that this chapter corrects is *push the pools apart and you will get more heterosis*. It is put here as the natural reading; it is not attributed to any author and no source is cited for it. That reading is false. Under neutral divergence expected heterosis does not move, in expectation over the draw of the pools (Equation (5.10)), and the sweep of Section 5.8, one draw per row, is consistent with it.

The chapter then goes one step past the mean. Expected heterosis is what a pool pair is worth on average; what a breeder selects on is how heterosis is *distributed* across the crosses of the factorial. Those are different questions with different answers, and the second one is where general and specific combining ability (GCA, SCA) come from.

The derivations come first and Section 5.13 turns them into the eight steps that compute them on a real programme's data, with the check and the failure mode of each one. Read that section first if the question is what to run rather than why it holds.

The data come from `simulate_lines()` and `simulate_data()`, drawn with the generator Chapter 6. builds (in the Simulation part that follows), and the `fst` sweep of Section 5.8 redraws the pools from it; `pool_complementarity()` supplies the three complementarity columns of the S1 panel (`s1_monitor()`; S1 is defined in Table 1.1 and the panel in Chapter 13.).

5.1 Three premises

Three premises carry everything below. They are stated here once, because every result in the chapter uses all three and two of them are restrictive.

Parents are fully inbred. Every parent line is homozygous at every locus, so an F1's marker row is the average of its two parents' rows and a locus is heterozygous in the F1 exactly when the parents differ. This is what makes the additive effects cancel from the mid-parent difference and what makes `GD_WI` zero. Note that this is a property of the *programme*, not of the mating system: the programme modelled here is that of an allogamous, maize-type crop with two heterotic pools under reciprocal recurrent selection (a modelling choice; no source for the heterotic-group system is cited in this chapter). Doubled-haploid (DH) induction or selfing to fixation is what delivers homozygous parents from it. Nothing here transfers to a programme crossing non-inbred parents (an inter-population cross, a synthetic, parents selfed once) without re-derivation, and Section 5.13.1 measures how large the error is if the formulae below are applied anyway: a multiple of the true gain, not a few per cent.

The genotypic model is dominance within loci and additivity between them. There is no epistatic term anywhere below: the genotypic value is a sum over loci, H_i is a sum of per-locus indicators, and the combining-ability expansion of Section 5.11 is bilinear only because no term couples two loci. M. R. Labroo, A. J. Studer, and J. E. Rutkoski [31] review epistasis alongside dominance as a proposed mechanism for heterosis; this model excludes it, and no result below should be read as evidence about it. What d_k does absorb is every *within-locus* story, as Section 5.2.2 sets out.

The marker panel is the set of dominance loci. d_k is indexed by the same k as the markers, so every locus carrying dominance is genotyped and the frequency statistics are computed on exactly the loci that generate heterosis. This is the strongest assumption of the three, and it is the one that carries the distance results of Section 5.7. A real panel tags causal loci through linkage disequilibrium rather than containing them, which weakens every statement below about markers predicting heterosis but does not change the algebra, since the algebra is written over whatever set k indexes. A related choice: every number below that depends on d (the correlation with marker distance, the alignment factor, the SCA shares) uses one draw of d_k from a gamma distribution (shape 2, rate 4, seed 4), positive at every locus and the same at every pool pair and scale, which is an illustrative assumption and not an estimate. The chapter does not vary it; the algebra holds for any d, the magnitudes do not.

5.2 The dominance model, minimally

5.2.1 The one-locus scale

The classical parameterisation puts the origin at the midpoint of the two homozygotes: one homozygote is worth $+a$, the other $-a$, and the heterozygote d. Under random mating at frequency p, with $q = 1 - p$, the population mean is [1, Ch. 7]

$$M = a\,(p - q) + 2pq\,d \tag{5.1}$$

The first term is the additive contribution, and the mid-parent of any cross already carries it. The second is the dominance contribution. It is the only part of M that depends on how many heterozygotes there are, and therefore the only part a cross can add over its own mid-parent.

> **i** a is a scale, not a quantity this chapter computes
>
> The symbols in Equation (5.1) are the textbook ones. This book's additive marker effects are β_k (estimated in 3, later), and its α is the diversity-loss statistic of Chapter 11., not the classical average effect of a substitution. The per-locus a_k reappears below and never as a result: in the genotypic-value model (Equation (5.2)) used to show that it cancels, in the additive part of the GCA of the cross mean (Section 5.11) and of the two-way layout of Section 5.13, and, written without the index, in the definition of overdominance as $|d| > |a|$ and in the average effect of a substitution $a + d(q - p)$ (Section 5.11.1). No quantity this chapter reports depends on it.

5.2.2 What d_k is, and what it is not

d_k is the **dominance effect** at locus k: the *functional* dominance, the departure of the heterozygote from the homozygote midpoint (the heterozygote value on the a, d, $-a$ scale of Equation (5.1)). It is a property of the locus. It does not move when allele frequencies move. This chapter, Chapter 1., Chapter 2., Chapter 3. and Chapter 4. call d_k the dominance effect and nothing else; the phrase *dominance deviation* is kept for the object that follows. Other chapters (Chapter 10. among them) still use the older name for d_k; it is a difference of wording and not a different quantity.

Fisher's *statistical* dominance deviation [1, Ch. 7], [32] is a different object: the residual left after projecting genotypic values onto the best additive model **in a particular population**. It is a property of the population as much as of the locus, and it changes when frequencies change.

Both appear in this chapter, and keeping them apart is the whole trick. d_k is the input. The specific combining ability of Section 5.11 is the statistical dominance deviation that a given d_k *induces* over a given pair of pools. One is a constant; the other is an answer that depends on where the pools happen to sit.

The distinction also buys the model what generality it has, and marks where that generality stops. Dominance, overdominance (a heterozygote outside both homozygotes, $|d| > |a|$) and pseudo-overdominance (two dominant favourable alleles in repulsion phase, too close for any marker to separate) are three

different biological stories, and M. R. Labroo, A. J. Studer, and J. E. Rutkoski [31] review the evidence for each. At marker resolution they are the same arithmetic: a locus at which the F1 gains something the mid-parent does not. A single d_k absorbs all three, and nothing below can distinguish them – nor needs to. Epistasis is the fourth story on M. R. Labroo, A. J. Studer, and J. E. Rutkoski [31]'s list and d_k does not absorb it, because a single per-locus number cannot represent a term that depends on two loci at once. That is the second premise of Section 5.1 (dominance within loci, additivity between), and it is an exclusion rather than an approximation.

5.2.3 The mid-parent difference

Code a genotype by $x_k \in \{0, 0.5, 1\}$, the frequency of the reference allele within the individual, and take the genotypic value to be the additive part plus the dominance effect at every heterozygous locus:

$$G(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_k a_k \,(2x_k - 1) + \sum_k d_k \,\mathbb{1}\{x_k = 0.5\} \tag{5.2}$$

The parents are fully inbred, so each is homozygous at every locus and the F1's row is the average of its two parents' rows. The additive part is linear in $\mathbf{x}$, so the two parents' additive values average exactly to the F1's own and cancel from the mid-parent difference. What survives is the dominance effect at the loci where the F1 is heterozygous:

$$H_i = \sum_k d_k \,\mathbb{1}\{x_{ik} = 0.5\} \tag{5.3}$$

The additive effects never appear. That is the result, not an omission, and it is why `heterosis_value()` takes no additive-effect argument:

```
cat(deparse(heterosis_value), sep = "\n")
#> function (X, d)
#> {
#>     stopifnot(length(d) == ncol(X))
#>     drop((X == 0.5) %*% d)
#> }
```

Against the literal oracle of Appendix C., which loops over loci and compares the two parents' genotypes one at a time, on 25 hybrids drawn at random from the factorial (so that both pools' line indexing is exercised; Table 5.1):

```
set.seed(12)                          # 25 random hybrids, not the first 25 rows
i25 <- sample(ctx$N, 25)
# ref_heterosis() takes the 0/2 line matrix L; the line-level functions of the
# package take 0/1 (see the protocol section)
oracle_gap <- max(abs(heterosis_value(ctx$X[i25, , drop = FALSE], d) -
                      ref_heterosis(L, ctx$ped[i25, ], d)))
stopifnot(oracle_gap < 1e-9)
kv(c(max_abs_difference = oracle_gap), sig = TRUE)
```

Table 5.1: Largest absolute difference between `heterosis_value()` and the literal oracle `ref_heterosis()` over 25 hybrids drawn at random from the full factorial (seed 12), in units of d.

quantity	value
max_abs_difference	0

The cancellation is worth seeing directly. Draw additive effects at random, score a real F1 and its two parents under $G(\mathbf{x})$, and subtract (Table 5.2):

```
set.seed(9)                           # the cancellation is exact for any a; seed
it anyway
a   <- rnorm(ctx$m, 0, 0.2)
val <- function(x) sum(a * (2 * x - 1)) + sum(d * (x == 0.5))
```

```
i   <- 7
mid <- (val(L[ctx$ped$a[i], ] / 2) + val(L[ctx$ped$b[i], ] / 2)) / 2
kv(c(mid_parent_difference = val(ctx$X[i, ]) - mid,
     heterosis_value       = heterosis_value(ctx$X[i, , drop = FALSE], d)), 6)
```

Table 5.2: Mid-parent difference of one F1 (hybrid 7) scored under $G(\mathbf{x})$ of Equation (5.2) with random additive effects a_k (seed 9), beside its dominance value H_i from `heterosis_value()` (Equation (5.3)), in units of d.

quantity	value
mid_parent_difference	362.3386
heterosis_value	362.3386

The additive effects entered the first number and cancelled out of it; they never entered the second.

5.3 Expected heterosis over a pool pair

Write p_{Ak} and p_{Bk} for the reference-allele frequencies at locus k in the two pools, each computed over that pool's lines. A locus is heterozygous in the F1 when the two gametes carry different alleles, which for a cross drawn at random between the pools happens with probability $p_A(1-p_B)+(1-p_A)p_B$. The expected heterosis over all $A \times B$ crosses therefore follows from the pool frequencies alone:

$$\mathbb{E}[H] = \sum_k d_k [\, p_{Ak} + p_{Bk} - 2 p_{Ak} p_{Bk}] \tag{5.4}$$

The candidate set here *is* the full factorial, every $A \times B$ pairing exactly once, and the frequencies are the means of those same lines. The closed form is then the mean of the realised values as an identity rather than an approximation, and the residual is at machine precision (Table 5.3):

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(heterosis_expected(pA, pB, d),
                           mean(heterosis_value(ctx$X, d)))))
kv(c(abs_difference      =      abs(heterosis_expected(pA,      pB,      d)      -
mean(heterosis_value(ctx$X, d)))),
   sig = TRUE)
```

Table 5.3: Absolute difference between the closed form `heterosis_expected()` (Equation (5.4)) and the mean of `heterosis_value()` over the 625 crosses of the full factorial, in units of d.

quantity	value
abs_difference	1.137e-13

That is a mean over $N = 625$ crosses, and a mean is not a ranking. Hold on to the question of how the individual crosses are spread around it; Section 5.11 answers it exactly.

5.4 The identity

Now split the bracket. Writing $\bar{p} = (p_A + p_B)/2$ and $y = p_A - p_B$, the per-locus F1 heterozygosity separates exactly:

$$p_A + p_B - 2p_A p_B = \underbrace{2\bar{p}(1-\bar{p})}_{\text{shared}} + \underbrace{y^2/2}_{\text{divergence}} \tag{5.5}$$

The first term is the heterozygosity a single merged pool at frequency $\bar{p}$ would produce under random mating. The second is what keeping the pools apart adds on top of it. Average both over loci with $d_k \equiv 1$, so that the weighting does not obscure the algebra, and they are exactly the GD_T and GD_{BS} of the

partition of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] that Chapter 3. derived and `gd_partition()` computes (Table 5.4):

```
hp <- heterosis_partition(pA, pB, rep(1, ctx$m)) / ctx$m
gp <- gd_partition(seq_len(ctx$N), ctx)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(hp[["shared"]],     gp[["GD_T"]],  tolerance = 1e-12)),
          isTRUE(all.equal(hp[["divergence"]], gp[["GD_BS"]], tolerance = 1e-12)))
fmt(data.frame(term       = c("shared", "divergence"),
               heterosis  = c(hp[["shared"]], hp[["divergence"]]),
               partition  = c(gp[["GD_T"]],   gp[["GD_BS"]]),
               residual   = c(abs(hp[["shared"]]     - gp[["GD_T"]]),
                              abs(hp[["divergence"]] - gp[["GD_BS"]]))), 12)
```

Table 5.4: Expected heterosis per locus under flat dominance ($d_k \equiv 1$), split into its shared and divergence terms by `heterosis_partition()` (Equation (5.5)), beside GD_T and GD_{BS} of `gd_partition()` on the full A x B factorial of the book's teaching scale (25 + 25 inbred lines, 2000 markers). Residual: absolute difference between the two columns.

term	heterosis	partition	residual
shared	0.3280928	0.3280928	0
divergence	0.0335968	0.0335968	0

i The divergence term and GD_{BS}

The divergence term, $\sum_k d_k\, y_k^2/2$, **is** the divergence half of expected heterosis, and with flat dominance ($d_k \equiv 1$), inbred parents and the complete factorial it is GD_{BS} itself. Under those conditions "between-pool divergence is the heterosis engine" is an identity, not a slogan; with a d_k that varies across loci GD_{BS} is its unweighted version and the identity holds for the weighted term only.

One thing to be clear about before reading on. GD_T is the gene diversity of the *merged* population, and by Chapter 3. it already contains GD_{BS}: with inbred lines, $GD_T = GD_{BI} + GD_{BS}$. Expected F1 heterozygosity is therefore $GD_{BI} + 2\,GD_{BS}$, the between-pool component counted twice – once inside the shared term, once as the divergence term. That factor of two is where the classical result sits. The heterosis of a cross between two *random-mating* populations is $\sum_k d_k y_k^2$ [1, Ch. 14], exactly twice the divergence term of Equation (5.5). The two do not conflict; they use different mid-parents. Theirs is two random-mating populations, each carrying its own within-pool heterozygosity, so their H is the total above $\sum_k d_k(p_{Ak}q_{Ak} + p_{Bk}q_{Bk})$. Ours is two inbred lines carrying none, so the whole F1 heterozygosity is heterosis, and the shared term is the mean of the two pools' random-mating heterozygosities plus the half of $\sum_k d_k y_k^2$ that GD_T already holds.

That paragraph is an algebraic claim and it can be checked rather than asserted. Subtract the random-mating mid-parent from the F1's total dominance value and what is left is $\sum_k d_k y_k^2$, exactly twice this chapter's divergence term (Table 5.5):

```
hpd  <- heterosis_partition(pA, pB, d)
mid_random_mating <- sum(d * (pA * (1 - pA) + pB * (1 - pB)))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(hpd[["total"]] - mid_random_mating,
                           2 * hpd[["divergence"]])),
          isTRUE(all.equal(2 * hpd[["divergence"]], sum(d * (pA - pB)^2))))
kv(c(F1_total          = hpd[["total"]],
     mid_random_mating = mid_random_mating,
     difference        = hpd[["total"]] - mid_random_mating,
     twice_divergence  = 2 * hpd[["divergence"]],
     sum_d_y2          = sum(d * (pA - pB)^2)), 3)
```

Table 5.5: Total dominance value of an F1 between two inbred lines (`heterosis_partition()$total`), its random-mating mid-parent $\sum_k d_k(p_{Ak}q_{Ak} + p_{Bk}q_{Bk})$, their difference, and twice the divergence term beside $\sum_k d_k y_k^2$, for the chapter's pool pair and d (seed 4); sums over loci, in units of d.

quantity	value
F1_total	355.669
mid_random_mating	289.778
difference	65.890
twice_divergence	65.890
sum_d_y2	65.890

The first number is what an F1 between two inbred lines gains over *its* mid-parent of zero; the third is what the same F1 gains over a mid-parent of two random-mating pools. They differ by 289.8 units of dominance value that the random-mating parents already carry themselves. Which mid-parent is the right one is not a matter of convention: it is whichever one the programme actually plants. Section 5.13.1 measures the consequence of getting it wrong.

5.4.1 A third form: one minus the between-pool coancestry

The sum of the two components has a name of its own. $\theta_{AB} = \mathbf{w}_A' \mathbf{f}^L \mathbf{w}_B$ is the between-pool coancestry, written f_{AB} in Chapter 3. and θ_{AB} in Chapter 11. (later), and $\bar{f}^L_{AB}$ in Chapter 2., where its complement is the heterozygous fraction of the F1s: on the full factorial, where the line weights are uniform, it is the probability that an allele drawn from a pool-A line and an allele drawn from a pool-B line are identical in state. Its complement is the whole bracket (checked on the book's data in Table 5.6):

$$GD_T + GD_{BS} = 1 - \theta_{AB} \tag{5.6}$$

```
tp <- theta_pools(seq_len(ctx$N), ctx)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(gp[["GD_T"]] + gp[["GD_BS"]], 1 - tp[["theta_AB"]],
                           tolerance = 1e-12)))
kv(c(shared_plus_divergence = gp[["GD_T"]] + gp[["GD_BS"]],
     one_minus_theta_AB     = 1 - tp[["theta_AB"]]), 8)
```

Table 5.6: $GD_T + GD_{BS}$ from `gd_partition()` beside $1 - \theta_{AB}$ from `theta_pools()` (Equation (5.6)), on the full A x B factorial of the book's teaching scale (25 + 25 inbred lines, 2000 markers).

quantity	value
shared_plus_divergence	0.3616896
one_minus_theta_AB	0.3616896

This one is algebra rather than simulation. `gd_partition()` defines $GD_T = 1 - \bar{f}$ and $GD_{BS} = \tilde{f} - \bar{f}$ with $\bar{f} = (\theta_A + 2\theta_{AB} + \theta_B)/4$ and $\tilde{f} = (\theta_A + \theta_B)/2$, and the sum collapses to $1 - \theta_{AB}$. Which is the shortest statement the chapter has to make: **expected F1 heterozygosity is one minus between-pool coancestry.** Everything else here is a weighting of that quantity, or a way of splitting it. The same identity is stated numerically for the book's data in Section 1.2, appears as the diagonal of the coancestry matrix in Chapter 2. (Table 2.6) and as the heterosis row of Table 3.6; this section is where it is derived.

5.5 A second identity, at the hybrid level

Chapter 3. reports `GD_WI_hyb` (Table 3.7), the within-individual gene diversity actually carried by the F1s, separately from the line-level partition, because with inbred parents `GD_WI` is zero by construction and carries no signal. A hybrid's self-coancestry is $1 - h_i/2$, with h_i its heterozygous fraction, so `GD_WI_hyb` is half the mean F1 heterozygosity, that is, half the observed heterozygosity H_o of the F1s in Chapter 1., and the two levels are linked by Equation (5.7), checked in Table 5.7:

$$2 \cdot GD_{WI\text{-}hyb} = GD_T + GD_{BS} \tag{5.7}$$

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(2 * gp[["GD_WI_hyb"]], gp[["GD_T"]] + gp[["GD_BS"]],
                           tolerance = 1e-12)),
          abs(gp[["GD_WI"]]) < 1e-12)
kv(c(lhs = 2 * gp[["GD_WI_hyb"]], rhs = gp[["GD_T"]] + gp[["GD_BS"]],
     GD_WI = gp[["GD_WI"]]), sig = TRUE)
```

Table 5.7: Both sides of Equation (5.7) on the full A x B factorial (25 + 25 inbred lines, 2000 markers), and the line-level GD_{WI}, which is zero with inbred parents.

quantity	value
lhs	0.3617
rhs	0.3617
GD_WI	−4.441e-16

Exact on the full factorial, because every $A \times B$ pairing is present exactly once. On a *selected* subset it holds only approximately. There GD_T and GD_{BS} are computed from the line-usage weights, which is what a random re-pairing of the selected parents would give, while `GD_WI_hyb` scores the pairs actually chosen. The gap is the pairing structure of the subset. `tests/testthat/test-dominance.R` asserts the identity to `1e-12` on the full factorial and, on a *random* 40-hybrid subset at one scale (12 lines per pool, 800 markers; `tests/testthat/setup.R`), bounds the gap with `expect_equal(tolerance = 5e-3)` (`test-dominance.R`). That tolerance is **relative**, not absolute: on a gene-diversity value of order 0.4 the absolute bound it enforces is of order `2e-3`. A subset chosen by an optimiser, which concentrates line usage deliberately, is not covered by that bound. Section 10.3.2, in the Metrics and prediction part, measures the gap on four 60-hybrid selections at this book's scale, of which three are distinct – one random draw, one max-diversity greedy and truncation on the index (the index-weighted greedy returns the truncation set) – none of them an optimiser's output, and reports the largest departure of the four.

5.6 Inbreeding depression, and why it does not price α

The same model run backwards gives inbreeding depression (ID). A locus at frequency p in a population with inbreeding coefficient F is heterozygous with probability $2pq(1-F)$, so the mean declines linearly in F [1, Ch. 14]:

$$ID = 2F \sum_k d_k p_k q_k \tag{5.8}$$

At $F = 1$ that is exactly the *shared* term of `heterosis_partition()` evaluated at $p_A = p_B = p$. So the depression of a pool driven to complete homozygosity and the expected heterosis of a cross made *within* that same pool are one quantity seen from two sides. I. J. Mackay, J. Cockram, P. Howell, and W. Powell [33] treat heterosis and inbreeding depression together on that basis, alongside transgressive segregation, which this chapter does not take up. The identity needs no new machinery (Table 5.8):

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(inbreeding_depression(pA, d),
                           heterosis_partition(pA, pA, d)[["shared"]],
                           tolerance = 1e-12)))
kv(c(inbreeding_depression = inbreeding_depression(pA, d),
     shared_term           = heterosis_partition(pA, pA, d)[["shared"]],
     deviation             = abs(inbreeding_depression(pA, d) -
                                 heterosis_partition(pA, pA, d)[["shared"]])), sig
= TRUE)
```

Table 5.8: Inbreeding depression at $F = 1$ (`inbreeding_depression()`, Equation (5.8)) beside the shared term of `heterosis_partition()` at $p_A = p_B$ (pool A of the chapter), and their absolute difference; sums over loci, in units of d.

quantity	value
inbreeding_depression	288.3
shared_term	288.3
deviation	0

The closed form is checked against simulated genotypes rather than against its own algebra, which is what `ref_inbreeding_depression()` exists for: it draws each genotype as identical by descent with probability F and as two independent alleles otherwise, so the two should agree to Monte Carlo error. Table 5.9 gives the closed form, the mean of the eight simulated runs with different seeds, the standard deviation of one run, and the standardised difference z:

```
k <- seq_len(300)
n_id <- 8
id_sim <- vapply(seq_len(n_id), function(s)
  ref_inbreeding_depression(pA[k], d[k], 0.6, n = 20000, seed = s), numeric(1))
id_closed <- inbreeding_depression(pA[k], d[k], 0.6)
id_se <- sd(id_sim) / sqrt(n_id)
kv(c(closed_form = id_closed, simulated_mean = mean(id_sim), mc_sd_one_run =
sd(id_sim),
     z = (mean(id_sim) - id_closed) / id_se), 3)
```

Table 5.9: Closed-form inbreeding depression at $F = 0.6$ on the first 300 loci of pool A (Equation (5.8)) against `ref_inbreeding_depression()`: mean of 8 simulated runs of 20000 genotypes each (seeds 1 to 8), standard deviation of one run, and z, the difference of the mean from the closed form in standard errors of the mean (s.d. of the runs over $\sqrt{8}$); sums over loci, in units of d (`z` is dimensionless).

quantity	value
closed_form	27.586
simulated_mean	27.575
mc_sd_one_run	0.026
z	−1.202

Result. The standard deviation of one simulated run over the 8 seeds is 0.026; the mean of the 8 runs differs from the closed form by −0.011, which is −1.2 standard errors of that mean. The closed form and the simulation agree within the Monte Carlo error of this run (300 loci of one pool, $F = 0.6$).

Now the part that matters, because the obvious next step is wrong.

It is tempting to argue: α budgets a loss of gene diversity; with inbred parents the quantity it budgets is $GD_T = GD_{BI} + GD_{BS}$ of the merged candidate set, the mean over loci of $2\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k$ (Table 3.6), and not GD_{BI} alone; inbreeding depression is $2F\sum_k d_k\,p_k q_k$; therefore spending α costs yield in the current cycle, and *that* is the price of the budget. The algebra does not support it (Table 5.10).

```
stopifnot(max(abs(heterosis_value(rbind(U, V), d))) == 0)
kv(c(max_dominance_contribution_of_an_inbred_line   =   max(abs(heterosis_value(U,
d)))))
```

Table 5.10: Largest absolute dominance contribution, `heterosis_value()`, of any pool-A line of the book's teaching scale (coded 0/1), in units of d.

quantity	value
max_dominance_contribution_of_an_inbred_line	0

Zero, exactly. A fully inbred line has no heterozygous loci, so its dominance contribution is zero **whatever the pool's allele frequencies are**. (On the simulated lines, coded 0/1, this holds for any matrix: no entry can equal 0.5, so the check illustrates the algebra and tests nothing about the pool; it is informative only on real genotypes, where the matrix can carry 0.5.) In a programme whose parents are inbred lines the depression was paid in full when the lines were made; it is a constant, and it does not move when the pool subsequently loses diversity. Equation (5.8) describes the gap between a hypothetical random-mating pool and its inbred derivatives, and that gap *shrinks* as $p_k q_k$ shrinks – but nothing in the programme stands at the random-mating end of it.

> ⚠ Inbreeding depression is not the current-cycle price of the diversity budget
>
> This is the same fact that makes GD_{WI} exactly zero in the partition of Chapter 3. (Table 3.6), and it has the same cause: with inbred parents there is no within-individual variation left to lose. Two consequences.
>
> The cost of α in this system is not a yield loss booked this season. Whether it is paid later, as lost response, is a different question. Section 4.2 states the condition under which gene diversity stands in for genic variance – only through GD_{WS}, which is not what α budgets, and only if effect sizes are unrelated to which loci lose diversity – and does not test it; this chapter does not either, and so does not say that the cost of α arrives in the additive variance. Chapter 23. runs selection under the budget on an additive index.
>
> And inbreeding depression **is** the live quantity wherever the population is only partially inbred ($0 < F < 1$: the F2, F3 and F4 generations that Chapter 7. sizes, where F is still climbing). **This book does not model it there.** Chapter 7. lists phenotypic inbreeding depression among what it does not model (its P9), and the only place the book applies the quantity to a population is at $F = 1$ (Chapter 9.), where it is the shared term above. The one other evaluation, at $F = 0.6$ in Table 5.9, checks the formula against simulation on 300 loci of one pool and is not a partially inbred generation of the programme. Equation (5.8) gives the expected depression at inbreeding coefficient F relative to random mating; Chapter 10. writes the same formula for the crossing block without computing it, and the book computes it for no partially inbred generation.

Note also what this does *not* say. Expected heterosis in the product is a separate question. Section 5.8 answers it for the neutral case: under drift the shared term lost and the divergence term gained cancel in expectation (Equation (5.11)), so expected hybrid heterosis is invariant for a d drawn independently of the frequencies. Under selection the frequencies move directionally, and what happens to expected heterosis is then the alignment question of Section 5.9, which can go either way. In neither case is the diversity loss itself an immediate dominance cost. Whether it is a cost later, in the variance available to select on, is the conditional question of Section 4.2, not a result of this chapter.

5.7 When genetic distance predicts heterosis exactly

Before the corrections start, one special case is worth having, because it is the only case in which marker distance and heterosis are the same number.

Set $d_k \equiv d$, constant across loci. Then H stops being a weighted count and becomes a plain one: d times the number of loci at which the two parents differ. For inbred lines that count is exactly what the coancestry kernel of Chapter 2. measures, so for a cross between pool-A line i and pool-B line j

$$H_{ij} = d\, m\, (1 - f_{ij}^{L}) = d\, m\, \mathrm{MRD}_{ij}^{2} \tag{5.9}$$

where MRD_{ij} is the modified Rogers distance between the two lines. Table 5.11 checks both equalities on the full factorial.

```
h1 <- heterosis_value(ctx$X, rep(1, ctx$m))
fL <- molecular_coancestry(L / 2)
ab <- cbind(ctx$ped$a, ctx$ped$b)
stopifnot(max(abs(h1 - ctx$m * (1 - fL[ab]))) < 1e-9,
          max(abs(h1 - ctx$m * mrd_matrix(L / 2)[ab]^2)) < 1e-9)
kv(c(vs_coancestry = max(abs(h1 - ctx$m * (1 - fL[ab]))),
     vs_mrd        = max(abs(h1 - ctx$m * mrd_matrix(L / 2)[ab]^2))), sig = TRUE)
```

Table 5.11: Largest absolute difference over the full A x B factorial between the heterosis under flat dominance ($d_k \equiv 1$) and $m(1 - f_{ij}^L)$, and between it and m, MRD_{ij}^2 (Equation (5.9)), in units of d.

quantity	value
vs_coancestry	1.137e-13
vs_mrd	2.274e-13

Both residuals are at machine precision. Under flat dominance, heterosis and molecular coancestry are one statistic seen twice – the identity of the modified Rogers distance with coancestry is Trap 1 of Chapter 13., met later; the link to heterosis is made here – and the diversity kernel this whole book runs on turns out to be the right object for the heterosis question as well.

Flat d is also precisely the condition under which H is a function of marker distance alone. It is a strong condition, and it fails as soon as d varies: two crosses at the same distance then differ by *which* loci they differ at. With the gamma-distributed dominance effects used everywhere else in this chapter the relationship survives but stops being an identity (Table 5.12):

```
kv(c(cor_uniform_d = cor(h1, 1 - fL[ab]),
     cor_real_d    = cor(heterosis_value(ctx$X, d), 1 - fL[ab])), 3)
```

Table 5.12: Correlation over the 625 crosses of the full factorial between heterosis and $1 - f_{ij}^L$, under flat dominance (`cor_uniform_d`) and under the gamma-distributed d of the chapter (`cor_real_d`; shape 2, rate 4, seed 4). Dimensionless.

quantity	value
cor_uniform_d	1.000
cor_real_d	0.781

A correlation of 0.78 is a useful predictor and a poor identity. Two things move it, and both are properties of the germplasm rather than of the statistic: how d is spread over the loci at which the parents differ, which is what Section 5.9 is about, and – once the premise that the marker panel is the set of dominance loci (Section 5.1) is relaxed – how well the panel tags the causal loci. Under flat d on a panel that *is* the causal set the correlation is 1 by Equation (5.9). Departing from either condition generally lowers it – not always, since a d that varies only across loci at which no pair of parents differs changes no H_i at all – and by how much is something this chapter does not attempt to predict.

5.8 Divergence is not a bonus

Read `divergence` as free money and you will reach for F_{ST}. Do not.

Draw the pools further apart and watch all three terms (Table 5.13). Nothing here is selected. The claim to be tested is an expectation (Equation (5.10), Equation (5.11)); the sweep has one draw per row, so it can show that the totals stay close to the expected level and that the two changes are of the same size, not that they are equal. Each point re-draws both pools from the *same* ancestral frequencies – the ancestral vector is fixed by `seed = 5` and shared across the sweep, while the two pool-frequency vectors are fresh Balding-Nichols draws [16] at each `fst` (2) – so what varies along the sweep is how far the draw scatters and nothing else.

Two quantities are kept apart in this chapter, each with its own symbol (1, 2). F_{BN} is the Balding-Nichols parameter of the simulation, `fst` in the code: the variance of a pool's allele frequency around the ancestral one p^* (Equation (6.1), stated later, in Chapter 6.; a quantity of the draw, never observed; $q^* = 1 - p^*$), in units of $p^*(1 - p^*)$. Every expectation below is a function of F_{BN}. F_{ST} is the statistic GD_{BS}/GD_T computed on the pools' frequencies [10, Eq. 8], which under Balding-Nichols estimates approximately $F_{BN}/(2 - F_{BN})$ rather than F_{BN} (2) and is larger again on finite pools. Where the text says that F_{ST} "is a function of the frequencies only" (Section 5.9, Section 5.13.8) it means the statistic. No conclusion here depends on the difference between the two: both are functions of the frequencies, and d enters neither.

```
sweep_het <- function(fst) {
  cf <- modifyList(book_cfg, list(fst = fst, seed = 5))
  Lf <- simulate_lines(cf)
  pl <- rep(c("A", "B"), c(cf$n_pool_A, cf$n_pool_B))
  Pf <- pool_freqs(Lf / 2, pl)
  hp <- heterosis_partition(Pf["A", ], Pf["B", ], rep(1, cf$m)) / cf$m
  cm <- pool_complementarity(Lf / 2, pl)
  data.frame(fst = fst, shared = hp[["shared"]], divergence = hp[["divergence"]],
             total = hp[["total"]],
             frac_opposite_fixed = cm[["frac_opposite_fixed"]],
             mean_abs_delta_p = cm[["mean_abs_delta_p"]],
             mean_sq_delta_p = cm[["mean_sq_delta_p"]])
}
sw <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(0.02, 0.05, 0.10, 0.20, 0.30, 0.45), sweep_het))
# Read again in @sec-heterosis-step5: no marker is fixed for opposite alleles
# at any grid point up to fst = 0.10, while the divergence term has already
# more than doubled between fst = 0.02 and 0.10.
stopifnot(all(sw$frac_opposite_fixed[sw$fst <= 0.10] == 0))
fmt(sw, 4)
```

Table 5.13: Neutral divergence sweep. For each target `fst` (the Balding-Nichols parameter), both pools are redrawn from one fixed ancestral frequency vector (seed 5) at the book's teaching scale (25 + 25 inbred lines, 2000 markers); one draw per row, no replication. Shared, divergence and total: expected heterosis per locus at $d_k \equiv 1$ (Equation (5.5)). Last three columns: the complementarity statistics of `pool_complementarity()`.

fst	shared	divergence	total	frac_opposite_fixed	mean_abs_delta_p	mean_sq_delta_p
0.02	0.3549	0.0107	0.3656	0.000	0.1138	0.0214
0.05	0.3489	0.0171	0.3659	0.000	0.1414	0.0341
0.10	0.3374	0.0246	0.3620	0.000	0.1715	0.0493
0.20	0.3231	0.0433	0.3664	0.002	0.2252	0.0867
0.30	0.3042	0.0595	0.3638	0.012	0.2589	0.1191
0.45	0.2792	0.0846	0.3639	0.041	0.3012	0.1693

Across the sweep the divergence term rises by a factor of 7.9. The comparison that matters is in absolute units, not in ratios: divergence gains 0.0739 per locus and the shared term loses 0.0756. The two changes are not equal in this draw, because each row is one sample of both pools; the expectation says they are equal, and the sweep shows them within 2 % of each other, with no replicate to say how far apart two draws can be. The total does not move in expectation, and in this draw the six totals lie between 0.362 and 0.3664 (the `total` column of Table 5.13).

5.8.1 The two terms, term by term

The algebra is one line. Pool A and pool B are drawn *independently* around a common ancestral frequency p^*, so $\mathbb{E}[p_A] = \mathbb{E}[p_B] = p^*$ and $\mathbb{E}[p_A p_B] = p^{*2}$. Therefore

$$\mathbb{E}[p_A + p_B - 2p_A p_B] = 2p^*(1 - p^*), \tag{5.10}$$

which contains no F_{BN} at all. With ancestral frequencies drawn uniformly on $[0.05, 0.95]$ the predicted level is $\mathbb{E}[2p^*(1-p^*)] = 0.365$, against a simulated mean of 0.3646 across the whole sweep (the six rows range from 0.362 to 0.3664).

That the *sum* is flat is the headline, but the Balding-Nichols model predicts each half separately, which is the sharper statement. Under it $\mathrm{Var}(p_A) = \mathrm{Var}(p_B) = F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)$, so $\mathrm{Var}(\bar{p}) = F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)/2$ and $\mathrm{Var}(y) = 2F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)$. Substituting:

$$\mathbb{E}[2\bar{p}(1-\bar{p})] = 2p^*(1-p^*)\left(1 - \frac{F_{BN}}{2}\right), \qquad \mathbb{E}[y^2/2] = F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*) \tag{5.11}$$

The shared term loses $F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)$ and the divergence term gains $F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)$ in expectation over the draw of the pools: the same expression with opposite signs, exactly and at every value of F_{BN}, not approximately. Both predictions are parameter-free once the ancestral distribution is fixed, so they can be laid straight on top of the sweep (Table 5.14, Figure 5.1):

```
Ep <- 2 * (0.5 - (0.9^2 / 12 + 0.25))      # E[2p*(1-p*)] for p* ~ U(0.05, 0.95)
sw$pred_shared     <- Ep * (1 - sw$fst / 2)
sw$pred_divergence <- Ep * sw$fst / 2
fmt(sw[, c("fst", "shared", "pred_shared", "divergence", "pred_divergence")], 4)
```

Table 5.14: Measured shared and divergence terms of Table 5.13 (per locus, $d_k \equiv 1$) beside their Balding-Nichols predictions (Equation (5.11)), computed with no fitted parameter from $E[2p^*(1-p^*)]$ for ancestral p^* uniform on [0.05, 0.95].

fst	shared	pred_shared	divergence	pred_divergence
0.02	0.3549	0.3614	0.0107	0.0036
0.05	0.3489	0.3559	0.0171	0.0091
0.10	0.3374	0.3468	0.0246	0.0182
0.20	0.3231	0.3285	0.0433	0.0365
0.30	0.3042	0.3102	0.0595	0.0548
0.45	0.2792	0.2829	0.0846	0.0821

```
plot(sw$fst, sw$total, type = "b", pch = 19, col = book_pal[["ink"]], ylim = c(0,
0.40),
     xaxt = "n",
     xlab = expression("target " * F[BN] * " between pools"),
     ylab = expression("expected heterosis per locus (units of " * d * ", " * d[k]
== 1 * ")"))
lines(sw$fst, sw$shared, type = "b", pch = 17, col = book_pal[["mid"]])
lines(sw$fst, sw$divergence, type = "b", pch = 0, col = book_pal[["ink"]])
lines(sw$fst, sw$pred_shared, lty = 2, col = book_pal[["mid"]])
lines(sw$fst, sw$pred_divergence, lty = 2, col = book_pal[["ink"]])
abline(h = mean(sw$total), lty = 3, col = book_pal[["ink"]])
axis(1, at = sw$fst, labels = sprintf("%.2f", sw$fst), cex.axis = 0.85)  # every
grid point
legend("right", c("total", "shared", "divergence", "Balding–Nichols, shared",
                  "Balding–Nichols, divergence", "mean total"), bty = "n", cex = 0.8,
       pch = c(19, 17, 0, NA, NA, NA), lty = c(NA, NA, NA, 2, 2, 3),
       col = book_pal[c("ink", "mid", "ink", "mid", "ink", "ink")])
grid()
```

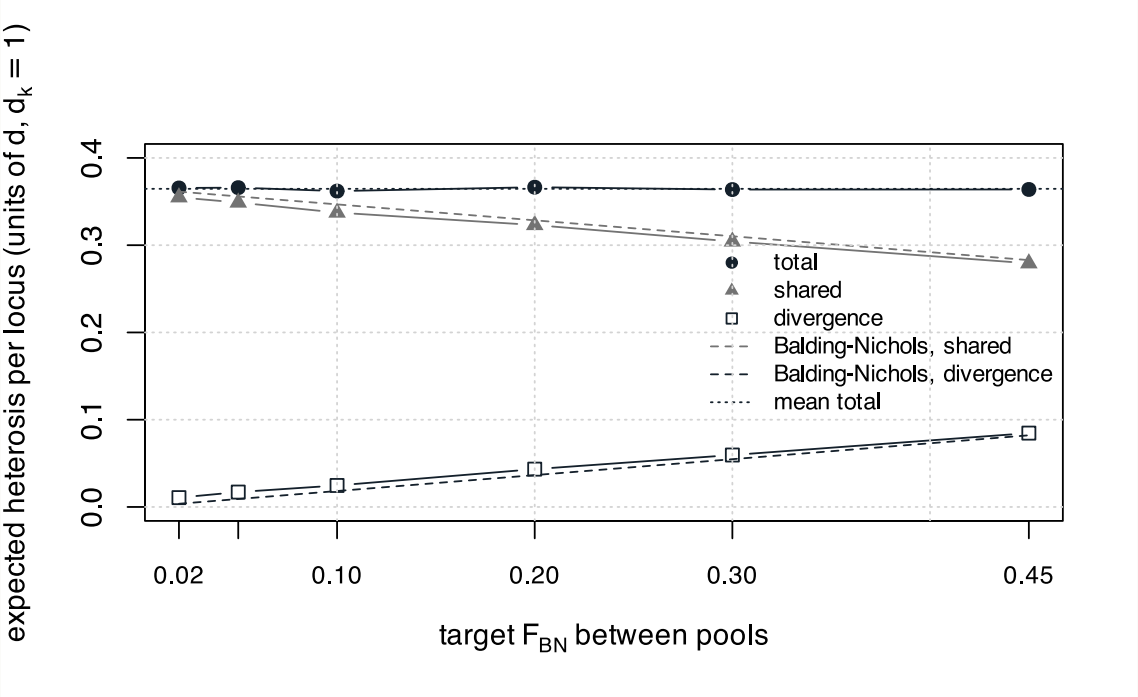

Figure 5.1: Expected heterosis per locus at $d_k \equiv 1$ (total, black filled circles) and its shared (grey triangles) and divergence (black open squares) components (Equation (5.5)) as the pools are driven apart by drift alone, against the target Balding-Nichols `fst` (F_{BN}). Each point is one draw of both pools from one fixed ancestral frequency vector (seed 5) at the book's teaching scale (25 + 25 inbred lines, 2000 markers), with no replication. Dashed lines are the Balding-Nichols predictions for the shared (grey) and divergence (black) components separately (Equation (5.11)), with no fitted parameter; the dotted line is the mean total over the sweep. Nothing is selected.

The measured divergence sits above its prediction at every `fst`, and the measured shared term about the same distance below it. That is not drift, it is estimation. The pool frequencies are estimated from 25 and 25 sampled lines, and a frequency estimated from n lines carries sampling variance $\mathrm{Var}(\hat{p}) = pq/n$. Conditional on the true pool frequencies, $\mathbb{E}[\hat{y}^2/2] = y^2/2 + [\mathrm{Var}(\hat{p}_A) + \mathrm{Var}(\hat{p}_B)]/2$ and $\mathbb{E}[2\hat{\bar{p}}(1-\hat{\bar{p}})] = 2\bar{p}(1-\bar{p}) - [\mathrm{Var}(\hat{p}_A) + \mathrm{Var}(\hat{p}_B)]/2$: equal and opposite, so the total estimated from sample frequencies is unbiased while each half is not.

The offset is not constant along the sweep. It is proportional to $\mathbb{E}[p_A q_A + p_B q_B]$, which the pools themselves erode as they diverge, so it shrinks with $(1 - F_{BN})$: about 0.0072 per locus at `fst = 0.02`, down to 0.004 at `fst = 0.45`, against measured gaps of 0.007 and 0.0025.

Those two pairs do not agree equally well. At `fst = 0.02` prediction and measurement are within 2 % of each other; at `fst = 0.45` the measured gap is 38 % *below* the predicted offset. The formula gives an expectation; each row of the sweep is one draw of 2000 loci at one seed, and the scatter of that draw is not constant either. $\mathrm{Var}(y)$ is $2F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)$, so the per-locus divergence $y^2/2$ has a variance that grows with F_{BN} while the number of loci averaging it stays fixed – the high-`fst` rows are the noisy ones, and the agreement at the bottom of the sweep is the more informative of the two. The offset is the right order and the right sign at both ends; it is not a per-point prediction, and nothing below rests on it being one.

What changes by an order of magnitude along the sweep is not the offset but the signal it sits on: at `fst = 0.02` the offset exceeds the predicted divergence of 0.0036, and by `fst = 0.45` it is a small fraction of it. A pool pair's *apparent* divergence overstates its true divergence, most severely when the true divergence is small and the pools are few.

⚠ Every unit of divergence is paid for out of the shared term, GD_T

Under neutral divergence the trade is one for one in expectation. Drifting the pools apart does not create expected heterosis; it relocates it from the shared term to the divergence term. A programme that maximises F_{ST} by drift has bought no expected heterosis and has spent gene diversity to do it.

The term that pays unit for unit is the shared term, GD_T, which contains GD_{BS}; it is not the within-pool term GD_{WS} (the GD_{BI} of the budget paragraph above, since $GD_{WS} = GD_{WI} + GD_{BI}$ and $GD_{WI} = 0$ with inbred parents). With inbred parents and the complete factorial $GD_T = GD_{WS} + GD_{BS}$ per locus (the identity $2\overline{pq} = p_A q_A + p_B q_B + y^2/2$ of Section 4.2), so by Equation (5.11) GD_{WS} falls by $F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)$ (the shared term's loss) plus the $F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)$ that GD_{BS} gains: **twice** what GD_{BS} gains, the accounting of Section 3.11. Both statements are expectations over the draw of the pools, under the conditions above, and the chapter does not measure GD_{WS} along the sweep. This is the mechanism behind Chapter 13. Trap 3, in the Metrics and prediction part. That section states the symptom – "F_{ST} keeps rising as pools drift apart at loci that are *already* divergent, which buys no additional heterosis" – and points here for the reason. Table 5.13 and Figure 5.1 are that reason.

5.9 What actually buys heterosis

If divergence per se is worth nothing, why do heterotic groups work?

Because real pools are not diverged at random with respect to d. The divergence term is $\sum_k d_k y_k^2/2$, a *weighted* sum. It grows when the loci that diverge are the loci that carry dominance; under drift the two are independent, which is exactly why the total was flat.

5.9.1 Alignment is a covariance

That sentence can be a number rather than a word. A sum of products is m times a mean times a mean, plus m times a covariance – the population covariance with divisor m, which is why the chunk rescales `cov()`:

$$\sum_k d_k\, y_k^2/2 = \frac{m}{2}\left[\overline{dy^2} + \mathrm{cov}(d, y^2)\right] \tag{5.12}$$

```
y2 <- (pA - pB)^2
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(sum(d * y2 / 2),
  ctx$m / 2 * (mean(d) * mean(y2) + cov(d, y2) * (ctx$m - 1) / ctx$m))))
c(divergence = sum(d * y2 / 2),
  from_parts = ctx$m / 2 * (mean(d) * mean(y2) + cov(d, y2) * (ctx$m - 1) / ctx$m))
#> divergence from_parts
#>   32.94521   32.94521
```

The first bracketed term is what F_{ST} can see: average divergence times average dominance. The second is what it cannot. **Alignment is $\mathrm{cov}(d, y^2)$**, and no statistic computed from allele frequencies alone can contain it, because d does not appear in one.

5.9.2 The scenarios

Hold the pools fixed, hold F_{ST} fixed, hold the multiset of dominance effects fixed, and change only which locus gets which d_k. `aligned` gives the largest d_k to the largest y_k^2, `anti-aligned` does the reverse, and `independent` is the draw as made (Table 5.15, Figure 5.2):

```
mk <- function(dec) { v <- numeric(ctx$m); v[order(y2)] <- sort(d, decreasing =
dec); v }
scen <- list(`anti-aligned` = mk(TRUE), `independent` = d, `aligned` = mk(FALSE))
al <- do.call(rbind, lapply(names(scen), function(n) {
  h <- heterosis_partition(pA, pB, scen[[n]])
  data.frame(scenario = n, cor_d_y2 = cor(scen[[n]], y2),
                   shared = h[["shared"]], divergence = h[["divergence"]], total
= h[["total"]])
}))
al$relative <- al$total / al$total[al$scenario == "independent"]
fmt(al, 3)
```

Table 5.15: Expected heterosis of one pool pair (25 + 25 inbred lines, 2000 markers) under three placements of the same dominance effects across loci: largest d_k on largest y_k^2 (aligned), the reverse (anti-aligned), and as drawn (independent; d_k gamma with shape 2 and rate 4, seed 4). `cor_d_y2`: correlation between d and y^2 over loci. Shared, divergence, total: sums over loci, in units of d. Relative: total over the total of the independent placement.

scenario	cor_d_y2	shared	divergence	total	relative
anti-aligned	−0.608	270.538	11.283	281.821	0.792
independent	0.006	322.723	32.945	355.669	1.000
aligned	0.953	370.139	66.313	436.452	1.227

```
bars <- function(col, ...) barplot(rbind(al$shared, al$divergence), beside = FALSE,
                                   col = col, border = NA, ...)
bars(NA, names.arg = al$scenario, ylab = expression("expected heterosis (units of "
* d * ", summed over loci)"),
     xlab = "placement of the dominance effects across loci")
grid(nx = NA, ny = NULL)                        # grid first, bars and labels over it
bp <- bars(book_pal[c("mid", "ink")], add = TRUE, axes = FALSE, names.arg = rep("",
nrow(al)))
legend("topleft", c("shared", "divergence"), fill = book_pal[c("mid", "ink")],
       bty = "n", cex = 0.8, border = NA)
lab <- sprintf("%.2fx", al$relative)
y0  <- al$total + 0.015 * diff(par("usr")[3:4])
rect(bp - strwidth(lab, cex = 0.8) / 2 - 0.03, y0 - 0.3 * strheight(lab, cex = 0.8),
     bp + strwidth(lab, cex = 0.8) / 2 + 0.03, y0 + 1.3 * strheight(lab, cex = 0.8),
     col = "white", border = NA)                # halo: no grid line through a label
text(bp, y0, lab, adj = c(0.5, 0), cex = 0.8, xpd = NA)
```

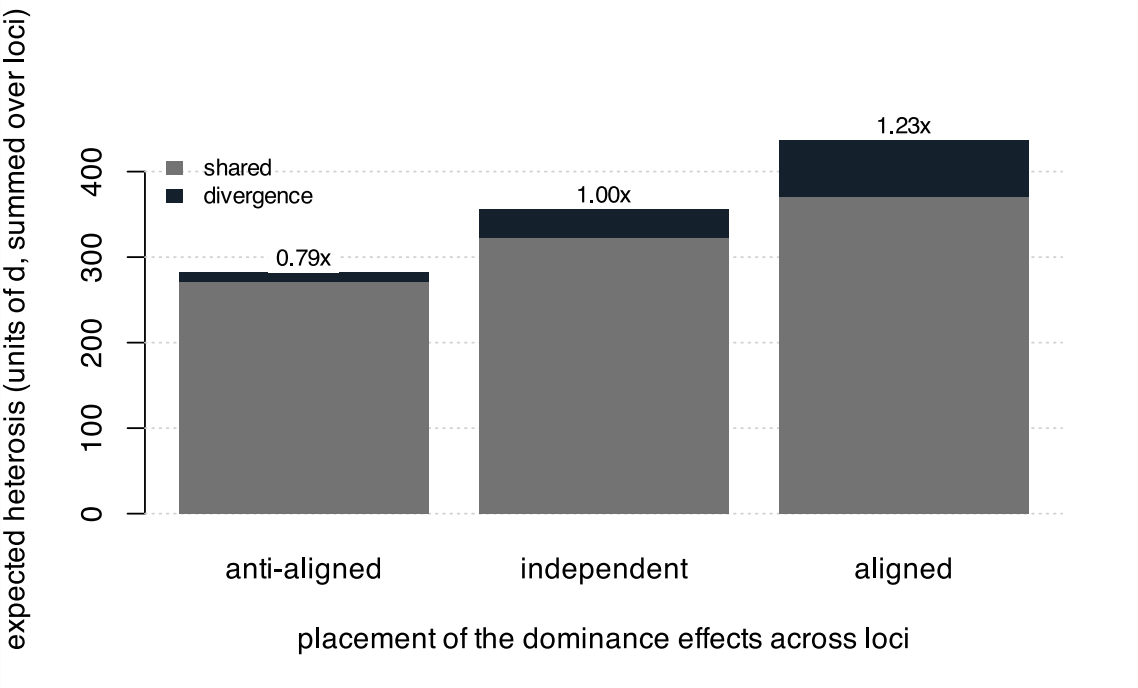

Figure 5.2: Expected heterosis of one pool pair (25 + 25 inbred lines, 2000 markers) under three placements of the same dominance effects across loci (Table 5.15), as stacked shared (grey) and divergence (black) terms, summed over loci in units of d; the label above each bar is its total relative to the independent placement. The same two pools, the same F_{ST}, and the same set of dominance effects in all three bars - only their placement across loci differs. Expected heterosis moves by a factor of 1.55 between the extremes. F_{ST} cannot see any of this, because d does not enter it.

F_{ST} is identical in all three rows of Table 5.15 and in all three bars of Figure 5.2 – it is a function of the frequencies only, and d never enters it. Expected heterosis ranges over a factor of 1.55 in this generating model (one pool pair and one gamma draw of d, not varied).

5.9.3 Isolating the divergence channel

One honest qualification. Sorting d against y^2 moves the *shared* term as well, because y^2 is not independent of $2\bar{p}(1-\bar{p})$: a locus with a large frequency difference tends to sit at an intermediate mean frequency. Part of the effect above therefore arrives through the shared half, not the divergence half.

The channel can be separated. Permute d only *within* groups of loci that share a value of the shared weight $2\bar{p}(1-\bar{p})$. The shared term is then invariant by construction – exactly, not approximately – and whatever moves is the divergence channel alone (Table 5.16):

```
hz  <- 2 * ((pA + pB) / 2) * (1 - (pA + pB) / 2)
grp <- split(seq_len(ctx$m), round(hz, 9))
strat <- function(dec) {
  v <- numeric(ctx$m)
  for (i in grp) v[i[order(y2[i])]] <- sort(d[i], decreasing = dec)
  v
}
st <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(aligned = FALSE, `anti-aligned` = TRUE), function(dec)
  as.data.frame(as.list(heterosis_partition(pA, pB, strat(dec))))))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(st$shared[1], st$shared[2])))
fmt(st, 4)
```

Table 5.16: The aligned and anti-aligned placements of Table 5.15 repeated with d permuted only within groups of loci sharing the same shared weight $2\bar{p}(1-\bar{p})$, so the shared term is identical in both rows by construction. Sums over loci, in units of d.

	shared	divergence	total
aligned	322.7234	57.7211	380.4445
anti-aligned	322.7234	14.4716	337.1949

The groups are the distinct values of the shared weight: there are 26 of them, because pool frequencies computed from 25 lines are multiples of \$1/\$25, so $\bar{p}$ takes at most 51 values and $2\bar{p}(1-\bar{p})$, which is symmetric about $\bar{p} = 1/2$, at most 26; with continuous frequencies every locus would be its own group and the construction would return d unchanged. The shared column is identical to the digit; the divergence term still moves by a factor of 4 and the total by 13 %. The alignment result survives its own control.

5.10 Reading the S1 panel

Chapter 13. will log `frac_opposite_fixed` and `mean_abs_delta_p` every cycle as stand-ins for heterosis potential. The sweep of Section 5.8 says how good they are.

`mean_sq_delta_p` is not a proxy at all. It is $\overline{y^2}$, so half of it is the unweighted divergence term GD_{BS}, exactly (Table 5.17):

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(sw$mean_sq_delta_p / 2, sw$divergence)))
kv(c(half_mean_sq = mean(sw$mean_sq_delta_p) / 2,
     divergence   = mean(sw$divergence)), 6)
```

Table 5.17: Half the mean of `mean_sq_delta_p` and the mean divergence term over the six rows of Table 5.13, per locus at $d_k \equiv 1$; the two agree row by row.

quantity	value
half_mean_sq	0.039983
divergence	0.039983

What it cannot carry is the weighting by d, which is the point of Section 5.9; the frequency half of the divergence term it reports without loss.

`frac_opposite_fixed` is a different matter (its column in Table 5.13).

Up to `fst = 0.10` it is exactly zero – not one marker in 2000 qualifies – and it first exceeds 1 % of markers at `fst` = 0.3, near the top of the sweep. It counts *near-fixed* opposite loci, and the divergence lives at intermediate frequency differences, which the threshold discards.

Log `mean_sq_delta_p`. It is exact, it is monotone across the whole sweep, and it costs one squaring more than the statistic already being logged. `pool_complementarity()` and `s1_monitor()` return it.

5.11 General and specific combining ability

Everything so far has been about $\mathbb{E}[H]$. Now the spread.

The same expansion that produced the shared/divergence split produces the combining-ability decomposition, with no new machinery and no model fitting. Let $u_{ik} \in \{0, 1\}$ be the genotype of pool-A line i at locus k and v_{jk} that of pool-B line j, and write each as its pool frequency plus a deviation, $u = p_A + \delta u$ and $v = p_B + \delta v$. The per-locus heterozygosity of the cross, $u + v - 2uv$, expands to

$$u + v - 2uv = \underbrace{p_A + p_B - 2p_Ap_B}_{\text{mean}} + \underbrace{(1 - 2p_B)\,\delta u}_{\text{parent A}} + \underbrace{(1 - 2p_A)\,\delta v}_{\text{parent B}} - \underbrace{2\,\delta u\,\delta v}_{\text{both}} \tag{5.13}$$

Four terms: one constant, one linear in each parent, one bilinear. Weight by d_k, sum over loci, and a decomposition of the form of the classical one into general and specific combining ability [2], [4] falls out,

$$H_{ij} = \mu + g_i^A + g_j^B + s_{ij} \tag{5.14}$$

with

$$g_i^A = \sum_k d_k(1 - 2p_{Bk})\,\delta u_{ik}, \qquad s_{ij} = -2\sum_k d_k\,\delta u_{ik}\,\delta v_{jk} \tag{5.15}$$

and g_j^B symmetrically.

What these symbols denote. μ, g_i^A, g_j^B and s_{ij} are used here for the decomposition of the mid-parent heterosis H_{ij} (Equation (5.3)), not of the cross mean $\bar{y}_{ij}$ of Equation (1.1) (the model for a factorial between two sets of lines, the North Carolina Design II of R. E. Comstock and H. F. Robinson [3], as in Chapter 1.). For the cross mean, with additive effects a_k and no epistasis, the GCA of pool-A line i is $\sum_k [a_k + d_k(1 - 2p_{Bk})]\,\delta u_{ik}$ (Section 18.2). The g_i^A of Equation (5.15) is the **dominance part** of that GCA, with the additive part $\sum_k a_k\,\delta u_{ik}$ – which cancels from H_{ij} – removed; s_{ij} is the same object in both. Where the two have to be told apart, this book writes **GCA for heterosis** for the term of this section and GCA, unqualified, for the term of Equation (1.1). The exact orthogonal split is the book's own; the concept of combining ability is that of the sources cited above.

What is linear in one parent is general combining ability: it is carried into every cross that parent enters. What is bilinear depends on *which two* lines met, and is specific combining ability. Because the deviations are taken from each pool's own line frequencies they sum to zero over that pool's lines, which is what makes the three components mean zero and mutually orthogonal. `heterosis_gca_sca()` is Equation (5.13) weighted by d_k and nothing more:

```
cat(deparse(heterosis_gca_sca), sep = "\n")
#> function (U, V, d)
#> {
#>     stopifnot(ncol(U) == ncol(V), length(d) == ncol(U))
#>     pA <- colMeans(U)
#>     pB <- colMeans(V)
#>     cU <- sweep(U, 2, pA)
#>     cV <- sweep(V, 2, pB)
#>     list(mu = heterosis_expected(pA, pB, d), gca_A = drop(cU %*%
#>         (d * (1 - 2 * pB))), gca_B = drop(cV %*% (d * (1 - 2 *
#>         pA))), sca = -2 * (cU * rep(d, each = nrow(U))) %*% t(cV))
#> }
```

It reconstructs every hybrid in the factorial exactly, and all three components are mean zero (Table 5.18):

```
cs <- heterosis_gca_sca(U, V, d)
H  <- heterosis_value(ctx$X, d)
ia <- ctx$ped$a
ib <- ctx$ped$b - nA
tol_H <- 1e-9 * max(abs(H))                  # relative to the scale of H
recon_gap <- max(abs(H - (cs$mu + cs$gca_A[ia] + cs$gca_B[ib] + cs$sca[cbind(ia,
ib)])))
stopifnot(recon_gap < tol_H, abs(cs$mu - mean(H)) < tol_H,
          abs(mean(cs$gca_A)) < tol_H, abs(mean(cs$gca_B)) < tol_H,
          abs(mean(cs$sca)) < tol_H)
kv(c(max_residual = max(abs(H - (cs$mu + cs$gca_A[ia] + cs$gca_B[ib] +
                                 cs$sca[cbind(ia, ib)]))),
     mu_vs_mean   = abs(cs$mu - mean(H)),
     mean_gca_A   = mean(cs$gca_A), mean_sca = mean(cs$sca)), sig = TRUE)
```

Table 5.18: Reconstruction of the heterosis of every hybrid of the full factorial by `heterosis_gca_sca()` (Equation (5.14)): largest absolute residual, $|\mu - \bar{H}|$ (`mu_vs_mean`), and the means of the pool-A GCA and of the SCA components, in units of d.

quantity	value
max_residual	7.958e-13
mu_vs_mean	1.137e-13
mean_gca_A	−4.796e-16
mean_sca	−1.265e-15

This is not a decomposition that resembles the two-way analysis of variance. It *is* the two-way analysis of variance: μ, g^A and g^B are the grand mean and the row and column effects of the H_{ij} table, and s_{ij} is the interaction residual of the additive fit, to machine precision (Table 5.19):

```
lm_gap <- max(abs(resid(lm(H ~ factor(ia) + factor(ib))) - cs$sca[cbind(ia, ib)]))
stopifnot(lm_gap < tol_H)
kv(c(max_abs_difference = lm_gap), sig = TRUE)
```

Table 5.19: Largest absolute difference between the residuals of `lm(H ~ factor(ia) + factor(ib))` and the SCA matrix of `heterosis_gca_sca()`, over the full factorial, in units of d.

quantity	value
max_abs_difference	6.967e-12

Both are asserted: the reconstruction residual is 8.0×10^{-13} and the `lm()` gap 7.0×10^{-12}, against a tolerance of 3.9×10^{-7} (`1e-9` times the largest $|H_{ij}|$, 391.4).

The tester-based schemes of the book (Section 1.1) evaluate candidates by their cross performance against a sample of the other pool. R. E. Comstock, H. F. Robinson, and P. H. Harvey [7] is the procedure the book cites for them; the paper's title states that it was designed "to make maximum use of both general and specific combining ability", and this chapter reports nothing of that paper beyond its title. The algebra above says what each component is made of, and Section 5.11.1 works out, as the book's own derivation, what a tester-based mean of H carries.

5.11.1 GCA is an average effect in the other pool's background

Look at the weight on δu: it is $d_k(1 - 2p_{Bk})$, and $1 - 2p_B$ is $q_B - p_B$. That is the frequency factor of the classical average effect of a gene substitution, $a + d\,(q - p)$ [1, Ch. 7], with two differences: the additive part a is absent, because it belongs to the parental mean and not to H, and the frequencies are **pool B's**, not pool A's.

This is the whole reason combining ability is not a property of a line. A pool-A line's alleles are always substituted into a pool-B background, so its general combining ability for heterosis is a dominance effect

evaluated at the tester pool's frequencies. Change the tester pool and every number changes. Two limits follow immediately:

- A locus at which the tester pool sits at $p_B = 0.5$ contributes **exactly zero** to g^A, whatever δu_{ik} is. It still contributes to g^B, through $(1 - 2p_A)\,\delta v_{jk}$, and to s_{ij}; what it cannot do is discriminate between pool-A parents.
- A locus at which the tester pool is fixed, $p_B \in \{0, 1\}$, has $\delta v \equiv 0$, so it contributes $\pm d_k\,\delta u_{ik}$ to g^A and nothing to either g^B or s_{ij}. The cross is then predictable from the pool-A parent by itself.

Between those two limits sits every real programme, and Section 5.12 is about which limit divergence pushes it towards.

What a tester-based mean of H carries (the book's own derivation). The following is algebra in this chapter's model – fully inbred candidates (the first premise of Section 5.1), $H_{ij} = \mu + g_i^A + g_j^B + s_{ij}$ – and not a report of what any published scheme does or selects on; whether the procedure of R. E. Comstock, H. F. Robinson, and P. H. Harvey [7] works on lines or on heterozygous plants, this chapter does not say, and the decomposition above is derived for lines only. Evaluate each pool-A candidate by the mean of its H_{ij} over a set T of k pool-B testers. Because the deviations sum to zero over the pool, that mean is, over **all** n_B testers, exactly $\mu + g_i^A$: s_{ij} averages out and g_i^A is the whole of what distinguishes candidates. Over a **sample** of $k < n_B$ testers it is $\mu + g_i^A + \bar{g}_T^B + \bar{s}_{i\cdot T}$, where $\bar{g}_T^B$ is the same for every candidate (it moves the level, not the ranking) and $\bar{s}_{i\cdot T}$, the mean of k specific deviations, stays in the ranking: its expectation over random tester sets is zero but it is not zero in any one set. That remainder is what ρ_k of Equation (5.21) measures in Section 5.13.6, so "averaging over testers removes s_{ij}" is exact only for the complete tester set and in expectation otherwise.

Two further limits. First, cross performance is a genotypic value, not a mid-parent difference, so a testcross mean also carries the candidate's own additive contribution – the part that cancelled out of H in the mid-parent derivation (Equation (5.3)) and is not in this decomposition at all. The row effect of a testcross mean is therefore the sum of that additive part and the GCA for heterosis, and that sum is the GCA of Equation (1.1); what the algebra here delimits is its dominance part, the GCA for heterosis against the tester pool. Second, g_i^A is defined against the frequencies p_B of the tester pool. In a recurrent scheme the tester pool is itself changed by selection from one cycle to the next, so the g_i^A of a candidate in one cycle is not the quantity it has in the next, and the derivation above is per cycle.

5.11.2 SCA is minus twice a weighted parental inner product

The bilinear term is $s_{ij} = -2\sum_k d_k\,\delta u_{ik}\,\delta v_{jk}$: minus twice the d-weighted inner product of the two parents' *centred* genotypes, a covariance up to the factor $1/m$. For $d_k > 0$, two parents that deviate from their pools in the same direction have a positive inner product and therefore a **negative** SCA.

Read in words: two parents that resemble each other – after removing what is typical of each pool – cross badly, and the resemblance that counts is weighted by d, not by marker count. Similarity enters negatively throughout this chapter – $1 - \theta_{AB}$, $d\,m\,(1 - f_{ij}^L)$ – but everywhere else it is similarity measured against a fixed base. Here it is measured against each pool's own mean, which is what makes the term specific to a *pair* rather than a property either parent carries into all its crosses.

It is also Section 5.7 again. Since μ, g^A and g^B are the grand, row and column means of the H_{ij} table, s_{ij} is the double-centred H matrix. Under flat d, $H_{ij} = d\,m\,(1 - f_{ij}^L)$, and double-centring annihilates the constant and flips the sign of what remains (Equation (5.16), checked in Table 5.20):

$$s_{ij} = -\,d\,m \cdot \mathrm{DC}\left(f^L\right)_{ij}, \tag{5.16}$$

with $\mathrm{DC}(f^L)_{ij} = f_{ij}^L - \bar{f}_{i\cdot}^L - \bar{f}_{\cdot j}^L + \bar{f}_{\cdot\cdot}^L$ over the $A \times B$ block (row, column and grand means).

```
s_flat <- heterosis_gca_sca(U, V, rep(1, ctx$m))$sca
fAB    <- fL[seq_len(nA), nA + seq_len(book_cfg$n_pool_B)]
DC_fAB <- fAB - outer(rowMeans(fAB), colMeans(fAB), "+") + mean(fAB)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(s_flat, -ctx$m * DC_fAB, check.attributes = FALSE)))
kv(c(max_residual = max(abs(s_flat + ctx$m * DC_fAB))), sig = TRUE)
```

Table 5.20: Largest absolute difference between the SCA matrix under flat dominance and $-m, \mathrm{DC}(f^L)$ over the $A \times B$ block (Equation (5.16)), in units of d.

quantity	value
max_residual	1.072e-12

The factor $-dm$ is not cosmetic: s_{ij} is on the trait scale and f^L is a probability, and the minus is the same minus as in $-2\sum_k d_k \delta u\, \delta v$ – more coancestry than the two margins predict means *less* SCA. So the coancestry kernel determines SCA under exactly the condition it determines heterosis, up to that constant, and stops doing so under exactly the same condition: a d that varies across loci.

5.11.3 The variance components

Because the three components are orthogonal, the variance of heterosis over the factorial splits with them. Under the sampling model of the simulation – each line's genotype an independent Bernoulli(p_{Ak}) draw at every locus, so unrelated lines and linkage equilibrium within each pool – each piece has a closed form in the pool frequencies, compared with the observed variances in Table 5.21:

$$\sigma^2_{GCA_A} = \sum_k d_k^2 \,(1-2p_{Bk})^2\, p_{Ak}q_{Ak}, \qquad \sigma^2_{SCA} = 4\sum_k d_k^2\, p_{Ak}q_{Ak}\, p_{Bk}q_{Bk} \tag{5.17}$$

```
qa <- pA * (1 - pA)
qb <- pB * (1 - pB)
pvar <- function(x) mean((x - mean(x))^2)   # divisor n, as in the closed forms
fmt(data.frame(
  component = c("GCA_A", "GCA_B", "SCA"),
  observed  = c(pvar(cs$gca_A), pvar(cs$gca_B), pvar(as.vector(cs$sca))),
  closed_form = c(sum(d^2 * (1 - 2 * pB)^2 * qa),
                  sum(d^2 * (1 - 2 * pA)^2 * qb),
                  4 * sum(d^2 * qa * qb))), 2)
```

Table 5.21: Variance over the full factorial of each combining-ability component of heterosis (Equation (5.14)), observed (divisor n) against the closed forms of Equation (5.17) evaluated at the sample pool frequencies, in squared units of d. GCA rows: over the 25 lines of a pool; SCA row: over the 625 crosses. One realisation of the pools (25 + 25 inbred lines, 2000 markers) and of d (seed 4).

component	observed	closed_form
GCA_A	30.72	35.03
GCA_B	34.20	38.07
SCA	70.27	71.48

The closed forms of Equation (5.17) take the sample frequencies as the pool frequencies; the observed column is one realisation of them, computed with divisor n (a population variance over the lines), which is the divisor the closed forms carry. The GCA rows are variances over 25 lines, whose relative standard deviation is about $\sqrt{2/n} \approx 28$ %: one standard deviation of the statistic, not a tolerance, and the deviations of the observed variances from the closed forms for these lines are in the last row of Table 5.30. That figure belongs to the independent-Bernoulli sampling model declared immediately above, not to the statistic: it is the sampling error of a variance over n *independent* observations, and a recycled pool has no such n. Section 5.13.7 measures how the dispersion of that deviation changes once the lines are related.

Note what each one requires. σ^2_{SCA} carries $p_A q_A\, p_B q_B$: it needs **both** pools to be polymorphic. Fix either pool at a locus and that locus contributes no specific combining ability at all, whatever its d_k. Within-pool diversity is not merely something the diversity constraint defends; it is the raw material of SCA.

5.12 Divergence destroys SCA faster than it builds GCA

Put the two closed forms of Equation (5.17) next to the drift argument of Section 5.8 and the variance tells a different story from the mean. The mean was flat; the variance is not, and it does not merely change shape.

Under Balding-Nichols, $\mathbb{E}[p_A q_A] = p^*(1-p^*)(1-F_{BN})$ and $\mathbb{E}[(1-2p_B)^2] = (1-2p^*)^2 + 4F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)$, and p_A and p_B are independent given the ancestral p^* (Equation (6.1), stated later, in Chapter 6.). Per locus, in expectation over the draw,

$$\mathbb{E}\left[\,\sigma^2_{SCA,k}\,\right] = 4d_k^2\,p^{*2}(1-p^*)^2\,(1-F_{BN})^2, \qquad \mathbb{E}\left[\,\sigma^2_{GCA_A,k}\,\right] = d_k^2\,p^*(1-p^*)\,(1-F_{BN})\left[(1-2p^*)^2 + 4F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)\right] \tag{5.18}$$

Read the two expressions before reading the sweep, because they already say what it will show.

Both carry the erosion factor $(1-F_{BN})$, and both are **zero at $F_{BN}=1$**: a pool fixed at every locus has no two lines that differ, so it has no combining-ability variance of either kind. Divergence therefore cannot transfer variance from one component to the other indefinitely; it destroys both in the limit. SCA carries the factor twice, because it needs both pools polymorphic at the same locus. GCA carries it once, multiplied by the tester factor $(1-2p_B)^2$, whose expectation *grows* with F_{BN}.

The two expressions therefore behave differently in F_{BN}. The SCA expression is convex and decreasing on $[0,1]$: it is a positive constant times $(1-F_{BN})^2$, so it only ever falls. The GCA expression is a *concave* parabola, its F_{BN}^2 coefficient being $-4d_k^2p_k^{*2}(1-p_k^*)^2$, and differentiating it gives the only turnover in this section. GCA variance rises from $F_{BN}=0$ at a locus if and only if $8p^*(1-p^*)>1$, that is $\frac{1}{2}(1-1/\sqrt{2}) < p^* < \frac{1}{2}(1+1/\sqrt{2})$, and turns over at

$$F_k^\star = \frac{8p_k^*(1-p_k^*)-1}{8p_k^*(1-p_k^*)}, \tag{5.19}$$

which is negative outside that interval – at such loci GCA variance falls from the start. A sum of concave parabolas is a concave parabola, and its maximum works out to the $d_k^2\,(p_k^*q_k^*)^2$-weighted mean of the $F_k^\star$. Whether that mean lands inside $[0,1]$ is a property of the ancestral frequency distribution, not a theorem: pools founded mostly at extreme frequencies would put it below zero and GCA variance would decline monotonically. Under the $U(0.05, 0.95)$ ancestral draw used here enough loci sit in the interval to place it inside the range, which is why the expected GCA curve of the sweep of Table 5.23 has an interior peak. The weighted mean locates the peak; a grid of single draws can bracket it only roughly, because the curve is flat near the top (see below). With d drawn independently of p^* the weight reduces to $(p_k^*q_k^*)^2$ in expectation, and $(p^*q^*)^2F^\star = p^*q^*(8p^*q^*-1)/8$ (Table 5.22):

```
pq <- function(p) p * (1 - p)
F_peak <- integrate(function(p) pq(p) * (8 * pq(p) - 1) / 8, 0.05, 0.95)$value /
          integrate(function(p) pq(p)^2, 0.05, 0.95)$value
# the sweep evaluates the closed form at sample frequencies of n inbred lines,
# whose divergence from the ancestral p is F_eff = F + (1 - F)/n; on the
# target-F_BN axis the peak therefore sits at (F_peak - 1/n)/(1 - 1/n)
stopifnot(book_cfg$n_pool_A == book_cfg$n_pool_B)
n_ln <- book_cfg$n_pool_A
F_peak_axis <- (F_peak - 1 / n_ln) / (1 - 1 / n_ln)
kv(c(expected_GCA_peak_fst = F_peak, on_target_axis = F_peak_axis), 3)
```

Table 5.22: Expected position of the peak of the GCA variance in divergence: $\bar{F}^\star$ (`expected_GCA_peak_fst`; Equation (5.19) weighted by $(p_k^*q_k^*)^2$, ancestral p^* uniform on [0.05, 0.95]) and its position on the target-F_{BN} axis of the sweep after the sample-frequency offset (`on_target_axis`; 25 lines per pool). Dimensionless.

quantity	value
expected_GCA_peak_fst	0.383
on_target_axis	0.357

Call this weighted mean $\bar{F}^\star$; here $\bar{F}^\star = 0.383$. It is the turnover in the divergence, from the ancestral frequencies, of whatever frequencies the closed form is evaluated at. The sweep of Table 5.23 evaluates it at frequencies estimated from $n=25$ inbred lines per pool. Given the ancestral p^*, such an estimate has variance $p^*q^*F_{BN} + \mathbb{E}[p_{\text{pool}}q_{\text{pool}}]/n = p^*q^*\,[F_{BN} + (1-F_{BN})/n]$, so its divergence is $F_{\text{eff}} = F_{BN} +$

$(1 - F_{BN})/n$, not the target F_{BN} – the same sampling term sized for the mean in Section 5.8. On the target-F_{BN} axis of the sweep the expected peak is therefore $(\bar{F}^{\star} - 1/n)/(1 - 1/n) = 0.357$.

What is monotone is the ratio (Equation (5.20)),

$$\frac{\mathbb{E}[\sigma^2_{SCA,k}]}{\mathbb{E}[\sigma^2_{GCA_A,k}]} = \frac{4p^*(1-p^*)\,(1-F_{BN})}{(1-2p^*)^2 + 4F_{BN}\,p^*(1-p^*)}, \tag{5.20}$$

which falls in F_{BN} at every locus. So the defensible statement is about the *share*, not about a transfer. Expected heterosis, we already know, is flat in F_{BN}. Sweeping the pools apart – same ancestral frequencies, fresh Balding-Nichols draws at each `fst`, as in Section 5.8 – and evaluating the closed forms on the realised frequencies (Table 5.23, Figure 5.3):

```
grid_fst <- c(0.02, 0.05, 0.10, 0.15, 0.20, 0.30, 0.45)
reloc <- function(fst, seed = 5) {              # pool seed 5 is the chapter's draw
  cf <- modifyList(book_cfg, list(fst = fst, seed = seed))
  Pf <- pool_freqs(simulate_lines(cf) / 2,
                   rep(c("A", "B"), c(cf$n_pool_A, cf$n_pool_B)))
  a <- Pf["A", ]; b <- Pf["B", ]
  va <- sum(d^2 * (1 - 2 * b)^2 * a * (1 - a))
  vb <- sum(d^2 * (1 - 2 * a)^2 * b * (1 - b))
  vs <- 4 * sum(d^2 * a * (1 - a) * b * (1 - b))
  data.frame(fst = fst, var_GCA = va + vb, var_SCA = vs,
             frac_SCA = vs / (va + vb + vs))
}
rl <- do.call(rbind, lapply(grid_fst, reloc))
# Grid maximum of the GCA curve for pool seeds 1 to 20 (the position of the
# maximum is a property of the draw; the expected peak is not).
peak_by_seed <- vapply(1:20, function(sd_) {
  r <- do.call(rbind, lapply(grid_fst, reloc, seed = sd_))
  r$fst[which.max(r$var_GCA)]
}, numeric(1))
pk_tab   <- table(peak_by_seed)
peak_txt <- paste0(sprintf("%.2f", as.numeric(names(pk_tab))), " in ", pk_tab,
                   collapse = ", ")
stopifnot(F_peak_axis > min(grid_fst), F_peak_axis < max(grid_fst),
          F_peak_axis > min(peak_by_seed), F_peak_axis < max(peak_by_seed),
          identical(rl, do.call(rbind, lapply(grid_fst, reloc, seed = 5))))
fmt(rl, 3)
```

Table 5.23: Closed-form variances of heterosis over the factorial (Equation (5.17)) along the neutral sweep of Table 5.13, evaluated at the realised pool frequencies of each draw, in squared units of d. `var_GCA`: sum of both pools' GCA variances; `var_SCA`: SCA variance; `frac_SCA`: SCA share of their sum. One draw per row (seed 5 for the pools, seed 4 for d), no replication; the grid maximum over pool seeds 1 to 20 is given in the text.

fst	var_GCA	var_SCA	frac_SCA
0.02	60.047	91.807	0.605
0.05	62.025	87.941	0.586
0.10	68.630	75.503	0.524
0.15	71.230	67.599	0.487
0.20	77.956	63.166	0.448
0.30	80.630	45.875	0.363
0.45	77.894	27.767	0.263

```
plot(rl$fst, rl$var_GCA, type = "b", pch = 19, col = book_pal[["ink"]],
     ylim = range(0, rl$var_GCA, rl$var_SCA),
     xlab = expression("target " * F[BN] * " between pools"),
     ylab = expression("variance of heterosis over the factorial (units of " * d^2
```

```
* ")"))
lines(rl$fst, rl$var_SCA, type = "b", pch = 15, col = book_pal[["mid"]])
legend("right", c("GCA (both pools)", "SCA"), bty = "n", cex = 0.8,
       pch = c(19, 15), col = book_pal[c("ink", "mid")])
grid()
```

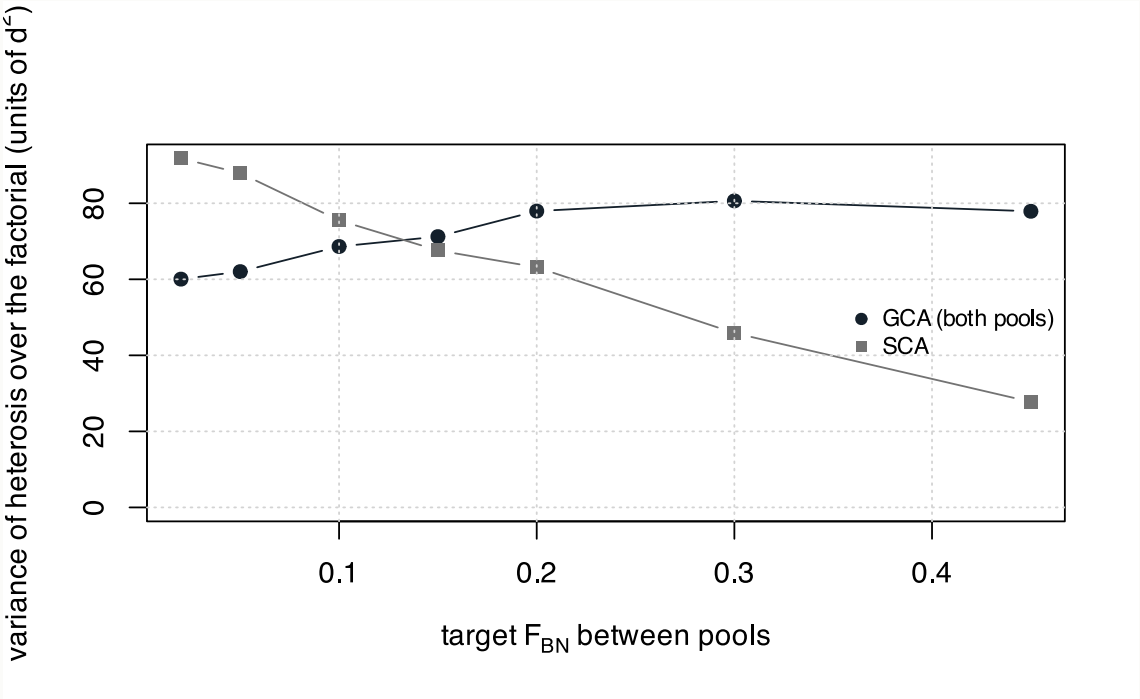

Figure 5.3: The same neutral divergence sweep, read through the combining-ability decomposition rather than through the mean: closed-form variances of heterosis over the factorial (Equation (5.17)), evaluated at the realised pool frequencies of each draw, in squared units of d, against the target Balding-Nichols `fst` (F_{BN}). GCA is the sum of both pools' GCA variances. One draw per point (seed 5 for the pools, seed 4 for d; 25 + 25 inbred lines, 2000 markers), no replication; values in Table 5.23.

Take the three columns in order, because the headline is in the arithmetic between them.

SCA variance falls by 70 % across the sweep, a drop of 64 units. GCA variance ends 30 % above where it started, a gain of 17.8 units, and has its largest value on this grid at an `fst` of 0.3. The position of the grid maximum is a property of this draw, not of the model: repeating the sweep for pool seeds 1 to 20 on the same grid and the same d, the grid maximum fell at 0.20 in 1, 0.30 in 10, 0.45 in 9. The curve is flat near its top, so a grid of single draws locates the peak only to the range of those values. What the model gives is the expected peak on this axis, computed from Equation (5.19) with the sample-frequency offset above, 0.36, which lies inside that range. So the GCA gain recovers about 28 % of what SCA lost. The rest is gone: total variance in heterosis over the factorial falls from 151.9 to 105.7, a 30 % decline, while the mean stays fixed throughout.

Read those four percentages as one realisation, not as constants. They come from a single pair of seeds – `seed = 5` for the pool frequencies, `set.seed(4)` for d – with no replication and no dispersion reported, and they will move if either changes. What does not depend on the seed is the direction, which is already in Equation (5.18): σ^2_{SCA} is a positive multiple of $(1 - F_{BN})^2$ and can only fall, and both components vanish at $F_{BN} = 1$, so no amount of neutral divergence can hold the total up. The ordering of the columns is algebra; their magnitudes are this draw.

The share of that variance which is specific falls from 0.605 to 0.263. That statement – about the share – is the one the sweep supports; "the dominance expressed as SCA reappears as GCA" is not, and the two variance columns of Table 5.23 are why.

The share result itself is not new in direction. J. C. Reif, F.-M. Gumpert, S. Fischer, and A. E. Melchinger [34] prove that the ratio of dominance to additive variance in a hybrid population falls as its two parent populations diverge, and conclude that superior hybrids then become predictable from general combining ability effects. The direction of this section's share result is theirs; the quantity is not the same one. Their

ratio is σ^2_D/σ^2_A over the hybrid population, whose denominator contains the additive variance contributed by the parents – the part that cancelled out of H in the mid-parent derivation (Equation (5.3)) and is absent from everything computed here. The ratio in Table 5.23 (`frac_SCA`) is σ^2_{SCA} over $\sigma^2_{GCA_A} + \sigma^2_{GCA_B} + \sigma^2_{SCA}$ *within heterosis only*. The two move the same way and are not interchangeable. What the sweep adds is the denominator, which a ratio hides: a ratio can fall because its numerator falls, because its denominator rises, or both, and the columns of Table 5.23 say which. Here the numerator collapses and the denominator recovers only part of it, so the share falls and the total falls with it.

⚠ Neutral divergence shrinks the part of hybrid variation that only a cross can reveal

Neutral divergence – drift, the only kind on this sweep – does not buy expected heterosis, and it does not move heterosis from one combining-ability component into the other. It **shrinks the part of hybrid variation that only a cross can reveal**, destroying SCA variance faster than it builds GCA variance. An additive model looks better against diverged pools mainly because there is less left for it to miss. Divergence that is *aligned* with dominance is a different matter and Section 5.9 is where it is measured; the sweep here holds alignment at zero by construction.

This sharpens a question 3 will have to leave open. That chapter fits one additive effect per marker and notes that such a model cannot represent SCA at all. The sweep says how large the unrepresentable share is, and how it moves: against poorly separated pools most of the variance in heterosis is specific; against well separated ones a minority is. These are shares of the variance in *heterosis*, not of total hybrid value, whose parental-mean part is additive at every F_{BN}. The nearest empirical statement this chapter can cite is that of F. Technow, T. A. Schrag, W. Schipprack, E. Bauer, H. Simianer, and A. E. Melchinger [35], for Dent and Flint heterotic groups: they report that the contribution of SCA variance to total genetic variance was comparatively small in their data, and high prediction accuracy from models that include GCA effects (their genomic best linear unbiased prediction (GBLUP) model fitted GCA and SCA terms and their BayesB model additive and dominance effects, so that accuracy is not that of an additive model). The sentence that follows from this chapter is that a small SCA share in well-separated groups is consistent with the mechanism of this section. The quantities differ – their share is of total genetic variance, this chapter's is of the variance in heterosis – and a single observational study in one crop cannot test the mechanism.

⚠ A smaller SCA share is not a better programme, and this is not a licence to maximise F_{ST}

Three things stay true at every point on that sweep, all of them in expectation over the draw of the pools (the sweep itself is one draw per point). Expected heterosis does not change. The gene diversity spent to buy the divergence is spent for good: GD_T falls by what GD_{BS} gains, and GD_{WS} by twice that (Section 5.8). And $\sigma^2_{SCA} \to 0$ is the limit in which no cross is better than its parents predict – there is nothing left to *find* by testing combinations, which is the activity the whole factorial exists to support. Past the peak of the GCA curve in Figure 5.3 even the predictable part, the GCA variance, shrinks: at $F_{BN} = 1$ there is no combining-ability variance of either kind, because no two lines in a pool differ.

The falling SCA share is therefore a fact about what a predictor can express, not a gain. A programme reading it as one would be congratulating itself on having less to predict.

So this is a second reason, independent of the diversity-side one, for the prescription Chapter 13. Trap 3 will make, to hold the statistic F_{ST} in a band rather than at a maximum. Section 5.8 gave the diversity-side reason. This is the prediction-side one, and it points the same way.

5.12.1 What this says about ranking crosses

The F1 of two fixed lines is genetically uniform, so the progeny-variance term that drives the usefulness criterion of stage S2 (Table 1.1; the criterion is set out in Chapter 13.) is zero for the hybrid itself, and cross ranking reduces to ranking means. That is true, and it is why this book ranks hybrids on an index rather than on $\mu + ih\sigma$.

It does not follow that the ranking is easy. The *mean* of an F1 contains an SCA term that an additive $\mathbf{G}$ omits entirely, and Section 5.12 sized its share of the variance in heterosis: a majority of it against weakly separated pools, a minority against well separated ones, and zero only where, at every locus, at least one

of the two pools is fixed – one pool fixed everywhere is a special case of that, not the condition. The progeny variance collapses; the specific combining ability in the mean does not.

5.13 Running this on a real programme

Eight steps, in the order they have to be executed on a maize-type programme's own data. Each one names the function to call, the quantity to check and what failure looks like. Steps 1-5 need only genotypes and pool labels. In every **Call** line `GL` is the line genotype matrix coded 0/1, the package convention for line-level functions; this chapter's `simulate_lines()` returns 0/2, which is why its code passes `L / 2`. Data coded 0/1/2 must be halved once, before step 1, and never again.

Steps 6-8 need more, and the requirement is worth naming because it is the reason these steps are rarely run. H_{ij} is a **mid-parent difference**, so fitting the decomposition on real data needs the hybrid trial *and* per-se phenotypes of the parent lines, measured on the same scale as the hybrid trial: a separate inbred-level trial, in the same environments, with a common check set or an overlapping design to put the two on one scale. Very few programmes run one, because inbred per-se performance has no commercial value. Without it what the two-way layout of step 6 fits is hybrid *performance*, not heterosis, and its row effects are the GCA of Equation (1.1): the GCA for heterosis of Section 5.11 **plus** the parent's own additive contribution $\sum_k a_k \, \delta u_{ik}$, the term that is not in H at all. Both decompositions are legitimate; they are not the same decomposition, and the difference is exactly the parental additive part.

5.13.1 Step 1 – Verify the parents are inbred, and price it if they are not

Every formula in this chapter rests on the premise that the parents are fully inbred (Section 5.1). It is checkable in one line: an inbred line's self-coancestry is exactly 1, and its heterozygous fraction exactly 0 (Table 5.24).

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(diag(molecular_coancestry(L / 2)), rep(1, nrow(L)),
                           check.attributes = FALSE)),
          max(abs(heterosis_value(rbind(U, V), d))) == 0)
kv(c(min_self_coancestry = min(diag(molecular_coancestry(L / 2))),
     max_het_fraction    = max(rowMeans(L / 2 == 0.5)),
     dominance_value_of_the_most_heterozygous_line =
       max(abs(heterosis_value(rbind(U, V), d)))))
```

Table 5.24: Check of the inbred premise on the simulated lines (25 + 25, coded 0/1): smallest self-coancestry, largest fraction of heterozygous loci in any line, and largest absolute dominance value, `heterosis_value()`, of any line (units of d).

quantity	value
min_self_coancestry	1
max_het_fraction	0
dominance_value_of_the_most_heterozygous_line	0

If those numbers are not 1, 0 and 0, the parents are not fixed and the mid-parent already carries dominance of its own. On the simulated lines they are 1, 0 and 0 by construction, since the matrix is coded 0/1; the check is meaningful on real data. The size of the resulting error is not small. Build parents that are *intra-pool* F1s instead of inbred lines – one random cross within each pool, so each parent sits at its pool's random-mating heterozygosity – then cross them across pools by drawing one gamete per parent per locus (Table 5.25):

```
intra_pool_f1 <- function(W, n, seed) {
  set.seed(seed)
  (W[sample.int(nrow(W), n, TRUE), ] + W[sample.int(nrow(W), n, TRUE), ]) / 2
}
ZA  <- intra_pool_f1(U, nrow(U), 101)
ZB  <- intra_pool_f1(V, nrow(V), 102)
```

```
pd2 <- expand.grid(a = seq_len(nrow(ZA)), b = seq_len(nrow(ZB)))

# One gamete per parent per locus, five independent draws of the whole factorial.
draw <- t(vapply(seq_len(5), function(r) {
  set.seed(200 + r)
  gA <- matrix(rbinom(length(ZA), 1, ZA), nrow(ZA))[pd2$a, ]
  gB <- matrix(rbinom(length(ZB), 1, ZB), nrow(ZB))[pd2$b, ]
  H  <- heterosis_value((gA + gB) / 2, d)
  mp <- (heterosis_value(ZA, d)[pd2$a] + heterosis_value(ZB, d)[pd2$b]) / 2
  c(hybrid_value = mean(H), mid_parent_gain = mean(H - mp))
}, numeric(2)))

closed_form <- heterosis_expected(colMeans(ZA), colMeans(ZB), d)
fmt(data.frame(quantity       =       c("parent_het_fraction",       "closed_form",
"simulated_hybrid",
                              "simulated_gain", "sd_across_draws", "exact_sum_d_y2",
                              "overstatement"),
               value = c(mean(c(ZA, ZB) == 0.5), closed_form,
                     mean(draw[, "hybrid_value"]), mean(draw[, "mid_parent_gain"]),
                         # parental term fixed across draws: same s.d. for the gain
                          sd(draw[, "hybrid_value"]), sum(d * (pA - pB)^2),
                          closed_form / mean(draw[, "mid_parent_gain"])),
               unit = c("fraction", rep("sum over loci, in d", 5), "ratio")), 3)
```

Table 5.25: Intra-pool F1 parents (one random cross within each pool per parent, 25 + 25 parents, seeds 101 and 102) crossed over the full A x B factorial with one gamete per parent per locus, five independent gamete draws (seeds 201 to 205), d_k as drawn for the chapter (seed 4). `parent_het_fraction`: fraction of parental loci heterozygous; `closed_form`: `heterosis_expected()` at the parents' pool frequencies (Equation (5.4)); `simulated_hybrid`, `simulated_gain`: mean dominance value of the hybrids, and mean hybrid minus mid-parent, averaged over the five draws; `sd_across_draws`: s.d. over draws of the mean hybrid value, equal for the gain because the parental term is fixed; `exact_sum_d_y2`: $\sum_k d_k y_k^2$ at the inbred lines' pool frequencies; `overstatement`: `closed_form` over `simulated_gain`. `unit` gives the unit of each row; `d` is the dominance-effect scale of the chapter.

quantity	value	unit
parent_het_fraction	0.294	fraction
closed_form	355.428	sum over loci, in d
simulated_hybrid	355.107	sum over loci, in d
simulated_gain	67.222	sum over loci, in d
sd_across_draws	1.708	sum over loci, in d
exact_sum_d_y2	65.890	sum over loci, in d
overstatement	5.287	ratio

Result. The parents carry 0.294 of their loci heterozygous. `heterosis_expected()` is still correct about the *hybrid*: it predicts 355.4 against a simulated 355.1 (s.d. 1.71 over five gamete draws), because that formula uses gamete frequencies only and does not care what the parents' own genotypes are. What it is not correct about is the *gain*: the mid-parent difference is 67.2, the same 1.71 standard deviation shifted down by the parents' own dominance value, so reading the closed form as heterosis overstates the gain by a factor of 5.29. The simulated gain agrees with the exact $\sum_k d_k y_k^2$ of Section 5.4, 65.9, to within one standard deviation of the gamete draw.

Interpretation, with its limit. The correction is not a fudge factor: it is the parents' own dominance contribution, 287.9 here, which `heterosis_value()` computes on the parent matrix directly and which is exactly zero under the inbred premise. Subtracting it recovers the mid-parent gain, and that gain matches the $\sum_k d_k y_k^2$ of Section 5.4 **in expectation only**: the realised intra-pool F1 parents are one draw, not their own expectation, so each replicate's mid-parent carries a sampling deviation of its own – which is why the agreement reported above is to within one standard deviation of the gamete draw and not exact. The factor of 5.29 itself is specific to this configuration – `fst` = 0.15, gamma-distributed d, parents at full

random-mating heterozygosity – and it shrinks toward 1 as the parents approach fixation. Five gamete draws at one seed family give the dispersion reported and no more.

Call. `diag(molecular_coancestry(GL))`; `heterosis_value()` on the parent matrix, not only on the hybrids. **Check.** Self-coancestry 1 and heterozygous fraction 0 for every parent. **Warning sign.** Any parent with a heterozygous fraction above the marker error rate. Partially inbred parents (one or two generations of selfing, clonal maintenance of a heterozygous plant) invalidate the mid-parent cancellation, not the hybrid prediction. **Threshold.** `heterosis_value()` on the parent set must return zero to machine precision. If it does not, subtract it: the mid-parent gain is the hybrid value minus the parents' mean, always.

5.13.2 Step 2 – Compute pool frequencies, and keep them distinct from p_0

`pool_freqs(GL, pool)` returns one row per pool. These are the *current* cycle's frequencies and they are supposed to move; they are not the frozen base p_0 against which the two inbreeding lenses (defined in 1, measured in Chapter 10.) are measured; p_0 is defined in Section 1.2. Both objects are frequency vectors over the same markers and confusing them produces a heterosis prediction anchored to a population that no longer exists.

Call. `pool_freqs(GL, pool)` on the current cycle's line matrix. **Check.** `nrow() == 2` and the pool labels are the heterotic groups, not families or locations. **Warning sign.** A pool frequency vector computed over *hybrids* rather than lines. On the full factorial that gives $(p_A + p_B)/2$ for both pools – Section 10.7.1 checks the identity on selected sets – which sets $y \equiv 0$ and reports the divergence term as zero. **Threshold.** None; this is a bookkeeping step, and the only failure is silent.

5.13.3 Step 3 – Decide what stands in for d_k, and say so

Nothing below step 4 can be computed without a weight per locus. Three defensible choices, in decreasing order of what they require:

1. **Estimated d_k** from a dominance model fitted on hybrid data. This is what the premise that the marker panel is the set of dominance loci (Section 5.1) assumes exists, and it is the only option that lets $\mathrm{cov}(d, y^2)$ be computed.
2. **Flat $d_k \equiv 1$**, which makes H proportional to marker distance and the whole calculation a function of the coancestry kernel (Section 5.7). Everything in this chapter's frequency algebra still holds; what is lost is alignment, which is exactly the term flat d sets to zero.
3. **No d at all**, reporting only GD_{BS} and `mean_sq_delta_p`, which is the frequency half of the divergence term and is exact (Section 5.9 says what is missing).

The cost of choice 2 is measurable, and it is the correlation already computed in Section 5.7: under flat d heterosis and marker distance are the same statistic, and under the gamma-distributed d used here the correlation between them is 0.78.

Call. `heterosis_value(X, d)` with whichever vector you have chosen, and record the choice next to the number. **Check.** `length(d) == ncol(X)` and d indexed in the same marker order. **Warning sign.** A report that gives expected heterosis without saying which of the three choices produced it. At the correlation just quoted the choices are not interchangeable for ranking crosses, and their absolute values are on different scales altogether. **Threshold.** If choice 2 is used, state that alignment is assumed zero, because that is what flat d asserts.

5.13.4 Step 4 – Partition, and cross-check against the diversity partition

`heterosis_partition(pA, pB, d)` returns `shared`, `divergence` and `total`. With $d \equiv 1$ and divided by m the first two are the GD_T and GD_{BS} of `gd_partition()`, and the chunk in Section 5.4 asserts that to a relative tolerance of `1e-12`. Running both is a consistency test worth the two lines it costs – but only if the two calls are given the **same line weights**, and by default they are not.

The algebra says why. For any weights $\mathbf{w}_A$ over the lines of pool A summing to 1 within the pool (`line_weights()` rescales usage this way), with inbred lines, $\theta_A = p_{A,w}^2 + q_{A,w}^2$ where $p_{A,w} = \sum_i w_{A,i} u_{ik}$ is the *weighted* pool frequency, and the same for B and for θ_{AB}. Substituting into `gd_partition()`'s definitions, $GD_T = 1 - \bar{f} = 2\bar{p}(1-\bar{p})$ and $GD_{BS} = \tilde{f} - \bar{f} = (p_{A,w} - p_{B,w})^2/2$, which are exactly `heterosis_partition()`'s two terms evaluated at $p_{A,w}$ and $p_{B,w}$. So the identity holds for *any* weighting – as long as both sides use the same one. `gd_partition(idx, ctx)` weights each line by how often the selection uses it (`line_weights()`), while `pool_freqs()` is unweighted. On the full

factorial usage is uniform and the two coincide; on a selected subset they do not, and the discrepancy is not small (Table 5.26; the usage of the selection is in Table 5.27):

```
i_trunc <- sel_truncation(ctx, 60)     # index truncation: deliberately unbalanced
gp_sel  <- gd_partition(i_trunc, ctx)
GLh <- L / 2
wt  <- line_weights(i_trunc, ctx)
hp2 <- function(a, b) {
  heterosis_partition(a, b, rep(1, ctx$m))[c("shared", "divergence")] / ctx$m
}
cmp <- rbind(
  `all lines, unweighted`  = hp2(pA, pB),
  `lines used, unweighted` = hp2(colMeans(GLh[unique(ctx$ped$a[i_trunc]), ]),
                                 colMeans(GLh[unique(ctx$ped$b[i_trunc]), ])),
  `usage-weighted`         = hp2(as.vector(wt[["A"]] %*% GLh),
                                 as.vector(wt[["B"]] %*% GLh)),
  `gd_partition(idx, ctx)` = c(gp_sel[["GD_T"]], gp_sel[["GD_BS"]]))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(unname(cmp["usage-weighted", ]),
                           c(gp_sel[["GD_T"]], gp_sel[["GD_BS"]]))))
# theta_AB uses weights rescaled to 1 within each pool, not the global block
pAw <- as.vector(wt[["A"]] %*% GLh); pBw <- as.vector(wt[["B"]] %*% GLh)
th_AB <- theta_pools(i_trunc, ctx)[["theta_AB"]]
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(th_AB, mean(pAw * pBw + (1 - pAw) * (1 - pBw)))),
          isTRUE(all.equal(th_AB / 4, drop((wt[["A"]] / 2) %*% ctx[["fL"]] %*%
(wt[["B"]] / 2)))))
fmt(data.frame(cmp,
               shared_err_pct     = 100 * (cmp[, "shared"] / gp_sel[["GD_T"]] - 1),
               divergence_err_pct = 100 * (cmp[, "divergence"] / gp_sel[["GD_BS"]]
- 1)), 3)
```

Table 5.26: Shared and divergence terms per locus ($d_k \equiv 1$) for one 60-hybrid index-truncation selection, from four sets of pool frequencies: all lines unweighted, the lines used unweighted, usage-weighted (`line_weights()`), and GD_T, GD_{BS} of `gd_partition()` on the same selection. Error columns: per cent deviation from `gd_partition()`.

	shared	divergence	shared_err_pct	divergence_err_pct
all lines, unweighted	0.328	0.034	5.020	−35.899
lines used, unweighted	0.326	0.039	4.351	−26.403
usage-weighted	0.312	0.052	0.000	0.000
gd_partition(idx, ctx)	0.312	0.052	0.000	0.000

```
kv(c(lines_used_A = length(unique(ctx$ped$a[i_trunc])),
     lines_used_B = length(unique(ctx$ped$b[i_trunc])),
     max_line_use = max_line_use(i_trunc, ctx), n_sel = length(i_trunc)), 0)
```

Table 5.27: Line usage of the 60-hybrid index-truncation selection of Table 5.26: distinct pool-A and pool-B lines among its parents, the largest number of the selected crosses any one line enters, and the number of hybrids selected (counts).

quantity	value
lines_used_A	10
lines_used_B	23
max_line_use	23
n_sel	60

Result. With usage weights on both sides the identity is exact to machine precision – the `stopifnot()` enforces it – while the unweighted pool frequencies of `pool_freqs()` overstate `shared` by +5.0 % and understate `divergence` by 35.9 % on this 60-hybrid truncation set, which uses only 10 pool-A lines with one of them in 23 of the 60 crosses. Restricting the unweighted mean to the lines actually used recovers part of the gap and not the rest, because the usage *within* the used set is itself far from uniform.

Interpretation. The two functions are not inconsistent; they answer the same question on two different populations – a notional pool in which every line is equally represented, and the pool as the selection actually weights it. Which one a report wants depends on the question, and the only error is comparing one with the other and calling the difference a bug. The order of magnitude quoted here is one selection at one scale; a plan with a usage cap (`max_use`) sits between the two rows.

Call. `heterosis_partition()` on the pool frequencies and `gd_partition(idx, ctx)` on the hybrid set – with the pool frequencies weighted by `line_weights(idx, ctx)` if the two are to be compared at all. **Check.** `shared / m == GD_T` and `divergence / m == GD_BS` under flat d, **both computed from usage-weighted pool frequencies**. On the full factorial, or under any uniform usage, the unweighted `pool_freqs()` satisfies this too. **Warning sign.** A disagreement on a selected subset is almost always the weighting above, not a coding error: check `line_weights()` first, and only then whether the lines are coded 0/1 or the pool labels differ between the calls. A GD_{WI} that is not zero is the separate failure – with inbred parents it must be, and a non-zero value means the line matrix contains heterozygotes, back to step 1. **Threshold.** Machine precision when both sides carry the same weights. With unweighted pool frequencies against a selected subset, expect tens of per cent on the divergence term, of the size measured above, and do not treat it as a tolerance to tighten.

5.13.5 Step 5 – Log `mean_sq_delta_p` every cycle

`s1_monitor(GL, pool, cycle)` is the per-cycle panel. Of its three complementarity columns only `mean_sq_delta_p` is exact – it is $\overline{y^2}$, so half of it is GD_{BS} – and `frac_opposite_fixed` is zero across most of the useful range, as the sweep in Section 5.8 shows.

Call. `s1_monitor()` once per cycle, appended to a single data frame. **Check.** `mean_sq_delta_p / 2` against `gd_partition()`'s `GD_BS`, on the full factorial, where line usage is uniform. On a selected subset the two agree only if the pool frequencies are usage-weighted (Section 5.13.4); with the unweighted frequencies `s1_monitor()` uses, expect a gap of the size measured there. **Warning sign.** `frac_opposite_fixed` used as the divergence statistic. In the sweep of Section 5.8 it is exactly zero at every `fst` up to 0.10 – not one marker in 2000 – while over the same span the divergence term has already risen by a factor of 2.3 (0.0107 to 0.0246 per locus at $d = 1$). The first non-zero grid point is at `fst` = 0.2, by which point divergence has risen 4.1-fold. **Threshold.** A *band* on F_{ST}, not a maximum. Section 5.8 gives the diversity-side reason and Section 5.12 the prediction-side one.

5.13.6 Step 6 – Check that the crossing layout identifies what you intend to fit

This is the step most often skipped, and it is arithmetic, not opinion. The general rule – a crossing plan as a bipartite graph, the rank of the GCA design matrix as lines minus connected components, and the accuracy of a testcross mean against the number of testers with plot error included – is developed in the Mating and testing design part, later, at Section 18.2.3 and Section 18.3. This step keeps only what the heterosis decomposition adds: the layout check on the chapter's own factorial, and the finite-population correction for drawing testers from a pool of n_B. In this step k is the number of testers, as in Section 18.3; everywhere else in the chapter it indexes loci. The decomposition $H_{ij} = \mu + g_i^A + g_j^B + s_{ij}$ is the two-way layout with identified rows and columns. Count the degrees of freedom the layout actually provides (Table 5.28):

```
layout_df <- function(n_testers) {
  k <- which(ib <= n_testers)
  a <- factor(ia[k]); b <- factor(ib[k])
  X_add <- if (n_testers > 1) model.matrix(~ a + b) else model.matrix(~ a)
  X_sat <- if (n_testers > 1) model.matrix(~ a * b) else X_add
  data.frame(testers = n_testers, crosses = length(k),
             rank_mu_gca = qr(X_add)$rank, rank_with_sca = qr(X_sat)$rank,
             sca_df = qr(X_sat)$rank - qr(X_add)$rank,
             residual_df = length(k) - qr(X_sat)$rank)
```

```
}
fmt(do.call(rbind, lapply(c(1, 2, 5, book_cfg$n_pool_B), layout_df)))
```

Table 5.28: Degrees of freedom of the two-way layout when all 25 pool-A lines are crossed to the first 1, 2, 5 or 25 pool-B testers, one observation per cross. `rank_mu_gca`: rank of the design matrix with mean and GCA effects; `rank_with_sca`: rank with the GCA x GCA interaction added; `sca_df`: their difference; `residual_df`: crosses minus the saturated rank.

testers	crosses	rank_mu_gca	rank_with_sca	sca_df	residual_df
1	25	25	25	0	0
2	50	26	50	24	0
5	125	29	125	96	0
25	625	49	625	576	0

Result. With a single tester the $\mu + g^A$ model already has rank equal to the number of crosses, so `sca_df` is 0: specific combining ability is not estimable, not merely imprecise. From two testers onward `sca_df` is positive. `residual_df` is 0 in every row, because there is one observation per cross – SCA becomes *identifiable* from the layout at two testers and *testable* only when the trial adds replication.

How much a small tester set costs for general combining ability is a separate question with a closed-form answer. Averaging a pool-A line over k testers leaves it with g_i^A plus the mean of k specific deviations, so the correlation between the testcross mean and the true g^A is

$$\rho_k = \left[1 + \frac{\sigma^2_{SCA}}{\sigma^2_{GCA_A}} \cdot \frac{n_B - k}{k\,(n_B - 1)}\right]^{-1/2} \tag{5.21}$$

where the second factor is the finite-population correction for drawing k of the n_B available testers without replacement; at $k = n_B$ it vanishes and $\rho_k = 1$ exactly, because the row mean of the complete factorial *is* $\mu + g_i^A$. This is the least-squares accuracy ρ of Section 18.3 with $\sigma^2_g = \sigma^2_{GCA_A}$, $\sigma^2_s = \sigma^2_{SCA}$, $c = k$ and no plot error ($\sigma^2_e = 0$, since H here is known exactly); as $n_B \to \infty$ the correction tends to $1/k$ and the two expressions coincide. Many random tester sets per k (Table 5.29):

```
Htab  <- matrix(H, nA, book_cfg$n_pool_B)   # rows = pool A, columns = pool B
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(Htab, cs$mu + outer(cs$gca_A, cs$gca_B, "+") + cs$sca)))
v_gca <- pvar(cs$gca_A)                     # divisor n, as rho_k assumes
v_sca <- pvar(as.vector(cs$sca))
nBt   <- book_cfg$n_pool_B
n_sets <- 4000
tester_scan <- function(k, reps = n_sets) {
  r <- vapply(seq_len(reps), function(i) {
    set.seed(55 + 100000 * k + i)               # 1000 * k would collide across k
    cor(rowMeans(Htab[, sample.int(nBt, k), drop = FALSE]), cs$gca_A)
  }, numeric(1))
  data.frame(testers = k, cor_mean = mean(r), cor_sd = sd(r),
             predicted = 1 / sqrt(1 + (v_sca / v_gca) * (nBt - k) / (k * (nBt - 1))))
}
ts <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(1, 2, 3, 5, 10, nBt), tester_scan))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(ts$cor_mean[ts$testers == nBt], 1)))
# The residual is only interpretable where the tester sets differ at all; at
# k = n_B there is one possible set, so cor_sd is a rounding residue and the
# ratio would be 0/0 dressed up as a number.
ts$resid_se <- ifelse(ts$cor_sd > 1e-12,
                      (ts$cor_mean - ts$predicted) / (ts$cor_sd / sqrt(n_sets)), NA)
fmt(ts, 4)
```

Table 5.29: Correlation between a pool-A line's mean heterosis over k randomly drawn pool-B testers and its g_i^A: mean and s.d. over 4000 tester sets per k (`cor_mean`, `cor_sd`), the closed form ρ_k of Equation (5.21) (`predicted`), and the residual `cor_mean` minus `predicted` in standard errors of the mean, `cor_sd` over the square root of the number of sets (`resid_se`; NA at $k = n_B = 25$, where only one tester set exists). One realisation of the pools and of d.

testers	cor_mean	cor_sd	predicted	resid_se
1	0.5516	0.1231	0.5516	0.0185
2	0.6930	0.0882	0.6907	1.5980
3	0.7699	0.0681	0.7672	2.4460
5	0.8534	0.0442	0.8509	3.5959
10	0.9368	0.0195	0.9354	4.4982
25	1.0000	0.0000	1.0000	NA

Result. A single tester ranks pool-A lines for general combining ability with a correlation of 0.55 (s.d. 0.12 over 4000 tester choices); five testers give 0.85 and ten give 0.94. The mean over tester sets and the closed form differ by at most 0.003 at any k. At $k = 1$ the difference is 0.02 standard errors of the mean; at $k = 2, 3, 5, 10$ the mean lies above the closed form by 0.001 to 0.003, which is 1.6 to 4.5 standard errors. The closed form is therefore exact at $k = 1$ within the noise of this scan and understates the mean correlation slightly, by a few thousandths, for k between 2 and 10.

Reading of the residuals, and its limit. The deviations are small against the quantity being predicted and the closed form is adequate to size a tester set; this section does not claim it is exact. Two possible reasons for the sign are not tested here: ρ_k is a function of an *expected* sampling variance, whereas Table 5.29 averages correlations, and $x \mapsto (1 + x)^{-1/2}$ is convex, which by Jensen's inequality would put the mean of the correlations above the function of the mean; and $\mathrm{cov}_i(g_i^A, \bar{s}_{i\cdot})$ vanishes only when the mean runs over all n_B testers, not over a subset. The scan is a measurement on one realisation of the pools and of d, with the dispersion over tester sets reported, not a validation of the formula at other pools.

Interpretation. The whole scan is driven by one ratio, $\sigma^2_{SCA}/\sigma^2_{GCA_A} = 2.29$ here. That ratio is what Section 5.12 shows falling as the pools diverge, so the number of testers a programme needs is not a constant of the crop: well separated pools need fewer. Two limits. This is heterosis only – the parental additive contribution to testcross performance is not in H and is not tested here – and it is one realisation of d and one pool pair, so the ratio, and with it every entry in Table 5.29, moves with the seed.

Call. `qr(model.matrix(...))$rank` on the layout you actually have, before fitting anything; `heterosis_gca_sca()` only once the layout supports it. **Check.** `sca_df > 0` if SCA is to be estimated; `residual_df > 0` if it is to be tested. **Warning sign.** A testcross file against one inbred tester per pool, analysed as though it estimated SCA. It estimates $\mu + g_i^A +$ (that tester's contribution) and nothing else. **Threshold.** Two testers to identify SCA. For ranking GCA, at this $\sigma^2_{SCA}/\sigma^2_{GCA_A}$ ratio of 2.29 – one pool's GCA variance in the denominator, not the two-pool sum of Section 5.12 – Equation (5.21) first exceeds $\rho_k = 0.85$ at $k = 5$ testers. At five testers the scan's mean is 0.8534, which is 4.9 standard errors of the mean of 4000 sets above 0.85, while the s.d. over tester sets at five testers is 0.044, so a single set of five testers can fall on either side of 0.85. The scan puts the mean correlation above 0.85 from five testers in this realisation, in agreement with the closed form; ten testers give 0.94. Recompute the requirement when the ratio changes.

5.13.7 Step 7 – Fit the decomposition and check it reconstructs

`heterosis_gca_sca(U, V, d)` is Equation (5.15), not a model fit: it needs no solver and returns μ, `gca_A`, `gca_B` and the `sca` matrix. On simulated d it must reconstruct every hybrid exactly, and the chunks in Section 5.11 assert that, together with the `lm()` interaction equivalence, to `1e-9` times the largest $|H_{ij}|$ (the render stops if either fails). On real data d is unknown, so the route reverses: fit `lm(H ~ factor(a) + factor(b))`, take the row and column effects as g^A and g^B and the residual as s_{ij}. The two routes coincide only on a complete, balanced factorial.

Call. `heterosis_gca_sca()` when d is known (simulation); `lm()` with both parent factors when it is not. **Check.** The reconstruction residual, and that all three components are mean zero. **Warning sign.** A non-zero mean for `gca_A` or `sca`. The deviations are taken from each pool's own line frequencies, so they sum to zero over that pool by construction; a non-zero mean means the frequencies used were not the pool's. **Threshold.** Machine precision for the reconstruction. **For the variance components**

there is no threshold that transfers to a real pool, and the $\sqrt{2/n}$ figure quoted in Section 5.11 is not one. It is one relative standard deviation of the variance of n **independent** observations, so even for independent lines about a third of the GCA components falls outside it by construction (`band_ind` in Table 5.32), and it is valid only because the closed forms are derived under the simulation's sampling model – each line's genotype an independent Bernoulli(p_k) draw at every locus, hence unrelated lines and linkage equilibrium within pool. A recycled heterotic pool satisfies neither: assumption A3 (Section 1.1; declared in Section 10.1) makes within-pool recycling the normal state of this system, so its lines share ancestors.

What a construction can measure is how the dispersion of the deviation of the observed variance from its closed form changes when the lines are related, for the part that founder sampling causes. Re-derive each pool as 25 doubled haploids drawn from crosses among six of its own members – one Bernoulli draw per locus, so loci recombine freely and there is **no physical linkage**, but the lines are related, and descent from six founders induces linkage disequilibrium among them all the same. Table 5.30 shows five such pairs of pools beside the independent lines, as an illustration of what the deviations look like. The comparison that carries the inference follows it (Table 5.31, Table 5.32).

```
rel_dev <- function(A, B) {                  # % deviation, observed vs closed form
  p1 <- colMeans(A); p2 <- colMeans(B)
  cc <- heterosis_gca_sca(A, B, d)
  obs <- c(pvar(cc$gca_A), pvar(cc$gca_B), pvar(as.vector(cc$sca)))
  cf  <- c(sum(d^2 * (1 - 2 * p2)^2 * p1 * (1 - p1)),
           sum(d^2 * (1 - 2 * p1)^2 * p2 * (1 - p2)),
           4 * sum(d^2 * p1 * (1 - p1) * p2 * (1 - p2)))
  100 * (obs / cf - 1)
}
recycle <- function(W, n_found) {            # DH lines from crosses among founders
  fo <- W[sample.int(nrow(W), n_found), , drop = FALSE]
  t(vapply(seq_len(nrow(W)), function(i) {
    pr <- sample.int(n_found, 2)
    rbinom(ncol(W), 1, (fo[pr[1], ] + fo[pr[2], ]) / 2)
  }, numeric(ncol(W))))
}
dev <- t(vapply(seq_len(5), function(r) {
  set.seed(500 + r)                            # seeded per draw, not once
  rel_dev(recycle(U, 6), recycle(V, 6))
}, numeric(3)))
dimnames(dev) <- list(paste0("draw", seq_len(5)), c("GCA_A", "GCA_B", "SCA"))
tab7 <- rbind(dev, `independent lines` = rel_dev(U, V))
colnames(tab7) <- paste(colnames(tab7), "(%)")
fmt(tab7, 1)
```

Table 5.30: Per cent deviation of the observed variance (divisor n) of each combining-ability component from its closed form (Equation (5.17)). Rows draw1 to draw5: pairs of pools re-derived as 25 doubled haploids per pool from crosses among six founders of that pool (seeds 501 to 505); last row: the original, independently drawn lines. An illustration of single draws; the dispersion is in Table 5.31 and Table 5.32.

	GCA_A (%)	GCA_B (%)	SCA (%)
draw1	−3.7	40.3	5.3
draw2	−57.5	10.3	6.0
draw3	−34.6	−5.4	−2.6
draw4	−19.7	−32.7	8.6
draw5	−39.5	17.9	−10.5
independent lines	−12.3	−10.2	−1.7

Result 1. In the five draws the deviations range up to 57 % in absolute value; on the independently drawn lines of the last row the three closed forms are within 12.3 % of the observed variances. One draw of each kind cannot show whether the recycled deviations are larger than those of independent lines; the next two tables measure that.

```
n_rep7 <- 1000
indep_lines <- function(n, p) matrix(rbinom(n * length(p), 1, rep(p, each = n)), n)
dev_rec <- t(vapply(seq_len(n_rep7), function(r) {
  set.seed(7000 + r)                          # seeded per replicate
  rel_dev(recycle(U, 6), recycle(V, 6))
}, numeric(3)))
dev_ind <- t(vapply(seq_len(n_rep7), function(r) {
  set.seed(8000 + r)
  rel_dev(indep_lines(nrow(U), pA), indep_lines(nrow(V), pB))
}, numeric(3)))
colnames(dev_rec) <- colnames(dev_ind) <- c("GCA_A", "GCA_B", "SCA")
band7 <- 100 * sqrt(2 / book_cfg$n_pool_A)
set.seed(1)                                   # bootstrap of the ratio of s.d.
boot_ratio <- replicate(2000, {
  i <- sample(n_rep7, replace = TRUE); j <- sample(n_rep7, replace = TRUE)
  apply(dev_rec[i, ], 2, sd) / apply(dev_ind[j, ], 2, sd)
})
q95 <- apply(dev_ind, 2, quantile, c(0.025, 0.975))
disp7 <- data.frame(
  sd_rec   = apply(dev_rec, 2, sd),  sd_ind = apply(dev_ind, 2, sd),
  ratio    = apply(dev_rec, 2, sd) / apply(dev_ind, 2, sd),
  ratio_lo = apply(boot_ratio, 1, quantile, 0.025),
  ratio_hi = apply(boot_ratio, 1, quantile, 0.975),
  p_F     = vapply(1:3, function(j) var.test(dev_rec[, j], dev_ind[, j])$p.value, 0),
  mean_rec = colMeans(dev_rec), mean_ind = colMeans(dev_ind),
   band_rec = colMeans(abs(dev_rec) > band7), band_ind = colMeans(abs(dev_ind) >
band7),
  lo95_ind = q95[1, ], hi95_ind = q95[2, ],
  out95_rec = vapply(1:3, function(j)
    mean(dev_rec[, j] < q95[1, j] | dev_rec[, j] > q95[2, j]), 0))
tab_disp7 <- fmt(disp7, 3)
# fmt() would round a tiny p to 0; a p below machine epsilon prints as the floor,
not as 0
tab_disp7$p_F <- format.pval(disp7$p_F, digits = 2, eps = .Machine$double.eps)
tab_disp7[, c("sd_rec", "sd_ind", "ratio", "ratio_lo", "ratio_hi", "p_F")]
```

Table 5.31: Spread of the per cent deviation of Table 5.30 over replicated draws. `sd_rec`, `sd_ind`: standard deviation over replicates of the deviation, for pools re-derived from six founders and for independent Bernoulli lines at the same pool frequencies; `ratio`: `sd_rec / sd_ind`, with a bootstrap 95 % interval (`ratio_lo`, `ratio_hi`; 2000 resamples of replicates); `p_F`: p-value of an F test of equal variances (it assumes normal deviations, which is not checked), printed as `< 2e-16` when it is below the double-precision epsilon (the upper-tail probability, about 5e-55 for the SCA ratio, is representable, but `var.test` forms the two-sided value as 2 min(P, 1 - P) with the lower tail P rounded to 1, and so returns exactly 0). Location and tails of the same replicates are in Table 5.32.

	sd_rec	sd_ind	ratio	ratio_lo	ratio_hi	p_F
GCA_A	31.949	27.840	1.148	1.072	1.223	1.4e-05
GCA_B	34.902	28.593	1.221	1.139	1.310	3.4e-10
SCA	10.081	6.095	1.654	1.542	1.769	< 2e-16

```
tab_disp7[,   c("mean_rec",   "mean_ind",   "band_rec",   "band_ind",   "lo95_ind",
"hi95_ind",
              "out95_rec")]
```

Table 5.32: Location and tails of the per cent deviation of Table 5.30 over the same replicates as Table 5.31. `mean_rec`, `mean_ind`: mean deviation, recycled and independent; `band_rec`, `band_ind`: share of replicates outside $\pm 100\sqrt{2/n}$ per cent; `lo95_ind`, `hi95_ind`: central 95 % range of the independent deviations, in per cent; `out95_rec`: share of recycled replicates outside that range.

	mean_rec	mean_ind	band_rec	band_ind	lo95_ind	hi95_ind	out95_rec
GCA_A	−4.026	1.110	0.394	0.300	−47.944	62.347	0.091
GCA_B	−3.570	−0.405	0.417	0.325	−48.495	61.154	0.127
SCA	−0.139	−0.137	0.009	0.000	−11.652	12.229	0.227

Result 2. The comparison is 1000 recycled pairs of pools (seeds 7001 to 8000) against 1000 independent sets of 25 lines per pool drawn as Bernoulli at the pool frequencies of the original lines (seeds 8001 to 9000). Over those replicates the standard deviation of the deviation is larger for recycled pools than for independent lines in all three components: by a factor of 1.15 (95 % interval 1.07 to 1.22) for `GCA_A`, 1.22 (1.14 to 1.31) for `GCA_B` and 1.65 (1.54 to 1.77) for `SCA`. Independent lines already fall outside the $\sqrt{2/n}$ band in 30 % and 32 % of replicates for the two GCA components, against 39 % and 42 % for recycled pools. Measured against the central 95 % range of the independent deviations, recycled pairs fall outside in 9 %, 13 % and 23 % of replicates (`GCA_A`, `GCA_B`, `SCA`), against the 5 % that independent lines give by construction. The mean deviation of the recycled GCA components is below that of the independent ones (-4.0 and −3.6 % against 1.1 and −0.4 %; the standard error of each mean is about 1.1 points).

Interpretation, and its limits. A tolerance calibrated on independent lines is too narrow for related lines in this construction, most of all for the specific component, whose dispersion is the one that grows most in relative terms (1.65-fold, against 1.15 and 1.22). Counting the components of the five-draw table that lie outside the $\sqrt{2/n}$ band (5 of 15, 5 of them in the GCA columns) would suggest that the GCA components carry the failure and the SCA component does not. The count is not a measure, because the band is one standard deviation and the independent comparison is a single draw; the replicated comparison shows a larger dispersion in all three components. Why the dispersion grows is not tested. The closed forms, being sums of per-locus terms, contain neither the covariance between loci across lines (linkage disequilibrium, here induced by descent from few founders) nor the relatedness between lines; the construction changes both at once and does not separate them. A third candidate is the loss of segregating loci under six founders, which changes the effective number of loci that the statistic averages. Each is a candidate explanation, not a result. The inference is limited to this construction: six founders, one doubled haploid per F1, free recombination, 25 lines per pool, one d and one pool pair, and a comparison against independent Bernoulli lines at the pool frequencies, not against a programme's own pedigree. A real recycled pool also carries disequilibrium that physical linkage maintains across cycles, and the size of that contribution is not measured anywhere in this book. The tolerance for a real pool must therefore be recalibrated empirically on the programme's own pedigree; the closed forms remain exact statements about the sampling model they are derived under.

5.13.8 Step 8 – Decide the F_{ST} band on alignment, not on F_{ST}

The output of steps 4-7 answers one management question: should the pools be pushed further apart? The chapter's answer is that F_{ST} cannot inform it (Section 5.8: the total does not move in expectation) and that the quantity that can is $\mathrm{cov}(d, y^2)$ (Section 5.9: a factor of 1.55 at constant F_{ST}, in the one generating model of that section).

Call. $\mathrm{cov}(d, y^2)$ with the population divisor, alongside $\bar{d}\,\overline{y^2}$; the two-term identity Equation (5.12) is the check. **Check.** The sign and magnitude of the covariance relative to $\bar{d}\,\overline{y^2}$. **Warning sign.** A proposal to raise F_{ST} justified by the divergence term alone. Under neutral divergence the shared term pays for all of it, unit for unit in expectation, and σ^2_{SCA} falls at the same time. **Threshold.** No universal one exists, and this chapter does not supply it: the missing weight λ between within- and between-pool diversity needs the two covariances listed in Section 5.14.1, and this book estimates neither.

5.14 What this does not change

> ! The diversity constraint stays additive
>
> Nothing in this chapter reopens the optimisation. θ_S, GD_T and α are computed on molecular coancestry and are functions of the frequencies alone; no dominance term enters them, and Chapter 15., Chapter 16. and Chapter 17. are untouched. The combining-ability split of Section 5.11 sits outside the constraint for the same reason: it is a statement about the objective, not about the feasible set.
>
> A dominance model changes the **mean-performance ranking**, not the diversity term. Chapter 25. states the same separation from the other side. Do not conflate them, and do not read this chapter as licence to put a heterosis term inside the constraint.

What it does change is the interpretation of the constraint's output. By the two-term identity Equation (5.12), the divergence term of a plan's selected lines is $\frac{m}{2}[\bar{d}\,\overline{y^2} + \mathrm{cov}(d, y^2)]$, and GD_{BS} fixes only $\overline{y^2}$. Two plans with the same α and the same GD_{BS} therefore differ in that term by exactly $m/2$ times the difference in their $\mathrm{cov}(d, y^2)$ (both computed on usage-weighted frequencies, Section 5.13.4), a quantity the partition does not contain and only an estimate of d can supply. How large that difference can be between two *attainable* plans is not measured in this book. The scenario table, Table 5.15, a factor of 1.55 between its extremes, does not measure it: it holds one pool pair's frequencies fixed and re-places d across loci, which compares genetic architectures, while a selection plan cannot move d and changes only the selected lines' frequencies, within what the candidate set and the budget on α allow.

5.14.1 What it would take to use d

Chapter 11., later, leaves a weight λ undetermined between within- and between-pool diversity and shows that, with expected heterosis as the objective, λ is $1/2$ under flat dominance and otherwise λ_d, a ratio of two weighted means of d (Equation (11.13)). This chapter can now say what would have to be estimated to set it, and it is not much:

- **λ needs two covariances, not d itself.** Each weighted mean of d in λ_d is $\bar{d}$ plus a covariance divided by a mean, as in Equation (5.12), so λ_d needs $\mathrm{cov}(d, y^2)$ and $\mathrm{cov}(d, H_S)$, with $H_{S,k} = p_{Ak}q_{Ak} + p_{Bk}q_{Bk}$ the within-pool heterozygosity of locus k, each relative to $\bar{d}$, on top of what the frequencies already give. A programme does not need per-locus dominance effects to weight the two diversity terms against each other; it needs to know whether its divergence is landing on its dominance loci.
- **Ranking crosses needs more.** s_{ij} is a d-weighted inner product between two specific parents, so it needs the dominance effects locus by locus. This is the extension Chapter 25. names and the book does not attempt.
- **Fitting it needs a factorial, and a testcross file is not one.** The decomposition is the two-way layout with *identified* rows and columns, and against a single common tester no SCA is identifiable (Section 5.13.6 counts the degrees of freedom; Section 18.2.3 gives the general rank rule). Programmes that already cross two pools in a partial factorial for hybrid evaluation have the layout; programmes that testcross against one inbred tester per pool do not.

5.15 Where this connects

Chapter 3. supplied the partition and Chapter 11. will use it; this chapter supplies the reason the GD_{BS} component is singled out for protection, and the reason protecting it is not the same as maximising it. Chapter 13. Trap 3, later, recommends holding F_{ST} in a band: Section 5.8 is why a band, and Section 5.9 is what to watch instead of the band. Section 5.7 closes the loop with the coancestry kernel of Chapter 2.: under flat dominance, the diversity matrix and the heterosis prediction are the same object.

3 is the chapter this one supplies a missing term to. It predicts breeding values with an additive model on a trait that is additive by construction, and lists specific combining ability first among what it does not model. Section 5.11 is where that term comes from and Section 5.12 is what share of the variance in heterosis it holds; both are derived here rather than fitted, because on a simulated d they can be.

It also gives a reason why a heterotic *pattern* – which pool crosses well onto which – is not recoverable from how far apart the pools have drifted: Section 5.9's three scenarios share every frequency-based

statistic and differ by a factor of 1.55 in expected heterosis in the generating model used here. M. R. White, M. A. Mikel, N. de Leon, and S. M. Kaeppler [36] describe both the diversity structure and the heterotic patterns of North American proprietary dent germplasm; this chapter's reading is that the two cannot be recovered from one another.

Forward, the alignment result raises a question for the recurrent loop. Drift moves frequencies independently of d, and selection on a line's own performance cannot respond to d either, because an inbred line's dominance contribution is exactly zero (Section 5.6). That leaves selection on *cross* performance as the only process of those considered here that can move frequencies in a way that depends on where the dominance is, and it suggests that the alignment between divergence and dominance is something each cycle either builds or erodes rather than a standing asset; this is an inference from the algebra of this chapter, not a result shown in it. A one-cycle constraint cannot see that, and neither can F_{ST}. The loop on a dominance trait is run in Chapter 9., which is the pipeline this chapter's algebra describes. Chapter 23. runs selection under the diversity budget on an additive index, with no dominance in the traits, and so does not test the inference.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **05b-heterosis-dominance.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

III Simulation

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6. Simulating lines, pools and crosses

The Foundations part defined the quantities the book manages – coancestry (Chapter 2.) and its partition over two pools (Chapter 3.) – the response they are traded against (Chapter 4.), and the heterosis that pool divergence is maintained for (Chapter 5.). Chapter 4. drew its data from `simulate_pools()` and Chapter 5. from `simulate_lines()` and `simulate_data()`, both without deriving them. This chapter builds the generator step by step, with `simulate_lines()` and `simulate_data()`.

`simulate_pools()` uses the same Balding-Nichols pool frequencies, homozygous lines and A x B factorial, but a different trait: `n_qtl` loci with independent effects plus noise, where the traits built here have correlated effects at every marker and no noise. Up to the lines the two generators consume R's random stream in the same order, so called with `book_cfg`'s values (25 + 25 lines, m = 2000, `fst` = 0.15, seed 1) they return the same lines and the same hybrid marker matrix `X` (asserted in Section 6.2); only the traits differ.

The `book_cfg` values coincide with the arguments written in Chapter 4.'s chunk, which asserts that its `fst` and seed equal `book_cfg`'s. `simulate_pools()` also clamps its pool frequencies to $[10^{-6}, 1-10^{-6}]$ and `simulate_lines()` does not, so the pool frequencies of the two functions agree to within 10^{-6} and not exactly; at the arguments of Section 6.2 the lines are identical (asserted there).

Everything downstream of this chapter consumes three objects and knows nothing about where they came from. That is deliberate: it is the seam at which a simulation is swapped for real data, and it is the only place that has to change when it is.

This chapter builds those objects. It also builds the candidate set the rest of the book selects from, so the choices made here – how divergent the pools are (Section 6.2.2), how the index is constructed (Section 6.4) – determine what the later chapters have to work with.

6.1 What has to be produced

Table 6.1 lists the three objects, and the optional fourth.

Table 6.1: The stage-1 contract: the objects stage 1 hands to stage 2, with their shape (N hybrids, m markers, L lines) and the computations that need them. Stage 2 runs without `fL`; it loses only the pool decomposition.

Object	Shape	Content	Needed for
`X`	N x m	hybrid marker matrix, values in 0/0.5/1	every frequency-based metric
`f`	N x N	molecular coancestry of the hybrids	every coancestry-based metric
`hybrids`	N x (3 + n_traits)	hybrid id, the two parent lines, predicted traits	the index, and the line-usage vector
`fL`	L x L, optional	coancestry BETWEEN LINES	only the heterotic-group decomposition

6.2 Simulating the lines

Two heterotic pools are generated with a Balding-Nichols-type model. From D. J. Balding and R. A. Nichols [16] this chapter takes the name of the model and the idea of expressing the divergence of a population from a common ancestral one in a single parameter; the Beta densities of Equation (6.1) and the reading of F_{BN} given with it are this book's own specification for a biallelic locus, implemented in `simulate_lines()`, and are not quoted from that paper; the book attributes to D. J. Balding and R. A. Nichols [16] no particular parameterisation. Ancestral allele frequencies p_k^* are drawn uniform on $[0.05, 0.95]$, then pool A's frequency at marker k is drawn as

$$p_{Ak} \sim \mathrm{Beta}\left(p_k^* \frac{1-F_{BN}}{F_{BN}}, (1-p_k^*)\frac{1-F_{BN}}{F_{BN}}\right), \tag{6.1}$$

and independently for pool B (p_{Bk}), where $k = 1, \ldots, m$ indexes markers, $p_k^* \in [0.05, 0.95]$ is the ancestral frequency of the allele coded 1, $p_{Ak}, p_{Bk} \in (0, 1)$ are the pool frequencies of that allele, and $F_{BN} \in (0, 1)$ is the parameter `fst` of the configuration (2). The Beta of Equation (6.1) has mean p_k^* and variance $F_{BN}\, p_k^*(1 - p_k^*)$ (from $\mathrm{Var} = ab/[(a+b)^2(a+b+1)]$ with $a + b = (1 - F_{BN})/F_{BN}$): F_{BN} is the divergence of *each* pool from the ancestral frequency, measured as that variance in units of $p_k^*(1 - p_k^*)$, not a divergence between the two pools. The ancestral frequency p_k^* belongs to the draw: it is a parameter of the simulation and is never observed in the data. It is neither a pool frequency p_{Ak}, p_{Bk} nor the frozen base `ctx$p0` of the candidate set, which is a sample quantity of the hybrids (defined at the end of Section 6.5). Between the pools, $\mathrm{Var}(p_{Ak} - p_{Bk}) = 2F_{BN}\, p_k^*(1 - p_k^*)$, and the F_{ST} statistic of Equation (3.7) computed on two pools of unbounded size estimates approximately $F_{BN}/(2 - F_{BN})$ (2): at the book's F_{BN} = 0.15 that is 0.081, not 0.15.

Genotypes are then drawn as $2 \times \mathrm{Bernoulli}(p)$, which makes every line fully homozygous, as an inbred line should be. Table 6.2 checks the result.

```
cat(deparse(simulate_lines), sep = "\n")
#> function (cfg)
#> {
#>     set.seed(cfg$seed)
#>     p_anc <- stats::runif(cfg$m, 0.05, 0.95)
#>     bn <- function(p, fst) {
#>         stats::rbeta(length(p), p * (1 - fst)/fst, (1 - p) *
#>             (1 - fst)/fst)
#>     }
#>     pA <- bn(p_anc, cfg$fst)
#>     pB <- bn(p_anc, cfg$fst)
#>     draw <- function(n, p) {
#>         matrix(2L * stats::rbinom(n * length(p), 1, rep(p, each = n)),
#>             nrow = n)
#>     }
#>     L <- rbind(draw(cfg$n_pool_A, pA), draw(cfg$n_pool_B, pB))
#>     storage.mode(L) <- "double"
#>     L
#> }
```

```
L <- simulate_lines(book_cfg)
stopifnot(all(L %in% c(0, 2)))
# same lines and X as simulate_pools() called with book_cfg's values. The values
# of @sec-response's chunk coincide with these (that chunk asserts its fst and
# seed equal book_cfg's)
sim_02b <- simulate_pools(n_A = book_cfg$n_pool_A, n_B = book_cfg$n_pool_B,
                          m = book_cfg$m, fst = book_cfg$fst, seed = book_cfg$seed)
stopifnot(identical(2 * sim_02b[["GL"]], L),
          identical(sim_02b[["X"]], simulate_data(book_cfg)[["X"]]))
blk <- L[1:5, 1:200]
data.frame(
  quantity = c("lines (rows of L)", "markers (columns of L)",
               "elements equal to 0, first 5 lines x 200 markers",
               "elements equal to 2, first 5 lines x 200 markers"),
  value = c(nrow(L), ncol(L), sum(blk == 0), sum(blk == 2)))
```

Table 6.2: Line genotype matrix L at the teaching scale: its size (lines by markers) and the number of elements equal to 0 and to 2 among its first 5 lines and 200 markers. No element of the whole matrix takes another value (asserted in the chunk).

quantity	value
lines (rows of L)	50
markers (columns of L)	2000
elements equal to 0, first 5 lines x 200 markers	480
elements equal to 2, first 5 lines x 200 markers	520

Only 0 and 2 appear: no residual heterozygotes. With real data those must be imputed or dropped before this point, because the hybrid-genotype identity in Chapter 2. assumes homozygous parents.

6.2.1 What the generator assumes

The data of this chapter are generated under the assumptions listed here, and the numbers it reports (the grid, the replicates, the expectations derived for the divergence knob) are conditional on them. The exact algebraic identities it checks do not need them all: the per-hybrid heterozygous fraction equals $1 - f_{ab}^{L}$ for any inbred parents, the identity of f with `tcrossprod(cbind(X, 1 - X)) / m` holds for any marker matrix coded 0, 0.5, 1, and $\sum G = 0$ holds for any panel centred on its own sample frequencies. Independence across loci enters the dispersion of the replicates, not the expectations, which are sums over loci.

- *Biallelic, neutral, unlinked markers.* The pools diverge by drift alone from one ancestral frequency vector (no selection, mutation or migration after the split), and the loci are independent of one another: p_k^*, p_{Ak}, p_{Bk} and every genotype are drawn independently across k. There is no genetic map and no recombination, so no linkage disequilibrium arises beyond sampling noise. Chapter 9. relaxes this (linkage, outbred founders, directional dominance and several generations of selection).
- *Unrelated lines, inbred by fiat.* Given p_{Ak}, the lines of pool A are independent draws of $2 \times$ Bernoulli(p_{Ak}) at each locus, and likewise for pool B: there is no pedigree and no shared descent among lines of a pool beyond what the pool frequency carries. Each line is drawn directly at fixation (0 or 2 at every marker); the generator does not model the doubled-haploid or selfing path that produces inbred lines in a programme (Section 1.1).
- *Equal pool sizes and the complete A x B factorial.* $n_A = n_B$ in the configuration, and every A x B combination is formed once, with equal weight (Section 6.3). This is an assumption, not a property of hybrid programmes: the identities of the grid of Table 6.3 that tie the heterozygous fraction to $GD_T + GD_{BS}$ need it. Chapter 18. and Chapter 20. choose which crosses are made instead.
- *Additive traits, effects at every marker, known without error* (section "Predicted traits"): no dominance and no prediction error. Dominance enters in Chapter 5. and Chapter 9., and prediction error in 3.

6.2.2 The divergence knob

`fst` sets how much of the pools' diversity sits *between* them rather than within; it is not compared here with the number of markers, the number of lines or the trait correlation, so nothing is claimed about its rank among the parameters. What the divergence buys is less obvious than it looks: Figure 6.1 plots the heterozygous fraction of the F1 over a grid of F_{BN}, Table 6.3 gives the coancestries and diversity components behind it, and Table 6.4 the changes between the two ends of the grid. The grid uses the teaching configuration (25 + 25 lines, m = 2000) with `fst` replaced by the grid value, so its row at F_{BN} = 0.15 is the F1 of the lines `L` of Section 6.2 and the heterozygous fraction of Table 2.6 of Chapter 2. (asserted against `L` in the chunk).

```
# the two trade ratios and the heterozygous fraction over replicate grids at the
# two ends; simulate_lines() seeds from cfg$seed, so seed s is explicit
gd_ends <- function(fst, seed) {
  cfg <- modifyList(book_cfg, list(fst = fst, seed = seed))
  fL  <- molecular_coancestry(simulate_lines(cfg) / 2)
  A <- seq_len(cfg$n_pool_A); B <- cfg$n_pool_A + seq_len(cfg$n_pool_B)
  f_til <- mean(c(fL[A, A], fL[B, B])); f_bar <- mean(fL)
  c(GD_WS = 1 - f_til, GD_BS = f_til - f_bar, GD_T = 1 - f_bar,
    het = 1 - mean(fL[A, B]))
}
n_rep <- 200
rep_lo <- vapply(seq_len(n_rep), function(s) gd_ends(min(fst_grid), s), numeric(4))
rep_hi <- vapply(seq_len(n_rep), function(s) gd_ends(max(fst_grid), s), numeric(4))
rep_x  <- rep_hi - rep_lo                          # change, largest minus smallest
rep_ratio <- rbind(-rep_x["GD_BS", ] / rep_x["GD_T", ],
                   -rep_x["GD_WS", ] / rep_x["GD_BS", ])
rep_het_diff <- rep_x["het", ]                     # paired by seed
```

```
d <- data.frame(fst = fst_grid, t(div))
# equal pool sizes: 1 - mean f^L_AB = GD_T + GD_BS exactly
dev_grid <- rel_dev(d$het_fraction, d$GD_T + d$GD_BS)
# the row at book_cfg$fst is the F1 of the lines L of this chapter
i_cfg <- which(d$fst == book_cfg$fst)
a_L <- seq_len(book_cfg$n_pool_A); b_L <- book_cfg$n_pool_A +
seq_len(book_cfg$n_pool_B)
dev_row <- abs(d$het_fraction[i_cfg] -
               (1 - mean(molecular_coancestry(L / 2)[a_L, b_L])))
stopifnot(dev_grid < tol_exact, length(i_cfg) == 1, dev_row < tol_exact)
# replicate mean +/- s.d. at the two ends (rep_lo, rep_hi of the chunk above)
rep_end <- cbind(lo = rep_lo["het", ], hi = rep_hi["het", ])
m_end <- colMeans(rep_end); s_end <- apply(rep_end, 2, sd)
x_end <- range(fst_grid)
# axis zoomed to the draws (a 0-1 axis hides a bar of s.d. 0.003)
y_rng <- range(d$het_fraction, het_exp, m_end - s_end, m_end + s_end)
plot(d$fst, d$het_fraction, type = "b", pch = 19,
     ylim = y_rng + c(-1, 1) * 0.25 * diff(y_rng),
     xlab = expression(F[BN]),
     ylab = "heterozygous fraction of the F1")
abline(h = het_exp, lty = 2)
arrows(x_end, m_end - s_end, x_end, m_end + s_end, angle = 90, code = 3,
       length = 0.05, col = "grey35")
points(x_end, m_end, pch = 22, bg = "white", col = "grey35")
grid()
legend("bottomright", bty = "n", lty = c(1, NA, 2), pch = c(19, 22, NA),
       pt.bg = "white", col = c("black", "grey35", "black"),
       legend = c("one draw per point",
                  sprintf("mean +/- s.d., %d draws", n_rep), "expectation"))
```

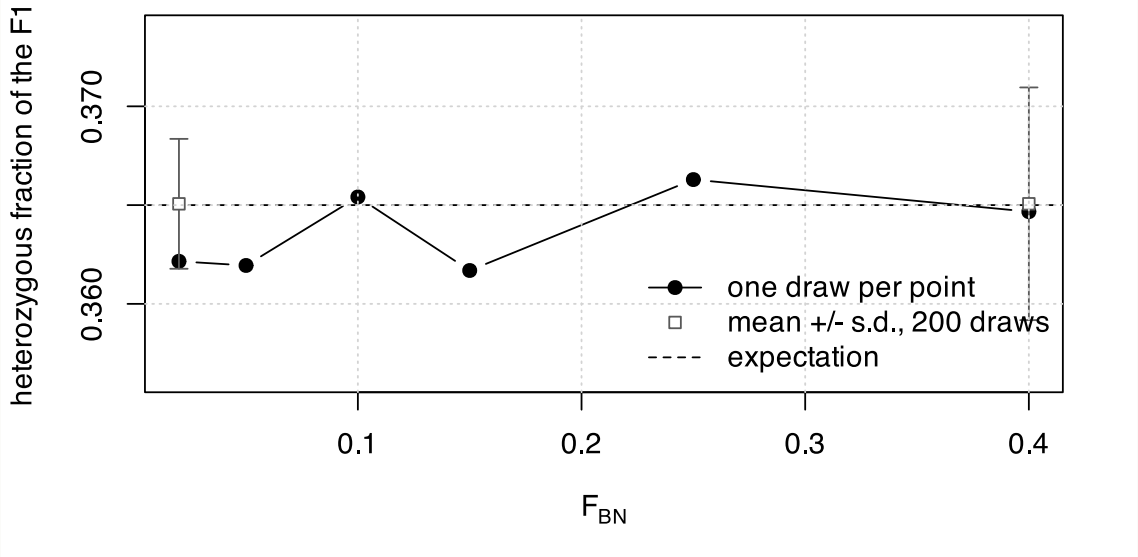

Figure 6.1: Heterozygous fraction of the A x B F1 (fraction of markers at which the two inbred parent lines differ, averaged over every A x B hybrid) against the Balding-Nichols parameter. Filled circles joined by a line: one simulated pair of pools per grid point (teaching scale: 25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers; seed 1, so the same ancestral frequencies at every point). Open squares with bars: mean and s.d. over 200 replicate pairs of pools (seeds 1 to 200) at the two ends of the grid only; the bar is the scatter of a single draw. Dashed line: the expectation, 2 E[$p(1 - p)$] for p* uniform on [0.05, 0.95], which does not depend on the parameter. The vertical axis is zoomed to the range of the draws, not 0 to 1.

```
knitr::kable(fmt(d), col.names = c("$F_{BN}$", "$\\bar f^{L}_{AB}$", "$\\tilde f$",
                                   "het. fraction", "$GD_{WS}$", "$GD_{BS}$", "$GD_T$"))
```

Table 6.3: Divergence grid behind Figure 6.1, one simulated pair of pools per row (teaching scale: 25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers). F_{BN}: the Balding-Nichols parameter; $\bar f^{L}_{AB}$: mean line coancestry between a pool-A and a pool-B line; $\tilde f$: group coancestry within a pool, self-coancestry included; heterozygous fraction: of the A x B F1; GD_{WS}, GD_{BS}, GD_T: the gene-diversity components of Chapter 3..

F_{BN}	$\bar f^{L}_{AB}$	$\tilde f$	het. fraction	GD_{WS}	GD_{BS}	GD_T
0.02	0.6378	0.6592	0.3622	0.3408	0.0107	0.3515
0.05	0.6381	0.6701	0.3619	0.3299	0.0160	0.3459
0.10	0.6346	0.6880	0.3654	0.3120	0.0267	0.3387
0.15	0.6383	0.7055	0.3617	0.2945	0.0336	0.3281
0.25	0.6337	0.7411	0.3663	0.2589	0.0537	0.3126
0.40	0.6353	0.7915	0.3647	0.2085	0.0781	0.2866

```
n_g <- nrow(d)
dWS <- d$GD_WS[n_g] - d$GD_WS[1]
dBS <- d$GD_BS[n_g] - d$GD_BS[1]
dT  <- d$GD_T[n_g]  - d$GD_T[1]
```

```
fmt(data.frame(
  quantity = c("change in GD_WS", "change in GD_BS", "change in GD_T",
               "GD_BS gain / GD_T loss", "GD_WS loss / GD_BS gain"),
  value = c(dWS, dBS, dT, -dBS / dT, -dWS / dBS)))
```

Table 6.4: Change in each gene-diversity component of Table 6.3 from the smallest to the largest F_{BN} of the grid (largest minus smallest), and the two ratios between those changes. Same single draw per grid point as Table 6.3.

quantity	value
change in GD_WS	−0.1323
change in GD_BS	0.0674
change in GD_T	−0.0649
GD_BS gain / GD_T loss	1.0387
GD_WS loss / GD_BS gain	1.9627

Across a 20-fold range of F_{BN} the heterozygous fraction stays between 0.3617 and 0.3663, against an expectation of 0.3650 that contains no F_{BN}. Each point is one draw of a finite pair of pools. Over 200 replicate draws (seeds 1 to 200, the two ends of the grid only) the heterozygous fraction has mean 0.3651 (s.d. 0.0033) at F_{BN} = 0.02 and 0.3651 (s.d. 0.0059) at F_{BN} = 0.40; the mean change between the ends, paired by seed, is 2.2×10^{-6} with standard error 4.0×10^{-4}, 0.01 standard errors from zero. A single draw per point therefore scatters by about 0.006, and the range of the six single draws (0.0046) is of that order: the figure by itself cannot separate a flat line from a small trend, and the replicate means and the expectation of Section 5.8 are what carry the flatness. Over the same range, in the terms of Chapter 3. with $\tilde f$ the group coancestry within a pool (self-coancestry included, `within_pool_f`), the within-subpopulation gene diversity $GD_{WS} = 1 - \tilde f = GD_{WI} + GD_{BI}$ of Equation (3.9) changes by $-$0.1323, the between-pool component GD_{BS} by 0.0674 and the total GD_T by $-$0.0649.

The GD_{BS} gain is 1.04 times the GD_T loss and the within-pool loss is 1.96 times the GD_{BS} gain; the expectations under drift in two equal pools are 1 and 2 (Chapter 3.). Both ratios are single draws. Over the 200 replicate grids they have mean 1.005 and 2.003 with standard deviation 0.086 and 0.086, so the departure of this draw from 1 and 2 is within ordinary sampling variation.

The `stopifnot()` in the code of Figure 6.1 asserts the identity that ties the first trade to the flat line (deviation 1.1×10^{-16}, tolerance 1×10^{-12}): with equal pool sizes the heterozygous fraction is exactly $GD_T + GD_{BS}$, so a constant heterozygous fraction means that what GD_{BS} gains, GD_T loses.

That is not an artefact of this grid, under the assumptions of Section 6.2.1. For the F1 of inbred parents a and b the heterozygous fraction is exactly $1 - f^L_{ab}$, hybrid by hybrid (asserted in the chunk of Table 6.8); its mean over the complete A x B factorial is $1 - \bar{f}^L_{AB}$, with $\bar{f}^L_{AB}$ (`between_pool_f`) the mean coancestry between a pool-A and a pool-B line (written f_{AB} in Chapter 3. and θ_{AB} in 2; Chapter 5. identifies them on the complete factorial). Section 5.8 derives the expectations for pools of unbounded size: the shared term $2\bar{p}(1-\bar{p})$, which is GD_T here, loses $F_{BN}\, p^*(1-p^*)$ and the divergence term, which is GD_{BS}, gains the same amount. Here GD_T and GD_{BS} are computed from the sample frequencies of n lines per pool, which add binomial variance $p_{Ak}(1-p_{Ak})/n$ to each pool frequency; then $E[GD_{BS}] = F_{BN}\, p^*q^* + (1-F_{BN})\, p^*q^*/n$ per marker, with $q^* = 1-p^*$, and the loss of GD_T and the gain of GD_{BS} are both $F_{BN}\, p^*q^*(1-1/n)$ in expectation. The factor $(1-1/n)$ cancels in the ratios 1 and 2. With n = 25 and the F_{BN} range of the grid, the expected change is 0.0666, against 0.0693 for unbounded pools. Section 5.8 derives the same expectation and the same sample-frequency offset on a different grid (seed 5, m = 2000); the formulas agree, and the numbers here are a different draw of the generator.

What this chapter measures is the heterozygous fraction and its split into GD_T and GD_{BS}. Its data carry no dominance (the traits of Section 6.4 are additive), so the heterozygous fraction is not heterosis here. It is the F1 heterosis per locus only for flat dominance, $d_k = 1$ at every locus (Equation (5.3)), and its identification with $GD_T + GD_{BS}$ needs in addition inbred parents, the complete A x B factorial and equal pool weights, the conditions of the GD_{BS} row of Table 3.6. Under those conditions neutral divergence relocates diversity from GD_T to GD_{BS} and creates no expected heterosis. Outside them this chapter says nothing about heterosis. Whether GD_{BS} is to be preserved is not a consequence of the flat line: Table 3.6 in Chapter 3. states it for those conditions and defers the argument to Chapter 5., and Section 5.9 treats what has to be true of the divergence, namely its alignment with the dominance effects, for the divergence to be worth anything.

6.3 From lines to hybrids

Every A x B combination is formed. With 25 lines per pool that is 625 candidates; at the production scale of 71 lines per pool it is 5041. Table 6.5 gives the size of the resulting dosage matrix `M` and Table 6.6 the first rows of the pedigree `ped`.

```
cfg <- book_cfg
a_ids <- seq_len(cfg$n_pool_A)
b_ids <- cfg$n_pool_A + seq_len(cfg$n_pool_B)
ped <- expand.grid(a = a_ids, b = b_ids)
M   <- (L[ped$a, , drop = FALSE] + L[ped$b, , drop = FALSE]) / 2   # 0/1/2
data.frame(dimension = c("hybrids (rows of M)", "markers (columns of M)"),
           value = dim(M))
```

Table 6.5: Dimensions of the hybrid dosage matrix `M` (values 0/1/2) at the teaching scale: one row per A x B combination, one column per marker.

dimension	value
hybrids (rows of M)	625
markers (columns of M)	2000

```
head(ped, 3)
```

Table 6.6: First three rows of the pedigree ped of the complete A x B factorial: a is the row of L of the pool-A parent and b that of the pool-B parent (pool-B lines are numbered after pool A).

a	b
1	26
2	26
3	26

The factorial structure matters more than it looks. Because every line appears in many candidate hybrids, selecting hybrids is really selecting *line usage* – and that observation, made precise in Section 12.1, is what makes the whole problem tractable at production scale.

6.4 Predicted traits

Marker effects are drawn correlated across traits, through a Cholesky factor of a fixed correlation matrix, and the predicted values are the centered marker matrix times those effects. In this chapter R (the target correlation of the marker effects), B (the matrix of marker effects) and L (the line genotype matrix) are names of code objects, not the $\mathbf{R}$, $\mathbf{B}$ and L of 2, and n_A, n_B count the lines of pool A and pool B, not the female and male lines of Chapter 18..

```
set.seed(cfg$seed + 99)
R <- matrix(c(1, 0.3, -0.3,
              0.3, 1,  0.1,
             -0.3, 0.1, 1), 3, 3)
stopifnot(nrow(R) == cfg$n_traits)       # R is written for three traits
vr <- vanraden_G(M)
B <- matrix(rnorm(cfg$m * cfg$n_traits), cfg$m) %*% chol(R)
traits <- scale(vr$Z %*% B)
rank_Z <- qr(vr$Z)$rank
stopifnot(rank_Z == cfg$n_pool_A + cfg$n_pool_B - 2)
```

Table 6.7 sets the realised correlations of the predicted traits beside the target R.

```
ij <- which(upper.tri(R), arr.ind = TRUE)
fmt(data.frame(traits = paste(ij[, 1], "x", ij[, 2]),
               target_R = R[ij], realised = cor(traits)[ij]), 3)
```

Table 6.7: Target correlation R of the marker effects and realised correlation of the predicted traits over the hybrids, for each pair of traits; one draw of marker effects at the teaching scale.

traits	target_R	realised
1 x 2	0.3	0.259
1 x 3	−0.3	−0.440
2 x 3	0.1	0.049

The Cholesky step gives each row of B, the effects of one marker on the 3 traits, covariance R. It does not make the realised trait correlations equal R: they depart from it by up to 0.140 in absolute value. The hybrid values are linear combinations of the columns of the centred matrix Z, whose rank is $48 = (n_A - 1) + (n_B - 1)$ for an additive A x B factorial, so each realised correlation rests on one draw of effects projected onto 48 dimensions. The target is a property of the effect distribution, not of this draw; how closely the realised correlations approach it on average over draws was not measured here.

! What this simulation deliberately does not model

These predicted values are constructed from *known* marker effects, so they carry no prediction error. Real genomic estimated breeding values (GEBVs) do. The book therefore treats `ctx$index` as given throughout.

- *The optimum.* For a given candidate set and a given constraint on diversity, no selection made on estimated values can have a higher mean true index than the optimum computed on the known values, because the optimum maximises that index over every feasible selection. This is a statement about the optimum.
- *The heuristics.* The gains this book reports come from greedy, differential-evolution and local-search selections, which at book scale are not certified optima (Section 17.4; `ocs_bound()` gives a valid upper bound, and `sel_exact()` does not converge there). A feasible selection is not a bound: a selection made on estimates could exceed a heuristic's index on the known values, so a gain in `ctx$index` does not bound the gain that a selection on estimates could achieve.
- *Scope.* That statement about the optimum concerns the index only: it does not apply to the diversity metrics, which do not depend on the traits, nor to anything outside the additive model.
- *Additive only.* The additive model also carries no dominance, so it cannot express specific combining ability (Section 5.11 models it; the caveats of Chapter 25. remain); the gap in prediction is closed in 3.

6.5 The two matrices, both built

```
X <- M / 2
ctx <- build_ctx(X = X, f = molecular_coancestry(X), G = vr$G, traits = traits,
                 ped = ped, n_lines = nrow(L),
                 pool = rep(c("A", "B"), c(cfg$n_pool_A, cfg$n_pool_B)),
                 fL = molecular_coancestry(L / 2), cfg = cfg)

# the heterozygous fraction of hybrid (a, b) is 1 - fL[a, b] (inbred parents)
dev_G   <- abs(sum(ctx[["G"]])) / sum(abs(ctx[["G"]]))   # relative to sum |G|
dev_f   <- rel_dev(ctx[["f"]], tcrossprod(cbind(X, 1 - X)) / ncol(X))
dev_het <- rel_dev(rowMeans(ctx[["X"]] == 0.5),
                   1 - ctx[["fL"]][cbind(ped$a, ped$b)])
stopifnot(dev_G < tol_exact,
          min(ctx[["f"]]) >= 0, max(ctx[["f"]]) <= 1,
          dev_f < tol_exact, dev_het < tol_exact)

# simulate_data() builds the same ctx, apart from the column names of traits
ctx_sd <- simulate_data(book_cfg)
same <- setdiff(names(ctx), "traits")
stopifnot(identical(names(ctx_sd), names(ctx)),
          all(vapply(same, function(k)
            isTRUE(all.equal(ctx[[k]], ctx_sd[[k]], tolerance = tol_exact)),
            logical(1))),
          isTRUE(all.equal(unname(ctx[["traits"]]), unname(ctx_sd[["traits"]]),
                           tolerance = tol_exact, check.attributes = FALSE)))
```

```
knitr::kable(data.frame(
  quantity = c("N", "m", "n_lines", "sum(G)", "min(f)", "max(f)"),
  value = c(sprintf("%d", c(ctx[["N"]], ctx[["m"]], ctx[["n_lines"]])),
            fmt_sci(sum(ctx[["G"]]), 3),
            sprintf("%.4f", c(min(ctx[["f"]]), max(ctx[["f"]])))),
  align = c("l", "r"))
```

Table 6.8: Size of the context `ctx` built in this chapter (N hybrids, m markers, number of lines) and the two properties checked on its matrices: the sum of the elements of VanRaden's G, printed in scientific notation because it is zero only up to rounding, and the range of the molecular coancestry f. The code asserts $|\mathrm{sum}(G)| / \sum|G| < 1 \times 10^{-12}$.

quantity	value
N	625
m	2000
n_lines	50
sum(G)	-4.18×10^{-11}
min(f)	0.6448
max(f)	0.8317

Table 6.8 shows the result. `sum(G)` is zero up to floating-point rounding: it is -4.18×10^{-11}, 1.5×10^{-15} of $\sum|G|$, and not exactly 0. It is zero because `vanraden_G()` centres the markers on the sample frequencies of this very panel, `colMeans(M) / 2`, so that the columns of $\mathbf{Z}$ sum to zero and $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{1} = 0$ (Equation (2.4)); `G` here is the matrix of Equation (2.3), and the property belongs to this centring, not to the matrix at other reference frequencies, where the sum need not vanish. `f` is inside $[0, 1]$, the other property of Chapter 2., on this dataset. Two identities are asserted with it (tolerance 1×10^{-12}): `f` equals `tcrossprod(cbind(X, 1 - X)) / m` to exactly 0, and the heterozygous fraction of each hybrid equals `1 - fL[a, b]` to 5.6×10^{-17}. The range of `f` is nonetheless narrow and far from 0: `f` is identity in state, unrelated individuals are not at 0 and its level is set by the marker panel (Chapter 2.), so the assertion `min(f) >= 0` is the weak property and the informative one is the range printed in the table.

The context also stores three objects computed once, from the 625 hybrids, at construction, and not to be recomputed per scenario (Table 6.9):

```
stored <- ctx[c("p0", "maf_pop", "index")]
fmt(data.frame(object = names(stored),
               n_values = vapply(stored, length, integer(1)),
               min = vapply(stored, min, numeric(1)),
               max = vapply(stored, max, numeric(1)),
               row.names = NULL))
# p0 is the mean of the two pools' sampled line frequencies (L is coded 0/2)
dev_p0 <- rel_dev(ctx[["p0"]], (colMeans(L[a_ids, ]) + colMeans(L[b_ids, ])) / 4)
stopifnot(dev_p0 < tol_exact)
```

Table 6.9: The three objects stored once in `ctx` at construction: number of values (`p0` and `maf_pop` one per marker, `index` one per hybrid) and their range.

object	n_values	min	max
p0	2000	0.0000	1.0000
maf_pop	2000	0.0000	0.5000
index	625	−2.4068	3.6491

`p0` is the allele frequency vector of the candidate set, `colMeans(X)` over the 625 hybrids. It is the **base** against which `F_hom` and `F_drift` are measured in Chapter 10., and recomputing it per scenario would silently zero out the historical memory of erosion. It is a sample quantity of this draw: with equal pools and the complete factorial it is the mean of the two pools' sampled line frequencies (asserted in the chunk of Table 6.9, deviation 1.1×10^{-16}). It is therefore a different object from the ancestral frequency p_k^* of Equation (6.1), which is never observed, and from the pool frequencies p_{Ak}, p_{Bk}. `maf_pop` is the minor-allele frequency of `p0`, `pmin(p0, 1 - p0)`, and `index` is the multi-trait index of the hybrids, standardised once.

6.6 The stage-1 contract in one call

The construction of Section 6.2 to Section 6.5 is `simulate_data()`, which builds this chapter's `ctx` (the elements are equal, except that `simulate_data()` names the columns of `traits`; asserted after `ctx` is built). `stage1_simulate()` passes its `X`, `ped`, `traits` and `fL` to `stage1_build()`, the function real data enter through:

```
cat(deparse(stage1_build), sep = "\n")
#> function (X, ped, traits, fL = NULL, coding = NULL)
#> {
#>     if (is.null(coding)) {
#>         if (max(X, na.rm = TRUE) > 1) {
#>             coding <- "012"
#>         }
#>         else {
#>             if (all(X[!is.na(X)] %in% c(0, 1)))
#>              warning("X holds only 0 and 1: ambiguous coding, read as 0/0.5/1 ",
#>                  "(inbred lines). Pass coding = \"012\" if these are dosages ",
#>                   "with no dosage-2 call.", call. = FALSE)
#>             coding <- "0-0.5-1"
#>         }
#>     }
#>     coding <- match.arg(coding, c("012", "0-0.5-1"))
#>     if (coding == "012")
#>         X <- X/2
#>     stopifnot(min(X, na.rm = TRUE) >= 0, max(X, na.rm = TRUE) <=
#>         1, nrow(X) == nrow(ped), nrow(X) == nrow(traits))
#>    hybrids <- data.frame(hybrid = seq_len(nrow(X)), line_A = as.integer(ped$a),
#>         line_B = as.integer(ped$b), traits)
#>     list(X = X, f = molecular_coancestry(X), hybrids = hybrids,
#>         fL = fL)
#> }
```

Table 6.10 lists what `stage1_simulate()` returns and Table 6.11 the first rows of its `hybrids` table.

```
st1 <- stage1_simulate(book_cfg)
data.frame(component = names(st1),
           class = vapply(st1, function(x) class(x)[1], character(1)),
           dimensions = vapply(st1, function(x) paste(dim(x), collapse = " x "),
                               character(1)),
           row.names = NULL)
```

Table 6.10: Components of the object returned by `stage1_simulate()` at the teaching scale: class and dimensions of each (rows x columns for a matrix or data frame).

component	class	dimensions
X	matrix	625 x 2000
f	matrix	625 x 625
hybrids	data.frame	625 x 6
fL	matrix	50 x 50

```
fmt(head(st1$hybrids, 3))
```

Table 6.11: First three rows of `$hybrids` of the stage-1 object: hybrid id, the two parent lines (`line_A`, `line_B`; rows of `fL`) and the predicted traits, standardised.

hybrid	line_A	line_B	trait1	trait2	trait3
1	1	26	−0.6881	0.1907	0.0154
2	2	26	−0.6103	−0.0321	1.4661
3	3	26	−0.3094	−0.5014	0.2138

For real data the same function is called with your own matrices:

```
st1 <- stage1_build(
  X      = hybrid_markers,   # N x m, coded 0/1/2 or 0/0.5/1
  ped    = pedigree,         # data.frame with columns a, b
  traits = predicted_traits, # N x n_traits
  fL     = line_coancestry,  # optional
  coding = "012"             # or "0-0.5-1"; NULL (default) auto-detects
)
```

`stage1_build()` rescales 0/1/2 dosages to 0/0.5/1 before computing `f`. With `coding = NULL` it infers the coding from the values present, ignoring missing calls: any value above 1 means 0/1/2. That rule assumes a 0/1/2 matrix contains at least one dosage-2 call. A matrix holding only 0 and 1 is ambiguous – inbred lines coded 0/0.5/1, or 0/1/2 dosages with no homozygote for the allele coded 2 – and no rule applied to the values can resolve it; `stage1_build()` then assumes 0/0.5/1 and warns. Declaring `coding` removes the assumption. On the simulated hybrids, which contain dosage-2 calls, the two codings give the same `f`:

```
tr <- st1$hybrids[, grep("^trait", names(st1$hybrids))]
pd <- data.frame(a = st1$hybrids$line_A, b = st1$hybrids$line_B)
stopifnot(any(st1$X * 2 == 2),
          identical(stage1_build(st1$X, pd, tr)$f,
                    stage1_build(st1$X * 2, pd, tr)$f))
```

The ambiguous case: two hybrids at three markers, coded 0/1/2, with no dosage-2 call. Auto-detection reads each 1 as a homozygote, so it returns the coancestry of two inbred individuals that these hybrids are not; the declared coding returns the coancestry computed directly from the 0/0.5/1 matrix (Table 6.12).

```
X_amb   <- rbind(c(0, 1, 1),
                 c(1, 0, 1))                # 0/1/2 dosages, no dosage 2
ped_amb <- data.frame(a = 1:2, b = 3:4)
tr_amb  <- data.frame(trait1 = c(0, 0))
f_auto <- withCallingHandlers(
  stage1_build(X_amb, ped_amb, tr_amb)$f,
  warning = function(w) { message("warning: ", conditionMessage(w))
                          invokeRestart("muffleWarning") })
f_012  <- stage1_build(X_amb, ped_amb, tr_amb, coding = "012")$f
f_true <- molecular_coancestry(X_amb / 2)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(f_012, f_true)),
          !isTRUE(all.equal(f_auto, f_true)))
```

```
fmt(data.frame(
  coding = c("auto-detected", "declared 012", "direct, X / 2"),
  f11 = c(f_auto[1, 1], f_012[1, 1], f_true[1, 1]),
  f22 = c(f_auto[2, 2], f_012[2, 2], f_true[2, 2]),
  f12 = c(f_auto[1, 2], f_012[1, 2], f_true[1, 2])))
```

Table 6.12: Molecular coancestry of the two hybrids of the ambiguous example (`f11`, `f22`: self-coancestries; `f12`: between them) as returned by `stage1_build()` with the coding auto-detected and with `coding = "012"` declared, and as computed directly by `molecular_coancestry()` on the matrix divided by 2.

coding	f11	f22	f12
auto-detected	1.0000	1.0000	0.3333
declared 012	0.6667	0.6667	0.5000
direct, X / 2	0.6667	0.6667	0.5000

6.7 What the candidate set looks like

Figure 6.2 shows the two quantities every later chapter trades: the index of the candidates and the gene diversity of random subsets of them.

```
op <- par(mfrow = c(1, 2), mar = c(4.2, 4.2, 2.5, 1))
hist(ctx$index, breaks = 40, col = "grey85", border = "white",
     main = "multi-trait index", xlab = "index (s.d. units)")
set.seed(cfg$seed + 3)
gd_random <- replicate(n_subsets, gene_diversity(sample.int(ctx$N, n_sub), ctx))
hist(gd_random, breaks = 30, col = "grey85", border = "white",
     main = paste("GD of random subsets of", n_sub), xlab = "gene diversity")
abline(v = gene_diversity(seq_len(ctx$N), ctx), col = book_pal[["ink"]], lwd = 2)
par(op)
```

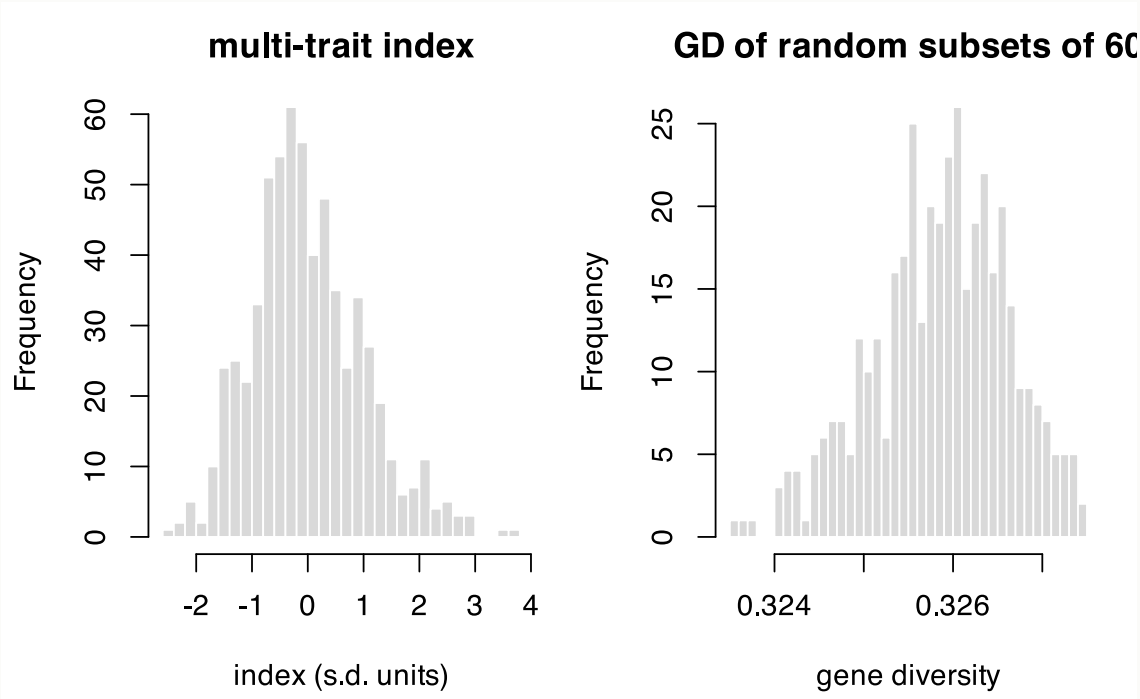

Figure 6.2: The candidate set at the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 625 A x B hybrids, 2000 markers). Left: histogram of the multi-trait selection index of the 625 hybrids: the equally weighted sum of the standardised predicted traits (default `weights` of `build_ctx()`), re-standardised to mean 0 and s.d. 1. Right: histogram of the gene diversity of 400 random subsets of 60 hybrids, the baseline every later chapter measures against; dark vertical line: gene diversity of the whole candidate set.

The dark vertical line is the gene diversity of the *whole* candidate set. It does not sit at the centre of the distribution of random subsets of 60 – it sits above it. That gap is pure sampling, it has nothing to do with selection, and mistaking it for a loss is the subject of Section 11.9. Table 6.13 gives the size of the gap, from one set of 400 random subsets, with the Monte Carlo standard error of their mean: the gap is 59 standard

errors, so it is not sampling noise of the subsets. Section 11.9 measures the same gap on the same `ctx` with its own subsets and derives its expectation, and the percentages differ only by the draw of the subsets.

```
stopifnot(gd_whole > gd_mean)
knitr::kable(data.frame(
  quantity = c("GD, whole candidate set", "GD, mean of random subsets",
               "Monte Carlo s.e. of that mean", "apparent loss (%)",
               "gap / s.e."),
  value = c(sprintf("%.5f", c(gd_whole, gd_mean)), fmt_sci(gd_se, 2),
            sprintf("%.3f", gd_loss), sprintf("%.0f", gd_z))),
  align = c("l", "r"))
```

Table 6.13: Gene diversity of the whole candidate set, mean gene diversity of the random subsets of Figure 6.2 with the Monte Carlo standard error of that mean (s.d. of the subsets / square root of their number), the apparent loss (the difference as a percentage of the whole-set value) and the gap in standard errors. One set of subsets, the one of Figure 6.2.

quantity	value
GD, whole candidate set	0.32809
GD, mean of random subsets	0.32586
Monte Carlo s.e. of that mean	3.8×10^{-5}
apparent loss (%)	0.681
gap / s.e.	59

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **03-simulating-crosses.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

7. Sizing a segregating population, F1 to F4

The previous chapters took the candidate pool as given. This one asks where it comes from: a wide cross between two divergent parents, carried F1 -> F2 -> F3 -> F4, and the question every programme has to answer before it plants anything – **how many plants?**

The answer turns out to depend entirely on what you are sizing *for*. There is no single optimal N, and the most common failure is to size for the objective that saturates earliest and then be surprised when a different objective was never met.

7.1 The simulated space is ancestry, not alleles

Each genome position is coded 0 (from parent P1) or 1 (from parent P2). For a wide biparental cross between two divergent heterotic groups this is the correct abstraction: essentially every locus polymorphic between the parents is biallelic, so ancestry is a sufficient statistic. Throughout this chapter, "allele frequency" means "frequency of P1 ancestry".

7.2 The assumptions, one at a time

These are the assumptions the numbers rest on. Read them before trusting any of the numbers.

P1. Ancestry, not alleles. As in Section 7.1.

P2. Parents fully homozygous and fixed for alternative alleles. Consequently every F1 plant is genetically identical and the genetic N_e of the F1 is 1. Sizing the F1 is a **logistical** decision, not a genetic one – unless the parents carry residual heterozygosity, which Section 7.5 handles.

P3. The genetic map. Ten chromosomes whose lengths (`maize_chr_len`) total 1670 cM, i.e. L = 16.7 Morgans. The lengths are a model input chosen to approximate a composite maize map built without intermating; they are not taken from a single published map. Do **not** use map lengths estimated in intermated recombinant inbred lines (RILs) such as the intermated B73 x Mo17 (IBM) population: five generations of intermating B73 x Mo17 produced "nearly a four-fold increase in the genetic map distance" [37, abstract]. The junction recursion of P7 predicts expansion of that order [38]: g random-mating generations after the F2, followed by selfing to fixation, give $(2 + g/2)L$ junctions per haplotype, i.e. $4L$ at $g = 4$ and $4.5L$ at $g = 5$. Which of the two matches the IBM count depends on whether the generation that produced the F2 is counted as an intermating; this chapter does not settle it. A map expanded in this way overstates the recombination the sized population actually undergoes.

```
map <- build_map(maize_chr_len, spacing_cM = 2)
c(chromosomes = length(map$chr_len), markers = map$m,
  total_cM = map$total_cM, morgans = map$total_cM / 100)
#> chromosomes     markers    total_cM     morgans
#>        10.0       846.0      1670.0        16.7
```

P4. Haldane recombination, no interference, identical in male and female. The probability of a haplotype switch between adjacent markers d cM apart is $r = 0.5(1 - e^{-2d/100})$ [39]; the first marker of each chromosome gets $r = 0.5$, which produces independent segregation between chromosomes automatically.

Limitation: without interference the variance in crossover number is inflated (Poisson). Maize crossovers show positive interference: M. Falque, L. K. Anderson, S. M. Stack, F. Gauthier, and O. C. Martin [40] estimate that about 15% of crossovers (6% to 23% depending on the chromosome) come from a non-interfering pathway and the rest from an interfering one. The simulated block-length distribution therefore has a longer tail than under interference; the size of that difference was not measured here.

Mean block lengths and allele frequencies are unaffected, because the map length fixes the mean number of crossovers.

P5. Segregation distortion by rejection sampling, therefore exact rather than approximate. Two mechanisms: *gametophytic* (of the Ga1 type, a unilateral cross-incompatibility system whose Ga1 gene acts through male function [41]) acting only on the male gamete, and *zygotic* (hybrid lethality or subvitality) as genotype fitnesses. Because rejection acts on the **whole gamete**, the region linked to the distorter is dragged along – which is exactly the phenomenon of interest. Distortion is common in maize mapping populations: 17% of 1,820 markers across four populations, and 36% in B73/Mo17, with three known gametophytic factors as possible causes [42]. The three distorters below, their positions and their strengths are model inputs. All three act against P2 ancestry (P1 transmission above 0.5 at the two gametic loci, a reduced P2P2 fitness at the zygotic one). The bin numbers in `label` are placeholders, not mapped positions of the named loci.

```
f2_distorters
```

chr	pos_cM	type	k	w00	w01	w11	label
4	75	gametic	0.80	NA	NA	NA	distorter chr4 (illustrative)
1	160	zygotic	NA	1	1	0.45	partial lethal (1.10)
5	60	gametic	0.68	NA	NA	NA	weak gametic (5.03)

```
g <- f2_distorters$type == "gametic"
stopifnot(all(f2_distorters$k[g] > 0.5),
          all(f2_distorters$w11[!g] < f2_distorters$w00[!g]))
```

⚠ The distorters are plausible, not measured

In the grid of Section 7.4 this is the input whose effect on diversity more plants barely reduce inside the range tested (the distortion gap of Figure 7.1). Replace `f2_distorters` with your own F2 genotyping data before using any number here to decide field area.

P6. Five schemes, all ending with $H = 0.125$ so they are directly comparable: `ssd` (single-seed descent, SSD: one seed per plant per generation – the neutral reference, no selection, no drift beyond the meiotic), `ssd_attr` (SSD with a random loss of 15% of plants per generation, standing for vigour, partial sterility or flowering asynchrony; the rate is a scenario parameter, `f2_opt$attrition`, not an empirical estimate), `bulk` (differential seed contribution, a Wright-Fisher model with weights $w_i = e^{\beta(z_i - \bar{z})}$ where z_i is the share of plant i's genome from P1, which the model takes as the adapted parent, and $\beta = 6$ (`f2_opt$beta_bulk`) is a model input not estimated from data – a *phenomenological* model of polygenic natural selection, not a model of adaptation loci; because w_i increases with z_i, the bulk selects against P2 ancestry by construction), and `syn1`/`syn2` (Syn1, Syn2: one or two random intercrossing cycles in the F2 before the two selfings).

P7. The F4 panel is not a RIL panel. Residual heterozygosity is $H = 0.125$, and that changes every theoretical expectation (Table 7.1). The last row of the table counts junctions in the sense of R. A. Fisher [43]: A_t junctions per haplotype in generation t, L the map length in Morgans, H_t the heterozygosity of the parent whose meiosis produces generation $t + 1$.

Table 7.1: Theoretical identities for an F4 panel ($H = 0.125$), N lines per panel, no distortion. Column c: the F4 coefficient; column Value in F4: the quantity written with that c. The commonly quoted $0.5/\sqrt{N}$ for SE($\hat{p}$) holds only at F_∞ ($H = 0$). Junction coefficient from `expected_junctions()` on the 2 cM map of P3, in units of L (Morgans).

Quantity	Formula	c	Value in F4
Var(dosage per line)	(1 - H) / 4	0.21875	c
SE(p_hat)	0.5 sqrt((1 - H) / N)	0.46771	c / sqrt(N)
Diversity retained D	1 - (1 - H) / N	0.87500	1 - c / N
P(P2 homozygote per locus)	(1 - H) / 2	0.43750	c
Junctions per haplotype	A_2 = L; A_(t+1) = A_t + L H_t	1.75000	c L

The diversity row of Table 7.1 is the identity used throughout the chapter. Let $p_j \in [0,1]$ be the frequency of P1 ancestry at marker $j = 1, \ldots, m$ in a panel of N F4 lines, one per F2 plant, and $D = m^{-1} \sum_j 2p_j(1 - p_j)/0.5 \in [0,1]$ the diversity retained (`diversity_retained()`), with the frequency base the panel itself. Without distortion and without selection (`ssd`),

$$\mathrm{E}[D] = 1 - \frac{1 - H}{N}, \tag{7.1}$$

with H = 0.125 the F4 heterozygosity of P7 and the expectation taken over replicate populations. Section 7.3 checks it by simulation.

P8. The standard error is estimated between replicates, not between markers. This is essential: linked markers are strongly autocorrelated, so the spread across markers within one replicate is not an estimator of sampling error.

P9. What is not modelled, and therefore cannot be answered here: deliberate artificial selection, quantitative trait locus (QTL) architecture, phenotypic inbreeding depression, mutation (irrelevant on this timescale), and structural variation. If you know there is a large inversion between your parents, zero the recombination rate over that interval in `build_map()`.

Known bias: a junction is counted only as a change of ancestry between adjacent markers, so two junctions inside the same marker interval cancel and the simulated count is biased downward. Its size at the grid's spacing and at 1 cM is measured in Section 7.3.

7.3 Verifying the identities live

The theory of Section 7.2 is not decoration – it is checkable, and the simulator is only trustworthy if it reproduces it. The heterozygosity and diversity checks (Table 7.2, Table 7.3) run on a 10 cM map with distortion switched off, so the neutral expectations apply exactly. The junction checks do not share that setup: Table 7.5 uses the cached grid (2 cM map, distortion active), and Table 7.6 uses live neutral panels on 2 cM and 1 cM maps; each caption states its setup.

```
map10 <- build_map(maize_chr_len, spacing_cM = 10)
neutral <- make_distortion(map10, NULL, active = FALSE)

set.seed(4)  # one draw: a single F1 -> F4 lineage of 400 plants
F1 <- make_F1(map10, 400)
F2 <- cross_indices(F1, 1:400, 1:400, map10, neutral)
F3 <- cross_indices(F2, 1:400, 1:400, map10, neutral)
F4 <- cross_indices(F3, 1:400, 1:400, map10, neutral)

het_chk <- do.call(rbind, lapply(list(F1, F2, F3, F4), function(P) {
  h <- colMeans(P$H1 != P$H2)          # per-plant heterozygosity
  c(H_observed = mean(h), se = stats::sd(h) / sqrt(length(h)))
}))
het_chk <- data.frame(generation = c("F1", "F2", "F3", "F4"), het_chk,
                      H_expected = c(1, 0.5, 0.25, 0.125))
# tolerance: 4 standard errors between plants (the F1 has none)
stopifnot(all(abs(het_chk$H_observed - het_chk$H_expected) <=
              pmax(4 * het_chk$se, 1e-12)))
knitr::kable(fmt(het_chk, 4))
```

Table 7.2: Mean per-plant heterozygosity, F1 to F4, in one live lineage of 400 plants (10 cM map, distortion off, seed 4); se is the standard error between plants; H_expected is $(1/2)^{t-1}$ for generation F_t.

generation	H_observed	se	H_expected
F1	1.0000	0.0000	1.000
F2	0.4968	0.0038	0.500
F3	0.2541	0.0031	0.250
F4	0.1268	0.0022	0.125

Heterozygosity halves (Table 7.2) at every selfing, within four between-plant standard errors. The diversity identity is an expectation over replicate populations, so Table 7.3 checks Equation (7.1) on the replicate mean, again against four standard errors:

```
n_rep_chk <- 100
check <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(20, 50, 100, 200), function(N) {
  set.seed(5 + N)
  D <- replicate(n_rep_chk,
                 diversity_retained(panel_freq(run_scheme("ssd", N, map10,
                                                          neutral, f2_opt))))
  data.frame(N = N, D_mean = mean(D), D_sd = stats::sd(D),
             D_expected = 1 - (1 - 0.125) / N)
}))
check$z <- (check$D_mean - check$D_expected) / (check$D_sd / sqrt(n_rep_chk))
stopifnot(all(abs(check$z) < 4))
knitr::kable(fmt(check, 4))
```

Table 7.3: Diversity retained D in neutral SSD panels (10 cM map, distortion off), 100 live replicate populations per N (seed 5 + N). D_mean and D_sd: mean and s.d. between replicates; D_expected: Equation (7.1); z: (D_mean - D_expected) / (D_sd / 10).

N	D_mean	D_sd	D_expected	z
20	0.9560	0.0082	0.9562	−0.3141
50	0.9825	0.0035	0.9825	−0.0423
100	0.9911	0.0017	0.9912	−1.1641
200	0.9958	0.0008	0.9956	1.8349

With 100 replicate populations per N the largest standardised deviation of the mean from Equation (7.1) is 1.83 standard errors.

Map expansion is an algebraic prediction, and the payoff is a result many programmes get wrong (Table 7.4):

```
Lm <- map$total_cM / 100
ej <- rbind(SSD  = expected_junctions("ssd",  map),
            Syn1 = expected_junctions("syn1", map),
            Syn2 = expected_junctions("syn2", map))
knitr::kable(fmt(ej, 2))
```

Table 7.4: Expected junctions per haplotype and the corresponding mean block length after SSD, Syn1 and Syn2, from the recursion of Table 7.1 (`expected_junctions()`, 2 cM map of P3, no distortion).

	junctions	mean_block_cM
SSD	29.22	42.57
Syn1	37.57	35.10
Syn2	45.92	29.86

Each Syn cycle adds only $0.5L$ junctions, not $1.0L$. The extra meiosis creates a junction only where the parent is heterozygous, and $H = 0.5$ at the F2/Syn stage. Budgeting an intercrossing cycle as "one more map length of recombination" overstates what it buys by a factor of two.

The prediction is checked against the simulated junction counts of the cached grid (2 cM markers, distortion active; mean of `junctions_per_hap()` over 20 lines per replicate, pooled over the replicates of all 20 values of N; Table 7.5):

```
jd <- do.call(rbind, lapply(unique(f2$scheme), function(s) {
  d <- f2[f2$scheme == s, ]
  e <- expected_junctions(if (s %in% c("syn1", "syn2")) s else "ssd",
```

```
                          map)[["junctions"]]
  o <- stats::weighted.mean(d$junc, d$n_rep)
  data.frame(scheme = s, replicates = sum(d$n_rep), expected = e,
             simulated = o, deficit_pct = 100 * (o / e - 1))
}))
stopifnot(all(jd$deficit_pct < 0),
          all(diff(jd$deficit_pct[match(c("ssd", "syn1", "syn2"),
                                        jd$scheme)]) < 0))
knitr::kable(fmt(jd, 2))
```

Table 7.5: Junctions per haplotype, recursion against the cached grid (`regenerate.R f2size`, 2 cM map, distortion active). replicates: populations pooled over all grid N; expected: `expected_junctions()` (SSD recursion for ssd, ssd_attr and bulk); simulated: replicate-weighted mean of `junctions_per_hap()`; deficit_pct: 100 (simulated / expected - 1), in %.

scheme	replicates	expected	simulated	deficit_pct
ssd	340	29.22	28.12	−3.78
ssd_attr	340	29.22	28.25	−3.35
bulk	340	29.22	27.58	−5.61
syn1	340	37.57	35.64	−5.14
syn2	340	45.92	43.00	−6.36

Every scheme counts fewer junctions than predicted: −3.8% for SSD, −5.1% and −6.4% for one and two intercrossing cycles. This is the known bias of P9, and it is larger than the single-meiosis Haldane deficit at 2 cM, $r/d - 1 = -2\%$. The inference is that the deficit grows with the number of junctions accumulated before the count, because junctions laid down by different meioses inside one interval also cancel; the cached grid supports it only through the ordering SSD, Syn1, Syn2, not through a separate test. The bulk departs further than SSD, and the recursion does not model selection on ancestry, so its row is not a test of the recursion.

A finer map reduces the deficit but does not remove it at 1 cM. The chunk below measures it on neutral SSD panels of 500 lines, all lines counted (Table 7.6):

```
spacing_chk <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(2, 1), function(sp) {
  m  <- build_map(maize_chr_len, spacing_cM = sp)
  nn <- make_distortion(m, NULL, active = FALSE)
  set.seed(11)
  pop <- run_scheme("ssd", 500, m, nn, f2_opt)
  per_line <- vapply(seq_len(ncol(pop$H1)), function(i)
    junctions_per_hap(list(H1 = pop$H1[, i, drop = FALSE],
                           H2 = pop$H2[, i, drop = FALSE]), m), numeric(1))
  e <- expected_junctions("ssd", m)[["junctions"]]
  data.frame(spacing_cM = sp, deficit_pct = 100 * (mean(per_line) / e - 1),
             se_pct = 100 * stats::sd(per_line) / sqrt(length(per_line)) / e)
}))
knitr::kable(fmt(spacing_chk, 2))
```

Table 7.6: Junction-count deficit against `expected_junctions()` at 2 cM and 1 cM marker spacing, one live neutral SSD panel of 500 lines per spacing (seed 11). deficit_pct and se_pct in %; se_pct is the standard error between lines, scaled by the expected count.

spacing_cM	deficit_pct	se_pct
2	−5.15	0.76
1	−2.28	0.75

At 1 cM the deficit is −2.3% (standard error 0.7%, between lines, one panel), against −5.1% at 2 cM on the same design. A count unbiased to within that standard error needs a spacing finer than 1 cM; which spacing achieves it was not measured.

The two 2 cM estimates of the SSD deficit do not coincide: the live panel gives −5.1% and the grid row of Table 7.5 −3.8%, a difference of −1.8 panel standard errors. The grid pools 340 replicates of 20 lines, but with distortion active; the panel is neutral but a single draw of 500 lines. These data do not separate panel sampling error from an effect of distortion on the count. The inference is that the 2 cM against 1 cM contrast from two single panels, 2.9 percentage points (s.e. 1.1), is imprecise; neither panel was replicated, and the effect of distortion on the grid count was not measured separately.

7.4 The results

The full grid – five schemes, 20 population sizes, adaptive replication – takes several minutes and is shipped precomputed. Table 7.7 gives its SSD rows at ten of those sizes.

Table 7.7: SSD, the reference scheme without selection, at ten of the twenty grid sizes N (F2 plants); cached grid (`regenerate.R f2size`, 2 cM map, distortion active, seed 20260828). Column replicates: independent F1-to-F4 populations per N (40 at $N \leq 50$, falling to 10 from $N = 210$). Every other column is a mean over those replicates; s.d.(D) is between replicates; skewed genome is the percentage of markers with $|p - 0.5| > 0.15$ (`skew_fraction()`); p is the P1 ancestry frequency.

N	replicates	D	s.d.(D)	SE(p_hat)	skewed genome (%)	min(p, 1-p)	N equivalent
10	40	0.903	0.0171	0.148	42.8	0.069	9
30	40	0.961	0.0080	0.084	14.4	0.187	23
50	40	0.972	0.0052	0.066	7.9	0.209	32
70	29	0.978	0.0036	0.056	5.6	0.221	40
90	22	0.981	0.0034	0.047	4.3	0.233	47
110	18	0.982	0.0030	0.044	4.2	0.232	48
150	13	0.984	0.0032	0.039	3.8	0.236	56
190	11	0.985	0.0019	0.032	3.7	0.227	60
290	10	0.988	0.0019	0.027	3.3	0.240	70
390	10	0.989	0.0017	0.023	3.1	0.242	77

7.4.1 Diversity stays below the distortion-free curve at every N tested

Figure 7.1 plots D for the five schemes against the distortion-free expectation.

```
schemes <- unique(f2$scheme)
# scheme colours: neutral, distinct from the pool A/B colours of book_pal
cols <- c(ssd = book_pal[["ink"]], ssd_attr = book_pal[["mid"]],
          bulk = "#762a83", syn1 = "#1b7837", syn2 = "#7fbf7b")
plot(NA, xlim = range(f2$N), ylim = c(0.88, 1.0),
     xlab = expression(N[F2]~"plants"), ylab = "diversity retained, D")
grid()
for (s in schemes) {
  d <- f2[f2$scheme == s, ]
  lines(d$N, d$div, type = "b", pch = 19, cex = 0.6, col = cols[s], lwd = 1.8)
}
curve(1 - 0.875 / x, add = TRUE, lty = 2, col = "grey30", lwd = 1.5)
legend("bottomright", c(schemes, "theory, no distortion"),
       col = c(cols[schemes], "grey30"), lwd = c(rep(1.8, length(schemes)), 1.5),
       lty = c(rep(1, length(schemes)), 2), pch = c(rep(19, length(schemes)), NA),
       bty = "n", cex = 0.8)
```

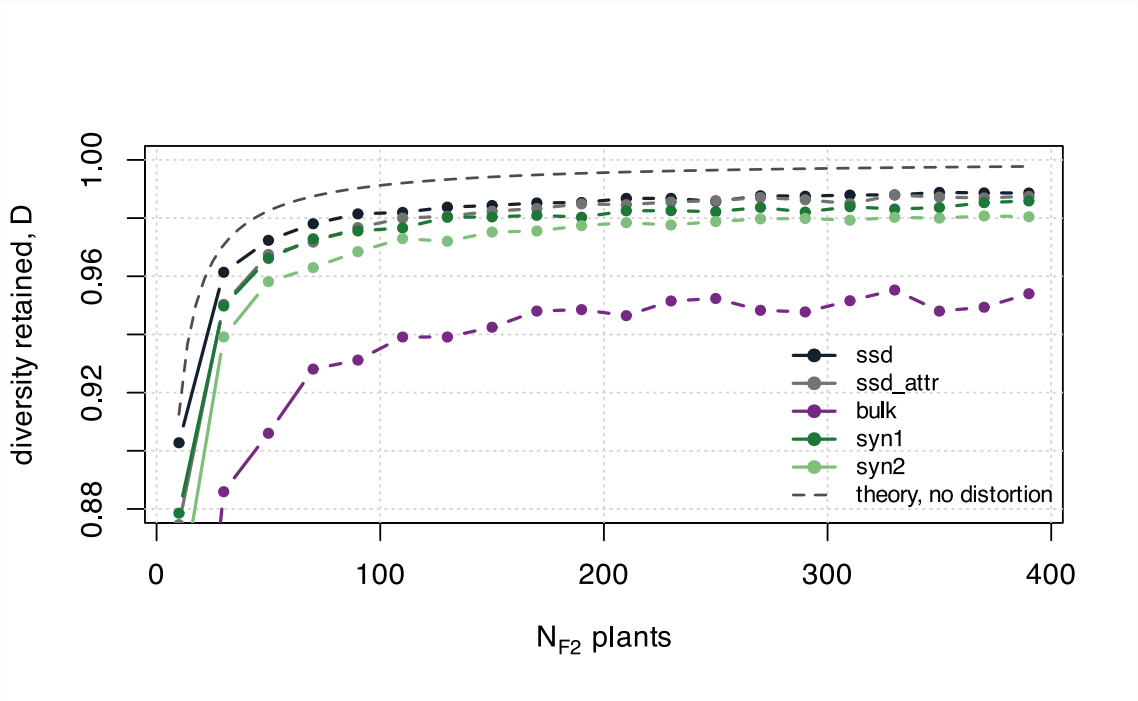

Figure 7.1: Diversity retained D (dimensionless, 1 = no loss) in the F4 panel against the number of F2 plants N, for the five schemes of P6 (bulk at $\beta = 6$, attrition 15%). Each point is the mean over 10 to 40 replicate populations (more at small N; counts per N for SSD in Table 7.7); no error bars are drawn. Cached grid (`regenerate.R f2size`, 2 cM map, distortion active, seed 20260828). Dashed: the distortion-free expectation Equation (7.1), $H = 0.125$.

At the largest N tested (390), SSD retains $D = 0.9886$ (s.d. 0.0017 over 10 replicates), and the curve is still rising: D gains 0.0067 from $N = 110$ to $N = 390$. Across the 20 grid points the gap between the distortion-free expectation and the SSD mean lies between 0.0087 and 0.0108, with a least-squares slope of −0.00017 per 100 plants (unweighted). Weighted by the inverse sampling variance of each replicate mean (n_{rep}/s^2, with s the between-replicate s.d. of D), the slope is −0.00025 per 100 plants, s.e. 0.00013 (from those variances), so −2 standard errors from zero. Over the whole grid that slope amounts to −0.001 against a mean gap of 0.0095. No limit of D as $N \to \infty$ was computed; the grid stops at 390.

The interpretation is that the gap is **segregation distortion**, the only departure from the neutral model in SSD, and that it is a bias which more plants barely reduce inside the range tested: the weighted slope is at the margin of detection and, taken at face value, removes a small fraction of the gap across the whole grid. Adding plants buys drift protection, and little distortion protection. How the gap behaves beyond $N = 390$ was not measured.

Figure 7.2 shows the same separation along the genome, on two live panels (4 cM map, distortion active, one population each).

```
map4 <- build_map(maize_chr_len, spacing_cM = 4)
dist <- make_distortion(map4, f2_distorters)
set.seed(6)
small <- panel_freq(run_scheme("ssd", 20,  map4, dist, f2_opt))
set.seed(7)
large <- panel_freq(run_scheme("ssd", 300, map4, dist, f2_opt))

plot(small, type = "l", col = book_pal[["mid"]], ylim = c(0, 1),
     xlab = "genome (chromosomes 1–10)", ylab = "P1 ancestry frequency", xaxt = "n")
lines(large, col = book_pal[["ink"]], lwd = 1.6)
abline(h = 0.5, lty = 2, col = "grey50")
# chromosome boundaries and distorter positions
bnd <- which(map4$first)
axis(1, at = (c(bnd, map4$m + 1)[-1] + bnd) / 2, labels = seq_along(map4$chr_len))
```

```
abline(v = bnd[-1] - 0.5, col = book_pal[["light"]])
for (i in seq_len(nrow(f2_distorters)))
  abline(v = marker_index(map4, f2_distorters$chr[i], f2_distorters$pos_cM[i]),
         col = book_pal[["loss"]], lty = 3)
legend("topleft", c("N = 20", "N = 300", "distorter"), col = book_pal[c("mid",
"ink", "loss")],
       lty = c(1, 1, 3), lwd = c(1, 1.6, 1), bty = "n", cex = 0.8, horiz = TRUE)
```

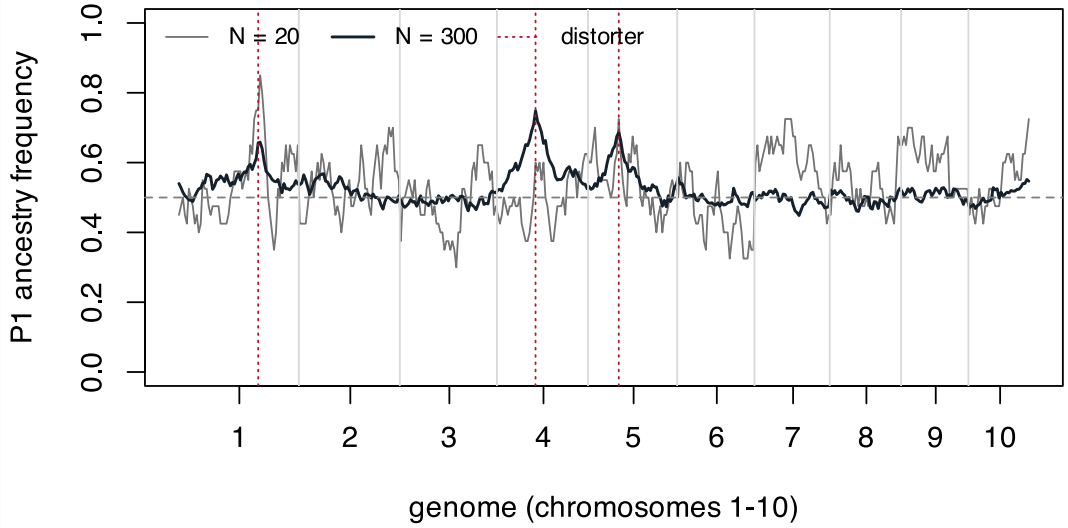

Figure 7.2: Frequency of P1 ancestry at each marker, ordered along chromosomes 1 to 10 (grey verticals: chromosome boundaries), in one SSD F4 panel from $N = 20$ F2 plants and one from $N = 300$; a single population each, simulated live (4 cM map, distortion active, seeds 6 and 7), so no error band. Dashed: 0.5, the neutral expectation. At $N = 20$ the whole curve is noisy: that is drift, and more plants reduce it. At $N = 300$ the departures from 0.5 that remain sit at the three distorters (dotted red lines): the deterministic bias.

7.4.2 Under selection for P1 ancestry, the bulk retains the least diversity

Table 7.8 sets the bulk at the largest N against SSD at 30 plants.

Table 7.8: Diversity retained D, mean over replicate populations of the cached grid (`regenerate.R f2size`, 2 cM map, distortion active): the bulk ($\beta = 6$) at the largest grid N against SSD at $N = 30$ F2 plants.

comparison	N	D
bulk, largest N	390	0.954
SSD, N = 30	30	0.961

The bulk has the lowest mean D of the five schemes at 20 of the 20 grid values of N, and at the largest N it retains less diversity than SSD at 30 plants. Both results follow from a model input: `bulk_weights()` raises the seed contribution of plants with more P1 ancestry, with $\beta = 6$, so the loss of P2 ancestry is built into the scheme, and its size depends on β, which was not varied here. The comparison with SSD at $N = 30$ holds at this β only. If P2 is the donor whose germplasm the cross was made to introduce, and natural selection in the bulk favours P1 ancestry as this model assumes, the bulk is not a cheaper SSD – it is a different experiment.

7.4.3 Block length does not depend on N in the grid

Table 7.9 summarises block length and the junction-on-N slope per scheme.

```
nchr <- length(map$chr_len)
blk <- do.call(rbind, lapply(unique(f2$scheme), function(s) {
  d <- f2[f2$scheme == s, ]
  b <- map$total_cM / (d$junc + nchr)    # mean block length, cM
  fit <- summary(stats::lm(d$junc ~ d$N))$coefficients
  data.frame(scheme = s, block_min_cM = min(b), block_max_cM = max(b),
             junc_slope_per_100 = 100 * fit[2, 1],
             slope_se_per_100 = 100 * fit[2, 2])
}))
knitr::kable(fmt(blk, 2))
```

Table 7.9: Mean block length (cM) and the least-squares slope of junctions per haplotype on N, per scheme, from the cached grid's junction counts (`regenerate.R f2size`, 2 cM map, distortion active, one replicate mean per grid N, N = 10 to 390). block_min_cM, block_max_cM: range over N of total map length / (junctions + chromosomes); junc_slope_per_100 and slope_se_per_100: slope and its standard error, junctions per 100 plants.

scheme	block_min_cM	block_max_cM	junc_slope_per_100	slope_se_per_100
ssd	43.23	44.44	0.00	0.07
ssd_attr	43.07	44.26	−0.01	0.06
bulk	43.26	45.12	0.08	0.07
syn1	36.09	36.98	0.05	0.06
syn2	30.99	31.90	0.15	0.08

Mean block length is computed from the cached junction counts as total map length over (junctions + chromosomes), the definition of `expected_junctions()`. Under SSD it ranges from 43.2 to 44.4 cM across N = 10 to 390, and the slope of junctions on N is −0.002 junctions per 100 plants (s.e. 0.069). One and two intercrossing cycles shorten the blocks to about 36.5 and 31.4 cM. The counts carry the junction deficit measured in Section 7.3, so the absolute lengths are too long by about the size of that deficit; the comparison across N and across schemes is what the table supports.

Within this grid, block length is set by the number of meioses, not by N. Against linkage drag the instrument is therefore an **intercrossing cycle, not field area** – which is what the Syn rows of Table 7.4 quantify.

7.4.4 The metrics saturate at different N

This is the central practical result, and the reason the question "what is the optimal N?" has no single answer (Table 7.10). To make "saturates" checkable it is defined on the grid: for D and for the worst region $\min(p, 1-p)$, N_{90} is the smallest grid N whose replicate mean has reached 90% of the gain from the smallest to the largest N tested. The definition is relative to the grid's upper end (390), so a longer grid would move it. The replicate means carry sampling error, and so does the threshold, which is built from the two end means; the table therefore also gives a two-standard-error bracket: the last grid N whose mean lies more than two standard errors below the threshold, and the first that lies more than two above it. For recovery of a P2 homozygote at k unlinked loci the target is absolute, $P \geq 0.95$. Its distortion-free closed form, the classical number of plants needed to recover a genotype [44], is

$$N_{95}(k) = \frac{\log 0.05}{\log\left[1 - \left(\frac{1-H}{2}\right)^{k}\right]}, \tag{7.2}$$

with $(1-H)/2$ the probability that an F4 line is P2P2 at one locus (P7) and the k loci on different chromosomes.

```
n90 <- function(N, y) {
  thr <- y[1] + 0.9 * (y[length(y)] - y[1])
  N[which(y >= thr)[1]]
}
# 2-s.e. bracket of the crossing; se = between-replicate sd / sqrt(n_rep)
n90_bracket <- function(N, y, se) {
  n   <- length(y)
  thr <- y[1] + 0.9 * (y[n] - y[1])
  z   <- (y - thr) / sqrt(se^2 + 0.01 * se[1]^2 + 0.81 * se[n]^2)
  lo  <- N[max(which(z < -2 & N < n90(N, y)))]
  hi  <- N[min(which(z > 2 & N >= n90(N, y)))]
  c(lo = lo, hi = hi)
}
br_D    <- n90_bracket(ssd$N, ssd$div,  ssd$div_sd  / sqrt(ssd$n_rep))
br_pmin <- n90_bracket(ssd$N, ssd$pmin, ssd$pmin_sd / sqrt(ssd$n_rep))
pmin_prev <- ssd$N[which(ssd$N == n90(ssd$N, ssd$pmin)) - 1]   # grid N before
the crossing
Ngrid <- sort(unique(ml$N))
n95_grid_k3 <- min(Ngrid[1 - (1 - (0.875 / 2)^3)^Ngrid >= 0.95])
n95_closed <- function(k, H = 0.125) log(0.05) / log(1 - ((1 - H) / 2)^k)
kk <- sort(unique(ml$k))
ml_first95 <- vapply(kk, function(k) {
  d <- ml[ml$k == k, ]; d <- d[order(d$N), ]
  if (any(d$P >= 0.95)) d$N[which(d$P >= 0.95)[1]] else NA_real_
}, numeric(1))
ml_Pmax <- vapply(kk, function(k) ml$P[ml$k == k & ml$N == max(ml$N)], numeric(1))

# closed form against a neutral simulation, k = 5, N = 110 (10 cM map)
set.seed(8)
P_pops <- replicate(20, multilocus_recovery(
  run_scheme("ssd", 110, map10, neutral, f2_opt), map10, 5))
P_neutral <- mean(P_pops)
P_se      <- stats::sd(P_pops) / sqrt(length(P_pops))
P_closed  <- 1 - (1 - (0.875 / 2)^5)^110
stopifnot(abs(P_neutral - P_closed) < 4 * P_se)  # 4 s.e. between populations
ml_below <- ml$P < 1 - (1 - (0.875 / 2)^ml$k)^ml$N

sat <- data.frame(
  Objective = c("Diversity retained (D)",
                "Worst region of the genome, min(p, 1-p)",
                "Precision of the panel's p_hat",
                paste0("Recovery of ", kk, " loci")),
  Criterion = c("N90", "N90", "none: SE falls as N^(-1/2)",
                rep("P >= 0.95", length(kk))),
  `Grid N reaching it` = c(n90(ssd$N, ssd$div), n90(ssd$N, ssd$pmin), "--",
                           ifelse(is.na(ml_first95), "not reached",
                                  ml_first95)),
  `2-s.e. bracket` = c(paste(br_D, collapse = " to "),
                       paste(br_pmin, collapse = " to "), "--",
                       rep("--", length(kk))),
  `Value at largest N` = c(fmt(ssd$div[ssd$N == Nmax], 4),
                           fmt(ssd$pmin[ssd$N == Nmax], 3),
                           fmt(ssd$se_p[ssd$N == Nmax], 4),
                           fmt(ml_Pmax, 3)),
  `Closed form N95, no distortion` = c("--", "--", "--",
                                       round(n95_closed(kk))),
  check.names = FALSE)
knitr::kable(sat)
```

Table 7.10: Different objectives, different answers. D, $\min(p, 1-p)$ and SE($\hat{p}$): SSD replicate means of the cached grid (`regenerate.R f2size`, 2 cM map, distortion active, N = 10 to 390 F2 plants). N_{90}: smallest grid N whose replicate mean reaches 90% of the gain from the smallest to the largest grid N. 2-s.e. bracket: last grid N with (mean - threshold) below −2 s.e. and first with it above +2 s.e., s.e. combining the standard error of the mean at that N (between-replicate s.d. / $\sqrt{n_{rep}}$) and that of the threshold. Recovery of k loci: one simulated population per N (replicate 1 of the grid), 300 random locus sets, criterion $P \geq 0.95$; the closed form is Equation (7.2).

Objective	Criterion	Grid N reaching it	2-s.e. bracket	Value at largest N	Closed form N95, no distortion
Diversity retained (D)	N90	90	70 to 110	0.9886	–
Worst region of the genome, min(p, 1-p)	N90	90	30 to 350	0.2420	–
Precision of the panel's p_hat	none: SE falls as N^(-1/2)	–	–	0.0225	–
Recovery of 3 loci	P >= 0.95	50	–	1.0000	34
Recovery of 5 loci	P >= 0.95	270	–	0.9970	185
Recovery of 8 loci	P >= 0.95	not reached	–	0.3730	2230
Recovery of 10 loci	P >= 0.95	not reached	–	0.0700	11659

The closed form Equation (7.2) was checked against a neutral simulation at k = 5, N = 110: 0.825 (s.e. 0.008 between the 20 populations) against 0.831; the chunk asserts agreement within four such standard errors. With distortion, the simulated recovery for $k \geq 5$ lies below the closed form at 57 of 60 grid points. For $k = 3$, at N = 10 the simulated value is 0.717 and the closed form 0.583; the simulated curve first reaches 0.95 at grid N = 50, the closed form at grid N = 50.

The inference is that distortion against P2, which all three distorters exert, lowers the per-locus probability of a P2P2 line, so the closed-form N_{95} is expected to understate what the simulated cross needs; this was not shown beyond the grid. For $k \geq 8$ the closed form already lies far outside the grid, and no grid N reaches the target. The recovery rows rest on one population per N, so their crossing points carry the between-population variance that the replicated rows average out; the curves in Figure 7.3 are visibly non-monotone for that reason.

For D the two-standard-error bracket of N_{90} runs from 70 to 110. For $\min(p, 1-p)$ the replicate means cross the threshold between grid N = 70 and 90, but the bracket runs from 30 to 350. The inference is that the worst-region curve is flat within its replicate error over that range, so the grid does not locate its N_{90}; more replicates per N would be needed to do so. The contrast between objectives in Table 7.10 rests on D and on recovery, not on $\min(p, 1-p)$.

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(kk, c(3, 5, 8, 10)))) # k values hard-coded in the caption
# k colours: neutral grey ramp, distinct from the pool A/B colours of book_pal
cols_k <- grey(seq(0, 0.6, length.out = length(kk)))
plot(NA, xlim = range(ml$N), ylim = c(0, 1), xlab = expression(N[F2]~"plants"),
     ylab = "P(at least one line P2P2 at all k loci)")
grid()
for (i in seq_along(kk)) {
  d <- ml[ml$k == kk[i], ]
  lines(d$N, d$P, type = "b", pch = 14 + i, cex = 0.6, col = cols_k[i], lwd = 1.8)
}
legend("topright", paste("k =", kk), col = cols_k, lwd = 1.8,
       pch = 14 + seq_along(kk), bty = "n")
```

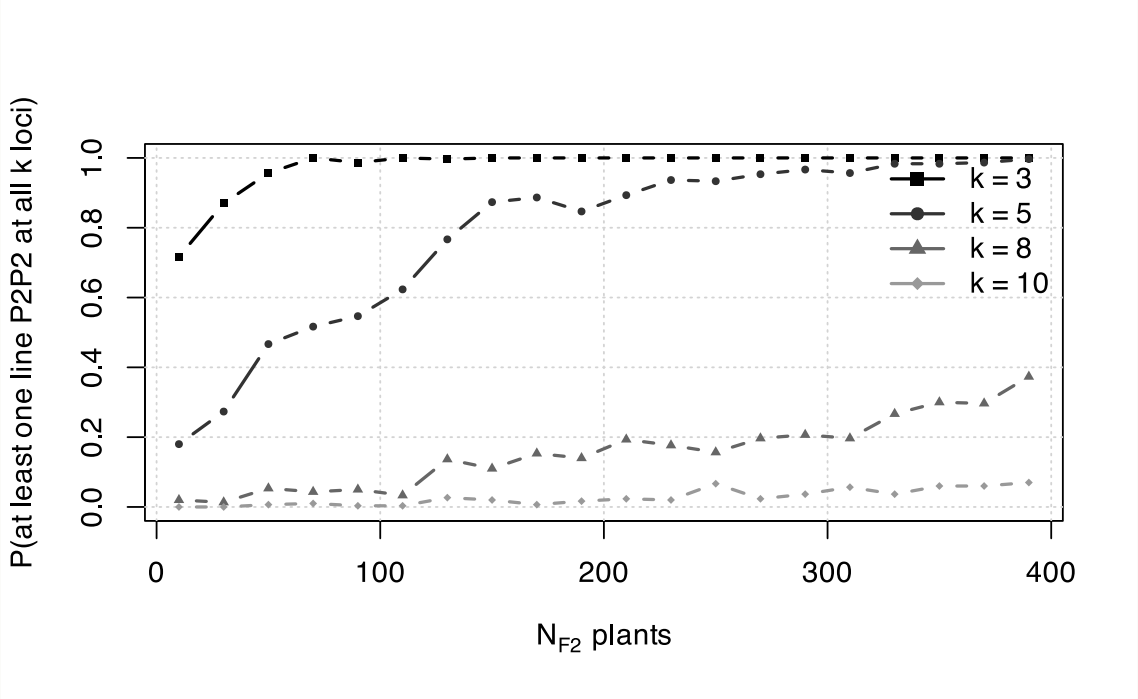

Figure 7.3: Multilocus recovery: probability that at least one F4 line is homozygous for P2 at k unlinked loci (k = 3, 5, 8, 10), against the number of F2 plants N; SSD, distortion active, 2 cM map. **One** simulated population per N (replicate 1 of the cached grid, `regenerate.R f2size`, seed 20260828), so there are no replicates and no error bars: each point is a proportion over 300 random locus sets drawn in that one population, and the point-to-point wiggle is between-population variance, not signal.

The marginal gain in D tells the same story from the other side. The standard error of each step combines the two replicate means (Table 7.11):

Table 7.11: Gain in mean D between consecutive grid sizes, SSD, cached grid (`regenerate.R f2size`, 2 cM map, distortion active). se: standard error of the difference of the two replicate means, $\sqrt{s_1^2/n_1 + s_2^2/n_2}$ with s the between-replicate s.d. of D and n the replicate count at each size.

step	gain_in_D	se
10 -> 30	0.0586	0.0030
30 -> 50	0.0110	0.0015
50 -> 70	0.0057	0.0011
70 -> 90	0.0034	0.0010
90 -> 110	0.0005	0.0010
110 -> 130	0.0018	0.0009
130 -> 150	0.0006	0.0011
150 -> 170	0.0009	0.0011
170 -> 190	0.0002	0.0008
190 -> 210	0.0014	0.0010
210 -> 230	0.0000	0.0010
230 -> 250	−0.0011	0.0008
250 -> 270	0.0020	0.0006
270 -> 290	−0.0001	0.0007
290 -> 310	0.0004	0.0008
310 -> 330	0.0001	0.0006
330 -> 350	0.0008	0.0005
350 -> 370	−0.0002	0.0006
370 -> 390	0.0000	0.0007

Past N_{90} = 90 for D, the 15 steps of 20 plants gain between −0.0011 and 0.002; 14 of them are within two standard errors of zero. The grid cannot resolve the marginal gain of a single step of 20 plants there; it resolves only the cumulative gain to N = 390.

7.5 Sizing the F1

With fully homozygous parents the F1 is genetically uniform and the decision is logistical.

Suppose instead that each parent is still heterozygous at a fraction h_{res} of the n_{loc} loci that are polymorphic between the two parents and segregate independently. Here $1 - h_{res}$ is the proportion of those loci at which a parent is homozygous, not an inbreeding coefficient relative to a base population, and h_{res} = 0.05, n_{loc} = 5000 are scenario values, not estimates for any germplasm. Heterozygosity is assumed to arise independently in the two parents, so there are $2h_{res}n_{loc}$ heterozygous (parent, locus) pairs in expectation. Each F1 plant receives one random gamete from each parent, so at a heterozygous (parent, locus) pair one of the parent's two alleles is transmitted to no F1 plant when all n plants receive the same one, with probability $2(1/2)^n$. The expected number of **parental alleles lost** is therefore $2h_{res}n_{loc} \cdot 2(1/2)^n$, the quantity `f1_sizing()` returns.

That is not the number of loci lost. Under the biallelic assumption of P1, a parent heterozygous Aa at a locus where the other parent is aa loses polymorphism at that locus only if every F1 plant receives a, with probability $(1/2)^n$; losing a leaves the other parent's a in the F2. A locus heterozygous in both parents (probability h_{res}^2) becomes monomorphic only if all n F1 plants are AA or all are aa, with probability $2(1/4)^n$. The expected number of **loci made monomorphic** is $n_{loc}\left[2h_{res}(1 - h_{res})(1/2)^n + h_{res}^2 \cdot 2(1/4)^n\right]$ (Table 7.12).

```
s <- f1_sizing(n_F1 = 1:20, h_res = h_res, n_loci_eff = n_loc)
lost_col <- grep("lost", names(s), value = TRUE)   # alleles lost, per f1_sizing()
stopifnot(length(lost_col) == 1,
          isTRUE(all.equal(s[[lost_col]], 2 * h_res * n_loc * 2 * 0.5^s$n_F1)))
s$expected_loci_monomorphic <- n_loc * (2 * h_res * (1 - h_res) * 0.5^s$n_F1 +
```

```
                                          h_res^2 * 2 * 0.25^s$n_F1)
n_f1     <- min(s$n_F1[s[[lost_col]] < 1])
n_f1_loc <- min(s$n_F1[s$expected_loci_monomorphic < 1])
knitr::kable(fmt(s[s$n_F1 %in% sort(unique(c(4, n_f1_loc - 1, n_f1_loc, n_f1,
                                             12, 16, 20))), ], 4),
             row.names = FALSE)
```

Table 7.12: Expected parental alleles lost (`f1_sizing()`: heterozygous (parent, locus) pairs at which one allele reaches no F1 plant) and expected loci made monomorphic (biallelic loci, computed in the chunk), against the number n of selfed F1 plants, at the scenario values h_{res} = 0.05 and n_{loc} = 5000 independent loci; rows shown at selected n, including both thresholds and the sizes below them.

n_F1	p_loss_per_locus	expected_loci_lost	expected_loci_monomorphic
4	0.1250	62.5000	29.7852
8	0.0078	3.9062	1.8559
9	0.0039	1.9531	0.9278
10	0.0020	0.9766	0.4639
12	0.0005	0.2441	0.1160
16	0.0000	0.0153	0.0072
20	0.0000	0.0010	0.0005

10 selfed F1 plants is the smallest number that puts the expected number of parental alleles lost below one (0.977, against 1.953 with 9 plants). 9 plants is the smallest number that puts the expected number of loci made monomorphic below one (0.928, against 1.856 with 8 plants). The first criterion is the stricter: it also counts an allele lost from one parent that the other parent still carries. Under these assumptions, independent loci and independent heterozygosity in the two parents included, that is the whole F1 sizing argument.

7.6 Working numbers

Table 7.13 collects the sizing decisions generation by generation.

Table 7.13: Working numbers for a wide cross, read off the SSD rows of the cached grid (N = 10 to 390 F2 plants, 2 cM map, distortion active) and `f1_sizing()` at the scenario values h_{res} = 0.05, n_{loc} = 5000. Size for the objective that binds, not for D: N_{90} for D is a grid-relative reference point, not a recommended F2 size. P(recovery) values come from one simulated population per N (replicate 1 of the grid), with no replicate error.

Generation	Plants	Rationale
F1	10 selfed, minimum	Ne = 1 with homozygous parents, a logistical call. With h_res = 0.05 in both parents, 10 plants put expected parental alleles lost below 1 (9 put expected loci made monomorphic below 1)
F2	270 if the binding objective is recovery at k = 5	First grid N with P(recovery) >= 0.95 at k = 5, one population per N; the curve is not monotone
	not reached at N <= 390 for recovery at k >= 8; set by the precision required for p_hat	At N = 390, one population: P(recovery) = 0.373 (k = 8), 0.07 (k = 10); SE(p_hat) = 0.0225, still falling as N^(-1/2)
	N90 for D = 90: a reference point, not a size	Grid-relative (2-s.e. bracket 70 to 110). From N90 to N = 390, +300 plants buy +0.0072 of D
F3	same N (SSD, one seed per plant)	Does not create diversity, only avoids losing it
F4	lines x plants per line set by seed need	Seed multiplication. Plants of the same line are not independent replicates: their coancestry is (1 + F_F3)/2 = 0.875 with the F1 as base

⚠ On the "equivalent N"

$N_{eq} = (1 - H)/(1 - D)$ answers "how many F4 lines without distortion would give the diversity actually observed". It is a **communication device, not a Wright effective size**: it converts a deterministic bias into a drift equivalent. Use it to compare scenarios; never substitute it into an N_e formula.

7.7 Where this connects

The panel this chapter sizes is the raw material for everything else, and the claim that its diversity is a *ceiling* should be measured rather than asserted. The rest of the book works on one kernel – molecular coancestry f and gene diversity $GD = 1 - \theta$ (Chapter 2.). The F4 panel can be pushed straight into it (Table 7.14):

```
map_br  <- build_map(spacing_cM = 10)
dist_br <- make_distortion(map_br, active = TRUE)

bridge <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(30, 120, 480), function(n) {
  set.seed(3 + n)
  pop <- run_scheme("ssd", n, map_br, dist_br, opt = f2_opt)
  X   <- t((pop$H1 + pop$H2) / 2)          # lines x markers, 0/0.5/1
  th  <- mean(molecular_coancestry(X))     # all pairs, self included
  data.frame(n_F2 = n, D = diversity_retained(panel_freq(pop)),
             theta = th, GD = 1 - th, Ns = 1 / (2 * th))
}))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(bridge$GD, bridge$D / 2)),
          isTRUE(all.equal(bridge$Ns, 1 / (2 - bridge$D))))
knitr::kable(fmt(bridge, 4))
```

Table 7.14: One live SSD F4 panel per N F2 plants (column n_F2; 10 cM map, distortion active, seed 3 + N): diversity retained D, mean molecular coancestry θ over all pairs of lines with self included, $GD = 1 - \theta$ and $N_s = 1/(2\theta)$, frequency base the panel itself.

n_F2	D	theta	GD	Ns
30	0.9648	0.5176	0.4824	0.9660
120	0.9852	0.5074	0.4926	0.9854
480	0.9877	0.5062	0.4938	0.9878

D, the chapter's own diversity-retained statistic, and GD, the quantity every later chapter constrains, are the same quantity up to a factor: $GD = D/2$ exactly, asserted in the chunk. With the 0/0.5/1 coding and θ the mean of the molecular coancestry over all pairs of lines, self included [10], θ averages $p^2 + (1 - p)^2$ over markers, so $GD = 1 - \theta$ is the mean of $2p(1 - p)$, which is $D/2$ because D divides the same mean by its maximum 0.5. The frequency base is the F4 panel itself. The sizing decision made here therefore sets the GD that Chapter 12., Chapter 15. and Chapter 16. spend the rest of the book budgeting, and it sets it *once*. An optimiser cannot select back up to variation the panel never sampled; the best it can do is spend what is left more slowly.

i N_s is not informative inside a biparental cross

The status number on these panels is $N_s = 1/(2\theta) = 1/(2 - D)$, between 0.966 and 0.988 in Table 7.14 whatever the sizing, and bounded above by 1 because $D \leq 1$. That is correct rather than broken. Every line descends from two parents, so the panel has the genetic base of a single diploid individual, which is exactly what $N_s = 1/(2\theta)$ reports. Section 11.3 warns that N_s describes a base rather than projecting drift; here the base is genuinely one cross.

Use D and GD to compare sizing scenarios within a cross, and N_s only once material from several crosses has been pooled.

Chapter 13. puts a number on how the loss is distributed across the whole pipeline, and this stage is where the cheapest insurance is available – more plants, once, at the start. Chapter 24. is where the same argument is made about the *variance* rather than the frequencies, and reaches a different conclusion about what is recoverable.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **04-population-sizing.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

8. Introgressing several genes by backcrossing

Chapter 7. sized a segregating population for *diversity*: the objective was to sample as much of the cross as possible. This chapter is the mirror image. A donor line carries k genes worth having and an elite line carries everything else worth having, and the job is to move the k genes across while **throwing the rest of the donor away**. Here donor genome is contamination, and the only diversity that is wanted is the k target loci themselves.

The operation is marker-assisted backcrossing (MABC). The numbers below come from a simulator of it: a marker grid at 5 cM on ten maize chromosomes (1670 cM), one selected plant advanced per generation, $k = 1$ to 4 recessive targets from a single donor, on four different chromosomes, carried to the third backcross generation, BC3. The engine and the selection index are `R/08_mabc.R`; the experiment driver `inst/scripts/run_mabc.R` writes tables of the shape of the six cached `mabc_*.csv` files, but not every cached copy was written by its current version; Section 8.8 states which run produced each one and how to re-run it.

8.1 The operation, in one diagram

Before any sizing question can be asked, the crossing operations have to be unambiguous – which plant is pollinated by which, and what is genotyped at each step (Figure 8.1).

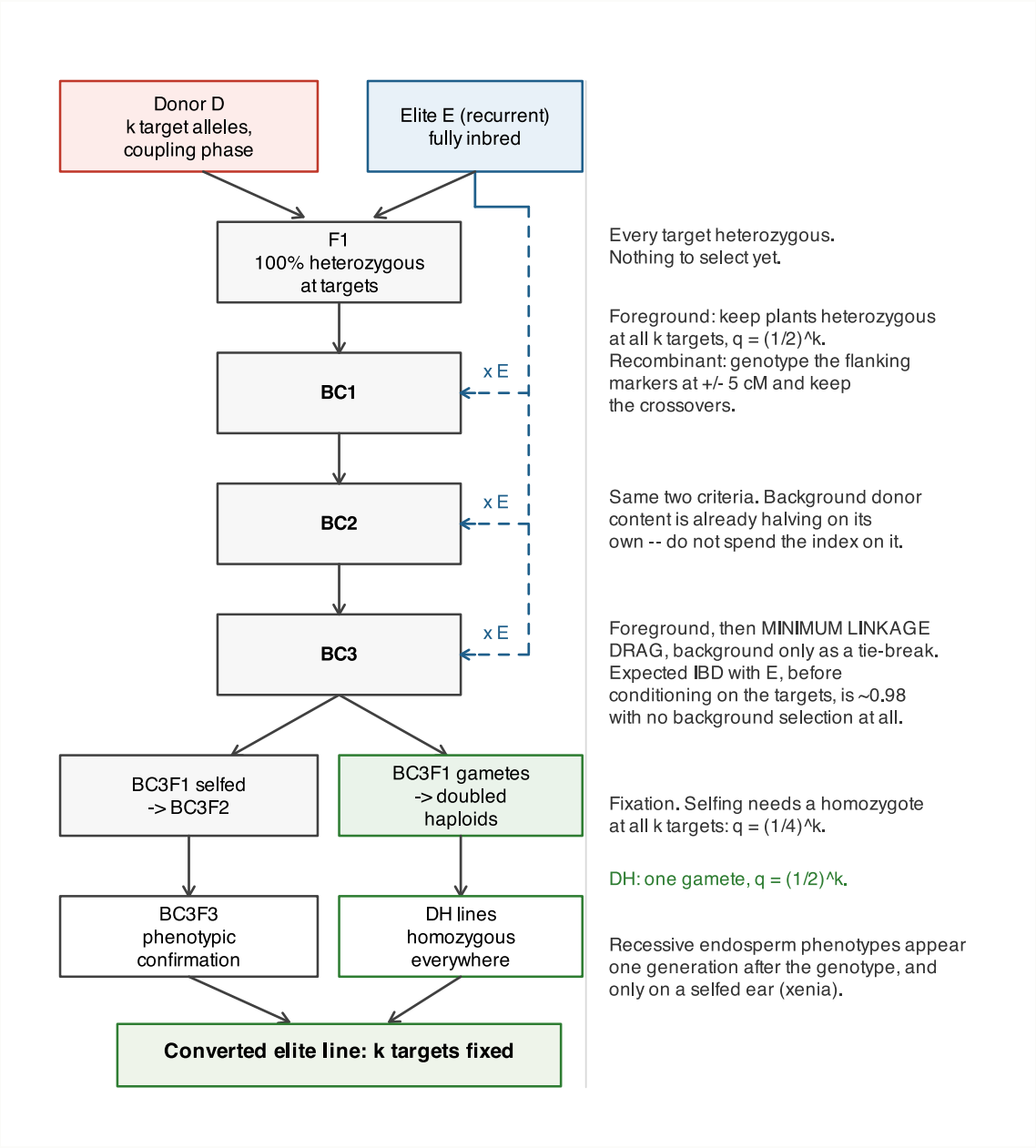

Figure 8.1: The marker-assisted backcrossing (MABC) operation for k target genes from one donor, schematic (no data). Left column: the cross made in each generation. Right column: what is genotyped and selected on, and the population size that criterion demands. The recurrent parent E re-enters at every backcross; the fork at the bottom is the fixation step, where doubled haploids and selfing differ by more than an order of magnitude in plants required at four genes. Selection at BC3 is shown as under the drag-priority index (rec_drag); the expected IBD annotation is for s = 0.60.

Two features of that diagram do all the work in the rest of the chapter. The recurrent parent re-enters at every backcross, so donor content halves every generation *whether or not anyone selects for it*; and the fork at the bottom is where the plant numbers explode, because fixation asks for a homozygote and backcrossing never does.

8.2 The model

Two states, one haplotype. The recurrent parent is a fully homozygous inbred, so the gamete it contributes is invariant and only the donor-derived haplotype has to be tracked: a binary vector over 344 markers. Meiosis is a per-interval Bernoulli switch with the map function of J. B. S. Haldane [39],

$$r = \frac{1}{2}\left(1 - e^{-2d/100}\right), \tag{8.1}$$

where d is the interval length in cM and r its recombination fraction, which is exact for this chain precisely because Haldane is memoryless (see the limitation in Section 8.9).

Donor dosage and identity by descent (IBD) are different quantities. Donor and elite already share a fraction s of the genome by descent – they are both maize, and often both from the same heterotic group. Donor genome inside a shared tract costs nothing. So with D the donor dosage,

$$\mathrm{IBD}_E = 1 - (1 - s)\,D, \qquad \mathrm{IBD}_E + \text{donor-specific} = 1. \tag{8.2}$$

The second identity of Equation (8.2) holds exactly in the simulator for every plant. The first holds in expectation only: the shared fraction is a realised draw of windows, not a per-plant rate, and the target windows are forced to be non-shared, so a plant's realised IBD scatters around $1 - (1 - s)D$. The test battery asserts the second with exact equality and the first with tolerance 0.02 (`tests/testthat/test-mabc.R`). Everything below uses $s = 0.6$.

Coupling phase. All k targets come from one donor, on the same haplotype. Two consequences, and the second is easy to get wrong. Linked targets travel *together*, so linkage drag is the **union** of the donor segments, not their sum. And conditional on both flanking targets being donor-derived, an *even* number of crossovers is forced in the interval between them, so the probability that they sit in one continuous donor segment is not e^{-L} but

$$P_{\text{same}} = \frac{e^{-L}}{\left(1 + e^{-2L}\right)/2}, \qquad L = d/100 \ \text{ Morgans}\,. \tag{8.3}$$

```
L <- c(20, 60, 400) / 100
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(p_same_segment(100 * L),
                           exp(-L) / ((1 + exp(-2 * L)) / 2))))
data.frame(d_cM = 100 * L, naive = exp(-L), conditional = p_same_segment(100 * L))
```

d_cM	naive	conditional
20	0.8187308	0.9803280
60	0.5488116	0.8435507
400	0.0183156	0.0366190

At 20 cM Equation (8.3) gives 0.98 against a naive 0.82.

> ! If the alleles come from different donors, none of this applies
>
> Coupling phase is an assumption, not a convenience. Two linked targets in repulsion, from two donors, cannot both be recovered without a recombinant in the interval, and the cost explodes. That programme needs an intercross between the donors before any backcrossing starts, and this model does not describe it.

8.3 Three criteria, and only one of them binds

A conversion programme is usually written with three success conditions at BC3: do not lose the genes, recover the recurrent parent, and do not drag a chunk of donor chromosome along with each target. They are not remotely equal in cost.

Not losing the genes is exact and cheap. A backcross plant receives the donor allele at each target from its heterozygous parent with probability 1/2 (Mendelian segregation), independently across targets

because the k targets sit on different chromosomes, so it is foreground-positive with probability $q = (1/2)^k$ and n plants fail with probability $(1-q)^n$ (Table 8.1):

```
n_fg <- vapply(mb_sz$q_foreground, n_for_count, integer(1))
# smallest n with P(no foreground-positive plant) = (1 - q)^n <= 1 - 0.95
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(mb_sz$q_foreground, 0.5^mb_sz$genes)),
          (1 - mb_sz$q_foreground)^n_fg <= 0.05,
          (1 - mb_sz$q_foreground)^(n_fg - 1) > 0.05)
knitr::kable(data.frame(genes = mb_sz$genes, q = mb_sz$q_foreground, n_BC_per_gen
= n_fg),
  row.names = FALSE,
   caption = sprintf("Foreground sizing: per-plant probability q = (1/2)^k that
a backcross plant carries the donor allele at all k unlinked targets, and the
smallest number of plants per backcross generation (n_BC_per_gen) giving at least
one such plant with probability %.2f. Exact, from n_for_count(); no simulation and
no selection index involved.", MB$P))
```

Table 8.1: Foreground sizing: per-plant probability q = (1/2)^k that a backcross plant carries the donor allele at all k unlinked targets, and the smallest number of plants per backcross generation (n_BC_per_gen) giving at least one such plant with probability 0.95. Exact, from n_for_count(); no simulation and no selection index involved.

genes	q	n_BC_per_gen
1	0.5000	5
2	0.2500	11
3	0.1250	23
4	0.0625	47

At most 47 plants per generation at four genes, and that is the whole foreground problem.

Recovering the elite is free by BC3. The F1 carries donor dosage 1/2, and each backcross to the recurrent parent halves the expected donor content of an unselected plant, so with no background selection at all the expected donor dosage after 3 backcrosses is $(1/2)^4 = 0.0625$, and

$$\mathrm{IBD}_E = 1 - (1-s)\,(1/2)^4 = 0.975 \tag{8.4}$$

at $s = 0.6$. This is the expectation for a plant on which no selection has acted. Foreground selection conditions on the k targets being donor-derived, so the donor segments attached to them are retained and the realised dosage is higher: under the drag-priority index (`rec_drag`, defined in Section 8.4) the simulated IBD at BC3 with four genes ranges from 0.946 to 0.964 across the population sizes of the scan (Table 8.2). It is still above a 90% target before a single background marker is scored.

Table 8.2: Mean IBD with the elite at BC3 under the drag-priority index (rec_drag), s = 0.60, uniform schedule of N plants per generation, 90-300 replicates per cell (mabc_uniform.csv); means only, no dispersion shown. P(IBD >= 0.90) reached 0.95 in 41 of 44 cells of the whole grid (all four gene numbers, all 11 sizes); in the cells where it did not, the failure was losing the genes: the proportion of replicates that kept the genes and missed the IBD target is at most 0.003.

genes	N = 20	N = 80	N = 200	N = 400
1	0.982	0.992	0.996	0.998
2	0.968	0.974	0.981	0.985
3	0.956	0.965	0.969	0.971
4	0.946	0.952	0.959	0.961

That leaves **linkage drag** – the donor chromosome still attached to each target – as the only criterion that a large population can buy. It is the criterion the rest of the chapter is about.

> **i** The reframing
>
> An index that spends its decisive stage on background recovery is spending it on the criterion that was already satisfied. This is not a hypothetical: it was the defect the technical review found in the first version of this simulator, and correcting it reverses the headline conclusion. Section 8.4 is that correction.

8.4 Which selection index

Four policies (Table 8.3), all applied to foreground-positive plants only:

Table 8.3: The four selection policies, by the key used in `mabc_uniform.csv` and in `run_bc_program(strategy =)`. All are applied to foreground-positive plants only.

Key	Rule
`bg`	minimise background donor content
`rec12`	recombinant selection in BC1-BC2 only, then background
`rec_bg`	recombinant selection throughout, **background** decides among survivors
`rec_drag`	recombinant selection throughout, **linkage drag** decides, background breaks ties

`rec_bg` is the natural-looking two-stage rule: truncate on drag, then pick the cleanest background among the survivors. Stage 2 discards stage 1. The plant with the least drag survives the truncation and then loses to a sibling that happens to carry less donor genome somewhere irrelevant.

Figure 8.2 and Table 8.4 compare the two on common random numbers: `mabc_index_comparison.csv`, in which the label `script` is `rec_bg` and `drag` is `rec_drag` (the `strategy` column), uniform schedules of N plants in each of the three backcrosses.

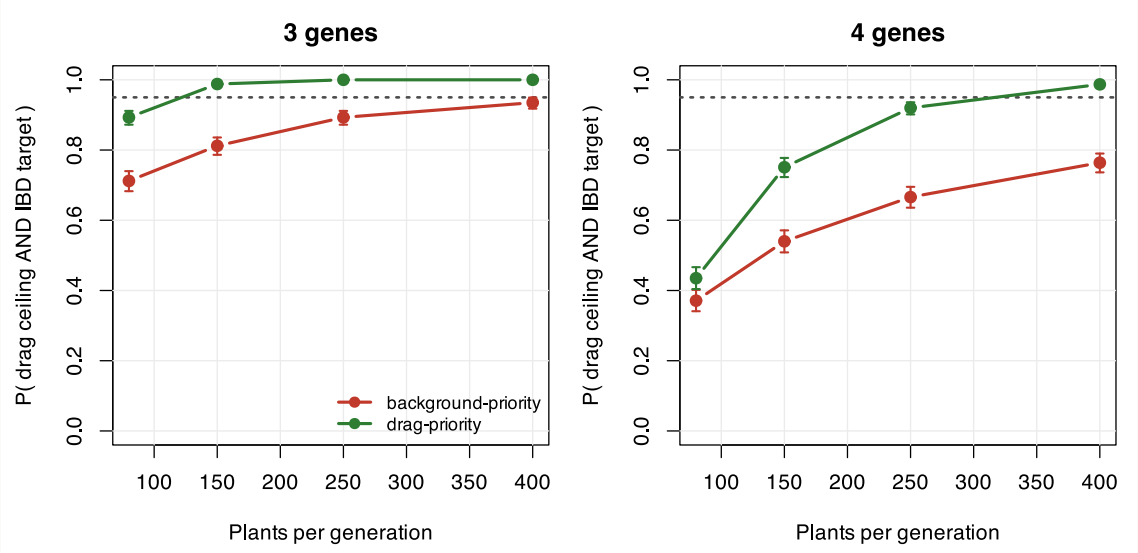

Figure 8.2: Paired comparison (common random numbers, 1000 replicates per cell, s = 0.60, uniform schedule of N plants per backcross) of the background-priority index (rec_bg) against the drag-priority index (rec_drag). Points are the proportion of replicates meeting the criterion; bars are Clopper-Pearson 95% intervals. The criterion is drag <= 30 cM per gene AND IBD >= 0.90 at BC3. Dotted line: 0.95.

Table 8.4: Background-priority (rec_bg) against drag-priority (rec_drag) index, one row per index and cell. 1000 replicates per cell, s = 0.60, same seeds and same shared-IBD backbone for both indices. drag: mean linkage drag at BC3; IBD: mean IBD with the elite; P(IBD): proportion of replicates with IBD >= 0.90; P(both): proportion meeting drag and IBD criteria; lo: its Clopper-Pearson 95% lower bound.

genes	N (plants/gen)	index	drag cM	IBD	P(IBD)	P(both)	lo
3	80	rec_bg	79.092	0.972	1.000	0.712	0.683
3	80	rec_drag	65.445	0.964	0.999	0.893	0.872
3	150	rec_bg	71.160	0.978	1.000	0.812	0.786
3	150	rec_drag	51.060	0.967	1.000	0.988	0.979
3	250	rec_bg	64.838	0.982	1.000	0.893	0.872
3	250	rec_drag	42.447	0.970	1.000	1.000	0.996
3	400	rec_bg	59.127	0.984	1.000	0.935	0.918
3	400	rec_drag	36.443	0.972	1.000	1.000	0.996
4	80	rec_bg	136.680	0.955	0.976	0.371	0.341
4	80	rec_drag	130.279	0.953	0.976	0.435	0.404
4	150	rec_bg	118.932	0.964	1.000	0.540	0.509
4	150	rec_drag	102.925	0.957	1.000	0.751	0.723
4	250	rec_bg	109.332	0.970	1.000	0.666	0.636
4	250	rec_drag	87.598	0.960	1.000	0.920	0.901
4	400	rec_bg	101.677	0.974	1.000	0.764	0.736
4	400	rec_drag	74.718	0.962	1.000	0.987	0.978

Averaged over the 8 cells, the drag-priority index gives up 0.9 percentage points of IBD and removes 18.7 cM of drag. Under it the proportion of replicates meeting the IBD target is at least 0.976; the lowest value, at four genes and 80 plants, equals one minus the proportion of replicates that lost a gene (0.024), so that shortfall is foreground failure, not background. The IBD cost of the index therefore does not bind at these cells.

Four genes are certified – Clopper-Pearson lower bound at or above 0.95 – at 400 plants per generation, where P(both) is 0.987 with lower bound 0.978. At 250 plants, the next size tested, the lower bound is 0.901 and the cell is not certified; the grid does not locate the smallest certifying N between the two. The uniform scan of Table 8.2 estimates the same cell at 400 plants independently, on 90 replicates instead of 1000: 0.967, interval [0.906, 0.993], which overlaps the paired estimate and does not certify on its own lower bound; the paired table is the more precise of the two. Under the background-priority index the same cell reaches 0.764, which is what produced the original – and wrong – conclusion that the ceiling is unreachable at four genes and the programme must be extended to BC4-BC5 or split in two. **The wall was a property of the index, not of maize.**

8.5 How long to keep selecting recombinants

Figure 8.3 shows the four policies of Table 8.3 over the uniform scan. Its right panel is the drag ceiling alone, not the joint drag-and-IBD criterion of Figure 8.2 and Table 8.2, so its proportions are not comparable with those.

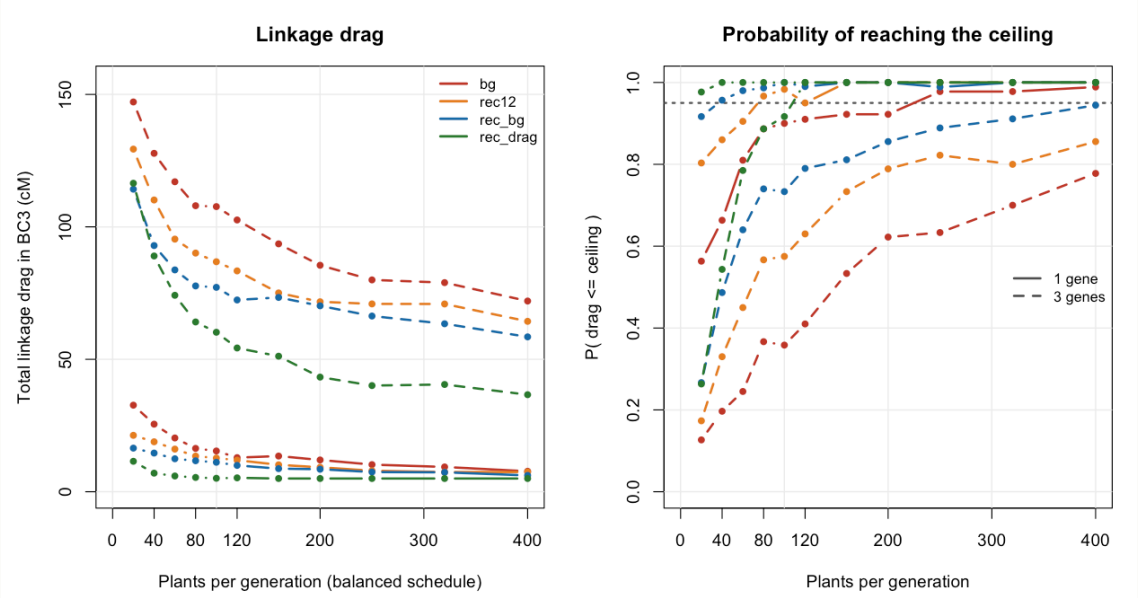

Figure 8.3: Mean total linkage drag at BC3 (left, cM) and the proportion of replicates with drag at or below the ceiling of 30 cM per gene (right; drag only, not the joint drag-and-IBD criterion) under the four policies of Table 8.3, including the background-priority (rec_bg) and drag-priority (rec_drag) indices, against plants per generation in a uniform schedule, s = 0.60. Solid lines: 1 gene; dashed: 3 genes. 90-300 replicates per point (mabc_uniform.csv); no dispersion is shown. Dotted line: 0.95. Extending recombinant selection into BC3 costs no extra plants, only the flanking markers on plants that are being genotyped anyway.

`rec12` stops recombinant selection after BC2 and spends the BC3 choice on background, which by BC3 needs no clean-up (Table 8.2). In the uniform scan, three genes, 200 plants per generation, $s = 0.6$ (90 replicates), mean drag at BC3 is 71.7 cM under `rec12`, 70.2 cM when recombinant selection continues into BC3 (`rec_bg`), and 43.3 cM when drag also decides among the survivors (`rec_drag`). In that cell the point estimate of the second step (`rec_bg` to `rec_drag`) is larger than that of the first (`rec12` to `rec_bg`). These are three unpaired estimates, one per policy, from a scan seeded once for the whole grid, and `mabc_uniform.csv` records no standard deviation of drag, so no dispersion can be attached to either step; whether the first step differs from zero is not resolved by these data. Both changes are free in plants: they use the flanking markers on plants that are being genotyped anyway.

8.6 Allocating a fixed budget across BC1, BC2 and BC3

Given a total number of plants to grow, how should they be split between the three backcrosses? Figure 8.4 is the coarse scan of `mabc_allocation.csv`. It was run under the background-priority index `rec_bg`, before the index correction of Section 8.4 (the driver passes `"rec_bg"` to this experiment); its equal-size schedules are closer in mean drag to the `rec_bg` cells of the uniform scan than to the `rec_drag` ones (asserted in the figure's chunk). It is shown as a description of how the success probability varies with the schedule under that index; the comparison of schedules under the drag-priority index is the paired re-run of Table 8.5.

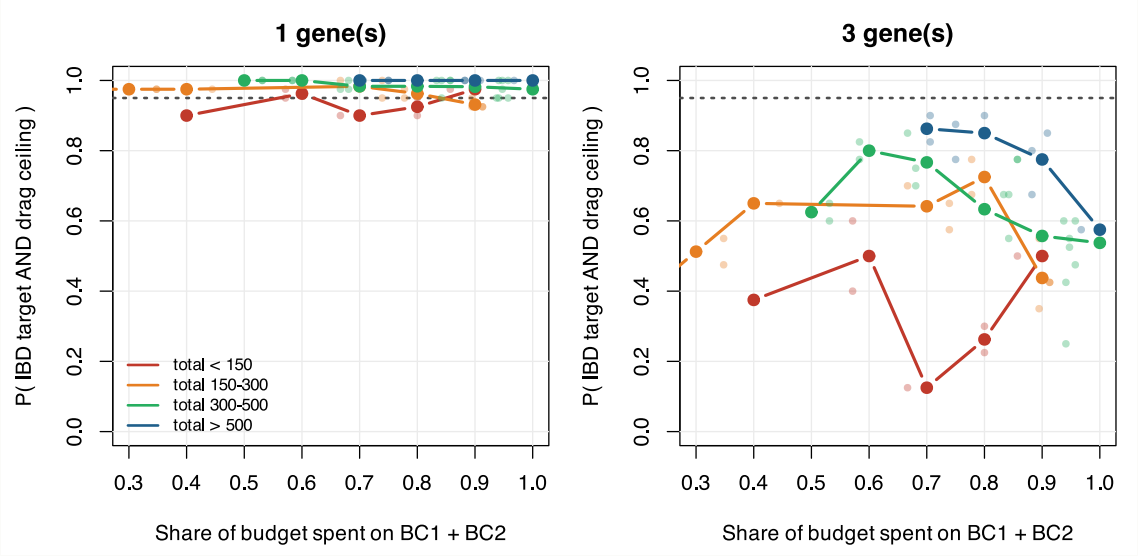

Figure 8.4: Background-priority index (rec_bg), s = 0.60, 40 replicates per schedule. P(criterion met) against the share of the total budget spent on BC1 + BC2, for 1 and 3 genes. Faint points: individual schedules (a binomial proportion over 40 replicates, s.e. up to 0.079); lines: mean over schedules within a total-budget bin and a 0.1-wide share bin. Not evidence under the drag-priority index; the schedules are compared under it in Table 8.5.

Table 8.5 re-runs five schedules at a fixed budget of 360 plants, 3 genes, under both indices on common random numbers (`mabc_allocation_recheck.csv`). The two indices are paired within a schedule; the schedules are not paired with each other, so a comparison between schedules is between independent binomial proportions.

Table 8.5: 360 plants, 3 genes, s = 0.60, 1000 replicates per schedule. Left block: background-priority index (rec_bg). Right block: drag-priority index (rec_drag). drag: mean linkage drag at BC3; P(lost): proportion of replicates in which a target was lost; P(both): proportion meeting drag and IBD criteria, with Clopper-Pearson 95% interval [lo, hi].

BC1/BC2/BC3 (plants)	drag cM	P(lost)	P(both)	lo	hi	drag cM	P(lost)	P(both)	lo	hi
300/40/20	94.600	0.057	0.427	0.396	0.458	76.933	0.057	0.681	0.651	0.710
120/120/120	73.665	0.000	0.775	0.748	0.801	55.180	0.000	0.969	0.956	0.979
20/150/190	79.979	0.063	0.632	0.601	0.662	61.105	0.063	0.872	0.850	0.892
40/120/200	75.668	0.004	0.749	0.721	0.776	58.459	0.004	0.955	0.940	0.967
200/120/40	81.882	0.005	0.662	0.632	0.691	62.389	0.005	0.924	0.906	0.940

Two schedules are called separated here when $|z| \geq 2$, with $z = (\hat{p}_1 - \hat{p}_2)/\sqrt{[\hat{p}_1(1-\hat{p}_1) + \hat{p}_2(1-\hat{p}_2)]/n}$, where $\hat{p}_1, \hat{p}_2 \in [0,1]$ are the two P(both) estimates and $n = 1000$ the replicates per schedule (independent binomial proportions, normal approximation). Under the drag-priority index the balanced schedule 120/120/120 has the highest point estimate, 0.969 [0.956, 0.979], against 40/120/200, 0.955 [0.94, 0.967], $z = 1.64$: the two are not separated. The schedules with a 20-plant generation, 20/150/190 and 300/40/20, have the two lowest point estimates under both indices. Under the drag-priority index the higher of the two, 20/150/190, is separated from the next schedule, 200/120/40 ($z = 3.86$); under the background-priority index the higher of the two, 20/150/190 (0.632), is not separated from 200/120/40 (0.662, $z = 1.4$), so under that index the ranking rests on point estimates only. In the two 20-plant schedules a target was lost in 0.063 and 0.057 of replicates, against $(1 - (1/2)^3)^{20} = 0.069$ for one generation of 20 plants with no other cause of loss; the schedules whose smallest generation has 40 plants lose a target in at most 0.005 of replicates ($(1 - (1/2)^3)^{40} = 0.005$).

Conditioning on the targets being kept (a replicate that lost one counts as a failure, so $P(\text{both} \mid \text{kept}) = P(\text{both})/(1 - P(\text{lost}))$), the drag-priority success rate is 0.969 for 120/120/120, 0.931 for 20/150/190 and 0.722 for 300/40/20.

The inference is that the two extreme schedules fail for different reasons. The back-loaded 20/150/190 loses most of its deficit to foreground failure in its 20-plant BC1; the front-loaded 300/40/20 also loses targets, but most of its deficit remains after conditioning on keeping them, which is consistent with having only 20 BC3 plants among which to select on drag at the last meiosis. Neither pattern requires a difference in how efficiently a BC1 or a BC3 plant reduces drag. The comparison is limited to five schedules at one budget, one gene number and one value of s, and it does not order the three schedules without a 20-plant generation beyond the intervals shown. The direction agrees with the analytical result of F. Hospital [45], that it is generally more profitable to allow three or more backcross generations than to favour recombination in early generations.

8.7 Fixing the stack: selfing against doubled haploids

Backcrossing only ever asks for a heterozygote. Fixation asks for a homozygote at all k targets, and that is where the plant numbers move: the BC3F2 plants needed for 3 homozygotes are 4.6 times the backcross plants needed for one foreground-positive plant at one gene and 34.3 times at four (Figure 8.6). Selfing a BC3F1 heterozygous at k unlinked targets gives the recessive homozygote at each with probability 1/4, so $q = (1/4)^k$; a doubled haploid (DH) derived from a BC3F1 gamete is homozygous everywhere, and the gamete carries the donor allele at each target with probability 1/2, so $q = (1/2)^k$.

And the requirement is not one plant but 3, which is a *cumulative binomial* $P(\mathrm{Bin}(n, q) \geq 3) \geq 0.95$, not $1 - (1 - q)^n$ (Table 8.6; Figure 8.5 sets the binomial against simulation):

Table 8.6: Fixation: per-plant probability q of being homozygous for the donor allele at all k targets, and the number of BC3F2 plants (selfing) or DH lines needed for at least 3 such individuals with probability P = 0.95. Exact cumulative binomial (mabc_analytical_sizing.csv); no simulation, no replicates, and no dependence on the selection index.

genes	q (selfing)	BC3F2 plants	q (DH)	DH lines
1	0.25000	23	0.5000	11
2	0.06250	99	0.2500	23
3	0.01562	401	0.1250	49
4	0.00391	1610	0.0625	99

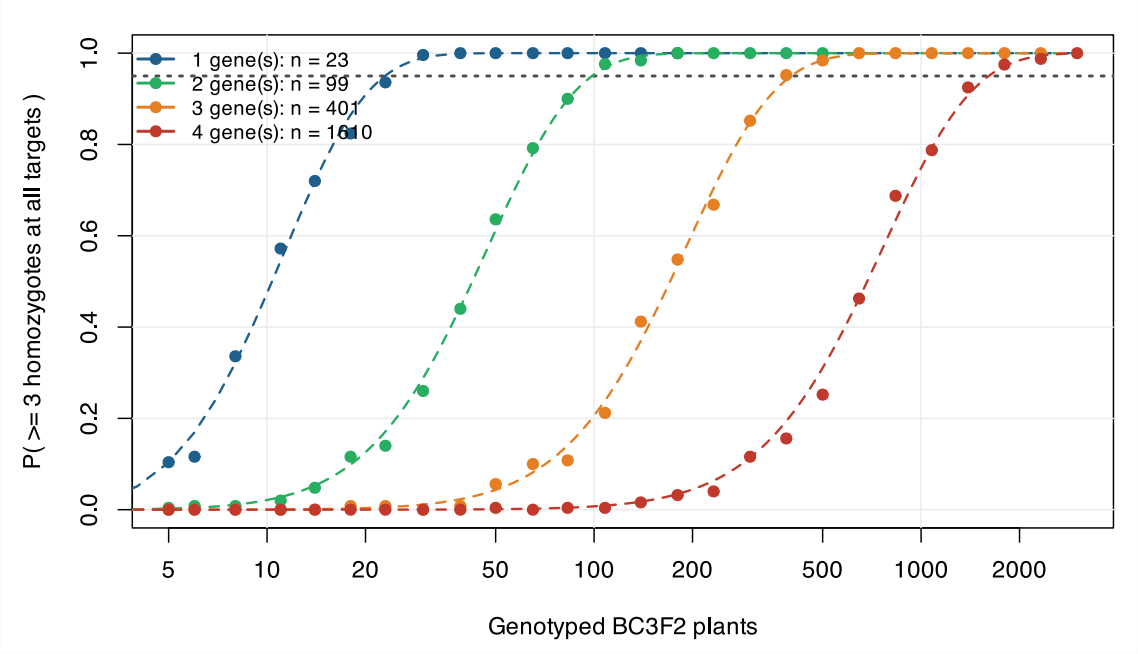

Figure 8.5: Fixation by selfing: probability of at least 3 BC3F2 plants homozygous for the donor allele at all k targets, against the number of BC3F2 plants genotyped (log scale), k = 1 to 4. Points: simulation (mabc_bcnf2.csv), each a proportion over 250 replicates (80 above 500 plants; the defaults of run_f2_scan() in inst/scripts/run_mabc.R, which the CSV does not record but every value is consistent with), s.e. at most 0.056; no interval is drawn. The success criterion involves the targets only, so it does not depend on the selection index (rec_bg or rec_drag). Dashed: the cumulative binomial with q = (1/4)^k. Dotted line: P = 0.95. Each extra gene multiplies the BC3F2 requirement in the legend by 4.3, 4.05, 4.01.

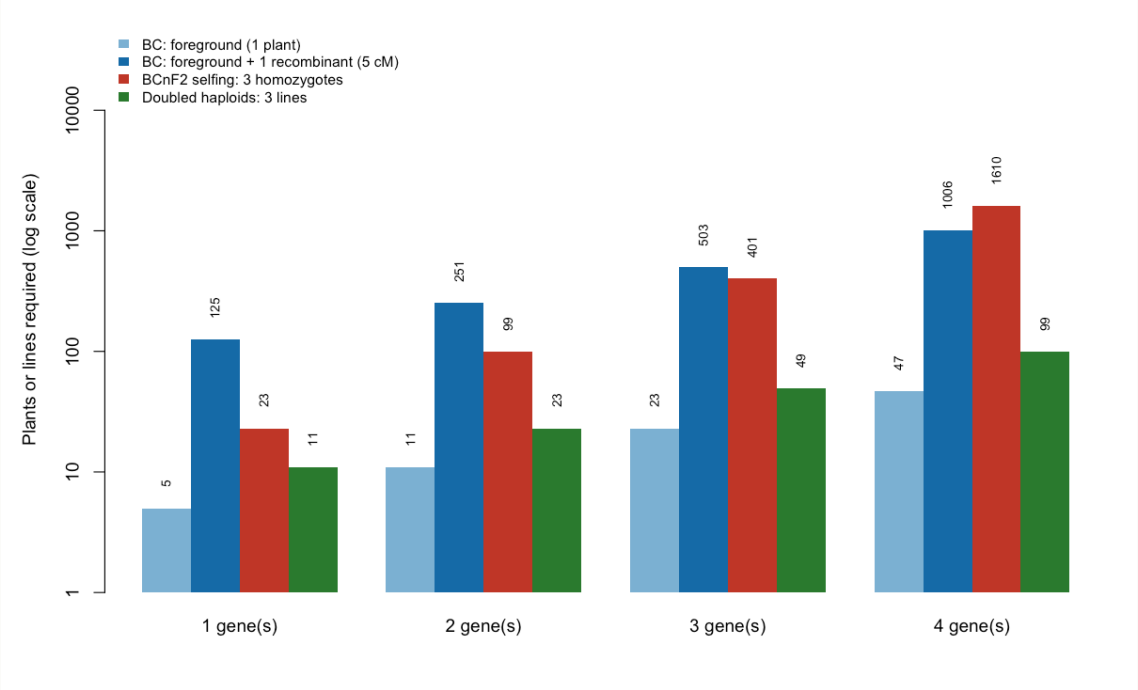

Figure 8.6: Analytical sizing by stage and number of target genes k, log scale, P = 0.95: exact cumulative binomial (mabc_analytical_sizing.csv), no simulation and no selection index involved. Light blue: backcross plants for one foreground-positive plant, q = (1/2)^k. Dark blue: backcross plants for one foreground-positive plant that is also recombinant in a 5 cM flanking interval. Red: BC3F2 plants for 3 homozygotes at all k targets by selfing, q = (1/4)^k. Green: DH lines for 3 such lines, q = (1/2)^k. Bar labels give the counts.

At four genes that is 1610 BC3F2 plants against 99 DH lines, a factor of 16.3. Where DH production is available, the BC3F2 number is not the bottleneck.

Without DH there is a staggered alternative. Do not ask one generation to fix everything. Select BC3F2 plants homozygous at a pre-specified pair of the four targets and heterozygous at the other two, $q = (1/4)^2(1/2)^2 = 1/64$: 401 plants for 3 such plants at $P = 0.95$. Then self them and close out the remaining two at BC3F3, $q = (1/4)^2$: 99 plants. Two stages of hundreds instead of one of 1610, at the cost of one generation.

8.8 Running the simulation

The engine and the decision layer are in `R/08_mabc.R`; the experiment driver is `inst/scripts/run_mabc.R`. The provenance of each cached table is stated at the end of this section.

One programme, interactively. Build a map, place the targets, draw the donor-elite sharing, and run the three backcrosses:

```
map <- build_map(maize_chr_len, spacing_cM = 5)
w   <- marker_weights(map)
tg  <- target_indices(map, k = 3)              # the first three of maize_targets
set.seed(5)                                    # the donor–elite sharing draw
sh  <- make_shared_ibd(map, s = 0.60, mw = w, target_idx = tg)
set.seed(6)                                    # the three backcross meioses

pr <- run_bc_program(n_sched = c(120, 120, 120), s = 0.60,
                     strategy = "rec_drag", map = map, opt = mabc_opt,
                     tg = tg, w = w, shared = sh)
fmt(pr$traj, 3)
```

gen	ibd	dose	drag	n_fg	ibd_pop_mean	fail
1	0.903	0.255	195.0	9	0.882	FALSE
2	0.942	0.135	117.5	13	0.937	FALSE
3	0.960	0.073	60.0	16	0.959	FALSE

```
# The two identities of IBD_E on the same mask, over 200 unselected BC1 plants:
# the sum is exact per plant; the proportionality holds in expectation only.
# Tolerances are checked at this seed only; the relative error varies with
# the seed of both H1 and the mask.
set.seed(8)
H1 <- backcross(matrix(1, map$m, 1), 200, map)
stopifnot(
  isTRUE(all.equal(ibd_elite(H1, w, sh) + donor_specific(H1, w, sh), rep(1, 200))),
  isTRUE(all.equal(mean(donor_specific(H1, w, sh)),
                   (1 - 0.60) * mean(donor_dosage(H1, w)), tolerance = 0.06)),
  isTRUE(all.equal(mean(donor_dosage(H1, w)), expected_donor(1), tolerance = 0.06)))
```

`n_sched` is the schedule, one entry per backcross, so `c(300, 40, 20)` and `c(120, 120, 120)` are two of the allocations compared in Table 8.5. Passing the same `shared` mask to two calls is what makes a comparison between selection indices paired rather than confounded with the donor-elite pair.

Comparing indices on common random numbers. Reset the seed before each strategy so the two programmes see the same meioses:

```
drag_of <- function(strategy) {
  set.seed(7)
  run_bc_program(c(120, 120, 120), 0.60, strategy, map, mabc_opt, tg, w,
                 shared = sh)$traj$drag[mabc_opt$n_bc]
}
c(rec_bg = drag_of("rec_bg"), rec_drag = drag_of("rec_drag"))
#>   rec_bg rec_drag
#>       70       45
```

A single replicate is noise; the cells of Table 8.2 are 90-300 of these (uniform scan, by N) and those of Table 8.4 and Table 8.5 1000 (the two paired tables), which is the driver's job.

The analytical sizing needs no simulation at all. It is a cumulative binomial, so it is exact and instant:

```
st <- sizing_table(k_max = 4, flank_cM = 5, P = 0.95, n_keep = 3)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(st, mb_sz)))   # the cached table, reproduced exactly
st
```

genes	q_foreground	n_BC_1plant	n_BC_1rec	q_F2	n_F2_1plant	n_F2_3plants	q_DH	n_DH_3lines
1	0.5000	5	125	0.2500000	11	23	0.5000	11
2	0.2500	11	251	0.0625000	47	99	0.2500	23
3	0.1250	23	503	0.0156250	191	401	0.1250	49
4	0.0625	47	1006	0.0039063	766	1610	0.0625	99

The full scans, from the shell. The driver's full run covers the uniform scan – `rec_bg` at s = 0.5, 0.6, 0.7 and the other three policies at $s = 0.6$, by 4 gene numbers by 11 population sizes, 90-300 replicates per cell depending on N – plus the allocation grid and the BCnF2 stage, and writes the CSVs, the figures and a self-contained HTML report. Two further targets write the paired index tables:

```
Rscript inst/scripts/run_mabc.R --test              # the driver's self-checks
Rscript inst/scripts/run_mabc.R --quick --out=DIR   # reduced grid
Rscript inst/scripts/run_mabc.R --out=report/mabc   # the full run
Rscript inst/scripts/run_mabc.R --out=book/data \
  --only=index_comparison,allocation_recheck        # the two paired tables
```

Provenance of the six cached tables, all written by this driver or its direct predecessor:

- `mabc_index_comparison.csv` and `mabc_allocation_recheck.csv` are written directly into `book/data` by the `--only=index_comparison,allocation_recheck` run of the current driver, 1000 replicates per cell, with a seed per cell recorded in the `seed` column, so each cell can be re-run in isolation.
- `mabc_analytical_sizing.csv` is the full run's `analytical_sizing.csv`; it has no random component, and the chunk above reproduces it exactly.
- `mabc_uniform.csv`, `mabc_allocation.csv` and `mabc_bcnf2.csv` (and the two figures `mabc_policies.png` and `mabc_sizing.png`) are the full run's `results_uniform.csv`, `results_allocation.csv`, `results_bcnf2.csv` and figures, copied into `book/data` and `book/figs`, but the cached copies were produced by the predecessor of the current driver and have not been rewritten by it. The current driver writes files of the same shape; a bit-for-bit match is not expected because the full run sets its seed once before the whole scan, so no single cell can be regenerated in isolation, and no full re-run has been diffed against them. Replicates: 90-300 per cell in the uniform scan, 40 per schedule in the allocation scan.

Pointing it at your own programme. Three things change and nothing else:

```
# 1. your map
map <- build_map(my_chr_len_cM, spacing_cM = 5)

# 2. your targets -- same columns as maize_targets
my_targets <- data.frame(gene = c("A", "B"), chr = c(1, 5),
                         pos_cM = c(40, 110), label = c("A", "B"))
tg <- target_indices(map, k = 2, targets = my_targets)

# 3. your criteria
opt <- utils::modifyList(mabc_opt,
                         list(n_bc = 4, drag_per_gene = 20, target_ibd = 0.95))
```

`s` – how much of the genome your donor and your elite already share – is the parameter worth measuring rather than assuming. It scales the whole cost: at $s = 0.7$ most of the donor genome that survives is free, at $s = 0$ none of it is.

8.9 Assumptions, and what is not modelled

These matter more than usual here, because unlike the diversity chapters this one is used to decide field area.

No crossover interference (material, and it cuts against the results above). Meiosis is Haldane (Equation (8.1)) [39], so crossovers are independent between intervals. Maize crossovers show positive interference: M. Falque, L. K. Anderson, S. M. Stack, F. Gauthier, and O. C. Martin [40] fit a two-pathway model in which most crossovers follow a gamma renewal process with shape $4.2 < \nu < 6.2$ on most chromosomes and a minority do not interfere. For the event this simulation depends on most when both flanking crossovers arise in the same meiosis – a double recombinant in the two 5 cM intervals flanking a target, which is what turns a long donor segment into a short one – Haldane gives $r^2 = 2.26 \times 10^{-3}$. Positive interference makes a crossover in each of two adjacent short intervals rarer than the product of their recombination fractions, so the model over-produces tight recombinants, and every population size quoted for close-in trimming is expected to be a lower bound. By how much was not computed here. Note the direction: the index correction makes the problem easier, interference makes it harder, and they do not cancel in any principled way. The fix is a crossover-position sampler – chiasmata as a stationary gamma renewal process with shape ν, plus a non-interfering fraction as in M. Falque, L. K. Anderson, S. M. Stack, F. Gauthier, and O. C. Martin [40] – which reduces to Haldane exactly at $\nu = 1$ and so is backward compatible.

One plant advanced per generation. A programme that advances several plants per generation and crosses each to the recurrent parent is not modelled. Every probability in this chapter is therefore a **single-lineage** probability: it understates achievable progress and it removes lineage-level variance from every distribution shown.

Uniform recombination rate, no distortion, no genotyping error. The local meiotic recombination rate varies more than 1000-fold across the maize genome, measured from breakpoints mapped at high resolution in nested association mapping populations [46]; a target in a cold region carries drag no feasible population will trim. Gametophyte factors shift the foreground frequency away from $1/2$. Map positions here are illustrative and not pinned to a named consensus map – and maps of the intermated B73 x Mo17 (IBM) type [37] must be rescaled before use, exactly as in Chapter 7..

Triploid endosperm genetics is not modelled. The illustrative targets are endosperm genes. The endosperm is 2 maternal : 1 paternal, so a recessive kernel phenotype does not appear on the ear of a heterozygous plant: phenotypic confirmation lags the genotype by one generation, and xenia means it requires a self-pollination, not open pollination.

The gene set is illustrative, not a breeding recommendation. Whether all four targets are worth stacking is a breeding decision outside this model; dropping one turns the hard case ($k = 4$) into the comfortable one ($k = 3$). `o2` alone gives opaque endosperm, not quality protein maize (QPM): QPM was created by selecting multiple, unlinked `o2` modifier loci [47], which are unmodelled here and change the problem class from "stack k Mendelian genes" to "stack k genes plus a quantitative trait locus (QTL) background".

⚠ Two statistical habits this chapter had to be repaired for

Select on the interval, not the point estimate. The first version of the sizing tables took the first grid point whose *point estimate* crossed 0.95. With few replicates per cell that is a winner's curse: a success probability that is monotone in N reads as non-monotone through noise. The uniform scan still shows it at four genes under `rec_drag`: 0.989 at $N = 320$ and 0.967 at $N = 400$, on 90 replicates each. Selection is now on the Clopper-Pearson lower bound. Clopper-Pearson intervals are drawn in Figure 8.2 and Table 8.5 and the lower bound is tabulated in Table 8.4; Figure 8.4 gives a binomial standard error in its caption; Table 8.2, Figure 8.3 and Figure 8.5 show point estimates only, as their captions state.

Never type a number into the prose. Every figure in the original narrative was a string constant written against an earlier configuration; re-runs put the true values outside the reported confidence intervals, and the same document contradicted itself in three places. Results in this chapter's prose and captions are computed at render time from the cached tables or from package functions; the only typed values are design inputs (the map spacing, the schedules, k, s and the criteria in `MB`) and the replicate counts of the allocation scan and of the BC3F2 scan (`MB_alloc`, `MB_f2`), which their CSVs do not record; both are checked against the CSVs for consistency, not derived from them. Section 8.8 states where each table comes from.

8.10 Where this connects

Chapter 7. sized a population to *keep* diversity; this chapter sized one to discard it everywhere except at k loci. The two share their machinery – the same map, the same Haldane meiosis, the same distinction between what is segregating and what is fixed – and they share the lesson that dominates both: **size for the objective that binds.** In Chapter 7. that meant not sizing for gene diversity, which saturates early. Here it means not sizing for background recovery, which is already satisfied at BC3, and putting the plants into the one criterion that a population can actually buy.

The converted lines this chapter produces re-enter the pool the rest of the book optimises over. A conversion programme run for its own sake reduces diversity by construction: it makes an elite line into a near-copy of itself. If several conversions are run in parallel off the same recurrent parent, the resulting lines are close to each other.

Up to here that is an assertion, made in item 5 of the Preface's chain of argument and in the preceding paragraph, not a measurement. It is cheap to measure, and the size of it is the argument. Eight BC3 conversions off one recurrent parent, against eight unrelated elite lines, put through the kernel of Chapter 2. (Table 8.7). The lines are inbred, coded 0/1 at biallelic markers with allele frequency 1/2, and drawn independently at each marker (no linkage). The donor is an unrelated line, so it matches the recurrent parent by state at about half the markers; donor-elite sharing is therefore already in the draw and is not added again through s. A conversion carries the recurrent-parent allele by descent at a marker with probability $1 - (1/2)^4$, the expected recurrent dosage at BC3 without selection, and the donor allele otherwise. Because θ is a mean of per-marker identities, its expectation depends only on these per-marker probabilities; linkage would change its dispersion, not its expectation.

```
set.seed(11)
m_c  <- 2000
elite <- matrix(rbinom(40 * m_c, 1, 0.5), 40, m_c)   # unrelated elite lines
rec   <- elite[1, ]                                   # one recurrent parent
donor <- elite[40, ]
ibd   <- 1 - expected_donor(3)                        # recurrent genome by descent
at BC3

conv <- t(sapply(1:8, function(i)
  ifelse(rbinom(m_c, 1, ibd) == 1, rec, donor)))

cost <- data.frame(
  panel = c("8 BC3 conversions, one recurrent parent", "8 unrelated elite lines"),
  theta = c(mean(molecular_coancestry(conv)),
            mean(molecular_coancestry(elite[1:8, ]))))
cost$GD <- 1 - cost$theta
# realised ratio against its expectation 2D(1 - D); the tolerance is checked
# at this seed only
D <- expected_donor(3)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(cost$GD[1] / cost$GD[2], 2 * D * (1 - D),
                           tolerance = 0.15)))
knitr::kable(cost, row.names = FALSE, digits = 4,
  caption = sprintf("Group coancestry theta (diagonal included) and gene diversity GD
= 1 - theta of eight BC%d conversions off one recurrent parent and of eight unrelated
elite lines: one draw (set.seed(11)) of %d unlinked markers, inbred lines coded 0/1,
recurrent genome by descent with probability 1 - (1/2)^%d, no selection.", MB$n_bc,
m_c, MB$n_bc + 1))
```

Table 8.7: Group coancestry theta (diagonal included) and gene diversity GD = 1 - theta of eight BC3 conversions off one recurrent parent and of eight unrelated elite lines: one draw (set.seed(11)) of 2000 unlinked markers, inbred lines coded 0/1, recurrent genome by descent with probability 1 - (1/2)^4, no selection.

panel	theta	GD
8 BC3 conversions, one recurrent parent	0.9452	0.0548
8 unrelated elite lines	0.5617	0.4383

The converted panel carries 0.125 times the gene diversity of the unrelated one. In expectation, two conversions differ at a marker only when exactly one carries the donor allele and the donor differs from the recurrent parent there, probability $2D(1-D)\cdot\frac{1}{2}$ with $D=(1/2)^4$, against $1/2$ for two unrelated lines, so the off-diagonal ratio is $2D(1-D)=0.117$. The diagonal of θ is 1 in both panels and scales both gene diversities by the same factor, so this is also the expected ratio of the two; the realised value above is one draw of 2000 markers. Conversion is *designed* to make lines identical everywhere except the target, and it succeeds.

Two consequences for the rest of the book. A conversion programme must be counted against the diversity budget of Chapter 15. rather than run alongside it, because θ cannot distinguish eight conversions from one line entered eight times. And Chapter 13.‘ per-line usage cap is the mechanism that already handles this: capping how often a line is used caps how often its near-copies are, provided the conversions are recognised as near-copies rather than entered as eight independent parents.

> ⚠ Do not enter a converted panel as independent lines
>
> The failure mode is administrative, not statistical. Conversions arrive with distinct line codes and distinct pedigree entries, so a pipeline that trusts the codes will treat them as eight parents. The coancestry matrix will not, and Chapter 12.‘s recommendation to compute θ on markers rather than on pedigree is what protects against exactly this.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **04b-backcross-introgression.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

9. Simulating a hybrid breeding programme: AlphaSimR from the ground up

Chapter 6. built the `{X, f, hybrids, fL}` contract with a deliberately fast simulator: Balding-Nichols allele frequencies, independent markers, no recombination, no dominance. That is enough to exercise the diversity and selection machinery, but it is not how a hybrid breeding programme is actually run, and it is not how anyone would build one from scratch.

This chapter builds one. The crop in mind is maize, the canonical allogamous hybrid crop: two heterotic pools, inbred lines (doubled haploids, DH) drawn from each, lines judged by their testcrosses onto the other pool rather than by themselves, pools improved by reciprocal recurrent selection (RRS) [7], and a commercial product that is a single cross between one line from each pool. Steps 1 to 7 are a **step-by-step construction** with AlphaSimR [48], written out in the primitive calls – `runMacs()`, `SimParam`, `addTraitAD()`, `makeCross()`, `hybridCross()`, `makeDH()`, `setPheno()`, `selectInd()` – with a plant breeder's reading of each argument and a measurement at each step. Step 8 assembles those primitives into RRS, replicates it against a paired no-selection control, and shows that the same stage-1 contract comes out the other end, so `stage2_select()` runs on it exactly as it does on the book's own simulated data.

Why this machinery, and why it has no counterpart in a self-pollinated programme. In an autogamous (self-pollinated) crop – wheat, rice, soybean, common bean – recombination happens once, in the F1, and the programme then narrows a segregating population toward homozygosity by selfing or single-seed descent, selecting throughout on a line's own (per se) phenotype, because a self-pollinated genotype breeds true and its own performance *is* what a farmer will grow: the released variety is very often the same homozygous line the breeder selected. Chapter 22., later in the Evidence and practice part, builds exactly that programme with the same AlphaSimR primitives – `makeDH()`, `setPheno()`, `selectInd()` – and can be read against this one, step by step. None of Steps 2, 4 and 6 below would have a job there: there is no dominance for per se selection to be blind to (an inbred line's value is its additive merit alone – Step 3 makes this an identity, `varD = 0` exactly on a homozygous panel), no tester to cross a candidate onto, no general or specific combining ability to estimate [2], and no second, deliberately divergent population to keep apart, because there is only one gene pool, not two heterotic ones held apart on purpose. What follows instead is specific to an allogamous, hybrid-product crop: the inbred line is not the product, the F1 is (Step 5); a line's breeding value depends on which pool it will be crossed to, not on itself alone (Step 6′s tester dependence); and the trait improvement a programme has made is realised only in a cross remade every season, never in either parental line by itself.

The pedagogical source is the AlphaSimR course of Gorjanc and colleagues [49]: its vignettes on simulating DNA, simulating traits, the DNA lottery, single- and multi-trait selection, and a plant breeding programme. The course has no hybrid programme of its own; the wheat programme it does build is the subject of Chapter 22.. This chapter takes the course's primitives and assembles them into the hybrid case.

The order matters. Everything in Step 8 is a wrapper in `R/13_alphasimr_bridge.R` – `rrs_config`, `alphasimr_founder_pools()`, `alphasimr_rrs_cycle()`, `alphasimr_make_hybrids()`, `alphasimr_to_stage1()`, `alphasimr_pipeline()` – and a wrapper is only readable once you know what it is wrapping. AlphaSimR is a `Suggests` dependency, guarded exactly like `quadprog` and `highs` elsewhere in the package; this chapter and Chapter 22. are the only ones that need it.

9.1 Step 1 – Founder genomes: what a founder is, and which engine to use

Every AlphaSimR simulation starts with founder haplotypes. Before choosing an engine, it is worth seeing what one produces, at a size small enough to read. `inbred = TRUE` makes every founder fully homozygous, which is what a panel of inbred lines is.

```
set.seed(1)
tiny <- quickHaplo(nInd = 3, nChr = 2, segSites = 4, inbred = TRUE)
SPt  <- SimParam$new(tiny)
tiny_pop <- newPop(tiny, simParam = SPt)
pullSegSiteHaplo(tiny_pop, simParam = SPt)
#>     1_1 1_2 1_3 1_4 2_1 2_2 2_3 2_4
#> 1_1   0   0   0   1   0   1   1   0
#> 1_2   0   0   0   1   0   1   1   0
#> 2_1   0   1   1   0   1   0   1   1
#> 2_2   0   1   1   0   1   0   1   1
#> 3_1   1   0   0   0   0   1   0   1
#> 3_2   1   0   0   0   0   1   0   1
```

One row per haplotype, two per diploid individual (`1_1` and `1_2` are the two chromosome copies of individual 1), one column per segregating site across both chromosomes (`1_3` is chromosome 1, site 3). Alleles are coded 0 and 1 – ancestral and derived under a coalescent engine, arbitrary labels under `quickHaplo()`. Because the founders are inbred, the two rows of each individual are identical. `pullSegSiteGeno()` sums the two rows into an allele dosage in `{0, 1, 2}`:

```
tiny_geno <- pullSegSiteGeno(tiny_pop, simParam = SPt)
tiny_geno
#>   1_1 1_2 1_3 1_4 2_1 2_2 2_3 2_4
#> 1   0   0   0   2   0   2   2   0
#> 2   0   2   2   0   2   0   2   2
#> 3   2   0   0   0   0   2   0   2
stopifnot(all(tiny_geno %in% c(0, 2)))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(diag(molecular_coancestry(tiny_geno / 2)),
                           rep(1, 3))))
```

The two assertions fix the coding for the rest of the book. AlphaSimR's dosage is 0/1/2; the contract of Chapter 6. codes the same information as 0/0.5/1, the within-individual frequency of the reference allele (AlphaSimR's derived allele plays that role), and every bridge function divides by two on the way across (`stage1_build()` also detects and rescales 0/1/2 on its own). On an inbred individual the molecular self-coancestry of Chapter 2. is exactly 1, which is the second assertion.

There are two engines, and the choice is not cosmetic. `runMacs()` runs a backward-in-time coalescent, the MaCS program [50], under a species-specific demography – `species = "MAIZE"`, `"WHEAT"`, `"CATTLE"` – so the founders carry a realistic allele-frequency spectrum and realistic linkage disequilibrium (LD). `quickHaplo()` samples 0s and 1s directly: instant, and with no history behind it. Table 9.1 compares the two.

```
tm <- function(expr) as.numeric(system.time(expr)["elapsed"])

# reproducibility: two calls from the same seed, and R's own stream after each
set.seed(7); qa <- quickHaplo(nInd = 20, nChr = 10, segSites = 50, inbred = TRUE)
rs_qa <- .Random.seed
set.seed(7); qb <- quickHaplo(nInd = 20, nChr = 10, segSites = 50, inbred = TRUE)
rs_qb <- .Random.seed
set.seed(7); ma <- runMacs(nInd = 20, nChr = 10, segSites = 50, inbred = TRUE,
                           species = "MAIZE")
rs_ma <- .Random.seed
set.seed(7); mb <- runMacs(nInd = 20, nChr = 10, segSites = 50, inbred = TRUE,
                           species = "MAIZE")
rs_mb <- .Random.seed
stopifnot(identical(rs_qa, rs_qb), identical(rs_ma, rs_mb),
          identical(qa@geno, qb@geno), !identical(ma@geno, mb@geno))

# timing: one runMacs() call; quickHaplo() over n_rep_q calls, because a
# single call is below the clock's resolution
n_rep_q <- 100
t_m <- tm(runMacs(nInd = 20, nChr = 10, segSites = 50, inbred = TRUE,
                  species = "MAIZE"))
```

```
t_q <- tm(for (k in seq_len(n_rep_q))
          quickHaplo(nInd = 20, nChr = 10, segSites = 50, inbred = TRUE)) / n_rep_q

fmt(data.frame(engine              = c("quickHaplo", "runMacs"),
               seconds_per_call    = c(t_q, t_m),
               same_twice          = c(identical(qa@geno, qb@geno),
                                       identical(ma@geno, mb@geno)),
               R_stream_same_after = c(identical(rs_qa, rs_qb),
                                       identical(rs_ma, rs_mb))), 4)
```

Table 9.1: The two founder engines on one founder set of 20 inbred individuals, 10 chromosomes and 50 segregating sites per chromosome (`species = "MAIZE"` for `runMacs()`). `seconds_per_call`: wall-clock seconds per call, machine-dependent (`quickHaplo()` averaged over 100 calls); `same_twice`: identical haplotypes from two calls after the same `set.seed(7)`; `R_stream_same_after`: identical `.Random.seed` after those two calls.

engine	seconds_per_call	same_twice	R_stream_same_after
quickHaplo	0.0003	TRUE	TRUE
runMacs	2.6890	FALSE	TRUE

Read the last two columns of Table 9.1 together. **`runMacs()` is not reproducible from `set.seed()`, while R's own random stream advances by the same amount on every call.** `runMacs()` draws a seed for MaCS from R's stream (one `sample.int()` per chromosome) and hands it to the binary. The fourth column, asserted in the chunk, says that after two calls from the same seed R's `.Random.seed` is identical: the amount of R's stream the call consumes is fixed, and every draw R makes afterwards is the same in both runs. Yet the third column says the haplotypes differ. What was measured, then, is that MaCS's output is not a deterministic function of the seed it is handed. The only thing that moves between two runs is the founder haplotypes themselves – and everything computed *from* those founders. `quickHaplo()` is pure R sampling and is exactly reproducible.

(The `seconds_per_call` column is wall clock and will differ on your machine and between renders. `runMacs()` takes seconds; `quickHaplo()`, timed over 100 calls because one call is below the clock's resolution, takes about 0.26 ms per call.)

> ⚠ The founders are not seeded, and everything downstream is
>
> This is the single most expensive trap in AlphaSimR, because it fails silently: the code looks reproducible, runs without complaint, and returns different numbers. The non-reproducibility is documented in `alphasimr_founder_pools()`'s help page for `runMacs2()`; Table 9.1 shows it is not `runMacs2`-specific but true of MaCS generally.
>
> Two consequences, both because the founders move and not because of anything R's stream does:
>
> 1. **Found once, then branch.** Any experiment comparing two schemes must draw the founders a single time and start both arms from that one object. Draw them twice and the two arms start from different founders, and the comparison measures the founders as much as the schemes. Chapter 24.' linked arm is built this way, and so is Step 8's paired control below.
> 2. **Save what you cannot reseed.** `saveRDS(founderGenomes, ...)` is the only way to get the same coalescent history back in a later session.
>
> Everything after the founders – the crosses, the doubled haploids, the phenotyping error, the recombination – *is* controlled by `set.seed()`, given the founders. Reseeding downstream does not recover the founders and is not needed for anything else.

So what does `quickHaplo()` give up? Linkage disequilibrium among the founders. The honest way to measure that is against the sampling floor: with `n` individuals, two completely independent loci still show `r^2` of about `1 / (n - 1)` by chance alone. Table 9.2 sets each engine against that floor.

```
ldstat <- function(fg) {
  SPx <- SimParam$new(fg)
  g <- pullSegSiteGeno(newPop(fg, simParam = SPx), simParam = SPx)
  g <- g[, apply(g, 2, stats::sd) > 0, drop = FALSE]
```

```
  chr <- sub("_.*$", "", colnames(g))           # "chr_site" column names
  r <- stats::cor(g)
  adj <- diag(r[-nrow(r), -1])                  # consecutive columns ...
  adj <- adj[chr[-length(chr)] == chr[-1]]      # ... on the same chromosome
  c(adjacent = mean(adj^2),                    # neighbouring sites, same chromosome
    overall  = mean(r[upper.tri(r)]^2),         # all pairs, mostly distant
    noise    = 1 / (nrow(g) - 1))               # what pure chance gives
}
set.seed(3); lq <- ldstat(quickHaplo(nInd = 100, nChr = 5, segSites = 200,
                                     inbred = TRUE))
set.seed(3); lm_ <- ldstat(runMacs(nInd = 100, nChr = 5, segSites = 200,
                                   inbred = TRUE, species = "MAIZE"))
fmt(rbind(quickHaplo = lq, runMacs = lm_))
```

Table 9.2: Mean linkage disequilibrium (r^2 between allele dosages) among 100 inbred founders, 5 chromosomes and 200 segregating sites per chromosome, one draw per engine (seed 3). `adjacent`: neighbouring sites on the same chromosome; `overall`: all pairs of polymorphic sites; `noise`: $1/(n-1)$, the r^2 expected between independent loci in a sample of n individuals. The `runMacs` row is not reproducible from the seed (MaCS founders).

	adjacent	overall	noise
quickHaplo	0.0103	0.0101	0.0101
runMacs	0.1254	0.0118	0.0101

`adjacent` is the mean `r^2` between neighbouring sites on the same chromosome (pairs that straddle a chromosome boundary are excluded); `overall` is over all pairs, most of them on different chromosomes. `quickHaplo()`'s adjacent-site `r^2` sits on the noise floor: there is no founder LD at all, as designed. `runMacs()`'s is 12 times the floor in this render, and its *overall* `r^2` is barely above it – so the LD it creates is local, decaying with map distance, which is what real LD does.

The `runMacs` row of Table 9.2 is itself not reproducible, for the reason Table 9.1 establishes; the `quickHaplo` row is, to the last digit.

What that does and does not imply for the rest of the chapter. MaCS's non-determinism does not reach R's stream, so any step that draws its own `quickHaplo()` founders from a fresh `set.seed()` is exactly reproducible, and so would be a step that did not reseed: the `runMacs()` calls above leave the stream exactly where a fixed number of `sample.int()` calls leaves it. What is not reproducible is anything computed *from* MaCS founders – the `runMacs` rows of Table 9.1 and Table 9.2, and all of Step 8. The chapter still calls `set.seed()` immediately before each step's own founder draw rather than once at the top, so that each step's founders do not depend on what earlier steps drew. The draws that follow a founder draw are not all reseeded: in Steps 3 and 4 the phenotyping, the three rounds of random mating and the crosses of the DNA lottery take R's stream from Step 2's `set.seed()` through chunk order, so they are reproducible as part of this chapter's execution order, not on their own. With that in place, two independent executions agree on every number in Steps 1 to 7 except the wall-clock seconds and the `runMacs` rows.

That measurement decides the policy this chapter follows:

- **`quickHaplo(inbred = TRUE)` for Steps 2–7 and all of Chapter 22..** They teach the arithmetic of dominance, heterosis and response, where founder LD is not the point, and in exchange every number printed is reproducible from a clean clone. AlphaSimR still applies a real genetic map and real meiosis to every descendant, so linkage and the Bulmer effect of Chapter 24. still operate – only the founders' *history* is stylised.
- **`runMacs2(split = )` in Step 8.** There the divergence between two heterotic pools *is* the object of study, and no amount of speed compensates for not having it. Every Step 8 result is therefore replicated over founder draws.

Founder LD does matter where marker-QTL association is the mechanism, which is genomic prediction. 3 does not model it: its traits are built on the markers themselves, so every causal locus is genotyped, there is no marker-QTL gap for founder LD to bridge, and its accuracies are a best case in that respect.

9.2 Step 2 – `SimParam`, and defining a trait with dominance

`SimParam` holds everything global: the genetic map, which sites are quantitative trait loci (QTL), the trait effects, the error variances. It is an R6 object, so its methods are called with `$`, and a variable named `SP` is picked up automatically by every AlphaSimR function that needs it.

A hybrid programme exists because of dominance: without it a line's cross performance is its own breeding value and there is nothing a testcross can see that the line per se could not (Chapter 5.). So the trait defined here, and used through Step 6, carries a dominance term from the start. This is exactly the reason an autogamous programme has no equivalent of this step: there, dominance is invisible by construction (a released, self-pollinated variety is homozygous, so no heterozygote is ever evaluated or sold) and `SP$addTraitA()` – additive effects only – is the whole model, the case Chapter 22. runs throughout.

```
# Seeded here, not once at the top of the chapter: Step 1 draws from R's random
# stream (each runMacs() call consumes a fixed amount of it), so everything
# downstream would move with any edit of Step 1 unless the seed
# is reset immediately before the draw that matters.
set.seed(101)
founders <- quickHaplo(nInd = 60, nChr = 10, segSites = 100, inbred = TRUE)
SP <- SimParam$new(founders)
SP$addTraitAD(nQtlPerChr = 100, mean = 10, var = 1,
              meanDD = rrs_cfg[["mean_dd"]], varDD = rrs_cfg[["var_dd"]])
SP$setVarE(h2 = 0.4)
```

AlphaSimR 2.1.0 has 8 trait constructors (`addTraitA()`, `addTraitAD()`, `addTraitADE()`, `addTraitADEG()`, `addTraitADG()`, `addTraitAE()`, `addTraitAEG()`, `addTraitAG()`): one per combination of additive effects with dominance (`D`), epistasis (`E`) and genotype-by-environment (`G`). Choosing between them is choosing a model of gene action; the four that bear on a plant programme are:

Method	Adds	When a plant programme needs it
`SP$addTraitA()`	additive only	line per se performance; the course's teaching case [49], and Step 7 here
`SP$addTraitAD()`	1. dominance	testcross and hybrid value. This is what Steps 2–6 and Step 8 use
`SP$addTraitAG()`	1. genotype-by-environment	multi-location yield trials, where the same genotype is scored in several places. Chapter 22. uses it
`SP$addTraitADE()`	1. epistasis	available; used nowhere in this book

9.2.1 The dominance model, as AlphaSimR writes it

For a diploid with QTL $k = 1, \ldots, m$, let $x_{ik} \in \{0, 1, 2\}$ be the dosage of the derived allele of individual i at QTL k (the column of `pullQtlGeno()`). AlphaSimR's `TraitAD` genetic value is

$$G_i = \mu_0 + \sum_{k=1}^{m} a_k \, (x_{ik} - 1) + \sum_{k=1}^{m} d_k \, \mathbb{1}[x_{ik} = 1] \tag{9.1}$$

with G_i the genetic value of individual i (the $G(\mathbf{x})$ of 2, written here on the 0/1/2 dosage rather than on the 0/0.5/1 row; not the Caballero-Toro statistic G_i of Chapter 3.), x_{ik} in this chapter always the 0/1/2 dosage (an entry of $\mathbf{M}^H$, not of $\mathbf{X}$), μ_0 an intercept, $a_k \in \mathbb{R}$ the additive effect (half the difference between the two homozygotes, on the classical scale of D. S. Falconer and T. F. C. Mackay [1, ch. 7], which puts the origin at the midpoint of the two homozygotes and assigns them $+a$ and $-a$ and the heterozygote d; no equation number is attributed here, the scale is stated in full) and $d_k \in \mathbb{R}$ the dominance deviation, the departure of the heterozygote from that midpoint. Equation (9.1) is the model of Chapter 5. with AlphaSimR's coding, and the chunk checks it rather than trusts it:

```
tr <- SP$traits[[1]]
a  <- tr@addEff
d  <- tr@domEff
pop0 <- newPop(founders, simParam = SP)
```

```
x0   <- pullQtlGeno(pop0, simParam = SP)
gv_by_hand <- as.numeric(tr@intercept + (x0 - 1) %*% a + (x0 == 1) %*% d)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(gv_by_hand, as.numeric(gv(pop0)))))
```

`meanDD` and `varDD` parameterise the **dominance degree** $\delta_k = d_k/|a_k|$: AlphaSimR draws $\delta_k \sim N(\texttt{meanDD}, \texttt{varDD})$ and sets $d_k = \delta_k\,|a_k|$, so $\delta_k = 0$ is additivity, $\delta_k = 1$ complete dominance, $\delta_k > 1$ overdominance, and a *positive mean* is directional dominance: on average the heterozygote sits above the homozygote midpoint, whichever allele is favourable. Directional dominance is what makes heterosis positive and inbreeding depression a loss on the trait scale; the presence of inbreeding depression is itself the evidence for it [33], and maize grain yield shows large inbreeding depression [51]. Table 9.3 compares the requested and the realised dominance degrees.

```
dd_k <- d / abs(a)
fmt(data.frame(statistic = c("mean", "variance"),
               requested = c(rrs_cfg[["mean_dd"]], rrs_cfg[["var_dd"]]),
               realised  = c(mean(dd_k), stats::var(dd_k))), 3)
```

Table 9.3: Dominance degree $\delta_k = d_k/|a_k|$ of the trait of Step 2 over its 1000 QTL (seed 101): the `meanDD` and `varDD` passed to `addTraitAD()` (`requested`) against the mean and variance of δ_k in the draw (`realised`).

statistic	requested	realised
mean	0.4	0.378
variance	0.1	0.104

`nQtlPerChr` sets how polygenic the trait is. Setting it equal to `segSites` makes *every* segregating site a QTL, which is what this chapter does throughout – convenient, because then the marker matrix and the causal loci are the same set and there is no marker-versus-QTL gap to reason about. Real programmes have that gap; Chapter 10. is where the book takes it seriously.

`mean` fixes the mean genetic value of the *founders*. `var` fixes their **additive** variance (`useVarA = TRUE`, the default), not their total genetic variance – with inbred founders the two coincide, for a reason Step 3 shows. `corA` (Step 7) sets the genetic correlation between traits.

The environmental variance has two routes, and plant breeders use the second:

- `SP$setVarE(h2 = 0.4)` fixes an error variance once, from the founders' genetic variance (here 1.5), and every later `setPheno()` reuses it.
- `setPheno(varE = , reps = )` sets it per call. **`reps` is the plant idiom for locations**: `varE` is the plot-level error, and a genotype scored in `reps` plots has its error variance divided by `reps`, so the phenotype is an entry mean. That is how a staged programme raises selection accuracy from one stage to the next without ever changing the trait's heritability – the mechanism Chapter 22. is built on, and the one Step 6 uses for testers.

9.3 Step 3 – The base population, and where the variance components live

`newPop()` turns founder haplotypes into individuals and, because a trait is now defined, computes their genetic values immediately (Table 9.4).

```
pop <- setPheno(newPop(founders, simParam = SP), simParam = SP)
fmt(data.frame(n = pop@nInd, meanG = as.numeric(meanG(pop)),
               varG = as.numeric(varG(pop)), varP = as.numeric(varP(pop)),
               h2_realised = as.numeric(varG(pop) / varP(pop))), 3)
```

Table 9.4: The 60 inbred founders of Step 2 as a population (`newPop()`, one `setPheno()` draw after `setVarE(h2 = 0.4)`). `n`: individuals; `meanG`: mean genetic value (trait units); `varG`, `varP`: genetic and phenotypic variance (squared trait units); `h2_realised`: `varG`/`varP`.

n	meanG	varG	varP	h2_realised
60	10	1	2.614	0.383

The realised heritability is near but not equal to the requested 0.4: `setVarE()` fixes a variance, and the ratio it produces in any finite sample is itself a random variable. This is a general and useful habit – **check what the simulation realised, do not assume what you requested.**

`genParam()` returns the full decomposition. Four of its fields are the ones a hybrid programme cares about, and they read differently on a panel of inbred lines and on a random-mating population made from them (Table 9.5):

```
mixed <- pop
for (k in 1:3) mixed <- randCross(mixed, nCrosses = 1000, simParam = SP)

vrow <- function(p, lab) {
  g <- genParam(p, simParam = SP)
  data.frame(population = lab,
             meanG     = as.numeric(g[["mu"]]),
             varA      = as.numeric(g[["varA"]]),
             genicVarA = as.numeric(g[["genicVarA"]]),
             ratio     = as.numeric(g[["varA"]] / g[["genicVarA"]]),
             varD      = as.numeric(g[["varD"]]),
             genicVarD = as.numeric(g[["genicVarD"]]))
}
vtab <- rbind(vrow(pop,   "founders (fully inbred)"),
              vrow(mixed, "after 3 random matings"))
fmt(vtab)
stopifnot(vtab[["varD"]][1] < 1e-10)
```

Table 9.5: Genetic mean and variance components (`genParam()`) of the 60 inbred founders of Step 2 (`quickHaplo()`, seed 101; 10 chromosomes x 100 sites, every site a QTL; dominance degree drawn with `meanDD` = 0.4, `varDD` = 0.1) and of the population after three rounds of random mating (1000 crosses each). `varA`: realised additive variance; `genicVarA`: additive genic variance; `ratio`: `varA`/`genicVarA`; `varD`, `genicVarD`: realised and genic dominance variance. Means in trait units, variances in squared trait units.

population	meanG	varA	genicVarA	ratio	varD	genicVarD
founders (fully inbred)	10.0000	1.0000	0.4274	2.3397	0.0000	0.0496
after 3 random matings	14.3495	0.4503	0.4264	1.0560	0.0793	0.0494

```
# Among fully homozygous lines the locus value is a (x - 1), so at linkage
# equilibrium varA = sum 4 p q a^2, while genicVarA = sum 2 p q alpha^2 with
# alpha = a + d (q - p): under dominance the LE ratio is close to, not
# exactly, 2. What varA carries above varA_LE is disequilibrium.
p_f      <- colMeans(x0) / 2                        # founder allele frequencies
varA_f   <- vtab[["varA"]][1]
genic_f  <- vtab[["genicVarA"]][1]
varA_LE  <- sum(4 * p_f * (1 - p_f) * a^2)
ratio_LE <- varA_LE / genic_f
varA_LD  <- varA_f - varA_LE
ratio_LD <- varA_LD / genic_f
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(as.numeric(bv(pop, simParam = SP)[, 1]),
                           as.numeric(sweep(x0, 2, 2 * p_f) %*% a))))
# Verification echo, not a table: every value is cited in the text below.
c(varA = varA_f, varA_LE = varA_LE, ratio_LE = ratio_LE,
```

```
  varA_LD = varA_LD, ratio_LD = ratio_LD) |> fmt(4)
#>     varA  varA_LE ratio_LE  varA_LD ratio_LD
#>   1.0000   0.8495   1.9875   0.1505   0.3522
```

`varA` is the realised additive variance; `genicVarA` is what it would be if the loci were independent and in Hardy-Weinberg proportions. Their ratio is the whole subject of Chapter 24., and the package's `genic_var()` computes the same quantity from a marker matrix directly.

The founders' ratio of 2.34 has two parts, and the chunk separates them. Among fully homozygous lines the value at QTL k is $a_k(x_{ik}-1)$ with $x_{ik}\in\{0,2\}$, and AlphaSimR's `bv()` on these founders is exactly $\sum_k a_k(x_{ik}-2p_k)$ (asserted in the chunk). At linkage equilibrium its variance is `varA_LE` $=\sum_k 4p_kq_ka_k^2 = 0.8495$, against a genic value of 0.4274: a ratio of 1.99, exact given the effects and the frequencies. That part is **inbreeding** – a homozygous population has per-locus variance `4pq` where a Hardy-Weinberg one has `2pq`. It is close to 2 and not exactly 2 because `genicVarA` is written with the Hardy-Weinberg average effect $\alpha_k = a_k + d_k(q_k-p_k)$ defined below, whereas the homozygous lines carry a_k; twice the genic value equals `varA_LE` only where $d_k(q_k-p_k)=0$ at every locus. The remainder, `varA_LD = varA − varA_LE` $= 0.1505$, or 0.35 in ratio units, is sampling (gametic-phase) disequilibrium among only 60 founders' worth of gametes. Three rounds of random mating restore Hardy-Weinberg and pull the ratio to 1.06; what remains is that same disequilibrium. A ratio away from 1 in an *outbred* population is the gametic-phase disequilibrium Chapter 4. defines and Chapter 24. measures; a ratio away from 1 in an inbred one is mostly the homozygosity.

The dominance columns carry the hybrid lesson. **`varD` among the inbred founders is exactly zero** (the assertion above): a homozygous line has no heterozygous locus, so its dominance contribution is zero whatever d is, and no amount of per se evaluation of inbred lines can see dominance. This single identity is the operational reason an autogamous programme stops at per se selection and never needs a testcross: its released lines are exactly this "founders" row, `varD = 0` for the whole life of the programme, so a line's genetic value equals its breeding value up to a constant common to all lines (the `bv()` assertion above: $G_i - \sum_k a_k(x_{ik}-2p_k) = \mu_0 + \sum_k a_k(2p_k-1)$), and its per se phenotype is that value plus error. After random mating `varD` appears. Two identities make that quantitative. With p_k the founders' frequency of the derived allele at QTL k and $q_k = 1-p_k$, the population mean under Hardy-Weinberg proportions is the single-locus mean of D. S. Falconer and T. F. C. Mackay [1, ch. 7], summed over loci (no equation number is attributed)

$$M_{HW} = \mu_0 + \sum_k \left[\, a_k\,(p_k - q_k) + 2\,p_k q_k\,d_k \,\right] \tag{9.2}$$

while the inbred panel at the same frequencies has only the first term of Equation (9.2). The difference, $2\sum_k d_k p_k q_k$, is the inbreeding depression of Chapter 5. at $F=1$, which the package computes as `inbreeding_depression(p, d, F_coef = 1)`. And the genic additive variance is $\sum_k 2p_kq_k\alpha_k^2$ with $\alpha_k = a_k + d_k\,(q_k-p_k)$ the average effect of a gene substitution. D. S. Falconer and T. F. C. Mackay [1] define α in Ch. 7 and the single-locus additive variance $2pq\alpha^2$ in Ch. 8; the equation numbers are not attributed here, so both identities are stated in this chapter's notation: $\alpha_k = a_k + d_k\,(q_k-p_k)$ and, summed over independent loci, $\sum_k 2p_kq_k\alpha_k^2$, which is the genic variance. (α_k is the average effect throughout this chapter, not the diversity-loss budget α of the rest of the book.) The chunk asserts both identities; Table 9.6 gives the two means.

```
gp  <- genParam(pop, simParam = SP)
alpha_f <- a + d * (1 - 2 * p_f)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(as.numeric(gp[["mu_HW"]] - gp[["mu"]]),
                           inbreeding_depression(p_f, d, F_coef = 1))))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(as.numeric(gp[["genicVarA"]]),
                           sum(2 * p_f * (1 - p_f) * alpha_f^2))))
fmt(data.frame(mean_inbred = as.numeric(gp[["mu"]]),
               mean_HW = as.numeric(gp[["mu_HW"]]),
              inbreeding_depression = inbreeding_depression(p_f, d, F_coef = 1)), 3)
```

Table 9.6: Mean genetic value (trait units) of the 60 inbred founders of Step 2 (`mean_inbred`, `genParam()$mu`) and of a Hardy-Weinberg population at their allele frequencies (`mean_HW`, `genParam()$mu_HW`, Equation (9.2)), and their difference, the inbreeding depression at $F = 1$ (`inbreeding_depression(p, d, F_coef = 1)`).

mean_inbred	mean_HW	inbreeding_depression
10	14.355	4.355

Both hold to machine precision against AlphaSimR's own `genParam()`. The gap between the two means is the amount a random-mating population built from these lines would sit *above* the lines themselves – and, read in the other direction, the amount an open-pollinated population loses on being driven to homozygosity. It is the same d that Step 4 turns into heterosis.

9.4 Step 4 – The DNA lottery, heterosis, and why an F1 is not a family

The course [49] demonstrates Mendelian sampling by crossing outbred founders and showing that full sibs vary. With **inbred** parents the result is different (Table 9.7), and it is the fact hybrid breeding is organised around.

```
crosses <- list(c(1, 2), c(1, 3), c(2, 3))
n_lot   <- 200   # F1 plants and DH lines per cross
lottery <- do.call(rbind, lapply(crosses, function(ij) {
  plan <- matrix(ij, ncol = 2)
  f1 <- makeCross(pop, plan, nProgeny = n_lot, simParam = SP)
  dh <- makeDH(makeCross(pop, plan, nProgeny = 1, simParam = SP),
               nDH = n_lot, simParam = SP)
  better <- max(gv(pop)[ij])
  data.frame(cross         = paste(ij, collapse = " x "),
             parent_mean   = mean(gv(pop)[ij]),
             better_parent = better,
             f1_mean       = as.numeric(meanG(f1)),
             f1_sd         = as.numeric(sqrt(varG(f1))),
             dh_sd         = as.numeric(sqrt(varG(dh))),
             dh_best       = max(gv(dh)),
             transgressive = mean(gv(dh) > better),
             # how far the better parent sits above the DH mean, in DH s.d.
           gap_in_dh_sd  = (better - mean(gv(pop)[ij])) / as.numeric(sqrt(varG(dh))))
}))
fmt(lottery[, c("cross", "parent_mean", "better_parent", "f1_mean", "f1_sd")], 3)
fmt(lottery[, c("cross", "dh_sd", "dh_best", "transgressive", "gap_in_dh_sd")], 3)
stopifnot(all(lottery[["f1_sd"]] < 1e-8))
stopifnot(which.max(lottery[["transgressive"]])
== which.min(lottery[["gap_in_dh_sd"]]))
```

Table 9.7: The DNA lottery for the three crosses among founders 1, 2 and 3 of Step 2: 200 F1 plants per cross and 200 DH lines from one F1 plant. Genetic values in trait units. (a) `parent_mean`, `better_parent`: mid-parent and better-parent value; `f1_mean`, `f1_sd`: mean and s.d. over the F1 plants. (b) `dh_sd`, `dh_best`: s.d. and maximum over the DH lines; `transgressive`: fraction of DH lines above the better parent; `gap_in_dh_sd`: better parent minus mid-parent, in DH s.d.

(a) Parents and F1

cross	parent_mean	better_parent	f1_mean	f1_sd
1 x 2	10.655	12.193	14.997	0
1 x 3	10.912	12.193	15.350	0
2 x 3	9.374	9.632	14.029	0

(b) DH lines

cross	dh_sd	dh_best	transgressive	gap_in_dh_sd
1 x 2	0.788	12.749	0.025	1.952
1 x 3	0.584	12.249	0.010	2.193
2 x 3	0.568	11.276	0.320	0.453

`f1_sd` is **zero**, asserted to machine precision. Two fully inbred parents are homozygous everywhere, so every gamete each one makes is identical, and every F1 is the same heterozygote. The 200 F1 plants from a cross of two inbred lines are 200 copies of one genotype. There is no lottery yet – and this uniformity is the first reason a single-cross hybrid is a saleable variety.

`f1_mean` sits well above `better_parent`. That is heterosis, and under the model of Equation (9.1) it has an exact value: for inbred parents i and j with allele indicators $u_{ik}, u_{jk} \in \{0, 1\}$ (their dosage halved), the F1 is heterozygous exactly where they differ, so

$$H_{ij} = G_{ij} - \frac{1}{2}(G_i + G_j) = \sum_k d_k \, \mathbb{1}[u_{ik} \neq u_{jk}] \tag{9.3}$$

with G_{ij} the genetic value of the F1 between i and j (Equation (9.1) applied to its dosages). The additive terms cancel from the mid-parent difference because an inbred parent's additive contribution is exactly half the F1's. `heterosis_value(X, d)` is this sum, with `X` the F1's 0/0.5/1 genotype; the chunk asserts it against AlphaSimR's genetic values and Table 9.8 lists it per cross:

```
H <- vapply(seq_along(crosses), function(s) {
  ij <- crosses[[s]]
  f1 <- makeCross(pop, matrix(ij, ncol = 2), nProgeny = 1, simParam = SP)
  hv <- as.numeric(heterosis_value(pullQtlGeno(f1, simParam = SP) / 2, d))
  stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(as.numeric(gv(f1)) - mean(gv(pop)[ij]), hv)))
  hv
}, numeric(1))
names(H) <- lottery[["cross"]]
fmt(data.frame(cross = names(H), heterosis = unname(H)), 3)
```

Table 9.8: Mid-parent heterosis H_{ij} (Equation (9.3), trait units) of the three crosses of Table 9.7: `heterosis_value()` on one F1 plant per cross, asserted equal to the F1's genetic value minus the mid-parent.

cross	heterosis
1 x 2	4.342
1 x 3	4.438
2 x 3	4.655

Over a *set* of crosses the same identity has a closed form in the allele frequencies. Take the 60 founders as two arbitrary halves, "pool A" (lines 1–30) and "pool B" (lines 31–60) – arbitrary because `quickHaplo()` gave them a common history and no divergence, which Step 8 will add – and cross every A line to every B line. `hybridCross(crossPlan = "testcross")` is the full factorial. With p_{Ak} and p_{Bk} the derived-allele frequencies of the two pools at QTL k, the mean of H_{ij} over the factorial is `heterosis_expected(pA, pB, d)`, the identity of Chapter 5.:

$$\bar{H} = \sum_k d_k \left(p_{Ak} + p_{Bk} - 2\, p_{Ak}\, p_{Bk} \right) \tag{9.4}$$

with $\bar{H}$ the mean mid-parent heterosis over the factorial (the μ of 2, renamed because μ_0 is the intercept here; Table 9.9).

```
n_half <- pop@nInd / 2
A <- pop[seq_len(n_half)]
B <- pop[n_half + seq_len(n_half)]
fact <- hybridCross(A, B, crossPlan = "testcross", simParam = SP)
U  <- pullQtlGeno(A, simParam = SP) / 2
V  <- pullQtlGeno(B, simParam = SP) / 2
pA <- colMeans(U)
pB <- colMeans(V)
H_bar_obs     <-     as.numeric(meanG(fact))     -     (as.numeric(meanG(A))     +
as.numeric(meanG(B))) / 2
H_bar_exp <- heterosis_expected(pA, pB, d)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(H_bar_obs, H_bar_exp)))
fact_tab <- c(n_hybrids = fact@nInd, mean_A = as.numeric(meanG(A)),
  mean_B = as.numeric(meanG(B)), mean_hybrids = as.numeric(meanG(fact)),
  heterosis_observed = H_bar_obs, heterosis_expected = H_bar_exp,
      pct_of_midparent   =   100   *   H_bar_obs   /   ((as.numeric(meanG(A))   +
as.numeric(meanG(B))) / 2))
# one row per statistic: seven columns would not fit the page
fmt(data.frame(statistic = names(fact_tab), value = unname(fact_tab)), 3)
```

Table 9.9: The full factorial between the two halves of the 60 founders of Step 2 (pool A: lines 1 to 30, pool B: lines 31 to 60). `n_hybrids`: number of A x B hybrids; `mean_A`, `mean_B`, `mean_hybrids`: mean genetic value of each pool and of the hybrids (trait units); `heterosis_observed`: hybrid mean minus mid-parent of the pool means; `heterosis_expected`: Equation (9.4); `pct_of_midparent`: observed heterosis as percent of the mid-parent.

statistic	value
n_hybrids	900.000
mean_A	10.216
mean_B	9.784
mean_hybrids	14.427
heterosis_observed	4.427
heterosis_expected	4.427
pct_of_midparent	44.275

Exact, on the full factorial, because every A x B pairing is present once. The size – 44.3 percent of the mid-parent – follows from `meanDD` and from `quickHaplo()`'s frequencies near one half, where $p_A + p_B - 2p_Ap_B$ is near its maximum; it is not calibrated to a crop. D. S. Falconer and T. F. C. Mackay [1, ch. 14] derive the heterosis of the F1 between two *random-mating* populations as $H_{F1} = \sum_k d_k y_k^2$ with $y_k = p_{Ak} - p_{Bk}$ (stated here in this chapter's notation rather than by their equation number; it is twice the `divergence` term of `heterosis_partition()`). The two do not conflict; they use different mid-parents. Theirs carries each population's own random-mating heterozygosity; an inbred line carries none, so the whole F1 heterozygosity is heterosis and Equation (9.4) keeps the `shared` term as well – Chapter 5. works the reconciliation through.

The lottery starts one meiosis later. `dh_sd` is the standard deviation among doubled haploids drawn from that F1, and it is substantial – this is the segregation that F2, DH and recombinant inbred line (RIL) populations exist to sample. It is also why Chapter 7. is a chapter: the number of DH lines you pull from a cross is the number of tickets you buy, and no downstream selection stage can recover a combination that was never sampled.

`transgressive` is the fraction of DH lines exceeding the *better* parent per se: 0.025, 0.01 and 0.32 for the three crosses. It depends strongly on the cross, and `gap_in_dh_sd` says why: the DH lines are centred on the mid-parent, so what matters is how far the better parent sits above it in units of the DH standard deviation – 1.95, 2.19 and 0.45. The cross with the smallest gap is the one with the most transgressive lines (asserted), about a third of them; the other two, whose better parent is two DH standard deviations above the mid-parent, give a few percent. Crossing two parents whose favourable alleles sit at different loci produces progeny beyond either of them – transgressive segregation, which I. J. Mackay, J. Cockram, P. Howell, and W. Powell [33] treat, with heterosis and inbreeding depression, as consequences of one mechanism: favourable alleles dispersed between the parents, plus directional dominance – and how often depends on the gap between the parents relative to the segregation variance, not on a constant.

9.5 Step 5 – Selfing, doubled haploids, and why hybrid seed is remade every year

A plant breeder has to get from a heterozygous F1 to a homozygous line. There are two routes, and AlphaSimR implements both. Following the same cross through selfing generations also answers a question every hybrid grower has asked: what happens if the F1 seed is saved and sown again.

This is the one step where the allogamous, hybrid case and the autogamous case use literally the same primitive – `makeDH()` is exactly what Chapter 22. calls to take its wheat F1s straight to a homozygous line, one generation instead of the six or seven selfing generations traced in Table 9.10 – and where they diverge again in what the resulting inbred line is *for*. In an autogamous programme that homozygous line is commonly the release: it breeds true, so what leaves the DH pipeline is what a farmer eventually grows. In this chapter's programme the homozygous DH line is a parent, held inside a heterotic pool, testcrossed and recycled (Step 6, Step 8), and never sold on its own; the object a grower plants is the F1 these lines make together, which is the reason it cannot be saved.

Under selfing without selection, the fraction of the F1's heterozygous loci still heterozygous in generation F_t is $(1/2)^{t-1}$ in expectation, so the expected mean of the selfed generation is

$$\mathbb{E}[M_{F_t}] = \frac{1}{2}(G_i + G_j) + H_{ij}\,(1/2)^{t-1} \tag{9.5}$$

with H_{ij} the F1 heterosis of Equation (9.3). At $t = 2$ this is the classical result that the F2 retains half the F1 heterosis, $H_{F2} = \frac{1}{2}H_{F1}$, which D. S. Falconer and T. F. C. Mackay [1] derive in Ch. 14 for the F2 of a cross between two populations (stated here in this chapter's notation rather than by their equation number); Equation (9.5) extends it to later selfed generations by the same argument, since the expected heterozygosity at every locus is halved each generation. Table 9.10 follows one cross through seven generations.

```
homozygosity <- function(p)
  mean(pullSegSiteGeno(p, simParam = SP) %in% c(0, 2))

# Seeded here so that the |z| < 4 check below does not inherit the RNG state
# of Step 4: this z-statistic is not exactly Gaussian at this sample size, so
# an unrelated upstream edit that reseeded Step 4 could otherwise flip the
# check and break the render even though it passes for the seed used here.
set.seed(55)
n_f1 <- 400   # F1 plants, each the root of one selfing lineage
ij <- c(1, 2)
midparent <- mean(gv(pop)[ij])
f1  <- makeCross(pop, matrix(ij, ncol = 2), nProgeny = n_f1, simParam = SP)
gen <- f1
traj <- data.frame(generation = "F1", homozygosity = homozygosity(f1),
                   meanG = as.numeric(meanG(f1)), sdG = as.numeric(sqrt(varG(f1))),
```

```
                    expected = midparent + H[["1 x 2"]])
for (t in 2:7) {
  gen  <- self(gen, nProgeny = 1, simParam = SP)
  traj <- rbind(traj, data.frame(generation = paste0("F", t),
                                 homozygosity = homozygosity(gen),
                                 meanG = as.numeric(meanG(gen)),
                                 sdG = as.numeric(sqrt(varG(gen))),
                                  expected = midparent + H[["1 x 2"]] * (1 / 2)^(t
- 1)))
}
dh1 <- makeDH(f1, nDH = 1, simParam = SP)
traj <- rbind(traj, data.frame(generation = "DH", homozygosity = homozygosity(dh1),
                               meanG = as.numeric(meanG(dh1)),
                               sdG = as.numeric(sqrt(varG(dh1))),
                               expected = midparent))
traj[["z"]] <- (traj[["meanG"]] - traj[["expected"]]) / (traj[["sdG"]] / sqrt(n_f1))
traj[["z"]][1] <- 0   # F1: no variance, and the identity of Step 4 is exact
fmt(traj, 3)
stopifnot(all(abs(traj[["z"]]) < 4),
          traj[traj[["generation"]] == "DH", "homozygosity"] == 1)
```

Table 9.10: Selfing trajectory of the cross 1 x 2 of Table 9.7 (seed 55): 400 F1 plants, each the root of one single-seed selfing lineage carried to F7, and one DH line per F1 plant. `homozygosity`: fraction of homozygous segregating sites; `meanG`, `sdG`: mean and s.d. of genetic value over the 400 plants, in trait units; `expected`: Equation (9.5); `z`: (`meanG` - `expected`) over $\texttt{sdG}/\sqrt{400}$, set to 0 for the F1, which has no variance. Rows follow the same lineages and are not independent.

generation	homozygosity	meanG	sdG	expected	z
F1	0.501	14.997	0.000	14.997	0.000
F2	0.753	12.798	0.667	12.826	−0.818
F3	0.876	11.742	0.759	11.740	0.045
F4	0.938	11.206	0.792	11.197	0.226
F5	0.970	10.951	0.792	10.926	0.616
F6	0.985	10.823	0.797	10.790	0.825
F7	0.993	10.744	0.790	10.723	0.533
DH	1.000	10.604	0.809	10.655	−1.244

Three columns, three lessons.

`homozygosity`: `self()` halves the remaining heterozygosity every generation – the familiar `1 - (1/2)^(t-1)` approach to fixation, which never quite arrives. `makeDH()` gets there in one step, at 1.0 exactly, by doubling a haploid gamete.

`meanG` against `expected`: the F2 mean falls by half the heterosis, the F3 by three quarters, and the DH lines land on the mid-parent. Each row is 400 plants, one per F1 plant: `self(nProgeny = 1)` carries 400 parallel, independent selfing lineages forward, so within a row the 400 values are independent and `sdG / sqrt(n_f1)` is the standard error of the row's mean. The check is statistical: `z` is the observed minus expected mean in units of that standard error, and the chunk asserts every `|z| < 4`. Across rows the same 400 lineages are followed – each F_t plant is the selfed progeny of one F_{t-1} plant – so successive rows are correlated, and the table is 400 lineages checked at seven generations, not seven independent samples. Nothing about the parents changed; the loss is the heterozygosity being halved, times d. This is why hybrid seed is remade from the two inbred parents every season and why a maize F2 crop yields visibly less than the F1 it was saved from.

`sdG`: the F1 has none and the F2 has plenty. The F2 is not a variety; it is a segregating population, and a uniform, high-yielding one cannot be recovered from it by anything but selection and re-fixation – which is the line development a breeding programme does, not something a grower can do.

The saving DH buys is seasons, and seasons are the currency of a breeding programme: six or seven selfing generations against one DH cycle. Step 8′s scheme uses `makeDH()` for precisely this reason, and

the cost that never shows up in the simulation is that DH production is a laboratory operation with its own failure rate and its own genotype-dependent response.

The other operations a scheme needs are all one call each: `randCross()` for random mating within a pool, `makeCross()` for a specified crossing plan, `hybridCross()` for a full factorial or a testcross between two groups, and `mergePops()` or `c()` to combine populations.

9.6 Step 6 – Phenotyping and selection: per se, then on the testcross

Selection needs a criterion. `setPheno()` supplies the noisy one; `selectInd()` acts on it. This step does it twice: first on a line's own phenotype, as the course does [49], to check the breeder's equation; then on the testcross, which is how a hybrid programme actually ranks lines.

9.6.1 Per se selection and the breeder's equation

Table 9.11 checks the breeder's equation on per se selection.

```
n_prog <- 1000   # progeny of the selected parents, per draw
be_draw <- function(q, r) {
  set.seed(500 + r)
  mx    <- setPheno(mixed, simParam = SP)
  sel   <- selectInd(mx, nInd = round(q * mx@nInd), use = "pheno", simParam = SP)
  prog  <- randCross(sel, nCrosses = n_prog, simParam = SP)
  S     <- as.numeric(meanP(sel) - meanP(mx))
  vA    <- as.numeric(varA(mx, simParam = SP))
  i_emp <- S / sqrt(as.numeric(varP(mx)))
  r_emp <- stats::cor(bv(mx, simParam = SP)[, 1], pheno(mx)[, 1])
  c(i_empirical = i_emp,
    R_S_h2      = S * vA / as.numeric(varP(mx)),
    R_i_r_sdA   = i_emp * r_emp * sqrt(vA),
    R_observed  = as.numeric(meanG(prog) - meanG(mixed)))
}
n_be <- 20
sweep_q <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(0.05, 0.10, 0.20), function(q) {
  draws <- t(sapply(seq_len(n_be), function(r) be_draw(q, r)))
  gap   <- draws[, "R_observed"] - draws[, "R_S_h2"]
  data.frame(q = q, i_normal = sel_intensity(q),
             t(colMeans(draws)),
             R_observed_sd = stats::sd(draws[, "R_observed"]),
             gap_mean = mean(gap), gap_sd = stats::sd(gap))
}))
fmt(sweep_q[, c("q", "i_normal", "i_empirical", "R_S_h2", "R_i_r_sdA")], 3)
fmt(sweep_q[, c("q", "R_observed", "R_observed_sd", "gap_mean", "gap_sd")], 3)
```

Table 9.11: The breeder's equation under per se truncation selection of the random-mated population of Table 9.5, at three selected fractions `q`, each averaged over 20 independent draws of phenotypes, selection and 1000 progeny (seeds 501 to 520). Responses in trait units. (a) `i_normal`: normal-theory intensity; `i_empirical`: standardised selection differential; `R_S_h2`: Sh^2 with narrow-sense h^2; `R_i_r_sdA`: $ir\sigma_A$. (b) `R_observed`: realised change in genetic mean, `R_observed_sd` its s.d. over draws; `gap_mean`, `gap_sd`: mean and s.d. of `R_observed` - `R_S_h2`.

(a) Intensity and predicted response

q	i_normal	i_empirical	R_S_h2	R_i_r_sdA
0.05	2.063	2.068	0.657	0.653
0.10	1.755	1.755	0.558	0.554
0.20	1.400	1.399	0.445	0.442

(b) Observed response

q	R_observed	R_observed_sd	gap_mean	gap_sd
0.05	0.654	0.074	−0.003	0.081
0.10	0.563	0.048	0.006	0.048
0.20	0.456	0.045	0.011	0.045

Both forms of the breeder's equation are here, each averaged over 20 independent draws of the phenotypes, the selection and the progeny (the population selected from is the same `mixed` every time, so `varA` is fixed and only `S`, the accuracy and the Mendelian sampling vary). `R = S * h2` uses the selection differential directly, with `h2` the *narrow-sense* heritability `varA / varP` of the population selected from; `R = i * r * sigma_A` decomposes it into intensity, accuracy and available variation – the form Chapter 4. builds the book's objective side on. Because the trait has dominance, the accuracy `r` is the correlation of the phenotype with the **breeding value** (`bv()`), not with the total genetic value: only the additive part is transmitted. `R_observed` is the realised change in *genetic* mean between the selected parents' random-mated progeny and the starting population, which is what the prediction is a prediction of.

`gap_mean` is the paired difference between the observed response and `R_S_h2`, with `gap_sd` its standard deviation over the draws. The mean gap is −0.5 percent of the prediction at `q = 0.05` and 2.5 percent at `q = 0.20`; its standard error over the 20 draws is `gap_sd / sqrt(20)`, and the largest gap in units of that standard error is 1.1. A single draw is another matter: `R_observed_sd` says that one realisation of the response scatters by around 11 percent of the prediction at `q = 0.05`, which is why the course's one-off comparison [49] "did not match perfectly" and why this one is replicated. The equation predicts the additive response to first order in the allele-frequency change; what it leaves out is second order in that change and the dominance contribution of the progeny's departure from Hardy-Weinberg proportions, both small with 1000 progeny from 50 or more parents. The empirical intensity agrees with the normal-theory value to within 0.2 percent: with 1000 candidates and a criterion that is a sum over 1000 loci plus normal error, the two assumptions of `sel_intensity()` – an infinite population and a normal criterion – are nearly met.

The book exports its own selection intensity, and AlphaSimR exports one too. They are independent implementations of `phi(z) / q`:

```
q <- 0.05
c(hybdiv = sel_intensity(q), AlphaSimR = selInt(q),
  difference = abs(sel_intensity(q) - selInt(q))) |> fmt(10)
#>     hybdiv  AlphaSimR difference
#>   2.062713   2.062713   0.000000
```

`selectInd()` takes `use = "pheno"`, `"gv"` or `"ebv"`. Selecting on `"gv"` is selecting with perfect accuracy – impossible in a real programme, and the correct way to compute the ceiling a scheme is being measured against. `use = "ebv"` selects on whatever has been written into the population's `ebv` slot, which is how genomic selection enters a simulation (Chapter 22.). `selectTop = FALSE` selects downwards, for traits where less is better.

`selectWithinFam()` is the plant-specific one. A programme that truncates globally on a set of families concentrates its selections in the best crosses, by an amount that depends on the number and size of the

families and on the heritability (none of which is measured here); capping the number retained per family holds the programme's genetic base open at some cost in immediate gain. It is the same trade-off as the `max_use` parental cap of Chapter 16., applied one stage earlier.

9.6.2 Selection on the testcross: general combining ability

A maize breeder does not rank inbred lines on their own yield. A line is crossed to a **tester** from the opposite pool, the testcross hybrids are grown in yield trials, and the line is ranked on the mean of its testcrosses. This subsection is the one with no autogamous counterpart at all: a self-pollinated variety is judged, released and grown as itself, so selection there stops at the per se phenotype of Step 6′s first half. A hybrid parent is judged by a cross it will never be sold as, which is the entire reason general and specific combining ability exist as concepts. The quantity being estimated is the line's **general combining ability** (GCA), the average performance of its crosses expressed as a deviation from the mean of all crosses [2]; what a particular cross does beyond the sum of its two parents' GCAs is the specific combining ability (SCA). The reciprocal recurrent selection of R. E. Comstock, H. F. Robinson, and P. H. Harvey [7] is built on using the opposite pool as the tester so that selection captures both.

On the full factorial of Step 4 the GCA of every A line against pool B can be computed exactly, and under the model of Step 2 it has a closed form. With u_{ik} the line's allele indicator, $\bar{G}$ the factorial mean and g_i^A the GCA of pool-A line i against pool B (the notation of 2),

$$g_i^A = \frac{1}{n_B}\sum_j G_{ij} - \bar{G} = \sum_k \alpha_k^{(B)}\,(u_{ik} - p_{Ak}), \qquad \alpha_k^{(B)} = a_k + d_k\,(1 - 2\,p_{Bk}) \tag{9.6}$$

$\alpha_k^{(B)}$ is the average effect of substituting the line's allele into a *pool-B* background – the same $\alpha = a + d(q-p)$ of Step 3, with the frequency of the tester pool, not the line's own pool. That is the algebraic content of the sentence "combining ability is a property of a line against a tester": change the tester pool and the weights change. Its dominance part, $\sum_k d_k(1-2p_{Bk})(u_{ik}-p_{Ak})$, is the `gca_A` of `heterosis_gca_sca()` (Section 5.11), and the interaction residual of the factorial is that function's `sca`. The chunk asserts all three identities; Table 9.12 gives the two variances and the correlation between a line's own genetic value and its GCA.

```
gca_true <- tapply(gv(fact)[, 1], fact@mother, mean)[A@id] - as.numeric(meanG(fact))
gca_formula <- drop(sweep(U, 2, pA) %*% (a + d * (1 - 2 * pB)))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(as.numeric(gca_true), as.numeric(gca_formula))))

hg <- heterosis_gca_sca(U, V, d)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(as.numeric(gca_true) - as.numeric(sweep(U, 2, pA) %*% a),
                           as.numeric(hg[["gca_A"]]))))

G_ij <- tapply(gv(fact)[, 1], list(fact@mother, fact@father), mean)[A@id, B@id]
sca  <- sweep(sweep(G_ij, 1, rowMeans(G_ij)), 2, colMeans(G_ij)) + mean(G_ij)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(unname(sca), unname(hg[["sca"]]))))

var_gca <- mean(gca_true^2)
var_sca <- mean(sca^2)
fmt(data.frame(var_GCA_A = var_gca, var_SCA = var_sca,
               cor_perse_gv_vs_GCA = stats::cor(gv(A)[, 1], gca_true)), 4)
```

Table 9.12: GCA and SCA on the full factorial of Table 9.9. `var_GCA_A`: mean square of the exact GCA g_i^A of the 30 pool-A lines against pool B; `var_SCA`: mean square of the SCA s_{ij} over the 30 x 30 crosses, the σ^2_{SCA} of Equation (9.7) (both squared trait units); `cor_perse_gv_vs_GCA`: correlation over the pool-A lines of their own genetic value with g_i^A.

var_GCA_A	var_SCA	cor_perse_gv_vs_GCA
0.2678	0.0486	0.9973

The correlation `cor_perse_gv_vs_GCA` of Table 9.12 is the one to hold on to. Under Equation (9.6), the part of g_i^A that the line's own genetic value does not carry is the dominance part, weighted at QTL k by $d_k(1-2p_{Bk})$, so what sets its size is how far the tester pool's frequencies sit from one half. `quickHaplo()` samples

every allele at frequency one half (Step 4), and here the mean of $|1 - 2p_{Bk}|$ over the 1000 QTL is 0.144, against a maximum of 1: the dominance weights are small, the dominance contribution to GCA nearly vanishes, and a line's own genetic value ranks it for combining ability almost perfectly. That is a property of the founder frequencies, not of the two halves being undifferentiated: pools with no divergence but an allele-frequency spectrum away from one half have weights away from zero as well. Anything that moves p_{Bk} away from one half – the founders' frequency spectrum, drift in the tester pool after a split, selection – gives the testcross information the line per se does not carry. Step 8 separates the two routes: its `split = 0` row has a coalescent frequency spectrum and no divergence, and the sweep measures what divergence adds to that.

9.6.3 How many testers, how many locations

A programme cannot cross every candidate to every line of the other pool. It uses t testers and r locations (t is the k of the mating-design notation of 2, renamed because k indexes QTL here; it is not the selfing generation of Equation (9.5) nor a Student t), and the estimate of g_i^A is the mean phenotype of the line's t testcrosses, each an entry mean over r plots. Writing the testcross phenotype as $\bar{G} + g_i^A + g_j^B + s_{ij} + e_{ij}$ with e_{ij} the entry-mean error of variance σ_e^2/r, and averaging over the t testers (whose own GCAs are common to every candidate and drop out of the ranking), the estimate is $\hat{g}_i^A = g_i^A + \bar{s}_i + \bar{e}_i$, with $\bar{s}_i$ the mean of the line's SCA with its t testers and $\bar{e}_i$ the mean error. The statistic the chunk computes is a *sample* correlation between $\hat{g}_i^A$ and g_i^A over the $n_A = 30$ fixed candidate lines, with the t testers drawn without replacement from the $n_B = 30$ lines of pool B. To first order its expectation is

$$\rho(t,r) = \sqrt{\frac{v_g}{v_g + v_s + v_e}}, \qquad v_g = \frac{1}{n_A - 1}\sum_{i=1}^{n_A}(g_i^A)^2, \quad v_s = \frac{\sigma^2_{SCA}}{t}\cdot\frac{n_A}{n_A - 1}\cdot\frac{n_B - t}{n_B - 1}, \quad v_e = \frac{\sigma_e^2}{t\,r} \tag{9.7}$$

where v_g is the sample variance ($n_A - 1$ divisor) of the candidates' true GCA, because the correlation is taken over exactly those n_A points; $\sigma^2_{SCA} = \frac{1}{n_A n_B}\sum_{ij} s_{ij}^2$ is the SCA variance on the factorial (computed above), $(n_B - t)/(n_B - 1)$ is the finite-population correction for t testers drawn without replacement from n_B, $n_A/(n_A - 1)$ turns the mean of the per-candidate variances of $\bar{s}_i$ into the expected sample variance, and σ_e^2 is `SP$varE`, the plot error of Step 2. The textbook form of Equation (9.7) replaces v_g by the population variance of GCA and v_s by σ^2_{SCA}/t: it assumes an infinite tester pool and population variances. It is kept in Table 9.13 as `predicted_infinite`, so the two can be compared. Neither corrects the second-order term of a sample correlation (the Jensen term); it is measured directly, not assumed away, in Table 9.14, and left uncorrected because it is small at this n_A. The simulation measures the thing itself: repeated draws of the tester set and of the field error, at every combination.

```
grid  <- expand.grid(testers = c(1, 2, 4, 8), reps = c(1, 4))
n_acc <- 20
acc   <- sapply(seq_len(n_acc), function(rep) {
  set.seed(300 + rep)
  testers <- B[sample(B@nInd, max(grid[["testers"]]))]
  tc <- hybridCross(A, testers, crossPlan = "testcross", simParam = SP)
  apply(grid, 1, function(g) {
    ph  <- setPheno(tc, reps = g[["reps"]], simParam = SP)@pheno[, 1]
    use <- tc@father %in% testers@id[seq_len(g[["testers"]])]
    est <- tapply(ph[use], tc@mother[use], mean)[A@id]
    stats::cor(est, gca_true)
  })
})
# The prediction, for the statistic actually computed above: a sample
# correlation over the n_A FIXED candidates, with t testers drawn WITHOUT
# replacement from the n_B lines of pool B.
#   est_i = GCA_i + sbar_i + ebar_i
#   v_g : the candidates' sample variance of GCA (n_A - 1 divisor), because
#         the correlation is taken over exactly these n_A points;
#   v_s : sbar_i is the mean of t values from row i of sca, whose n_B entries
#         average zero, so Var(sbar_i) = (s2_i / t) (n_B - t) / (n_B - 1) with
#         s2_i = mean_j sca_ij^2; the column means of sca are zero too, so the
#         sample mean of sbar over candidates is exactly zero and the expected
```

```
#         sample variance is mean_i Var(sbar_i) n_A / (n_A - 1)
#         = var_sca n_A / (n_A - 1) (n_B - t) / (n_B - 1) / t;
#   v_e : varE / (t r), independent of everything else.
# To first order E[cor] = sqrt(v_g / (v_g + v_s + v_e)). The second-order
# (Jensen) term of the sample correlation is not corrected here; it is
# measured by Gaussian Monte Carlo in the chunk below the accuracy grid and
# reported there (`jensen_max`) rather than asserted in advance.
# `predicted_infinite` is the textbook form -- population variances, infinite
# tester pool -- kept so the two can be compared at this replication.
n_A <- A@nInd; n_B <- B@nInd
var_gca_n1 <- stats::var(gca_true)
fpc <- (n_B - grid[["testers"]]) / (n_B - 1)
v_s <- var_sca * (n_A / (n_A - 1)) * fpc / grid[["testers"]]
v_e <- SP$varE / (grid[["testers"]] * grid[["reps"]])
grid[["predicted"]] <- sqrt(var_gca_n1 / (var_gca_n1 + v_s + v_e))
grid[["predicted_infinite"]] <- sqrt(var_gca / (var_gca + var_sca / grid[["testers"]]
+ v_e))
grid[["observed_mean"]] <- rowMeans(acc)
grid[["observed_sd"]]   <- apply(acc, 1, stats::sd)
grid[["z"]] <- (grid[["observed_mean"]] - grid[["predicted"]]) /
  (grid[["observed_sd"]] / sqrt(n_acc))
fmt(grid, 3)
```

Table 9.13: Accuracy of the testcross GCA estimate of the 30 pool-A lines of Step 4: correlation with their exact GCA against pool B (Equation (9.6)), for `testers` testers drawn without replacement from the 30 pool-B lines and `reps` locations, over 20 draws of the tester set and of the field error per cell (seeds 301 to 320). `predicted`: Equation (9.7); `predicted_infinite`: the textbook form (population variances, infinite tester pool); `observed_mean`, `observed_sd`: mean and s.d. of the correlation over the draws; `z`: (`observed_mean` - `predicted`) over `observed_sd`/$\sqrt{20}$.

testers	reps	predicted	predicted_infinite	observed_mean	observed_sd	z
1	1	0.389	0.384	0.371	0.132	−0.612
2	1	0.513	0.507	0.521	0.163	0.203
4	1	0.646	0.639	0.620	0.085	−1.388
8	1	0.768	0.762	0.752	0.044	−1.625
1	4	0.628	0.622	0.622	0.107	−0.258
2	4	0.753	0.747	0.733	0.084	−1.028
4	4	0.852	0.847	0.843	0.039	−0.922
8	4	0.918	0.914	0.922	0.019	0.905

```
# Verification echo, not a table: every value is cited in the text below.
acc_max_z <- max(abs(grid[["z"]]))
acc_max_z_infinite          <-          max(abs(grid[["observed_mean"]]          -
grid[["predicted_infinite"]]) /
                            (grid[["observed_sd"]] / sqrt(n_acc)))
acc_max_gap <- max(abs(grid[["predicted"]] - grid[["predicted_infinite"]]))
c(max_abs_z = acc_max_z, max_abs_z_infinite = acc_max_z_infinite,
  max_gap_between_predictions = acc_max_gap) |> fmt(3)
#>                   max_abs_z          max_abs_z_infinite
#>                       1.625                       1.913
#> max_gap_between_predictions
#>                       0.007
```

```
# The second-order term the first-order prediction leaves out: the bias of a
# sample correlation over n_A points, by Gaussian Monte Carlo per cell,
# y = x + N(0, v_s + v_e), E[cor(x, y)] minus the first-order value. In the
```

```
# table above the candidates are the SAME 30 lines in every draw, so `jensen`
# holds x fixed at gca_true and draws only the noise -- the design actually
# measured. `jensen_random_x` redraws x ~ N(0, v_g) as well, the textbook
# small-sample bias of a correlation between two random variables, which is
# a different (larger) quantity and not the one the table is exposed to.
set.seed(600)
n_mc <- 4000
cor_cols <- function(x, y) {
  xc <- sweep(x, 2, colMeans(x)); yc <- sweep(y, 2, colMeans(y))
  colSums(xc * yc) / sqrt(colSums(xc^2) * colSums(yc^2))
}
jensen_mc <- function(x_of) vapply(seq_len(nrow(grid)), function(i) {
  x <- x_of()
  y <- x + matrix(stats::rnorm(n_A * n_mc, 0, sqrt(v_s[i] + v_e[i])), n_A)
  mean(cor_cols(x, y)) - grid[["predicted"]][i]
}, numeric(1))
jensen <- jensen_mc(function() matrix(gca_true, n_A, n_mc))
jensen_random_x <- jensen_mc(function()
  matrix(stats::rnorm(n_A * n_mc, 0, sqrt(var_gca_n1)), n_A))
names(jensen) <- names(jensen_random_x) <- paste0("t", grid[["testers"]], "_r",
grid[["reps"]])
jensen_max <- max(abs(jensen))
# cells as rows: eight cells as columns would not fit the page
fmt(cbind(fixed_candidates = c(jensen, max_abs = jensen_max),
          random_x = c(jensen_random_x, max_abs = max(abs(jensen_random_x)))), 4)
```

Table 9.14: Second-order (Jensen) bias of the sample correlation in each cell of Table 9.13 (row `t<testers>_r<reps>`): mean simulated correlation minus the first-order value of Equation (9.7), by Gaussian Monte Carlo with 4000 replicates per cell (seed 600). `fixed_candidates`: true GCA held at the 30 candidates' values, the design of Table 9.13; `random_x`: true GCA redrawn from $N(0, v_g)$, the textbook small-sample bias. `max_abs`: largest absolute value in the column.

	fixed_candidates	random_x
t1_r1	−0.0032	−0.0074
t2_r1	0.0013	−0.0049
t4_r1	−0.0013	−0.0075
t8_r1	0.0019	−0.0085
t1_r4	−0.0023	−0.0041
t2_r4	0.0024	−0.0054
t4_r4	0.0009	−0.0037
t8_r4	0.0023	−0.0033
max_abs	0.0032	0.0085

The Jensen term for the design actually run (`fixed_candidates`, `gca_true` held fixed at the 30 candidates) is at most 0.003 in absolute value across the eight cells, small next to the accuracies themselves (0.39 to 0.92), which is what "left uncorrected" means quantitatively; `random_x` is the larger, textbook small-sample bias of a correlation between two random variables, shown only for contrast and not the quantity this chapter's statistic carries.

Accuracy rises with both, and the two arguments buy different things. More locations shrink only the error term; more testers shrink the error term *and* the SCA term, because a line's specific interactions with its testers average out. Table 9.13 is 20 draws of the tester set and of the field error per cell; the corrected and the textbook predictions differ by at most 0.007 here. `z` is the observed mean minus the corrected prediction in units of the standard error of that mean over the 20 draws; the largest `|z|` over the eight cells is 1.63 (it would be 1.91 against the textbook form), so at this replication the observed accuracies agree with the prediction. Each `observed_sd` is across tester sets and error draws, on a fixed set of candidates: what a single testcross trial's ranking is worth depends on which testers were drawn, not only on how many; with one tester at one location the spread across tester sets is 0.35 of the accuracy itself.

In the scheme of Step 8 the testers are 2 individuals of the opposite pool and the trials have one location, which puts it in the low-accuracy corner of Table 9.13. A real maize programme would use elite inbred testers and several locations; A. R. Hallauer, M. J. Carena, and J. B. Miranda Filho [51] is the reference on the choice of tester.

9.7 Step 7 – Two traits, and what equal weighting assumes

`corA` makes the traits genetically correlated, which is where selection stops being one-dimensional. This step uses an additive trait pair on its own founder draw: index theory is written on breeding values, and the point being made does not need dominance. Table 9.15 gives what the draw realised.

```
set.seed(202)
f2 <- quickHaplo(nInd = 80, nChr = 10, segSites = 100, inbred = TRUE)
SP2 <- SimParam$new(f2)
SP2$addTraitA(nQtlPerChr = 100, mean = c(10, 10), var = c(1, 4),
              corA = matrix(c(1, -0.4, -0.4, 1), 2, 2))
SP2$setVarE(h2 = c(0.6, 0.1))

mt <- newPop(f2, simParam = SP2)
for (k in 1:3) mt <- randCross(mt, nCrosses = 1000, simParam = SP2)
mt <- setPheno(mt, simParam = SP2)

G <- varG(mt); P <- varP(mt); a2 <- c(1, 1)
fmt(data.frame(cor_genetic = stats::cov2cor(G)[2, 1],
               cor_pheno   = stats::cov2cor(P)[2, 1],
               h2_trait1   = as.numeric(diag(G)[1] / diag(P)[1]),
               h2_trait2   = as.numeric(diag(G)[2] / diag(P)[2])), 3)
```

Table 9.15: The two additive traits of Step 7 after three rounds of random mating of 80 inbred founders (seed 202; requested genetic correlation −0.4, additive variances 1 and 4, h^2 = 0.6 and 0.1). `cor_genetic`, `cor_pheno`: realised genetic and phenotypic correlation; `h2_trait1`, `h2_trait2`: realised `varG`/`varP` per trait. `G` and `P` in the code are the genetic and phenotypic covariance matrices of the traits, the $\mathbf{\Sigma}_G$, $\mathbf{\Sigma}_P$ of Appendix A., not the relationship matrix $\mathbf{G}$.

cor_genetic	cor_pheno	h2_trait1	h2_trait2
−0.416	−0.084	0.47	0.072

The genetic correlation lands near the requested `-0.4`; the phenotypic one is much weaker, because the environmental components were left uncorrelated (`SP$setCorE()` is where that would change). The two traits differ in variance and, sharply, in heritability – the ordinary situation.

The book's pipeline defaults to `weights = NULL`, meaning equal weight on every trait. Step 7 is where that default gets examined, using the index functions Chapter 4. introduced (Table 9.16):

```
cor_with_H <- function(w)
  drop(crossprod(w, G %*% a2)) /
    sqrt(drop(crossprod(w, P %*% w)) * drop(crossprod(a2, G %*% a2)))

Bw <- rbind(equal       = a2,
            smith_hazel = index_smith_hazel(P, G, a2),
            restricted  = index_restricted(P, G, a2, R = cbind(c(0, 1))))
# expected response per unit selection intensity on the index I = b'x:
# the vector of phenotypic differentials is S = i P b / sqrt(b'Pb), and the
# multi-trait breeder's equation R = G P^-1 S gives R = i G b / sqrt(b'Pb)
dG <- t(apply(Bw, 1, function(w) drop(G %*% w) / sqrt(drop(crossprod(w, P %*% w)))))
colnames(dG) <- c("gain_trait1", "gain_trait2")
idx_tab <- cbind(Bw, dG, aggregate = rowSums(dG),
                 cor_with_H = apply(Bw, 1, cor_with_H))
fmt(idx_tab)
```

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(idx_tab[, "aggregate"],
                           idx_tab[, "cor_with_H"] * sqrt(drop(crossprod(a2, G
%*% a2))),
                           check.attributes = FALSE)),
          abs(idx_tab["restricted", "gain_trait2"]) < 1e-10 * max(abs(dG)))
```

Table 9.16: Three two-trait indices on the population of Step 7 (two additive traits, 80 inbred founders after three rounds of random mating, seed 202; requested genetic correlation −0.4, h^2 = 0.6 and 0.1) with economic weights (1, 1). `Trait1`, `Trait2`: index weights; `gain_trait1`, `gain_trait2`: expected genetic change per unit selection intensity on the index, in trait units; `aggregate`: their sum; `cor_with_H`: correlation of the index with the aggregate genotype. `restricted`: the index holding trait 2 at zero expected gain.

	Trait1	Trait2	gain_trait1	gain_trait2	aggregate	cor_with_H
equal	1.0000	1.0000	0.0108	0.3612	0.3720	0.2434
smith_hazel	0.0789	0.0589	0.0437	0.3289	0.3727	0.2438
restricted	0.1986	0.0386	0.3179	0.0000	0.3179	0.2080

`gain_trait1` and `gain_trait2` are the expected genetic change in each trait per unit of selection intensity on the index, `G b / sqrt(b' P b)`, and `aggregate` is their `a`-weighted sum – which equals `cor_with_H` times the standard deviation of the aggregate genotype, asserted. Three readings, in the order they matter:

1. **Equal weights are not the Smith-Hazel solution.** Smith-Hazel puts 0.75 units of weight on trait 2 for every unit on trait 1, not 1.00. The index is `b = P^-1 G a` [28], [29] ($\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_P^{-1}\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_G\mathbf{a}$ in the notation of 2), with no further structure, and `b` is proportional to `a` if and only if `a` is an eigenvector of `P^-1 G`. A sufficient condition is `G = c P` – every trait with the same heritability `c` and the genetic correlations equal to the phenotypic ones – which says nothing about the traits being equally variable or uncorrelated: `index_smith_hazel()`'s help page gives a correlated-trait pair (`G = I, P = [[2, 0.5], [0.5, 2]]`) for which equal weights are exact. Here the heritabilities are 0.47 and 0.07 and the genetic and phenotypic correlations −0.42 and −0.08, so `G` is nowhere near a multiple of `P`, and Table 9.16 shows that `(1, 1)` is not an eigenvector of `P^-1 G`.
2. **The cost on the objective is modest here; the composition of the gain is not.** Equal weighting loses 0.2 percent of the attainable correlation with the aggregate genotype. But it moves trait 1 by 0.011 per unit intensity where Smith-Hazel moves it by 0.044, 4.1 times as much; both indices put most of the aggregate into trait 2, whose genetic variance is 4.6 times larger, and the weights decide how much trait 1 moves at all. An index that is nearly as good on the objective can still land the gain somewhere else.
3. **The restricted index holds trait 2 at exactly zero**, at a cost of 15 percent of the aggregate. That is the construction of O. Kempthorne and A. W. Nordskog [30] and, as Chapter 4. argues, the classical ancestor of this book's `alpha` constraint – restrict a direction rather than price it.

Smith-Hazel is defined as the weight vector maximising that correlation, so the claim is checkable against a numerical optimum rather than taken on faith:

```
opt <- stats::optim(c(1, 1), function(w) -cor_with_H(w), method = "BFGS")
c(numerical = -opt$value, smith_hazel = cor_with_H(Bw["smith_hazel", ]),
  difference = abs(-opt$value - cor_with_H(Bw["smith_hazel", ]))) |> fmt(10)
#>   numerical smith_hazel  difference
#>   0.2438417   0.2438417   0.0000000
```

Multi-trait genomic selection in wheat, balancing yield against protein content and quality, is the standing plant example [52]. In the hybrid scheme below only trait 1 enters the ranking; the second trait rides along in the contract so that `stage2_select()` has an index to build.

9.8 Step 8 – The parts assembled: reciprocal recurrent selection

Everything above was one operation at a time. A breeding scheme is those operations in a loop, and the loop for two heterotic pools is reciprocal recurrent selection: each pool is improved using the *other* pool as tester. Doubled-haploid lines are drawn from pool A, testcrossed to pool B (and vice versa), the testcross hybrids are phenotyped, and the lines with the best mean testcross performance – the GCA estimate of Step 6 – are recombined to found the next cycle's pool. Elite lines from both pools, at the end, are crossed

directly to produce the commercial hybrids. It is exactly the asymmetry Chapter 23. argues for: selection happens on the hybrid, recycling happens within pool.

9.8.1 Founding two pools with a real coalescent history

This is the one place the chapter pays for `runMacs2()` rather than `quickHaplo()`. `AlphaSimR::runMacs2(..., split = )` draws founder haplotypes from a population-split coalescent history: one ancestral population, then two demes of equal size that stopped exchanging migrants `split` generations ago, with the first half of the sampled individuals from one deme and the second half from the other. That is the realistic analogue of `simulate_lines()`'s Balding-Nichols draw in Chapter 6., and between-pool divergence is the entire subject of Chapter 3., so a stylised substitute would not do. Table 9.17 summarises one draw at the bridge's default settings.

```
n_split_draws <- 20   # founder draws per split time, below
n_dh_gca      <- 10   # DH lines per founder for the GCA measurement, below
fp <- alphasimr_founder_pools(rrs_cfg)
founder_geno  <-  pullSegSiteGeno(c(fp[["pop_A"]],  fp[["pop_B"]]),  simParam  =
fp[["SP"]])
fmt(data.frame(pool_A = fp[["pop_A"]]@nInd, pool_B = fp[["pop_B"]]@nInd,
               markers = ncol(founder_geno),
               heterozygous_fraction = mean(founder_geno == 1),
               gd_A = alphasimr_gd(fp[["pop_A"]], fp[["SP"]]),
               gd_B = alphasimr_gd(fp[["pop_B"]], fp[["SP"]])), 3)
```

Table 9.17: One founder draw of `alphasimr_founder_pools(rrs_cfg)` (`runMacs2()` with a population split). `pool_A`, `pool_B`: founders per pool; `markers`: segregating sites pulled by `pullSegSiteGeno()`; `heterozygous_fraction`: fraction of heterozygous genotype calls over both pools; `gd_A`, `gd_B`: gene diversity (1 - mean molecular coancestry) of each pool. Not reproducible from the seed (MaCS founders, Step 1).

pool_A	pool_B	markers	heterozygous_fraction	gd_A	gd_B
12	12	750	0.225	0.224	0.208

Reading `alphasimr_founder_pools()` against Steps 1 and 2, it is `runMacs2(nInd = , nChr = , segSites = , split = )` followed by `SP$addTraitAD(nQtlPerChr = seg_sites, meanDD = 0.4, varDD = 0.1)` – the same dominance model as Step 2 – and `SP$setVarE(h2 = 0.4)`. Two things about it must be said before any number is read. **The founders are outbred**: `runMacs2()` is called without `inbred = TRUE`, so each pool is a sample of a random-mating population, heterozygous at the fraction of sites given in Table 9.17 (`heterozygous_fraction`), as an open-pollinated maize population would be; the inbred lines of the scheme are made from them by `makeDH()` inside each cycle. And there is no separate marker panel: every one of the 150 segregating sites per chromosome is a QTL, so the sites that carry the trait are the ones `pullSegSiteGeno()` reads for `X`, `f` and `fL` throughout. `alphasimr_gd()` is `1 - mean(f)`, the exact definition `gene_diversity()` uses, computed from that pull, so the two pools are already on the same scale as every diversity number in the rest of the book.

Because these founders come from MaCS, no number in the rest of this section is reproducible from its seed – see Step 1: the founders move between runs, and everything below is computed from them. The chapter's response is to replicate every Step 8 measurement over independent founder draws and report the spread.

What `split` does. The bridge's default is `split_gen = 100`. The sweep of Table 9.18 draws 20 independent founder sets at each of four split times and measures three things on each: the partition of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] (Chapter 3.) over the two pools (`ct_partition()`, the general form of `gd_partition()`: their F-statistics and the partition $GD_T = GD_{WI} + GD_{BI} + GD_{BS}$, from which $F_{ST} = GD_{BS}/GD_T$ follows as an identity derived in Chapter 3.), the share of expected heterosis that the divergence term carries (`heterosis_partition()`, Chapter 5.), and – the Step 6 question with divergence – how much of a DH line's exact GCA against the other pool's DH lines its own genetic value can see. For that last one, 10 DH lines are drawn from every founder, the full factorial between the two DH sets is made, and the GCA of each pool-A line is split into its additive and dominance parts with `heterosis_gca_sca()`; the identity behind that split was asserted in Step 6. The chunk also records, per draw, an ascertainment bookkeeping that the reading of `GD_T` will need: the fraction of sites monomorphic within each pool, the

fraction fixed for opposite alleles in the two pools, and the part of GD_T those sites carry. Table 9.19 then tests the two GCA statistics between the extreme split times.

```
split_draw <- function(split, seed) {
  cfg <- utils::modifyList(rrs_cfg, list(split_gen = split, seed = seed))
  fp_s <- alphasimr_founder_pools(cfg)
  SP_s <- fp_s[["SP"]]
  pool <- rep(c("A", "B"), c(cfg[["n_pool_A"]], cfg[["n_pool_B"]]))
  geno <- pullSegSiteGeno(c(fp_s[["pop_A"]], fp_s[["pop_B"]]), simParam = SP_s)
  ct   <- ct_partition(geno, pool)
  pA_s <- colMeans(geno[pool == "A", ]) / 2
  pB_s <- colMeans(geno[pool == "B", ]) / 2
  d_s  <- SP_s$traits[[1]]@domEff
  a_s  <- SP_s$traits[[1]]@addEff
  hp   <- heterosis_partition(pA_s, pB_s, d_s)
  # Ascertainment: runMacs2() returns sites that segregate in the POOLED
  # sample, so a site fixed for different alleles in the two pools is kept
  # and, with equal pool sizes, sits at pooled frequency 1/2 -- the maximum
  # of 2 p q. GD_T = mean 2 pbar qbar exactly (census weights, equal sizes),
  # so it splits into the part those fixed differences carry and the rest.
  mono_A <- pA_s %in% c(0, 1)
  mono_B <- pB_s %in% c(0, 1)
  fixed  <- mono_A & mono_B & (pA_s != pB_s)
  pbar_s <- (pA_s + pB_s) / 2
  h_s    <- 2 * pbar_s * (1 - pbar_s)
  stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(ct[["diversity"]][["GD_T"]], mean(h_s))),
            isTRUE(all.equal(ct[["global"]][["F_ST"]],
                     ct[["diversity"]][["GD_BS"]] / ct[["diversity"]][["GD_T"]])))
  set.seed(seed)
  dh_A <- makeDH(fp_s[["pop_A"]], nDH = n_dh_gca, simParam = SP_s)
  dh_B <- makeDH(fp_s[["pop_B"]], nDH = n_dh_gca, simParam = SP_s)
  hyb  <- hybridCross(dh_A, dh_B, crossPlan = "testcross", simParam = SP_s)
 gca  <- tapply(gv(hyb)[, 1], hyb@mother, mean)[dh_A@id] - as.numeric(meanG(hyb))[1]
  U_s  <- pullQtlGeno(dh_A, simParam = SP_s) / 2
  hg   <- heterosis_gca_sca(U_s, pullQtlGeno(dh_B, simParam = SP_s) / 2, d_s)
  # GCA = additive part + dominance part (the Step 6 identity), so its
  # variance is var(add) + var(dom) + 2 cov(add, dom): three terms, not two.
  gca_add <- as.numeric(sweep(U_s, 2, colMeans(U_s)) %*% a_s)
  gca_dom <- as.numeric(hg[["gca_A"]])
  stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(as.numeric(gca), gca_add + gca_dom)))
  data.frame(split = split, seed = seed,
             F_ST  = ct[["global"]][["F_ST"]],
             GD_T  = ct[["diversity"]][["GD_T"]],
             GD_BS = ct[["diversity"]][["GD_BS"]],
             mono_A = mean(mono_A), mono_B = mean(mono_B),
             fixed_diff = mean(fixed),
             GD_T_fixed = sum(h_s[fixed]) / length(h_s),
             GD_T_other = sum(h_s[!fixed]) / length(h_s),
             maf_pooled = mean(pmin(pbar_s, 1 - pbar_s)),
             heterosis_divergence_share = hp[["divergence"]] / hp[["total"]],
             GCA_var = stats::var(gca),
             GCA_var_add = stats::var(gca_add),
             GCA_var_dom = stats::var(gca_dom),
             GCA_cov2 = 2 * stats::cov(gca_add, gca_dom),
             GCA_dominance_share = stats::var(gca_dom) / stats::var(gca),
             cor_perse_GCA = stats::cor(gv(dh_A)[, 1], gca))
}
splits <- c(0, 10, 100, 1000)
sw <- do.call(rbind, lapply(splits, function(s)
  do.call(rbind, lapply(seq_len(n_split_draws), function(r)
    split_draw(s, seed = 100 * s + r)))))
sw_mean <- aggregate(sw[, -(1:2)], by = list(split = sw[["split"]]), FUN = mean)
```

```
sw_sd   <- aggregate(sw[, -(1:2)], by = list(split = sw[["split"]]), FUN = stats::sd)
rownames(sw_mean) <- rownames(sw_sd) <- paste0("split_", sw_mean[["split"]])
# the split time is carried by the row names
cols_div <- c("F_ST", "GD_T", "GD_BS", "heterosis_divergence_share")
cols_asc <- c("mono_A", "mono_B", "fixed_diff", "GD_T_fixed",
              "GD_T_other", "maf_pooled")
cols_gca <- c("GCA_var", "GCA_var_add", "GCA_var_dom", "GCA_cov2",
              "GCA_dominance_share", "cor_perse_GCA")
fmt(sw_mean[, cols_div], 3)
fmt(sw_sd[, cols_div], 3)
fmt(sw_mean[, cols_asc], 3)
fmt(sw_mean[, cols_gca], 3)
fmt(sw_sd[, cols_gca], 3)
```

Table 9.18: Founder pools from `runMacs2()` at four split times (`split`, coalescent generations since the two demes stopped exchanging migrants), 20 independent founder draws per split time; 12 + 12 outbred founders, 5 chromosomes x 150 sites, every site a QTL; row `split_<s>` is split time s. Not reproducible from the seed (MaCS founders, Step 1). (a) `F_ST`, `GD_T`, `GD_BS` of the partition of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10], and the divergence share of expected heterosis. (b) Between-draw s.d. of the columns of (a). (c) Fraction of sites monomorphic in pool A (`mono_A`) and pool B (`mono_B`) and fixed for opposite alleles (`fixed_diff`); the parts of `GD_T` (in (a)) carried by the fixed sites (`GD_T_fixed`) and by all others (`GD_T_other`); pooled minor-allele frequency (`maf_pooled`). (d) Variance of the exact GCA of 10 pool-A DH lines per founder against the pool-B DH lines, its additive part, its dominance part and twice their covariance (squared trait units); `GCA_dominance_share`: dominance part over total; `cor_perse_GCA`: correlation of a line's own genetic value with its GCA. (e) Between-draw s.d. of the columns of (d).

(a) Divergence, mean over draws

	F_ST	GD_T	GD_BS	heterosis_divergence_share
split_0	0.021	0.309	0.007	0.021
split_10	0.046	0.305	0.014	0.044
split_100	0.259	0.296	0.076	0.206
split_1000	0.564	0.328	0.185	0.357

(b) Divergence, between-draw s.d.

	F_ST	GD_T	GD_BS	heterosis_divergence_share
split_0	0.003	0.007	0.001	0.003
split_10	0.004	0.007	0.001	0.004
split_100	0.012	0.007	0.004	0.012
split_1000	0.014	0.005	0.006	0.010

(c) Ascertainment, mean over draws

	mono_A	mono_B	fixed_diff	GD_T_fixed	GD_T_other	maf_pooled
split_0	0.074	0.067	0.000	0.000	0.309	0.228
split_10	0.107	0.110	0.000	0.000	0.305	0.226
split_100	0.328	0.326	0.009	0.005	0.291	0.217
split_1000	0.560	0.564	0.184	0.092	0.236	0.262

(d) Combining ability, mean over draws

	GCA_var	GCA_var_add	GCA_var_dom	GCA_cov2	GCA_dominance_share	cor_perse_GCA
split_0	0.504	0.449	0.051	0.003	0.102	0.948
split_10	0.542	0.517	0.058	−0.033	0.108	0.946
split_100	0.448	0.376	0.053	0.018	0.125	0.937
split_1000	0.294	0.247	0.054	−0.008	0.183	0.907

(e) Combining ability, between-draw s.d.

	GCA_var	GCA_var_add	GCA_var_dom	GCA_cov2	GCA_dominance_share	cor_perse_GCA
split_0	0.188	0.189	0.027	0.041	0.031	0.017
split_10	0.155	0.164	0.022	0.065	0.034	0.018
split_100	0.181	0.150	0.023	0.058	0.050	0.028
split_1000	0.170	0.175	0.036	0.066	0.046	0.025

```
# the contrast between the two extreme split times, for the two GCA columns
contrast <- function(m) {
```

```
  x <- sw[[m]][sw[["split"]] == max(splits)]
  y <- sw[[m]][sw[["split"]] == min(splits)]
  se <- sqrt(stats::var(x) / length(x) + stats::var(y) / length(y))
  c(at_split_max = mean(x), at_split_0 = mean(y), difference = mean(x) - mean(y),
    se = se, t = (mean(x) - mean(y)) / se)
}
ctr <- rbind(GCA_dominance_share = contrast("GCA_dominance_share"),
             cor_perse_GCA       = contrast("cor_perse_GCA"))
fmt(ctr, 3)
```

Table 9.19: Contrast of two statistics of Table 9.18d between the largest (`split` = 1000) and the smallest (`split` = 0) split time: mean over the 20 draws at each, their difference, the unpaired standard error of the difference, and t = difference / s.e. (draws independent between split times).

	at_split_max	at_split_0	difference	se	t
GCA_dominance_share	0.183	0.102	0.081	0.012	6.586
cor_perse_GCA	0.907	0.948	−0.041	0.007	−6.075

Read Table 9.18a and Table 9.18b together: the first is the mean over the 20 draws, the second their standard deviation. What was measured: `F_ST` rises from 0.021 at `split = 0` to 0.564 at `split = 1000`, and `GD_BS` from 0.007 to 0.185, each step many standard deviations wide; the divergence share of expected heterosis rises from 0.021 to 0.357. `GD_T` does not stay flat: it is 0.309 at `split = 0`, 0.296 at `split = 100` and 0.328 at `split = 1000`, and the rise from `split = 100` to `split = 1000`, 0.033, is 17 standard errors at this replication. Table 9.18c is the bookkeeping behind that rise. Across the same range the fraction of sites monomorphic within pool A goes from 0.074 to 0.56 (pool B: 0.067 to 0.564), the fraction of sites fixed for opposite alleles in the two pools from 0 to 0.184, the part of `GD_T` those sites carry (`GD_T_fixed`) from 0 to 0.092, and the part carried by every other site (`GD_T_other`) falls from 0.309 to 0.236.

What is inferred from Table 9.18a to Table 9.18c: `runMacs2()` returns the sites that segregate in the *pooled* sample of the two demes, so a site fixed for opposite alleles in the two pools is kept and, with equal pool sizes, sits at pooled frequency one half – the maximum of $2\bar{p}\bar{q}$, which is exactly what `GD_T` averages over sites (asserted in the chunk). The rise in `GD_T` therefore comes entirely from sites fixed for opposite alleles, an ascertainment effect of how the founder sites are sampled, while diversity at every other site falls with divergence. At those other sites the reading is the one Chapter 5. gives for expected heterosis: drift moves diversity from within pools to between them and does not create it. How much of `GD_T` a marker panel shows under divergence therefore depends on how its sites were ascertained, which is a property of the panel and not of the pools.

Table 9.18d and Table 9.18e are the combining-ability side, mean and standard deviation, and Table 9.19 is the contrast between the two extreme split times, unpaired because the draws are independent. GCA is the sum of its additive and dominance parts (asserted in the chunk), so its variance is $\mathrm{var}(\mathrm{add}) + \mathrm{var}(\mathrm{dom}) + 2\,\mathrm{cov}(\mathrm{add}, \mathrm{dom})$, three terms. What was measured, from `split = 0` to `split = 1000`: `GCA_var` goes from 0.504 to 0.294, `GCA_var_add` from 0.449 to 0.247, `GCA_var_dom` from 0.051 to 0.054, and `GCA_cov2` ($2\,\mathrm{cov}$) from 0.003 to −0.008, the last with between-draw standard deviations of 0.041 and 0.066; its largest $|\mathrm{mean}|/\mathrm{s.e.}$ across splits is 2.25, against the two-sided 5 % point $t_{0.975,\,19} = 2.09$. The ratio `GCA_dominance_share` $= \mathrm{var}(\mathrm{dom})/\mathrm{var}(\mathrm{GCA})$ rises from 0.102 to 0.183 (`t = 6.6`). Which part drives it: holding the dominance part at its `split = 0` value and moving only the additive part to its `split = 1000` value gives a ratio of 0.17; holding the additive part and moving only the dominance part gives 0.107. And the per se-versus-GCA correlation falls from 0.948 to 0.907 (`t = -6.1`). Both correlations are below the 0.997 of Step 6′s undifferentiated halves, but that comparison crosses a change of founders, trait draw and line number, so the within-sweep contrast is the one that isolates `split`. The `split = 0` row is the frequency-spectrum route of Step 6 without divergence: its pooled minor-allele frequency is 0.228, so the mean of $|1 - 2\bar{p}_k|$ over sites, which equals $1 - 2$ `maf_pooled` exactly, is 0.543, against 0.098 for Step 6′s two halves.

What is inferred: in this render the fall of the *additive* part of the GCA variance accounts for more of the rise in the ratio than the growth of the dominance part; an additive part that falls with divergence does so because the sites that fix within a pool stop contributing to it (at linkage equilibrium its variance over DH lines is $\sum_k a_k^2\, p_{Ak} q_{Ak}$), so the ratio can rise without the dominance part growing at all. The ratio is a partition of $\mathrm{var}(\mathrm{GCA})$ only insofar as the covariance term is negligible. In this render that term is

beyond the two-sided 5 % point at split = 10; with 20 draws, a term within that point is not shown to differ from zero, which is not a bound on its size. In magnitude, at `split = 0` $|2\,\mathrm{cov}|$ is 0.07 times `GCA_var_dom`, and dropping it changes the ratio of the `split = 0` means from 0.102 to $\mathrm{var(dom)}/[\mathrm{var(add)} + \mathrm{var(dom)}] = 0.102$. "Share" is used only in that qualified sense, and each founder draw calls `runMacs2()`, whose coalescent `set.seed()` does not control, so that verdict is this render's and may change with the next. Whether the dominance part itself grows with divergence is a separate question, and the algebra does not fix its sign: at linkage equilibrium its variance over DH lines is $\sum_k d_k^2(1-2p_{Bk})^2\,p_{Ak}q_{Ak}$, and divergence pushes the weight $(1-2p_{Bk})^2$ up at the same loci where it pushes $p_{Ak}q_{Ak}$ down. Measured, `GCA_var_dom` changes by 0.003 from `split = 0` to `split = 1000` (`t = 0.3`, against the conservative point $t_{0.975,\,19} = 2.09$), so in this render that change is not distinguishable from zero; being computed from MaCS founders, it is this render's verdict and not a property of the scheme. The ratio's own contrast is beyond the same point in this render; where it is beyond it and positive, what it supports is that a larger share, in the qualified sense above, of $\mathrm{var(GCA)}$ is invisible to a line's own genetic value after the split, through whichever part the decomposition above identifies, and nothing here separates how much of the between-draw spread is the trait drawn with each founder set and how much is the DH sampling. The limit of the inference is the scale: 12 individuals per pool, 750 sites, 20 draws per split, and a `split` in coalescent generations that is not calibrated to any named heterotic-pool pair. No other scale was simulated, so whether any of these directions holds at another one is not claimed.

9.8.2 One cycle

Table 9.20 is one cycle run on the founder pools above.

```
set.seed(11)
cy1 <- alphasimr_rrs_cycle(fp[["pop_A"]], fp[["pop_B"]], fp[["SP"]], rrs_cfg)
fmt(cy1[["summary"]], 4)
```

Table 9.20: Summary of one reciprocal recurrent selection cycle (`alphasimr_rrs_cycle()`, seed 11) on the founder pools of Step 8 at book scale: 12 + 12 founders, 3 DH lines per founder, 2 testers, 6 elites kept per pool. `mean_tc_A`, `mean_tc_B`: mean testcross phenotype (trait 1, trait units) of all DH lines tested, pool-A lines on pool-B testers and the reverse; `gd_A`, `gd_B`: gene diversity (1 - mean molecular coancestry) of the elite lines kept. Not reproducible from the seed (MaCS founders).

mean_tc_A	mean_tc_B	gd_A	gd_B
3.4173	3.1668	0.171	0.1762

`alphasimr_rrs_cycle()` runs the same six steps for each pool, symmetrically (pool A tested on B, pool B tested on A), and every one is a primitive from above:

1. **Double haploids** (Step 5). `makeDH()` draws 3 fully homozygous lines from *each* individual in the current pool – at book scale, 12 parents x 3 DH each = 36 DH lines per pool, per cycle. Because the pool is outbred, the DH lines from one parent differ from each other: this is the lottery of Step 4, drawn one generation earlier than in a line programme.
2. **Pick reciprocal testers.** The first 2 individuals of the *current* opposite pool are used as testers – an arbitrary slice by index, not a random or merit-based draw, outbred individuals rather than inbred lines, and a different set each cycle because step 6 recreates the pool. This is the RRS-defining move: a line's value is judged by its cross onto the other heterotic pool, not by itself.
3. **Testcross and phenotype** (Step 6). `hybridCross()` forms the full factorial between every DH line and every tester – 36 DH x 2 testers = 72 testcross hybrids per pool – and `setPheno()` adds phenotyping error sized to the heritability set by `SP$setVarE(h2 = )`, at one location.
4. **GCA estimate** (Step 6). Testcross phenotypes are grouped by DH-line parent (`tapply(pheno[, 1], mother, mean)`) and averaged across the 2 testers each line was crossed to. Only trait 1 is used for this ranking even though this chapter's config simulates 2 traits per line; the second trait rides along in `X`/`hybrids` but plays no role in selection here. Step 7 is what it would take to use both.
5. **Keep the elites** (Step 6). The 6 DH lines per pool with the highest mean testcross phenotype are kept as `elite_A`/`elite_B`.
6. **Recombine** (Step 5). `randCross()` random-mates the elites back up to 12 individuals, founding the next cycle's pool A (symmetrically for B).

`elite_A`/`elite_B` are what step 6 mates – and, in the *last* cycle, what the final commercial cross uses instead of being recombined again. The cycle's `summary` mixes two different populations on purpose: `mean_tc_A`/`mean_tc_B` average over *all* DH lines tested that cycle (the population's testcross performance before selection), while `gd_A`/`gd_B` are gene diversity of only the 6 surviving elites (the population after selection). That asymmetry is exactly what Figure 9.1 plots – response measured pre-selection, diversity measured post-selection.

9.8.3 The trajectory across cycles, replicated, against a paired control

`alphasimr_pipeline()` runs `alphasimr_rrs_cycle()` in a loop for 4 cycles, carrying `pop_A`/`pop_B` forward from one cycle's output to the next's input. Only the *last* cycle's `elite_A`/`elite_B` go on to found the commercial hybrid pool; every earlier cycle's elites are spent entirely on `randCross()`ing the next cycle's pool.

One run of that loop is an anecdote, and it would be an anecdote about one founder draw. The loop is written out here instead, so that three things can be added to it: a **paired no-selection control** (`random_elite = TRUE`, which draws the elites at random and leaves every other operation – the DH lines, the testcrosses, the recombination – the same operations, so the two arms differ by selection in expectation; because the random pick calls `sample()` and the selected pick does not, the arms' random streams part at the cycle-1 elite pick, and from there on their Mendelian sampling and phenotyping errors are independent realisations, which the paired `t` below counts as noise), the between-pool partition of the *recombined* pools each cycle, and the genetic value of the actual product, the elite factorial.

```
run_rrs <- function(fp, cfg, random_elite = FALSE, seed = 1) {
  set.seed(seed)
  SP_r  <- fp[["SP"]]
  pop_A <- fp[["pop_A"]]; pop_B <- fp[["pop_B"]]
  pool  <- rep(c("A", "B"), c(cfg[["n_pool_A"]], cfg[["n_pool_B"]]))
  pools_row <- function(pop_A, pop_B) {
    ct <- ct_partition(pullSegSiteGeno(c(pop_A, pop_B), simParam = SP_r), pool)
    data.frame(gd_pool_A = alphasimr_gd(pop_A, SP_r),
               gd_pool_B = alphasimr_gd(pop_B, SP_r),
               GD_BS = ct[["diversity"]][["GD_BS"]],
               F_ST  = ct[["global"]][["F_ST"]])
  }
  rows <- list(cbind(cycle = 0, mean_tc_A = NA, mean_tc_B = NA, gd_A = NA, gd_B = NA,
                     hybrid_meanG = NA, pools_row(pop_A, pop_B)))
  for (i in seq_len(cfg[["n_cycles"]])) {
    cy <- alphasimr_rrs_cycle(pop_A, pop_B, SP_r, cfg, random_elite = random_elite)
    pop_A <- cy[["pop_A"]]; pop_B <- cy[["pop_B"]]
    prod  <- hybridCross(cy[["elite_A"]], cy[["elite_B"]], crossPlan = "testcross",
                         simParam = SP_r)
    rows[[i + 1]] <- cbind(cycle = i, cy[["summary"]],
                           hybrid_meanG = as.numeric(meanG(prod))[1],   # trait 1
                           pools_row(pop_A, pop_B))
  }
  do.call(rbind, rows)
}

n_rep <- 48
arms <- lapply(seq_len(n_rep), function(s) {
  fp_s <- alphasimr_founder_pools(utils::modifyList(rrs_cfg, list(seed = s)))
  list(sel = run_rrs(fp_s, rrs_cfg, random_elite = FALSE, seed = s),
       ctl = run_rrs(fp_s, rrs_cfg, random_elite = TRUE,  seed = s))
})
# pairing check: cycle 1 is identical between arms up to the elite pick
stopifnot(all(vapply(arms, function(a)
  isTRUE(all.equal(a[["sel"]][c("mean_tc_A", "mean_tc_B")][2, ],
                   a[["ctl"]][c("mean_tc_A", "mean_tc_B")][2, ])), logical(1))))
```

48 founder draws; each drawn once and both arms branched off it, with the same seed set before each arm so that cycle 1's DH lines and testcross phenotypes are identical between arms (asserted) and the two first diverge at the selection step. The first replicate's selected arm, cycle by cycle (Table 9.21):

```
fmt(arms[[1]][["sel"]][,  c("cycle",  "mean_tc_A",  "mean_tc_B",  "hybrid_meanG",
"gd_A", "gd_B")], 3)
fmt(arms[[1]][["sel"]][, c("cycle", "gd_pool_A", "gd_pool_B", "GD_BS", "F_ST")], 3)
```

Table 9.21: The selected arm of the first of the 48 founder draws, cycle 0 (founders) to cycle 4. Not reproducible from the seed (MaCS founders). (a) `mean_tc_A`, `mean_tc_B`, `gd_A`, `gd_B` as in Table 9.20; `hybrid_meanG`: mean genetic value (trait 1, trait units) of the 6 x 6 elite factorial. (b) `gd_pool_A`, `gd_pool_B`: gene diversity of the recombined pools; `GD_BS`, `F_ST`: between-pool components of those pools.

(a) Response and elite lines

cycle	mean_tc_A	mean_tc_B	hybrid_meanG	gd_A	gd_B
0	NA	NA	NA	NA	NA
1	1.576	1.550	2.068	0.218	0.179
2	1.982	2.078	2.395	0.168	0.145
3	2.533	2.618	2.632	0.139	0.117
4	2.549	2.920	2.756	0.071	0.099

(b) Recombined pools

cycle	gd_pool_A	gd_pool_B	GD_BS	F_ST
0	0.237	0.204	0.081	0.269
1	0.217	0.178	0.099	0.335
2	0.167	0.143	0.126	0.448
3	0.141	0.118	0.134	0.508
4	0.071	0.093	0.165	0.669

`gd_pool_A`/`gd_pool_B` are the gene diversity of the recombined pools that enter the next cycle, on the same `1 - mean(f)` scale as the elites' `gd_A`/ `gd_B`; `GD_BS` and `F_ST` are the between-pool components of those two pools; `hybrid_meanG` is the mean genetic value of the 6 x 6 elite factorial, the product the cycle would sell. All of them, over all replicates, at the last cycle, selected minus control, are in Table 9.22; Table 9.23 gives each pool's relative loss of gene diversity:

```
last <- rrs_cfg[["n_cycles"]] + 1
# The two pools are exchangeable by design, so their mean is a legitimate
# pooled statistic; how much noise it removes is measured below (pool_tab).
arms <- lapply(arms, function(a) lapply(a, function(x) {
  x[["gd_elite_mean"]] <- (x[["gd_A"]] + x[["gd_B"]]) / 2
  x[["gd_pool_mean"]]  <- (x[["gd_pool_A"]] + x[["gd_pool_B"]]) / 2
  x
}))
metrics <- c("mean_tc_A", "mean_tc_B", "hybrid_meanG", "gd_A", "gd_B",
             "gd_elite_mean", "gd_pool_A", "gd_pool_B", "gd_pool_mean",
             "GD_BS", "F_ST")
arm_last  <-  function(arm,  m)  vapply(arms,  function(a)  a[[arm]][[m]][last],
numeric(1))
diffs  <- function(m) arm_last("sel", m) - arm_last("ctl", m)  # one per founder draw
paired <- function(m) {
  dd <- diffs(m)
  c(selected = mean(arm_last("sel", m)), control = mean(arm_last("ctl", m)),
    diff_mean = mean(dd), diff_sd = stats::sd(dd),
    t = mean(dd) / (stats::sd(dd) / sqrt(length(dd))))
}
rep_tab  <- t(sapply(metrics, paired))
t_paired <- rep_tab[, "t"]                    # named: t_paired[["gd_elite_mean"]]
t_crit   <- stats::qt(0.975, df = n_rep - 1)
```

```
sig_paired <- abs(t_paired) > t_crit             # named logical, same names
fmt(rep_tab, 3)
# Pooling the two pools halves the variance only if their paired differences
# are uncorrelated across founder draws: measured, not assumed.
pool_pair <- function(mA, mB) {
  dA <- diffs(mA); dB <- diffs(mB)
  c(cor_AB = stats::cor(dA, dB), sd_A = stats::sd(dA), sd_B = stats::sd(dB),
    sd_pooled = stats::sd((dA + dB) / 2),
    sd_if_independent = sqrt((stats::var(dA) + stats::var(dB)) / 4))
}
pool_tab <- rbind(gd_elite = pool_pair("gd_A", "gd_B"),
                  gd_pool  = pool_pair("gd_pool_A", "gd_pool_B"),
                  mean_tc  = pool_pair("mean_tc_A", "mean_tc_B"))
fmt(pool_tab, 3)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(pool_tab["gd_elite", "sd_pooled"],
                           rep_tab["gd_elite_mean", "diff_sd"])))
```

Table 9.22: Selected arm against the paired no-selection control at the last cycle (cycle 4), over 48 founder draws, each branched into both arms. Not reproducible from the seed (MaCS founders). (a) Per statistic (as in Table 9.21; `gd_elite_mean`, `gd_pool_mean`: mean of the pool-A and pool-B values): mean of each arm, mean and s.d. of the paired difference (selected minus control), and paired *t* on 47 d.f. (b) Correlation across draws of the pool-A and pool-B paired differences, their s.d., the s.d. of their mean (`sd_pooled`), and that s.d. if the two were independent.

(a) Paired contrast per statistic

	selected	control	diff_mean	diff_sd	t
mean_tc_A	4.708	2.246	2.462	1.148	14.857
mean_tc_B	4.650	2.251	2.399	1.160	14.326
hybrid_meanG	5.228	2.323	2.904	1.377	14.611
gd_A	0.098	0.110	−0.012	0.025	−3.324
gd_B	0.100	0.108	−0.008	0.027	−2.030
gd_elite_mean	0.099	0.109	−0.010	0.018	−3.745
gd_pool_A	0.097	0.109	−0.012	0.025	−3.330
gd_pool_B	0.099	0.107	−0.008	0.027	−2.034
gd_pool_mean	0.098	0.108	−0.010	0.018	−3.775
GD_BS	0.146	0.134	0.012	0.013	6.672
F_ST	0.599	0.554	0.046	0.064	4.933

(b) What pooling the two pools buys

	cor_AB	sd_A	sd_B	sd_pooled	sd_if_independent
gd_elite	0.005	0.025	0.027	0.018	0.018
gd_pool	−0.007	0.025	0.027	0.018	0.018
mean_tc	0.907	1.148	1.160	1.127	0.816

```
loss <- function(arm, m) vapply(arms, function(a)
  (a[[arm]][[m]][1] - a[[arm]][[m]][last]) / a[[arm]][[m]][1], numeric(1))
loss_tab <- rbind(
    `pool A, selected` = c(mean = mean(loss("sel", "gd_pool_A")), sd =
stats::sd(loss("sel", "gd_pool_A"))),
    `pool A, control` = c(mean = mean(loss("ctl", "gd_pool_A")), sd =
stats::sd(loss("ctl", "gd_pool_A"))),
    `pool B, selected` = c(mean = mean(loss("sel", "gd_pool_B")), sd =
stats::sd(loss("sel", "gd_pool_B"))),
```

```
    `pool B, control`    = c(mean = mean(loss("ctl", "gd_pool_B")), sd =
stats::sd(loss("ctl", "gd_pool_B"))))
fmt(loss_tab, 3)
fig_cap <- paste0("Reciprocal recurrent selection over ", rrs_cfg[["n_cycles"]],
  " cycles at book scale, ", n_rep, " founder draws, selection (solid) against ",
  "the paired no-selection control (dashed); points are means over draws and ",
  "bars plus and minus one standard deviation across draws. Left: mean ",
  "testcross phenotype (trait 1, trait units) of all DH lines ",
  "tested that cycle, pool-A lines on pool-B testers ('A on B') and pool-B ",
  "lines on pool-A testers ('B on A'); both estimate the A x B hybrid level, so the
two curves ",
  "are not separate per-pool responses. Right: gene diversity (1 - mean ",
  "molecular coancestry) of the elite lines retained each cycle. Founders ",
  "from runMacs2(), so the curves are not reproducible from the seed.")
```

Table 9.23: Relative loss of gene diversity of the recombined pools from cycle 0 to cycle 4, (cycle 0 - cycle 4) / cycle 0, mean and s.d. over the 48 founder draws, per pool and arm. Not reproducible from the seed (MaCS founders).

	mean	sd
pool A, selected	0.561	0.086
pool A, control	0.507	0.073
pool B, selected	0.552	0.093
pool B, control	0.516	0.080

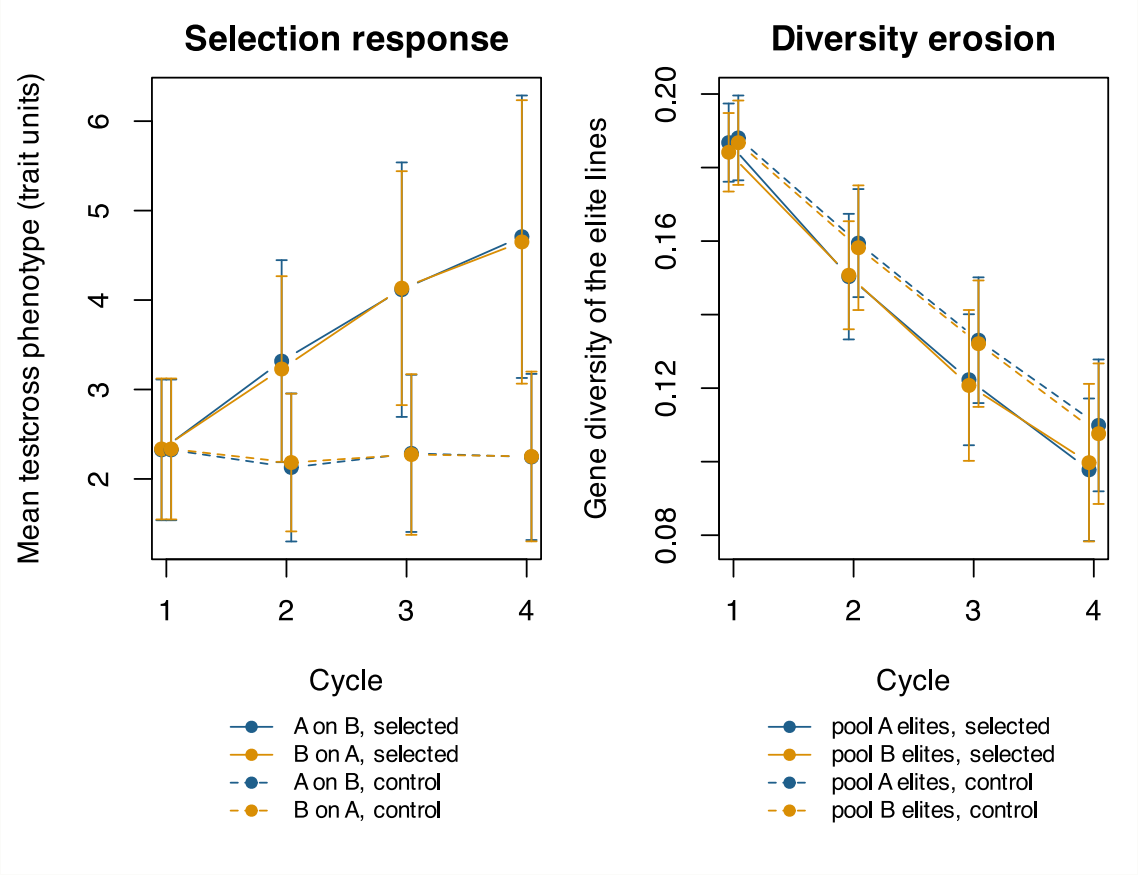

Figure 9.1: Reciprocal recurrent selection over 4 cycles at book scale, 48 founder draws, selection (solid) against the paired no-selection control (dashed); points are means over draws and bars plus and minus one standard deviation across draws. Left: mean testcross phenotype (trait 1, trait units) of all DH lines tested that cycle, pool-A lines on pool-B testers ('A on B') and pool-B lines on pool-A testers ('B on A'); both estimate the A x B hybrid level, so the two curves are not separate per-pool responses. Right: gene diversity (1 - mean molecular coancestry) of the elite lines retained each cycle. Founders from runMacs2(), so the curves are not reproducible from the seed.

What was measured (Figure 9.1, Table 9.22 and Table 9.23): over 48 paired replicates, the selected arm's mean testcross phenotype at cycle 4 differs from the control's by +2.46 (`mean_tc_A`, pool-A lines on pool-B testers) and +2.40 (`mean_tc_B`, pool-B lines on pool-A testers) trait units, with paired standard deviations of 1.15 and 1.16; the elite factorial's genetic value – the product – differs by +2.90 (`t = 14.6`). Gene diversity of the elite lines, averaged over the two pools, differs by −0.010 (paired s.d. 0.018, `t = −3.7`), and that of the recombined pools by −0.010 (`t = −3.8`). Between the pools, `GD_BS` differs by +0.012 (`t = 6.7`) and `F_ST` by +0.046 (`t = 4.9`). The two-sided 5 % point of `t` with 47 degrees of freedom is 2.01. Against it, in this render, the response – both testcross means and the product – is beyond it; the pooled elite-line gene-diversity difference is beyond it; the pooled recombined-pool difference is beyond it; the `GD_BS` difference is beyond it; the `F_ST` difference is beyond it.

Pooling the two pools' differences is not free noise reduction, and Table 9.22b (`pool_tab`) measures what it buys. Averaging halves the variance only if the two pools' paired differences are independent across founder draws. For the elite-line gene diversity they are correlated at 0, and the pooled standard deviation, 0.018, is close to the 0.018 it would be if they were independent: pooling does what it should there. For the testcross mean they are correlated at 0.91, and the pooled standard deviation is 1.13 against 0.82 if independent: pooling does not reduce that noise. The construction of the two statistics accounts for the correlation without any appeal to the founder draw: `mean_tc_A` is the mean of pool-A lines on testers from the current pool B and `mean_tc_B` the mean of pool-B lines on testers from the current pool A, so both are estimates of the same A x B hybrid level, and progress in either pool raises both (better lines in one statistic, better testers in the other). How much of the correlation is that and how much is the founder draw is not separated here. The `gd_A`/`gd_B` and `gd_pool_A`/`gd_pool_B` rows are per pool and show the asymmetry between two exchangeable pools that any one set of 48 draws produces; the `mean_tc_A`/`mean_tc_B` rows are not per-pool responses, for the reason just given. Table 9.23 says how much of the

pools' loss is selection: the control loses gene diversity too – 6 elites recombined into 12 individuals is a bottleneck whether or not the elites were chosen – and the selected arm's mean loss exceeds the control's, with the pooled `t` just stated as the evidence.

What is inferred: with real meiosis and a dominance trait behind it, the A x B hybrid level responds to reciprocal recurrent selection – both testcross means and the elite factorial's genetic value measure it – and at this replication that response is beyond `t_crit`. How much of it each pool contributes is not identified by these statistics: each testcross mean carries the progress of both pools, so a response in pool A alone would raise `mean_tc_A` and `mean_tc_B` together. Whether it spends within-pool diversity faster than the same bottleneck under drift alone is what the pooled gene-diversity `t` decides, and in this render it does for the elite lines and does for the recombined pools. Per founder draw, the ratio of the mean elite-line selection component to its paired standard deviation is 0.5, so a single draw does not settle its sign; the 48-draw `t` of −3.7 against `t_crit` = 2.01 is what decides it. Where the sign holds, the control isolates that component from the drift part, which is the distinction Chapter 23. draws with the package's own faster simulator over a longer trajectory and a grid of selection intensities, and Chapter 22. draws a third time in an inbred-line programme. The between-pool rows: the `GD_BS` difference is beyond `t_crit`; where it is, and positive, RRS is moving the pools apart faster than drift does, which is what a scheme selecting on the cross is expected to do. `F_ST` $= GD_{BS}/GD_T$ moves with its denominator as well, and `GD_T` of the recombined pools is not recorded in Table 9.22a, so `GD_BS` is the row read for divergence. What limits the inference is the scale – 12 founders per pool, 4 cycles, 2 testers at one location, 48 draws – and the fact that the founders come from MaCS, so both the numbers in this paragraph and any verdict that rests on a `t` near `t_crit` may differ between renders.

9.8.4 The final hybrid pool through `stage2_select()`, unchanged

`alphasimr_pipeline()` is the loop above without the instrumentation: founders, 4 cycles, then `alphasimr_make_hybrids()` testcrosses the final cycle's elites directly against each other – a full factorial between the 6 pool-A elites and 6 pool-B elites, so 36 commercial hybrids – and phenotypes them the same way every testcross in this chapter was phenotyped. `alphasimr_to_stage1()` then does the bookkeeping that makes this look like any other stage-1 output: it remaps AlphaSimR's internal line ids into the `1..n_A`, `n_A+1..n_A+n_B` convention `hybrids$line_A`/`line_B` and `fL` use elsewhere in the book, and builds `fL` by stacking the elite lines from *both* pools' genotypes into one matrix and computing a single joint coancestry matrix over all of them – not two separate per-pool matrices – which is what lets `theta_pools()` and the rest of the pipeline index into pool A and pool B lines with one consistent numbering. Table 9.24 shows both stages.

```
res <- alphasimr_pipeline(rrs_cfg)
fmt(res[["cycles"]], 4)
st1 <- res[["stage1"]]
# the contract holds one row per elite A x B hybrid
stopifnot(nrow(st1[["X"]]) == rrs_cfg[["n_sel"]]^2)
sel <- stage2_select(st1[["X"]], st1[["f"]], st1[["hybrids"]], n_sel = 8, fL =
st1[["fL"]],
                     verbose = FALSE)
fmt(sel[["metrics"]][, c("scenario", "alpha", "GD", "GD_BS", "F_ST", "index")], 4)
```

Table 9.24: `alphasimr_pipeline(rrs_cfg)` on one further founder draw, and `stage2_select()` on the stage-1 contract it returns. Not reproducible from the seed (MaCS founders). (a) Columns as in Table 9.20. (b) `stage2_select()` with `n_sel` = 8 of the 36 elite hybrids, one row per scenario: `alpha`, the diversity-loss budget; `GD`, `GD_BS`, `F_ST` of the selected set; `index`, the mean selection index of the selected set.

(a) Cycle trajectory, cycles 1 to 4

cycle	mean_tc_A	mean_tc_B	gd_A	gd_B
1	1.7324	1.8357	0.1993	0.1873
2	1.9681	2.1481	0.1447	0.1269
3	2.6506	2.9700	0.0909	0.0993
4	3.4513	3.5246	0.0709	0.0884

(b) Stage-2 selection on the elite hybrids

scenario	alpha	GD	GD_BS	F_ST	index
DE_alpha_0.00	−0.0033	0.2332	0.1664	0.7136	1.1658
DE_alpha_0.35	0.0010	0.2322	0.1652	0.7116	1.1901
DE_alpha_0.70	0.0010	0.2322	0.1652	0.7116	1.1901
DE_alpha_1.06	0.0087	0.2304	0.1664	0.7223	1.1919
DE_alpha_1.41	0.0141	0.2292	0.1699	0.7414	1.2258
ref_truncation	0.0141	0.2292	0.1699	0.7414	1.2258
ref_trunc_cap	0.0141	0.2292	0.1699	0.7414	1.2258
ref_max_div	−0.0317	0.2398	0.1562	0.6515	−0.3434
ref_random	−0.0163	0.2362	0.1618	0.6847	−0.5001

This is one more founder draw, so its trajectory is one more replicate of Figure 9.1, not the same run. Depending on the draw, `stage2_select()` may warn that the attainable `alpha` ceiling is at or below zero: with 36 hybrids over 12 lines, truncation on the index can pick a set no less diverse than a random one of the same size, and then the constraint has nothing to restrict and every `DE_alpha` row coincides with `ref_truncation`. That is the same ceiling Chapter 16. computes on the book's own data, where the pool is large enough for it to be positive. Nothing here is AlphaSimR-specific: `stage2_select()` never sees where `X`, `f`, `hybrids` and `fL` came from, only that they satisfy the contract stage 1 promises. `GD_BS`, the between-pool divergence that carries the heterosis signal (Chapter 12.), is computed from `fL` exactly as it is everywhere else in the book.

9.9 Assumptions, and what this adds over Chapter 6.

What is more realistic here. Actual recombination and linkage (a genetic map per chromosome, not independent markers), a trait with directional dominance so that testcross selection has something real to select on and heterosis and inbreeding depression have a value, outbred founder pools with a coalescent split behind them, and multi-generation recurrent selection with a paired control rather than one static pool.

What is declared, and where. Steps 2–6 use inbred founders from `quickHaplo()` with every site a QTL and dominance degrees drawn at `meanDD = 0.4`, `varDD = 0.1`; the "pools" of Steps 4 and 6 are two undifferentiated halves of one founder set. Step 7 uses a separate additive founder draw. Step 8 uses outbred founders from `runMacs2(split = )`, again with every site a QTL; its DH lines are fully inbred, its testers are outbred individuals, and every loss of diversity is measured against the same run's founders (cycle 0) and against the paired no-selection control – not against a random-subset null of the same size, which is the reference Chapter 16.'s `alpha` uses.

What is still simplified. Testers are the first 2 individuals of the *current* opposite pool, an arbitrary slice by index – not chosen at random or by merit, and not the elite inbred tester a real programme would use; because `randCross()` recreates each pool every cycle, the testers change from cycle to cycle, so successive cycles' testcross means are not on a common tester and are comparable only through the

pools' genetic level; there is one phenotyping environment (`setPheno()`'s error variance, no genotype-by-environment term – Chapter 22. adds one); the population-split coalescent history is a stylised divergence process, not calibrated to a named heterotic-pool pair; doubled-haploid production is instantaneous, skipping the field seasons Step 5 counted; and selection acts on trait 1 only – the 2 traits this chapter's config simulates are all carried through `X/hybrids`, but only the first ever enters the GCA ranking. The accuracy prediction of Step 6 is first order in the sample correlation – its finite-tester-pool and sample-variance corrections are applied, its second-order term is not – and the selfing trajectory of Step 5 follows 400 parallel lineages from one cross, checked at seven generations.

Scale. This chapter runs live at a book scale (12 + 12 founders, 750 markers, 4 cycles, 48 paired founder draws) – AlphaSimR is fast enough at this size that no caching is needed, unlike the marker-assisted backcrossing (MABC) scans in Chapter 8.. Step 8′s numbers may change on re-execution and do change between sessions, because its founders come from MaCS (Step 1); a mean over draws moves by the order of its standard error (the between-draw standard deviation above over the square root of the number of draws), and so may a conclusion that rests on a `t` near `t_crit`, which is why the chapter writes each such inference conditionally on the render's own `t`. A heavier, production-scale run is `inst/scripts/run_alphasimr.R`:

```
Rscript inst/scripts/run_alphasimr.R --test          # smoke run
Rscript inst/scripts/run_alphasimr.R --out=DIR        # full run
```

It runs `alphasimr_pipeline()` at a larger configuration, feeds the resulting hybrid pool through `stage2_select()`, and writes the cycle trajectory and selection metrics as CSVs.

9.10 Where this connects

Chapter 6. and Step 8 build the same three-object contract from two different generative models – the fast one and the realistic one – which is the point of drawing that seam where the book does: everything past it, `build_ctx()` through `stage2_select()`, cannot tell which one it is looking at. Chapter 5. is the algebra Steps 3, 4 and 6 verify against AlphaSimR: inbreeding depression against `genParam()`, expected heterosis against a full factorial, and the GCA/SCA decomposition against the exact combining abilities. Chapter 4. supplies the breeder's equation Step 6 checks and the index theory Step 7 uses; Chapter 24. is where Step 3′s `varA`-against-`genicVarA` gap becomes the subject rather than a diagnostic. Chapter 3. supplies the partition Step 8 measures across `split` and across cycles. Chapter 23. runs the same diversity-erosion argument at a longer horizon with the package's own faster simulator; this chapter is its cross-check against an engine with real meiosis behind it, and Chapter 24. uses this chapter's linked arm for the same reason.

Chapter 22., in the Evidence and practice part, is the other half of the method: the same primitives assembled into an inbred-line programme with staged yield trials, where the question is not which hybrids to sell but how fast a variety pipeline can run and what it spends to run faster.

This closes the Simulation part. The Metrics and prediction part that follows turns from generating populations to measuring their diversity, starting with Chapter 10..

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **04c-alphasimr-pipeline.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

IV Metrics and prediction

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10. Diversity metrics in the genomic era

The Simulation part produced populations whose true history is known; this part measures them, because a diversity metric can only be judged against a population whose drift and inbreeding are known independently of the metric.

In classical theory, inbreeding measured as **loss of heterozygosity** and inbreeding measured as **drift of allele frequencies** are the same thing. T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] show that inside genomic optimal-contribution schemes they stop being the same thing, and can diverge badly, whenever diversity is controlled through **identity by state** (IBS) on a marker panel. Only when control is through **identity by descent** (IBD) is the classical equivalence restored.

The practical consequence is uncomfortable:

> You hit exactly the target you wrote into the optimiser's constraint, and you pay an unmonitored price in the metric you did not write.

If you constrain $\frac{1}{2}\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{c}$ using a VanRaden $\mathbf{G}$ [18], you are constraining **drift**. The loss of heterozygosity in your germplasm may be running at a different rate, in either direction, from the one you believe you are controlling.

This chapter is written for one kind of programme, stated in full in Section 10.1: an allogamous, maize-type hybrid programme running reciprocal recurrent selection over two heterotic pools. The first half defines the metrics; the second half is the sequence of steps that puts them into a cycle report, with the check and the failure mode of each step.

10.1 The programme this chapter is written for

Every number below is computed under these assumptions. They are declared here because several of the results are false outside them. Chapter 1. describes the programme itself, stage by stage; this section states only what every number below assumes about it.

A1. The species is allogamous and the product is an F1 hybrid. Maize-type: two heterotic pools, A and B, crossed to produce single-cross hybrids. The commercial product carries the heterozygosity; the parents do not. Nothing here is addressed to a self-pollinated crop whose product is a line, and nothing here is addressed to a programme whose commercial unit is a synthetic or a population cross – both change which quantity is the product and therefore which loss matters.

A2. Parent lines are fully inbred, by doubled-haploid (DH) induction or by selfing to fixation. This is a property of the *programme*, not of the mating system: an allogamous crop bred for hybrids still delivers inbred parents. In this simulation the lines are homozygous at every locus, which the coancestry kernel reports exactly:

```
inb <- c(het_fraction_lines   = mean(L / 2 == 0.5),
         self_coancestry_min  = min(diag(molecular_coancestry(L / 2))),
         het_fraction_F1      = mean(ctx$X == 0.5),
        twice_GD_WI_hyb     = 2 * gd_partition(seq_len(ctx$N), ctx)[["GD_WI_hyb"]])
stopifnot(inb[["het_fraction_lines"]] == 0, inb[["self_coancestry_min"]] == 1,
          isTRUE(all.equal(inb[["het_fraction_F1"]], inb[["twice_GD_WI_hyb"]])))
inb  # verification echo: every value is asserted by the stopifnot() above
#>  het_fraction_lines self_coancestry_min     het_fraction_F1     twice_GD_WI_hyb
#>           0.0000000           1.0000000           0.3616896           0.3616896
```

Line heterozygosity is zero and every line's self-coancestry is 1, so individual-level inbreeding coefficients are 1 by construction and carry no management information. The F1s carry 0.362 of their loci heterozygous, and that fraction is exactly twice `GD_WI_hyb` – the identity Chapter 5. derives. **The manageable quantity is therefore an allele frequency in a pool, never a homozygosity within an individual.** Everything below is computed on frequencies.

A3. Germplasm is recycled within pool; only information crosses the pool boundary. Lines are chosen on hybrid performance against the opposite pool (R. E. Comstock, H. F. Robinson, and P. H. Harvey [7]) and recycled inside their own pool. A DH taken from an $A \times B$ F1 would be a blend of both pools and would destroy the heterotic pattern, so it never happens. `run_cycles()` in Chapter 23. implements exactly this loop.

A4. Cycles are discrete. Pool sizes are constant across cycles and no generation overlap is modelled. Real programmes overlap cycles and reuse the same line for years, which biases any ΔF read off a cycle index; see Chapter 24..

A5. Markers are neutral, biallelic, coded $0/0.5/1$ as the frequency of the reference allele within the individual, and are in linkage equilibrium within pool because each line's genotype is drawn independently per locus (`simulate_lines()`). Linkage equilibrium makes the audit step of Section 10.7.5 a best case, and that is said again where the number is reported.

A6. The frequency base p_0 is frozen at the founding cycle and never recomputed. This is `ctx$p0`, set once in `build_ctx()`. Section 10.7.1 is that step and measures what happens without it.

A7. No dominance enters any metric in this chapter. θ, gene diversity $GD = 1 - \theta$ and α are functions of allele frequencies alone. The dominance side of the same germplasm – what the divergence between pools is worth in heterosis – is Chapter 5., and the two must not be mixed inside one constraint.

A8. The scale is the book's teaching scale: 25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, 625 hybrids in the full factorial. The production scale, a declared programme size that no chunk of this chapter runs, is 71 + 71 lines and 25000 markers. Where a result is scale-dependent, it says so.

10.2 Three lenses, not three synonyms

Table 10.1 sets out what each lens sees, the inbreeding coefficient that reads it and the relationship matrices built on it.

Table 10.1: The three lenses of the section title, plus the hybrid of two of them: G_ROH reads homozygosity and is interpreted as IBD, which is why it gets a row of its own and not a lens of its own. G_0.5 [22] = 4f - 2J, an affine function of the matrix this book calls f – see Chapter 2..

Lens	What the metric actually sees	Inbreeding metric	Relationship matrix
Drift	squared allele-frequency change relative to a base	F_drift	G_VR2, G_VR1, G_i(p)
Homozygosity	proportion of heterozygosity remaining	F_hom	G_0.5 (affine in molecular coancestry)
IBD	segments inherited by descent from a defined base	F_IBD	A, G_LA
Hybrid	haplotype homozygosity used as a proxy for IBD	F_ROH	G_ROH

> ⚠ Every inbreeding metric is a ratio to a reference population
>
> Without explicitly declaring your base – cycle 0 of the recurrent programme? a landrace panel? the founding heterotic pool? – none of the numbers below mean anything. This is the commonest error in plant applications: using the *current* generation's frequencies as the base, which zeroes the historical memory of erosion. Section 10.7.1 measures the size of that mistake: it is not an attenuation, it is an exact zero.

10.3 The metrics, one at a time

10.3.1 Rate of inbreeding and effective size

What you manage is not F but its rate of accumulation, Equation (10.1). F is a stock; ΔF is a flow.

$$\Delta F = \frac{F_t - F_{t-1}}{1 - F_{t-1}}, \qquad N_e = \frac{1}{2\Delta F} \tag{10.1}$$

with $F_t \in (-\infty, 1]$ the inbreeding coefficient of cycle t against the frozen base (negative values are possible for F_{hom}, see Section 10.3.2), ΔF the per-cycle rate and N_e the effective size it implies [1, Ch. 3-4].

Since $1 - F_t = (1 - \Delta F)^t$, a regression of $\log(1 - F_t)$ on t has slope $\log(1 - \Delta F)$, so $\Delta F = 1 - e^{\text{slope}}$ and $-$ slope is only its first-order approximation. **The linearity of that regression is itself a diagnostic:** in T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15], $\log(1 - F_{drift})$ was approximately linear under every scheme, while $\log(1 - F_{hom})$ showed marked curvature under some, notably the one based on runs of homozygosity (ROH). Curvature means a non-constant rate – your N_e target is not being met steadily.

A tropical maize recurrent programme targeting $N_e = 50$ per cycle needs $\Delta F = 0.01$. Measuring F only at cycle 8 and dividing by 8 hides the possibility that cycles 1-3 were conservative and cycles 6-8 collapsed the base. Section 10.7.4 fits the regression on a case where the answer is known in advance, and then on one where the diagnostic has to fire.

10.3.2 `F_hom`, homozygosity-based

S. Wright [14] defined the inbreeding coefficient F as the correlation between uniting gametes; under random drift in a closed population its consequence is $H_t = H_0(1 - F_t)$, so F is the proportional loss of heterozygosity relative to the base [1, Ch. 3]. The homozygosity lens takes that consequence as its definition – the fraction of heterozygosity already lost relative to the base, Equation (10.2):

$$F_{hom} = 1 - \frac{1}{N_{SNP}} \sum_k \frac{2p_{t,k}(1 - p_{t,k})}{2p_{0,k}(1 - p_{0,k})} = 1 - \frac{1}{N_{SNP}} \sum_k \frac{H_{t,k}}{H_{0,k}} \tag{10.2}$$

with $p_{t,k} \in [0, 1]$ the frequency of the reference allele at marker k in the population being scored, $p_{0,k} \in (0, 1)$ the same frequency in the frozen base, $H = 2p(1 - p)$ the expected heterozygosity under random mating, and N_{SNP} the number of markers [15, their Eq. 1A defines it as the total marker count]. This book restricts the sum to markers polymorphic in the base, because $H_{0,k} = 0$ makes the ratio undefined otherwise – `freq_metrics()` does that with `keep <- ctx$p0 > eps & ctx$p0 < 1 - eps` – and the restriction changes nothing against their result, since their own panels were random samples of loci already segregating in the base population.

It can be negative. If management pushes frequencies toward 0.5, heterozygosity rises above the base and the "inbreeding coefficient" goes below zero. That is not a numerical error: it is the expected behaviour of any scheme that maximises heterozygosity on the monitored panel.

It protects against inbreeding depression and the expression of deleterious recessives in homozygosis. It is the right lens when the dominant risk is *vigour* – in this programme, the vigour of the segregating crossing block and not of the fixed lines, which is a narrower claim than it looks and is qualified at the end of this section.

10.3.2.1 What this lens is computed on, and what it is not

F_{hom} as `freq_metrics()` computes it takes p_t from `colMeans(X[idx, ])`: the reference-allele frequency of the **merged** hybrid set. With inbred parents that merged frequency is $\bar{p} = (\tilde{p}_A + \tilde{p}_B)/2$, with $\tilde{p}_A$ and $\tilde{p}_B$ the two pools' frequencies weighted by the line usage the selection induces. So the He column of the same call is $2\bar{p}(1 - \bar{p})$, which is $GD_T = 1 - \bar{f}$ of the Caballero & Toro partition [10] *identically*, not approximately: $\bar{f} = (\theta_A + 2\theta_{AB} + \theta_B)/4 = \bar{p}^2 + (1 - \bar{p})^2$ under A2.

That is gene diversity of the notional merged pool, and it is not the heterozygosity of the product. The realised F1 heterozygosity is $2\,GD_{WI\text{-}hyb}$ – exactly, by the self-coancestry identity of assumption A2 – and on the full factorial it equals $GD_T + GD_{BS}$, the between-pool component counted twice (Section 5.4). The difference between the two quantities is therefore GD_{BS}, which the F_{hom} lens does not carry, and which moves with the selection (Table 10.2 for the merged-pool quantities, Table 10.3 for the hybrid-level ones):

```
set.seed(31)
sels <- list(random     = sample.int(ctx$N, 60),
             max_div    = sel_greedy(ctx, 60, w = 0),
             balanced   = sel_greedy(ctx, 60, w = 1),
```

```
            truncation = sel_truncation(ctx, 60))
two_levels <- t(sapply(sels, function(i) {
  gp <- gd_partition(i, ctx)
  fm <- freq_metrics(i, ctx)
  c(He_merged = fm[["He"]], GD_T = gp[["GD_T"]], F_hom = fm[["F_hom"]],
    GD_BS = gp[["GD_BS"]], F1_het = mean(ctx$X[i, ] == 0.5),
    two_GD_WI_hyb = 2 * gp[["GD_WI_hyb"]],
    GD_T_plus_BS = gp[["GD_T"]] + gp[["GD_BS"]])
}))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(two_levels[, "He_merged"], two_levels[, "GD_T"])),
          isTRUE(all.equal(two_levels[, "F1_het"], two_levels[, "two_GD_WI_hyb"])))
fmt(as.data.frame(two_levels[, c("He_merged", "GD_T", "F_hom", "GD_BS")]), 4)
```

Table 10.2: Merged-pool level of diversity for four 60-hybrid selections from the teaching-scale candidate set (Section 10.1, A8): one random draw (seed 31), the max-diversity greedy (`w = 0`), the index-weighted greedy (`w = 1`) and truncation on the index. He_merged and F_hom: `freq_metrics()` on the merged hybrid frequencies against the frozen base; GD_T and GD_BS: `gd_partition()`. All dimensionless.

	He_merged	GD_T	F_hom	GD_BS
random	0.3257	0.3257	0.0115	0.0355
max_div	0.3302	0.3302	−0.0113	0.0361
balanced	0.3124	0.3124	0.0426	0.0524
truncation	0.3124	0.3124	0.0426	0.0524

```
fmt(as.data.frame(two_levels[, c("F1_het", "two_GD_WI_hyb", "GD_T_plus_BS")]), 4)
```

Table 10.3: Hybrid level of diversity for the four selections of Table 10.2. F1_het: fraction of heterozygous loci in the selected hybrids; two_GD_WI_hyb: twice the hybrid-level within-individual gene diversity (`gd_partition()`); GD_T_plus_BS: GD_T + GD_BS of Table 10.2. All dimensionless.

	F1_het	two_GD_WI_hyb	GD_T_plus_BS
random	0.3607	0.3607	0.3612
max_div	0.3707	0.3707	0.3664
balanced	0.3646	0.3646	0.3648
truncation	0.3646	0.3646	0.3648

The ranking below is read against a **resampled** null (Table 10.4), not against the single `random` row, for the reason Section 10.7.2 makes explicit. The null is the package's `null_distribution()`: random 60-hybrid subsets, the same object Section 10.7.2 reuses. Realised F1 heterozygosity is $2\,GD_{WI\text{-}hyb}$, asserted above, so its null is read off the `GD_WI_hyb` column:

```
null60 <- null_distribution(ctx, 60, B = 2000, B_full = 1000, seed = 7)
nl <- cbind(F_hom  = null60$full[, "F_hom"],
            GD_BS  = null60$full[, "GD_BS"],
            F1_het = 2 * null60$full[, "GD_WI_hyb"])
z_two <- sapply(colnames(nl), function(k)
  (two_levels[, k] - mean(nl[, k])) / stats::sd(nl[, k]))
share_two <- sapply(colnames(nl), function(k)
  sapply(two_levels[, k], function(v) mean(nl[, k] >= v)))
dimnames(share_two) <- dimnames(z_two)
fmt(rbind(null_mean = colMeans(nl), null_sd = apply(nl, 2, stats::sd),
          as.data.frame(z_two)), 4)
```

Table 10.4: Random-subset null for the selections of Table 10.2: mean and standard deviation of F_hom, GD_BS and realised F1 heterozygosity (twice GD_WI_hyb) over `B_full = 1000` random 60-hybrid subsets (`null_distribution()`, seed 7), then each selection's z-score against that null, in null standard deviations.

	F_hom	GD_BS	F1_het
null_mean	0.0069	0.0359	0.3617
null_sd	0.0038	0.0006	0.0011
random	1.2037	−0.5979	−0.8820
max_div	−4.7932	0.4738	7.8462
balanced	9.4079	27.4254	2.5147
truncation	9.4079	27.4254	2.5147

Two identities hold to machine precision in Table 10.2 and Table 10.3, and the `stopifnot()` enforces both on every render: $He = GD_T$, and the realised F1 heterozygosity equals $2\,GD_{WI\text{ - }hyb}$. The third comparison is *not* an identity on a selected subset: $GD_T + GD_{BS}$ departs from the realised heterozygosity by at most 0.0043 across these four rows, because GD_T and GD_{BS} are computed from line-usage weights – what a random re-pairing of the selected parents would give – while $GD_{WI\text{ - }hyb}$ scores the pairs actually chosen (Chapter 5. states the same limit from the other side).

Now read the ranking. The table has three distinct plans, not four: `balanced` (`w = 1`) returns exactly the truncation set, as Section 10.7.2 shows, so the two rows are identical in every column of both tables. Truncation has the **highest** F_{hom} of the three, 0.0426, which is 9.4 null s.d. above the resampled mean of 0.0069 and on the usual reading is "most heterozygosity lost". Yet its hybrids are *more* heterozygous than random subsets of the same size: realised F1 heterozygosity 0.3646 against a null mean of 0.3617, z = 2.51, reached or exceeded by 0.3% of the 1000 resampled subsets. The two readings are not in conflict because they are two quantities: truncation concentrated usage inside the pools (Section 10.7.6 measures that) and so lost merged-pool gene diversity, while the $A \times B$ pairs it kept are more heterozygous than random pairs, which is what the F1 heterozygosity column scores. GD_{BS} is not evidence for the second half: it is computed from line-usage weights, not from the pairs kept (see above), and it ranks the plans in the opposite order to F1 heterozygosity – truncation has GD_{BS} at z = 27.4 and F1 heterozygosity at z = 2.51, the max-diversity plan GD_{BS} at z = 0.47 and F1 heterozygosity at z = 7.85. The rise of GD_{BS} under truncation is the usage-concentration effect that Section 10.7.6 derives. The pair-level advantage of truncation is therefore real against the null but smaller than that of the plan built for diversity. Reported alone, F_{hom} would have called that plan the worst of the three for the very quantity – product heterozygosity – on which it beats the random-subset null. The size of that advantage is small (2.51 null s.d.) and is measured on one candidate set at the teaching scale. The `random` row, a single draw, sits at z = −0.88 on the same column, so a comparison against it alone would have overstated the advantage.

Within a heterotic pool under reciprocal recurrent selection, F_{hom} on the *pool's* own frequencies is still the right lens for one thing, and that one thing is narrower than it is usually stated to be. It is the **segregating crossing block**, which is not inbred and in which inbreeding depression is therefore expressed: $ID = 2F\sum_k d_k p_k q_k$ [1, Ch. 14], with d_k the dominance deviation at locus k, p_k and $q_k = 1 - p_k$ the pool's current frequencies, and $F \in [0, 1]$ the block's inbreeding coefficient relative to random mating at those same *current* frequencies – which is **not** the F_t of this chapter's two lenses, measured against the frozen base p_0, and the two must not be substituted for one another. Section 5.6 verifies that quantity against `heterosis_partition()`'s shared term. It is built from the same per-locus product $p_k q_k$ that F_{hom} aggregates – but weighted by d_k, which F_{hom} does not carry, so F_{hom} locates the erosion and does not price it.

It does **not** anticipate the per-se value of the inbred lines themselves. Under A2 a line has no heterozygous locus, so its dominance contribution is exactly zero whatever the pool's frequencies are – Section 5.6 measures that exact zero – and a fully homozygous genotype's value is therefore the additive sum $\sum_k a_k(2x_{ik} - 1)$ alone, the genotypic-value model of Chapter 5. with $x_{ik} \in \{0, 1\}$ at every locus and a_k the per-locus additive effect. Its pool mean moves with the frequencies in whichever direction they move, so there is no directional decline there for F_{hom} to anticipate. It also says nothing about between-pool divergence (Chapter 5.). Computed instead on the homozygosity of individual inbred parents it is 1 by construction – assumption A2 – and is **useless for management**. The mating system of the species does not rescue that: an inbred maize line is as fixed as an inbred wheat line. What distinguishes the

hybrid programme is that the pool of lines can be intermated, so the pool has a frequency vector worth managing even though none of its members does.

10.3.3 `F_drift`, drift-based

$$F_{drift} = \frac{1}{N_{SNP}} \sum_{k} \frac{(p_{t,k} - p_{0,k})^2}{p_{0,k}(1 - p_{0,k})} \tag{10.3}$$

with the same symbols as Equation (10.2).

Never negative. It has the algebraic form of the standardised-variance definition of F_{ST} – a variance of allele frequencies divided by $p_0(1-p_0)$, the form S. Wright [53] introduced and K. E. Holsinger and B. S. Weir [54] separate from the several other quantities that carry the same name – but applied to *one population through time* rather than to a set of populations in space. That is an analogy of form, not an identity: nothing here is a between-subpopulation variance, and the chapter's own F_{ST} column (Section 10.7.6) is the Nei G_{ST} [9] of `gd_partition()`, a different statistic on a different partition. F_{drift} is exactly the quantity constrained when `G_VR2` goes into the optimiser.

It protects against random change in phenotypic value for traits **outside** the selection objective, against rare deleterious recessives rising to dangerous frequencies, and against irreversible loss of rare alleles.

It must not be read as a measure of *this programme's* selection intensity, even though T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] offer exactly that reading for a locus under directional selection. They call $\delta p^2/[p_0(1-p_0)]$ "an approximation to the squared total intensity (i^2) applied to the marker" (citing A. Y. H. Liu and J. A. Woolliams [55] for the underlying non-linearity), and where the only thing moving frequencies is truncation selection on a trait, that reading is theirs to make. But F_{drift} is accumulated over **every** source of displacement a scheme has – selection, pure drift, and a diversity constraint that pushes frequencies on its own – and the three are not separable from the statistic alone. Section 10.7.4 runs a crossing block with **no selection of any kind** and F_{drift} climbs across the cycles to a value the step reports, which under an unconditional intensity reading would be a large intensity applied by nothing; Section 10.7.2's `max_div` plan moves F_{drift} by minimising coancestry, not by selecting on any trait. Even where selection is the only driver, the displacement is not a function of frequency alone: it depends on the average effect of a gene substitution at that locus, $a + d\,(q - p)$ [1, Ch. 7] – classically written α, which in this book is the diversity-loss statistic instead (Chapter 5. says the same) – and on the phenotypic standard deviation of the trait under selection, neither of which appears anywhere in F_{drift}. So an intensity read off `F_drift` alone, with no independent knowledge of what moved it, cannot be trusted, and this chapter does not attempt one. What constraining `F_drift` does constrain is the squared *displacement* of the genome from its base, whatever moved it.

A programme running six cycles of genomic selection with a VanRaden $\mathbf{G}$ and reporting $\Delta F \approx 1\%$ has reported ΔF_{drift} on the training panel. Quantitative disease-resistance loci not yet prioritised may have hitch-hiked to extreme frequencies alongside yield quantitative trait loci (QTL), and none of that appears in the reported metric.

10.4 The classical equivalence, and the covariance that destroys it

Under purely random drift, with $E[\delta p_t \mid p_0] = 0$ for every p_0,

$$\frac{\mathrm{var}(p_{t,k})}{p_0(1-p_0)} = 1 - \frac{H_t}{H_0} \Rightarrow F_{drift} = F_{hom}. \tag{10.4}$$

The paper's central result, Equation (10.5), quantifies the departure:

$$F_{hom} - F_{drift} = 2\,\mathrm{cov}\left(\frac{\delta p_{t,k}}{\sqrt{p_{0,k}(1-p_{0,k})}}, \frac{p_{0,k} - 1/2}{\sqrt{p_{0,k}(1-p_{0,k})}} \right) \tag{10.5}$$

[15, their Eq. 3], where $\delta p_{t,k} = p_{t,k} - p_{0,k}$ and the covariance is taken over markers with divisor N_{SNP} – which is why `freq_metrics()` computes it as `2 * mean(x * y)` and not with `cov()`. The two differ for two independent reasons: `stats::cov()` divides by $N_{SNP} - 1$, and $\overline{xy} = \mathrm{cov}_N(x, y) + \bar{x}\,\bar{y}$, so the product term vanishes only if *one of the two means* is zero – either will do, and neither is zero here.

In words: **if the direction of frequency change is correlated with the starting frequency, the two measures diverge.** The non-obvious part is that this covariance is induced by the *diversity management itself*, not by directional selection – T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] demonstrate this by running the scheme with random genomic estimated breeding values (GEBVs), and the divergence persists.

10.4.1 Verifying the identity

`freq_metrics()` returns all three quantities – Equation (10.2), Equation (10.3) and Equation (10.5) – in one marker sweep. The identity is asserted in `tests/testthat/test-lenses.R`; here it is on live data (Table 10.5, Table 10.6):

```
set.seed(31)
idx <- sample.int(ctx$N, 60)
fm <- freq_metrics(idx, ctx)
fmt(as.data.frame(t(fm[c("F_hom", "F_drift", "cov_diag")])), 6)
```

Table 10.5: F_hom, F_drift and cov_diag of one random 60-hybrid selection (seed 31) against the frozen base, from a single `freq_metrics()` call. Dimensionless.

F_hom	F_drift	cov_diag
0.011458	0.005192	0.006267

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(fm[["cov_diag"]], fm[["F_hom"]] - fm[["F_drift"]])))
# The two standardised marker vectors of Eq. 3, on the markers polymorphic in
# the base, so `2 * mean(x * y)` can be put next to `2 * cov(x, y)`.
keep <- ctx$p0 > 1e-6 & ctx$p0 < 1 - 1e-6
sdv  <- sqrt(ctx$p0[keep] * (1 - ctx$p0[keep]))
x    <- (colMeans(ctx$X[idx, keep, drop = FALSE]) - ctx$p0[keep]) / sdv
y    <- (ctx$p0[keep] - 0.5) / sdv
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(2 * mean(x * y), unname(fm[["cov_diag"]]))))
data.frame(value = formatC(c(
  F_hom_minus_F_drift = unname(fm[["F_hom"]] - fm[["F_drift"]]),
  cov_diag            = unname(fm[["cov_diag"]]),
  residual          = unname(fm[["cov_diag"]] - (fm[["F_hom"]] - fm[["F_drift"]])),
  mean_x              = mean(x),
  mean_y              = mean(y),
  two_times_R_cov     = 2 * stats::cov(x, y)), digits = 6, format = "g"))
```

Table 10.6: The identity of Equation (10.5) on the selection of Table 10.5, over the markers polymorphic in the base. F_hom_minus_F_drift and cov_diag: the two sides; residual: their difference; mean_x, mean_y: marker-wise means of the two standardised vectors of Equation (10.5); two_times_R_cov: `2 * cov(x, y)` with the n - 1 divisor of `stats::cov()`. Dimensionless, six significant digits.

	value
F_hom_minus_F_drift	0.0062665
cov_diag	0.0062665
residual	8.67362e-18
mean_x	−0.000772559
mean_y	−0.0100505
two_times_R_cov	0.00625421

Exact to machine precision, and the two `stopifnot()`s mean this page cannot render if it stops being. The last three rows of Table 10.6 are the point of the previous paragraph: neither marker-wise mean is zero, so `2 * cov(x, y)` returns 0.006254 where the quantity Equation (10.5) defines is 0.006267. And when the selection *is* the base, both lenses must read zero:

```
base0 <- freq_metrics(seq_len(ctx$N), ctx)[c("F_hom", "F_drift", "cov_diag")]
stopifnot(all(abs(base0) < 1e-12))
fmt(base0, 12)  # verification echo: asserted zero by the stopifnot() above
#>    F_hom  F_drift cov_diag
#>        0        0        0
```

10.4.2 Why each matrix generates a sign

Table 10.7 gives the sign of the covariance in Equation (10.5) that each relationship matrix generates when it is the constraint, and the mechanism.

Table 10.7: The sign of the bias is a property of the matrix, not of the data: sign of the covariance of Equation (10.5) generated by each matrix used as the optimiser's constraint. Mechanisms as set out by T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15], their Discussion and Supplementary Information 1; the di/dp expression in the last row is theirs, after A. Y. H. Liu and J. A. Woolliams [55].

Matrix	Covariance	Mechanism
G_VR2	positive	the constraint penalises delta-p^2, so moving an allele to the *far* extreme costs more than to the near one; the optimiser pushes rare alleles to 0 and common ones to 1
G_0.5	negative	frequencies are measured as deviations from 0.5, so the optimiser buys 'diversity' by pushing everything to intermediate frequencies
G_VR1	positive, attenuated	G_VR2 reweighted by 2p0(1-p0), giving more weight to already-intermediate loci and less room at the extremes
G_i(p)	negative	uses accumulated intensity instead of delta-p^2; since di/dp = [p(1-p)]^-1/2, moves toward the extremes get more expensive

⚠ Your minor-allele-frequency (MAF) spectrum decides how bad this is

T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] state this as an expectation rather than as a measured comparison: "the covariance generated is expected to be larger for WGS data where allele frequencies are extreme with typical MAF close to 0, than for SNP (chip) panels where allele frequencies are generally closer to 1/2" (their second Conclusion bullet), having observed that the strength of the covariance "depends on the distribution of $(p_0 - \frac{1}{2})$" (their Discussion). Their own simulation used four panels, all random samples of the same whole-genome sequence (WGS) data (a single-nucleotide polymorphism (SNP) panel for best linear unbiased prediction (SNP-BLUP), a neutral panel, a QTL panel and a second management panel) – none a SNP chip – so the comparison across a WGS panel and a chip panel is an inference from the algebra of Equation (10.5) and not a result of their experiment either.

The algebra can be made a number, which is worth doing because it decides whether `G_VR2` is usable. Apply one deterministic management rule – move every frequency 5% of the way toward 0.5, the caricature of a heterozygosity-maximising constraint used again in Section 10.7.4 – to a sequence-like panel whose folded site-frequency spectrum has density proportional to $1/[p(1-p)]$, and then to MAF-filtered subsets of the *same* draw (Table 10.8):

```
set.seed(21)
# Folded site-frequency spectrum with density proportional to 1/[p(1-p)] on
# [1e-3, 1 - 1e-3]: the logit of p is uniform. One draw, filtered four ways.
p_seq <- plogis(runif(2e5, qlogis(1e-3), qlogis(1 - 1e-3)))
maf_row <- function(floor, pull = 0.05) {
  p0 <- p_seq[pmin(p_seq, 1 - p_seq) >= floor]
  p1 <- p0 + pull * (0.5 - p0)                # the rule, applied exactly
  s2 <- p0 * (1 - p0)
  c(maf_floor = floor, markers = length(p0),
    kappa = mean((p0 - 0.5)^2 / s2),          # the panel's own weight
    F_hom = 1 - mean(p1 * (1 - p1) / s2),
    F_drift = mean((p1 - p0)^2 / s2),
    cov_diag = 2 * mean((p0 - 0.5) * (p1 - p0) / s2))
}
mafw <- as.data.frame(t(sapply(c(0.001, 0.01, 0.05, 0.20), maf_row)))
# Under this rule all three lenses are multiples of one panel statistic, kappa.
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(mafw$F_drift, 0.05^2 * mafw$kappa)),
          isTRUE(all.equal(mafw$cov_diag, -2 * 0.05 * mafw$kappa)))
keep0  <- ctx$p0 > 1e-6 & ctx$p0 < 1 - 1e-6       # as freq_metrics() drops them
kappa_book  <-  mean((ctx$p0[keep0]  -  0.5)^2  /  (ctx$p0[keep0]  *  (1  -
ctx$p0[keep0])))
fmt(mafw, 4)
```

Table 10.8: One deterministic management rule, every frequency moved 5% of the way toward 0.5, applied to a simulated sequence-like panel (200000 sites, folded spectrum with density proportional to 1/[p(1-p)] on [0.001, 0.999], seed 21) and to MAF-filtered subsets of the same draw. maf_floor: smallest minor-allele frequency kept; markers: sites retained; kappa: the panel statistic, mean of (p0 - 0.5)^2/[p0(1-p0)]; F_hom, F_drift, cov_diag: the three lenses after one application of the rule. Dimensionless.

maf_floor	markers	kappa	F_hom	F_drift	cov_diag
0.001	200000	35.7687	−3.4874	0.0894	−3.5769
0.010	132755	4.8542	−0.4733	0.0121	−0.4854
0.050	85382	1.1056	−0.1078	0.0028	−0.1106
0.200	40109	0.1761	−0.0172	0.0004	−0.0176

Under a rule of this form $\delta p = c\,(0.5 - p_0)$ the algebra is exact: $F_{drift} = c^2\kappa$ and `cov_diag` $= -2c\kappa$ with $\kappa = \overline{(p_0 - 0.5)^2/[p_0(1-p_0)]}$, the panel statistic the `stopifnot()` above verifies. Everything about the panel enters through κ, and κ is 32.4 times larger at a MAF floor of 0.001 than at 0.05 on the same draw: `cov_diag` moves from −3.577 to −0.111 for the same 5% pull. For reference, this book's own hybrid panel has $\kappa = 1.27$ over the 1934 markers polymorphic in the base, which sits at the chip-like end of that table – a consequence of the $U(0.05, 0.95)$ ancestral draw of `simulate_lines()`, not of anything biological.

Translated to plants, as a stated expectation and not as a measurement on real germplasm: genotyping-by-sequencing (GBS) or skim-seq retaining the full spectrum puts a programme at the high-κ end; a 20-50k chip filtered to MAF > 0.05 puts it at the low-κ end. The rule above is a caricature, not an optimiser, so the *ratio* between panels is the transferable part and the absolute values are not.

10.5 The other matrices, briefly

`F_IBD` via `G_LA`. Instead of assuming a 50/50 transmission probability for each parental allele (as the pedigree matrix $\mathbf{A}$ does), linkage analysis over the markers infers which parental haplotype was actually transmitted along the chromosome. It requires pedigree **and** markers. It measures IBD relative to a base explicitly defined as unrelated and non-inbred, so frequency change is determined by the base population rather than by linkage disequilibrium generated during selection – and the problematic covariance disappears. It was the **only scheme tested that met both the ΔF_{hom} and ΔF_{drift} targets**, on the managed panel and at unmonitored neutral loci. On gain it was not the highest in absolute terms; what T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] report is that at the *same* averaged inbreeding – interpolating each scheme's gain to the mean of F_{hom} and F_{drift} – `G_LA` beat $\mathbf{A}$ in 65 of 100 replicates and `G_ROH` in 62 of 100 (their Genetic Gain section).

For a hybrid programme this is the point of greatest friction, and also the one where the news is best. In biparental populations and backcross families `G_LA` is natural and cheap – phase is known and the number of meioses since the base is small. In a maize recurrent-selection population with a complete recycling pedigree – which a programme that records the F1 parents of every DH line has – it is feasible. In a germplasm panel *without* pedigree it is inapplicable, and the honest alternative is segment-based IBD.

`F_ROH`. A run of homozygosity is an uninterrupted stretch of homozygous markers; the logic is that many consecutive markers are unlikely to be IBS by chance, so the stretch is probably IBD. The fundamental ambiguity is that `F_ROH` is IBD when runs are **long** (recent inbreeding) and homozygosity when they are **short** (ancient inbreeding, accumulated IBS). The minimum-length threshold is therefore a knob that selects the *age* of inbreeding you are measuring, and there is no well-defined reference base.

Empirically, `G_ROH` behaved more like `G_0.5` than like an IBD measure. It also is **not guaranteed positive semi-definite** – its elements are computed pairwise – and required substantial diagonal additions for inversion, which made it diagonally dominant and artificially inflated the number of parents selected.

In an inbred parent line the entire genome is one ROH and $F_{ROH} \approx 1$: the metric saturates for exactly the reason assumption A2 makes every individual-level coefficient useless. Applied instead to the *hybrids*, or to the segregating crossing block from which DH lines are induced, it is useful for diagnosing erosion of an elite pool. For *management* inside an optimiser, check positive definiteness carefully – Section 10.7.7 shows the check.

10.5.1 Side by side

Table 10.9 summarises how each of the seven matrices behaved in the optimiser of T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15].

Table 10.9: Seven matrices in the same optimiser [15, their Tables 2 and 3, Figure 5 and Discussion]. The Behaviour column is qualitative and no number from either panel is transcribed in this table; where a rate is invoked (Table 10.10), it is always the *unmonitored neutral* panel N. The one exception is G_VR2's 'only on the managed panel', a paraphrase of their Discussion that reports a Panel M outcome without a Panel M number appearing anywhere in this chapter. Class is the lens the matrix is *computed* from, which is why G_ROH sits with homozygosity – the Hybrid row of Table 10.1 is the same matrix labelled by its intended *interpretation*.

Matrix	Class	Behaviour in the optimiser
A	IBD (expectation)	high gain, but exceeded both rate targets, the drift one by more, by not accounting for within-family linkage disequilibrium
G_VR2	drift	meets the drift target *only on the managed panel*; F_hom runs away
G_VR1	drift	reweighted version; smaller bias, smaller gain
G_0.5	homozygosity	misses the drift target by the widest margin of the nine schemes they ran; loses genetic variance early
G_i(p)	drift	inverts the sign of the bias; constraint only indirectly tied to F
G_LA	IBD	the only one meeting both targets; highest gain at equal averaged inbreeding
G_ROH	Homozygosity, read as IBD	high gain, uncontrolled drift, numerical problems

10.6 Reference results

Target $\Delta F = 0.005$ per generation ($N_e = 100$). Values at the **unmonitored neutral loci** (their Panel N), generation 20, as reported by T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15]. Table 10.10 transcribes four columns and derives one:

- `dF_hom`, `dF_drift` and `gap` are the three Panel N columns of their Table 2. `gap` is the *level* $F_{hom} - F_{drift}$ reached in generation 20, not a rate and not a difference of the two rate columns; it is `cov_diag` of Equation (10.5) accumulated over the 20 generations. Their reported standard errors are $< 2.5 \times 10^{-5}$ on the rates and $< 2.2 \times 10^{-4}$ on `gap`.
- `gain` is their Table 3: cumulative genetic gain after 20 generations, expressed in units of the **initial genetic standard deviation**, standard errors ≤ 0.004.
- `gain_per_dF` is computed here, not transcribed, and is **not** the device T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] use: their own interpolation (Genetic Gain section, their Figure 5) compares gains at a common generation-20 *level* of averaged inbreeding, $(F_{hom} + F_{drift})/2$ from their Table 3 – a stock – not at a common mean of the two *rate* columns used here. `gain_per_dF` is offered only as a same-chapter summary of Table 10.10, and reading 1 below states explicitly which ordering it does and does not support.

Table 10.10: Eight schemes of T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] at the unmonitored neutral loci (Panel N), generation 20. dF_hom and dF_drift: rates of inbreeding per generation on the two lenses; gap: level of F_hom - F_drift reached in generation 20; gain: cumulative genetic gain after 20 generations, in initial genetic standard deviations (their Tables 2 and 3). gain_per_dF: gain divided by the mean of the two rate columns, derived in this chunk. Both rate targets are 0.005 per generation; only G_LA meets both.

Scheme	Class	dF_hom	dF_drift	gap	gain	gain_per_dF
G_VR2(M,M)	drift	0.0103	0.0068	0.054	7.124	833
G_VR2(M,D)	drift	0.0101	0.0068	0.050	7.107	841
G_VR1(M,M)	drift	0.0080	0.0069	0.021	6.680	897
G_i(p)(M,M)	drift	0.0065	0.0077	−0.031	7.111	1002
G_0.5(M,M)	homozygosity	0.0073	0.0176	−0.170	6.734	541
G_ROH(M,M)	homozygosity	0.0054	0.0088	−0.070	9.099	1282
G_LA(M,M)	IBD	0.0043	0.0049	−0.010	7.188	1563
A(M,~)	IBD	0.0070	0.0084	−0.021	9.890	1284

Four readings:

1. **No IBS scheme met both targets; the IBD scheme `G_LA` met both**, the targets being ceilings [15, Conclusion]. On Panel N its `dF_drift` is 2% under 0.005 (their Table 2 gives the same 0.0049 for Panel M, not transcribed here, and their text states "within 2% of the target for both Panels M and N") and its `dF_hom` 14% under it (0.0043 against 0.005). It also has the largest `gain_per_dF`, 1563 against 1284 for **A** and 1282 for `G_ROH` – but that ordering is not robust to the denominator: against `dF_hom` alone `G_ROH` is marginally ahead (1685 against 1672). The claim that survives is the replicate-level one in reading 4, not a ratio of table means.
2. Pedigree **A** gave the highest absolute gain but overshot the 0.005 target by 40% on `dF_hom` and by 68% on `dF_drift` (Panel N; their Results text rounds both to 40%) – neutral loci hitch-hiking with QTL through within-family linkage disequilibrium, which the pedigree expectation of IBD cannot capture.
3. Using a separate panel for management instead of the GEBV panel changed gain by 0.24% (`G_VR2(M,D)` against `G_VR2(M,M)`). Not worth the complexity as a *gain* measure; it is still worth it as an *audit* measure, which is a different use and is the subject of Section 10.7.5 below.
4. At equal mean inbreeding, `G_LA` beat **A** in 65 of 100 replicates and `G_ROH` in 62 of 100.

Those are animal-breeding numbers under the assumptions of Section 10.9, and none of them is reproduced here. What follows is.

10.7 The monitoring protocol

Seven steps, in the order a cycle report is assembled. Each one names the function to call, the quantity to check, and what a failure looks like.

10.7.1 Step 1 – Freeze p_0 at the founding cycle

Both lenses are ratios to a base, so the base is the first thing a cycle report has to pin down. In this book it is `ctx$p0`, the candidate-pool allele frequencies, set once in `build_ctx()` and carried forward unchanged by `run_cycles()`.

At the hybrid level the base is not a free choice: on the full factorial it is the average of the two pool bases, exactly (Table 10.11).

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(ctx$p0, as.vector((P0["A", ] + P0["B", ]) / 2))))
# Unequal pool sizes, still a complete factorial: each pool-A line appears in
# n_pool_B hybrids and each pool-B line in n_pool_A, so the internal weight
# stays uniform within each pool and the identity is untouched.
cfg_u <- utils::modifyList(book_cfg, list(n_pool_A = 10, n_pool_B = 40))
ctx_u <- simulate_data(cfg_u)
Pu    <- pool_freqs(simulate_lines(cfg_u) / 2,
                    rep(c("A", "B"), c(cfg_u$n_pool_A, cfg_u$n_pool_B)))
# A balanced INCOMPLETE factorial -- not the full n_A*n_B hybrids, but each
# line still used equally often within its own pool (a cyclic 1-to-3 design,
# the shape of a real NCII): the identity does not need completeness.
k <- 3
idx_bal <- unlist(lapply(seq_len(book_cfg$n_pool_A), function(a) {
  bpart <- ((a - 1 + 0:(k - 1)) %% book_cfg$n_pool_B) + 1
  which(ctx$ped$a == a & ctx$ped$b %in% (bpart + book_cfg$n_pool_A))
}))
p_bal <- colMeans(ctx$X[idx_bal, , drop = FALSE])
# An UNbalanced candidate set with concentrated line usage: it is not.
p_sub <- colMeans(ctx$X[sel_truncation(ctx, 60), , drop = FALSE])
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(ctx_u$p0, as.vector((Pu["A", ] + Pu["B", ]) / 2))),
          isTRUE(all.equal(p_bal, as.vector((P0["A", ] + P0["B", ]) / 2))))
data.frame(max_abs_deviation = formatC(c(
  complete_balanced      = max(abs(ctx$p0 - (P0["A", ] + P0["B", ]) / 2)),
  complete_unequal_pools = max(abs(ctx_u$p0 - (Pu["A", ] + Pu["B", ]) / 2)),
  incomplete_balanced    = max(abs(p_bal - (P0["A", ] + P0["B", ]) / 2)),
  truncation_subset      = max(abs(p_sub - (P0["A", ] + P0["B", ]) / 2))), digits =
3, format = "g"))
```

Table 10.11: Largest marker-wise absolute difference between the hybrid-level base (column means of the hybrid set) and the average of the two pool bases (p_A + p_B)/2, in allele-frequency units, for four hybrid sets: the full factorial of the teaching scale (A8), a complete factorial with unequal pool sizes, a balanced incomplete factorial with every line in the same number of hybrids (sizes in the text below) and the 60-hybrid truncation selection. The first three are asserted equal to zero to numerical tolerance.

	max_abs_deviation
complete_balanced	1.11e-16
complete_unequal_pools	1.11e-16
incomplete_balanced	1.11e-16
truncation_subset	0.313

Each pool-A line appears in 25 hybrids and each pool-B line in 25, so a column mean over the factorial is $(p_A + p_B)/2$ with no weighting left over. Two consequences a breeder should read off this identity. First, freezing p_0 at the hybrid level freezes both pool bases *jointly*, so the hybrid-level lenses cannot attribute erosion to one pool – that is Section 10.7.6's job. Second – and this is the part that is easy to state wrongly – what the identity requires is **uniform line usage within each pool**, not completeness of the factorial as such. With 10 lines in one pool against 40 in the other, still complete, the identity holds to 1.1e-16. It

holds just as exactly (1.1e-16) on a **balanced but incomplete** factorial – 75 of the 625 possible hybrids, each line used exactly 3 times, the shape of a real North Carolina Design II (NCII) – because each pool's lines are still used equally often *within* that pool. What re-weights the two pools inside the base is unequal **line usage**, which a balanced partial factorial does not have and a selected subset typically does: the column means of the 60-hybrid truncation set depart from $(p_A + p_B)/2$ by up to 0.313 on a single marker, because truncation concentrates hybrids on a few high-value lines in each pool. A base computed on a set with unequal line usage is therefore a different base – which is the failure mode below, and not a property of the design being a factorial or not.

Now the failure mode. `build_ctx()` recomputes `p0 <- colMeans(X)` on every call, so rebuilding the context from the *selected* hybrids each cycle – which is what re-running a `G`-construction function per cycle amounts to – re-anchors the base on the population you were about to measure (Table 10.12):

```
i_md   <- sel_greedy(ctx, 60, w = 0)
Xs     <- ctx$X[i_md, , drop = FALSE]
rebase <- build_ctx(X = Xs, f = molecular_coancestry(Xs), G = NULL,
                    traits = ctx$traits[i_md, , drop = FALSE],
                    ped = ctx$ped[i_md, ], n_lines = ctx$n_lines,
                    pool = ctx$pool, fL = ctx$fL, cfg = NULL)
rb   <-   rbind(frozen_base   =   freq_metrics(i_md,   ctx)[c("F_hom",   "F_drift",
"cov_diag")],
                rebased       = freq_metrics(seq_along(i_md), rebase)[c("F_hom",
"F_drift", "cov_diag")])
stopifnot(all(abs(rb["rebased", ]) < 1e-12))
fmt(rb, 6)
```

Table 10.12: F_hom, F_drift and cov_diag of the 60-hybrid max-diversity greedy selection (`w = 0`) scored against the frozen base `ctx$p0` (frozen_base) and against a base recomputed from the selected hybrids themselves (rebased). Dimensionless.

	F_hom	F_drift	cov_diag
frozen_base	−0.011338	0.006019	−0.017357
rebased	0.000000	0.000000	0.000000

Not attenuated – **identically zero, both lenses**. A rebased report is not a conservative report or a noisy one; it is a report that cannot detect erosion at all, and it will look clean for as many cycles as you run it.

The check has to be on the base itself, and it has to be the right check. If the base is stored per cycle, comparing each cycle's vector with cycle 0's catches the failure; collapsing the whole history into a `range()` does not, because `range()` discards the cycle dimension and returns the marker-wise spread of p_0, the same number whether the base moved or not – here 1, the whole unit interval, because 66 of the 2000 markers are fixed in the candidate pool (Table 10.13):

```
chk <- function(h) {
  data.frame(
    all_identical_to_cycle0 = all(vapply(h, identical, logical(1), h[[1]])),
    max_abs_deviation       = max(vapply(h, function(p) max(abs(p - h[[1]])), 0)),
    collapsed_range         = diff(range(unlist(h))))
}
fmt(rbind(frozen  = chk(list(ctx$p0, ctx$p0, ctx$p0)),
          rebased = chk(list(ctx$p0, ctx$p0, rebase$p0))), 4)
```

Table 10.13: Three checks on a stored three-cycle history of the base: every cycle carrying cycle 0's p0 (frozen), and the last cycle carrying the rebased p0 of Table 10.12 (rebased). all_identical_to_cycle0: every stored vector identical to cycle 0's; max_abs_deviation: largest marker-wise absolute difference from cycle 0, in allele-frequency units; collapsed_range: range of the flattened history.

	all_identical_to_cycle0	max_abs_deviation	collapsed_range
frozen	TRUE	0.0000	1
rebased	FALSE	0.1233	1

The first two columns separate the two histories; the third is the same number in both rows, which is the whole point.

Call. `build_ctx()` once at cycle 0; pass `p0` forward (`run_cycles()` does this through its internal `cycle_ctx()`). **Check.** `identical(ctx$p0, p0_cycle0)` at every cycle – one `TRUE`, with no tolerance. With a stored history, `max(vapply(p0_history, function(p) max(abs(p - p0_history[[1]])), 0))`, which must be exactly 0. Never a `range()` over the flattened history. **Warning sign.** F_{drift} near zero in a cycle where line usage was visibly concentrated, or an F_{drift} series that does not accumulate across cycles. **Threshold.** There is none to tune: the correct value of the base drift is exactly zero.

10.7.2 Step 2 – Compute both lenses in one marker sweep

`freq_metrics()` is the single sweep: it computes He, `alleles_lost`, F_{hom}, F_{drift}, `cov_diag`, `cor_dp_p0` and `rare_retained` from one `colMeans(X[idx, ])`. Anything else needing the selected frequencies belongs inside it, not in a second function with its own sweep.

The pure max-diversity greedy is the `G_0.5` scheme in miniature: it constrains molecular coancestry and nothing else. Its signature has to be read against a **resampled** baseline rather than against one random draw, for the reason the numbers below make explicit. The baseline is the package's own `null_distribution()` (built in Section 10.3.2, 1000 resampled subsets of the same size), and the z-scores come from `discriminatory_power()`, so the comparison is the same machinery every scenario in Chapter 25. is reported through (Table 10.14, Table 10.15):

```
# `sels` and the random-subset null `null60` are built in @sec-era-fhom.
cols   <- c("He", "F_hom", "F_drift", "cov_diag", "rare_retained")
panel  <- t(sapply(sels, freq_metrics, ctx = ctx))[, cols]
fmt(rbind(null_mean = colMeans(null60$full[, cols]),
          null_sd   = apply(null60$full[, cols], 2, stats::sd),
          panel), 4)
```

Table 10.14: Both lenses and their covariance for the four 60-hybrid selections of Table 10.2: mean (null_mean) and standard deviation (null_sd) over the random-subset null of Table 10.4, then each selection's value. He: merged-pool gene diversity; rare_retained: share of the markers rare in the candidate pool that still segregate in the selection (`freq_metrics()`). Dimensionless.

	He	F_hom	F_drift	cov_diag	rare_retained
null_mean	0.3259	0.0069	0.0070	−0.0001	0.9583
null_sd	0.0008	0.0038	0.0014	0.0035	0.0229
random	0.3257	0.0115	0.0052	0.0063	0.9481
max_div	0.3302	−0.0113	0.0060	−0.0174	0.9481
balanced	0.3124	0.0426	0.0558	−0.0131	0.7338
truncation	0.3124	0.0426	0.0558	−0.0131	0.7338

```
z <- discriminatory_power(evaluate(sels, ctx, null60$gd_ref), null60)[, cols]
fmt(as.data.frame(z), 2)
```

Table 10.15: z-scores of the selections of Table 10.14 against the same random-subset null, from `discriminatory_power()`, in null standard deviations.

	He	F_hom	F_drift	cov_diag	rare_retained
random	−0.25	1.20	−1.26	1.80	−0.45
max_div	5.58	−4.79	−0.67	−4.92	−0.45
balanced	−17.06	9.41	35.08	−3.72	−9.81
truncation	−17.06	9.41	35.08	−3.72	−9.81

Result. The max-diversity plan drives F_{hom} negative, −0.0113, which is 4.8 s.d. below a null mean of 0.0069: the selection is more heterozygous on the monitored panel than the frozen base. Its `cov_diag` is −0.0174,

4.9 s.d. below a null centred on −0.0001. Its F_{drift}, however, is 0.006 against a null mean of 0.007: a z of −0.67, and 76% of the 1000 resampled subsets pay **more** drift than it does. Truncation is the row with the drift bill: F_{drift} = 0.0558, z = 35.1.

This is where one draw would have misled. The `random` row is a single subset, and its F_{drift} sits 1.3 s.d. below the resampled mean – *further* below it than `max_div` is – so a two-row `random`-versus-`max_div` comparison reports max-diversity as paying more drift than random, which the 1000-subset null says it does not. The failure is not the metric, it is the baseline: with a null s.d. of 0.0014 on a quantity whose value is 0.006, no single draw can serve as a control.

Interpretation, and what it does not license. At this scale, on a single selection from a fixed candidate set, **minimising** molecular coancestry (the `max_div` plan, `w = 0`, which maximises gene diversity `GD = 1 − theta`) buys a measurable divergence between the two lenses – the negative covariance that the `G_0.5` row of Table 10.7 predicts – and **no** measurable drift excess over random sampling. The drift excess T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] report for `G_0.5` (ΔF_{drift} = 0.0176 against a 0.005 target) is a 20-generation *cumulative* result under recurrent optimal contributions, where each cycle's frequency change compounds on the last; one subset drawn once from one candidate pool is not that experiment, and the honest way to run it here is the multi-cycle arm of Section 10.7.4, where the same pull toward 0.5 does produce a drift stock larger than the neutral one, accumulated at a rate that is not constant (both measured there). What survives at one cycle is the covariance, and a report carrying only F_{hom} would not show it.

One thing Table 10.14 quietly says about the *weight* rather than the metric:

```
# The balanced greedy (w = 1) and truncation return the same 60 hybrids.
stopifnot(identical(sort(sel_greedy(ctx, 60, w = 1)), sort(sel_truncation(ctx,
60))))
```

At this scale `w = 1` is not a compromise between index and coancestry – it returns the truncation set exactly, because the index is standardised to unit variance (`sd(ctx$index)` = 1) while the spread of θ across candidate subsets of the same size is 7.58e-04, the standard deviation of the `theta` column over the 2000 cheap-metric resamples of the same null. That is a ratio of 1319: three orders of magnitude, not two. A linear weight has to be calibrated to that ratio, which is why `sel_greedy_budget()` sweeps a *logarithmic* grid of `w` instead of trusting any single value.

Call. `freq_metrics(idx, ctx)` per cycle; `metrics_cheap()` if you also need the coancestry block, `metrics_full()` post-hoc for the expensive ones. **Check.** Both lenses present in the report, side by side, with the sign of F_{hom} preserved (never take an absolute value or clamp at zero). **Warning sign.** A single "inbreeding" column in the cycle report. If you cannot tell which lens it is, it is the one your constraint used, and the other one is unmeasured. **Threshold.** Not the ΔF target. Both columns here are *stocks* accumulated against the frozen base, and a stock cannot be compared with a rate – Section 10.7.4 opens on exactly that point. Within one cycle the reference is the resampled null of Table 10.14, i.e. the z-scores of Table 10.15, read on **both** lenses separately and never on their average. The comparison with the programme's ΔF budget requires a trajectory and happens only through the regression of Section 10.7.4.

10.7.3 Step 3 – Report the covariance, not just the two lenses

`cov_diag` is the gap between the two lenses, and by Equation (10.5) it is not an approximation of the gap – it *is* the gap, which the `stopifnot()` above enforces on every render. The operational point is that `cov_diag` is the only column that tells you *why* the two lenses disagree, and its sign identifies the mechanism from Table 10.7: negative means the management pushed frequencies toward 0.5, positive means it pushed them to the extremes.

Call. `freq_metrics(idx, ctx)[["cov_diag"]]`, already computed by step 2 at no extra cost; `cor_dp_p0` from the same call is the scale-free version. **Check.** `cov_diag == F_hom − F_drift` to machine precision. If it does not, the base and the frequencies were computed on different marker sets. **Warning sign.** |`cov_diag`| of the same order as the stock it is meant to explain. In the panel of Section 10.7.2 the max-diversity plan reports `cov_diag` = −0.0174 against an F_{drift} of 0.006: the discrepancy between the two lenses is 2.9 times the quantity being reported. **Threshold.** No absolute one, and not the ΔF budget – `cov_diag` is a stock like the two lenses it separates. Compare it with F_{drift} in the same row, as just done, and with the resampled null: the `null_sd` row of Table 10.14 puts the max-diversity plan 4.9 s.d. out, which is the statement that the covariance was induced by the management rather than by the sampling.

10.7.4 Step 4 – Regress $\log(1-F)$ on cycle, and read R^2

A single cycle's F is a stock and cannot be compared to a rate target. The rate comes from the trajectory. Before trusting the regression on a real programme, calibrate it on a case whose answer is known.

The known case is the drift model of Equation (1.4): with n_{gam} allele copies sampled per cycle, $\Delta F = 1/n_{gam}$ and $N_e = n_{gam}/2$, so a **crossing block** of n plants ($n_{gam} = 2n$, $N_e = n$) and a pool **re-derived as n doubled-haploid lines** ($n_{gam} = n$, $N_e = n/2$) differ by a factor of two. The DH regime is literally what `next_pool()` does in Chapter 23.: one Bernoulli draw per locus per new line. What this step adds is the calibration of the $\log(1-F)$ regression against those two known rates; Table 10.16 gives the crossing-block trajectory.

```
# One heterotic pool, n_gam allele copies sampled per cycle, n_cyc cycles,
# `reps` independent replicates. `pull` first moves every frequency a fixed
# fraction toward 0.5: a caricature of a heterozygosity-maximising constraint,
# not an optimiser.
pool_traj <- function(n_gam, m, n_cyc, pull = 0, reps = 20, seed = 11) {
  out <- vector("list", reps)
  for (r in seq_len(reps)) {
    set.seed(seed + r)
    p0 <- runif(m, 0.05, 0.95)
    s2 <- p0 * (1 - p0)
    p  <- p0
    rows <- vector("list", n_cyc + 1L)
    for (t in 0:n_cyc) {
      rows[[t + 1L]] <- data.frame(
        rep = r, cycle = t,
        F_hom    = 1 - mean(p * (1 - p) / s2),
        F_drift  = mean((p - p0)^2 / s2),
        cov_diag = 2 * mean((p0 - 0.5) * (p - p0) / s2))
      p <- rbinom(m, n_gam, p + pull * (0.5 - p)) / n_gam
    }
    out[[r]] <- do.call(rbind, rows)
  }
  do.call(rbind, out)
}

per_cycle <- function(tr, n_gam) {
  a <- aggregate(cbind(F_hom, F_drift, cov_diag) ~ cycle, tr, mean)
  a$expected <- 1 - (1 - 1 / n_gam)^a$cycle
  # One s.d. per lens: the two lenses are not equally noisy across replicates,
  # so a deviation has to be compared with the s.d. of the lens it came from.
  a$sd_hom   <- aggregate(F_hom ~ cycle, tr, sd)$F_hom
  a$sd_drift <- aggregate(F_drift ~ cycle, tr, sd)$F_drift
  a
}

# dF from the slope, not from its first-order approximation.
dF_fit <- function(a, col) {
  d <- a[a$cycle > 0, ]                # cycle 0 is identically zero by construction
  f <- lm(log(1 - d[[col]]) ~ cycle, d)
  b <- coef(f)[["cycle"]]
  c(dF = 1 - exp(b), Ne = 1 / (2 * (1 - exp(b))), R2 = summary(f)$r.squared)
}

n_line <- 50
n_cyc  <- 12
n_rep  <- 20
pull_m <- 0.05                         # the caricature pull of the managed arm
# Table captions of this step, built from the run parameters above.
seeds_traj <- formals(pool_traj)[["seed"]] + c(1, n_rep)
cap_block <- sprintf(paste(
  "Unmanaged crossing block of %d plants (%d allele copies sampled per cycle)",
```

```
  "over %d cycles: per-cycle means over %d replicates of %d loci (`pool_traj()`,",
  "seeds %d to %d) of F_hom, F_drift and cov_diag against the base frozen at",
  "cycle 0. expected: the closed form 1 - (1 - 1/n_gam)^t; sd_hom, sd_drift:",
  "between-replicate standard deviations of the two lenses. Dimensionless."),
  n_line, 2 * n_line, n_cyc, n_rep, book_cfg$m, seeds_traj[1], seeds_traj[2])
cap_nfit <- sprintf(paste(
  "Constant-rate fits of log(1 - F) on cycle (cycles 1 to %d) for both lenses",
  "of the two unmanaged arms: the crossing block of @tbl-era-traj-block (block)",
  "and the same %d lines re-derived as doubled haploids (dh). dF = 1 - exp(slope)",
  "per cycle, the implied Ne = 1/(2 dF), and R2."), n_cyc, n_line)
cap_managed <- sprintf(paste(
  "The crossing block of @tbl-era-traj-block with every frequency moved %g%% of",
  "the way toward 0.5 before each drift step: per-cycle means over the same %d",
  "replicates of F_hom, F_drift and cov_diag against the frozen base, and the",
  "between-replicate standard deviation of F_drift (sd_drift). Dimensionless."),
  100 * pull_m, n_rep)
cap_mfit <- sprintf(paste(
  "Constant-rate fits of log(1 - F) on cycle (cycles 1 to %d) for the two lenses",
  "of the managed arm (@tbl-era-traj-managed): dF = 1 - exp(slope) per cycle, the",
  "implied Ne = 1/(2 dF), and R2. Both R2 values are below the 0.995 threshold of",
  "@sec-era-step4, so neither dF is read as a constant rate."), n_cyc)
```

```
block   <- per_cycle(pool_traj(2 * n_line, book_cfg$m, n_cyc, reps = n_rep), 2
* n_line)
dh      <- per_cycle(pool_traj(n_line, book_cfg$m, n_cyc, reps = n_rep), n_line)
fmt(block, 5)
```

Table 10.16: Unmanaged crossing block of 50 plants (100 allele copies sampled per cycle) over 12 cycles: per-cycle means over 20 replicates of 2000 loci (`pool_traj()`, seeds 12 to 31) of F_hom, F_drift and cov_diag against the base frozen at cycle 0. expected: the closed form 1 - (1 - 1/n_gam)^t; sd_hom, sd_drift: between-replicate standard deviations of the two lenses. Dimensionless.

cycle	F_hom	F_drift	cov_diag	expected	sd_hom	sd_drift
0	0.00000	0.00000	0.00000	0.00000	0.00000	0.00000
1	0.01014	0.00992	0.00022	0.01000	0.00466	0.00046
2	0.02032	0.01971	0.00061	0.01990	0.00554	0.00065
3	0.02978	0.02963	0.00015	0.02970	0.00643	0.00099
4	0.03787	0.03898	−0.00111	0.03940	0.00772	0.00089
5	0.04759	0.04874	−0.00116	0.04901	0.00764	0.00112
6	0.05676	0.05802	−0.00126	0.05852	0.00852	0.00142
7	0.06557	0.06784	−0.00227	0.06793	0.00878	0.00179
8	0.07405	0.07722	−0.00317	0.07726	0.00918	0.00205
9	0.08414	0.08667	−0.00253	0.08648	0.00961	0.00293
10	0.09459	0.09600	−0.00141	0.09562	0.00995	0.00289
11	0.10342	0.10503	−0.00161	0.10466	0.01029	0.00284
12	0.11166	0.11411	−0.00246	0.11362	0.01160	0.00310

The `expected` column is the closed form, not a fit. Both lenses agree with it and with each other, in both regimes (Table 10.17, Table 10.18):

```
dev <- function(a) max(abs(c(a$F_hom, a$F_drift) - rep(a$expected, 2)))
# The deviation of a mean over n_rep replicates is scaled by the standard error
# of that mean, cycle by cycle and lens by lens (cycle 0 is exactly zero).
dev_se <- function(a) {
  d <- a[a$cycle > 0, ]
```

```
  max(abs(d$F_hom - d$expected) / (d$sd_hom / sqrt(n_rep)),
      abs(d$F_drift - d$expected) / (d$sd_drift / sqrt(n_rep)))
}
n_cmp  <- 2 * n_cyc                                  # 2 lenses x n_cyc cycles
z_bonf <- stats::qnorm(1 - 0.025 / n_cmp)            # two-sided 5%, Bonferroni
fit_n <- rbind(block_F_hom   = dF_fit(block, "F_hom"),
               block_F_drift = dF_fit(block, "F_drift"),
               dh_F_hom      = dF_fit(dh, "F_hom"),
               dh_F_drift    = dF_fit(dh, "F_drift"))
stopifnot(all(fit_n[, "R2"] >= 0.999), dev_se(block) < z_bonf, dev_se(dh) < z_bonf)
fmt(rbind(crossing_block = c(target_dF = 1 / (2 * n_line), target_Ne = n_line,
                             max_deviation = dev(block),
                             sd_hom_final = block$sd_hom[nrow(block)],
                             sd_drift_final = block$sd_drift[nrow(block)]),
          dh_pool        = c(1 / n_line, n_line / 2, dev(dh),
                             dh$sd_hom[nrow(dh)], dh$sd_drift[nrow(dh)])), 5)
```

Table 10.17: Calibration of the two unmanaged arms against the closed form. target_dF, target_Ne: the known rate and effective size (crossing block of n plants: 1/(2n) and n; pool of n doubled-haploid lines: 1/n and n/2); max_deviation: largest absolute deviation of either lens's replicate mean from the closed form over all cycles; sd_hom_final, sd_drift_final: between-replicate standard deviations of the two lenses at the last cycle. Dimensionless except target_Ne, in individuals.

	target_dF	target_Ne	max_deviation	sd_hom_final	sd_drift_final
crossing_block	0.01	50	0.00321	0.01160	0.00310
dh_pool	0.02	25	0.00522	0.01136	0.00658

```
fmt(fit_n, 5)
```

Table 10.18: Constant-rate fits of log(1 - F) on cycle (cycles 1 to 12) for both lenses of the two unmanaged arms: the crossing block of Table 10.16 (block) and the same 50 lines re-derived as doubled haploids (dh). dF = 1 - exp(slope) per cycle, the implied Ne = 1/(2 dF), and R2.

	dF	Ne	R2
block_F_hom	0.00979	51.09840	0.99935
block_F_drift	0.01007	49.65000	0.99996
dh_F_hom	0.01941	25.76038	0.99992
dh_F_drift	0.01987	25.16253	0.99998

For the crossing block the fitted rates are 0.00979 and 0.01007 against a target of 0.01, giving N_e of 51.1 and 49.7 against the true 50. For the DH-derived pool of the same 50 lines they are 0.01941 and 0.01987 against a target of 0.02, giving $N_e \approx 25$ against the true 25. In both regimes the largest deviation of either lens from the closed form (0.0032 and 0.0052) falls on the homozygosity lens; the drift lens deviates by at most 0.0005 and 0.0011. The yardstick for a deviation of a mean over 20 replicates is the standard error of that mean, the between-replicate s.d. divided by $\sqrt{20}$, taken per cycle and per lens: scaled that way the largest deviation over the 24 comparisons (12 cycles, two lenses) is 2.13 standard errors for the crossing block and 2.06 for the DH pool, both below the two-sided 5% Bonferroni bound for 24 comparisons, $z = 3.08$. The bound is conservative here because the comparisons are positively correlated (one trajectory per replicate feeds all cycles). The smallest R^2 of the four fits is 0.9993, and the chunk asserts $R^2 \geq 0.999$ on all four.

Two things to carry out of that. The regression recovers N_e to within the sampling noise of 20 replicates of 2000 loci, which is what licenses the R^2 threshold used below – *at this scale only*: 20 replicates, 2000 loci, 12 cycles, one pool, one seed family. And a pool maintained as doubled-haploid lines drifts at twice the rate of a crossing block of the same count, so a programme that recycles 50 DH lines per pool per cycle is running at $N_e \approx 25$, not 50. That factor of two is structural, not a simulation artefact: it is the homozygosity of the DH itself.

A third thing, which is what the F_{drift} section above needed and could not compute at that point in the chapter. At cycle 12 the unmanaged crossing block stands at $F_{drift} = 0.1141$ and the DH pool at 0.2142, with **no selection applied in any cycle of either arm**: `pool_traj(pull = 0)` is a binomial resampling of the previous cycle's frequencies and nothing else. A statistic that reaches those values under pure drift is not an accumulated selection intensity, and reading it as one would attribute an intensity to a process that has none.

Now the crossing block again with the caricature constraint switched on (right panel of Figure 10.1): every frequency moved 5% of the way toward 0.5 before each drift step, which is what a heterozygosity-maximising objective does to the frequencies without needing an optimiser to do it. Table 10.19 gives the trajectory and Table 10.20 the two constant-rate fits.

```
managed <- per_cycle(pool_traj(2 * n_line, book_cfg$m, n_cyc, pull = pull_m,
                               reps = n_rep), 2 * n_line)
fmt(managed[, c("cycle", "F_hom", "F_drift", "cov_diag", "sd_drift")], 5)
```

Table 10.19: The crossing block of Table 10.16 with every frequency moved 5% of the way toward 0.5 before each drift step: per-cycle means over the same 20 replicates of F_hom, F_drift and cov_diag against the frozen base, and the between-replicate standard deviation of F_drift (sd_drift). Dimensionless.

cycle	F_hom	F_drift	cov_diag	sd_drift
0	0.00000	0.00000	0.00000	0.00000
1	−0.05218	0.01222	−0.06440	0.00040
2	−0.09793	0.02661	−0.12454	0.00071
3	−0.13887	0.04265	−0.18153	0.00104
4	−0.17648	0.06062	−0.23710	0.00163
5	−0.20992	0.07989	−0.28981	0.00220
6	−0.24216	0.10079	−0.34295	0.00276
7	−0.26926	0.12213	−0.39139	0.00384
8	−0.29260	0.14298	−0.43558	0.00448
9	−0.31282	0.16482	−0.47764	0.00502
10	−0.33217	0.18661	−0.51878	0.00669
11	−0.35098	0.20884	−0.55982	0.00675
12	−0.36562	0.23091	−0.59653	0.00808

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(managed$cov_diag, managed$F_hom - managed$F_drift)))
fit_m  <-  rbind(F_hom  =  dF_fit(managed,  "F_hom"),  F_drift  =  dF_fit(managed,
"F_drift"))
# The calibrated threshold of this step (R^2 < 0.995 = non-constant rate) fires
# on both lenses of the managed arm, so no constant-rate dF or Ne is read off it.
stopifnot(all(fit_m[, "R2"] < 0.995))
inc_m   <- diff(managed$F_drift)                    # per-cycle increments
stock_m <- managed$F_drift[nrow(managed)] / block$F_drift[nrow(block)]
# Caption and alt text of the next figure, built from the run parameters.
cap_div <- sprintf(paste(
  "The two lenses on one heterotic pool over %d cycles, averaged over %d",
  "replicates of %d loci, against a base frozen at cycle 0. Points are replicate",
  "means, filled circles F_drift and triangles F_hom; no dispersion is drawn,",
  "the between-replicate standard deviations are in @tbl-era-traj-block,",
  "@tbl-era-traj-managed and @tbl-era-traj-targets. Left: a crossing",
  "block of %d plants (%d allele copies per cycle). Centre: the same %d lines",
  "re-derived as doubled haploids (%d allele copies per cycle), which drifts at",
  "twice the rate. In both, the closed form 1 - (1 - 1/n_gam)^t is the dashed",
  "line and the two lenses sit on it. Right: the crossing block with every",
  "frequency moved %g%% toward 0.5 before each drift step, where the",
  "homozygosity lens reports a gain of heterozygosity against the frozen base",
```

```
  "while the drift lens ends at %.2f times the unmanaged block's value and",
  "rises at a non-constant rate; the dashed line is the same neutral closed",
  "form, here a reference both lenses leave. Nothing is selected in any panel;",
  "the divergence in the right-hand panel is produced by the management rule",
  "alone."),
  n_cyc, n_rep, book_cfg$m, n_line, 2 * n_line, n_line, n_line, 100 * pull_m,
  stock_m)
alt_div <- sprintf(paste(
  "Three panels of F against cycle (0 to %d) for F_drift, F_hom and the",
  "neutral closed form: a %d-plant crossing block, the same lines as doubled",
  "haploids, and the crossing block with a %g%% pull toward 0.5, where F_hom",
  "falls below zero and F_drift rises above the closed form."),
  n_cyc, n_line, 100 * pull_m)
fmt(fit_m, 5)
```

Table 10.20: Constant-rate fits of log(1 - F) on cycle (cycles 1 to 12) for the two lenses of the managed arm (Table 10.19): dF = 1 - exp(slope) per cycle, the implied Ne = 1/(2 dF), and R2. Both R2 values are below the 0.995 threshold of Section 10.7.4, so neither dF is read as a constant rate.

	dF	Ne	R2
F_hom	−0.02335	−21.41636	0.96037
F_drift	0.02276	21.97079	0.99243

```
arms <- list(`crossing block` = block, `DH pool` = dh, `pull toward 0.5` = managed)
yl   <- range(unlist(lapply(arms, function(a) c(a$F_hom, a$F_drift, a$expected))))
op <- par(mfrow = c(1, 3), mar = c(4, 4, 2.5, 1))
for (nm in names(arms)) {
  a <- arms[[nm]]
  plot(a$cycle, a$F_drift, type = "o", pch = 19, col = book_pal[["loss"]],
       ylim = yl, xlab = "cycle", ylab = "F against frozen p0",
       main = nm)
  lines(a$cycle, a$F_hom, type = "o", pch = 17, col = book_pal[["ink"]])
  lines(a$cycle, a$expected, lty = 2, col = book_pal[["mid"]])
  abline(h = 0, col = book_pal[["light"]])
  legend("bottomleft", c("F_drift", "F_hom", "closed form"), bty = "n",
         cex = 0.75, pch = c(19, 17, NA), lty = c(1, 1, 2),
         col = book_pal[c("loss", "ink", "mid")])
}
par(op)
```

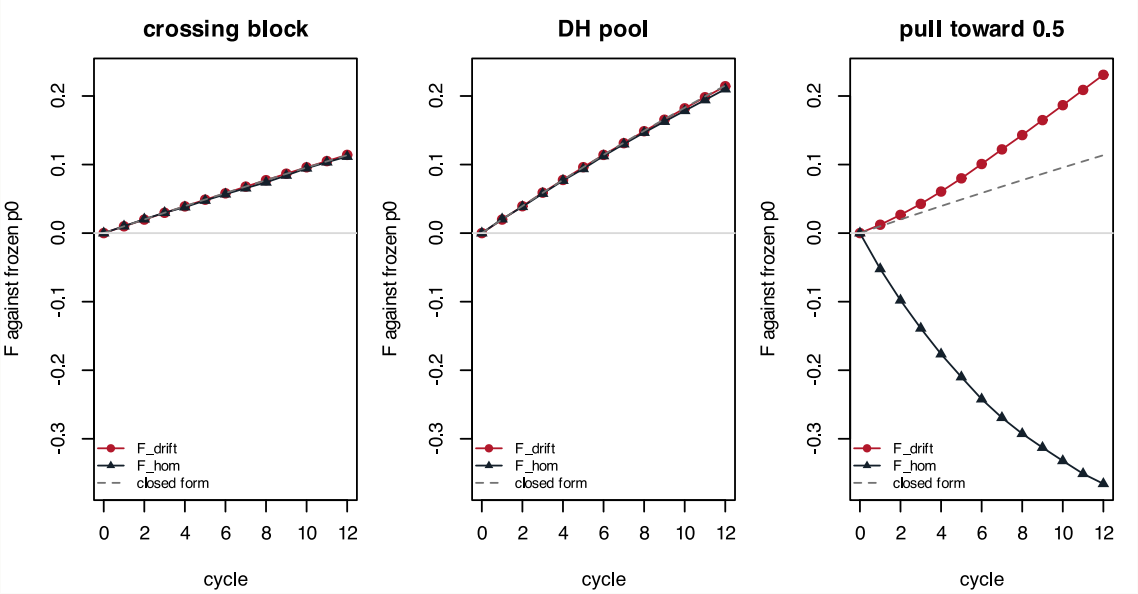

Figure 10.1: The two lenses on one heterotic pool over 12 cycles, averaged over 20 replicates of 2000 loci, against a base frozen at cycle 0. Points are replicate means, filled circles F_drift and triangles F_hom; no dispersion is drawn, the between-replicate standard deviations are in Table 10.16, Table 10.19 and Table 10.17. Left: a crossing block of 50 plants (100 allele copies per cycle). Centre: the same 50 lines re-derived as doubled haploids (50 allele copies per cycle), which drifts at twice the rate. In both, the closed form 1 - (1 - 1/n_gam)^t is the dashed line and the two lenses sit on it. Right: the crossing block with every frequency moved 5% toward 0.5 before each drift step, where the homozygosity lens reports a gain of heterozygosity against the frozen base while the drift lens ends at 2.02 times the unmanaged block's value and rises at a non-constant rate; the dashed line is the same neutral closed form, here a reference both lenses leave. Nothing is selected in any panel; the divergence in the right-hand panel is produced by the management rule alone.

Figure 10.1 puts the three arms side by side. At cycle 12 the managed pool reports $F_{hom} = -0.366$ and $F_{drift} = 0.231$, a gap of −0.597 which is exactly `cov_diag`. The calibrated diagnostic of this step fires on **both** lenses. On $\log(1 - F_{drift})$, $R^2 = 0.9924$, below the 0.995 threshold set below, against 0.99996 in the unmanaged arm; the per-cycle increment of F_{drift} rises from 0.0122 in the first cycle to 0.0221 in the last, because the deterministic displacement toward 0.5 compounds on the drift. The rate is therefore not constant, and this chapter does not convert the slope (0.0228 per cycle, an average over 12 cycles and nothing more) into an N_e. The comparison that needs no constant rate is the stock: at cycle 12 the managed pool's F_{drift} is 2.02 times the unmanaged crossing block's. The fit on $\log(1 - F_{hom})$ returns a **negative** rate, −0.0233, and therefore a negative N_e, which is the arithmetic telling you the series it was handed is not an inbreeding trajectory at all; R^2 falls to 0.96 on that lens against 0.99935 in the unmanaged arm.

The inference, and its limits: a rule that pushes frequencies toward 0.5 generates exactly the negative covariance that the `G_0.5` row of Table 10.7 predicts, and it does so with no selection whatsoever. T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] make the corresponding point with random GEBVs: their `G_VR2(~,M)` arm has no directional selection, although it still maximises an index (a random one), and the divergence persists. What this arm does **not** establish is the magnitude – `pull` = 0.05 is a stipulated caricature, not a fitted optimiser, and the stock ratio of 2.02 would move with `pull`, with n_{gam} and with the ancestral frequency distribution. The direction is algebra; the size is this parameterisation.

Call. `lm(log(1 - F) ~ cycle)` on cycles $1..t$, separately for each lens; $\Delta F = 1 - e^{\text{slope}}$, because $1 - F_t = (1 - \Delta F)^t(1 - F_0)$ makes the slope $\log(1 - \Delta F)$. The approximation $\Delta F \approx -$ slope errs by $O(\text{slope}^2)$, a relative error of about $\Delta F/2$ (1.01% at $\Delta F = 0.02$); Chapter 23. fits the same regression to `run_cycles()` output. **Check.** R^2 on both fits, and the sign of ΔF. **Warning sign.** A negative fitted ΔF (the series is not an inbreeding series), or an R^2 that is high while the two lenses disagree in sign – a smooth curve through the wrong quantity. **Threshold.** Calibrated above: a neutral trajectory at this scale gives $R^2 \geq 0.999$, so treat $R^2 < 0.995$ on an averaged series as a non-constant rate. R^2 says *that* the rate is not constant, not *why*: a decelerating, saturating series depresses it too, and Chapter 23. shows that case – there the diagnostic fires on the **unconstrained** run.

10.7.5 Step 5 – Audit on loci that did not enter the management

The constraint is met on the panel it is computed on. Whether it is met anywhere else is a separate measurement, and it needs loci the optimiser never saw. Split the marker panel in two, manage on one half, and read the report on the other (Table 10.21, Table 10.22):

```
mgmt  <- seq(1, ctx$m, by = 2)
audit <- seq(2, ctx$m, by = 2)
sub_ctx <- function(k) {
  build_ctx(X = ctx$X[, k], f = molecular_coancestry(ctx$X[, k]), G = NULL,
            traits = ctx$traits, ped = ctx$ped, n_lines = ctx$n_lines,
            pool = ctx$pool, fL = ctx$fL, cfg = NULL)
}
c_mgmt <- sub_ctx(mgmt)
c_audit <- sub_ctx(audit)
# The base of each half is the corresponding slice of the full base, and the
# index is untouched: only the marker set differs.
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(c_mgmt$p0, ctx$p0[mgmt])),
          isTRUE(all.equal(c_mgmt$index, ctx$index)))

i_div <- sel_greedy(c_mgmt, 60, w = 0)     # maximise diversity on the mgmt half
i_bal <- sel_greedy(c_mgmt, 60, w = 1)
cols <- c("He", "F_hom", "F_drift", "cov_diag")
aud <- rbind(max_div_managed = freq_metrics(i_div, c_mgmt)[cols],
             max_div_audit   = freq_metrics(i_div, c_audit)[cols],
             index_managed   = freq_metrics(i_bal, c_mgmt)[cols],
             index_audit     = freq_metrics(i_bal, c_audit)[cols])
fmt(as.data.frame(aud), 4)
```

Table 10.21: Split-panel audit. Two 60-hybrid selections made on the odd-numbered markers only (management half): the max-diversity greedy (`w = 0`) and the index-weighted greedy (`w = 1`). Each is scored on the management half (rows ending managed) and on the even-numbered markers it never saw (rows ending audit), against the corresponding slice of the frozen base. Dimensionless.

	He	F_hom	F_drift	cov_diag
max_div_managed	0.3333	−0.0300	0.0117	−0.0417
max_div_audit	0.3228	0.0221	0.0124	0.0097
index_managed	0.3120	0.0452	0.0580	−0.0128
index_audit	0.3129	0.0401	0.0536	−0.0135

```
gaps <- rbind(max_div = aud["max_div_audit", ] - aud["max_div_managed", ],
              index   = aud["index_audit", ]   - aud["index_managed", ])
fmt(as.data.frame(gaps[, c("F_hom", "F_drift")]), 4)
```

Table 10.22: Audit-half minus management-half value of F_hom and F_drift for the two selections of Table 10.21.

	F_hom	F_drift
max_div	0.0521	0.0007
index	−0.0051	−0.0043

Result. The plan that maximises diversity on the management half reports $F_{hom} = -0.0300$ there and $F_{hom} = 0.0221$ on the half it never saw: the sign reverses. Its drift readings are 0.0117 and 0.0124 – practically the same number on both halves, a gap of 0.0007 against 0.0521 on the homozygosity lens. The index-weighted plan, which optimises nothing about heterozygosity, has an F_{hom} gap of only −0.0051.

Interpretation. The homozygosity lens does not generalise off the panel it was maximised on, while the drift lens does; the gap is a property of having maximised, not of the marker set, which is why it

nearly vanishes in the index-weighted row. Two limits on that inference. First, in this simulation loci are in linkage equilibrium within pool (assumption A5), so the two halves are as independent as a split panel can be. With real linkage disequilibrium the audit half is correlated with the management half, the measured gap shrinks, and the audit becomes *less* sensitive: the gap measured here is close to an upper bound on what a real split panel would report, not a typical value. Second, this is a one-cycle, single-seed measurement at the teaching scale; the cycle-by-cycle version of the same audit is Chapter 23..

Call. Two contexts over disjoint marker sets, both anchored on slices of the same frozen p_0; `freq_metrics()` on each. **Check.** The F_{hom} and F_{drift} gaps between managed and audit halves. **Warning sign.** A sign reversal in F_{hom}, as above. Also a *large* gap in F_{drift}, which would mean the management is not even controlling drift off its own panel. **Threshold.** The gap should be within the sampling noise of the split. A cheap empirical reference: the `index` row of the same table, which had no heterozygosity objective at all.

10.7.6 Step 6 – Read the two pools separately, and never F_{ST} alone

Everything so far is a single-population reading. A hybrid programme has two, and they must be constrained in opposite directions: within pool, limit ΔF; between pools, *preserve* divergence, because that is the heterosis engine (Chapter 5. proves the identity, Chapter 13. Trap 3 states the prescription). A single global $\frac{1}{2}\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{c}$ cannot express that. Table 10.23 reads the two pools separately for four selections, and Table 10.24 gives the line usage behind them.

```
pool_row <- function(i) {
  c(GD = gene_diversity(i, ctx), index = mean(ctx$index[i]),
    theta_pools(i, ctx)[c("theta_A", "theta_B")],
    gd_partition(i, ctx)[c("GD_T", "GD_BS", "F_ST")],
    ne_lines_pool(i, ctx), Ne_parents = ne_parents(i, ctx),
    max_line = max_line_use(i, ctx))
}
set.seed(31)
pr <- rbind(random     = pool_row(sample.int(ctx$N, 60)),
            truncation = pool_row(sel_truncation(ctx, 60)),
            max_div    = pool_row(sel_greedy(ctx, 60, w = 0)),
            capped     = pool_row(sel_greedy(ctx, 60, w = 1, max_use = 4)))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(unname(pr[, "GD"]), unname(pr[, "GD_T"]))))
fmt(as.data.frame(pr[, c("GD", "index", "theta_A", "theta_B", "GD_T", "GD_BS",
"F_ST")]), 4)
```

Table 10.23: Pool-level diversity for four 60-hybrid selections: one random draw (seed 31), truncation on the index, the max-diversity greedy (`w = 0`) and the index-weighted greedy with at most 4 hybrids per line (`max_use = 4`). GD: 1 - theta from f; index: mean index of the selected hybrids, in index standard deviations; theta_A, theta_B: within-pool coancestry; GD_T, GD_BS, F_ST: the partition of `gd_partition()`. Dimensionless except index.

	GD	index	theta_A	theta_B	GD_T	GD_BS	F_ST
random	0.3257	−0.3178	0.7089	0.7108	0.3257	0.0355	0.1090
truncation	0.3124	1.9919	0.7581	0.7219	0.3124	0.0524	0.1678
max_div	0.3302	0.1343	0.7053	0.7066	0.3302	0.0361	0.1095
capped	0.3248	0.8204	0.7096	0.7153	0.3248	0.0372	0.1146

```
fmt(as.data.frame(pr[, c("Ne_lines_A", "Ne_lines_B", "Ne_parents", "max_line")]), 4)
```

Table 10.24: Line usage of the four selections of Table 10.23. Ne_lines_A, Ne_lines_B: effective number of lines used per pool; Ne_parents: effective number of parent lines; max_line: largest number of selected hybrids sharing one line. Ne columns in lines, max_line in hybrids.

	Ne_lines_A	Ne_lines_B	Ne_parents	max_line
random	19.1489	20.2247	39.3443	5
truncation	4.4888	11.8421	13.0199	23
max_div	18.9474	18.3673	37.3057	5
capped	15.5172	15.5172	31.0345	4

Two gene-diversity columns sit in Table 10.23 and they are the **same** quantity reached by two routes, which the `stopifnot()` in the chunk enforces on every render: `GD` is $1 - \theta$ from $\mathbf{f}$ over the selected hybrids (Chapter 11.), `GD_T` is $1 - \bar{f}$ from the line-usage weights of the Caballero & Toro partition, and both reduce to $\bar{p}_k^2 + (1 - \bar{p}_k)^2$ with $\bar{p}$ the usage-weighted merged frequency, because under A2 a hybrid's marker row is the average of its two parents'. It is the same identity as $He = GD_T$ in Section 10.3.2, and `GD`, `GD_T` and Nei's He [9] are one number on this germplasm. The columns that *are* a different quantity are GD_{BS} and F_{ST}: both are built from $\tilde{f} = (\theta_A + \theta_B)/2$, which no hybrid-level average can reproduce, and both are read below.

Result. Truncation on the index costs 4.1% of gene diversity against the random baseline – which is the α of Chapter 11., computed here on a single random draw rather than on the resampled `gd_ref` – and 5.4% against the max-diversity ceiling. Meanwhile θ_A rises to 0.7581 against $\theta_B = 0.7219$, and the effective number of lines used falls to 4.49 in pool A against 11.84 in pool B. One line appears in 23 of the 60 hybrids.

The dangerous column is F_{ST}. It *rises* from 0.1095 to 0.1678 under truncation, and so does GD_{BS}. Read as divergence, that looks like a gain in heterosis potential. It is not: by the Caballero & Toro definitions `gd_partition()` implements [10], $GD_{BS} = \tilde{f} - \bar{f}$ with $\tilde{f} = (\theta_A + \theta_B)/2$ and $\bar{f} = (\theta_A + 2\theta_{AB} + \theta_B)/4$, so concentrating usage inside *one* pool raises $\tilde{f}$ twice as fast as it raises $\bar{f}$ and therefore raises the between-pool component – even though the two pools' lines are unchanged and their coancestry matrix $\mathbf{f}^L$ is fixed. All that moved is the weight the selection puts on each line. F_{ST} then divides by a GD_T that fell at the same time – the `GD_T` column of Table 10.23, from 0.3302 to 0.3124 – which amplifies the artefact: the numerator rises by 45% while the denominator falls by 5%. A within-pool collapse and a genuine divergence are indistinguishable in F_{ST}, and only the separate θ_A, θ_B columns tell them apart.

The limitation to state here rather than hide: `freq_metrics()` computes its two lenses on `ctx$X` against `ctx$p0`, and Section 10.7.1 showed that hybrid base to be $(p_A + p_B)/2$. So F_{hom} and F_{drift} as this package computes them are **pooled over the two pools** and cannot, on their own, tell you which pool eroded. The pool-level attribution comes from three other places: θ_A and θ_B (`theta_pools()`), the effective number of lines used per pool (`ne_lines_pool()`), and the pool-level panel `s1_monitor()` returns from the line matrix (Table 10.25):

```
s1 <- s1_monitor(L / 2, pool, cycle = 0)
fmt(data.frame(value = unlist(s1)), 4)  # transposed: one row per quantity
```

Table 10.25: The pool-level monitoring panel `s1_monitor()` returns for the founding line matrix (cycle 0, both pools): within-pool and total gene diversity, two definitions of F_ST (Wright, Nei's G_ST), status number, per-pool gene diversity and between-pool complementarity of allele frequencies, one row per quantity. Ns_total: status number of the two pools together.

	value
cycle	0.0000
GD_within	0.2945
GD_total	0.3281
Fst_Wright	0.1858
Gst_Nei	0.1024
Ns_total	0.7442
GD_A	0.2953
GD_B	0.2937
frac_opposite_fixed	0.0000
mean_abs_delta_p	0.1982
mean_sq_delta_p	0.0672

The two panels are the same quantities computed from the two ends of the contract, and on the full factorial – where line usage is uniform – they agree exactly (Table 10.26):

```
gp_full <- gd_partition(seq_len(ctx$N), ctx)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(gp_full[["GD_T"]], s1$GD_total)),
          isTRUE(all.equal(gp_full[["F_ST"]], s1$Gst_Nei)))
fmt(data.frame(value = c(
  gd_partition_GD_T = gp_full[["GD_T"]], s1_GD_total = s1$GD_total,
  gd_partition_F_ST = gp_full[["F_ST"]], s1_Gst_Nei = s1$Gst_Nei,
  s1_Fst_Wright = s1$Fst_Wright)), 6)
```

Table 10.26: The two ends of the contract on the full factorial: GD_T and F_ST from `gd_partition()` over all hybrids, against GD_total, Nei's G_ST and Wright's F_ST from `s1_monitor()` over the founding line matrix of Table 10.25. Dimensionless.

	value
gd_partition_GD_T	0.328093
s1_GD_total	0.328093
gd_partition_F_ST	0.102400
s1_Gst_Nei	0.102400
s1_Fst_Wright	0.185777

Note which two agree. `gd_partition()`'s `F_ST` is GD_{BS}/GD_T, which is the Nei G_{ST} form, and it equals `s1_monitor()`'s `Gst_Nei` to machine precision; `Fst_Wright` is the other definition and is 1.81 times larger on the same germplasm. That is Chapter 13. Trap 2, and it is the reason to name the definition in the report rather than the symbol.

Call. `theta_pools()`, `gd_partition()`, `ne_lines_pool()`, `max_line_use()`, `ne_parents()` on the selection; `s1_monitor()` on the line matrix of each cycle. **Check.** θ_A and θ_B separately; GD_{BS} held in a band, not maximised; the number of distinct lines used per pool. **Warning sign.** F_{ST} rising while GD_T falls – almost always a one-pool collapse, not divergence. An `Ne_lines` asymmetry between pools of the size in the `truncation` row above (4.5 against 11.8). **Threshold.** A per-line usage cap is the direct instrument: the `capped` row is `sel_greedy(ctx, 60, w = 1, max_use = 4)`, which holds $|\theta_A - \theta_B|$ at 0.0056 and both pools above 15.5 effective lines, against an index of 0.82 where truncation reached 1.99. That index difference is the price, and Chapter 23. is where it is paid back or not. `max_use` defaults to `NULL` everywhere in this package, so the cap is opt-in.

The diagnostic nobody runs

Schemes based on IBD selected many parents in T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15]; VanRaden-style schemes selected few. If your optimal-contribution run is delivering high gain with a suspiciously small number of parents and ΔF on target, compute F_{hom} and F_{drift} separately on a panel **not used** in the management (Section 10.7.5). The difference between them is your hidden bill. This book's implementation is `ne_parents()`, which Chapter 25. reports alongside the two lenses for every scenario. Table 10.23 and Table 10.24 are the small version of the same diagnostic: between the `random` and `truncation` rows gene diversity falls by 4.1% while the effective number of parents falls from 39.3 to 13.0, which is 67% – the two relative drops differ by a factor of 16. A budget written on gene diversity alone is therefore a weak constraint on the parent count, and the `capped` row – the same greedy with `max_use = 4` – is what holding the parent count directly costs: 31.0 effective parents at an index of 0.82 where truncation reached 1.99. Measured on one candidate set at the teaching scale, with a single random draw as the `random` row.

10.7.7 Step 7 – Check the matrix you are about to invert

i An implementation note that is routinely ignored

`G_VR1`, `G_VR2`, `G_0.5` and `G_i(p)` are all only **semi**-definite positive, so every one of them needs α added to the diagonal ($\alpha = 0.01$ in T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15], their Methods) before it can be inverted and before the optimal-contribution algorithm will run. $\mathbf{A}$ and `G_LA` are positive definite by construction.

The mechanism is not the same for all four, and the difference matters here. T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] (their Methods) attribute the zero eigenvalue of all four to the centring of the genotypes; for `G_0.5` this chapter departs from that, and Table 10.27 shows why. For the centred VanRaden forms [18] it is the centring: $\mathbf{Z}$ is centred on the *population's own* allele frequencies, so its columns sum to zero over individuals, the constant vector lies in the null space and one degree of freedom is gone by construction. For `G_0.5` $= 4\mathbf{f} - 2\mathbf{J}$ – an affine map of the molecular coancestry this book calls $\mathbf{f}$, with $\mathbf{J}$ the $N \times N$ matrix of ones – it is **not** the centring: $\mathbf{f}$ is not centred on anything and stays in $[0, 1]$ by design (Chapter 2.), and `G_0.5` inherits non-zero row sums from it. Their deficiency has a different cause, derived below. Both statements are checkable:

```
Zh  <- ctx$X - 0.5
G05 <- 4 * ctx[["f"]] - 2                          # G_0.5 = 4f - 2J
rkf <- qr(ctx[["f"]])$rank
rkG <- qr(ctx[["G"]])$rank
rk05 <- qr(G05)$rank
# Identities: f is half plus a Gram matrix; VanRaden G sums to zero (centring).
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(ctx[["f"]], 2 * tcrossprod(Zh) / ctx$m + 0.5)),
          isTRUE(all.equal(G05, 8 * tcrossprod(Zh) / ctx$m)),
          abs(sum(ctx[["G"]])) < 1e-8,
          min(rowSums(G05)) > 0)
# Measured on this data set, not theorems: rank(G) = rank(f) - 1 and
# rank(G_0.5) = rank(f) (G_0.5 = 4 f - 2 J is affine in f, not equal to it).
stopifnot(rkG == rkf - 1, rk05 == rkf)
data.frame(value = formatC(c(
  f_equals_half_plus_gram = max(abs(ctx[["f"]] -
                                    (2 * tcrossprod(Zh) / ctx$m + 0.5))),
  f_rowsum_min            = min(rowSums(ctx[["f"]])),
  f_rowsum_max            = max(rowSums(ctx[["f"]])),
  G05_rowsum_min          = min(rowSums(G05)),
  G_sum                   = sum(ctx[["G"]]),
  G_rowsum_max_abs        = max(abs(rowSums(ctx[["G"]]))),
  rank_f = rkf, rank_G05 = rk05, rank_G = rkG, n_lines = ctx$n_lines, N = ctx$N),
digits = 4, format = "g"))
```

Table 10.27: Centring against structure on the full factorial. f_equals_half_plus_gram: largest absolute difference between f and 0.5 + 2 Z_h Z_h'/m; f_rowsum_min, f_rowsum_max, G05_rowsum_min: extreme row sums of f and of G_0.5; G_sum: sum of all elements of VanRaden's G; G_rowsum_max_abs: largest absolute row sum of G; rank_f, rank_G05, rank_G: numerical ranks (`qr()`); n_lines: parent lines L; N: hybrids. Four significant digits.

	value
f_equals_half_plus_gram	1.11e-16
f_rowsum_min	416
f_rowsum_max	424.6
G05_rowsum_min	414
G_sum	−4.179e-11
G_rowsum_max_abs	1.163e-13
rank_f	49
rank_G05	49
rank_G	48
n_lines	50
N	625

$\mathbf{f} = 0.5 + \frac{2}{m}\mathbf{Z}_h\mathbf{Z}_h'$ with $\mathbf{Z}_h = \mathbf{X} - \frac{1}{2}\mathbf{J}_{N\times m}$ (the hybrid marker matrix centred at 0.5, with $\mathbf{J}_{N\times m}$ the $N \times m$ matrix of ones), to machine precision – a Gram matrix plus the positive rank-one term $0.5\,\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}'$, hence positive semi-definite and with row sums nowhere near zero (`f_rowsum_min` above).

In a hybrid programme the deficiency is far worse than one zero eigenvalue, and it is structural rather than numerical. A hybrid's marker row is the average of its two parents' rows, so $\mathbf{X} = \frac{1}{2}\mathbf{B}\mathbf{G}^{L}$ with $\mathbf{B}$ the $N \times L$ parent-usage incidence matrix (a 1 in the two columns of its parents) and $\mathbf{G}^{L}$ the $L \times m$ line genotype matrix coded 0/1 of 2 (the `L / 2` object of `simulate_lines()`; the superscript keeps it apart from the $\mathbf{G}_{\bullet}$ relationship matrices of this chapter). With $\mathbf{J}_{r\times c}$ the $r \times c$ matrix of ones, the hybrid coancestry matrix is a Gram matrix, $\mathbf{f} = [\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{J}_{N\times m} - \mathbf{X}]\,[\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{J}_{N\times m} - \mathbf{X}]'/m$, so its column space is that of $[\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{J}_{N\times m} - \mathbf{X}]$. Every row of $\mathbf{B}$ has exactly two 1s, so $\mathbf{B}\mathbf{1}_{L} = 2\,\mathbf{1}_{N}$: the constant vector already lies in the column space of $\mathbf{B}$. Hence $\mathbf{X} = \mathbf{B}\mathbf{G}^{L}/2$ and $\mathbf{J}_{N\times m} - \mathbf{X} = \mathbf{B}(\mathbf{J}_{L\times m} - \mathbf{G}^{L})/2$ both have their columns in that space, and so does $\mathbf{f}$. That is a theorem, Equation (10.6), for any selection and any line genotypes:

$$\operatorname{rank}(\mathbf{f}) \le \operatorname{rank}(\mathbf{B}) \tag{10.6}$$

however many hybrids there are (and also $\le m + 1$, because every column of $\mathbf{J} - \mathbf{X}$ is $\mathbf{1}_{N}$ minus a column of $\mathbf{X}$; that second bound is not binding at this scale). The same argument covers `G_0.5` $= \frac{8}{m}\mathbf{Z}_{h}\mathbf{Z}_{h}'$, since $\mathbf{Z}_{h} = \mathbf{B}(\mathbf{G}^{L} - 0.5\,\mathbf{J}_{L\times m})/2$. Whether the bound is attained depends on $\mathbf{G}^{L}$ and is a measurement. Measured in Table 10.28 and Table 10.29:

```
incidence <- function(idx, ctx) {
  B <- matrix(0, length(idx), ctx$n_lines)
  B[cbind(seq_along(idx), ctx$ped$a[idx])] <- 1
  B[cbind(seq_along(idx), ctx$ped$b[idx])] <- 1
  B
}
# A separate set from the `sels` of @sec-era-fhom: these vary n_sel, which is
# the axis the rank depends on. Named apart so neither chunk shadows the other.
# set.seed(31) reproduces `sels$random`; random_20 gets its own seed.
set.seed(31)
r60 <- sample.int(ctx$N, 60)
set.seed(32)
r20 <- sample.int(ctx$N, 20)
rk_sels <- list(full_factorial = seq_len(ctx$N),
                random_60      = r60,
                truncation_60  = sel_truncation(ctx, 60),
                max_div_60     = sel_greedy(ctx, 60, w = 0),
                random_20      = r20)
rk <- do.call(rbind, lapply(names(rk_sels), function(n) {
  i <- rk_sels[[n]]
  data.frame(selection = n, n_sel = length(i),
             lines_used = length(unique(c(ctx$ped$a[i], ctx$ped$b[i]))),
             rank_f = qr(ctx[["f"]][i, i])$rank,
             rank_incidence = qr(incidence(i, ctx))$rank)
}))
rk$deficiency <- rk$n_sel - rk$rank_f
fmt(rk)
```

Table 10.28: Rank of the hybrid coancestry matrix f and of the parent-usage incidence matrix B for five selections: the full factorial, one random 60-hybrid draw (seed 31), truncation, the max-diversity greedy (`w = 0`) and one random 20-hybrid draw (seed 32). lines_used: distinct parent lines in the selection; deficiency: n_sel - rank_f.

selection	n_sel	lines_used	rank_f	rank_incidence	deficiency
full_factorial	625	50	49	49	576
random_60	60	47	46	46	14
truncation_60	60	33	32	32	28
max_div_60	60	43	41	41	19
random_20	20	27	20	20	0

```
# The theorem (B 1 = 2 1, so col(f) lies in col(B)) and, separately, the equality,
# which is measured, not proved.
```

```
stopifnot(all(vapply(rk_sels, function(i) all(rowSums(incidence(i, ctx)) == 2),
NA)),
          all(rk$rank_f <= rk$rank_incidence))
stopifnot(all(rk$rank_f == rk$rank_incidence))
# Full rank of a 20-hybrid subset is generic, not guaranteed: measured over
# n_draw independent random draws.
n_draw <- 1000
set.seed(33)
rk20 <- t(replicate(n_draw, {
  i <- sample.int(ctx$N, 20)
  c(rank_f = qr(ctx[["f"]][i, i])$rank, rank_B = qr(incidence(i, ctx))$rank)
}))
stopifnot(all(rk20[, "rank_f"] <= rk20[, "rank_B"]))
ev_min <- min(eigen(ctx[["f"]], symmetric = TRUE, only.values = TRUE)$values)
data.frame(value = formatC(c(
  full_rank_share     = mean(rk20[, "rank_f"] == 20),
  equality_share      = mean(rk20[, "rank_f"] == rk20[, "rank_B"]),
  min_rank_f          = min(rk20[, "rank_f"]),
  rank_full_factorial = rk$rank_f[1],
  n_lines             = ctx$n_lines,
  min_eigenvalue_f    = ev_min), digits = 3, format = "g"))
```

Table 10.29: Rank checks beyond the five selections of Table 10.28. Over independent random 20-hybrid draws (seed 33; their number is given in the text): full_rank_share, share of draws with rank(f) = 20; equality_share, share with rank(f) = rank(B); min_rank_f, smallest rank(f). On the full factorial: rank_full_factorial, rank of f; n_lines, parent lines L; min_eigenvalue_f, smallest eigenvalue of f, a numerical zero. Three significant digits.

	value
full_rank_share	0.904
equality_share	1
min_rank_f	18
rank_full_factorial	49
n_lines	50
min_eigenvalue_f	−4.28e-13

Result. In all five selections the rank of $\mathbf{f}$ equals the rank of the parent-usage incidence matrix exactly. On the full factorial that is 49 $= L - 1$ for 50 lines, against 625 hybrids: a deficiency of 576, with a smallest eigenvalue at −4.3^{-13}. The `random_20` draw, which uses 27 lines, is full rank. That is generic, not guaranteed: over 1000 independent random 20-hybrid draws (seed 33) 90.4% are full rank, the smallest rank is 18, and $\operatorname{rank}(\mathbf{f}) = \operatorname{rank}(\mathbf{B})$ in 100% of them.

Interpretation. The deficiency is not a rounding artefact and does not shrink with more markers; it is the factorial structure. N hybrids built from L lines live in an at most L-dimensional space, so any hybrid-level optimiser that needs $\mathbf{f}^{-1}$ must regularise, and the amount of regularisation required is predictable *before* any eigendecomposition: compute $\operatorname{rank}(\mathbf{B})$, which costs one `qr()` on an $N \times L$ 0/1 matrix. Two statements are asserted in the chunk and they have different standing. $\operatorname{rank}(\mathbf{f}) \le \operatorname{rank}(\mathbf{B})$ is the theorem of Equation (10.6), so $\operatorname{rank}(\mathbf{B})$ is a guaranteed upper bound on what the inversion has to work with. The equality `rank_f == rank_incidence` is a measurement – five selections plus 1000 random draws, at one scale and on one draw of line genotypes – and a set of lines whose genotypes are linearly dependent would break it without breaking the theorem. The rank deficiency is also the reason this book's selection machinery never inverts $\mathbf{f}$: `metrics_cheap()` and the differential-evolution (DE) fitness only ever evaluate the quadratic form $\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{c}$, which needs no inverse. The quadratic-programming routes do need a definite matrix, and both `optimal_contributions()` and `ocs_quadprog()` add `diag(1e-8, n)` for exactly this reason – 4.4 orders of magnitude above the numerical zero reported above, and small enough not to move the optimum. See Chapter 15. and Section 14.3.2.

Call. `qr()` on the usage incidence matrix, or on $\mathbf{f}$ restricted to the candidate set; `eigen(..., only.values = TRUE)` for the spectrum if you want the size of the numerical zero. **Check.** `rank(f) < n_sel`, and how far below. **Warning sign.** A quadratic-programming solver that returns without error

but with contributions concentrated on a handful of hybrids: a singular matrix makes the objective flat along $N -$ rank directions, and the solver will pick a vertex. **Threshold.** The added diagonal α must exceed the largest magnitude of the numerically-zero eigenvalues, here about 4^{-13}, by several orders of magnitude; $\alpha = 0.01$ on a matrix whose diagonal averages 0.82 is a perturbation of about 1.2% and must be documented as such, because it changes the optimum.

10.8 What not to do

Four recommendations that do not need their own step. Each one is labelled with what backs it, because they are not backed equally: one is measured in this chapter, three are positions taken by T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] and carried forward here as *their* argument, and none of the three has been tested on plant germplasm anywhere in this book.

Do not maximise marker heterozygosity as an objective. *Measured here:* raising heterozygosity on the monitored panel does not raise it at unmonitored loci – Section 10.7.5 measures the sign reversal, under linkage equilibrium, which makes it a best case. *Their argument, not measured here:* doing so also raises IBD-based inbreeding, because "changes in allele frequency result from multiple copies of a subset of base generation alleles, so increasing frequency is promoting IBD based inbreeding" [15, Discussion, Management of Diversity]. This book has no IBD route at all – every matrix in it is identity-by-state – so that half is a reason to distrust the objective, not a result reproduced here.

Region-specific diversity targets rarely earn their complexity. *Their argument.* T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] give two grounds in the same paragraph: that causative alleles of quantitative traits are quite evenly distributed across the genome (their Discussion, citing A. R. Wood and others [56] on human stature – an observation about one species and one trait, not about maize), and that "what happens in a sample of loci does not necessarily predict what happens at loci outside that subset", which is the claim Section 10.7.5 does test, at the marker level. They name the major histocompatibility complex as the case that *does* earn a constraint of its own; the plant analogue offered here is R-gene-type resistance loci, where allelic diversity has direct and known value. That analogy is offered as such, and nothing in this book measures it.

Deleterious recessives are a load problem, not a diversity problem. *Their judgement:* for regions carrying known recessive defects, "direct inclusion of the known defects in the breeding goal seems more effective in controlling their frequencies" than prioritising the region for diversity management [15, Discussion]. Neither they nor this book compare the two routes quantitatively, so read it as the expectation of the authors of the scheme, not as a measured efficiency. In a hybrid programme there is a second and independent reason, which follows from A1 and A2 rather than from anyone's judgement: a recessive carried at low frequency in pool A is masked in every $A \times B$ hybrid unless pool B carries it too, so the load is expressed in the crossing block and in the DH induction, not in the product.

In a pure conservation scheme the problem is expected to be *worse*, not better. *Their expectation, stated as one:* "the potential covariance between the change in allele frequency and the initial frequency is expected to increase, since the inbreeding management term is more important in pure conservation schemes" [15, Discussion], which is why they argue the IBD recommendation is stronger there. Their only arm without directional selection, `G_VR2(~,M)` with random GEBVs, still maximises an index, so no pure conservation scheme was run to test it; the sign of the mechanism is nevertheless the same algebra as everything above – a constraint that is the only thing moving frequencies is a constraint that generates the whole covariance.

10.9 Limits of the animal-to-plant transposition

Table 10.30 sets each assumption of the simulation of T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] against the situation in a hybrid crop programme.

Table 10.30: Assumptions of the simulation of T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15] (left) and the corresponding situation in a two-pool hybrid crop programme (right). The Ne_parents values in the fourth row are computed in Section 10.7.6 (Table 10.24) at the book's teaching scale.

Assumption in the paper	Situation in a hybrid crop programme
discrete generations, two sexes, one contribution per individual	same line reused for years, cloning of parents through DH maintenance, overlapping cycles, one line used in dozens of crosses
reliable, deep pedigree	recycling pedigree usually complete inside the programme, absent for introduced germplasm and genebank accessions
base = simulated founder population at mutation-drift equilibrium	base is an administrative choice (cycle 0) with pre-existing heterotic structure already in it
target Ne = 100 over 20 generations	shorter cycles with genomic selection; this book measures no commercial elite Ne, but Section 10.7.6's own teaching-scale example shows Ne_parents falling well below the pool size under plain truncation (39.3 to 13.0)
one population, one target	two heterotic pools with opposite-signed constraints, several target environments
heterozygosity is always desirable	desirable in the product, undesirable in the parents, irrelevant at the individual level once lines are fixed – and in none of the three cases is it what F_hom measures, which is merged-pool gene diversity (Section 10.3.2)

None of this invalidates the central conclusion. It is an **algebraic** property of the optimiser, not a biological property of the species. What it changes is *which matrix is practicable*, and – for a two-pool programme – that one global constraint is never enough.

10.10 Operational checklist

The protocol above, in one column, with the step that implements each item.

Check	Step
Is the base p_0 frozen at the founding cycle, and documented?	Section 10.7.1
Is the hybrid-level base the balanced average of the two pool bases?	Section 10.7.1
Are `F_hom` and `F_drift` computed **separately** and reported together?	Section 10.7.2
Is it recorded that `F_hom` is merged-pool gene diversity and **not** F1 heterozygosity, with GD_{BS} reported next to it?	Section 10.3.2
Is every single-cycle value compared with a **resampled** null rather than with one random draw?	Section 10.7.2
Is the sign of `F_hom` preserved rather than clamped?	Section 10.7.2
Is `cov_diag` reported as a diagnostic, with its sign?	Section 10.7.3
Is $\log(1-F)$ regressed on cycle, with R^2 shown, for both lenses?	Section 10.7.4
Is ΔF read as $1-e^{\text{slope}}$ rather than $-$ slope?	Section 10.7.4
Is there a panel of loci **not used in management**, for audit?	Section 10.7.5
Are θ_A and θ_B reported separately, never only F_{ST}?	Section 10.7.6
Is the number of parent lines used per pool biologically plausible?	Section 10.7.6
Is GD_{BS} held in a band rather than maximised?	Section 10.7.6

Check	Step
Is the matrix's rank checked before any inversion, and the added α documented?	Section 10.7.7
Is true genetic variance (or the best estimate of it) being tracked?	Chapter 4.
Where possible, is an IBD alternative compared in parallel?	Section 10.9

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **05-genomic-era.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

11. A catalogue of metrics on $\mathbf{f}$

Every metric in this chapter has the same signature, `f(idx, ctx) -> scalar`, and every one operates on the molecular coancestry matrix from Chapter 2.. That uniformity is not tidiness: it is what makes metrics interchangeable inside an optimiser, and it is what lets Chapter 12. benchmark them against each other on equal terms.

The chapter also settles the question of what "no loss" means, which turns out to be less obvious than it sounds.

11.1 Group coancestry, and the off-diagonal problem

The group coancestry [13] of a set S of n individuals is the mean of **all** n^2 elements, diagonal included:

$$\theta_S = \frac{1}{n^2}\sum_{i\in S}\sum_{j\in S} f_{ij} = \frac{1}{n^2}\,\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{f}_S\mathbf{1}. \tag{11.1}$$

It is the probability that two alleles sampled at random *from the whole set* are identical – including the possibility that both come from the same individual. That is why the diagonal enters: it is the chance of sampling the same individual twice, which is entirely real when the set is used as a crossing pool.

Splitting the diagonal mean $\bar{f}_d$ from the off-diagonal mean $\bar{f}_o$ of Equation (11.1),

$$\theta_S = \frac{\bar{f}_d}{n} + \frac{n-1}{n}\,\bar{f}_o. \tag{11.2}$$

So the off-diagonal mean – the metric many programmes already report – is one of two terms. When $\bar{f}_d$ varies little across individuals, which is the case in an all-F1 population, the two rank almost identically (Table 11.1).

```
# w = 0.001: the index is in s.d. units and a theta step is ~1e-5, so w = 1
# already reproduces truncation; 0.001 is a genuine trade-off point.
set.seed(42)
sels <- list(random     = sel_random(ctx, n_sel),
             trunc_cap  = sel_truncation_cap(ctx, n_sel),
             greedy_w   = sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = 0.001),
             greedy_div = sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = 0),
             truncation = sel_truncation(ctx, n_sel))
# the scale stated in this chapter's table captions
stopifnot(n_sel == 60, ctx$N == 625, ctx$n_lines == 50, ctx$m == 2000)

# @eq-catalogue-split on every selection
stopifnot(all(vapply(sels, function(s) {
  fS <- ctx[["f"]][s, s, drop = FALSE]; n <- length(s)
  isTRUE(all.equal(theta_group(s, ctx),
                   mean(diag(fS)) / n + (n - 1) / n * mean(fS[upper.tri(fS)])))
}, logical(1))))

cmp <- t(sapply(sels, function(s)
  c(theta = theta_group(s, ctx), offdiag = mean_offdiag(s, ctx))))
rank_cor <- cor(cmp[, "theta"], cmp[, "offdiag"], method = "spearman")
fmt(as.data.frame(cmp), 5)
```

Table 11.1: Group coancestry θ_S (Equation (11.1), `theta_group()`) and the off-diagonal mean $\bar{f}_o$ (`mean_offdiag()`). Five selections of $n = 60$ from the $N = 625$ hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight $\omega = 0.001$ (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone ($\omega = 0$); truncation, the top 60 on the index. The chunk asserts Equation (11.2) on every selection with `all.equal()`. Dimensionless, five decimals.

	theta	offdiag
random	0.67406	0.67161
trunc_cap	0.67522	0.67280
greedy_w	0.68429	0.68203
greedy_div	0.66976	0.66730
truncation	0.68759	0.68539

Over the five selections the Spearman rank correlation between θ_S and $\bar{f}_o$ is 1; five points are a check of the ordering, not an estimate of the correlation.

The off-diagonal metric ranks correctly. What it does not give you is an interpretable scale or a defensible baseline – which is what the rest of this chapter supplies.

11.2 Gene diversity: θ and H_e are the same quantity

This is the result that simplifies everything downstream. Write $x_{ik} \in \{0, 0.5, 1\}$ for the marker value of individual i at marker k, one of m markers. Starting from Equation (11.1) and swapping the order of summation, the double sum factors:

$$\frac{1}{n^2}\sum_i\sum_j x_{ik}x_{jk} = \Big(\frac{1}{n}\sum_i x_{ik}\Big)^2 = \bar{p}_k^2, \tag{11.3}$$

with $\bar{p}_k$ the **group's** allele frequency. Hence

$$\theta_S = \frac{1}{m}\sum_k \left(\,\bar{p}_k^2 + \bar{q}_k^2\,\right), \qquad GD_S = 1 - \theta_S = \frac{1}{m}\sum_k 2\,\bar{p}_k\bar{q}_k \equiv H_e, \tag{11.4}$$

which is exactly Nei's gene diversity [9]. **Group coancestry and expected heterozygosity are not two independent checks. They are one quantity written two ways.**

```
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(theta_group(idx, ctx), theta_from_freq(idx, ctx))),
          isTRUE(all.equal(gene_diversity(idx, ctx), he_nei(idx, ctx))))
c(via_submatrix = theta_group(idx, ctx),
  via_frequency = theta_from_freq(idx, ctx),
  difference    = theta_group(idx, ctx) - theta_from_freq(idx, ctx))
#> via_submatrix via_frequency    difference
#>     0.6734562     0.6734562     0.0000000

c(GD = gene_diversity(idx, ctx), He_Nei = he_nei(idx, ctx))
#>        GD    He_Nei
#> 0.3265438 0.3265438
```

The chunk asserts both equalities with `all.equal()` at its default relative tolerance, 1.5×10^{-8}; the printed difference is 0. This equality is the implementation's strongest sanity check. If it fails, `f` is centered, rescaled, or built on the wrong marker coding.

Three practical consequences:

1. One fewer metric to justify to a technical committee.
2. "Losing 5 % of diversity" acquires an exact meaning: 5 % of the set's expected heterozygosity.
3. Two computation routes with the same answer and very different costs. The matrix route is $O(n^2)$; the frequency route is $O(nm)$. For $n = 200$ and $m = 25000$ that is forty thousand operations against five million.

```
# adaptive repetitions: a fixed count is quantised by the clock (cf. bench_us()
# in book/scripts/regenerate.R)
bench_us <- function(f, target = 0.4) {
  r <- 50L
  repeat {
    t <- system.time(for (i in seq_len(r)) f())[["elapsed"]]
    if (t > target || r > 2e6) return(1e6 * t / r)
    r <- r * 4L
  }
}
us_matrix    <- bench_us(function() theta_group(idx, ctx))
us_frequency <- bench_us(function() theta_from_freq(idx, ctx))
c(us_matrix = us_matrix, us_frequency = us_frequency,
  ratio = us_frequency / us_matrix)
#>    us_matrix us_frequency        ratio
#>     8.300781   134.375000    16.188235
```

The matrix route is the one that belongs in an optimiser's inner loop. Section 12.1 makes it cheaper still.

11.3 Status number N_s

D. Lindgren, L. D. Gea, and P. A. Jefferson [19] express group coancestry on the scale of individual counts:

$$N_s = \frac{1}{2\theta_S}. \tag{11.5}$$

N_s reads as a head count only on coancestry measured against a base population, in which unrelated non-inbred individuals have coancestry 0 with each other and $1/2$ with themselves: a set of n of them has $\theta_S = 1/(2n)$ and $N_s = n$. Molecular $\mathbf{f}$ has no base. By Equation (11.4), $\theta_S = m^{-1}\sum_k(\bar{p}_k^2 + \bar{q}_k^2)$, and $\bar{p}_k^2 + \bar{q}_k^2 \geq 1/2$ at every biallelic locus, so on $\mathbf{f}$ $\theta_S \in [1/2, 1]$ and $N_s \in [1/2, 1]$ for every set. Here N_s is a monotone decreasing rescaling of θ_S, not a number of individuals. The two edge cases are the two bounds:

```
fake <- ctx
fake$f <- matrix(0.5, 5, 5)     # every group frequency 0.5: theta at its lower bound
c(theta = theta_group(1:5, fake), Ns = status_number(1:5, fake))
#> theta    Ns
#>   0.5   1.0

fake$f <- matrix(1, 5, 5)          # all identical and homozygous: theta at its
upper bound
c(theta = theta_group(1:5, fake), Ns = status_number(1:5, fake))
#> theta    Ns
#>   1.0   0.5
```

Five individuals give $N_s = 1$, not 5. The five selections of this chapter fall between 0.727 and 0.747.

> ⚠ N_s is a descriptor, not a drift projection
>
> M. A. Toro, B. Villanueva, and J. Fernández [57] show that the **rate-based** effective size $N_e = 1/(2\Delta F)$ loses meaning under molecular diversity management: optimisation increases diversity in early generations, producing a negative ΔF and therefore a negative N_e, with no long-term asymptote.
>
> This does not invalidate N_s. N_s is a monotonic reparametrisation of θ – a *static descriptor of a set* – while N_e is a *rate between generations*. Use N_s to compare sets; do not extrapolate it to project future drift. For the same reason, do not substitute the linkage-disequilibrium N_e here: that estimates population history, not the composition of a selected sample.

And, from Chapter 10.: θ tracks homozygosity, not drift. GD and N_s answer "how much heterozygosity does this selection preserve", which is the right question for next season's hybrid vigour. They do not

certify that allele frequencies are moving as unmanaged drift would have moved them, which matters more across multiple recurrent cycles than for a single round of hybrid selection.

11.4 Effective number of parents

A metric independent of $\mathbf{f}$, computed purely from the pedigree. With p_i the frequency with which line i appears as a parent among the selected hybrids,

$$N_{e,\mathrm{par}} = \frac{1}{\sum_i p_i^2}, \tag{11.6}$$

the reciprocal of Simpson's concentration index $\sum_i p_i^2$ [58]; in pedigree analysis the same form, over founder contributions, gives the founder equivalents of R. C. Lacy [59]. It captures precisely what coancestry blurs: a set of 200 hybrids can have an acceptable θ while drawing on only 12 lines, if those 12 happen to be genetically distant from each other. Table 11.2 gives it for the five selections. It is bounded above by the number of lines, 50, a bound reached only if every line is used equally often.

```
fmt(data.frame(Ne_parents = sapply(sels, ne_parents, ctx = ctx)), 2)
```

Table 11.2: Effective number of parents $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ (Equation (11.6)), from `ne_parents()`, over the usage of the 50 parent lines among the selected hybrids. Five selections of $n = 60$ from the $N = 625$ hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight $\omega = 0.001$ (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone ($\omega = 0$); truncation, the top 60 on the index. Number of lines, two decimals.

	Ne_parents
random	34.45
trunc_cap	31.03
greedy_w	14.63
greedy_div	37.31
truncation	13.02

In relative terms, truncation reduces $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ by 62.2 % of the random set's value and raises θ by 2.01 %. On the z scale of Table 11.11 the order reverses, because θ varies far less among random subsets than $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ does. The cost of $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ is a `tabulate` call, which makes it a natural candidate to enter the objective function alongside θ – and in Chapter 12. it does.

11.5 Allelic richness

θ and H_e are averages across markers and are dominated by intermediate-frequency alleles. A lost rare allele barely moves them, yet the loss is irreversible. So count markers that were polymorphic in the population and became rare or fixed in the selection, with MAF the minor allele frequency in the selection (S) or in the whole population (pop):

$$A_{\mathrm{lost}} = \#\left\{k : \mathrm{MAF}_k^{(S)} < 0.05 \wedge \mathrm{MAF}_k^{(\mathrm{pop})} \geq 0.05\right\}. \tag{11.7}$$

Table 11.3 counts A_{lost} for the five selections.

```
data.frame(alleles_lost = sapply(sels, alleles_lost, ctx = ctx))
```

Table 11.3: Markers lost, A_{lost} (Equation (11.7)), from `alleles_lost()` with MAF threshold 0.05, out of 2000 markers. Five selections of n = 60 from the N = 625 hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight ω = 0.001 (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone (ω = 0); truncation, the top 60 on the index. Count of markers.

	alleles_lost
random	27
trunc_cap	43
greedy_w	100
greedy_div	22
truncation	110

Among the metrics of the redundancy analysis in Chapter 12., it is the one **genuinely non-redundant** with θ – a claim that chapter tests rather than asserts. That analysis does not include `F_drift` or `F_hom`, so it says nothing about them; in Table 11.11, `F_drift` separates truncation from random subsets more strongly than any other metric.

E. López-Cortegano, R. Pouso, A. Labrador, A. Pérez-Figueroa, J. Fernández, and A. Caballero [60] compared, in a subdivided simulated population, strategies maximising *expected heterozygosity* (H_T, the same family as GD) against strategies maximising *allelic diversity* (A_T). Maximising A_T retained more alleles **and** controlled molecular inbreeding better than maximising H_T, except when all the weight of the optimisation is placed on the within-subpopulation component, where maximising H_T controlled molecular inbreeding best while still retaining fewer alleles. The mechanism connects directly to Chapter 10.: heterozygosity-maximising management pushes allele frequencies toward 0.5, which favours rare alleles in the short run but does not stop them drifting to loss once they are no longer the rarest; allele-count management defends every segregating allele directly.

Their recommendation for structured conservation programmes was to make A_T, not H_T, the primary target. In this pipeline's terms: `alleles_lost` deserves a place next to θ as a *tracked outcome*, not only as a post-hoc sanity check, whenever the selection feeds several future cycles rather than a single hybrid release.

11.6 Distances: E-NE and A-NE

T. L. Odong, J. Jansen, F. A. van Eeuwijk, and T. J. L. van Hintum [61] proposed, and Core Hunter 3 [62] implements, two measures, entry-to-nearest-entry (E-NE) and accession-to-nearest-entry (A-NE) distances, capturing opposite aspects that θ alone cannot separate. Core Hunter 3 computes them on its own marker distances; this book uses $\eta_{ij} = 1 - f_{ij}$:

$$\text{E-NE} = \frac{1}{n}\sum_{i\in S}\min_{j\in S,\, j\neq i}\eta_{ij}, \qquad \text{A-NE} = \frac{1}{N}\sum_{i=1}^{N}\min_{j\in S}\eta_{ij}, \tag{11.8}$$

with N the number of candidates in the population.

- **E-NE** measures **non-redundancy within the selection**. It distinguishes "200 individuals spread out" from "100 near-identical pairs spread out" – configurations that can share the same θ.
- **A-NE** measures **representativeness of the population**. It detects a selection that optimises θ by concentrating in one region of genetic space and ignoring the rest.

Table 11.4 gives both for the five selections of this chapter.

```
fmt(t(sapply(sels, function(s) c(ENE = ene(s, ctx), ANE = ane(s, ctx)))), 4)

# A-NE with the self-distance set to 0 (Odong et al. 2013), for comparison
ane_odong <- vapply(sels, function(s) {
  d <- 1 - ctx[["f"]][, s, drop = FALSE]
  d[cbind(s, seq_along(s))] <- 0
```

```
  mean(apply(d, 1, min))
}, numeric(1))
ane_pkg <- vapply(sels, ane, numeric(1), ctx = ctx)
ane_gap <- ane_pkg - ane_odong
stopifnot(all(ane_gap >= 0))
```

Table 11.4: E-NE and A-NE (Equation (11.8)) with $\eta_{ij} = 1 - f_{ij}$, as computed by `ene()` and `ane()`. Five selections of n = 60 from the N = 625 hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight ω = 0.001 (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone (ω = 0); truncation, the top 60 on the index. E-NE: higher means less redundancy within the selection; A-NE: lower means better representation of the 625 candidates. Distances are dimensionless, four decimals.

	ENE	ANE
random	0.2560	0.2485
trunc_cap	0.2536	0.2561
greedy_w	0.2535	0.2537
greedy_div	0.2607	0.2504
truncation	0.2527	0.2523

Note the direction: A-NE is a distance to the *nearest selected entry*, so **lower is better** for representativeness.

`ane()` departs from T. L. Odong, J. Jansen, F. A. van Eeuwijk, and T. J. L. van Hintum [61] in one term of Equation (11.8). There an accession that is itself in the selection is its own nearest entry at distance 0; here $\eta_{ii} = 1 - f_{ii} > 0$ for every heterozygous hybrid, so each selected individual contributes its own self-distance instead of 0. Over these five selections the self-distance-zero version is lower by 0.0174 to 0.0178, and the ranking of the five selections is unchanged. The package keeps its definition because the cached redundancy analysis of Chapter 12. and the case-study z-scores were computed with it.

11.7 Effective dimensionality

Over the eigenvalues γ_i of the double-centered submatrix,

$$D_{\text{eff}} = \frac{(\sum_i \gamma_i)^2}{\sum_i \gamma_i^2} \tag{11.9}$$

has the form of the participation ratio, a term introduced for the localisation of vibrational modes [63] and applied here to eigenvalues. It counts how many independent directions of genetic variation remain: 1 if all variation lies on a single axis, $n - 1$ if spread evenly over the $n - 1$ dimensions that double-centering leaves. Table 11.5 gives it for the five selections.

```
fmt(data.frame(D_eff = sapply(sels, eff_dim, ctx = ctx)), 2)

# leading eigenvalue of the raw submatrix against n * theta (Rayleigh bound)
lead_ratio <- sapply(sels, function(s)
  eigen(ctx[["f"]][s, s], symmetric = TRUE, only.values = TRUE)$values[1] /
    (length(s) * theta_group(s, ctx)))
stopifnot(all(lead_ratio >= 1 - 1e-12))
```

Table 11.5: Effective dimensionality D_{eff} (Equation (11.9)), from `eff_dim()`, on the double-centered 60×60 submatrix of $\mathbf{f}$, so at most 59. Five selections of $n = 60$ from the $N = 625$ hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight $\omega = 0.001$ (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone ($\omega = 0$); truncation, the top 60 on the index. The chunk also asserts the Rayleigh bound on the uncentered submatrix discussed below. Number of dimensions, two decimals.

	D_eff
random	26.19
trunc_cap	23.99
greedy_w	14.02
greedy_div	27.92
truncation	12.72

The submatrix is **double-centered** before the eigendecomposition. On a raw all-positive `f` the leading eigenvalue is at least $n\theta$, because the Rayleigh quotient of $\mathbf{f}_S$ at $\mathbf{1}/\sqrt{n}$ is $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{f}_S\mathbf{1}/n = n\theta_S$, and for the five selections here it exceeds $n\theta_S$ by at most 0.017 %. An uncentered version of Equation (11.9) would only re-measure θ under a more expensive name – a mistake worth naming because it is easy to make and produces a plausible-looking number.

11.8 Decomposition by heterotic group

In hybrid maize the diversity **between** pools is the engine of heterosis and cannot be spent; the diversity **within** each pool is the fuel for future progress. Chapter 5. derives the first half of that sentence – `GD_BS` weighted by dominance deviations *is* the divergence half of expected heterosis – and qualifies it: divergence is worth having where it lands on the dominance loci, and worth nothing where it does not. Chapter 23. demonstrates the second half. Following A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10], compute molecular coancestry between lines and weight it by each line's usage among the selected hybrids:

$$\theta_A = \mathbf{w}_A' \mathbf{f}^L \mathbf{w}_A, \qquad \theta_B = \mathbf{w}_B' \mathbf{f}^L \mathbf{w}_B, \qquad \theta_{AB} = \mathbf{w}_A' \mathbf{f}^L \mathbf{w}_B. \tag{11.10}$$

Table 11.6 gives the three for the five selections.

```
fmt(t(sapply(sels, theta_pools, ctx = ctx)), 4)
```

Table 11.6: Group coancestry within pool A (θ_A), within pool B (θ_B) and between the pools (θ_{AB}), Equation (11.10), from `theta_pools()` on the line coancestry $\mathbf{f}^L$ weighted by each line's usage among the selected hybrids. Five selections of $n = 60$ from the $N = 625$ hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight $\omega = 0.001$ (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone ($\omega = 0$); truncation, the top 60 on the index. Dimensionless, four decimals.

	theta_A	theta_B	theta_AB
random	0.7100	0.7128	0.6367
trunc_cap	0.7096	0.7153	0.6380
greedy_w	0.7481	0.7201	0.6345
greedy_div	0.7053	0.7066	0.6336
truncation	0.7581	0.7219	0.6352

Feeding those into the partition of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10] (Chapter 3.) gives Table 11.7:

```
gdp <- t(sapply(sels, gd_partition, ctx = ctx))
stopifnot(all(abs(gdp[, "GD_WI"]) < 1e-12))
fmt(gdp, 4)
```

Table 11.7: Partition of gene diversity over the two heterotic pools (Chapter 3.), from `gd_partition()`, pools weighted by the line usage of each selection: $GD_T = GD_{WI} + GD_{BI} + GD_{BS}$, $F_{ST} = GD_{BS}/GD_T$; `GD_WI_hyb`, half the mean heterozygosity of the selected hybrids. Five selections of n = 60 from the N = 625 hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight ω = 0.001 (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone (ω = 0); truncation, the top 60 on the index. The chunk asserts $|GD_{WI}| < 10^{-12}$. Dimensionless, four decimals.

	GD_WI_hyb	GD_T	GD_WI	GD_BI	GD_BS	F_ST
random	0.1814	0.3259	0	0.2886	0.0374	0.1146
trunc_cap	0.1816	0.3248	0	0.2876	0.0372	0.1146
greedy_w	0.1828	0.3157	0	0.2659	0.0498	0.1577
greedy_div	0.1853	0.3302	0	0.2941	0.0361	0.1095
truncation	0.1823	0.3124	0	0.2600	0.0524	0.1678

Two things to read in Table 11.7. `GD_WI` is zero to machine precision (largest absolute value across the five selections 6.7^{-16}, asserted below 10^{-12}): the parent lines are inbred, so there is no within-individual diversity at line level – the algebra of Chapter 3. predicted this, and it is why `GD_WI_hyb`, the heterozygosity actually carried inside the F1s, is reported separately. And `GD_BS` *rises* under truncation, from 0.0374 for the random set to 0.0524.

The rise is measured; its cause is not isolated here. The simulated index is additive in the hybrid genotype, a linear combination of marker effects with no dominance term (Chapter 6.), so no pair of lines is complementary beyond the sum of its two parents' values, and complementarity between lines cannot be the cause. The rise is consistent with concentration on few lines: truncation's effective number of lines (`ne_lines_pool()`) is 4.5 in pool A and 11.8 in pool B, against 17.6 and 16.8 for the random set, and usage-weighted pool frequencies built on fewer lines carry more sampling variance, which enters y_k^2, the squared between-pool frequency difference $p_{Ak} - p_{Bk}$ of Equation (5.5), and hence `GD_BS`. A plan with the same line concentration but lines drawn at random, the comparison that would separate this mechanism from selection on the index, is not evaluated in this chapter.

> **i** Global θ does not say which pool was eroded
>
> θ_S and GD pool both heterotic groups into one number. Under truncation the global loss is visible (the z of `GD` in Table 11.11), but only the per-pool quantities show that it falls mostly on one pool. Whether a plan exists that erodes one pool at an acceptable global α is not tested in this chapter. `ne_lines_pool()` is the cheap version of the per-pool diagnostic – it needs no `fL`, only the pedigree. Its output for the five selections is Table 11.8.

```
fmt(t(sapply(sels, ne_lines_pool, ctx = ctx)), 2)
```

Table 11.8: Effective number of lines per pool, from `ne_lines_pool()`: $1/\sum_i p_i^2$ as in Equation (11.6), with p_i the frequency of line i among the pool-A parents (Ne_lines_A) or the pool-B parents (Ne_lines_B) of the selected hybrids; at most 25 per pool. Five selections of n = 60 from the N = 625 hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight ω = 0.001 (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone (ω = 0); truncation, the top 60 on the index. Number of lines, two decimals.

	Ne_lines_A	Ne_lines_B
random	17.65	16.82
trunc_cap	15.52	15.52
greedy_w	5.23	12.16
greedy_div	18.95	18.37
truncation	4.49	11.84

11.8.1 Where this could go next

θ_A, θ_B and θ_{AB} as computed here are **diagnostic**: reported, not fed back into the objective. The subdivided-population literature offers a ready-made way to promote them into a tunable target. Total gene diversity partitions as $H_T = H_S + D_G$ [9], and A. Caballero and S. T. Rodríguez-Ramilo [64] give the allelic analogue $A_T = A_S + D_A$. E. López-Cortegano, R. Pouso, A. Labrador, A. Pérez-Figueroa, J. Fernández, and A. Caballero [60], managing a simulated population subdivided into five subpopulations, maximise the weighted forms

$$H_\lambda = D_G + \lambda H_S, \qquad A_\lambda = D_A + \lambda A_S, \tag{11.11}$$

where H_S and A_S are the within-subpopulation components, D_G and D_A the between-subpopulation components, and $\lambda \in [0, \infty)$ is a weight chosen by the manager. The subscript λ marks this as the **weighted objective**, distinct from Nei's unweighted total $H_T = H_S + D_G$ stated above: the two are equal only at $\lambda = 1$. Reading the two subpopulations as the two heterotic pools is this book's analogy, not theirs. $\lambda = 0$ optimises only between-pool divergence – protects the divergence term of heterosis, ignores each pool's internal health. $\lambda \to \infty$ optimises only within-pool diversity – protects each pool's future options, ignores the cross.

That maps directly onto the two constraints a maize breeder already has in mind but applies only qualitatively: *don't blend the pools* versus *don't paint either pool into a corner*. Turning λ into a second explicit knob alongside $\alpha_{\max}$ is the natural next step if pool erosion shows up in practice. The current implementation reports the ingredients and leaves the weighting to the analyst.

λ need not stay a matter of taste when the objective is expected heterosis. Take two pools with equal weight, which the A × B structure imposes, and per locus $H_{S,k} = p_{Ak}q_{Ak} + p_{Bk}q_{Bk}$, $H_{T,k} = 2\bar{p}_k(1 - \bar{p}_k)$ and $D_{G,k} = H_{T,k} - H_{S,k} = y_k^2/2$, with $\bar{p}_k$ and y_k as in Equation (5.5). The expected heterozygosity of the A × B crosses at locus k is then

$$p_{Ak} + p_{Bk} - 2p_{Ak}p_{Bk} = H_{T,k} + D_{G,k} = H_{S,k} + 2D_{G,k}. \tag{11.12}$$

The shared term of Equation (5.5) is $H_{T,k}$, not $H_{S,k}$: it already contains one $D_{G,k}$. Summed over loci with $d_k \equiv 1$, expected heterosis is $2(D_G + H_S/2)$, twice H_λ of Equation (11.11) with $\lambda = 1/2$ fixed by the algebra. With dominance deviations d_k (Chapter 5.), $\sum_k d_k(H_{S,k} + 2D_{G,k}) = 2\bar{d}_D\,(D_G + \lambda_d H_S)$, where

$$\lambda_d = \frac{\bar{d}_H}{2\,\bar{d}_D}, \qquad \bar{d}_H = \frac{\sum_k d_k H_{S,k}}{\sum_k H_{S,k}}, \qquad \bar{d}_D = \frac{\sum_k d_k D_{G,k}}{\sum_k D_{G,k}} \tag{11.13}$$

are the H_S-weighted and D_G-weighted means of d. Reading λ_d as a maximisation weight, $\lambda_d \in [0, \infty)$, needs net directional dominance on the two weighted loci, $\bar{d}_D > 0$ and $\bar{d}_H \geq 0$: if $\bar{d}_D \leq 0$ the leading factor $2\bar{d}_D$ reverses the objective (maximising expected heterosis would then minimise the bracket, or leave λ_d undefined at $\bar{d}_D = 0$), and $\bar{d}_H \geq 0$ is what keeps λ_d non-negative. λ_d departs from $1/2$ only when dominance lines up differently with within-pool heterozygosity than with between-pool divergence, and a frequency-only partition cannot see that because d does not appear in it. λ_d is computed from a plan's own frequencies, so it is a local weight rather than a constant of the population, and it is the right weight

only for expected heterosis as the objective: E. López-Cortegano, R. Pouso, A. Labrador, A. Pérez-Figueroa, J. Fernández, and A. Caballero [60] choose λ for conservation, where no such derivation applies. In the partition of Chapter 3., $H_T = GD_T$, $D_G = GD_{BS}$ and $H_S = GD_T - GD_{BS}$; Equation (11.12) is then $1 - \theta_{AB} = GD_T + GD_{BS}$, Equation (5.6), which the chunk asserts on the five selections (Table 11.9):

```
het_check <- t(sapply(sels, function(s) {
  tp <- theta_pools(s, ctx); gp <- gd_partition(s, ctx)
  c(hybrid_het = 1 - tp[["theta_AB"]],
    HS_plus_2DG = (gp[["GD_T"]] - gp[["GD_BS"]]) + 2 * gp[["GD_BS"]])
}))
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(het_check[, "hybrid_het"], het_check[, "HS_plus_2DG"])))
fmt(het_check, 6)
```

Table 11.9: Equation (11.12) checked: hybrid_het, $1 - \theta_{AB}$ from `theta_pools()`; HS_plus_2DG, $H_S + 2D_G = (GD_T - GD_{BS}) + 2, GD_{BS}$ from `gd_partition()`. Five selections of n = 60 from the N = 625 hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight ω = 0.001 (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone (ω = 0); truncation, the top 60 on the index. The chunk asserts the two columns equal with `all.equal()`. Dimensionless, six decimals.

	hybrid_het	HS_plus_2DG
random	0.363293	0.363293
trunc_cap	0.361996	0.361996
greedy_w	0.365492	0.365492
greedy_div	0.366392	0.366392
truncation	0.364821	0.364821

11.9 The correct baseline

11.9.1 Why not compare against the whole population

The natural comparison – coancestry of the selected set against that of the whole population – is **biased by construction**. Applying Equation (11.2) to both:

$$\mathbb{E}[\theta_S] - \theta_N = \left(\frac{1}{n} - \frac{1}{N}\right)(\bar{f}_d - \bar{f}_o) > 0, \tag{11.14}$$

where the expectation is over random subsets S of size n drawn without replacement, and $\bar{f}_d$, $\bar{f}_o$ are the population's diagonal and off-diagonal means; the inequality holds since $\bar{f}_d > \bar{f}_o$ whenever individuals are not clones. For a given, non-random S the means of Equation (11.2) are the set's own and the difference can take either sign: the max-diversity greedy of this chapter has $\theta_S = 0.66976$ against $\theta_N = 0.67191$. A **random** sample already looks less diverse than the population it came from, with no selection whatsoever. The bias is pure sampling and grows as the sample shrinks.

```
fd <- mean(diag(ctx$f)); fo <- mean(ctx$f[upper.tri(ctx$f)])
predicted_bias <- (1 / n_sel - 1 / ctx$N) * (fd - fo)

set.seed(11)
th <- replicate(400, theta_group(sample.int(ctx$N, n_sel), ctx))
observed_bias <- mean(th) - theta_group(seq_len(ctx$N), ctx)
mc_se <- sd(th) / sqrt(length(th))
stopifnot(abs(observed_bias - predicted_bias) < 4 * mc_se)

c(predicted = predicted_bias, observed = observed_bias, mc_se = mc_se)
#>    predicted     observed        mc_se
#> 2.222092e-03 2.276690e-03 4.124471e-05
```

Equation (11.14) is exact in expectation. The observed residual is 1.32 Monte Carlo standard errors of the mean over 400 subsets, and the chunk asserts that it stays within 4.

Note also that the **off-diagonal** mean of a random subset *is* an unbiased estimator of the population's off-diagonal mean. So the metric many programmes already use is free of this particular bias – but it is not θ_S. By Equation (11.2) it omits the term $\bar{f}_d/n$, the part of the set's coancestry that depends on n and is real when the set is used as a crossing pool, so $1/(2\bar{f}_o)$ is not the N_s of the set and the gap between the two grows as n shrinks.

11.9.2 Operational definition of loss

The "0 % loss" reference is the **distribution of random subsets of the same size**:

$$\alpha = \frac{GD_{\text{random}(n)} - GD_S}{GD_{\text{random}(n)}}. \tag{11.15}$$

Here GD_{ref} is the mean GD of random subsets of size n; the $GD_{\text{random}(n)}$ of the equation, the printed `GD_reference` of the chunk below, and the code's `gd_ref` are the same quantity. $\alpha = 0$ means "as diverse as a random sample of the same size"; $\alpha < 0$ means more diverse than chance. Resampling also delivers the standard deviation, and hence a z-score for any strategy.

```
null <- null_distribution(ctx, n_sel, B = 400, B_full = 1000)
c(GD_population = gene_diversity(seq_len(ctx$N), ctx),
  GD_reference  = null$gd_ref,
  sd            = null$gd_sd,
  apparent_loss_if_wrong_baseline =
    (gene_diversity(seq_len(ctx$N), ctx) - null$gd_ref) /
     gene_diversity(seq_len(ctx$N), ctx))
#>                   GD_population                    GD_reference
#>                    0.3280928000                    0.3258385719
#>                              sd apparent_loss_if_wrong_baseline
#>                    0.0007654486                    0.0068707028
```

That last number is what a programme would report as a diversity loss if it compared against the full pool. It is entirely a sampling artefact. Table 11.10 gives α for the five selections against the correct reference.

```
fmt(data.frame(alpha = sapply(sels, alpha_loss, ctx = ctx, gd_ref = null$gd_ref)), 5)
```

Table 11.10: Diversity loss α (Equation (11.15)), from `alpha_loss()`, against $GD_{\text{random}(n)}$ estimated by `null_distribution()` as the mean GD of 400 random subsets of n = 60 (seed 7). Five selections of n = 60 from the N = 625 hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight ω = 0.001 (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone (ω = 0); truncation, the top 60 on the index. Negative values are more diverse than the random reference. Proportion, five decimals.

	alpha
random	−0.00030
trunc_cap	0.00326
greedy_w	0.03107
greedy_div	−0.01352
truncation	0.04122

Negative values are selections *more* diverse than chance, which is exactly what the max-diversity greedy is for.

11.9.3 How to set the α limit

The acceptable limit **should not be chosen a priori.** Pure truncation – the unconstrained optimum of the index – gives the α (Equation (11.15)) at which the constraint stops binding. This is not the largest α over all subsets, which a minimum-diversity selection would reach; it is the largest α a gain-maximising

selection ever needs. If it is below your intended limit, the constraint restricts nothing and you have bought a false sense of control.

```
attainable <- alpha_loss(sel_truncation(ctx, n_sel), ctx, null$gd_ref)
c(alpha_truncation     = attainable,
  intended_limit       = 0.05,
  constraint_is_active = attainable > 0.05)
#>     alpha_truncation       intended_limit constraint_is_active
#>           0.04121618           0.05000000           0.00000000
```

At this book's teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, $n = 60$) truncation reaches $\alpha = 4.12$ %, so a 5 % limit would be inoperative. The value at the production scale of `sim_config` is not computed in this chapter, and this one does not transfer to it. The correct procedure is to trace the α-versus-gain frontier and choose its knee, which is Chapter 16..

11.10 Every metric against the null

A metric without a baseline says nothing. The z-score of each metric against the random-subset null is how this book reports all of them (Table 11.11).

```
tab <- evaluate(sels, ctx, null$gd_ref)
zt <- discriminatory_power(tab, null)
fmt(as.data.frame(zt[
  , c("GD", "Ns", "Ne_parents", "F_hom", "F_drift", "alleles_lost", "ENE", "ANE")]),
1)
```

Table 11.11: z-score of each metric for each selection against the random-subset null of `null_distribution()`: (value − mean over 1000 random subsets of the same size) / s.d. over those subsets (`B_full` = 1000, seed 7), from `discriminatory_power()`. Five selections of n = 60 from the N = 625 hybrids of the teaching scale (25 + 25 lines, 2000 markers, simulation seed 1): random, a random subset (seed 42); trunc_cap, truncation on the index with each line used at most 4 times; greedy_w, greedy on index and coancestry with index weight ω = 0.001 (argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`); greedy_div, greedy on coancestry alone (ω = 0); truncation, the top 60 on the index. GD: gene diversity (Equation (11.4)); Ns: status number (Equation (11.5)); Ne_parents: Equation (11.6); F_hom, F_drift: the homozygosity and drift lenses of Chapter 10.; alleles_lost: Equation (11.7); ENE, ANE: Equation (11.8). One decimal; Monte Carlo error of the s.d. not shown.

	GD	Ns	Ne_parents	F_hom	F_drift	alleles_lost	ENE	ANE
random	0.0	0.0	−1.3	−1.2	1.4	0.6	1.3	2.0
trunc_cap	−1.5	−1.5	−3.1	2.4	3.9	3.5	−0.9	16.4
greedy_w	−13.6	−13.4	−11.8	6.8	29.7	13.9	−1.0	11.9
greedy_div	5.8	5.8	0.2	−4.8	−0.6	−0.3	5.7	5.6
truncation	−18.0	−17.7	−12.6	9.4	36.0	15.7	−1.8	9.3

Read the rows against each other. Truncation is at $z = 36$ on `F_drift` against −18 on `GD`: the lens the constraint does not pin (Chapter 10.) separates it from random subsets more strongly than the lens it does. The capped truncation shows the other pattern: $z = -1.5$ on `GD`, close to the random subsets, while `ANE` is at 16.4 and `alleles_lost` at 3.5. A constraint on `GD` alone would not flag it. Every z in the table divides by a standard deviation estimated from 1000 random subsets (`B_full`), so each carries a Monte Carlo error that this chapter does not report. That observation is what Chapter 12. turns into a recommendation.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **06-metric-catalogue.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

12. Choosing metrics: collapse, cost, redundancy

Chapter 11. built a catalogue. This chapter asks which of it to keep, and answers with two questions the catalogue could not: **what does each metric cost per evaluation**, and **how much of what it reports is already in θ**.

The recommendation is **two** metrics inside the optimiser and **three** at validation.

Role	Metric	Where it runs	Cost per evaluation
Constraint	Group coancestry theta of the selected set, as proportional loss of gene diversity against a same-size resampling baseline	inside DE, every evaluation	**5 us** (incremental) / 106 us (full)
Second constraint	Effective number of parent lines	inside DE, every evaluation	**7 us**, shares the state vector
Validation	Marker alleles retained (allelic richness)	on the returned plan only	0.9 ms
Validation	Within/between heterotic-pool decomposition of theta	on the returned plan only	62 us
Validation	Status number Ns = 1/(2 theta)	free, algebraic	0

Three findings drive this, and each is derived and verified below rather than asserted.

12.1 Finding 1: the hybrid coancestry matrix is never needed

12.1.1 Derivation

Let lines $a, b, \ldots$ be homozygous, with $\mathbf{f}^L$ their molecular coancestry matrix. The hybrid (ab) carries one genome from each parent. Molecular coancestry is the probability that two alleles, one drawn at random from each individual, are identical in state. Drawing at random from hybrid (ab) selects parental genome a or b with probability $\frac{1}{2}$ each, and likewise for (cd), so

$$f_{(ab),(cd)} = \frac{1}{4}\left(f^L_{ac} + f^L_{ad} + f^L_{bc} + f^L_{bd}\right). \tag{12.1}$$

Now let a selection of n hybrids use line a exactly k_a times across all its parental slots, $\sum_a k_a = 2n$, and write $w_a = k_a/(2n)$. Group coancestry of the selected hybrids is the mean of f over all ordered pairs; substituting the identity above and collecting terms by line gives

$$\theta_S = \mathbf{w}^\top \mathbf{f}^L \mathbf{w}, \tag{12.2}$$

with the selection allele frequencies following the same collapse, $\bar{\mathbf{p}} = \mathbf{w}^\top \mathbf{G}^L$.

12.1.2 Four consequences

The $N \times N$ hybrid matrix is never required. Memory drops from $O(N^2)$ to $O(L^2)$. At $L = 300$ lines and $N = 22,500$ hybrids that matrix would occupy 3.77 GB; in the benchmark below it was deliberately never formed, and every metric that needs it simply has no timing entry at that scale.

The vector w is a sufficient statistic. Group coancestry, gene diversity, status number, effective number of parents, selection allele frequencies and the heterotic-pool decomposition are all functions of $\mathbf{w}$ alone. One $O(L)$ tabulation per evaluation serves all of them.

Swapping one hybrid is a rank-2 update. Exchanging hybrid h for h' changes at most four entries of $\mathbf{w}$, so θ updates in $O(L)$ rather than $O(L^2)$.

The discrete hybrid problem is exactly optimal-contribution selection on lines, restricted to the lattice $w_a \in \{0, 1/(2n), 2/(2n), \ldots\}$. That connects it directly to the OCS literature of Chapter 15., with the caveat that the lattice restriction makes it combinatorial rather than the continuous quadratic programme OCS usually solves.

12.1.3 Verification

Every identity was checked against literal transcriptions of the reference implementations across $F_{ST} \in \{0.05, 0.15, 0.35\}$, two seeds and $n \in \{20, 100\}$, thirty replicate selections each.

	Identity	Worst deviation
max_pairwise_f	pairwise f: hybrid vs line formula	1.1e-16
max_theta_sub_vs_line	theta: line route vs f submatrix	2.2e-16
max_theta_sub_vs_freq	theta: line route vs allele-frequency route	1.1e-16
max_pbar	selection allele frequencies	0 (exact)
max_He	Nei He	0 (exact)
max_Neparents	effective number of parents	2.1e-14
max_alleles_lost	allele loss at MAF threshold	0 (exact)
max_theta_pools	pool decomposition	1.2e-15
max_swap_update	incremental swap vs full recompute	4.4e-16
bitset_vs_literal	bitset allelic richness vs literal count	0 (exact)

The same identity, live, on the book's own data:

```
ctx  <- fast_ctx(simulate_data(book_cfg))
set.seed(51)
idx  <- sample.int(ctx$N, 60)
c(via_hybrid_matrix = theta_group(idx, ctx),
  via_line_route    = fast_theta(idx, ctx),
  difference        = theta_group(idx, ctx) - fast_theta(idx, ctx))
#> via_hybrid_matrix    via_line_route        difference
#>         0.6745897         0.6745897          0.0000000
```

And the incremental swap, which is what makes a local search affordable:

```
st  <- theta_state(idx, ctx)
out <- idx[1]; inn <- setdiff(seq_len(ctx$N), idx)[1]
st2 <- theta_swap(st, out, inn, ctx)
c(after_swap_incremental = st2$theta,
  after_swap_recomputed  = theta_group(c(idx[-1], inn), ctx),
  difference             = st2$theta - theta_group(c(idx[-1], inn), ctx))
#> after_swap_incremental  after_swap_recomputed            difference
#>           6.747225e-01           6.747225e-01          2.220446e-16
```

⚠ Two implementation traps found while building this

R's `$` performs **partial matching** on lists, so `ctx$f` silently returns `ctx$fL` when the hybrid matrix is absent – a wrong answer with no error. Every accessor in the package uses `ctx[["f"]]`. Any pipeline carrying both matrices in one list is exposed to this.

R integers are signed 32-bit, so `bitwShiftL(1L, 31L)` is `NA` and the usual multiply-based popcount overflows. The bitset in `pack_lines()` packs 31 bits per word, and `popcount32()` counts them with a branch-free SWAR routine.

12.2 Finding 2: what each metric costs

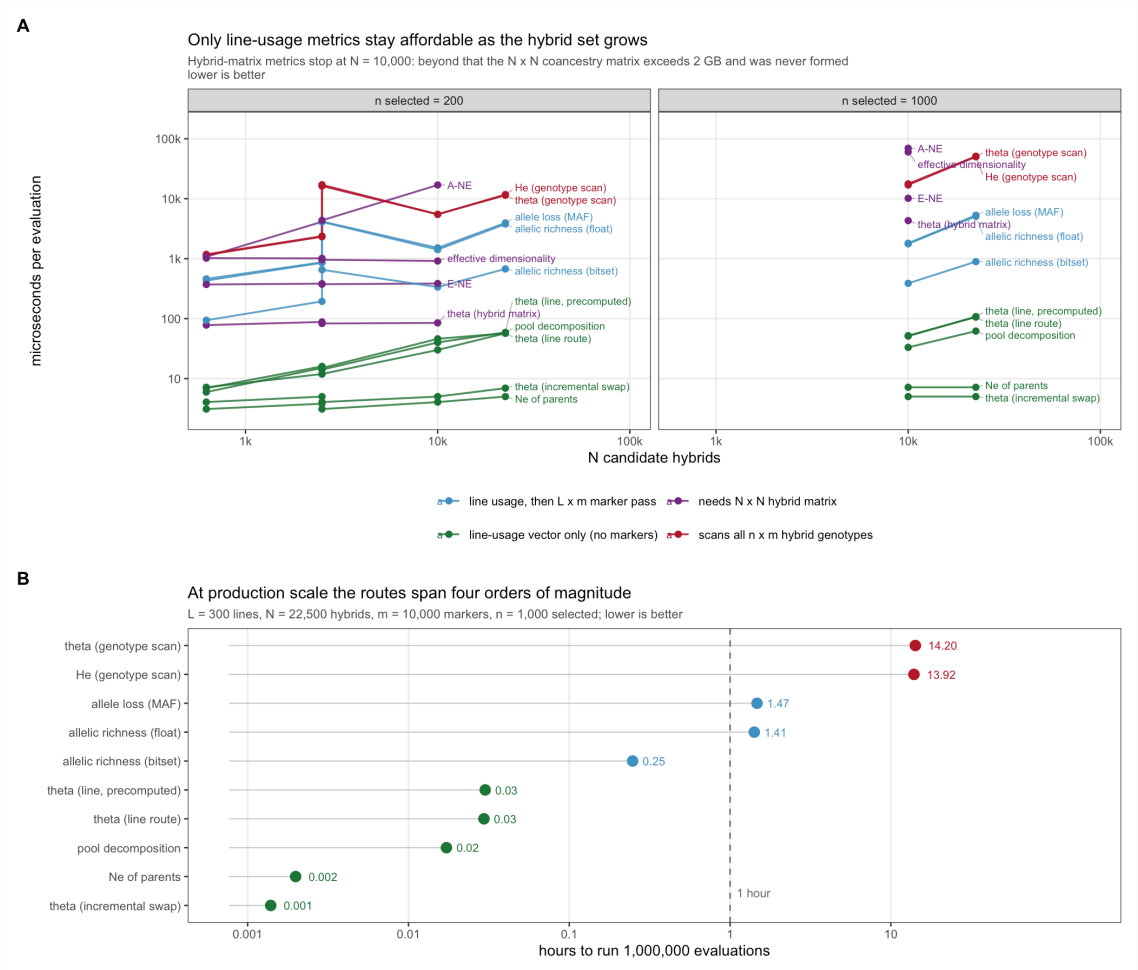

Figure 12.1: Cost per fitness evaluation. Panel A: scaling in the number of candidate hybrids. Panel B: hours to complete one million evaluations at production scale.

At $L = 300$ lines, $N = 22,500$ hybrids, $m = 10,000$ markers and $n = 1,000$ selected:

metric	us per evaluation	hours per 1e6 evals
theta: incremental swap	5.0	0.0014
Ne_parents	7.2	0.0020
pool decomposition	62.0	0.0172
theta: LINE route	106.1	0.0295
theta: line route precomp	108.0	0.0300
allelic richness: bitset	891.9	0.2478
allelic richness: float	5091.0	1.4142
allele loss (MAF thr)	5296.9	1.4714
He / gene diversity(freq)	50096.0	13.9156
theta: allele-freq route	51113.1	14.1981

Three thresholds matter:

- **The genotype-scan route is disqualified.** Computing θ from selection allele frequencies costs 14.2 hours per million evaluations. The line route costs 106 us – a **482x reduction** for an algebraically identical number.
- **The incremental swap is effectively free** at 5 us, or 1.4 seconds per million evaluations. $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ at 7 us shares the same state vector and is free in practice once θ has been computed.

- **Allelic richness cannot go inside the loop, and need not.** The bitset implementation is 5.7x faster than the floating-point version, but still 178x the cost of the line-route θ. It belongs at validation.

The same ordering is visible at the book's scale, where every route is affordable and so the comparison is about ratios, not feasibility:

```
fmt(cost_per_eval(ctx, n_sel = 60, reps = 40), 1)
```

metric	us_per_eval
theta_group	0
theta_from_freq	175
ne_parents	0
alleles_lost	150
ENE	50
ANE	475
eff_dim	100
Gst	1425

12.3 Finding 3: the metric space is nearly one-dimensional

621 selections were generated across four strategy families – random, truncation at varying intensity, greedy construction over a grid of diversity weights, and restricted line pools – and all 17 metrics computed on each.

Figure 12.2: Metric redundancy. A: Spearman correlations. B: PCA of rank-transformed metrics. C: the discriminating case, inside a narrow coancestry band.

PC1 absorbs 88% of the rank variance; PC2 adds 7%. Rank correlations with θ are $|\rho| \geq 0.93$ for status number, H_e, effective dimensionality, $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ and MAF-threshold allele loss. Reporting these alongside θ adds cost and length, not information.

But the marginal correlation is the wrong test. The question is whether a metric varies **at fixed θ** – because θ is the constraint, and any metric that is a deterministic function of it cannot discriminate among plans the optimiser treats as equivalent. Two analyses agree:

- After regressing each metric's ranks on θ (quadratic), **allelic richness retains 52% of its rank standard deviation** and $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ retains 36%. Effective dimensionality retains 25% – close to a restatement of θ.
- Inside a band $\theta \in [0.666, 0.670]$ containing 399 selections, **alleles retained still spans 171 markers** (11,680 to 11,851 of 12,000) and $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ spans **30.1 to 55.8**.

Plans the constraint cannot distinguish differ materially in how much allelic variation they carry forward. That is the empirical justification for the two-metric recommendation.

12.3.1 Reproducing the argument at book scale

```
set.seed(77)
grid <- do.call(rbind, lapply(seq(0, 4, length.out = 30), function(w) {
```

```
  s <- sel_greedy(ctx, 60, w = w)
  data.frame(w = w, theta = theta_group(s, ctx), Ne_par = ne_parents(s, ctx),
             lost = alleles_lost(s, ctx))
}))
rnd <- do.call(rbind, lapply(1:60, function(i) {
  s <- sample.int(ctx$N, 60)
  data.frame(w = NA, theta = theta_group(s, ctx), Ne_par = ne_parents(s, ctx),
             lost = alleles_lost(s, ctx))
}))
all <- rbind(grid, rnd)

plot(all$theta, all$Ne_par, pch = 19, col = ifelse(is.na(all$w), "grey60",
"#b2182b"),
     xlab = expression(theta), ylab = expression(N[e]~"parents"))
legend("topright", c("greedy sweep", "random"), pch = 19,
       col = c("#b2182b", "grey60"), bty = "n")
grid()
```

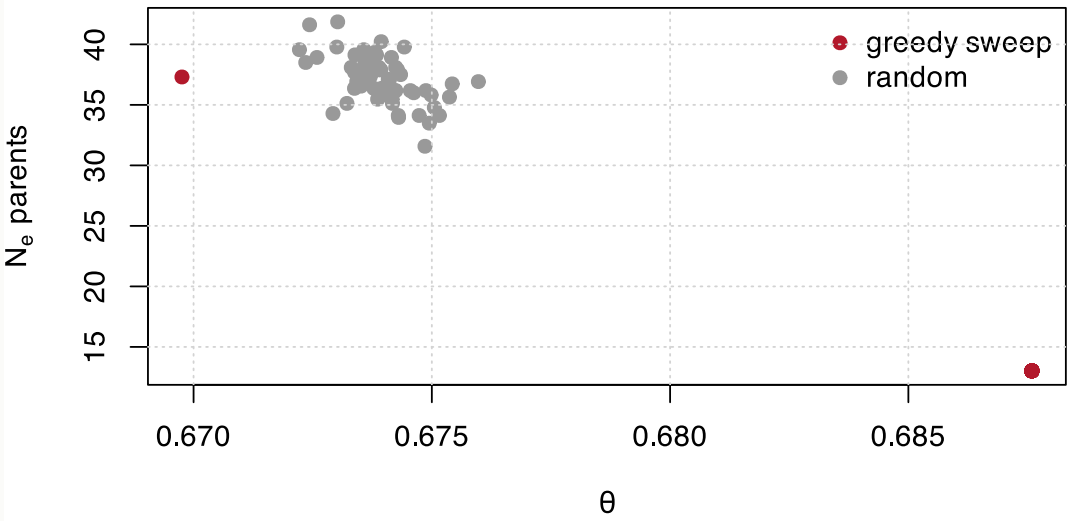

Figure 12.3: At fixed theta, the effective number of parents still varies by a factor of two. The constraint cannot see the difference; the second metric can.

```
band <- all[abs(all$theta - median(all$theta)) < 0.0015, ]
c(n_in_band = nrow(band),
  theta_span = diff(range(band$theta)),
  Ne_par_min = min(band$Ne_par), Ne_par_max = max(band$Ne_par),
  alleles_lost_span = diff(range(band$lost)))
#>         n_in_band        theta_span        Ne_par_min        Ne_par_max
#>      55.000000000       0.002502847      31.578947368      41.860465116
#> alleles_lost_span
#>      31.000000000
```

> **i** A caveat on transfer
>
> These numbers come from a two-pool simulation at $F_{ST} = 0.15$. The qualitative conclusion – near one-dimensionality, with allelic richness as the exception – is robust in direction, but the exact residual fractions shift with pool divergence and marker density. Re-running the redundancy analysis on real genotypes is a half-hour job and worth doing before treating the recommendation as final.

12.4 Finding 4: the encoding, not the constraint handler, decides whether DE works

The optimiser was run under four simultaneous restrictions: diversity loss $\leq 0.5\%$, $N_{e,\mathrm{par}} \geq 50$, at most 6 uses per line, and heterotic-pool balance within 5%. Budget fixed at 60,000 evaluations for every configuration, three seeds each.

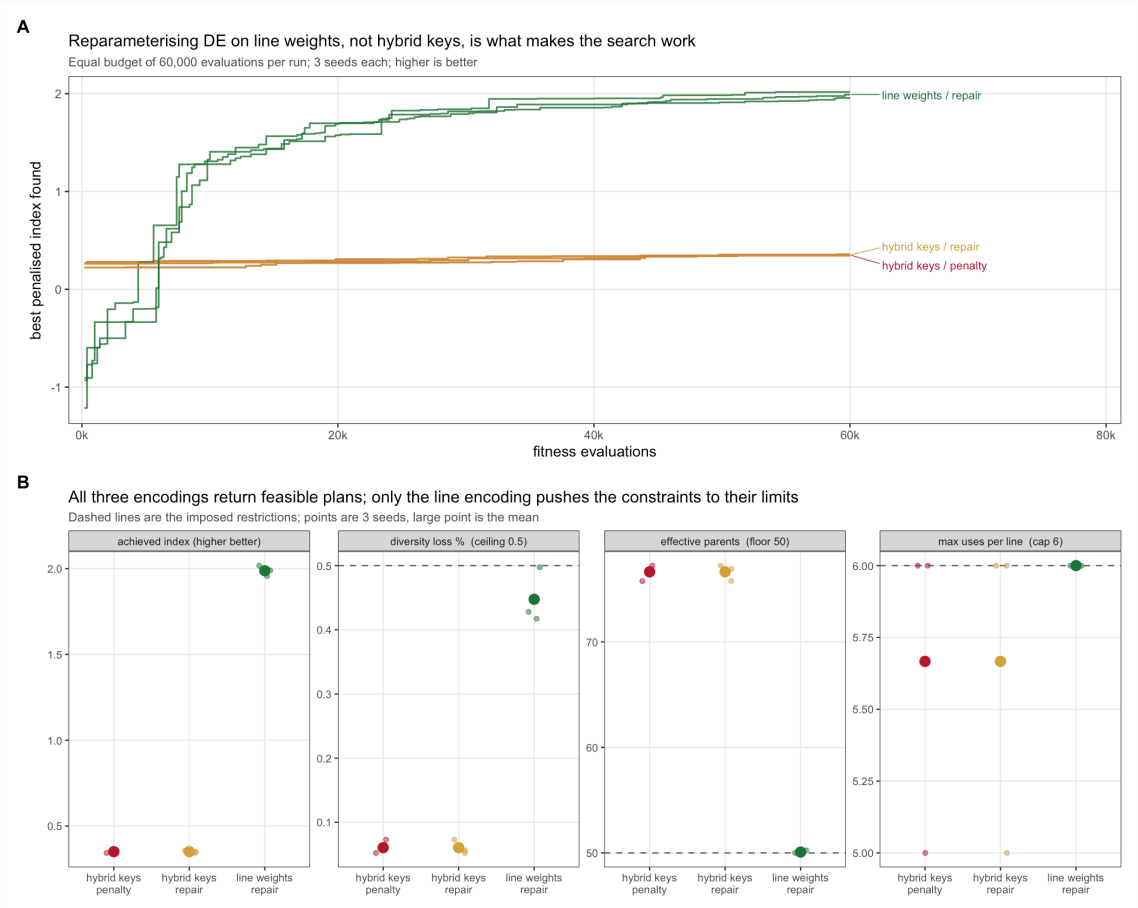

Figure 12.4: Differential evolution under four simultaneous restrictions at equal evaluation budget.

encoding	index	loss %	Ne parents	max uses	seconds
hybrid keys / penalty	0.351	0.060	76.634	5.667	6.550
hybrid keys / repair	0.351	0.060	76.634	5.667	9.621
line weights / repair	1.988	0.448	50.084	6.000	12.126

The encoding decides the outcome; the constraint handler does not. One random key per hybrid gives DE a 3,600-dimensional problem and it reaches index 0.351. One weight per *line* – dimension 120, available only because of the collapse – reaches **1.988 at the same budget**, a 5.7x improvement. Penalty

and repair handlers produced numerically identical solutions in the hybrid encoding, because at that dimension DE never approaches the constraint boundary where the handlers differ.

Only the line encoding makes the constraints bind. It finishes with $N_{e,\mathrm{par}} = 50.08$ against a floor of 50, max uses exactly 6 against a cap of 6, and loss 0.448% against a 0.5% ceiling. The hybrid encoding leaves every constraint slack – not because it found a better trade-off, but because it never searched far enough from random to reach the boundary.

A slack constraint at the end of a run is a diagnostic of a failed search, not of a conservative plan.

For calibration: unconstrained truncation reaches index 2.337 but violates everything (loss 1.62%, $N_{e,\mathrm{par}} = 33.2$, one line used 17 times). The line encoding recovers **85% of the truncation index while satisfying all four restrictions.**

A note on tuning. `DEoptim` warns that `NP` should be at least ten times the parameter count; at dimension 3,600 that is 36,000 population members, which is infeasible. At dimension 120 the recommendation is 1,200 and entirely reachable. The reparameterisation does not merely speed the search up – it moves the problem into the regime where DE's own tuning guidance can be followed.

12.5 Finding 5: the index is not the truth, and its error is not white

Findings 1 to 4 are about the diversity side of the objective. This one is about the other side, and it is the larger uncertainty of the two.

Everywhere in this book `ctx$index` is built from *known* marker effects (Chapter 6.), so every result so far assumes the breeding values are predicted without error. Real ones are not, and the error is not white noise: predictions for close relatives are wrong in the same direction, because they lean on the same training records and share the same haplotypes. The book already has a matrix of exactly that structure – the molecular coancestry $\mathbf{f}$ – so the error can be simulated without inventing anything. (3 fits an actual GBLUP model later and finds the same structure in its real residuals, at a comparable accuracy, without injecting anything.)

```
n_sel <- 60
null  <- null_distribution(ctx, n_sel, B = 400, B_full = 60)
gd    <- null$gd_ref
u     <- ctx$index
Lc    <- t(chol(ctx$f + diag(1e-8, ctx$N)))

# A predicted index at accuracy r. `kind` decides whether the error is
# correlated with relatedness or independent between hybrids.
predicted <- function(r, seed, kind = "correlated") {
  set.seed(seed)
  z <- rnorm(ctx$N)
  e <- if (kind == "correlated") as.numeric(Lc %*% z) else z
  e <- (e - mean(e)) / stats::sd(e)
  as.numeric(scale(r * u + sqrt(1 - r^2) * e))
}
```

Select on the prediction, then score the plan on the truth:

```
run <- function(r, seed = 1, kind = "correlated") {
  ch <- ctx; ch$index <- predicted(r, seed, kind)
  sel <- list(truncation = sel_truncation(ch, n_sel),
              greedy     = sel_greedy(ch, n_sel, w = 3e-4))
  do.call(rbind, lapply(names(sel), function(nm) data.frame(
    method = nm, r = r,
    reported = mean(ch$index[sel[[nm]]]),
    realised = mean(u[sel[[nm]]]),
    alpha    = alpha_loss(sel[[nm]], ctx, gd))))
}
acc <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(1, 0.9, 0.7, 0.5), run))
fmt(acc, 4)
```

method	r	reported	realised	alpha
truncation	1.0	1.9919	1.9919	0.0412
greedy	1.0	1.5893	1.5893	0.0133
truncation	0.9	1.9247	1.9003	0.0406
greedy	0.9	1.4745	1.3965	0.0092
truncation	0.7	1.7529	1.5950	0.0356
greedy	0.7	1.3851	1.1464	0.0088
truncation	0.5	1.6223	1.1751	0.0301
greedy	0.5	1.2591	0.7965	0.0056

Two things move. The gap between `reported` and `realised` opens up – at $r = 0.5$ truncation reports an index of 1.62 and delivers 1.18. Selection on a noisy value selects partly on the noise, so the plan's own scorecard is biased upward. Nothing in the pipeline can detect this; it is invisible without the truth.

And α *falls* as accuracy drops. That is not the constraint working better. Noisy selection is closer to random selection, and random selection is what $\bar{H}_{\text{ref}}$ is defined against – so the plan drifts toward the baseline from which loss is measured.

12.5.1 The correlation structure matters more than the amount

Hold accuracy fixed at $r = 0.6$ and change only whether the error is correlated with relatedness, over twenty draws:

```
cmp <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c("correlated", "independent"), function(k)
  do.call(rbind, lapply(1:20, function(s) {
    ch <- ctx; ch$index <- predicted(0.6, s, k)
    tr <- sel_truncation(ch, n_sel)
    data.frame(kind = k, realised = mean(u[tr]),
               alpha = alpha_loss(tr, ctx, gd), max_line = max_line_use(tr, ctx))
  })))
fmt(aggregate(cbind(realised, alpha, max_line) ~ kind, cmp, mean), 4)
```

kind	realised	alpha	max_line
correlated	1.1508	0.0391	18.15
independent	1.2253	0.0121	12.60

Same accuracy, same method, same number selected. Correlated error costs roughly 3.2 times the diversity of independent error, and leans 1.4 times as hard on its favourite line.

The mechanism is direct. Independent error scatters the mistakes, which accidentally diversifies the plan. Error correlated with relatedness makes whole families look good together, so the plan takes families – and a family is exactly what the diversity constraint exists to stop it taking.

> ⚠ The worst case is not the noisiest one
>
> Truncation on a perfect index loses 4.12% of gene diversity and earns every bit of the index it reports. Under correlated error at $r = 0.6$ it still loses 3.91% – nearly the same price – while delivering 1.15 instead of 1.99.
>
> You pay the full diversity cost of aggressive selection and collect a fraction of the gain. That is the case to design against, and it is the ordinary case in a real programme.

12.5.2 What this does to the recommendation

Nothing, for the metric set. Findings 1 to 3 are statements about $\mathbf{f}$ and hold whatever the index is. But it changes what the numbers in Chapter 25. mean, and it reorders the priorities: the choice between two diversity metrics is worth a fraction of a percent of index, and prediction accuracy is worth tens of percent. Report α against the plan you actually planted, validate accuracy before tuning the constraint, and treat a reported index as an upper bound.

12.6 The recommendation, stated

12.6.1 Inside the optimiser

Use two metrics, both functions of the line-usage vector $\mathbf{w}$:

1. **Proportional loss of gene diversity**, $(\bar{H}_{\text{ref}} - H_S)/\bar{H}_{\text{ref}}$ with $H_S = 1 - \mathbf{w}^\top \mathbf{f}^L \mathbf{w}$ and $\bar{H}_{\text{ref}}$ the mean over same-size random subsets. Compute it by the line route, never by scanning genotypes.
2. **Effective number of parent lines**, $N_{e,\text{par}} = (\sum k_a)^2 / \sum k_a^2$. It costs 7 us, shares the state vector, and blocks concentration onto a few lines – a failure mode θ tolerates.

Reparameterise the search on **line weights**, and enforce the per-line usage cap in the decoder rather than by penalty.

12.6.2 At validation, on the returned plan only

3. **Marker alleles retained**, via the bitset route. The one metric carrying information θ does not.
4. **Within/between heterotic-pool decomposition**, to confirm the plan has not preserved diversity by degrading pool separation.
5. **Status number** $N_s = 1/(2\theta)$, free from θ, as the reportable descriptor. Do not report a rate-based N_e under active management.

12.6.3 Not recommended

Nei's H_e as a separate metric (it *is* $1 - \theta$); effective dimensionality ($|\rho| = 0.97$ with θ, and needs the hybrid matrix); MAF-threshold allele loss ($|\rho| = 0.93$, and 1.47 hours per million evaluations); Core Hunter's E-NE and A-NE (both require the $O(N^2)$ matrix and are unavailable at production scale – they are designed for core-collection assembly, a different problem).

12.6.4 Caveats

The choice of $\mathbf{f}^L$ remains open in the literature. Post-2018 work is consistent that molecular or IBD-flavoured coancestry beats a VanRaden-style drift matrix for diversity management, but reports no consensus on a single preferred formulation, and matrix choice demonstrably changes allele-frequency trajectories (Chapter 21.). The collapse derived here is a property of the F1 structure and holds for **any** symmetric line-level $\mathbf{f}^L$ – so if the matrix choice changes, every cost and identity result in this chapter survives unchanged.

Managing on molecular coancestry controls homozygosity, not drift; these diverge, and a plan optimal on one is not optimal on the other (Chapter 10.). Predicted Δf is biased downward, with the bias growing as the candidate pool shrinks – report realised θ on the chosen plan rather than a predicted rate.

12.7 Drop-in code

```
ctx <- fast_ctx(ctx, GL = line_genotypes, pack = TRUE)   # no N x N matrix needed

gd_ref <- mean(replicate(500, fast_gene_div(sample.int(ctx$N, n_sel), ctx)))

fit <- make_fitness_fast(ctx, n_sel, gd_ref, alpha_max = 0.005,
                         ne_par_min = 50, max_use = 6, penalty = 5,
                         encoding = "lines")

res <- DEoptim::DEoptim(fit,
                        lower = rep(0, ctx$n_lines), upper = rep(1, ctx$n_lines),
                       control = DEoptim::DEoptim.control(NP = 200, itermax = 300))

idx <- decode_lines(res$optim$bestmem, ctx, n_sel, max_use = 6)
c(theta      = fast_theta(idx, ctx),
  loss_pct   = 100 * (gd_ref - fast_gene_div(idx, ctx)) / gd_ref,
  Ne_parents = fast_ne_parents(idx, ctx),
```

```
  alleles    = alleles_retained_fast(idx, ctx),
  fast_theta_pools(idx, ctx))
```

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **07-choosing-metrics.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

13. Metrics at each pipeline stage, and five traps

The previous chapters established *which* metrics to use. This one places them at the four stages of a hybrid maize programme (introduced in Section 1.1), and names five traps – each one a thing that looks correct, returns a number, and is wrong.

Stage	What is selected
S1	conserving the heterotic groups (pool level)
S2	choosing parents and crosses for DH induction
S3	selecting lines per se
S4	hybrid mining

Two rules govern everything below. Every formula was verified numerically before it was written; where a result is an exact algebraic identity, the maximum deviation from simulation is reported next to it. And the metric set is the one established in Chapter 12.: molecular coancestry as the kernel, $GD = 1 - \theta$ as the scale, N_s as the interpretable size, allelic richness as the one non-redundant addition, and proportional loss measured against a same-size resampling baseline.

```
sim <- simulate_pools(n_A = 30, n_B = 30, m = 3000, fst = 0.15, seed = 12)
ctx <- ctx_from_pools(sim)
GL  <- sim$GL; pool <- sim$pool; fL <- sim$fL
c(lines = sim$L, markers = sim$m, hybrids = sim$N)
#>   lines markers hybrids
#>      60    3000     900
```

13.1 The kernel: one matrix, all four stages

Molecular coancestry f_{ij} is the probability that an allele drawn at random from individual i is identical in state to one drawn from j. For inbred lines coded 0/1 at m biallelic markers,

$$f_{ij} = 1 - \frac{1}{m}\sum_{k=1}^{m}(x_{ik} - x_{jk})^2. \tag{13.1}$$

Group coancestry of a set is the mean of the full submatrix **including the diagonal**, $\theta = n^{-2}\sum_i \sum_j f_{ij}$, with $GD = 1 - \theta$ and $N_s = 1/(2\theta)$.

The diagonal is not a technicality. It is why a small set always looks highly coancestral, and it is the reason the naive greedy constraint in S3 fails.

13.1.1 Trap 1: modified Rogers distance is the same statistic

Reporting both MRD and coancestry as separate evidence is reporting one number twice. The relation is exact:

```
D <- mrd_matrix(GL)
c(max_deviation = max(abs(coancestry_from_mrd(D) - fL)))
#> max_deviation
#>  1.110223e-16
```

$f_{ij} = 1 - \mathrm{MRD}_{ij}^2$. If a diversity report shows a distance tree and a coancestry table as mutual corroboration, they are the same analysis in two coordinate systems.

13.2 S1: conserving the heterotic groups

Diversity in a hybrid programme is **two quantities moving in opposite directions**: within-pool diversity erodes under selection, while between-pool divergence inflates. A single pool-wide statistic cannot express both, and a programme monitoring only total diversity can look stable while both pools collapse internally and drift apart.

The partition is exact for any grouping:

$$\theta_T = \sum_p w_p^2\,\theta_{pp} + \sum \text{over } p \neq q \text{ of } w_p w_q\,\theta_{pq} \tag{13.2}$$

```
d <- theta_decompose(GL, pool)
c(theta_T_from_partition = d$theta_T,
  theta_T_direct         = mean(fL),
  deviation              = d$theta_T - mean(fL))
#> theta_T_from_partition         theta_T_direct              deviation
#>             0.6614378              0.6614378              0.0000000
```

13.2.1 Trap 2: two F_{ST} definitions differ by up to 2x

Both are in routine use, both are computed from the same coancestry matrix, and they are **not interchangeable**:

$$F_{ST}^{(W)} = \frac{\theta_w - \theta_B}{1 - \theta_B} \qquad G_{ST} = \frac{\theta_w - \theta_T}{1 - \theta_T} \tag{13.3}$$

The first references *between-pool* coancestry; the second references *total* pooled-frequency coancestry and equals Nei's $G_{ST} = (H_T - H_S)/H_T$:

```
c(Fst_Wright = d$Fst_Wright,
  Gst_Nei    = d$Gst_Nei,
  Gst_classical = unname(gst_nei(GL, pool)[["Gst"]]),
  ratio      = d$Fst_Wright / d$Gst_Nei)
#>    Fst_Wright       Gst_Nei Gst_classical         ratio
#>     0.1824006     0.1003525     0.1003525     1.8175994
```

Because $\theta_T > \theta_B$ whenever the pools differ at all, $G_{ST} < F_{ST}$ **always**. Across simulated divergence they never converge:

fst_target	Fst_Wright	Gst_Nei	ratio	theta_B	theta_T	GD_within	frac_opp	mean_dp
0.02	0.0446	0.0228	1.9554	0.6372	0.6453	0.3466	0.0000	0.0991
0.05	0.0742	0.0385	1.9258	0.6361	0.6496	0.3369	0.0000	0.1280
0.10	0.1200	0.0638	1.8800	0.6367	0.6585	0.3197	0.0000	0.1607
0.15	0.1676	0.0915	1.8324	0.6337	0.6644	0.3049	0.0003	0.1907
0.20	0.2268	0.1279	1.7732	0.6289	0.6710	0.2869	0.0013	0.2211
0.30	0.3170	0.1883	1.6830	0.6413	0.6982	0.2450	0.0063	0.2504
0.40	0.4106	0.2584	1.5894	0.6341	0.7092	0.2157	0.0230	0.2840

State which definition you used, and never compare your value against a published threshold computed the other way.

13.2.2 Trap 3: F_{ST} is the wrong target to maximise

F_{ST} keeps rising as pools drift apart at loci that are *already* divergent, which buys no additional heterosis. Chapter 5. makes the reason exact: under neutral divergence expected heterosis does not depend on F_{ST} at all, because every unit gained in the divergence term is paid for out of the shared term. What does move it is divergence landing on the dominance loci. The frequency-side statistics decouple from F_{ST} accordingly:

```r
sweep_fst <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(0.05, 0.15, 0.25, 0.40), function(fst) {
  s <- simulate_pools(n_A = 25, n_B = 25, m = 2000, fst = fst, seed = 3)
  dd <- theta_decompose(s$GL, s$pool)
  cm <- pool_complementarity(s$GL, s$pool)
  data.frame(target_fst = fst, Fst = dd$Fst_Wright, GD_within = dd$GD_within,
             frac_opposite_fixed = cm[["frac_opposite_fixed"]],
             mean_abs_delta_p = cm[["mean_abs_delta_p"]],
             mean_sq_delta_p = cm[["mean_sq_delta_p"]])
}))
fmt(sweep_fst, 4)
```

target_fst	Fst	GD_within	frac_opposite_fixed	mean_abs_delta_p	mean_sq_delta_p
0.05	0.0907	0.3321	0.0005	0.1412	0.0331
0.15	0.1857	0.3003	0.0000	0.1995	0.0685
0.25	0.2711	0.2644	0.0045	0.2379	0.0984
0.40	0.4348	0.2106	0.0370	0.2940	0.1620

Buying oppositely-fixed loci costs within-pool gene diversity, and it costs a great deal of it. **Hold F_{ST} in a band, not at a maximum,** and monitor complementarity directly.

Of the three complementarity columns, `mean_sq_delta_p` is the one to log. Chapter 5. shows it is not a proxy at all but exactly twice the divergence term of expected heterosis, while `frac_opposite_fixed` sits at essentially zero across the whole range of divergence a real dent-versus-flint pair occupies, and so cannot discriminate between programmes.

13.2.3 The S1 monitoring panel

```r
fmt(s1_monitor(GL, pool, cycle = 12), 4)
```

cycle	GD_within	GD_total	Fst_Wright	Gst_Nei	Ns_total	GD_A	GD_B	frac_opposite_fixed	mean_abs_delta_p	mean_sq_delta_p
12	0.3046	0.3386	0.1824	0.1004	0.7559	0.305	0.3042	0	0.2003	0.068

Log this every cycle and plot it as a time series. Defend `GD_within` per pool; watch `mean_sq_delta_p` for heterosis potential; treat F_{ST} as a descriptor, not an objective. Chapter 23. is what the time series looks like when it is actually run out to fifteen cycles.

The empirical anchor is Kadoumi et al. (2025), who tracked diversity erosion and heterotic-group divergence over decades of a commercial European dent maize programme – and found exactly the two opposite trends this panel is built to separate. See Chapter 21..

13.3 S2: choosing crosses for DH induction

This is where the largest share of pipeline diversity is lost, and also where the cheapest exact algebra is available.

13.3.1 Three verified identities

For a DH family from cross (i, j) of two inbreds, each locus is inherited from i or j with probability 1/2 and then doubled.

(a) Coancestry between two DH sibs of the same family: $\mathbb{E}[f] = (1 + f_{ij})/2$.

(b) Coancestry between a DH of family (i, j) and one of (k, l): $\mathbb{E}[f] = (f_{ik} + f_{il} + f_{jk} + f_{jl})/4$.

(c) Group coancestry of a DH pool from crosses $c = 1…C$, each contributing n_c lines, $D = \sum n_c$:

$$\theta_{pool} = \mathbf{w}^{\top}\mathbf{f}^{L}\mathbf{w} + \frac{1}{D}\left(1 - \overline{\left(\frac{1 + f_c}{2}\right)}\right) \tag{13.4}$$

with $\mathbf{w}$ the **parent-usage weight vector**. The second term is the self-coancestry correction; it is $O(1/D)$ and worth keeping.

```
set.seed(88)
A <- 1:30
crosses <- cbind(sample(A, 20, replace = TRUE), sample(A, 20, replace = TRUE))
crosses <- crosses[crosses[, 1] != crosses[, 2], , drop = FALSE]

c(with_self_term    = dh_pool_theta(crosses, n_per = 40, fL, self_term = TRUE),
  without_self_term = dh_pool_theta(crosses, n_per = 40, fL, self_term = FALSE),
  sib_coancestry_ex = dh_sib_coancestry(fL[crosses[1, 1], crosses[1, 2]]))
#>    with_self_term without_self_term sib_coancestry_ex
#>         0.7010910         0.7008837         0.8493333
```

! The key structural result of S2

The diversity of the DH pool is a quadratic form in *which parents you use and how often.* **The DH lines never need to be genotyped – or to exist – for their pool diversity to be optimised.** You can evaluate a crossing plan before making a single cross.

13.3.2 Progeny variance, and the usefulness criterion

Under an additive model only loci segregating in the cross contribute:

$$\sigma^2_{DH(i,j)} = \frac{1}{4} \sum_{k\,:\,x_{ik} \neq x_{jk}} \beta_k^2 \tag{13.5}$$

```
sig <- sigma_dh_crosses(crosses, GL, sim$beta)
mu  <- rowMeans(cbind(GL[crosses[, 1], ] %*% sim$beta,
                      GL[crosses[, 2], ] %*% sim$beta))
uc  <- usefulness_criterion(mu, sig, i = sel_intensity(0.05), h = 0.6)
c(sel_intensity_5pct = sel_intensity(0.05), textbook = 2.063)
#> sel_intensity_5pct           textbook
#>           2.062713           2.063000
fmt(head(data.frame(p1 = crosses[, 1], p2 = crosses[, 2],
                    mu = mu, sigma_dh = sig, UC = uc), 6), 3)
```

p1	p2	mu	sigma_dh	UC
23	27	0.930	4.609	6.634
13	11	−5.977	5.032	0.251
22	21	−3.481	5.264	3.034
7	19	−7.343	5.063	−1.076
19	1	−11.512	5.285	−4.971
2	12	−2.152	4.934	3.955

`sel_intensity(0.05)` returns 2.0627 against the textbook 2.063.

13.3.3 Trap 4: genetic distance is not a proxy for progeny variance

It is common practice to rank crosses by marker distance, on the argument that more distant parents segregate for more loci. Once the heterotic pattern is fixed, this fails:

stratum	cor	R2
inter-pool (A x B)	0.103	0.011
within-pool (A x A)	0.219	0.048
pooled	0.576	0.332

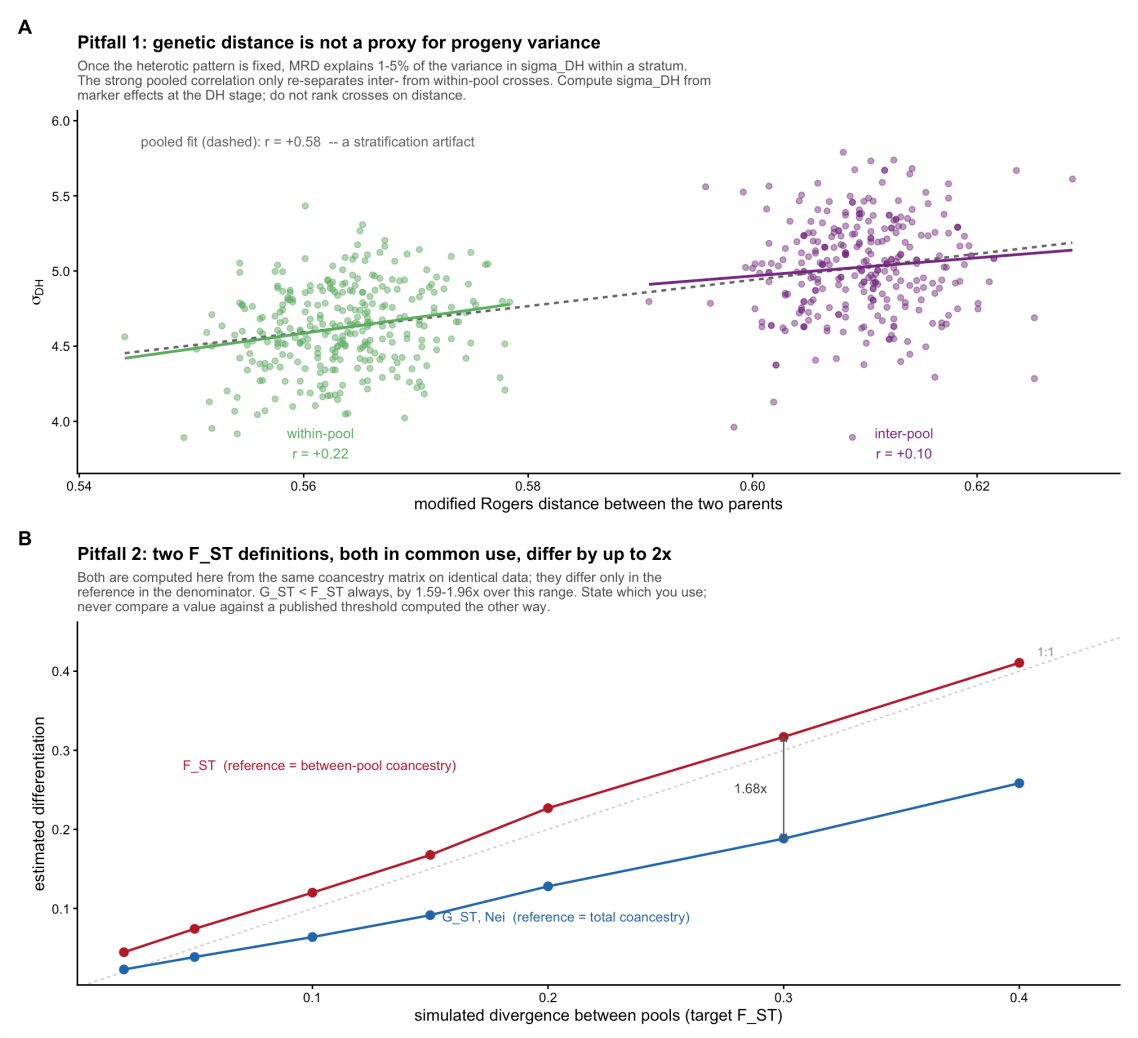

Figure 13.1: Traps 4 and 2, on the full simulation. Panel A: progeny standard deviation against modified Rogers distance – the strong pooled correlation only re-separates inter- from within-pool crosses and carries almost no information within either stratum. Panel B: the two F_ST definitions on identical data, differing only in the reference in the denominator.

A raw count of segregating loci explains the same variance – distance is adding nothing beyond "are these parents in different pools", which you already know.

Rank crosses on `sigma_dh_crosses()` computed from marker effects, not on distance.

13.4 S3: selecting lines per se

Two points of practice.

Apply the constraint within each pool separately. A pooled constraint can be satisfied by keeping the pools apart while both erode internally – exactly the failure mode S1 exists to prevent.

Measure loss against a same-size resampling baseline.

```
merit <- as.vector(GL %*% sim$beta)
merit <- (merit - mean(merit)) / sd(merit)
top   <- order(merit, decreasing = TRUE)[1:20]
fmt(loss_vs_resampling(top, fL, B = 300), 4)
#>    GD_selected GD_random_mean       loss_pct     percentile
#>         0.3245         0.3271         0.8029         0.0700
```

13.4.1 Trap 5: the incremental greedy constraint silently returns nothing

The natural implementation – "add the next-best line while θ stays below the ceiling" – **cannot work**, and fails silently by returning an empty set. Group coancestry includes the diagonal, so a single line has $\theta = 1$ and any pair has $\theta = (1 + f_{ij})/2$. A ceiling calibrated on a large pool is unreachable at small set sizes; the greedy never gets past the first candidate.

```
ceiling20 <- theta_ceiling(fL, n_sel = 20, alpha = 0.005)
c(ceiling             = ceiling20,
  theta_single_line   = fL[1, 1],
  theta_best_pair     = min((1 + fL[upper.tri(fL)]) / 2),
  any_pair_admissible = any((1 + fL[upper.tri(fL)]) / 2 <= ceiling20))
#>             ceiling   theta_single_line     theta_best_pair any_pair_admissible
#>           0.6746394           1.0000000           0.8008333           0.0000000
```

No single line and no pair can satisfy the ceiling. θ falls monotonically as the set grows, so **the constraint is only meaningful at the target size**:

```
sizes <- c(2, 3, 5, 8, 12, 20, 30, 45, 60)
th <- vapply(sizes, function(n) mean(replicate(50, {
  s <- sample.int(nrow(fL), n); mean(fL[s, s])})), numeric(1))
plot(sizes, th, type = "b", pch = 19, xlab = "set size", ylab = expression(theta))
abline(h = ceiling20, col = "#b2182b", lty = 2, lwd = 2)
legend("topright", c("mean theta of a random set", "ceiling for n = 20"),
       col = c("black", "#b2182b"), lty = c(1, 2), pch = c(19, NA), bty = "n")
grid()
```

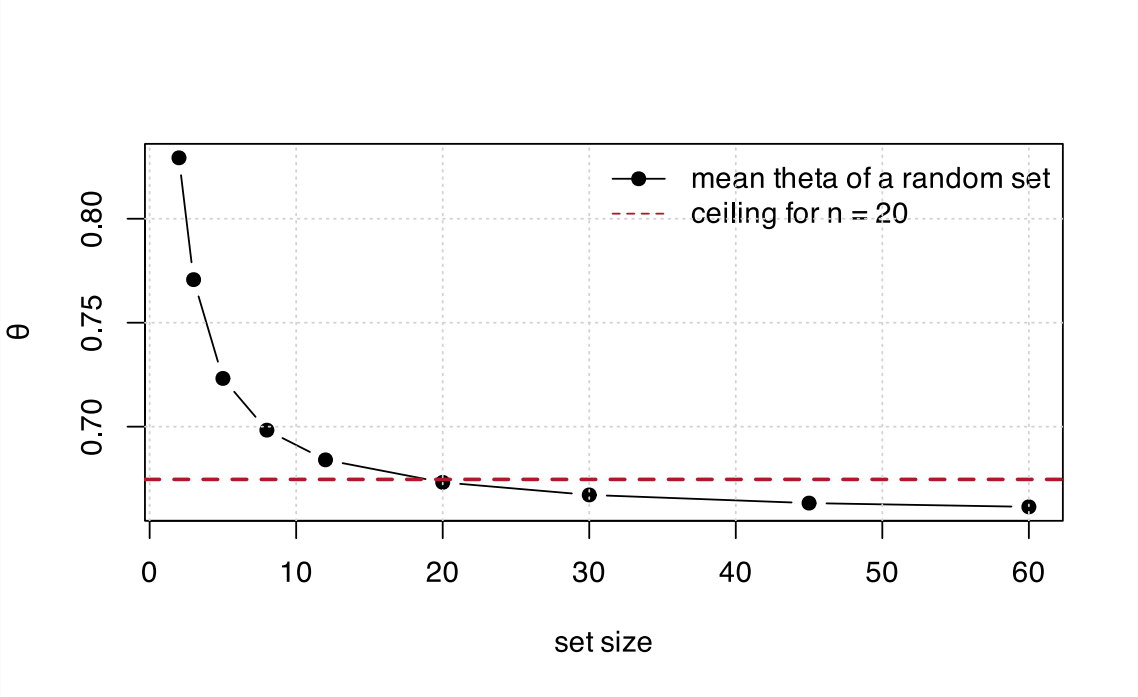

Figure 13.2: Group coancestry falls monotonically with set size. A ceiling calibrated at the target size is unreachable at every smaller size, which is why an incremental greedy stops at the first candidate.

The working route is **truncate-then-repair**: take the top `n_sel` by merit, then swap the most-related member for the least-related non-member until the ceiling is met, breaking ties on merit.

```
sel <- select_lines_constrained(merit, fL, n_sel = 20, theta_max = ceiling20)
c(n_selected   = length(sel),
  theta        = s3_theta(sel, fL),
```

```
  ceiling      = ceiling20,
  met          = s3_theta(sel, fL) <= ceiling20,
  mean_merit   = mean(merit[sel]),
  merit_of_top = mean(merit[top]))
#>   n_selected        theta      ceiling          met   mean_merit merit_of_top
#>   20.0000000    0.6755400    0.6746394    0.0000000    1.0724564    1.0724564
```

`theta_ceiling()` expresses the ceiling as a permitted **proportional loss** against the same-size baseline, so the constraint means the same thing at every set size.

13.5 S4: hybrid mining

With $\mathbf{u}$ the line-usage count vector over the n selected hybrids,

$$\theta_{hyb} = \frac{\mathbf{u}^\top \mathbf{f}^L \mathbf{u}}{(2n)^2} \tag{13.6}$$

```
set.seed(91)
hyb <- sample.int(ctx$N, 100)
u   <- line_usage(hyb, ctx$parents, ctx$n_lines)
c(theta_from_usage = hybrid_theta_from_usage(u, fL),
  theta_from_matrix = ref_theta(hyb, ctx),
  deviation = hybrid_theta_from_usage(u, fL) - ref_theta(hyb, ctx))
#>  theta_from_usage theta_from_matrix         deviation
#>         0.6620848         0.6620848         0.0000000
```

Deviation exactly zero. This is the collapse of Section 12.1: cost drops from $O(n^2)$ over an $N \times N$ hybrid matrix to $O(L^2)$ with no hybrid matrix formed at all.

Expected heterozygosity of the hybrid set needs no separate computation: for hybrids of fixed lines it is exactly $1 - \theta_{hyb}$.

```
c(theta = hybrid_theta_from_usage(u, fL),
  He    = 1 - hybrid_theta_from_usage(u, fL),
  Ne    = ne_parents_from_counts(u),
  pool_balance = pool_balance(hyb, ctx$parents, pool))
#>         theta            He            Ne pool_balance1 pool_balance2
#>     0.6620848     0.3379152    49.6277916     0.5000000     0.5000000
```

13.6 Where the diversity actually goes

The four stages were simulated end to end over **8 independent founder pools** (120 lines, 6000 markers, target $F_{ST} = 0.15$; 20 crosses, 40 DH each, 80 lines selected, 200 hybrids mined), under two cross-selection strategies: merit only, and merit plus a diversity term on parental coancestry.

Loss at each stage is proportional loss of gene diversity against that stage's **own same-size resampling baseline**, so the stages sit on one scale.

stage	loss_pct.UC + div	share_of_total.UC + div	loss_pct.UC only	share_of_total.UC only
S2 DH induction	3.43	35.51	9.40	77.46
S3 line per se	2.98	28.99	0.32	2.55
S4 hybrid mining	3.47	35.49	2.48	19.99

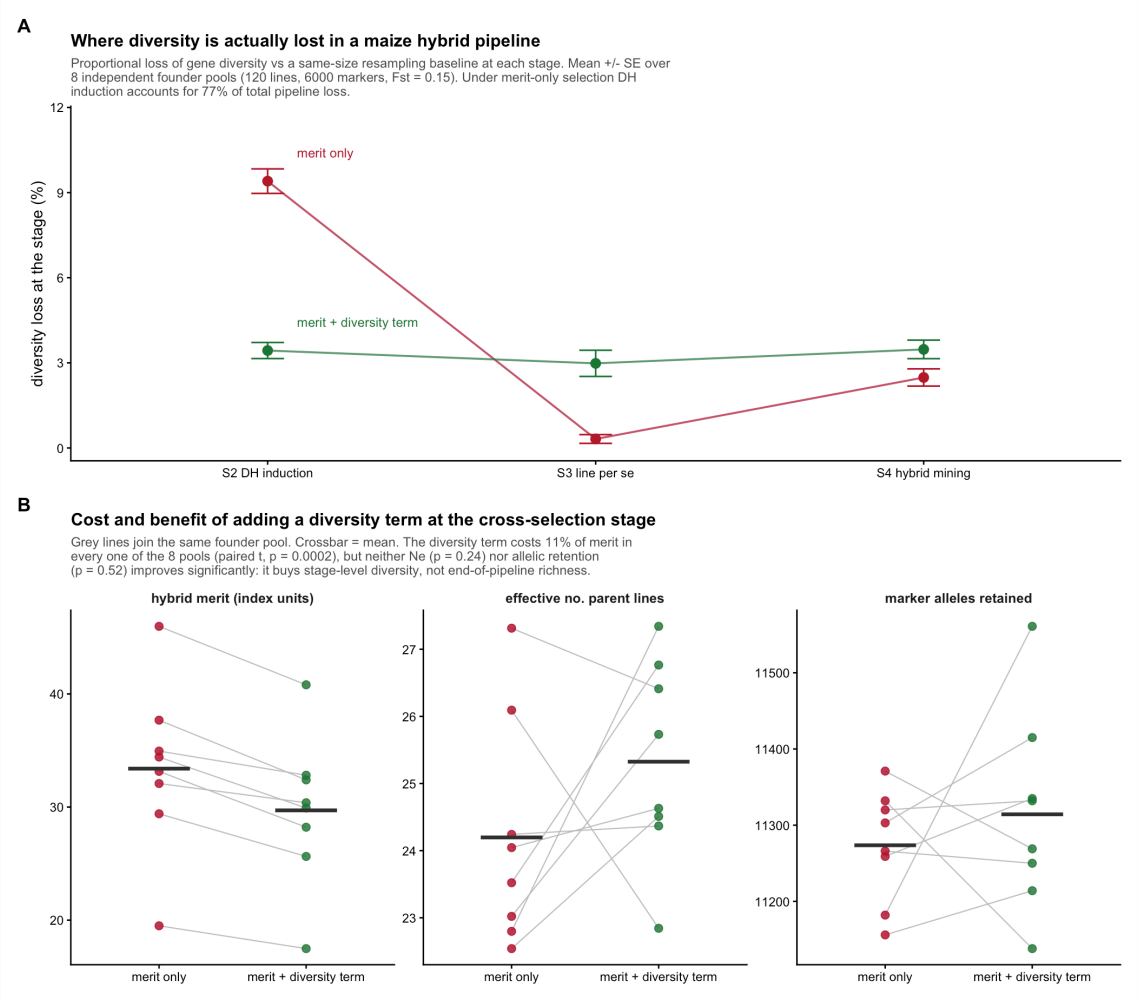

Figure 13.3: Where the diversity goes. DH induction dominates, and a diversity term applied there redistributes loss rather than removing it.

DH induction dominates. Under merit-only cross selection it accounts for **77% of all diversity lost in the pipeline** – more than three times the loss at hybrid mining, which is where optimisation effort conventionally goes.

The reason is structural: 20 crosses out of 1770 possible within-pool combinations is a far harsher bottleneck than 200 hybrids out of 1600, and the S2 collapse makes it the cheapest stage to constrain.

13.6.1 What the diversity term buys, and what it does not

Outcome	merit only	merit + diversity	paired t (n = 8)
hybrid merit	33.4	29.71	**p = 0.0002**
effective no. parent lines	24.2	25.33	p = 0.24
marker alleles retained	11274.0	11314.00	p = 0.52

The merit cost is **11%, consistent in all 8 pools**. Neither end-of-pipeline diversity outcome improves significantly. The diversity term redistributes loss across stages – it flattens the S2 spike – but with downstream selection still running on merit alone, the pipeline reconverges. Diversity spent at S2 is partly reclaimed at S3 and S4.

> A diversity constraint applied at one stage buys stage-level diversity, not end-of-pipeline richness. If allelic richness in the commercial hybrid set is the target, the constraint has to be carried through all four stages, and the loss ledger is the instrument for allocating a budget across them.

13.7 Cost summary

Stage	Function	Cost	Notes
S1	`theta_decompose`	O(L^2) once per cycle	monitoring, not an inner loop
S2	`dh_pool_theta`	O(L^2) per plan	no DH genotypes needed
S2	`sigma_dh_crosses`	O(C m)	the real cost at this stage
S3	`select_lines_constrained`	O(swaps x n)	swaps typically under 20
S4	`hybrid_theta_from_usage`	O(L^2) per evaluation	no N x N matrix

The $O(L^2)$ quadratic form is the recurring shape. With L in the hundreds it is microseconds, which is why the whole pipeline can be optimised inside a metaheuristic. The dominant cost anywhere here is `sigma_dh_crosses` at S2, because it touches the marker matrix – cache it per candidate cross rather than recomputing inside the optimiser loop.

13.8 Checklist

1. Compute the coancestry matrix once per cycle; never report modified Rogers distance alongside it as separate evidence.
2. Monitor within-pool `GD` per pool, not pooled `GD`; state which F_{ST} definition you use; hold it in a band.
3. Rank crosses on σ_{DH} from marker effects, never on parental distance.
4. Evaluate the crossing plan's θ_{pool} *before* making the crosses – it is a quadratic form in parent usage.
5. Calibrate every diversity ceiling against a same-size resampling baseline, and apply it at the target set size.
6. Constrain within pool, at every stage – a single-stage constraint does not survive to the hybrid set.
7. At S4, use the line-usage collapse; the hybrid coancestry matrix is never needed.
8. Keep the per-stage loss ledger. It is the only way to see that DH induction, not hybrid mining, is where the diversity goes.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **08-pipeline-stages.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

14. Predicting breeding values: GBLUP, BayesA, BayesB

Two earlier chapters flagged the same gap and moved on. Chapter 6. built `ctx$traits` from *known* marker effects and called the result "an optimistic ceiling." Chapter 12.'s Finding 5 showed what happens once the index carries real error, but manufactured that error rather than fitting a model to produce it, and Chapter 25. will repeat the caveat. This chapter is where the gap closes: it fits actual prediction models to a training population with real phenotypic noise, and hands the result to the same `stage1_build()` contract every later chapter already consumes.

`vanraden_G()` has said since Chapter 2. that its matrix "is the right matrix for GBLUP." Nothing in the package has used it that way until now.

The chapter also has a second job, which only became apparent once the models were fitted: an accuracy number means nothing until you say what was hidden from the model. Section 14.4 shows that the obvious split – hold out a random 40% of the hybrids – answers the easiest of the three questions a hybrid programme actually asks, and that the fit itself says so, before the truth is consulted.

Every model fitted below follows the same two-step logic, and it is worth stating plainly before any equation appears, because it is the entire economic case for genomic selection in an outcrossing, hybrid crop. **Step one, training:** markers and phenotypes recorded on a historical population – lines or hybrids already evaluated in earlier trials – are used to estimate a relationship between genotype and phenotype, either as marker effects (BayesA/BayesB/ridge) or as a variance structure over relatives (GBLUP). **Step two, prediction:** that same relationship is applied to the markers of candidate hybrids that have never been phenotyped, to rank them before any resource is committed to growing them out. In a self-pollinated crop the second step is a convenience; in a cross-pollinated, hybrid crop it is transformative, because Section 14.2 below shows that a hybrid's value is additive in its two parents' genotypes, so step two can score a line-by-line combination that has never even been made as a physical cross. Genotyping two parent lines already on hand is enough to rank a candidate that would otherwise cost a full generation to phenotype – the saving Chapter 13. calls hybrid mining (S4).

14.1 A training population with real noise

Everywhere else in this book, `ctx$index` *is* the truth. Here it plays a different role: it is the value a real breeding programme does not get to see, and can only estimate from phenotypes recorded on a subset of individuals. Building that subset takes three steps: manufacture a phenotype by adding noise to the true genetic value, split the population into the individuals that will carry a phenotype and those that will not, then hand only the first group's records to the models fitted below.

```
ctx <- simulate_data(book_cfg)
N   <- ctx$N
g   <- ctx$traits[, 1]          # the true genetic value -- known only to us
```

A phenotype is the genetic value plus environmental noise, $y = g + e$, and heritability is the fraction of phenotypic variance the genetic part accounts for, $h^2 = \mathrm{Var}(g)/(\mathrm{Var}(g) + \mathrm{Var}(e))$. `traits` is built by `scale()`, so $\mathrm{Var}(g) = 1$ exactly, and the noise variance that delivers a target h^2 is $(1 - h^2)/h^2$:

```
h2 <- 0.5
set.seed(9)
e <- rnorm(N, 0, sqrt((1 - h2) / h2))
y <- g + e
```

Split the population into a training set, whose phenotypes the model gets to see, and a candidate set – the hybrids actually being selected among – whose phenotypes it does not. This mirrors the two roles a real programme's germplasm plays at any one time: training stands in for hybrids already phenotyped

in earlier trials, and candidates stand in for this cycle's untested combinations, ranked here purely from markers:

```
set.seed(9)
train <- sample.int(N, floor(0.6 * N))
cand  <- setdiff(seq_len(N), train)
c(train = length(train), candidates = length(cand))
#>      train candidates
#>        375        250
```

14.2 The truth this chapter is predicting

Two properties of g decide everything that follows, and both are consequences of how Chapter 6. built it rather than choices made here.

14.2.1 The generative model is GBLUP's own assumption

`ctx$traits` is `scale(Z %*% B)` with the marker effects $\mathbf{B}$ drawn independently. For a single trait that is $\mathbf{g} = \mathbf{Z}\boldsymbol{\beta}$ with $\mathrm{Var}(\boldsymbol{\beta}) = \mathbf{I}\sigma^2_\beta$, so

$$\mathrm{Var}(\mathbf{g}) = \mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}'\sigma^2_\beta = \mathbf{G}\underbrace{2\sum_k p_k(1-p_k)\,\sigma^2_\beta}_{\sigma^2_u}, \tag{14.1}$$

because $\mathbf{G}$ is *defined* as $\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}'$ over that same divisor (Chapter 2.). The second equality is exact, not approximate:

```
vr <- vanraden_G(ctx$X * 2)
s2 <- 2 * sum(vr$p * (1 - vr$p))
max(abs(tcrossprod(vr$Z) / s2 - ctx$G))
#> [1] 0
```

So the covariance GBLUP *assumes* for the breeding values is, up to the scalar σ^2_u, the covariance the breeding values actually have. This simulation is the infinitesimal model, exactly and not approximately, and that single fact is most of the answer to "which model wins" below. It is also the sense in which every accuracy in this chapter is a best case: no model here is misspecified.

14.2.2 A hybrid's value is the mean of two parental values

The hybrids are F1s of homozygous lines, so a hybrid's marker row is the average of its two parents' rows, and averaging is linear. For *any* additive effect vector whatsoever, the hybrid's genetic value is therefore the mean of the two parental line values – general combining ability, with no specific combining ability left over:

```
L  <- simulate_lines(book_cfg)
bb <- rnorm(ctx$m)                    # any effects at all; the identity is linear
vL <- as.numeric((L / 2) %*% bb)      # the parental line values they imply
max(abs(as.numeric(ctx$X %*% bb) - (vL[ctx$ped$a] + vL[ctx$ped$b]) / 2))
#> [1] 1.563194e-13
```

The residual is at machine precision because the statement is an identity. Two consequences run through the rest of the chapter. The mild one is that a "hybrid-specific" prediction has nothing to predict here: the dominance deviations of Chapter 5. are absent from `ctx$traits` by construction, so SCA is not merely unmodelled, it is not in the data. The sharp one is Section 14.3.2.

There is a third consequence, and it is the operational payoff of everything in this chapter. Because a hybrid's value is a fixed linear function of its two parents' marker genotypes, once marker effects are estimated from a training population of phenotyped hybrids (or lines), that same estimate scores *any* line A x line B combination – including combinations of lines that have never been crossed. Ranking a candidate hybrid this way costs a genotyping assay on two lines that are typically already on hand from earlier pipeline stages; the alternative, growing out the actual hybrid to phenotype it, costs a full crossing and evaluation cycle. That difference is what makes genomic selection valuable specifically in a cross-

pollinated, hybrid crop, where the space of candidate combinations is combinatorially larger than the number of lines ever phenotyped as hybrids.

14.3 GBLUP: prediction from the relationship matrix

GBLUP treats the breeding value as a random effect $\mathbf{u}$ with covariance proportional to the genomic relationship matrix, $\mathrm{Var}(\mathbf{u}) = \mathbf{G}\,\sigma_u^2$, and solves the mixed model equations. Fitting and using it is three operational steps, in this order: first write down the mixed model equations linking phenotypes, a relationship matrix and a variance ratio; second, solve that linear system once, for every individual in the population at the same time, training and candidates alike; third, convert the same solve's by-product – the inverse of its coefficient matrix – into a reliability for each prediction, which is the only part of the output a programme can trust without knowing the truth.

14.3.1 Where the mixed model equations come from

The model is $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{1}\mu + \mathbf{Z}\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{e}$ with $\mathbf{u} \sim (\mathbf{0}, \mathbf{G}\sigma_u^2)$ and $\mathbf{e} \sim (\mathbf{0}, \mathbf{I}\sigma_e^2)$ independent. Treating $\mathbf{u}$ as a random variable rather than a parameter to be estimated, C. R. Henderson [65] maximises the *joint* density of what is observed and what is not,

$$-2\log p(\mathbf{y},\mathbf{u}) \propto \frac{(\mathbf{y}-\mathbf{1}\mu-\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{u})'(\mathbf{y}-\mathbf{1}\mu-\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{u})}{\sigma_e^2} + \frac{\mathbf{u}'\mathbf{G}^{-1}\mathbf{u}}{\sigma_u^2}, \tag{14.2}$$

and the two stationarity conditions, multiplied through by σ_e^2, *are*

$$\begin{bmatrix} \mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1} & \mathbf{1}'\mathbf{Z} \\ \mathbf{Z}'\mathbf{1} & \mathbf{Z}'\mathbf{Z} + \mathbf{G}^{-1}\lambda \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \hat{\mu} \\ \hat{\mathbf{u}} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} \mathbf{1}'\mathbf{y} \\ \mathbf{Z}'\mathbf{y} \end{bmatrix}, \qquad \lambda = \sigma_e^2/\sigma_u^2, \tag{14.3}$$

with $\mathbf{Z}$ the incidence matrix mapping training records to individuals. Three things fall out of that derivation that the equations alone do not say.

$\mathbf{u}$ is defined over *all* N individuals, training and candidates together – it enters through the prior, not through the data – so one solve produces predictions for both, and a candidate with no record of its own is predicted entirely by its $\mathbf{G}$ entries against individuals that do have one. Everything Section 14.4 finds is a consequence of that sentence.

λ is a variance *ratio*, not a tuning parameter: $\sigma_u^2 = 1$ because `traits` is standardised, and `e` was built with variance $(1-h^2)/h^2$, so $\lambda = (1-h^2)/h^2$ is not a coincidence but the same number entered twice. Nothing in this chapter estimates it; a real programme would, by REML.

And under normality the joint maximiser is the conditional mean, $\hat{\mathbf{u}} = \mathbb{E}[\mathbf{u} \mid \mathbf{y}]$, which is why BLUP minimises mean squared error rather than merely being a sensible shrinkage rule. Dropping normality it remains best among *linear* predictors, which is what the acronym claims.

14.3.2 Why the ridge blend is not optional

Section 2.2 proves $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{1} = 0$ and reads it as the reason $\mathbf{G}$ cannot measure diversity. It has a second consequence, for prediction. $\mathbf{G}$ is positive semi-definite, and a quadratic form of a PSD matrix vanishes only on its null space, so $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{1} = 0$ forces

$$\mathbf{G}\mathbf{1} = \mathbf{0}. \tag{14.4}$$

$\mathbf{G}$ is singular for *every* population, whatever N and m are. The blend is not insurance against an awkward case; without it `solve()` has nothing to invert.

Here it is much worse than one lost dimension. By the identity of Section 14.2 every hybrid row is an average of two line rows, so the whole $N \times m$ matrix lives in the span of the L line genotypes. Each hybrid uses exactly one line from each pool, which makes the pool-A indicator columns sum to the pool-B ones and costs a further dimension, and centering costs one more:

```
c(max_abs_G_times_one = max(abs(ctx$G %*% rep(1, N))))
#> max_abs_G_times_one
#>         1.16334e-13
```

```
rank_G <- function(n_per_pool) {
    cfg  <-  utils::modifyList(book_cfg,  list(n_pool_A  =  n_per_pool,  n_pool_B  =
n_per_pool))
  G   <- simulate_data(cfg)$G
  c(lines = 2 * n_per_pool, hybrids = nrow(G),
    rank = sum(eigen(G, only.values = TRUE)$values > 1e-8))
}
```

lines	hybrids	rank
20	100	18
40	400	38
50	625	48

$\mathrm{rank}(\mathbf{G}) = L - 2$, independent of both the number of hybrids and the number of markers. At the book's scale that is 48 dimensions carrying 625 hybrids: 577 of the eigenvalues are exactly zero, and `0.95 * G + 0.05 * I` is what makes the equations solvable at all. Fifty lines were genotyped and crossed into 625 combinations, but there were only ever 48 independent dimensions to measure – and no amount of phenotyping the 625 adds a forty-ninth.

```
G <- ctx$G
gblup <- function(y, train, h2) {
  Gstar <- 0.95 * G + 0.05 * diag(N)
  n_t <- length(train)
  Z  <- matrix(0, n_t, N); Z[cbind(seq_len(n_t), train)] <- 1
  X1 <- matrix(1, n_t, 1); lambda <- (1 - h2) / h2
  LHS <- rbind(cbind(crossprod(X1), crossprod(X1, Z)),
               cbind(crossprod(Z, X1), crossprod(Z) + solve(Gstar) * lambda))
  RHS <- rbind(crossprod(X1, y[train]), crossprod(Z, y[train]))
  C   <- solve(LHS)                                    # kept: it carries the PEVs
  list(u   = (C %*% RHS)[-1],
       rel = 1 - diag(C)[-1] * lambda / diag(Gstar))
}
fit   <- gblup(y, train, h2)
u_hat <- fit$u
cat("GBLUP accuracy (candidates):", cor(u_hat[cand], g[cand]), "\n")
#> GBLUP accuracy (candidates): 0.9596232
```

14.3.3 Reliability: the accuracy you can compute without the truth

This is the third step promised above. Inverting the coefficient matrix rather than just solving against it costs one more decomposition and returns something a breeding programme can act on: a per-candidate confidence figure computed the same day the GEBV is, with no field trial required to check it. The $\mathbf{u}$ block of that inverse holds the prediction error variances, $\mathrm{PEV}_i = \sigma_e^2\,[\mathbf{C}^{uu}]_{ii}$, and the reliability of an individual's prediction is the fraction of its prior variance the data removed:

$$r_i^2 = 1 - \frac{\mathrm{PEV}_i}{\sigma_u^2\,\mathbf{G}^{*}_{ii}}. \tag{14.5}$$

This is the same r as the accuracy reported everywhere in this chapter, with one difference that is the entire point: g does not appear in it. A programme can compute it for candidates it has never phenotyped and never will.

```
c(mean_reliability = mean(fit$rel[cand]),
  implied_accuracy = sqrt(mean(fit$rel[cand])),
  realised_accuracy = cor(u_hat[cand], g[cand]))
#>  mean_reliability  implied_accuracy realised_accuracy
#>         0.8016810         0.8953664         0.9596232
```

The model under-states itself by about 0.06. Some of that is the blend's doing: $0.95\mathbf{G} + 0.05\mathbf{I}$ tells the equations that every candidate carries 5% of variance no relative can explain, and each r_i^2 is computed against that inflated prior. Dialling the blend down says how much:

```
blend <- function(w) {
  Gstar <- w * G + (1 - w) * diag(N)
  n_t <- length(train)
  Z  <- matrix(0, n_t, N); Z[cbind(seq_len(n_t), train)] <- 1
  X1 <- matrix(1, n_t, 1); lambda <- (1 - h2) / h2
  C  <- solve(rbind(cbind(crossprod(X1), crossprod(X1, Z)),
                    cbind(crossprod(Z, X1), crossprod(Z) + solve(Gstar) * lambda)))
  sqrt(mean((1 - diag(C)[-1] * lambda / diag(Gstar))[cand]))
}
c(implied_at_0.95 = blend(0.95), implied_at_0.999 = blend(0.999),
  realised = cor(u_hat[cand], g[cand]))
#>  implied_at_0.95 implied_at_0.999         realised
#>        0.8953664        0.9272495        0.9596232
```

Roughly half the gap, then, and the other half survives however little identity is mixed in. A mean reliability and a correlation taken across a *set* of candidates are not the same quantity: the second is helped by the spread of true values among the candidates, which the first knows nothing about. Both halves point the same way – the reliability is conservative – and Section 14.4 shows that the gap is this small only because this particular split was easy.

14.4 What the random split was measuring

The split at the top of this chapter took a random 60% of the *hybrids*. There are 625 hybrids but only 50 lines, so a sample that size contains every line several times over: each of the 250 candidates has **both of its parents** sitting in the training set, in other hybrids with recorded phenotypes. Given Section 14.2 – a hybrid's value is the mean of its two parental values – that split asks the model to interpolate inside a factorial whose margins it has already seen. It is not a hard question.

J. Burgueño, G. de los Campos, K. Weigel, and J. Crossa [66] named the schemes that distinguish the cases, and F. Technow, T. A. Schrag, W. Schipprack, E. Bauer, H. Simianer, and A. E. Melchinger [35] applied them to exactly this design, a factorial between two heterotic pools. Holding out *lines* rather than hybrids splits the candidates three ways: both parents seen (the random split, CV2), one parent unseen (CV1), neither parent seen (CV0). Removing 8 lines from each pool leaves 289 training hybrids and gives 272 CV1 and 64 CV0 candidates; the CV2 row below draws a random training set of the same 289, so the only thing that differs across the three rows is *what* was hidden, not how much.

```
cv_split <- function(seed, k = 8) {
  set.seed(seed)
  hoA <- sample(unique(ctx$ped$a), k)
  hoB <- sample(unique(ctx$ped$b), k)
  seen_a <- !(ctx$ped$a %in% hoA)
  seen_b <- !(ctx$ped$b %in% hoB)
  lin <- gblup(y, which(seen_a & seen_b), h2)          # lines held out
  rnd <- sample.int(N, sum(seen_a & seen_b))           # same size, random hybrids
  rd  <- gblup(y, rnd, h2)
  i2  <- setdiff(seq_len(N), rnd)
  i1  <- which(xor(seen_a, seen_b))
  i0  <- which(!seen_a & !seen_b)
  c(CV2 = cor(rd$u[i2],  g[i2]),  r2 = sqrt(mean(rd$rel[i2])),
    CV1 = cor(lin$u[i1], g[i1]),  r1 = sqrt(mean(lin$rel[i1])),
    CV0 = cor(lin$u[i0], g[i0]),  r0 = sqrt(mean(lin$rel[i0])))
}
cv <- t(sapply(1:20, cv_split))
```

scheme	accuracy	sd	reliability
CV2 – random hybrids held out	0.932	0.013	0.873
CV1 – one parent unseen	0.653	0.073	0.644
CV0 – both parents unseen	0.122	0.217	0.128

The accuracy the chapter opened with survives only in the first row. Ask the model about a hybrid with one unseen parent and it drops by a third; ask about one with two unseen parents and what is left is 0.12,

with a spread across replicates nearly twice that – small, and not reliably distinguishable from nothing. D. Habier, R. L. Fernando, and J. C. M. Dekkers [67] separate the two things a genomic prediction can be using – the relationship between candidates and training individuals, and the marker effects estimated in their own right – and this table is that separation, measured. The first row is almost entirely relatedness. The third row is what is left when relatedness is removed, and it is the honest measure of what the 2000 markers bought.

That the third row collapses is not a defect of the fit. It is $\operatorname{rank}(\mathbf{G}) = L - 2$ again: the 289 training records carry at most 34 lines' worth of independent information, and asking them to pin down 2000 marker effects well enough to score a genotype no relative shares is asking for something that was never in the data. H. D. Daetwyler, B. Villanueva, and J. A. Woolliams [68] give the deterministic accuracy for exactly that regime, $r = \sqrt{nh^2/(nh^2 + M_e)}$, and with the units the simulation actually has – n the independent *lines*, and M_e the marker count, because these markers are drawn independently and carry no linkage to bundle them into segments – it agrees:

```
n_lines_train <- 2 * (book_cfg$n_pool_A - 8)
c(deterministic = sqrt(n_lines_train * h2 / (n_lines_train * h2 + book_cfg$m)),
  measured_CV0  = mean(cv[, "CV0"]))
#> deterministic  measured_CV0
#>    0.09180609    0.12191453
```

The most useful column is the last one in the table. The reliabilities computed from the mixed model equations – with no access to g – track the realised accuracies down the collapse, 0.64 against 0.65 for CV1 and 0.13 against 0.12 for CV0. The model knows. A programme that reports reliability alongside every GEBV does not need to discover this the way this chapter did; the warning is in the same solve that produced the prediction.

> ⚠ Report which parents the training set had seen
>
> An accuracy figure without its cross-validation scheme is not interpretable. The same fit, the same data and the same trait give 0.93, 0.65 or 0.12 here depending only on which hybrids were withheld. In a hybrid programme this is not a technicality: CV2 is the accuracy for filling in a partly-observed factorial, CV1 for a cross onto a new line from one pool, CV0 for a cross between two new lines. They are different questions, and only the first one is easy.

14.5 BayesA and BayesB: prediction from marker effects

GBLUP assumes every marker contributes an equal, infinitesimal share of the genetic variance. The Bayesian alphabet [69], [70] relaxes that one assumption at a time. **BayesA** gives every marker its own variance, drawn from a scaled-inverse-χ^2 prior – effects are shrunk individually rather than uniformly, which matters when a few markers carry much more signal than the rest. **BayesB** adds a point mass at zero: each marker has prior probability π of being excluded entirely, so the model performs variable selection as it fits. Both reduce to GBLUP's ridge-regression solution as a special case; they differ only in how much of the genetic architecture they let the data shape.

Fitting either is a different computational route to the same train-then-predict logic as GBLUP, in four steps rather than one linear solve: (1) declare a prior distribution for each marker effect β_k, the thing that separates the three models; (2) run a Gibbs sampler that alternates between drawing each β_k given the current residuals and every other parameter, and drawing the variance components given the current effects, on the training records only; (3) average the post-burn-in draws into a single point estimate $\hat{\boldsymbol{\beta}}$; (4) predict any candidate, phenotyped or not, by multiplying its marker dosages by $\hat{\boldsymbol{\beta}}$ – exactly the same last step as scoring a hybrid from GBLUP's $\hat{\mathbf{u}}$, just reached through markers instead of a relationship matrix.

14.5.1 The priors, explicitly

All three models write $\mathbf{g} = \mathbf{Z}\boldsymbol{\beta}$ and differ only in what they assume about β_k. Ridge regression, and therefore GBLUP, uses one variance for every marker; BayesA gives each marker its own, drawn from a scaled inverse chi-square; BayesB puts a spike at zero in front of it:

$$\text{ridge, and so GBLUP:}\quad \beta_k \sim N(0, \sigma^2_\beta) \qquad \text{BayesA:}\quad \beta_k \sim N(0, \sigma^2_k), \sigma^2_k \sim \chi^{-2}(\nu, S) \tag{14.6}$$

$$\text{BayesB:}\quad \beta_k \sim \begin{cases} 0 & \text{with probability } \pi \\ N(0, \sigma_k^2) & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases} \tag{14.7}$$

The scaled inverse chi-square is the conjugate prior for a normal variance, which is the whole reason it appears: it keeps the Gibbs sampler in closed form. Its two hyperparameters are the arguments the fits below pass. ν is `df = 5`, the prior weight in pseudo-observations – small, so the prior stays vague, but not zero, because the posterior is improper at $\nu = 0$. S is set from `R2 = 0.5`, the share of phenotypic variance the prior expects the markers to explain, spread over the markers by their observed variation. Neither is fitted; both are choices, and `R2` in particular is a statement about heritability made before seeing the data.

This book fits both with `bWGR::BayesA()`/`bWGR::BayesB()` [71] rather than by hand – unlike GBLUP, a Gibbs sampler over marker effects is not the few lines the mixed-model solve above was, and `bWGR` is exactly the tool `vanraden_G()`'s docstring pointed toward without naming:

```
library(bWGR)
M <- ctx$X * 2   # dosage 0/1/2, what bWGR expects
fitA <- BayesA(y[train], M[train, ], it = 1500, bi = 500, df = 5, R2 = 0.5)
fitB <- BayesB(y[train], M[train, ], it = 1500, bi = 500, pi = 0.95, df = 5, R2
= 0.5)
predA <- as.numeric(M[cand, ] %*% fitA$b)
predB <- as.numeric(M[cand, ] %*% fitB$b)
c(BayesA = cor(predA, g[cand]), BayesB = cor(predB, g[cand]))
#>    BayesA    BayesB
#> 0.9606263 0.9599031
```

Both fits produce a marker-effect vector `$b`; a candidate's GEBV is just its genotypes dotted with those effects. GBLUP produced the same quantity from the relationship matrix instead of the markers directly – two routes to the same thing, checked next.

14.5.2 What the sampler actually selects

Both fits also return the quantities the priors above are about – BayesA's per-marker variances in `$vb`, BayesB's posterior inclusion probabilities in `$d` – and on the polygenic trait there is nothing in them to look at. Rebuild the oligogenic architecture the cached sweep below uses, three markers of 2000 given effects and everything else exactly zero, and there is:

```
set.seed(book_cfg$seed + 42)
qtl  <- sample.int(book_cfg$m, 3)
Bq   <- rep(0, book_cfg$m); Bq[qtl] <- rnorm(3)
g_ol <- as.numeric(scale(vr$Z %*% Bq))
set.seed(31)
y_ol <- g_ol + rnorm(N, 0, sqrt((1 - h2) / h2))
round(apply(vr$Z[, qtl], 2, var) * Bq[qtl]^2 /
      sum(apply(vr$Z[, qtl], 2, var) * Bq[qtl]^2), 3)   # share of variance each
#> [1] 0.962 0.038 0.001
```

Worth knowing before reading anything into the sweep: the three effects were drawn from `rnorm(3)`, and this draw put 96% of the genetic variance on one of them. "Three causal markers" describes the construction; the trait is effectively monogenic, and the true π is nearer $1 - 1/2000$ than the $1 - 3/2000$ the caption below quotes.

```
oA <- BayesA(y_ol[train], M[train, ], it = 1500, bi = 500, df = 5, R2 = 0.5)
oB <- BayesB(y_ol[train], M[train, ], it = 1500, bi = 500, pi = 0.95, df = 5, R2
= 0.5)
big <- qtl[which.max(abs(Bq[qtl]))]
c(BayesB_d_at_QTL   = oB$d[big],  BayesB_d_median  = median(oB$d),
  BayesA_vb_at_QTL  = oA$vb[big], BayesA_vb_median = median(oA$vb))
#>  BayesB_d_at_QTL  BayesB_d_median BayesA_vb_at_QTL BayesA_vb_median
#>      0.999000013      0.179000005      0.011139854      0.002957477
```

```
par(mfrow = c(1, 2), mar = c(4, 4, 2, 1))
for (v in list(list(oB$d, "BayesB: posterior inclusion"),
```

```
                list(oA$vb, "BayesA: marker variance"))) {
  plot(v[[1]], pch = 16, cex = 0.3, col = "grey60", xlab = "marker", ylab = "",
       main = v[[2]], cex.main = 0.95)
  points(big, v[[1]][big], pch = 1, cex = 2, lwd = 2)
}
```

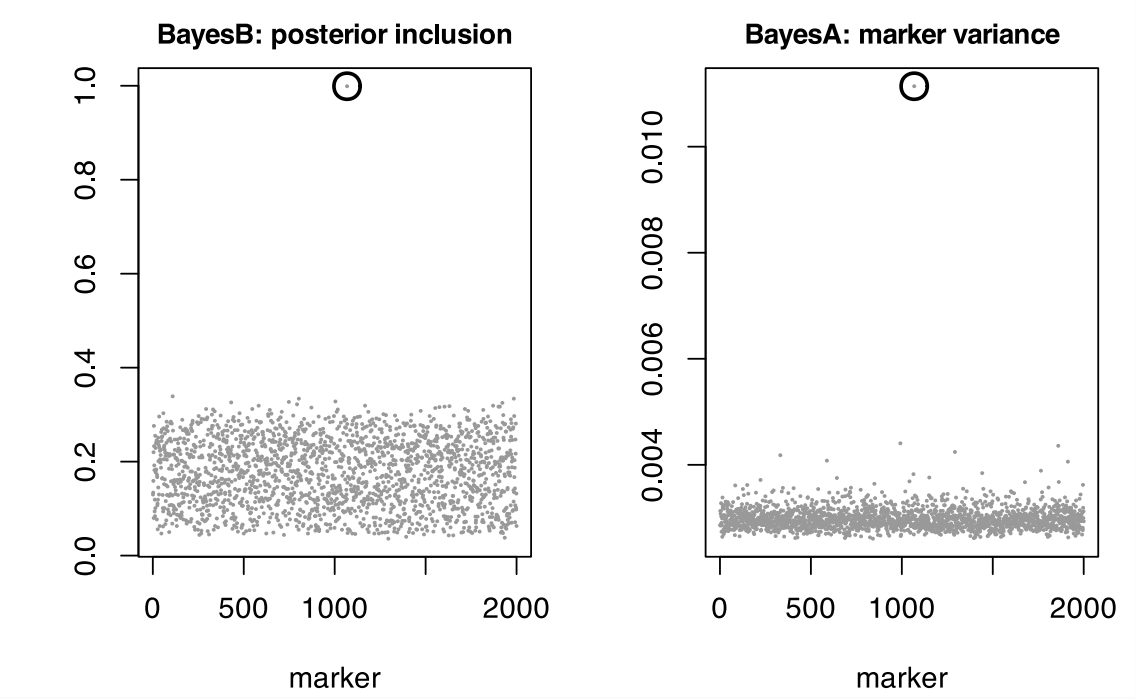

Figure 14.1: The two priors on the same oligogenic trait, with the marker carrying 96% of the genetic variance circled. Both find it. Only BayesB can then remove the other 1999 from the model.

14.5.3 What BayesB does that BayesA cannot

Both panels find the marker, which is worth saying plainly because the usual telling of this comparison implies BayesA does not: its variance for the QTL is about four times the median marker's and sits well clear of the background band. What separates the two priors is not detection but what each can do afterwards.

BayesA estimates a private variance σ^2_k for every marker, and the only data bearing on σ^2_k is the single effect β_k drawn from it. One observation never overwhelms a prior, so each σ^2_k stays near the $\chi^{-2}(\nu, S)$ it started from however many individuals are phenotyped – D. Gianola, G. de los Campos, W. G. Hill, E. Manfredi, and R. Fernando [72] make this the central objection to describing the Bayesian alphabet as "learning the genetic architecture". The cost is not the missed QTL. It is that the other 1999 markers keep a variance they have not earned, and go on absorbing signal that belongs to the one marker that has. BayesB's spike deletes them, and it can afford to because it learns a single shared π from all 2000 markers at once rather than 2000 private variances from one observation each.

So the advantage is real but bounded, and shows up in accuracy rather than in the figure: on this architecture at $h^2 = 0.5$ the table below gives BayesB 0.952 against BayesA's 0.931 and GBLUP's 0.930. BayesA sits with GBLUP, not with BayesB, which is the practical summary of the paragraph above.

14.6 Verification: two routes agree

GBLUP with a flat prior on every marker's variance and the un-selected member of the Bayesian alphabet, Bayesian ridge regression (`iv = FALSE, pi = 0` in `bWGR::wgr()`), are the same model solved two different ways – one through the $N \times N$ relationship matrix, the other through the $N \times m$ marker matrix. The check below has three steps: substitute the marker-space model into the mixed model equations

algebraically, read off the penalty each route implies, and then confirm numerically that the two solutions coincide to machine precision – not merely correlate.

They are the same model in a stronger sense than "they should agree". Substitute $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{Z}\boldsymbol{\beta}$ and $\mathbf{G} = \mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}'/2\sum_k p_k(1-p_k)$ into the equations above and the two solutions are related by an identity: with t the training rows,

$$\hat{\mathbf{u}} = \mathbf{G}_{\cdot t}(\mathbf{G}_{tt} + \mathbf{I}\lambda)^{-1}(\mathbf{y}_t - \hat{\mu}) = \mathbf{Z}\hat{\boldsymbol{\beta}}, \qquad \hat{\boldsymbol{\beta}} = \mathbf{Z}_t'(\mathbf{Z}_t\mathbf{Z}_t' + \mathbf{I}\lambda_\beta)^{-1}(\mathbf{y}_t - \hat{\mu}), \tag{14.8}$$

with the two penalties differing by exactly the divisor that defines $\mathbf{G}$: $\lambda_\beta = \lambda \cdot 2\sum_k p_k(1-p_k)$. Getting that scalar wrong is the usual way this equivalence is reported as "approximate". It is not approximate:

```
lambda <- (1 - h2) / h2
yc  <- y[train] - mean(y[train])
u_G <- G[, train] %*% solve(G[train, train] + diag(lambda, length(train)), yc)
u_M <- vr$Z %*% crossprod(vr$Z[train, ],
         solve(tcrossprod(vr$Z[train, ]) + diag(lambda * s2, length(train)), yc))
max(abs(u_G - u_M))
#> [1] 1.354472e-14
```

Machine precision, over all 625 individuals. Note this route uses the raw $\mathbf{G}$: it needs no inverse of it, so Section 14.3.2's blend never enters, which is also why it is the cleaner statement of the identity.

The Gibbs sampler should land in the same place, and does, though only to sampling error – it is estimating λ from the data rather than being told it, and the blend used in `gblup()` has no exact marker-space equivalent:

```
yobs <- rep(NA_real_, N); yobs[train] <- y[train]
fit_brr <- wgr(yobs, M, iv = FALSE, pi = 0, it = 1500, bi = 500)
c(gblup_vs_gibbs = cor(u_hat, fit_brr$hat - mean(fit_brr$hat)))
#> gblup_vs_gibbs
#>      0.9992759
```

That correlation, 0.999, is the weaker of the two checks and is included because it exercises the code path the Bayesian fits above actually use. The identity is what proves the two routes are one model.

14.7 Which model wins, and when

`ctx$traits` is built from thousands of markers with independent, similarly sized effects – the textbook case GBLUP's infinitesimal-model assumption was designed for. A trait controlled by a handful of large-effect loci is a different regime, and it is the one BayesB's point-mass prior exists for. `book/scripts/regenerate.R genpred` reruns the fits above 15 times each, at two heritabilities, under both `ctx$traits`'s polygenic architecture and a book-local variant with genetic variance concentrated on three markers out of 2000:

arch	h2	GBLUP	BayesA	BayesB
oligogenic	0.2	0.789	0.782	0.788
polygenic	0.2	0.799	0.795	0.798
oligogenic	0.5	0.930	0.931	0.952
polygenic	0.5	0.935	0.935	0.934

```
sub <- reshape(acc, direction = "long", varying = c("GBLUP", "BayesA", "BayesB"),
               v.names = "accuracy", timevar = "method",
               times = c("GBLUP", "BayesA", "BayesB"))
sub$grp <- interaction(sub$arch, sub$h2, sep = "\nh2=")
boxplot(accuracy ~ method + grp, sub, las = 2, cex.axis = 0.7,
        col = rep(c("grey85", "grey65", "grey45"), 4),
        ylab = "accuracy (candidates)")
```

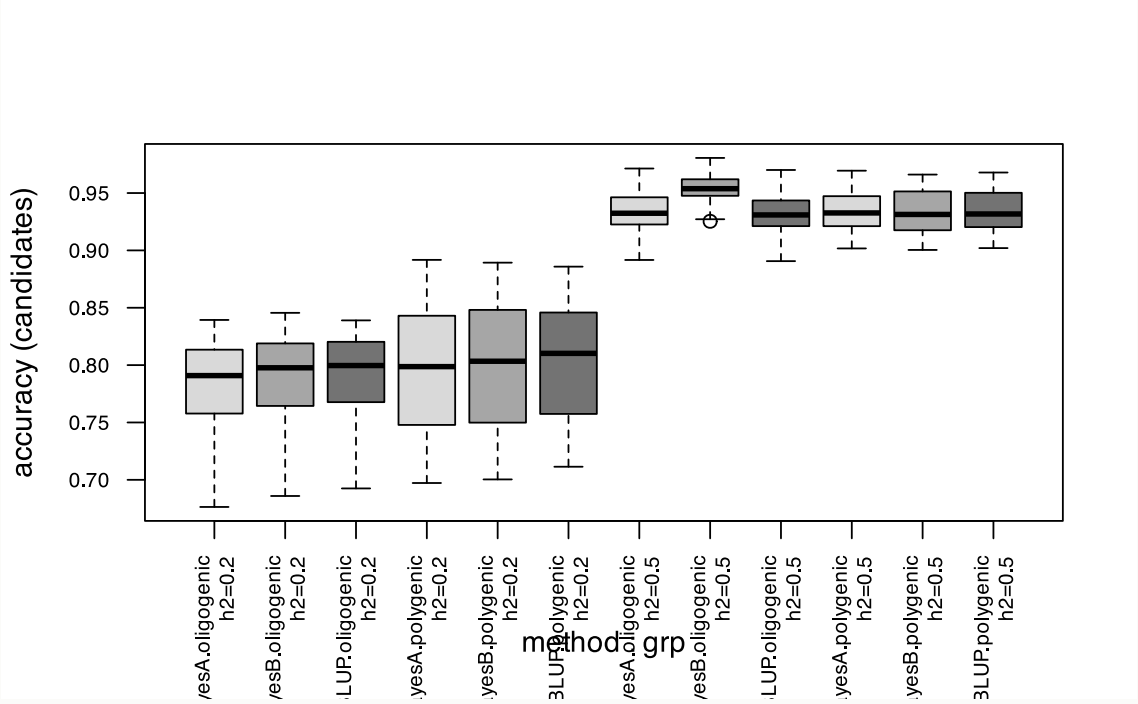

Figure 14.2: Prediction accuracy by architecture and heritability, 15 replicate splits each.

At $h^2 = 0.5$ under the oligogenic architecture, BayesB's mean accuracy is 0.022 higher than GBLUP's – the gap the model was built to close. Under the polygenic architecture the three methods are indistinguishable within replicate noise: with genetic variance spread over thousands of markers, BayesB's variable selection has nothing to select, and its point-mass prior buys nothing GBLUP was not already doing.

That result is not evidence that the alphabet rarely helps. It is Section 14.2 restated: on the polygenic arm the trait was *generated* from one shared marker variance, so GBLUP's prior is the true one and no competitor can do better than match it. What the comparison establishes is the weaker and more useful claim – that BayesA and BayesB cost nothing when they are wrong, and recover a real gap when they are right.

14.7.1 `pi` was fixed, not tuned

A real analyst does not know the true sparsity in advance. `genpred`'s second sweep holds the oligogenic architecture and $h^2 = 0.5$ fixed and only moves `pi`:

pi	BayesB
0.500	0.948
0.900	0.955
0.950	0.958
0.990	0.964
0.995	0.967

Accuracy improves monotonically as `pi` approaches the truth, but the degradation from being off is gradual, not catastrophic – `pi` is worth cross-validating, not agonising over.

The obvious alternative is to stop choosing it. BayesCπ keeps BayesB's spike-and-slab prior but adds one more level: instead of fixing π before the fit, it treats π itself as unknown and updates it by Metropolis-Hastings at every iteration, jointly with the marker effects and their inclusion indicators [71]. In principle that removes the sweep above entirely, since the training data are left to say how sparse the architecture is. Fit it to both architectures:

```
cpi_poly <- BayesCpi(y[train],    M[train, ], it = 1500, bi = 500, df = 5, R2 = 0.5)
cpi_olig <- BayesCpi(y_ol[train], M[train, ], it = 1500, bi = 500, df = 5, R2 = 0.5)
```

```
c(pi_hat_polygenic  = cpi_poly$pi,   # truth: 0
  pi_hat_oligogenic = cpi_olig$pi,   # truth: ~0.9995
  acc_oligogenic    = cor(as.numeric(M[cand, ] %*% cpi_olig$b), g_ol[cand]),
  acc_BayesB_at_095 = cor(as.numeric(M[cand, ] %*% oB$b), g_ol[cand]))
#>  pi_hat_polygenic pi_hat_oligogenic    acc_oligogenic acc_BayesB_at_095
#>         0.4369196         0.4390892         0.9299389         0.9524220
```

It returns essentially the same π for a trait with 2000 causal markers as for one that is effectively monogenic, and predicts the oligogenic trait slightly worse than BayesB told the right answer. With 375 records and 2000 markers there is little in the data that speaks to π specifically – Section 14.3.2's 48 dimensions again – so what comes back is close to the prior. Estimating π is not a substitute for choosing it here; the sweep above remains the honest route.

14.8 From GEBVs to `stage1_build()`

Everything above ends where Chapter 6.'s contract begins, and this is where the opening paragraph's two steps close the loop. Training happened once, on the historical population's markers and phenotypes; the candidates below never contributed a phenotype to that fit, and their row in `hybrids_traits` is produced entirely from marker dosages – the same computation that, for a line-by-line combination not yet made as a physical cross, would score it before any seed exists. The candidates' predicted values, whichever model produced them, are exactly the `traits` argument `stage1_build()` expects – one column per trait, one row per hybrid:

```
hybrids_traits <- data.frame(hybrid = cand, trait1 = predB)
head(hybrids_traits)
```

hybrid	trait1
4	0.1398207
5	0.3260893
6	−0.1489823
11	1.6891953
13	1.3072349
16	0.2173326

Repeat the fit once per trait in the multi-trait index and this data frame is what feeds `stage1_build(X, ped, traits, fL)`. The second consumer is `ocs_quadprog(f, gebv, lambda, ...)` of Chapter 15., whose argument is literally named `gebv` and has until now been handed the truth.

Carry the reliabilities with them. Section 14.4's table is the argument for storing `fit$rel` next to every predicted value rather than discarding it: a candidate whose GEBV is unreliable is not a bad candidate, it is an unmeasured one, and the difference matters to a selection decision.

14.9 Back to Finding 5: a measured accuracy, not an assumed one

Chapter 12.'s Finding 5 assumed a prediction accuracy `r` and manufactured error correlated with relatedness to match it. The GBLUP fit above at $h^2 = 0.5$ gives a *measured* accuracy of 0.96 on the polygenic architecture, at the top of the range Finding 5 explored ($r \in \{0.5, 0.7, 0.9, 1\}$) – but Section 14.4 is the reason not to read that as the typical case. It is the CV2 number, the accuracy for a candidate whose two parents are already phenotyped in other combinations. The CV1 row of that table, 0.65, sits near the *bottom* of Finding 5's range, and the CV0 row falls well below anything it explored. Between them the two chapters bracket the same interval from opposite ends, and Finding 5's pessimistic cases are the realistic ones.

The errors are, in fact, structured by relatedness rather than white:

```
err <- g[cand] - u_hat[cand]
fcand <- ctx$f[cand, cand]
ut <- upper.tri(fcand)
```

```
cor(outer(err, err)[ut], fcand[ut])
#> [1] 0.1397751
```

Pairs of candidates that are more related have more correlated prediction errors – the mechanism Finding 5 assumed, confirmed here from an actual fitted model rather than injected. It is a modest correlation, not the extreme case Finding 5 stress-tested, because $h^2 = 0.5$ with `r length(train)` training records is a comparatively favourable regime; a smaller or less related training set would push it higher.

i What this chapter still does not model

Closing the "traits are given" gap opens several more, named here so they are not silently dropped:

- **Specific combining ability.** Section 14.2 showed there is none in `ctx$traits` to find: the trait is additive by construction, so a hybrid's value is exactly the mean of its parents'. SCA is not merely unmodelled here, it is absent from the data. A real hybrid programme has it – Chapter 5.'s dominance deviations are where it comes from – and would fit GCA and SCA jointly rather than one additive effect per marker.
- **Estimated variance components.** h^2 is supplied to `gblup()`, never estimated. A real fit gets λ from REML on the training data, and the reliabilities of Section 14.4 inherit that estimate's uncertainty.
- **Multivariate prediction.** `ctx$traits` has three correlated columns; this chapter predicted one. A multi-trait Bayesian model borrows information across traits and should out-predict fitting each one separately, especially for the traits with less training data.
- **Forward validation.** Section 14.4 splits by line, which is the right axis for a factorial, but every scheme in it still samples training and candidates from one generation. A programme selecting for the future validates forward in time, on a later cycle than it trained on.
- **Retraining across cycles.** Chapter 23. runs the *selection* side of a multi-cycle programme with a fixed, perfect index. A model trained once and never updated goes stale as the population it predicts drifts from the population it was trained on.
- **Genotyping cost and marker density.** Accuracy was measured here at a fixed 2000 markers; a real programme trades marker density against genotyping cost per individual, not just against training-set size.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **08b-genomic-prediction.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

V Optimisation

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15. Optimal contributions and the α constraint

Everything so far has been measurement. This chapter turns the measurement into a constraint an optimiser can respect, and connects it to the optimal-contribution literature it specialises. `ctx$index` below is still the known-marker-effects version built in Chapter 6.; 3 shows how a real programme gets a `traits` matrix to hand `stage1_build()` in the first place, and what accuracy it can expect once it does.

15.1 Constraint, not a weighted sum

With $\mathbf{u}$ the multi-trait index and S the selected set of size n:

$$\max_{S,|S|=n} \frac{1}{n}\sum_{i\in S} u_i \qquad \text{subject to} \qquad \alpha(S) \le \alpha_{\max}. \tag{15.1}$$

The common alternative, $\max \bar{u} - \lambda\,\theta_S$, requires calibrating λ, which has no direct interpretation. The constraint form preserves an operational meaning: *"I accept losing at most $\alpha_{\max}$ of diversity."* That is a sentence a breeding committee can approve or reject. "Diversity is worth $\lambda = 3.7$ index units" is not.

The two are not equivalent in practice either. A weighted sum lets the optimiser buy index by spending diversity anywhere on the curve; a constraint fixes the budget and makes the optimiser find the best plan *inside* it. Since the acceptable loss is a policy decision and the exchange rate is not, the constraint form puts the decision in the right hands.

```
make_fitness
#> function (ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, gd_ref, penalty = 1000, max_use = NULL)
#> {
#>     N <- ctx$N
#>     f <- ctx[["f"]]
#>     ix <- ctx$index
#>     L <- ctx$n_lines
#>     pa <- as.integer(ctx$ped$a)
#>     pb <- as.integer(ctx$ped$b)
#>     function(par) {
#>         idx <- decode(par, N, n_sel)
#>         gd <- 1 - mean(f[idx, idx])
#>         viol <- max(0, (gd_ref - gd)/gd_ref - alpha_max)
#>         if (!is.null(max_use)) {
#>             cnt <- tabulate(c(pa[idx], pb[idx]), nbins = L)
#>             viol <- viol + sum(pmax(0, cnt - max_use))/(2 * n_sel)
#>         }
#>         -(mean(ix[idx]) - penalty * viol)
#>     }
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7bb10aa318>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

The violation enters as a *proportional* penalty, so a plan that overshoots by 10% of the budget is penalised in units the budget defines, whatever the absolute value of $\alpha_{\max}$.

15.1.1 This argument is older than it looks

The paragraphs above read as a claim about human decision-making: budgets are approvable, exchange rates are not. That is true, and it undersells the case. Kempthorne & Nordskog (1959) posed the identical

problem for selection indices – maximise aggregate gain subject to **zero expected change** in a specified direction – and solved it in closed form. Chapter 4. derives their solution; `index_restricted()` implements it. The distinguishing property is not softness:

```
P <- matrix(c(4.0, 1.2, 1.2, 1.0), 2)
G <- matrix(c(2.0, 0.9, 0.9, 0.3), 2)
a <- c(1, 1); R <- cbind(c(0, 1))
c(unrestricted = drop(crossprod(R, G %*% index_smith_hazel(P, G, a))),
  restricted   = drop(crossprod(R, G %*% index_restricted(P, G, a, R))))
#> unrestricted   restricted
#> 6.679688e-01 2.096025e-17
```

Exactly zero, not approximately. A penalty trades the restricted direction away at some price; a restriction refuses to trade it at any price. That is the distinction this section is drawing, and it has stood since 1959.

> **i** What is actually new here
>
> Not restriction over pricing. What is new is *what* is being restricted. Kempthorne and Nordskog restricted a trait – something with a genetic variance, an economic weight and a row in $\mathbf{G}$. The α constraint restricts the loss of molecular gene diversity, which has none of those: it is a property of a matrix, not of a phenotype, and it is bounded relative to a resampling baseline rather than held at zero.
>
> The algebra of restriction carries over. The object being restricted does not, which is why the rest of this chapter cannot simply cite 1959 and stop.

15.2 Relation to the standard OCS formulation

F. Gómez-Romano, B. Villanueva, J. Fernández, J. A. Woolliams, and R. Pong-Wong [21] write the general optimal-contribution problem, for a vector of continuous contributions $\mathbf{c}$, as

$$\text{minimise} \quad \mathbf{c}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{c} \qquad \text{subject to} \qquad \mathbf{c}'\mathbf{s} = 0.5, \mathbf{c}'\mathbf{d} = 0.5, c_i \geq 0, \tag{15.2}$$

with $\mathbf{s}$ and $\mathbf{d}$ indicating sex and $\mathbf{G}$ the coancestry matrix chosen for managing diversity – here, $\mathbf{f}$.

The formulation of this book is that problem **restricted to $c_i \in \{0, 1/n\}$**: a fixed number n of candidates contribute equally, none partially. The minimisation of $\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{c}$ is turned into a constraint and $\bar{u}$ is promoted to the objective.

That restriction to equal, all-or-nothing contributions is exactly what makes the problem combinatorial, and what pushes the solution method from convex quadratic programming to a metaheuristic. It is also not arbitrary: a commercial hybrid programme plants a whole plot of a hybrid or does not plant it.

> **i** The sex constraint, in plants
>
> The per-sex sum constraint disappears in hermaphrodite and monoecious species (a single sum to 1) and reappears in dioecious crops and in schemes using cytoplasmic male sterility. In hybrid maize the natural problem is not OCS but **optimal cross selection**: $\mathbf{c}$ stops being an individual contribution and becomes a weight per cross, with the between-pool covariance entering explicitly. And there is an extra restriction the animal literature does not have – the **maximum number of crosses executable in a field**, which makes the problem mixed-integer.

15.2.1 The continuous relaxation as an upper bound

Dropping $c_i \in \{0, 1/n\}$ back to $0 \leq c_i \leq 1/n$ gives the continuous relaxation of *this* restricted problem. Every discrete solution is feasible under the relaxation, so the relaxation's optimum is a valid **upper bound**.

```
project_capped_simplex
#> function (v, cap)
#> {
```

```
#>     lo <- min(v) - 1
#>     hi <- max(v)
#>     for (i in 1:60) {
#>         tau <- (lo + hi)/2
#>         if (sum(pmin(pmax(v - tau, 0), cap)) > 1)
#>             lo <- tau
#>         else hi <- tau
#>     }
#>     pmin(pmax(v - (lo + hi)/2, 0), cap)
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7bb2d197e0>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

The cap is what makes the bound valid. Without $c_i \le 1/n$ the relaxation would put all weight on the single best candidate and the bound would be useless.

Turning the relaxation into a bound on the *constrained* problem needs one more step, and turning it into an actual selection needs a rounding: both are in Chapter 17..

```
lambdas <- 10^seq(-1, 2.5, length.out = 12)
relax <- ocs_relaxation(ctx, n_sel, lambdas)
fmt(as.data.frame(relax), 4)
```

lambda	index	theta	GD
0.1000	1.9919	0.6876	0.3124
0.2081	1.9919	0.6876	0.3124
0.4329	1.9919	0.6876	0.3124
0.9006	1.9919	0.6876	0.3124
1.8738	1.9911	0.6870	0.3130
3.8986	1.9900	0.6866	0.3134
8.1113	1.9885	0.6863	0.3137
16.8761	1.9831	0.6859	0.3141
35.1119	1.9270	0.6838	0.3162
73.0527	1.6173	0.6784	0.3216
151.9911	1.0023	0.6725	0.3275
316.2278	0.5729	0.6704	0.3296

Sweeping λ traces the merit-versus-diversity frontier. Each row is the best *continuous* plan at that exchange rate, and therefore an upper bound on what any discrete plan of the same diversity can achieve.

```
null <- null_distribution(ctx, n_sel, B = 400, B_full = 60)
a_relax <- (null$gd_ref - relax[, "GD"]) / null$gd_ref

sels <- list(random     = sel_random(ctx, n_sel),
             trunc_cap  = sel_truncation_cap(ctx, n_sel),
             greedy_w1  = sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = 1),
             greedy_w3  = sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = 3),
             truncation = sel_truncation(ctx, n_sel))
pts <- t(sapply(sels, function(s)
  c(alpha = alpha_loss(s, ctx, null$gd_ref), index = mean_index(s, ctx))))

plot(a_relax * 100, relax[, "index"], type = "b", pch = 1, lty = 2, col = "grey45",
     xlab = "gene diversity loss, alpha (%)", ylab = "mean index (s.d.)",
     xlim = range(c(a_relax, pts[, "alpha"]) * 100),
     ylim = range(c(relax[, "index"], pts[, "index"])))
points(pts[, "alpha"] * 100, pts[, "index"], pch = 19, col = "#b2182b")
text(pts[, "alpha"] * 100, pts[, "index"], rownames(pts), pos = 2, cex = 0.7)
abline(v = 0, lty = 3)
legend("bottomright", c("continuous OCS relaxation (upper bound)", "discrete
```

```
strategies"),
       col = c("grey45", "#b2182b"), pch = c(1, 19), lty = c(2, NA), bty = "n", cex
= 0.8)
grid()
```

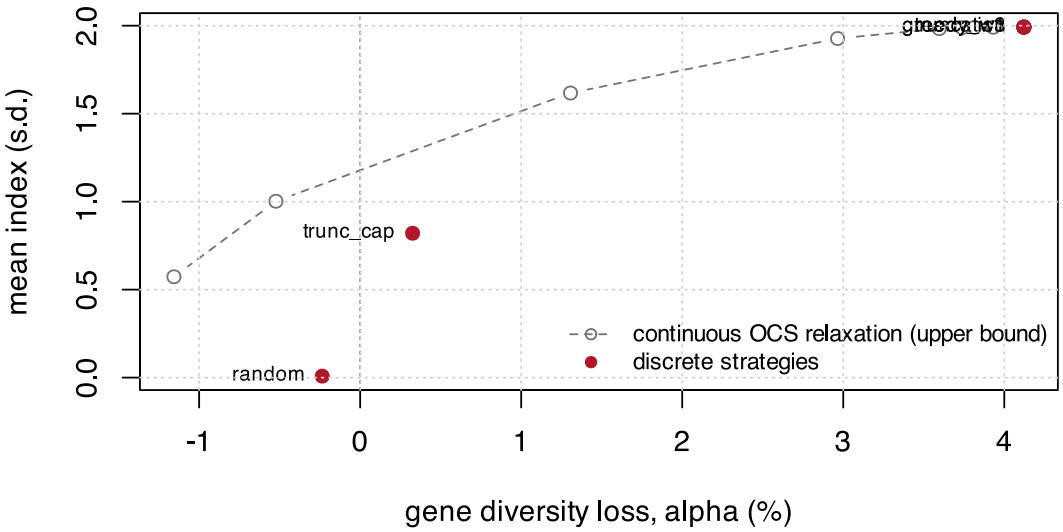

Figure 15.1: The continuous relaxation traces an upper bound. Discrete strategies must sit below and to the left of it; how far below is the convergence diagnostic.

> ⚠ Too few iterations gives an "upper bound" below the discrete optimum
>
> The relaxation is solved by projected gradient. Under-converged, it returns a value *smaller* than the discrete optimum – which is useless, and worse, silently so. The default of 4000 iterations is the minimum that converged in testing; re-check it whenever the dataset changes.

```
short <- ocs_relaxation(ctx, n_sel, lambdas = 10, iters = 50)
long  <- ocs_relaxation(ctx, n_sel, lambdas = 10, iters = 4000)
c(index_50_iters = short[, "index"], index_4000_iters = long[, "index"],
  greedy_w3 = mean_index(sels$greedy_w3, ctx))
#>   index_50_iters.index index_4000_iters.index             greedy_w3
#>               1.605937               1.987272              1.991937
```

15.3 Setting $\alpha_{\max}$

The limit **should not be chosen a priori**. Pure truncation – the greediest possible selection – defines the maximum attainable α. If that ceiling sits below your intended limit, the constraint restricts nothing.

```
attainable <- alpha_loss(sel_truncation(ctx, n_sel), ctx, null$gd_ref)
c(attainable_ceiling = attainable,
  a_5pct_limit_would_be_active = attainable > 0.05,
  a_1pct_limit_would_be_active = attainable > 0.01)
#>           attainable_ceiling a_5pct_limit_would_be_active
#>                   0.04121618                   0.00000000
```

```
#> a_1pct_limit_would_be_active
#>                   1.00000000
```

`stage2_select()` computes this ceiling automatically and warns about any requested α above it, rather than silently returning an unconstrained solution that looks constrained.

The correct procedure is to trace the frontier and choose its knee:

```
ws <- c(0, 0.25, 0.5, 0.75, 1, 1.5, 2, 3, 5, 8, 12)
front <- do.call(rbind, lapply(ws, function(w) {
  s <- sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = w)
  data.frame(w = w, alpha = alpha_loss(s, ctx, null$gd_ref),
             index = mean_index(s, ctx), Ne_par = ne_parents(s, ctx))
}))
plot(front$alpha * 100, front$index, type = "b", pch = 19, col = "#1f5f8b",
     xlab = "gene diversity loss, alpha (%)", ylab = "mean index (s.d.)")
abline(v = attainable * 100, lty = 2, col = "#b2182b")
text(attainable * 100, min(front$index), "truncation ceiling", pos = 2, cex = 0.7,
     col = "#b2182b")
grid()
```

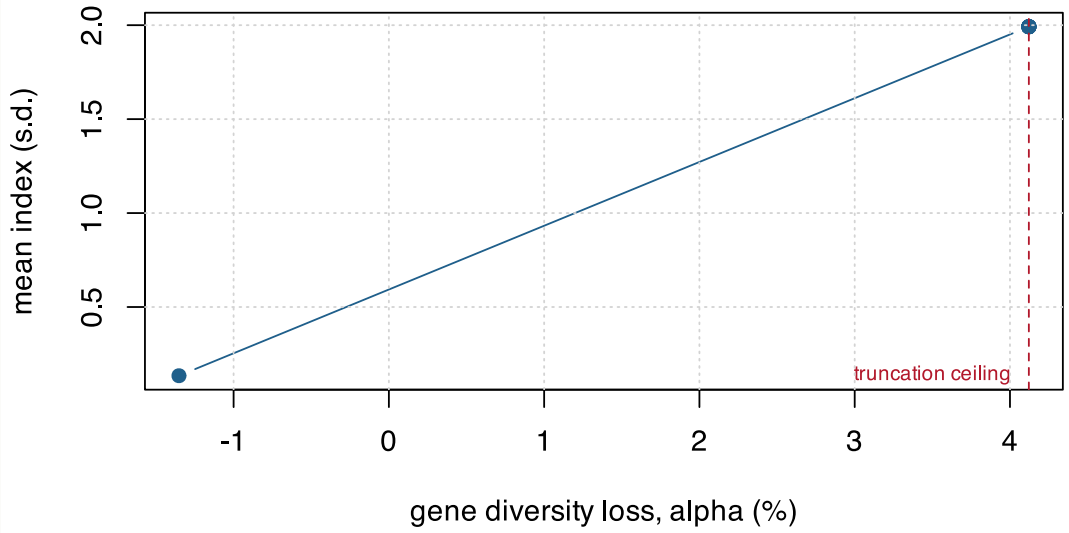

Figure 15.2: The greedy frontier, swept over the merit weight w. The knee is where further diversity costs index steeply.

```
fmt(front, 4)
```

w	alpha	index	Ne_par
0.00	−0.0135	0.1343	37.3057
0.25	0.0412	1.9919	13.0199
0.50	0.0412	1.9919	13.0199
0.75	0.0412	1.9919	13.0199
1.00	0.0412	1.9919	13.0199
1.50	0.0412	1.9919	13.0199

w	alpha	index	Ne_par
2.00	0.0412	1.9919	13.0199
3.00	0.0412	1.9919	13.0199
5.00	0.0412	1.9919	13.0199
8.00	0.0412	1.9919	13.0199
12.00	0.0412	1.9919	13.0199

15.3.1 How far $\alpha_{\max}$ moves when $\mathbf{f}$ moves

The ceiling above is quoted to four decimals, which invites more confidence than the marker panel supports. Chapter 10. showed that the MAF spectrum decides how badly the two inbreeding lenses disagree; the same spectrum feeds $\mathbf{f}$, and therefore $\bar{H}_{\text{ref}}$ and the ceiling. It is worth knowing which choices move the budget and which only look as though they should.

Rebuild everything downstream of the marker panel – $\mathbf{f}$, the null, the ceiling – under a filter, a density and an ascertainment scenario:

```
ceiling_for <- function(keep, label, B = 250) {
  Xs <- ctx$X[, keep, drop = FALSE]
  ck <- build_ctx(X = Xs, f = molecular_coancestry(Xs), G = NULL,
                  traits = ctx$traits, ped = ctx$ped, n_lines = ctx$n_lines,
                  pool = ctx$pool, fL = NULL, cfg = ctx$cfg)
  nl <- null_distribution(ck, n_sel, B = B, B_full = 20)
  data.frame(panel = label, markers = ncol(Xs), gd_ref = nl$gd_ref,
             alpha_max = alpha_loss(sel_truncation(ck, n_sel), ck, nl$gd_ref))
}
maf <- pmin(ctx$p0, 1 - ctx$p0)
polyA <- colMeans(simulate_lines(book_cfg)[seq_len(book_cfg$n_pool_A), ] / 2)
sens <- rbind(
  do.call(rbind, lapply(c(0, 0.01, 0.05, 0.10),
    function(t) ceiling_for(maf >= t, sprintf("MAF >= %.2f", t)))),
  ceiling_for(polyA > 0 & polyA < 1, "ascertained in pool A"))
fmt(sens, 4)
```

panel	markers	gd_ref	alpha_max
MAF >= 0.00	2000	0.3258	0.0411
MAF >= 0.01	1934	0.3369	0.0411
MAF >= 0.05	1780	0.3611	0.0404
MAF >= 0.10	1585	0.3881	0.0402
ascertained in pool A	1762	0.3535	0.0421

$\bar{H}_{\text{ref}}$ moves by 19% across these panels. $\alpha_{\max}$ moves by 4.7%. That is not a coincidence: α is a *ratio* of diversities measured on the same panel, so a filter that shifts the absolute level shifts numerator and denominator together and largely cancels out. **Filtering choices move the diversity level; they do not move the budget.**

Density does not move it either, but it does something worse: it makes the estimate noisy without making it wrong. Thinning the panel and averaging over six independent draws of which markers survive:

```
# Every subset is drawn BEFORE the loop. `null_distribution()` calls set.seed()
# internally, so a `sample.int()` written inside the loop would hand every
# replicate after the first the very same markers -- see the warning below.
set.seed(4)
subs <- lapply(c(250, 500, 1000),
               function(mm) lapply(1:6, function(i) sort(sample.int(ctx$m, mm))))
dens <- do.call(rbind, lapply(subs, function(sl) {
  v <- vapply(sl, function(k) ceiling_for(k, "", B = 200)$alpha_max, numeric(1))
  data.frame(markers = length(sl[[1]]), alpha_max = mean(v), sd = stats::sd(v))
```

```
}))
fmt(rbind(dens, data.frame(markers = ctx$m, alpha_max = attainable, sd = NA)), 4)
```

markers	alpha_max	sd
250	0.0445	0.0090
500	0.0461	0.0084
1000	0.0417	0.0067
2000	0.0412	NA

The means sit within one standard deviation of the full-panel ceiling all the way down to 250 markers. The standard deviation does not: at 250 it is about 20% of the estimate itself. A budget set from a thin panel is not biased, it is a coin flip – and a single thin-panel study has no way to tell which side it landed on.

So all three axes leave $\alpha_{\max}$ where it was. That is the useful finding, and it is worth stating positively: **the budget is a more portable quantity than the diversity level it is computed from.** $\bar{H}_{\text{ref}}$ is not comparable across panels; α largely is, provided the panel is dense enough for the estimate to be stable.

⚠ `null_distribution()` reseeds, and will freeze a resampling loop

It calls `set.seed(seed)` on entry, with `seed = 7` by default, so the random stream is reset every time it is invoked. Any `sample()` written *after* it inside a loop therefore draws the same values on every pass but the first, and a replication study silently becomes one replicate reported with a fabricated standard deviation.

This is not hypothetical: the table above returned two different wrong answers – once suggesting thin panels understate the ceiling, once that they overstate it – before the subsets were hoisted out of the loop. Draw randomisation up front, or pass an explicit varying `seed`.

💡 Quote $\alpha_{\max}$ with the panel that produced it

A budget is not a property of the germplasm. It is a property of the germplasm *and* the marker panel, and only the second of those changes when the genotyping platform does. Re-derive the ceiling whenever the panel changes, and do not compare an α across two studies genotyped differently – Chapter 12. Finding 3's caveat on transfer applies here with more force, because this one is a constraint rather than a diagnostic.

15.4 A caveat carried over from the OCS literature

F. Gómez-Romano, B. Villanueva, J. Fernández, J. A. Woolliams, and R. Pong-Wong [21] show that the *predicted* rate of coancestry in the next generation, $E(\Delta f_{t+1}) = (\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{G}_t\mathbf{c} - f_t)/(1 - f_t)$, is systematically **biased downward** relative to the coancestry actually realised after offspring are generated – by roughly a factor of two in their simulations with small candidate pools, shrinking as the pool grows. The bias arises because $\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{G}\mathbf{c}$ is an expectation over Mendelian segregation, and the realised draw carries its own sampling variance on top of that expectation.

This does **not** affect the θ_S computed in this book. $\mathbf{f}$ is measured on real marker genotypes of an already-realised hybrid population; there is no forward-prediction step to bias.

It becomes relevant the moment the pipeline is extended to *plan a further generation* from the selected hybrids – to predict *their* offspring's coancestry from a contribution vector. At that point the naive $\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{c}$ prediction should be expected to underestimate realised coancestry, and the margin built into $\alpha_{\max}$ must account for it.

15.5 Quadratic programming, when contributions are continuous

Where the problem genuinely is continuous – composing a synthetic, assembling a core collection, setting seed proportions – solve it as a quadratic programme rather than with a metaheuristic. That is Chapter 3.'s `optimal_contributions()`, with `ocs_quadprog()` adding the merit term:

```
sub <- sample.int(ctx$n_lines, 20)
fLs <- ctx$fL[sub, sub]
merit <- as.vector(scale(rnorm(20)))

front_qp <- do.call(rbind, lapply(10^seq(-1, 2, length.out = 8), function(lam) {
  o <- ocs_quadprog(fLs, merit, lambda = lam, upper = 0.20)
  data.frame(lambda = lam, merit = o$merit, coancestry = o$coancestry,
             n_used = sum(o$c_i > 1e-6))
}))
fmt(front_qp, 4)
```

lambda	merit	coancestry	n_used
0.1000	1.1390	0.7254	5
0.2683	1.1390	0.7254	5
0.7197	1.1390	0.7254	5
1.9307	1.1324	0.7214	6
5.1795	1.1173	0.7165	6
13.8950	0.9831	0.7022	10
37.2759	0.6331	0.6865	17
100.0000	0.2734	0.6803	20

Note the `upper = 0.20` cap: an operational ceiling on how much any single line may contribute. Caps of this kind are usually easier to defend than the λ that produced them, and they are the continuous analogue of the per-line usage cap that Chapter 16. enforces in the decoder.

As λ falls the solution concentrates on fewer sources – the same mechanism, in continuous form, that makes $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ a necessary second constraint in the discrete problem.

15.6 What belongs in the inner loop

The optimiser performs on the order of 10^5 to 10^6 evaluations, so the cost per call decides what goes into the objective and what waits for post-hoc validation.

```
fmt(cost_per_eval(ctx, n_sel, reps = 20), 1)
```

metric	us_per_eval
theta_group	0
theta_from_freq	100
ne_parents	0
alleles_lost	150
ENE	50
ANE	350
eff_dim	100
Gst	1300

θ by the matrix route (or, better, the line route of Section 12.1) and $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ go into the objective. Allelic richness, A-NE and G_{st} are computed **once**, on the final solution. This is the same conclusion Chapter 12. reached from the production-scale benchmark, reproduced here at book scale so it can be re-run on your own data.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **09-optimal-contributions.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

16. Combinatorial selection

The problem is: choose n of N hybrids, maximising mean index subject to a diversity budget. This chapter builds up the strategies that solve it, from the two that need no optimiser at all to the differential evolution that beats them – and explains why the DE only beats them under one specific condition.

The decision is a concrete one, and it is the last of a cycle in a cross-pollinated crop. Two heterotic pools, A and B, hold L_A and L_B inbred (or doubled-haploid) lines. Every candidate is one cross $A_a \times B_b$, so the candidate set is the factorial $N = L_A \times L_B$ – in maize, the set of single crosses that could be made from the current elite lines without introducing anything new. The n you keep are the crosses that go forward: into multi-location testing, into seed increase, and – through their parents – into the next recycling cycle. Keeping too few distinct parents is not a statistical inconvenience, it is a decision to narrow the pool that the programme will breed from next.

What has to be in hand before any line of this chapter runs is the three-object contract of Chapter 13.:

- `X`, the $N \times m$ hybrid marker matrix, coded $\{0, 0.5, 1\}$ as the average of the two homozygous parents;
- `f`, the $N \times N$ molecular coancestry of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10], values in $[0, 1]$, built from `X` and never from a centred genomic relationship matrix (Section 2.2);
- `hybrids`, carrying each cross's parents and its predicted traits, from which `build_ctx()` forms the single index `ctx$index`, standardised to unit variance over the candidate pool (3).

Assumptions, declared once and not violated afterwards. Parent lines are homozygous, so a hybrid's genotype is the mean of its parents and `X` takes only the three values above. Markers are treated as neutral. The index is *frozen* before selection: nothing is re-predicted inside the optimiser, which matters because the index carries error that is correlated with relatedness (Chapter 12., finding 5). The allele-frequency base `ctx$p0` is the candidate pool and is set once in `build_ctx()`. Diversity loss α is always measured against a random subset of *the same size* `n_sel` (Section 11.9), never against the whole pool. Dominance appears nowhere in the objective: it is already inside the predicted hybrid performance, and the between-pool divergence that generates heterosis is a quantity to *preserve*, not to minimise (Chapter 5.).

The instance this chapter runs on:

```
c(candidates_N      = ctx$N,
  lines_A           = sum(ctx$pool == "A"),
  lines_B           = sum(ctx$pool == "B"),
  markers_m         = ctx$m,
  hybrids_kept      = n_sel,
  uses_per_line     = 2 * n_sel / ctx$n_lines,
  gd_ref            = null$gd_ref,
  gd_ref_sd         = null$gd_sd,
 alpha_ceiling_pct = 100 * alpha_loss(sel_truncation(ctx, n_sel), ctx, null$gd_ref))
#>      candidates_N           lines_A           lines_B         markers_m
#>      6.250000e+02      2.500000e+01      2.500000e+01      2.000000e+03
#>      hybrids_kept     uses_per_line            gd_ref         gd_ref_sd
#>      6.000000e+01      2.400000e+00      3.258386e-01      7.654486e-04
#> alpha_ceiling_pct
#>      4.121618e+00
```

Read it as a breeder would. 60 crosses are kept out of 625, which is 9.6% of the factorial. The 60 crosses consume $2n = 120$ parent slots spread over 50 lines, so a perfectly even plan would use each line 2.4 times – the scale against which any per-line cap has to be set. `gd_ref` is the gene diversity of a random subset of exactly this size, with its resampling standard deviation next to it, and the last row is the **attainable ceiling**: pure truncation loses 4.12% of it. Any $\alpha_{\max}$ above that ceiling constrains nothing at all, which is the first thing to check and the subject of Chapter 15..

16.1 Four baselines before any optimiser

Four families – random, truncation, truncation under a per-line cap, and greedy – in six rows, because greedy is shown at three merit weights.

```
sels <- list(
  random     = sel_random(ctx, n_sel),
  truncation = sel_truncation(ctx, n_sel),
  trunc_cap  = sel_truncation_cap(ctx, n_sel),
  greedy_div = sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = 0),
  greedy_w1  = sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = 1),
  greedy_w3  = sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = 3)
)
fmt(t(sapply(sels, function(s) c(
  index      = mean_index(s, ctx),
  alpha_pct  = 100 * alpha_loss(s, ctx, null$gd_ref),
  Ns         = status_number(s, ctx),
  Ne_parents = ne_parents(s, ctx),
  max_line   = max_line_use(s, ctx)))), 3)
```

	index	alpha_pct	Ns	Ne_parents	max_line
random	0.008	−0.236	0.743	37.696	7
truncation	1.992	4.122	0.727	13.020	23
trunc_cap	0.820	0.326	0.740	31.034	4
greedy_div	0.134	−1.352	0.747	37.306	5
greedy_w1	1.992	4.122	0.727	13.020	23
greedy_w3	1.992	4.122	0.727	13.020	23

```
c(w1_is_truncation = setequal(sels[["greedy_w1"]], sels[["truncation"]]),
  w3_is_truncation = setequal(sels[["greedy_w3"]], sels[["truncation"]]))
#> w1_is_truncation w3_is_truncation
#>             TRUE             TRUE
```

Three of those six rows are the same plan. `greedy_w1` and `greedy_w3` return *exactly* the truncation set – same index, same α, same `max_line` – because both weights sit far above the crossover measured in the `w-units` chunk below, where the merit term swamps the coancestry term and the greedy argmax degenerates to the index ranking. Read them as one row until that measurement has been made; it is the reason a w grid of round numbers is a trap.

Read the columns in this order, because each answers a different question and three of them are routinely skipped:

1. `index`, in standard deviations of the candidate pool – what the plan is worth.
2. `alpha_pct`, the loss of gene diversity relative to a random subset of the same size – what it costs, on the lens the constraint will pin. Negative means *more* diverse than random.
3. `Ns`, the status number $1/(2\theta)$ (Section 11.3) – the same information as α on an absolute scale, kept because it is what the animal literature quotes.
4. `Ne_parents`, the effective number of parent lines, which is computed from counts alone and is the metric that catches "θ looks fine but twelve lines did all the work".
5. `max_line`, the largest number of selected crosses sharing one parent – the operational number, because that line is a seed parent and has to be increased, maintained and, in a CMS system, converted.

Truncation is the ceiling on gain and the floor on diversity. It is what every programme does by default, and the interesting question is not whether it loses diversity but how *little* index a constrained plan has to give up relative to it. Its `max_line` here is 23: one line parents that many of the 60 selected crosses, against 2.4 under even use. That is the concentration a cap is meant to remove, and it is visible without any coancestry matrix.

Truncation with a per-line cap is the cheap baseline that deserves more attention than it gets. It needs no coancestry matrix at all – only counting:

```
sel_truncation_cap
#> function (ctx, n_sel, cap = ceiling(2 * n_sel/ctx$n_lines) +
#>     1)
#> {
#>     ord <- order(ctx$index, decreasing = TRUE)
#>     used <- integer(ctx$n_lines)
#>     out <- integer(0)
#>     for (i in ord) {
#>         a <- ctx$ped$a[i]
#>         b <- ctx$ped$b[i]
#>         if (used[a] < cap && used[b] < cap) {
#>             out <- c(out, i)
#>             used[a] <- used[a] + 1L
#>             used[b] <- used[b] + 1L
#>             if (length(out) == n_sel)
#>                 break
#>         }
#>     }
#>     out
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7c096be580>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

The procedure, stated as a breeder would run it:

1. Rank all 625 candidate crosses by index, best first.
2. Walk down the ranking. Admit a cross only if *both* its parents are still below the cap.
3. Stop when `n_sel` crosses have been admitted, or when the ranking is exhausted – in which case the returned vector is **shorter than `n_sel`** and the cap was infeasible for this set size.
4. Feasibility is arithmetic, not luck: with L_A lines in pool A a cap of c admits at most $L_A c$ crosses, so the condition is $n \le \min(L_A, L_B)\, c$ – here 60 against

   100.

```
c(index_truncation = mean_index(sels$truncation, ctx),
  index_capped     = mean_index(sels$trunc_cap, ctx),
  index_retained_pct = 100 * mean_index(sels$trunc_cap, ctx) /
                             mean_index(sels$truncation, ctx),
  Ne_par_truncation = ne_parents(sels$truncation, ctx),
  Ne_par_capped     = ne_parents(sels$trunc_cap, ctx))
#>   index_truncation       index_capped index_retained_pct  Ne_par_truncation
#>          1.9919371          0.8203555         41.1838050         13.0198915
#>      Ne_par_capped
#>         31.0344828
```

```
cap <- ceiling(2 * n_sel / ctx$n_lines) + 1          # the function's default
ord <- order(ctx$index, decreasing = TRUE)
lines_used <- function(s) sum(tabulate(c(ctx$ped$a[s], ctx$ped$b[s]),
                                       ctx$n_lines) > 0)
c(cap                    = cap,
  reached_n_sel          = length(sels[["trunc_cap"]]) == n_sel,
  candidates_scanned     = max(match(sels[["trunc_cap"]], ord)),
  shared_with_truncation = length(intersect(sels[["truncation"]],
                                            sels[["trunc_cap"]])),
  lines_used_truncation  = lines_used(sels[["truncation"]]),
  lines_used_capped      = lines_used(sels[["trunc_cap"]]))
#>                    cap          reached_n_sel     candidates_scanned
#>                      4                      1                    413
#> shared_with_truncation  lines_used_truncation      lines_used_capped
#>                     16                     33                     32
```

The default cap is `ceiling(2 * n_sel / ctx$n_lines) + 1`, one above even use, which is 4 here. Filling 60 slots under it required scanning 413 of the 625 ranked candidates, and only 16 of the resulting crosses

are also in the truncation set: the cap does not trim the top of the ranking, it reshuffles most of it. The last two rows count the same reshuffling in lines rather than in crosses, and they are the reason $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ is not a line count: the capped plan touches 32 distinct parent lines against truncation's 33, out of 50 available – to within one line, the same set size – while its effective number of parents is 31 against 13. What the cap changes is how evenly the 120 parent slots are spread over the lines that are used, not how many lines are used at all.

What that buys and what it costs, separately. The cap cuts the diversity loss from 4.12% to 0.33% and raises the effective number of parents from 13 to 31, at 41% of truncation's index. Whether that is a good trade is a programme decision, not a statistical one – but note that the capped plan is *feasible* at a 1% budget while truncation is not, and it was found by counting alone.

Before reaching for an optimiser, run this. If a per-line cap already meets your constraint at an acceptable index, you are done. The failure mode at this step is silent: a returned vector shorter than `n_sel`, which every downstream metric will happily evaluate on the wrong set size – `length()` it.

16.2 Greedy, with incremental updates

Adding hybrid j to an existing set changes the submatrix total by $2s_j + f_{jj}$, where s_j is the sum of f_{ij} over the already-chosen. That makes each step $O(N)$ instead of $O(n^2)$, and the whole construction affordable.

```
S <- sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel = 10, w = 1)
j <- setdiff(seq_len(ctx$N), S)[1]
f <- ctx[["f"]]
recomputed  <- sum(f[c(S, j), c(S, j)])                # O(n^2), from scratch
incremental <- sum(f[S, S]) + 2 * sum(f[S, j]) + f[j, j] # O(n), the update
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(recomputed, incremental)))
c(recomputed = recomputed, incremental = incremental)
#>  recomputed incremental
#>    87.07925    87.07925
```

```
sel_greedy
#> function (ctx, n_sel, w = 0, max_use = NULL)
#> {
#>     f <- ctx[["f"]]
#>     d <- diag(f)
#>     s <- numeric(ctx$N)
#>     avail <- rep(TRUE, ctx$N)
#>     out <- integer(n_sel)
#>     total <- 0
#>     if (!is.null(max_use)) {
#>         pa <- as.integer(ctx$ped$a)
#>         pb <- as.integer(ctx$ped$b)
#>         cnt <- integer(ctx$n_lines)
#>     }
#>     for (k in seq_len(n_sel)) {
#>         theta_new <- (total + 2 * s + d)/k^2
#>         score <- w * ctx$index - theta_new
#>         score[!avail] <- -Inf
#>         j <- which.max(score)
#>         if (!is.finite(score[j])) {
#>             out <- out[seq_len(k - 1L)]
#>             break
#>         }
#>         out[k] <- j
#>         avail[j] <- FALSE
#>         total <- total + 2 * s[j] + d[j]
#>         s <- s + f[, j]
#>         if (!is.null(max_use)) {
#>             for (a in c(pa[j], pb[j])) {
#>                 cnt[a] <- cnt[a] + 1L
#>                 if (cnt[a] >= max_use)
```

```
#>                     avail[pa == a | pb == a] <- FALSE
#>             }
#>         }
#>     }
#>     out
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7c0a37af58>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

One step k, in the order the code performs it:

1. `theta_new <- (total + 2 * s + d) / k^2` is the group coancestry the set *would* have, for every candidate at once, with `total` the current submatrix sum, `s` the running vector of coancestry sums against the chosen set and `d = diag(f)`. The normaliser is k^2, the size after the addition.
2. `score <- w * ctx$index - theta_new` – merit against relatedness.
3. Candidates already chosen are set to `-Inf`; with `max_use` set, so is every hybrid of a line that has reached its cap. The cap is therefore a **feasibility test on the move**, never a penalty on the result – the partition-matroid treatment of Chapter 17..
4. The argmax is taken, `total` and `s` are updated in $O(N)$, and the parent counts incremented.
5. If no finite score remains, the loop exits early and the returned vector is short – the same check as for the capped truncation.

The score is $w \cdot \text{index} - \theta$. At $w = 0$ this is pure diversity – the ceiling on diversity and near-zero gain. As $w \to \infty$ it converges to truncation. Sweeping w traces a frontier – but **only if the grid is in the right units**, and that is the trap at this step.

w is an exchange rate: index standard deviations per unit of group coancestry. The two quantities it converts between differ by four orders of magnitude, and that ratio is measurable before any sweep is run:

```
S30 <- sel_greedy(ctx, 30, w = 0)
theta_if_added <- (sum(f[S30, S30]) + 2 * colSums(f[S30, ]) + diag(f)) / 31^2
c(index_spread = diff(range(ctx$index)),
  theta_spread = diff(range(theta_if_added)),
  w_crossover  = diff(range(theta_if_added)) / diff(range(ctx$index)))
#> index_spread theta_spread  w_crossover
#> 6.055856e+00 3.293444e-04 5.438446e-05
```

`w_crossover` is the weight at which the two terms of the score have equal range. Below it the sweep returns the diversity solution; a decade or two above it, every point collapses onto truncation. A grid of $w \in \{0.25, 0.5, \ldots, 30\}$ – the obvious one, and the one this chapter used before it was measured – sits entirely above the transition and returns the *same* selection at every point, which makes greedy look an order of magnitude worse than it is. The grid below spans six decades around the crossover and is the one `book/scripts/regenerate.R` uses for the benchmark of Chapter 17., so the two chapters report the same greedy.

```
ws <- c(0, 10^seq(-5, 1, length.out = 19))
gf <- do.call(rbind, lapply(ws, function(w) {
  s <- sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = w)
  data.frame(w = w, alpha = alpha_loss(s, ctx, null$gd_ref),
             index = mean_index(s, ctx))
}))
plot(gf$alpha * 100, gf$index, type = "b", pch = 19, col = "#1f5f8b",
     xlab = "gene diversity loss, alpha (%)", ylab = "mean index (s.d.)")
points(alpha_loss(sels$truncation, ctx, null$gd_ref) * 100,
       mean_index(sels$truncation, ctx), pch = 4, cex = 1.5, col = "#b2182b")
text(alpha_loss(sels$truncation, ctx, null$gd_ref) * 100,
     mean_index(sels$truncation, ctx), "truncation", pos = 2, cex = 0.75)
abline(v = 0, lty = 3); grid()
```

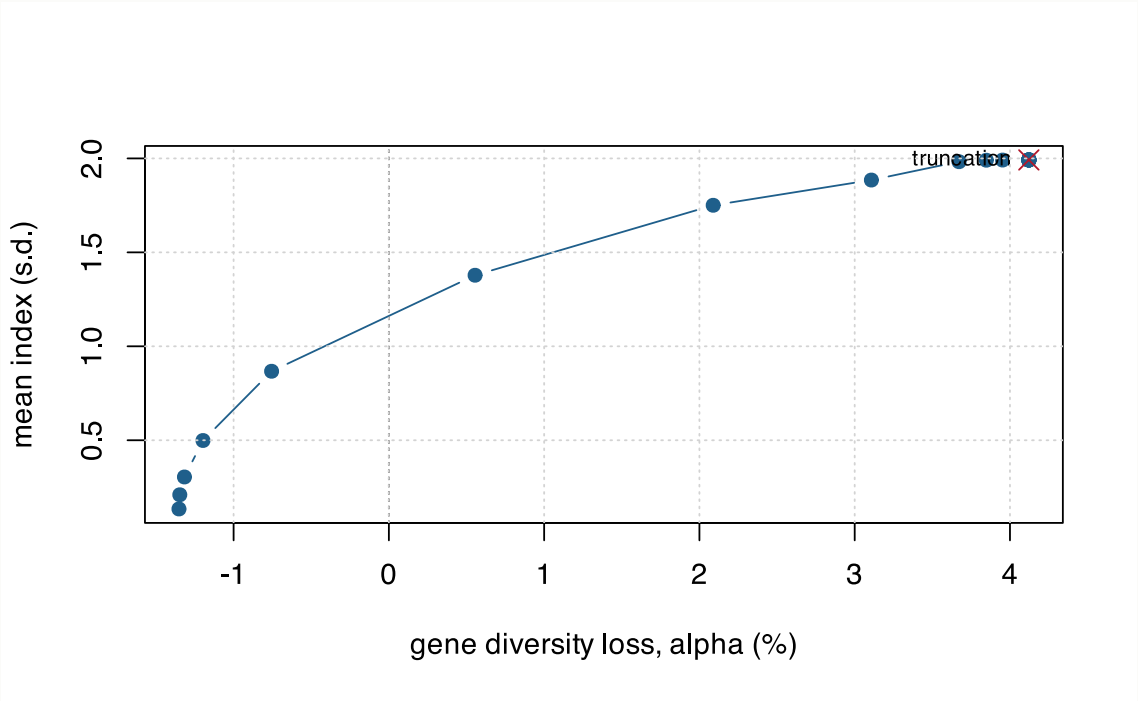

Figure 16.1: The greedy frontier. w = 0 is maximum diversity; large w converges to truncation. The useful range of w spans roughly 1e-5 to 1e-2 on this dataset, the same window the prose and the sweep table below quote: below it the sweep returns the maximum-diversity plan, above it the truncation plan, and every row outside the window is a duplicate of one of those two.

```
fmt(gf[gf$w <= 0.01, ], 5)
```

w	alpha	index
0.00000	−0.01352	0.13431
0.00001	−0.01347	0.20982
0.00002	−0.01317	0.30454
0.00005	−0.01197	0.49867
0.00010	−0.00755	0.86717
0.00022	0.00555	1.37820
0.00046	0.02089	1.75058
0.00100	0.03107	1.88486
0.00215	0.03672	1.98253
0.00464	0.03848	1.99043
0.01000	0.03952	1.99123

```
step <- which.max(gf$alpha > 0)          # first grid point that loses diversity
jump <- gf[c(step - 1L, step), ]
fmt(jump, 5)
```

	w	alpha	index
5	0.00010	−0.00755	0.86717
6	0.00022	0.00555	1.37820

```
# The upper edge of the useful window: the smallest w whose plan is already the
# truncation plan, above which every row of the sweep is a duplicate.
```

```
flat_from <- min(gf$w[gf$index >= max(gf$index) - 1e-12])
c(flat_from = flat_from, rows_above = sum(gf$w > flat_from))
#>  flat_from rows_above
#> 0.02154435 8.00000000
```

Two readings, and the second is the argument for everything that follows. First, the whole frontier lives in the three decades between $w = 10^{-5}$ – where the sweep is still moving, 0.13 at $w = 0$ against 0.21 at the first non-zero grid point – and $w \approx 10^{-2}$, by which the plan is within 0.04% of truncation's index. From $w = 0.0215$ upward every one of the remaining 8 rows is the *identical* selection, and a sweep whose rows are all the same selection is a sweep in the wrong units, not a flat frontier. Second, the sweep is parameterised by w and *the breeder's constraint is not.* Between the two adjacent grid points printed above, α jumps from −0.76% to 0.56% and the index from 0.87 to 1.38; a budget falling inside that interval cannot be requested of a greedy sweep at all, only stumbled upon. An optimiser parameterised by $\alpha_{\max}$ can be asked for it directly.

Greedy solutions are also what warm-start the differential evolution. That is not an optimisation detail – it is the difference between the DE working and not working.

16.3 The encoding problem

An N-dimensional 0/1 encoding is infeasible for differential evolution at this scale: at production size that is 5041 binary dimensions. Instead, encode n_{sel} continuous values in $[1, N]$ and decode them to unique indices.

```
decode
#> function (par, N, n_sel)
#> {
#>     k <- as.integer(par)
#>     k[k < 1L] <- 1L
#>     k[k > N] <- N
#>     dup <- duplicated(k)
#>     if (any(dup))
#>         k[dup] <- setdiff(seq_len(N), k[!dup])[seq_len(sum(dup))]
#>     k
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7c0631c078>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

The decode, step by step:

1. `as.integer(par)` truncates each coordinate toward zero, so the real interval $[i, i+1)$ maps to candidate i. `sel_de()` searches the box $[1, N + 0.999]$, so candidates 1 to $N - 1$ each own a full unit interval and candidate N owns $[N, N + 0.999]$ – narrower by one part in a thousand, because the upper bound stops just short of $N + 1$ instead of reaching it.
2. Coordinates outside the box are clamped to the ends.
3. `duplicated()` marks every coordinate after the first that lands on an already-used candidate.
4. Each duplicate is replaced by the lowest index not otherwise in use, so the result always has exactly `n_sel` distinct candidates.

A worked case, small enough to check by hand:

```
d <- decode(c(3.9, 3.2, 1.1, 7.5), N = 10, n_sel = 4)
stopifnot(all(d == c(3, 2, 1, 7)))
d
#> [1] 3 2 1 7
```

Truncation gives $(3, 3, 1, 7)$; the second coordinate is the duplicate; the lowest index not in $\{3, 1, 7\}$ is 2; the repair returns $(3, 2, 1, 7)$. The same mechanism is what lets a warm start be injected exactly: a seed is written into the population as `index + 0.5`, the middle of its own interval, and decodes back to itself.

```
s0 <- sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = 1)
c(box_lower      = 1,
```

```
  box_upper      = ctx$N + 0.999,
  width_typical  = 2 - 1,                       # candidate 1 owns [1, 2)
  width_last     = (ctx$N + 0.999) - ctx$N,     # candidate N owns [N, N+0.999]
  seed_roundtrip = all(decode(s0 + 0.5, ctx$N, n_sel) == s0))
#>      box_lower      box_upper  width_typical     width_last seed_roundtrip
#>          1.000        625.999          1.000          0.999          1.000
```

Duplicates are repaired **deterministically**. A stochastic repair would make the fitness noisy, and a noisy fitness stops DE converging – the same parameter vector must always score the same.

```
set.seed(3)
p1 <- runif(n_sel, 1, ctx$N + 1)
p2 <- runif(n_sel, 1, ctx$N + 1)
d1 <- decode(p1, ctx$N, n_sel)
d2 <- decode(p2, ctx$N, n_sel)
c(unique_1 = length(unique(d1)), unique_2 = length(unique(d2)),
  in_range = all(c(d1, d2) >= 1 & c(d1, d2) <= ctx$N),
  collisions_repaired = sum(duplicated(as.integer(p1))),
  deterministic = identical(d1, decode(p1, ctx$N, n_sel)))
#>            unique_1            unique_2            in_range collisions_repaired
#>                  60                  60                   1                   2
#>       deterministic
#>                   1
```

> **i** A known bias in the repair
>
> The repair fills in the lowest free indices, which introduces a slight bias toward low-numbered candidates. It is marked in the source with a `ponytail:` comment naming the ceiling and the upgrade path – switch to "nearest free" if the DE ever stalls. It has not mattered at these scales, but it is the kind of thing that should be written down rather than discovered later.

16.3.1 A third encoding: one weight per line

Section 12.1 showed that θ depends only on the line-usage vector. That makes a third encoding available, and one that changes what the coordinates *mean*: one weight per **line**, dimension L. Against the N-dimensional key vector that is a collapse from 3600 coordinates to 120 in the run below. Against the n_{sel} coordinates `sel_de()` actually searches it is close to a wash, and the numbers below say which of those two comparisons is which.

```
decode_lines
#> function (p, ctx, n_sel, max_use = NULL, w_div = 3)
#> {
#>     par <- ctx$parents
#>     sc <- ctx$index + w_div * (p[par[, 1]] + p[par[, 2]])
#>     ord <- order(-sc)
#>     if (is.null(max_use))
#>         return(ord[seq_len(n_sel)])
#>     sel <- integer(n_sel)
#>     cnt <- integer(ctx$n_lines)
#>     k <- 0L
#>     for (h in ord) {
#>         a <- par[h, 1]
#>         b <- par[h, 2]
#>         if (cnt[a] < max_use && cnt[b] < max_use) {
#>             k <- k + 1L
#>             sel[k] <- h
#>             cnt[a] <- cnt[a] + 1L
#>             cnt[b] <- cnt[b] + 1L
#>             if (k == n_sel)
#>                 break
```

```
#>         }
#>     }
#>     if (k < n_sel) {
#>         rest <- setdiff(ord, sel[seq_len(k)])
#>         sel[(k + 1L):n_sel] <- rest[seq_len(n_sel - k)]
#>     }
#>     sel
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7c0573de00>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

The line weight shifts each hybrid's score by the weights of its two parents, and hybrids are taken greedily subject to the per-line usage cap – so the cap is satisfied **by construction** rather than by penalty. In detail:

1. Each candidate scores `ctx$index + w_div * (p[a] + p[b])`, with `p` the line-weight vector being searched and `w_div = 3` by default. A line's weight therefore moves every cross it parents, which is what makes the decision a *line* decision.
2. Candidates are taken in decreasing score, skipping any whose parents have reached `max_use`.
3. If the cap makes `n_sel` unreachable, the selection is topped up ignoring it, and the fitness function's penalty term then sees the violation – so an infeasible cap degrades gracefully instead of returning a short vector.

At `p = 0` the decoder is exactly capped truncation, which is the natural zero of the encoding; Chapter 17. verifies that identity numerically where the encoding is actually driven.

The claim this chapter opened with – that an N-dimensional encoding is infeasible for DE at this scale – is measured rather than asserted, and the measurement is cached in `data/de_constraints.csv`. It is worth being exact about what it compares, because **neither arm of it is `sel_de()`**. Both are driven through `make_fitness_fast()`, on a pool of $N = 3600$ crosses from $L = 120$ lines, under the four simultaneous restrictions of Chapter 12.: diversity loss $\leq 0.5\%$, $N_{e,\text{par}} \geq 50$, at most 6 uses per line, and heterotic-pool balance within 5%. One arm is `decode_rank()` – one random key per *hybrid*, dimension 3600, the N-dimensional encoding under indictment. The other is `decode_lines()`, dimension 120.

encoding	dim	index	index_min	index_max	loss %	Ne parents	max uses	seconds
hybrid keys / penalty	3600	0.351	0.343	0.358	0.060	76.634	5.667	6.550
hybrid keys / repair	3600	0.351	0.343	0.358	0.060	76.634	5.667	9.621
line weights / repair	120	1.988	1.956	2.017	0.448	50.084	6.000	12.126

```
#>   hybrid_keys_mean  hybrid_keys_range  line_weights_mean line_weights_range
#>              0.351              0.014              1.988              0.061
#>     ratio_of_means
#>              5.667
```

At dimension 3600 the search reaches index 0.351, at dimension 120 it reaches 1.988, and the seed-to-seed range within each arm (0.014 and 0.061) is an order of magnitude smaller than the distance between them, so the ordering is not a seed effect. Penalty and repair constraint handlers returned *numerically identical* plans at dimension 3600, because at that dimension the search never travels far enough from its random start to reach the boundary where the two handlers differ.

Three things that result does **not** say, each of which it has been used to say:

- It is not a comparison against the encoding this chapter runs. `sel_de()` searches n_{sel} coordinates, not N; in the book's own head-to-head benchmark (Chapter 17.) `sel_de()` finishes *ahead* of the line-encoded `sel_de_fast()` at both scales – 1.36 against 1.059 at book scale, and 1.446 against 1.336 at production scale. The line encoding beats the N-dimensional encoding; it does not beat this one.
- It is not a claim that one evaluation is cheaper. It is not, and Section 17.7 measures both.
- It is not a clean like-for-like. Four restrictions were active at once and the line decoder satisfies one of them – the per-line cap – by construction, so part of the margin is a penalty the other arm had to pay and the line arm did not.

The selected-set size of that cached run was not recorded alongside it, which is worth naming rather than papering over: the table is reproducible in direction, not to the digit.

The encoding decides whether the optimiser works. The constraint handler does not. Neither decides which of two *viable* encodings wins – that has to be measured, and Chapter 17. measures it.

16.4 Differential evolution

The run, as a procedure:

1. Fix `n_sel` first, then obtain `gd_ref` from `null_distribution()` **at that same size**. A reference computed at another size is a different quantity and every α downstream is wrong by a fixed factor.
2. Choose $\alpha_{\max}$ below the attainable ceiling printed at the top of this chapter, by the procedure of Chapter 15..
3. Call `sel_de()`. It builds its warm start, injects it into the initial population, and hands `DEoptim` the fitness $-(\bar{u}_S - 1000 \cdot \text{violation})$ to minimise.
4. Check the returned plan before using it: realised α against the budget, `max_line`, $N_{e,\text{par}}$, and the gap to the bound. The diversity constraint is a **penalty**, so a returned plan is not guaranteed feasible – the violation is only made expensive.

```
sel_de
#> function (ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, gd_ref, NP = 300, itermax = 2000,
#>     seeds = NULL, trace = FALSE, max_use = NULL)
#> {
#>     fit <- make_fitness(ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, gd_ref, max_use = max_use)
#>     if (is.null(seeds))
#>       seeds <- lapply(c(0, 0.25, 0.5, 1, 2, 4, 8, 16), function(w) sel_greedy(ctx,
#>             n_sel, w = w, max_use = max_use))
#>     seeds <- Filter(function(s) length(s) == n_sel, seeds)
#>     initial <- matrix(runif(NP * n_sel, 1, ctx$N + 1), NP, n_sel)
#>     for (i in seq_len(min(length(seeds), NP))) initial[i, ] <- seeds[[i]] +
#>         0.5
#>     ctrl <- DEoptim::DEoptim.control(NP = NP, itermax = itermax,
#>         trace = trace, initialpop = initial)
#>     res <- DEoptim::DEoptim(fit, lower = rep(1, n_sel), upper = rep(ctx$N +
#>         0.999, n_sel), control = ctrl)
#>     decode(res$optim$bestmem, ctx$N, n_sel)
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7c0a0a93b8>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

```
alpha_max <- 0.01
set.seed(9)
de_idx <- suppressWarnings(
  sel_de(ctx, n_sel, alpha_max = alpha_max, gd_ref = null$gd_ref,
         NP = 120, itermax = 250))

fmt(c(index      = mean_index(de_idx, ctx),
      alpha_pct  = 100 * alpha_loss(de_idx, ctx, null$gd_ref),
      budget_pct = 100 * alpha_max,
      Ns         = status_number(de_idx, ctx),
      Ne_parents = ne_parents(de_idx, ctx)), 3)
#>      index  alpha_pct budget_pct         Ns Ne_parents
#>      1.330      0.978      1.000      0.738     22.857
```

The realised loss sits just inside the budget, which is the sign that the constraint is active and the penalty correctly scaled: with `penalty = 1000` multiplying the *absolute* violation, one tenth of a percentage point of excess loss costs a full index standard deviation. A plan that comes back well inside the budget at a low index usually means the opposite – that the penalty dominated and the search never approached the boundary.

16.4.1 The warm start is not optional

The strong form of this claim was measured at the package's own simulation scale – 2500 candidates from 50 + 50 lines, $n = 100$, 4.5×10^5 evaluations, recorded as finding 7 of `README.md` – where a cold-started DE finishes *below* the greedy solutions it was supposed to improve on. That run is not reproduced here; this chapter runs 625 candidates and 3×10^4 evaluations, and the conclusion at this scale is weaker. What follows is the same comparison, measured rather than asserted.

```
budget <- list(NP = 120, itermax = 250)
set.seed(21)
cold <- suppressWarnings(
  sel_de(ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, null$gd_ref, NP = budget$NP,
         itermax = budget$itermax, seeds = list(sample.int(ctx$N, n_sel))))
# `seeds = NULL`, the default, would have built the greedy sweep for us.

feasible_greedy <- {
  cand <- lapply(ws, function(w) sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = w))
   ok <- vapply(cand, function(s) alpha_loss(s, ctx, null$gd_ref) <= alpha_max,
logical(1))
  cand[ok][[which.max(vapply(cand[ok], mean_index, numeric(1), ctx = ctx))]]
}

res <- c(`cold DE` = mean_index(cold, ctx),
         `best feasible greedy` = mean_index(feasible_greedy, ctx),
         `warm DE` = mean_index(de_idx, ctx))
bp <- barplot(res, col = c("grey70", "#1f5f8b", "#b2182b"), ylab = "mean index
(s.d.)",
              ylim = c(0, max(res) * 1.2))
text(bp, res, sprintf("%.3f", res), pos = 3, cex = 0.8)
```

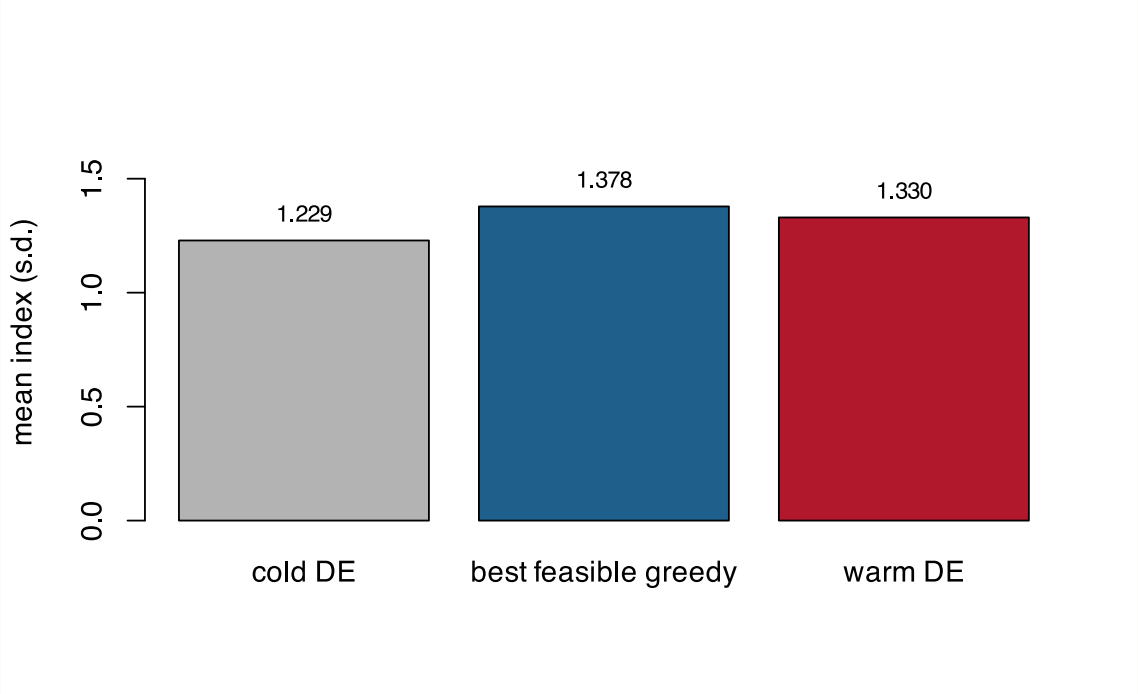

Figure 16.2: With and without a greedy warm start, at identical evaluation budget, at book scale. The cold start finishes below the best feasible greedy solution; the warm start finishes above the cold start but does not overtake greedy at this budget.

```
fmt(res, 4)
#>              cold DE best feasible greedy             warm DE
#>               1.2289              1.3782              1.3299
```

One run of each is not a comparison. Three seeds, with the cold and warm arms branched off the *same* seed so that the two differ only in the initial population:

```
reps <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(9, 21, 33), function(sd_) {
  set.seed(sd_)
  warm <- suppressWarnings(
    sel_de(ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, null$gd_ref, NP = 120, itermax = 250))
  set.seed(sd_)
  cold <- suppressWarnings(
    sel_de(ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, null$gd_ref, NP = 120, itermax = 250,
           seeds = list(sample.int(ctx$N, n_sel))))
  data.frame(seed = sd_, warm = mean_index(warm, ctx),
             cold = mean_index(cold, ctx))
}))
fmt(reps, 4)
```

seed	warm	cold
9	1.3299	1.1589
21	1.3282	1.2289
33	1.3327	1.2016

```
fmt(c(warm_mean = mean(reps$warm), warm_sd = sd(reps$warm),
      cold_mean = mean(reps$cold), cold_sd = sd(reps$cold)), 4)
#> warm_mean   warm_sd cold_mean   cold_sd
#>    1.3303    0.0023    1.1965    0.0353
```

Result: over three seeds the warm start averages 1.33 with a standard deviation of 0.0023, the cold start 1.196 with 0.0353. Interpretation: the warm start is worth about 11% of mean index at equal evaluation budget, and rather more importantly it shrinks the run-to-run spread by an order of magnitude. A single cold run is not reportable: three cold runs span 0.07 index units against 0.004 for three warm ones – a spread that is 52% of the very difference being measured.

What the warm start actually contains at this scale is worth looking at, because it is weaker than the name suggests:

```
fit <- make_fitness(ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, null$gd_ref)
seed_w <- c(0, 0.25, 0.5, 1, 2, 4, 8, 16)        # the grid sel_de() hard-codes
seeds <- lapply(seed_w, function(w) sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = w))
fmt(data.frame(
  w         = seed_w,
  index     = vapply(seeds, mean_index, numeric(1), ctx = ctx),
  alpha_pct = 100 * vapply(seeds, alpha_loss, numeric(1), ctx = ctx,
                           gd_ref = null$gd_ref),
  fitness   = vapply(seeds, function(s) fit(s + 0.5), numeric(1))), 4)
```

w	index	alpha_pct	fitness
0.00	0.1343	−1.3520	−0.1343
0.25	1.9919	4.1216	29.2242
0.50	1.9919	4.1216	29.2242
1.00	1.9919	4.1216	29.2242
2.00	1.9919	4.1216	29.2242
4.00	1.9919	4.1216	29.2242
8.00	1.9919	4.1216	29.2242

w	index	alpha_pct	fitness
16.00	1.9919	4.1216	29.2242

Seven of the eight seeds are the *same* selection – truncation – because the hard-coded grid lies entirely above the crossover measured earlier, and at a 1% budget all seven are infeasible, which the penalty converts into a fitness of about 29 on a scale where a random row scores near zero. The one feasible seed is the $w = 0$ diversity solution at index 0.134. So at this scale the warm start installs one feasible plan and seven copies of an infeasible one, and is still worth the difference measured above. Widening that grid is a change to the package rather than to the call, and it is not made here: every number in this book was produced with `sel_de()` as it stands.

The mechanism is dimensional. At roughly 60 integer dimensions the search space is far too large for 30,000 evaluations to find anything a construction heuristic has not already found. The warm start does not help the DE converge faster – it gives the DE something worth improving on.

`sel_de()` builds the warm start automatically from a greedy sweep, and **removing it will silently degrade every result in this book.**

The limitation, stated where the result is: at book scale the warm-started DE (1.33) is still below the best feasible greedy solution of the finely swept grid (1.378) at this budget. The DE's advantage here is not raw index but that it is parameterised by $\alpha_{\max}$, so it can be asked for a budget the greedy grid does not happen to land on. The method that beats both on index, at a fraction of the wall-clock, is in Chapter 17..

16.4.2 Checking convergence against the bound

Section 15.2.1 gives a relaxation. Turning it into a *bound* takes one more step, derived in Section 17.4: the relaxation at a given λ maximises a penalised objective rather than the index, so the best relaxation point inside the budget is not an upper bound on the best plan inside the budget. The Lagrangian combination is.

```
relax <- ocs_relaxation(ctx, n_sel, lambdas = 10^seq(-1, 2.5, length.out = 10))
a_relax <- (null$gd_ref - relax[, "GD"]) / null$gd_ref

bound <- ocs_bound(ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, null$gd_ref)

c(DE_index = mean_index(de_idx, ctx),
  upper_bound = as.numeric(bound),
  gap_pct = 100 * (as.numeric(bound) - mean_index(de_idx, ctx)) / as.numeric(bound))
#>    DE_index upper_bound     gap_pct
#>    1.329921    1.553244   14.377862
```

The four steps behind that one call, and the check that has to accompany it:

1. The budget is translated into group coancestry, $\theta_{\max} = 1 - \text{gd_ref}(1 - \alpha_{\max})$ – the largest θ a plan may have.
2. The relaxation is solved at each λ on the grid, giving $V(\lambda)$, its optimal penalised value.
3. The bound is $\min_\lambda [V(\lambda) + \lambda\,\theta_{\max}]$. Every λ gives a valid bound, so a coarse grid costs tightness, not validity.
4. `ocs_bound()` doubles its iteration count until the value stops moving and records whether it succeeded. **Read that flag before quoting any gap**: an under-converged relaxation reports $V(\lambda)$ too small, which makes the "bound" too small, and then it is not a bound at all (Section 17.7).

```
c(lambda_star = attr(bound, "lambda"),
  iterations  = attr(bound, "iters"),
  theta_max   = 1 - null$gd_ref * (1 - alpha_max))
#>  lambda_star   iterations    theta_max
#>   68.1292069 8000.0000000    0.6774198
attr(bound, "converged")
#> [1] TRUE
```

A large gap means **the optimiser has not converged**, not that the problem is intrinsically hard. A small gap means further optimiser effort is wasted. The gap here is 14.4%, against a bound the function certifies as converged; Chapter 17. closes most of it at the same budget with a cheaper move, which settles which of the two readings applies.

If the DE ever looks unconvincing on real data

H. De Beukelaer, G. F. Davenport, and V. Fack [62], optimising core-collection subsets with local search rather than DE, rank three stochastic searches on the same objective across four crop datasets – rice, coconut, maize and pea – in the Results section "Optimizing E-NE and A-NE with local searches": parallel tempering first, a genetic algorithm second, and random descent – a plain stochastic hill-climber – third, with all twelve pairwise comparisons significant under a Holm-adjusted Wilcoxon test. The genetic algorithm therefore *does* beat the hill-climber on raw score. What it does not do is win, and the method that wins is the one assembled from many simple local searches run in parallel, not the one with the more elaborate update rule.

The inference, stated separately from that result and limited by it: extra sophistication inside a *single-solution* algorithm bought a rank there and not the win, which is a weak reason to spend complexity on the optimiser and no reason at all to expect a DE to be the right one. It is one application, on an allele-coverage objective rather than an index under a coancestry budget, so it transfers as a prior about where effort pays and not as a result. That direction is taken up in Chapter 17., which builds the local search on the `O(L)` swap this package already had and measures it against the DE at equal wall-clock.

16.5 The full frontier

One optimisation per budget, which is the epsilon-constraint method: each point is a plan that can be put in front of a committee, described by the budget it respects rather than by an exchange rate nobody can interpret.

```
alphas <- c(0, 0.0025, 0.005, 0.01, 0.02)
set.seed(45)
front <- do.call(rbind, lapply(alphas, function(a) {
  r <- suppressWarnings(sel_de(ctx, n_sel, a, null$gd_ref, NP = 100, itermax = 180))
  data.frame(alpha_max = a, alpha = alpha_loss(r, ctx, null$gd_ref),
             index = mean_index(r, ctx), Ne_par = ne_parents(r, ctx))
}))

plot(front$alpha * 100, front$index, type = "b", pch = 19, lwd = 2, col = "#b2182b",
     xlab = "gene diversity loss, alpha (%)", ylab = "mean index (s.d.)",
     xlim = range(c(front$alpha, gf$alpha, a_relax) * 100),
     ylim = range(c(front$index, gf$index, relax[, "index"])))
lines(gf$alpha * 100, gf$index, type = "b", pch = 17, col = "#1f5f8b", cex = 0.7)
lines(sort(a_relax) * 100, relax[order(a_relax), "index"], type = "b", pch = 1,
      lty = 2, col = "grey55", cex = 0.7)
abline(v = 0, lty = 3)
legend("bottomright",  c("constrained  DE",  "greedy  sweep",  "continuous  OCS
relaxation"),
       col = c("#b2182b", "#1f5f8b", "grey55"), pch = c(19, 17, 1),
       lty = c(1, 1, 2), lwd = c(2, 1, 1), bty = "n", cex = 0.8)
grid()
```

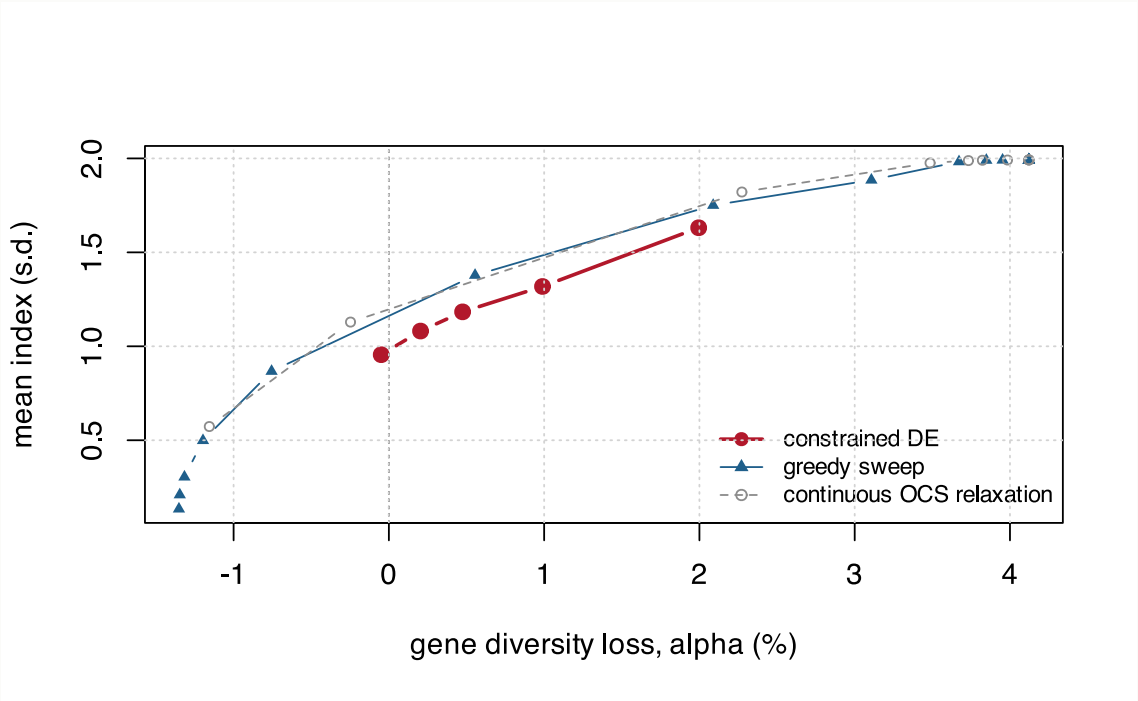

Figure 16.3: Everything together. The constrained DE, the greedy sweep, and the continuous OCS relaxation – which is a relaxation, not a bound at matched diversity (Section 17.4).

```
fmt(front, 4)
```

alpha_max	alpha	index	Ne_par
0.0000	−0.0005	0.9553	29.8755
0.0025	0.0020	1.0812	28.2353
0.0050	0.0047	1.1833	25.7143
0.0100	0.0099	1.3184	22.9299
0.0200	0.0200	1.6310	18.2741

```
best_greedy <- vapply(front$alpha_max, function(a) {
  ok <- gf$alpha <= a
  if (any(ok)) max(gf$index[ok]) else NA_real_
}, numeric(1))
fmt(data.frame(alpha_max = front$alpha_max, DE = front$index,
               greedy_sweep = best_greedy,
               DE_minus_greedy = front$index - best_greedy), 4)
```

alpha_max	DE	greedy_sweep	DE_minus_greedy
0.0000	0.9553	0.8672	0.0881
0.0025	1.0812	0.8672	0.2140
0.0050	1.1833	0.8672	0.3162
0.0100	1.3184	1.3782	−0.0598
0.0200	1.6310	1.3782	0.2528

Three things to read, in this order.

The constraint does its job. Realised `alpha` tracks `alpha_max` at every budget: the optimiser spends the diversity it was allowed and no more. A plan that lands far inside its budget has not been constrained by it, and whatever else is limiting it – the cap, the penalty scale, an unconverged search – has to be identified before the frontier is read as a price list.

The comparison against greedy is budget-dependent. The DE is ahead at 4 of the 5 budgets and behind at the rest. Where it is ahead, the greedy grid simply has no point near that budget – between two consecutive values of w the sweep steps over the whole interval, and the best *feasible* greedy plan is then one from far inside it. Where the grid does land well, greedy is at least as good for a fraction of the cost. Interpretation: at this scale the DE buys the ability to hit a requested budget, not a better plan; the statement that it dominates greedy on index was an artefact of a coarse w grid, and does not survive measurement.

The dashed curve is a relaxation, not a ceiling. It sits above the discrete points over most of the range, which is exactly what makes it tempting to read its height at a given α as an upper bound on what a plan there could be worth. It is not one: the best relaxation point whose own α falls inside the 1% budget reaches 1.129, *below* both the DE plan and the best feasible greedy plan at that budget, because each point maximises a penalised objective rather than the index at its own diversity. Section 17.4 falsifies that construction and gives the Lagrangian statement that is a ceiling – 1.553 here – and the vertical distance to *that* at $\alpha_{\max}$ is what Chapter 17. spends its effort on. Note that this figure runs one DE per budget with a fixed seed; the seed-to-seed spread measured above (0.002 for the warm start) is small against the steps between budgets here, but it is not zero and it should be quoted whenever two methods are compared at one budget.

16.6 Which strategy to use

Situation	Use
The constraint is inactive (ceiling below your limit)	truncation – nothing to optimise
A per-line cap already meets the constraint	`sel_truncation_cap()` – no matrix needed
One-off analysis, small pool	`sel_greedy()` swept over w
Production scale, a budget and a per-line cap	`sel_greedy(max_use = cap)` swept over w – the highest index of any *capped* route at both scales of Chapter 17.'s benchmark (1.112 at book scale, 1.123 at production), and cheap at both: at book scale it and `ocs_round(max_use = cap)` both cost milliseconds (0.008 s and 0.01 s, means of 3 seeds that single-call timing cannot separate – neither is reliably the cheaper), and at production it is second cheapest (0.329 s, behind `ocs_round(max_use = cap)`'s 0.214 s in every seed). `sel_local_search(max_use = cap, mode = "tempering")` – the only capped local-search mode in that benchmark – comes close without matching it: 2.5 thousandths of an index unit short at book scale, for roughly 36x the wall-clock, and 0.2 thousandths short at production
A restriction a swap can-	`sel_de_fast()` – the only route that accepts them; it trails the capped greedy on index (Chapter 17.)

Situation	Use
not test (Ne floor, pool balance)	

As an order of operations at the end of a cycle:

1. Build the contract objects and print the instance panel at the top of this chapter. Confirm `gd_ref` was computed at the `n_sel` you will actually use.
2. Compute the attainable ceiling from truncation. If it is below your intended $\alpha_{\max}$, stop: the constraint is inactive and truncation is the answer.
3. Run `sel_truncation_cap()`. It costs nothing and needs no matrix. If it meets the budget at an acceptable index, stop.
4. Sweep `sel_greedy()` over a w grid spanning the crossover measured from your own data, not a grid of round numbers. Read the frontier and locate the knee.
5. Only if a specific budget has to be hit, or several restrictions apply at once, run an optimiser – and warm-start it.
6. Whatever returned the plan, validate it on the second lens and on allelic richness before it leaves the analysis (Chapter 25.).

The honest summary is that an optimiser earns its place only in the last row, where a restriction rules the cheap routes out. In the first four – including the capped production case, once the capped benchmark is read on capped methods only – something simpler is either exactly as good or good enough, and Chapter 12.'s cost table is the reason to check which row you are in before writing any optimisation code.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **10-combinatorial-selection.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

17. Advanced selection: structure, bounds and scale

Chapter 16. stops at a warm-started differential evolution. That is a reasonable place to stop if the problem is a black box. It is not one. This chapter names the structure, and then spends it: on cheaper moves, on genuine approximation guarantees, on a bound that is actually a bound, and on an oracle that says how far from optimal the heuristics really are.

The target throughout is the scale the method has to survive: **200 hybrids chosen from 10,000**, a full factorial of 100 by 100 lines. That is an ordinary size for a hybrid maize programme at the end of a cycle: two heterotic pools of a hundred inbred or doubled-haploid lines each, every cross between them a legitimate candidate, and a few hundred of them going into the next round of multi-location testing.

That is a different – and deliberately larger – "production scale" from the one Chapter 16. quotes. There, production means the real dataset this package was written for, 71 + 71 lines and $N = 5041$ candidates, which is the size the encoding argument is made at. Here it is the 100 + 100 factorial the scaling study and the head-to-head benchmark are run at, because a cost curve needs a span of N wider than one point provides. Neither is wrong and they are not interchangeable: every per-evaluation cost and every memory figure in this chapter is at $N = 10,000$, and the dimension counts in Chapter 16. are at $N = 5041$.

What has to be in hand, beyond Chapter 16.'s three objects, is the line-level route: `fast_ctx()` adds `ctx$parents`, the $N \times 2$ matrix of parent indices, to a context that already carries `ctx$fL`, the $L \times L$ coancestry *between lines*. Everything in this chapter that scales is a function of those two and of nothing else.

```
c(candidates_N = ctx$N,
  lines_L      = ctx$n_lines,
  hybrids_kept = n_sel,
  budget_pct   = 100 * am,
  gd_ref       = gd,
  f_MiB        = as.numeric(object.size(ctx[["f"]])) / 2^20,
  fL_MiB       = as.numeric(object.size(ctx$fL)) / 2^20)
#> candidates_N      lines_L hybrids_kept   budget_pct       gd_ref        f_MiB
#> 625.00000000  50.00000000  60.00000000   1.00000000   0.32583857   2.98043823
#>       fL_MiB
#>   0.01927948
```

The assumptions are Chapter 16.'s, unchanged and worth restating because two of them are load-bearing here: parent lines are homozygous, which is what makes f_{ij} a function of the four parental coancestries and hence collapses the problem to L dimensions (Section 12.1); and `f` is molecular coancestry in $[0, 1]$, not a centred relationship matrix, which is what makes it a Gram matrix with the properties the next section needs.

17.1 Three facts about this problem

Everything below follows from three properties of `f`, each of which takes three lines to check and none of which has been stated in this book so far.

17.1.1 `f` is a Gram matrix

Molecular coancestry is $f_{ij} = \frac{1}{m}\sum_k [x_{ik}x_{jk} + (1 - x_{ik})(1 - x_{jk})]$, which is an inner product of the stacked vectors $[\mathbf{x}_i; \mathbf{1} - \mathbf{x}_i]$. So `f` is not merely symmetric, it is a **Gram matrix**, exactly:

```
V  <- cbind(ctx[["X"]], 1 - ctx[["X"]])
ev <- eigen(ctx[["f"]], symmetric = TRUE, only.values = TRUE)$values
```

```
c(max_abs_difference = max(abs(ctx[["f"]] - tcrossprod(V) / ctx$m)),
  min_eigenvalue     = min(ev),
  min_over_max_eig   = min(ev) / max(ev))
#> max_abs_difference     min_eigenvalue   min_over_max_eig
#>       0.000000e+00      -4.275667e-13      -1.018142e-15
```

The check is the whole argument: the difference is exactly zero, and the smallest eigenvalue is zero to the eigensolver's own rounding – its sign is arbitrary 15 orders of magnitude below the largest eigenvalue. A negative eigenvalue large enough to see on that scale would mean `f` had been centred, rescaled, or built on the wrong marker coding – and every method in this chapter would silently lose its justification.

Two consequences carry the rest of the chapter. First, $\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{c}$ is a **convex** quadratic, so the diversity budget is a convex constraint – which is what makes the exact method of Section 17.6 possible at all. Second, $d_{ij} = f_{ii} + f_{jj} - 2f_{ij}$ is a squared Euclidean distance, hence a distance of **negative type**, which is the precise hypothesis the strongest approximation results require.

17.1.2 Maximising diversity is minimising the submatrix sum

$\theta_S = \frac{1}{n^2}\sum_{i,j\in S} f_{ij}$, and at fixed n the normaliser is a constant:

```
s <- sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w = 1)
c(theta_times_n2 = theta_group(s, ctx) * n_sel^2,
  submatrix_sum  = sum(ctx[["f"]][s, s]),
  difference     = theta_group(s, ctx) * n_sel^2 - sum(ctx[["f"]][s, s]))
#> theta_times_n2  submatrix_sum     difference
#>   2.475329e+03   2.475328e+03   1.818989e-12
```

So the objective is $\lambda\sum_{i\in S} u_i - \sum_{i,j\in S} f_{ij}$: a **modular** term plus a **submodular** one, since the marginal cost of adding a hybrid grows with the set. Writing the same thing through d_{ij}, $\sum_{i<j} d_{ij} = n\,\mathrm{tr}(f_S) - n^2\theta_S$, identifies it as the **max-sum diversification** problem of A. Borodin, A. Jain, H. C. Lee, and Y. Ye [73]. I have not found it named that way in the plant-breeding literature, and this book makes no claim about what a systematic screen would find – no such screen was run. The structural identity is the load-bearing part, and it holds whether or not anyone has written it down before.

The practical content of "fixed n" is worth spelling out: it is *only* at a fixed set size that maximising gene diversity and minimising the submatrix sum are the same instruction. Comparing θ across selections of different sizes compares two different things, which is the same reason `gd_ref` has to be resampled at the size actually being used (Section 11.9).

17.1.3 The per-line cap is a partition matroid

"No line may parent more than `max_use` of the selected hybrids" is one partition matroid per heterotic pool. Together with the cardinality constraint that is an intersection of matroids – not an arbitrary combinatorial restriction, but the single best-understood constraint class in discrete optimisation.

The structure comes from the mating design, not from the mathematics. Every candidate is a cross between one pool-A line and one pool-B line, so each selected hybrid contributes exactly one use to a pool-A line and one to a pool-B line, and the counts within each pool sum to n by construction:

```
cnt <- line_counts(s, ctx)
c(uses_pool_A     = sum(cnt[ctx$pool == "A"]),
  uses_pool_B     = sum(cnt[ctx$pool == "B"]),
  n_sel           = n_sel,
  distinct_A_used = sum(cnt[ctx$pool == "A"] > 0),
  distinct_B_used = sum(cnt[ctx$pool == "B"] > 0))
#>     uses_pool_A     uses_pool_B           n_sel distinct_A_used distinct_B_used
#>              60              60              60              10              23
```

That is exactly the ground-set partition a partition matroid needs. It also gives the feasibility condition for any cap c directly: a plan of n crosses exists under the cap only if $n \le L_A c$ and $n \le L_B c$. In a programme the cap is rarely chosen for theoretical reasons – it is set by how many seed-production fields a female line can support – and the point of naming the structure is that a constraint arriving from the field turns out to be the one class of constraint discrete optimisation handles best.

i Why naming the structure is worth a section

Three named properties buy three concrete things, and it is worth being blunt about which is which.

Property	What it buys	Worth in practice
`f` positive semi-definite	a convex constraint, hence valid gradient cuts and a valid Lagrangian bound	**large** – Section 17.4 is a correction, not an ornament
submodular plus modular objective	$1 - 1/e$ under cardinality [74], $1/(p+1)$ under p matroids [75]; a PTAS for negative-type distances under a matroid [76]	**small** – worst-case bounds, and the measured gap is around 1%
line collapse $\theta = \mathbf{w}'\mathbf{f}^L\mathbf{w}$	memory $O(N^2) \to O(L^2)$, an $O(L)$ swap, and an L-dimensional contributions programme in place of an N-dimensional one	**large** – 0.745 GiB against 0.3 MiB, and the swap is what makes local search affordable

17.2 What lazy greedy would not buy

The obvious first move on a submodular objective is the accelerated, or "lazy", greedy of M. Minoux [77]: keep stale marginal gains in a priority queue and re-evaluate only the top one, which is valid precisely because submodularity makes a stale gain an upper bound on the current one. Two distinct results are easy to conflate here, so name them apart: the acceleration is Minoux's, while the worst-case guarantee for the plain greedy it accelerates is G. L. Nemhauser, L. A. Wolsey, and M. L. Fisher [74]'s and is quoted separately below. It is the standard accelerator for this objective class, and here it is **worthless**.

`sel_greedy()` already carries the running vector `s` of coancestry sums against the chosen set, so every candidate's marginal gain is $O(1)$ and the whole step is one vectorised pass. Lazy evaluation optimises precisely the cost that is already free. Reaching for it would add a heap, add bugs, and save nothing.

The guarantee is worth stating even so, because it settles a question rather than improving a number: greedy under our constraints cannot do worse than $1/(p+1)$ of optimal, with p the number of matroids intersected – here the cardinality constraint plus one partition matroid per pool.

State it with its hypotheses, though, because they are not all met. The $1 - 1/e$ and $1/(p+1)$ results of G. L. Nemhauser, L. A. Wolsey, and M. L. Fisher [74] and M. L. Fisher, G. L. Nemhauser, and L. A. Wolsey [75] are proved for **monotone, non-negative** submodular functions. Our objective is neither in general: the index is standardised to mean zero over the candidate pool, so $\bar{u}_S$ can be negative, and adding a hybrid increases the coancestry term, so the objective is monotone only where the merit term dominates. The guarantee therefore belongs in this chapter as a statement about the *constraint class* – the cap is not an arbitrary restriction – and not as a certificate for any particular run. The certificate this chapter actually uses is the Lagrangian bound of Section 17.4, and Section 17.6 measures what greedy does in fact achieve.

17.3 The move that was already paid for

Section 12.1 established $\theta_S = \mathbf{w}'\mathbf{f}^L\mathbf{w}$, and `theta_state()`/`theta_swap()` have been in the package ever since, maintaining group coancestry in $O(L)$ per swap. Nothing consumed them. Chapter 16. even ends with a callout recommending local search, citing H. De Beukelaer, G. F. Davenport, and V. Fack [62] – and then does not run one.

```
theta_swap
#> function (st, out_h, in_h, ctx)
#> {
#>     cnt <- st$cnt
#>     v <- st$v
#>     po <- ctx$parents[out_h, ]
#>     pi_ <- ctx$parents[in_h, ]
#>     for (a in po) {
#>         cnt[a] <- cnt[a] - 1L
```

```
#>         v <- v - ctx$fL[, a]
#>     }
#>     for (a in pi_) {
#>         cnt[a] <- cnt[a] + 1L
#>         v <- v + ctx$fL[, a]
#>     }
#>     s <- st$s
#>     list(cnt = cnt, v = v, s = s, theta = sum(cnt * v)/(s * s))
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7b852cd0e0>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

Four rank-one column updates. No `N x N` matrix is touched, and the cost depends on neither N nor m. The state it maintains is three objects: the line-count vector `cnt`, the product `v = fL %*% cnt`, and their inner product divided by s^2, which is θ. Removing a hybrid subtracts the two columns of `fL` belonging to its parents; adding one adds the two columns of the entrant's parents. Because a swap keeps the set size fixed, the normaliser $s = 2n$ never changes.

It is an exact update, not an approximation, and that is checkable in three lines:

```
st    <- theta_state(s, ctx)
out_h <- s[1]
in_h  <- setdiff(seq_len(ctx$N), s)[1]
st2   <- theta_swap(st, out_h, in_h, ctx)
after <- c(setdiff(s, out_h), in_h)
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(st2$theta, theta_group(after, ctx))))
c(incremental = st2$theta, recomputed = theta_group(after, ctx))
#> incremental  recomputed
#>   0.6863819   0.6863819
```

If that identity ever fails, the state and the selection have drifted apart – the usual cause being a move that was accepted in the selection vector but not applied to the state, or the reverse.

That last property is the one that matters, and it is worth being precise about where the saving actually comes from, because the obvious answer is wrong. The line *encoding* does not make an evaluation cheaper. Taking two rows of Section 17.7′s table:

route	at $N = 3600$	at $N = 10,000$
hybrid encoding, `mean(f[idx, idx])`	40 us	132 us
line encoding, full fitness	83 us	169 us
of which `decode_lines()`, which sorts all N candidates	77 us	159 us
incremental swap, no decode at all	**3.3 us**	**4.2 us**

The line encoding is *slower* per evaluation, because decoding a weight vector into a selection has to rank every candidate. What it buys is a smaller search space, not a cheaper objective. The order-of-magnitude saving belongs to the swap – and the swap is available only to a method that moves in the space of selections rather than decoding one from scratch each time.

```
args(sel_local_search)
#> function (ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, gd_ref, start = NULL, max_use = NULL,
#>     mode = c("hill", "anneal", "tempering"), iters = 20000, n_chains = 8,
#>     penalty = 5, t0 = NULL, swap_every = 50L, seed = NULL, trace = FALSE)
#> NULL
```

Three modes, one driver, differing only in the temperature schedule. The driver does the following, and each step is a decision a breeder can inspect:

1. **Start from a plan, never from noise.** `start = NULL` builds a warm start: capped truncation, plus the greedy sweep whenever an $N \times N$ `f` is present. The test is literally `nrow(ctx[["f"]]) == ctx$N`, and it is worth being accurate about which branch produced the numbers in this chapter: the production benchmark of Section 17.7 deliberately forms the 0.745 GiB matrix so that the routes needing it can be timed at all, so **its rows took the greedy branch**. Among the candidates it takes the highest-index

one that *meets the budget*, and if none does, the one with the smallest loss. As in `sel_de()`, `NULL` never means "start cold".

The greedy branch is guarded, but the ranking that follows it is not: the warm start scores every candidate with `alpha_loss()`, which reads `ctx$f`. So `start = NULL` needs the $N \times N$ matrix whichever branch it takes, and on a context built without one it fails – `subscript out of bounds`, measured in Section 17.7.1. Supplying an explicit `start =` skips the whole function, and from there the search is `fL`-only; that is the call to make if `f` does not fit in memory, and Section 17.7.1 is where the two are run side by side.

2. **Build the state.** `theta_state()` on the starting selection, plus the running index sum and a logical membership vector, so that every later question is $O(1)$ or $O(L)$.
3. **Calibrate the temperature.** With `t0 = NULL` and a stochastic mode, the driver proposes up to 200 random swaps, records the median absolute change in the objective, and uses that as the starting temperature. Nothing about the scale of the index is assumed, so the same call transfers between datasets. `mode = "hill"` skips this entirely, since it never accepts a worsening move.
4. **Propose a feasible move.** Pick one of the n selected crosses at random to leave; draw entrants at random until one is found whose parents stay under `max_use` once the leaving cross is removed, giving up after 20 attempts. The cap is tested, never punished.
5. **Score it in $O(L)$.** `theta_swap()` for the new θ, one addition and one subtraction for the new index sum, and the objective is $\bar{u}_S$ minus `penalty` times the budget violation *expressed in units of the budget itself* – the violation is divided by `alpha_max`, so a 5 becomes an effective slope of 500 index standard deviations per unit of relative loss at a 1% budget, and 5000 at 0.1%. The tighter the budget, the harder a violation is punished, which is the behaviour you want and is not what `make_fitness()`'s fixed multiplier of 1000 on the *absolute* violation does.
6. **Accept or reject.** Improving moves are always accepted; worsening ones with probability $\exp(\Delta/t_k)$ at the current temperature. The best-ever selection is tracked separately from the current one and is what is returned – so a chain that wanders away at high temperature loses nothing.

Two design points are worth stopping on.

The cap is tested, not punished. Whether a swap keeps every line under `max_use` is an $O(1)$ question given the count vector, so infeasible moves are never proposed. Penalising them instead spends the evaluation budget on being rejected – with a tight cap that was the difference between the search improving on its warm start and not moving at all.

The temperature calibrates itself. A constant would not transfer between datasets, so `t0 = NULL` samples the median absolute objective change over a short burn-in and uses that.

One run of each is not a comparison. Three seeds – 1, 2 and 3, the same three the cached benchmark two subsections below uses, so the two panels are read against the same draws:

```
modes <- c("hill", "anneal", "tempering")
ls_raw <- do.call(rbind, lapply(1:3, function(sd_) {
  do.call(rbind, lapply(modes, function(m) {
    # sel_local_search() sets the seed itself, immediately before its own draws.
    s <- sel_local_search(ctx, n_sel, am, gd, mode = m, iters = 20000, seed = sd_)
    data.frame(seed = sd_, mode = m, index = mean_index(s, ctx),
               alpha_pct = 100 * alpha_loss(s, ctx, gd),
               Ne_par = ne_parents(s, ctx), max_line = max_line_use(s, ctx))
  }))
}))
ls_res <- do.call(rbind, lapply(modes, function(m) {
  d <- ls_raw[ls_raw[["mode"]] == m, ]
  data.frame(mode = m, index = mean(d[["index"]]), index_sd = sd(d[["index"]]),
             alpha_pct = mean(d[["alpha_pct"]]), Ne_par = mean(d[["Ne_par"]]),
             max_line = max(d[["max_line"]]))
}))
# The same three modes and the same three seeds in the cached benchmark below,
# which runs 30,000 moves instead of 20,000.
bmode <- vapply(modes, function(m)
```

```
  mean(bench$index[bench$scale == "book" & bench$method == m]), numeric(1))
fmt(ls_res, 3)
```

mode	index	index_sd	alpha_pct	Ne_par	max_line
hill	1.526	0.002	0.999	20.553	13
anneal	1.520	0.002	0.996	20.514	14
tempering	1.493	0.004	0.993	20.854	13

```
fmt(rbind(here_20000 = setNames(ls_res[["index"]], modes),
          benchmark_30000 = bmode), 4)
```

	hill	anneal	tempering
here_20000	1.5264	1.5202	1.4933
benchmark_30000	1.5274	1.5276	1.5132

Note that `iters` is the total number of proposed moves *summed over chains*, so the three modes cost about the same wall-clock at equal `iters` and the comparison above is a fair one. In tempering mode those 20,000 moves are split across `n_chains` replicas on a geometric temperature ladder spanning three decades, exchanging adjacent rungs every `swap_every` moves.

The realised `alpha` sits against the 1% budget in every mode: the constraint is doing its job, and the search is spending the diversity it was allowed.

Three checks before a plan from this function is used, in this order: realised α against the budget (a plan far inside it means the search never reached the boundary, or the penalty was too steep); `max_line` against the cap you set; and $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$, which is free and catches the case where θ is satisfied by a handful of lines used many times each.

Result. Over the three seeds the three schedules span 2.2% of index, against a within-mode seed-to-seed standard deviation of at most 0.24% – so the ordering at this iteration count, `"hill"` and `"anneal"` within 0.4% of each other and `"tempering"` behind both, is not a seed artefact.

Interpretation, and what limits it. Splitting a fixed move budget across tempering's replicas costs more than the exchanges return at this size – a statement about `iters = 20000` on 625 candidates, not about parallel tempering. The hill-versus-anneal ordering in particular does **not** survive a change in budget, which is why the second panel prints both: at 20,000 moves `"hill"` leads `"anneal"` by 6.2 thousandths of an index unit – more than the 3.7-thousandth within-mode standard deviation, so not noise at that budget – while at the benchmark's 30,000 moves the sign flips to 0.2 thousandths in `"anneal"`'s favour. That ordering is therefore a property of the move budget and not of the schedule. Read this panel as evidence that the temperature schedule is a second-order choice at fixed move budget – not as a ranking of the three, and not as a claim that the move rather than the schedule is what buys the index. That claim is a comparison against the other methods and it belongs to the benchmark below, which has the dispersion to support it.

17.3.1 Against the differential evolution, at equal wall-clock

Equal *evaluations* is the wrong comparison when one evaluation costs seventeen times what another does. The honest axis is seconds.

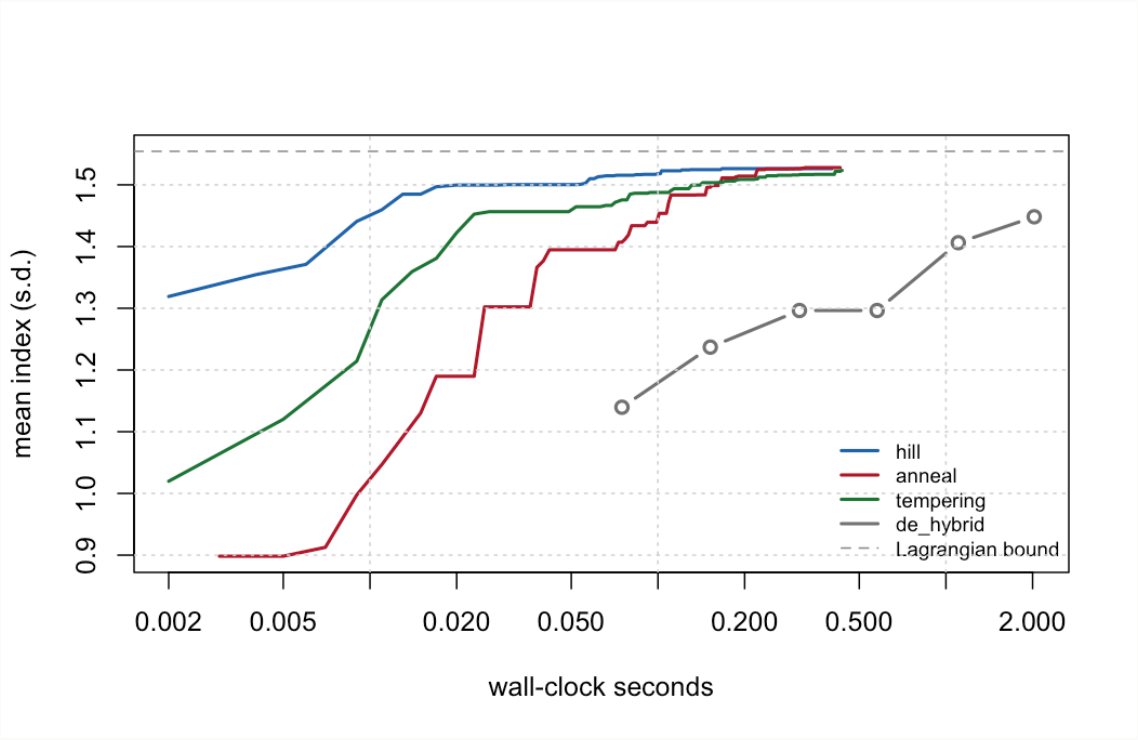

Figure 17.1: Best index reached against wall-clock seconds, at book scale under a 1% diversity budget. The dashed line is the Lagrangian bound of Section 17.4. Local search is at 1.52 within a tenth of a second; the differential evolution reaches only 1.45 after two seconds.

method	index	loss %	Ne parents	max uses	seconds	gap to bound %
anneal	1.528	0.999	20.594	13	0.232	1.718
hill	1.527	0.998	20.552	13	0.225	1.733
tempering	1.513	0.998	20.750	13	0.222	2.645
ocs_round	1.487	0.895	20.749	14	0.009	4.339
greedy	1.378	0.550	21.818	13	0.008	11.331
de_hybrid	1.360	0.960	22.314	14	0.846	12.517
greedy_cap	1.112	0.968	25.000	5	0.008	28.445
de_hybrid_cap	1.110	0.976	25.263	5	0.961	28.604
tempering_cap	1.110	0.976	25.263	5	0.286	28.604
de_lines_cap	1.106	0.881	25.714	5	1.563	28.870
ocs_round_cap	1.106	0.881	25.714	5	0.010	28.870
de_lines	1.059	0.996	16.314	11	0.800	31.843

Read that table by columns rather than by rank. `index` orders the methods; `loss %` says which of them actually spent the budget; `max uses` says which were capped, since the capped variants are solving a strictly harder problem and must not be compared with the uncapped ones on index alone; `seconds` is the axis the ranking is conditional on; and `gap to bound %` is the only column that says whether the leader is near optimal or merely ahead of the others. The greedy row is the one to keep in view: swept finely over w it reaches index 1.378 in 8 ms, which is 9.8% below the leading method at about 29x less wall-clock. Whether that shortfall is worth 0.23 seconds is a question about the programme, not about the algorithm – at production scale the same ratio is what decides whether a frontier of ten budgets is an afternoon or a minute.

This table is also where the move-versus-schedule question can actually be settled, because it has replication on both sides of it and both scales:

```
mv <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c("book", "production"), function(sc) {
  d   <- bench[bench$scale == sc, ]
  m   <- aggregate(index ~ method, d, mean)
  ls_ <- m[["index"]][m[["method"]] %in% modes]
  de_ <- m[["index"]][m[["method"]] %in% c("de_hybrid", "de_lines")]
  sds <- aggregate(index ~ method, d[d$method %in% modes, ], sd)
  data.frame(scale = sc, schedule_spread = diff(range(ls_)),
             best_swap_minus_best_de = max(ls_) - max(de_),
             ratio = (max(ls_) - max(de_)) / diff(range(ls_)),
             max_seed_sd = max(sds[["index"]]),
             hill_minus_anneal =
               mean(d[["index"]][d[["method"]] == "hill"]) -
               mean(d[["index"]][d[["method"]] == "anneal"]))
}))
fmt(mv, 4)
```

scale	schedule_spread	best_swap_minus_best_de	ratio	max_seed_sd	hill_minus_anneal
book	0.0144	0.1679	11.6579	0.0040	−0.0002
production	0.1267	0.3701	2.9217	0.0059	0.0024

Result. The three temperature schedules share one move and span 0.014 index units at book scale and 0.127 at production, with a within-mode seed-to-seed standard deviation of at most 0.0059. The best of them sits 0.168 units above the better of the two differential evolutions at book scale and 0.37 at production – 11.7x and 2.9x the spread among the schedules respectively, and in a fraction of the wall-clock in both cases – the `seconds` column above at book scale, and the production panel of Section 17.7 at the other.

Interpretation. What moves the index at both scales measured is the neighbourhood the search moves in – the $O(L)$ swap, available only to a method that does not decode a selection from scratch – rather than the schedule wrapped around it. Two things limit that: the ratio is 4 times smaller at production than at book scale, so it narrows with N rather than holding constant; and it rests on three seeds per cell, where the DE arms carry the larger dispersion. It is a comparison of two families at two sizes, not a law.

What the literature says about picking a metaheuristic

H. De Beukelaer, G. F. Davenport, and V. Fack [62], on core-collection subsets, found a plain stochastic hill-climber already competitive with a considerably more complex genetic algorithm, and parallel tempering winning by combining many simple local searches rather than by being individually cleverer.

S. Yadav and others [78] compared GA, DE, PSO and SA head to head on parent selection in wheat and ranked them by convergence AUC at 0.879, 0.860, 0.820 and 0.769, with DE running two to three times slower than GA for a marginally worse result. The current tools agree: TrainSel [79], which drives MateR [80], is a genetic algorithm hybridised with simulated annealing.

So the differential evolution of Chapter 16. is not the obvious choice, and never was. What it had going for it was the warm start. What it lacked was a cheap move.

17.3.2 The encoding, wired up at last

Chapter 16. measures the line encoding against a fully N-dimensional one – one random key per hybrid – and finds a 5.7x margin in the line encoding's favour at equal budget. That is a verdict on N-dimensional encodings, not a verdict on `sel_de()`, whose search space is n_{sel} coordinates wide; the head-to-head between the two encodings the package actually ships is in this chapter's own benchmark below, and it goes the other way. What is true regardless is that `decode_lines()` and `make_fitness_fast()` have been exported since the line route was written with nothing driving them. `sel_de_fast()` closes that:

```
sel_de_fast
#> function (ctx, n_sel, gd_ref, alpha_max, ne_par_min = NULL, max_use = NULL,
#>     pool_tol = NULL, NP = 300, itermax = 2000, seeds = NULL,
#>     trace = FALSE)
#> {
```

```
#>     if (is.null(ctx$parents))
#>         ctx <- fast_ctx(ctx)
#>     L <- ctx$n_lines
#>        fit <- make_fitness_fast(ctx, n_sel, gd_ref, alpha_max, ne_par_min =
ne_par_min,
#>         max_use = max_use, pool_tol = pool_tol)
#>     if (is.null(seeds)) {
#>         v <- -rowMeans(ctx$fL)
#>         v <- (v - min(v))/max(max(v) - min(v), 1e-12)
#>         seeds <- lapply(seq(0, 1, length.out = 8), function(s) s *
#>             v)
#>     }
#>     initial <- matrix(stats::runif(NP * L), NP, L)
#>     for (i in seq_len(min(length(seeds), NP))) initial[i, ] <- seeds[[i]]
#>     ctrl <- DEoptim::DEoptim.control(NP = NP, itermax = itermax,
#>         trace = trace, initialpop = initial)
#>     res <- DEoptim::DEoptim(fit, lower = rep(0, L), upper = rep(1,
#>         L), control = ctrl)
#>     decode_lines(as.numeric(res$optim$bestmem), ctx, n_sel, max_use)
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7b89440cf0>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

What the call does, in order:

1. Builds the fast fitness: decode the line weights into a selection, tabulate the parent counts, evaluate $\theta = \mathbf{w}'\mathbf{f}^L\mathbf{w}$ on the used lines only, and add one proportional penalty per active restriction – diversity budget, minimum $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$, per-line cap, pool balance. No $N \times N$ matrix is formed or indexed anywhere.
2. Builds the seeds. They sweep a **line-diversity direction**, not a merit weight: `p` proportional to the negated mean coancestry of each line, at eight increasing strengths from zero to one.
3. Searches the box $[0, 1]^L$ with `DEoptim`, and decodes the best member.

The zero-strength seed is worth isolating, because it is the natural origin of the encoding: with every line weight at zero the decoder ranks on index alone and takes crosses greedily under the cap, which is capped truncation exactly.

```
cap <- ceiling(2 * n_sel / ctx$n_lines) + 1
zero_w <- decode_lines(rep(0, ctx$n_lines), ctx, n_sel, max_use = cap)
stopifnot(identical(as.integer(zero_w),
                    as.integer(sel_truncation_cap(ctx, n_sel, cap = cap))))
c(cap = cap, index = mean_index(zero_w, ctx),
  alpha_pct = 100 * alpha_loss(zero_w, ctx, gd),
  max_line = max_line_use(zero_w, ctx))
#>       cap     index alpha_pct  max_line
#> 4.0000000 0.8203555 0.3257287 4.0000000
```

The seeds sweep a line-diversity direction rather than a merit weight, but the principle is Chapter 16.'s unchanged: `seeds = NULL` builds the sweep and never means "start cold". The practical consequence of the identity above is that the population always contains at least one plan that respects the cap by construction, whatever the diversity penalty later does.

17.3.2.1 What it is actually for

`sel_de_fast()` is the only route in this package that accepts more than a budget and a cap, so the case for it has to be made where those extra restrictions are active. Here they are, all four at once, run rather than described:

```
cap4  <- ceiling(4 * n_sel / ctx$n_lines)     # the benchmark's cap, not the default
pool_share <- function(s) mean(ctx$pool[as.vector(ctx$parents[s, ])] == "A")

de_fast <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(20, 25, 30), function(nemin) {
  set.seed(7)
```

```
  s <- suppressWarnings(
    sel_de_fast(ctx, n_sel, gd, am, ne_par_min = nemin, max_use = cap4,
                pool_tol = 0.05, NP = 100, itermax = 300))
  data.frame(Ne_floor = nemin, index = mean_index(s, ctx),
             alpha_pct = 100 * alpha_loss(s, ctx, gd),
             Ne_par = ne_parents(s, ctx), max_line = max_line_use(s, ctx),
             pool_A = pool_share(s))
}))
fmt(de_fast, 4)
```

Ne_floor	index	alpha_pct	Ne_par	max_line	pool_A
20	1.1056	0.8859	25.7143	5	0.5
25	1.1056	0.8859	25.7143	5	0.5
30	1.1056	0.8859	25.7143	5	0.5

```
c(distinct_plans_over_the_three_floors =
    length(unique(round(de_fast[["index"]], 12))))
#> distinct_plans_over_the_three_floors
#>                                    1
```

```
set.seed(7)
ls_capped <- sel_local_search(ctx, n_sel, am, gd, mode = "anneal",
                              iters = 20000, max_use = cap4, seed = 7)
fmt(c(de_fast_index          = de_fast[["index"]][de_fast[["Ne_floor"]] == 25],
      local_search_index     = mean_index(ls_capped, ctx),
      local_search_alpha_pct = 100 * alpha_loss(ls_capped, ctx, gd),
      local_search_Ne        = ne_parents(ls_capped, ctx),
      local_search_max_line  = max_line_use(ls_capped, ctx)), 4)
#>          de_fast_index     local_search_index local_search_alpha_pct
#>                 1.1056                 1.1102                 0.9614
#>        local_search_Ne  local_search_max_line
#>                25.0871                 5.0000
```

Three readings, in the order they narrow the recommendation.

The cap is satisfied by construction and the pool balance is free. `max_line` equals the cap in every row, because the decoder never proposes a plan that breaks it. `pool_A` is exactly 0.5 in every row, and not because the search found it: in a complete factorial every cross spends one pool-A slot and one pool-B slot, so the `matroid-check` panel above already forced it. Of the four restrictions `make_fitness_fast()` accepts, one is structural and cannot bind in this mating design.

The $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ floor does not shape the plan either. All three floors return the *same* selection, at $N_{e,\mathrm{par}} = 25.71$: met with room to spare at 20 and 25, missed at 30 with a penalty that does not recover it. The restriction that is actually deciding the plan is the cap – 120 parent slots over 50 lines is a mean usage of 2.4, against a cap of 5. That is the diagnosis of Section 17.7 arriving early: compare $2n/L$ with the cap before crediting any other restriction with the shape of a plan.

And it still does not lead on index. Under the same budget and the same cap, a plain annealed local search reaches 1.11 against `sel_de_fast()`'s 1.106. The honest recommendation is therefore narrow: reach for `sel_de_fast()` when a restriction exists that the swap neighbourhood cannot test – an $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ floor that actually binds, or an incomplete factorial where pool balance is a real degree of freedom – and not because it optimises better, because on every number in this chapter it does not.

17.4 The bound was not a bound

Section 15.2.1 introduces the continuous relaxation as an upper bound, and the convergence check of Chapter 16. was originally written to take the best relaxation point whose own `alpha` falls inside the budget. That construction is **not valid**, and it is worth showing rather than asserting.

The relaxation at a given λ maximises $\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{u} - \lambda\,\mathbf{c}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{c}$ – a penalised objective, not the index. Its optimum happens to land at some diversity, but nothing makes it the best index achievable *at* that diversity. A discrete plan can beat it, and does:

```
lam   <- 10^seq(-1, 3, length.out = 12)
rel   <- ocs_relaxation(ctx, n_sel, lam, iters = 2000)
a_rel <- (gd - rel[, "GD"]) / gd
V     <- rel[, "index"] - lam * rel[, "theta"]     # the relaxation's dual value

cmp <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(0.0025, 0.005, 0.01, 0.02), function(a) {
  ok  <- a_rel <= a
  old <- if (any(ok)) max(rel[ok, "index"]) else NA_real_
  new <- min(V + lam * (1 - gd * (1 - a)))  # the Lagrangian form, under-converged
  best <- max(vapply(
    Filter(function(s) alpha_loss(s, ctx, gd) <= a + 1e-12,
           c(list(sel_local_search(ctx, n_sel, a, gd, mode = "anneal",
                                   iters = 8000, seed = 1)),
             lapply(c(0, .5, 1, 2, 4, 8, 16), function(w) sel_greedy(ctx, n_sel, w
= w)))),
    mean_index, numeric(1), ctx = ctx))
  data.frame(alpha_max = a, feasible_plan = best, old_bound = old,
             lagrangian_2000 = new, old_valid = old >= best - 1e-9,
             lagrangian_valid = new >= best - 1e-9)
}))
fmt(cmp, 4)
```

alpha_max	feasible_plan	old_bound	lagrangian_2000	old_valid	lagrangian_valid
0.0025	1.2824	0.8459	1.3373	FALSE	TRUE
0.0050	1.3566	0.8459	1.4034	FALSE	TRUE
0.0100	1.5202	1.4879	1.5355	FALSE	TRUE
0.0200	1.7365	1.4879	1.7998	FALSE	TRUE

The experiment is a falsification, not an illustration. `feasible_plan` is the best plan any method in this book could find *inside* the stated budget; `old_bound` is what the discarded construction would have reported; a valid upper bound must be at least `feasible_plan` in every row. The `old_valid` column is FALSE at all four budgets tested – the "bound" is below a plan that exists, which is a contradiction and not a tight bound.

`lagrangian_2000` is the correct *form* evaluated at a deliberately cheap setting – 12 multipliers, 2,000 projected-gradient iterations – and it is here only to show that the form survives where the construction does not. **It is not a certified bound and nothing downstream of this chunk quotes it.** The certified value comes from `ocs_bound()` below.

The correct statement is a Lagrangian one, and it takes a line. Any selection S of size n has an equal-weight contribution vector feasible for the relaxation, so with $V(\lambda)$ the relaxation's optimal value,

$$V(\lambda) \geq \bar{u}_S - \lambda\,\theta_S \geq \bar{u}_S - \lambda\,\theta_{\max} \tag{17.1}$$

for every S meeting the budget, and therefore $\bar{u}_S \leq V(\lambda) + \lambda\,\theta_{\max}$ for **every** non-negative λ. The tightest such statement is the minimum over λ.

```
ocs_bound
#> function (ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, gd_ref, lambdas = 10^seq(-1,
#>     3, length.out = 25), iters = 4000, lines = NULL, tol = 0.001,
#>     max_doublings = 6L)
#> {
#>     theta_max <- 1 - gd_ref * (1 - alpha_max)
#>     at <- function(it) {
#>         rel <- ocs_relaxation(ctx, n_sel, lambdas, iters = it,
#>             lines = lines)
#>         b <- rel[, "index"] - lambdas * rel[, "theta"] + lambdas *
#>             theta_max
```

```
#>         j <- which.min(b)
#>         list(v = b[j], lam = lambdas[j], rel = rel, iters = it)
#>     }
#>     cur <- at(iters)
#>     converged <- FALSE
#>     for (k in seq_len(max_doublings)) {
#>         nxt <- at(2L * cur$iters)
#>         done <- abs(nxt$v - cur$v) <= tol * max(abs(cur$v), 1e-12)
#>         cur <- nxt
#>         if (done) {
#>             converged <- TRUE
#>             break
#>         }
#>     }
#>     if (!converged)
#>         warning("ocs_bound() did not converge in ", max_doublings,
#>            " doublings (last ", cur$iters, " iterations). An under-converged ",
#>             "relaxation understates V(lambda), so this may not be a valid ",
#>             "bound. Raise `iters`, `max_doublings`, or pass `lines = TRUE`.")
#>     structure(cur$v, lambda = cur$lam, relaxation = cur$rel,
#>         iters = cur$iters, converged = converged, names = NULL)
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7b881cc7e8>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

To use it: translate the budget into $\theta_{\max} = 1 - \text{gd_ref}(1 - \alpha_{\max})$; solve the relaxation at each λ to get $V(\lambda)$; take the minimum of $V(\lambda) + \lambda\theta_{\max}$; and **read the `converged` attribute before quoting anything**. The function doubles its iteration count until the value stops moving because the value rises monotonically with iterations, so an under-converged run reports the bound too small – the one failure mode that turns a bound into a wrong number rather than a loose one.

```
bound <- ocs_bound(ctx, n_sel, am, gd)
fmt(c(hand_12_lambdas_2000_iters = min(V + lam * (1 - gd * (1 - am))),
      ocs_bound                  = as.numeric(bound),
      lambda_star                = attr(bound, "lambda"),
      iterations                 = attr(bound, "iters"),
      theta_max                  = 1 - gd * (1 - am)), 4)
#> hand_12_lambdas_2000_iters                  ocs_bound
#>                     1.5355                     1.5532
#>                lambda_star                 iterations
#>                    68.1292                  8000.0000
#>                  theta_max
#>                     0.6774
attr(bound, "converged")
#> [1] TRUE
```

The two numbers in the first two rows are the same formula at two iteration counts, and the gap between them is the failure mode named in the paragraph above, measured. The cheap sweep reports 1.5355; the converged run reports 1.5532, higher by 1.16%. Under-convergence pushes a Lagrangian bound *down*, which is the one direction that turns it into a wrong number rather than a loose one. Everything this chapter quotes as a bound from here on is `bound`, the certified object.

Two practical consequences. Every λ gives a valid bound, so a coarse grid costs tightness and never validity – unlike the old construction, where a coarse grid could silently produce a "bound" below the achievable. And the bound is now usable as a stopping rule: when the gap is small, further optimiser effort is provably wasted.

⚠ This changes a number in Chapter 16.

The convergence check in Chapter 16. once used the invalid construction, and the gap it reported was not a gap. That chapter now calls `ocs_bound()`, and the number there is the Lagrangian one; its qualitative conclusion survived the correction – the warm-started DE does sit below the frontier, and the size of the shortfall is what Section 17.3 closes. The lesson is the one that generalises: a quantity is only a bound if a feasible solution can never exceed it, and that is a property to test, not to assume.

Section 15.2.1 has not been rewritten to match, and the contradiction is named here rather than left to be discovered. That section still describes each row of its λ sweep as "an upper bound on what any discrete plan of the same diversity can achieve", and its figure caption still says discrete strategies must sit below and to the left of the curve. Both statements are the construction falsified above. Until that text is corrected, read Section 15.2.1's curve as a relaxation – a penalised optimum at each λ, nothing more – and take every bound in this book from `ocs_bound()`.

17.5 Rounding the relaxation into a plan

With a bound in hand, the relaxation stops being only a diagnostic. Solve the optimal-contribution programme in **line** space, where `quadprog` returns instantly because the dimension is L, round the contributions to integer line usage, and assign concrete crosses under both pools' caps. That two-stage shape – contributions first, mate allocation second – is exactly P. Waldmann [81]'s, whose mate-allocation stage solves in under 0.01 seconds.

The five steps inside `ocs_round()`, in the order they run:

1. **Line merit.** Each line is scored by the mean index of the hybrids it parents in the candidate set. That quantity is a general combining ability: a property of the line *against the opposite pool as represented in this factorial*, never a property of the line alone (Section 5.11). Change the tester pool and the score changes.
2. **Contributions.** `ocs_quadprog()` on `ctx$fL` with those merits, at a given λ, with each line's contribution capped at `max_use`$/2n$ – the cap expressed as a share of the $2n$ parent slots.
3. **Rounding.** Contributions times $2n$, floored, and the shortfall handed to the largest remainders; then clipped at `max_use` again.
4. **Mate allocation.** Walk the candidates in decreasing index and take each cross whose two parents still have quota and are under the cap – a greedy b-matching. If quota runs out before n crosses are found, top up on the cap alone, because the quota is a rounding artefact and the cap is the real restriction.
5. **Choose λ by budget, not by preference.** The whole sweep is evaluated and the plan returned is the best-index one whose realised α respects `alpha_max`. The exchange rate stays an internal detail; the budget remains the interface.

```
r <- ocs_round(ctx, n_sel, am, gd, bound = as.numeric(bound))
fmt(c(index = r[["index"]], alpha_pct = 100 * r[["alpha"]],
      lambda = r[["lambda"]], bound = r[["bound"]],
      gap_pct = 100 * r[["gap"]]), 4)
#>     index alpha_pct    lambda     bound   gap_pct
#>    1.4869    0.8998   52.7500    1.5532    4.2729
```

```
#>        here_index   benchmark_index       here_gd_ref        here_bound
#>           1.48688           1.48688           0.32584           1.55324
#>   benchmark_bound      here_gap_pct benchmark_gap_pct
#>           1.55432           4.27288           4.33929
```

That second panel exists because the benchmark table of Section 17.3 reports this same method and does not report exactly this gap. The plan is identical – both reach index 1.486876 – and the whole difference is in `gd_ref`: this chapter resamples the random reference at $B = 400$ and the cached benchmark at $B = 500$, so $\theta_{\max} = 1 - \text{gd_ref}(1 - \alpha_{\max})$ differs in the fourth decimal and the bound with it. Two draws of the same reference, not two results. What would be a real discrepancy, and was one until this section was corrected, is a gap computed against an *uncertified* bound: the cheap sweep above would have reported 3.17% here, more than a point tighter than the truth, because the quantity it divides by is too small.

```
fmt(r[["frontier"]], 4)
```

lambda	index	alpha
0.1000	1.9919	0.0412
0.2448	1.9919	0.0412
0.5995	1.9919	0.0412
1.4678	1.9919	0.0412
3.5938	1.9919	0.0412
8.7992	1.9919	0.0412
21.5443	1.9741	0.0365
52.7500	1.4869	0.0090
129.1550	0.7365	−0.0093
316.2278	0.4064	−0.0125

The frontier table is the step-5 diagnostic: at small λ the programme puts everything on the best lines and the realised loss exceeds the budget; at large λ it spreads contributions and the loss goes negative – more diverse than a random subset. The plan returned is the highest-index row that respects the budget, which because index falls monotonically with λ is the smallest feasible λ on the grid. If *no* row is feasible the function falls back to the least-loss one, which is a result to notice rather than to use – the returned `alpha` is then above `alpha_max` and nothing in the call will say so.

The rounding is visible in the plan itself. Line usage should track combining ability, and it does:

```
merit <- tapply(rep(ctx$index, 2),
                factor(c(ctx$parents[, 1], ctx$parents[, 2]),
                       levels = seq_len(ctx$n_lines)), mean)
used  <- line_counts(r[["idx"]], ctx)
isA   <- ctx$pool == "A"
c(cor_merit_usage_A = cor(merit[isA], used[isA]),
  cor_merit_usage_B = cor(merit[!isA], used[!isA]),
  lines_used_A      = sum(used[isA] > 0),
  lines_used_B      = sum(used[!isA] > 0),
  max_line          = max(used))
#> cor_merit_usage_A cor_merit_usage_B      lines_used_A      lines_used_B
#>         0.9392334         0.8125721        11.0000000        21.0000000
#>          max_line
#>        14.0000000
```

Result: usage correlates with line merit at 0.94 in pool A and 0.81 in pool B, over 32 lines of 50 actually used. Interpretation: the quadratic programme is doing what an optimal-contribution scheme is supposed to do – allocate more crosses to better general combiners and stop where relatedness makes the next cross expensive. Note that this call passes no `max_use`, so the plan's `max_line` is whatever the coancestry term alone permits; with a cap set, the bound stays valid but goes loose, because the relaxation it comes from carries no cap and therefore bounds an easier problem.

It is not the best method here, and it is not meant to be. What it gives is a plan and a certificate in one call, at a cost that does not grow with N in the part that matters – and a sanity check on everything else.

17.6 Exact, and how far the heuristics really are

Everything so far is a heuristic with a bound. The remaining question is what the true optimum is, and the honest answer requires solving the problem exactly at a scale where that is possible.

The obvious route is closed. Maximising a linear index subject to a **quadratic** diversity constraint over binary variables is a mixed-integer quadratically constrained programme, and HiGHS – like most open solvers – does not accept a quadratic term together with integer variables at all.

Convexity opens a different one. Because $\mathbf{f}$ is positive semi-definite, $\mathbf{x}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{x}$ is convex, so its tangent at any point is a valid linear *under*-estimate, and

$$\bar{\mathbf{x}}'\mathbf{f}\bar{\mathbf{x}} + 2(\mathbf{f}\bar{\mathbf{x}})'(\mathbf{x} - \bar{\mathbf{x}}) \le b \tag{17.2}$$

is a linear relaxation of $\mathbf{x}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{x} \le b$. Solve the resulting mixed-integer **linear** programme, add a cut wherever the solution violates the true constraint, re-solve. This is outer approximation [82], it needs only a MILP solver, and it terminates: each cut strictly removes the infeasible point that generated it.

```
args(sel_exact)
#> function (ctx, n_sel, alpha_max, gd_ref, max_use = NULL, start = NULL,
#>     max_cuts = 200L, time_limit = 60)
#> NULL
```

The loop, step by step:

1. **Translate the budget.** The diversity constraint becomes $\mathbf{x}'\mathbf{f}\mathbf{x} \le n^2\,\theta_{\max}$ with $\theta_{\max} = 1 - \text{gd_ref}(1 - \alpha_{\max})$ – the same quantity as in the Lagrangian bound, expressed in submatrix-sum units because that is what the solver sees.
2. **Write the structural rows.** One cardinality row summing to n, and one row per line for the partition matroid when `max_use` is set. Those are linear and exact; only the quadratic needs approximating.
3. **Carry an incumbent from the start.** The warm start is the same `sel_local_search()` warm start; if it satisfies the budget it becomes the incumbent and is handed to the solver as a starting point, so that a run stopped by the clock still reports a real interval.
4. **Solve, cut, repeat.** If the MILP solution satisfies the true quadratic constraint, it is optimal for the current relaxation and the loop can stop; otherwise a gradient cut at that point is added and the MILP re-solved.
5. **Read the dual bound from the right field.** `objective_value` is an upper bound only for a MILP solved to optimality; the moment the solver hits its own time limit the bound must come from `mip_dual_bound`. Cuts only tighten the relaxation, so the running minimum over iterations stays valid.

```
c(theta_max       = 1 - gd * (1 - am),
  budget_xfx      = n_sel^2 * (1 - gd * (1 - am)),
  binary_vars     = ctx$N,
  structural_rows = 1 + ctx$n_lines)
#>       theta_max      budget_xfx     binary_vars structural_rows
#>       0.6774198    2438.7113298     625.0000000      51.0000000
```

It also returns more than a black-box call would. The MILP objective is a valid upper bound at every iteration and the warm start supplies a feasible incumbent, so a run stopped by the clock still hands back a **certified interval** containing the true optimum.

scale	N	n	budget %	local search	incumbent	dual bound	status	cuts	seconds	gap %
tiny	36	8	0.5	1.1215	1.1215	1.1215	optimal	40	7.135	0.0000
tiny	36	8	1.0	1.1277	1.1277	1.1277	optimal	73	14.667	0.0000
tiny	36	8	2.0	1.2500	1.2500	1.2500	optimal	20	1.846	0.0000
book	625	60	0.5	1.3804	1.3804	1.6424	time limit	4	300.487	15.9535
book	625	60	1.0	1.5280	1.5280	1.6995	time limit	4	300.509	10.0943

Read the two halves separately, because they say opposite things.

At tiny scale the loop **proves** optimality, and the local search matches the proven optimum to machine precision at every budget – the gap is not small, it is zero. That is the result worth having: on instances where the truth is knowable, the heuristic is not leaving anything on the table at all.

At book scale the loop does not converge, and would not at production scale either. Gradient cuts on a dense quadratic are weak, each MILP re-solve is expensive, and the number of cuts needed grows fast. P. Ahadi, B. Balasundaram, J. S. Borrero, and C. Chen [83], solving an integer programme for mate selection with a commercial solver, reach the same conclusion and say plainly that large datasets will need decomposition and "sub-optimal (but good quality) feasible solutions".

The scale caveat cuts both ways and belongs here rather than in a footnote: "the heuristic is exactly optimal" is measured at $N = 36$, on instances small enough to prove. It is evidence that the move and the objective are right, not evidence that the same holds at 625 or at 10,000, where the true optimum is unknown and only the interval between the best plan and the certified bound is reportable.

> **i** What the oracle is for
>
> Not production. `sel_exact()` forms the `N x N` matrix and scales like the mixed-integer programme it is. It belongs with the `ref_*` functions of Appendix C.: deliberately slow, deliberately literal, and the only way to know whether the fast route is right. Run it once, small, when the data changes; do not put it in a pipeline.

17.7 Scaling to 200 of 10,000

N	L	n_sel	f size (GiB)	hybrid (us)	line (us)	of which decode (us)	swap (us)
400	40	20	0.001	6.6	17.9	13.3	2.7
1600	80	32	0.019	7.7	36.3	30.5	3.0
3600	120	72	0.097	39.9	83.0	76.6	3.3
6400	160	128	0.305	78.2	147.8	140.9	3.9
10000	200	200	0.745	132.2	168.7	159.1	4.2
22500	300	450	3.772	NA	NA	NA	NA

```
#>        N_from          N_to    n_sel_from      n_sel_to growth_hybrid
#>        400.00      10000.00         20.00        200.00         20.11
#>  growth_lines growth_decode   growth_swap
#>          9.42         11.99          1.54
```

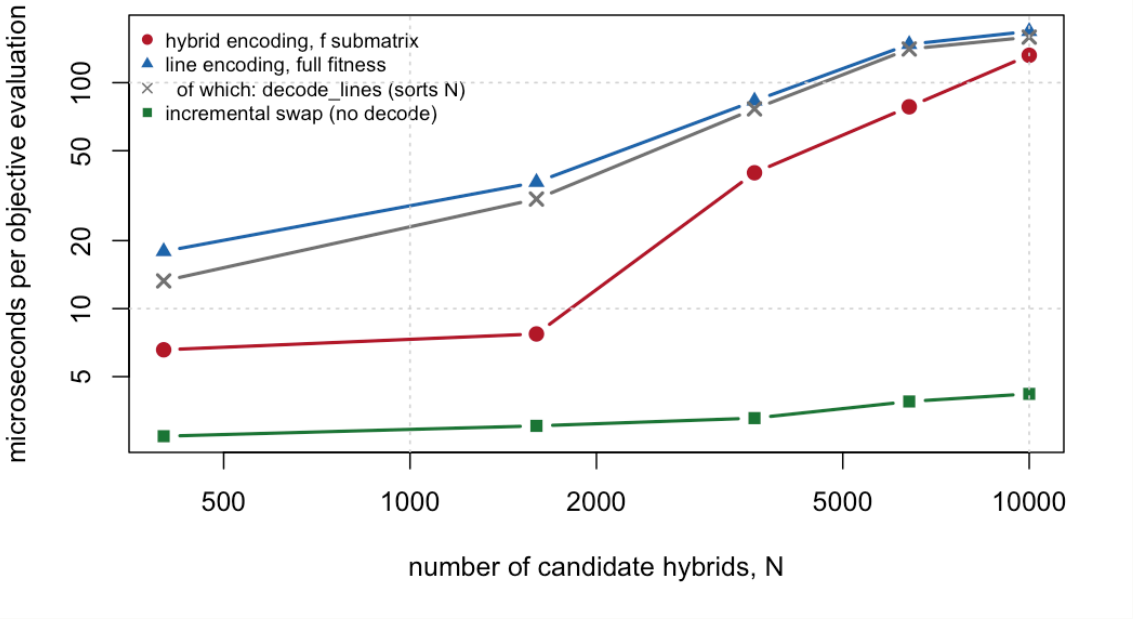

Figure 17.2: Cost per objective evaluation against the number of candidate hybrids. Only the incremental swap is flat. Both encodings grow: the line route by 9.4x, dominated by decode_lines()'s O(N log N) sort over all candidates, and the hybrid route by 20x – but that arm is confounded, because the sweep sets n_sel to 2 percent of N (20 crosses at N = 400, 200 at N = 10,000) and mean(f[idx, idx]) is quadratic in the selection, not in N.

Three things scale badly, and they are worth separating because only one of the three is fixed by the line encoding.

Memory. `f` is $8N^2$ bytes: 0.745 GiB at $N = 10,000$ and 3.8 GiB at $N = 22,500$, which is why Chapter 12.'s benchmark refuses to form it there. $\mathbf{f}^L$ is 200×200, or 0.3 MiB. **Fixed by the line route.**

Search dimension. Not what the line encoding fixes – not for the two differential evolutions, at any rate. `sel_de()` searches n_{sel} continuous coordinates and `sel_de_fast()` searches L; at this chapter's target both are **200**, which is also the figure Section 17.9 quotes. The 10,000-dimensional alternative is one key per hybrid, the encoding Chapter 16. rejects and no route in this package uses. What the collapse genuinely moves to L is the *contributions* space: `ocs_quadprog()` inside `ocs_round()` solves a 200-variable quadratic programme where `ocs_relaxation()` works on a 10,000-variable contribution vector, which is why `ocs_round()` (uncapped, no `max_use`) sweeps its ten λ values and returns a *plan* in 157 ms at production scale. That number is the rounding and nothing else: the benchmark passes `bound =` a value computed once, outside the timed block, and at $N = 10,000$ that value comes back **uncertified**, so the plan is what is fast here and there is no certificate at this scale to be fast about. The paragraph after the table below is where that is measured. **Fixed for the quadratic programme; already true for the DE.**

Cost per evaluation. `mean(f[idx, idx])` is $O(n^2)$ in the *selection*, so it degrades exactly as the problem gets interesting – but `decode_lines()` is $O(N \log N)$, so the line encoding does not fix this and at these sizes is slightly worse. **Fixed only by not decoding**, which is what the swap neighbourhood does.

Scaling up is therefore not a matter of buying time. It is a matter of not forming `f` at all: build `ctx$fL` and `ctx$parents`, and use the routes that read only those. That last clause is a real restriction and not a formality, because most of this package still reaches for the $N \times N$ matrix, and `fast_ctx()` does not change that – it *adds* `parents` to whatever context it is handed and neither builds `f` nor drops it. The constructor with the switch is `ctx_from_pools(sim, with_f = FALSE)`, and the next section is what actually happens on the context it returns.

17.7.1 Which routes actually run without `f`

```
sim <- simulate_pools(n_A = 10, n_B = 10, m = 400, seed = 1)
cxF <- ctx_from_pools(sim, with_f = FALSE)   # fL + parents, no N x N matrix
cxT <- ctx_from_pools(sim, with_f = TRUE)    # the same data, f as well
k   <- 12
gdk <- null_distribution(cxT, k, B = 50, B_full = 10)$gd_ref
st  <- sel_truncation_cap(cxF, k, cap = 3)   # a valid starting selection
set.seed(1); wts <- runif(cxF$n_lines)
# Line merit as ocs_round() defines it: mean index of the hybrids a line parents.
merit <- vapply(seq_len(cxF$n_lines), function(l)
  mean(cxF$index[cxF$parents[, 1] == l | cxF$parents[, 2] == l]), numeric(1))

runs <- function(e) tryCatch({ force(e); "runs" },
                     error = function(err) paste0("ERROR: ", conditionMessage(err)))
knitr::kable(data.frame(
  Route = c("`theta_state()` / `theta_swap()`", "`fast_theta()`",
            "`sel_truncation_cap()`", "`decode_lines()`", "`sel_de_fast()`",
            "`ocs_quadprog()`", "`ocs_bound()`",
            "`sel_local_search(start = st)`", "`sel_local_search(start = NULL)`",
            "`theta_group()` / `alpha_loss()`", "`null_distribution()`",
            "`sel_greedy()`", "`ocs_round()`"),
  `On a ctx with no f` = c(
     runs(theta_swap(theta_state(st, cxF), st[1], setdiff(seq_len(cxF$N), st)[1],
cxF)),
    runs(fast_theta(st, cxF)),
    runs(sel_truncation_cap(cxF, k, cap = 3)),
    runs(decode_lines(wts, cxF, k)),
    runs(suppressWarnings(sel_de_fast(cxF, k, gdk, am, NP = 20, itermax = 10))),
    runs(ocs_quadprog(cxF$fL, merit, lambda = 1, upper = 1)),
     runs(suppressWarnings(ocs_bound(cxF, k, am, gdk, iters = 200, max_doublings
= 1L))),
    runs(sel_local_search(cxF, k, am, gdk, start = st, iters = 500, seed = 1)),
    runs(sel_local_search(cxF, k, am, gdk, iters = 500, seed = 1)),
    runs(theta_group(st, cxF)),
    runs(null_distribution(cxF, k, B = 20, B_full = 5)),
    runs(sel_greedy(cxF, k, w = 1)),
```

```
    runs(ocs_round(cxF, k, am, gdk, bound = NA_real_))),
  check.names = FALSE), row.names = FALSE,
  caption = "Every route in this chapter, run on a context carrying fL and parents
but no N x N f.")
```

Route	On a ctx with no f
`theta_state()` / `theta_swap()`	runs
`fast_theta()`	runs
`sel_truncation_cap()`	runs
`decode_lines()`	runs
`sel_de_fast()`	runs
`ocs_quadprog()`	runs
`ocs_bound()`	runs
`sel_local_search(start = st)`	runs
`sel_local_search(start = NULL)`	ERROR: subscript out of bounds
`theta_group()` / `alpha_loss()`	ERROR: subscript out of bounds
`null_distribution()`	ERROR: subscript out of bounds
`sel_greedy()`	ERROR: argument is of length zero
`ocs_round()`	ERROR: subscript out of bounds

```
# The f-free replacement for null_distribution(): the same resampling, scored
# with fast_theta() instead of theta_group(). Same seed, same draws, same gd_ref.
set.seed(7)
gd_free <- mean(replicate(50, 1 - fast_theta(sample.int(cxF$N, k), cxF)))
stopifnot(all.equal(gd_free, gdk))

# What the matrix was buying the local search: only the starting point.
objs <- c(
  with_f_start_NULL = attr(sel_local_search(cxT, k, am, gdk, iters = 500, seed = 1),
                           "objective"),
  no_f_start_given  = attr(sel_local_search(cxF, k, am, gdk, start = st, iters = 500,
                                            seed = 1), "objective"))
```

Read the second column before designing a pipeline around the paragraph above it. The incremental swap, the line decoder, the line-space quadratic programme and the Lagrangian bound are genuinely `f`-free, and so is `sel_local_search()` **once it is given an explicit `start =`**: on this instance it reaches 1.5804 against 1.5804 for the default warm start with `f` present, so at this size the matrix was buying the starting point and nothing else. That is one instance, not a guarantee – the greedy warm start is there because at book and production scale it is worth having.

`sel_greedy()` is the honest failure: it opens with `f <- ctx[["f"]]` and dies on a `NULL`. The rest are the trap `ctx$f` is. `theta_group()` is `mean(ctx$f[idx, idx])`, and with no `f` in the list that `$` *partial-matches* `ctx$fL` – an $L \times L$ matrix, then indexed with hybrid subscripts, so what surfaces is `subscript out of bounds` and not a missing object. Through `gene_diversity()` and `alpha_loss()` that reaches `null_distribution()`, `ocs_round()`'s per-λ frontier, and `sel_local_search()` at its documented default of `start = NULL`: `ls_warm_start()` does guard the greedy branch with `nrow(ctx[["f"]]) == ctx$N`, but the ranking that follows it scores every candidate with `alpha_loss()`, and that call is unguarded. Had the selection been small enough to index a 20×20 matrix legally, the same line would have returned a diversity computed from the wrong matrix, silently.

So the honest scaling recipe has two branches. If `f` fits, form it: the benchmark below does, on purpose, and the whole chapter's numbers come from that branch. If it does not fit, the `f`-free subset is the *whole* pipeline you get – `sel_truncation_cap()` for a starting plan, `fast_theta()` over random subsets for `gd_ref` in place of `null_distribution()` (same seed, same draws, the same `gd_ref` to machine precision, which the chunk above asserts), `sel_local_search(start = ...)` and `sel_de_fast()` for the search, `ocs_quadprog()` and `ocs_bound()` for the contributions and the bound – and the greedy sweep, the resampled null and the rounding route are simply not available.

17.7.2 The head-to-head at production scale

Nothing broke at 10,000 and nothing here claims it did: the benchmark below forms the 0.745 GiB matrix on purpose, and the hybrid route still evaluates in 132 us. The wall is further out, and it is documented rather than predicted – at $N = 22,500$ the matrix is 3.8 GiB and Chapter 12.'s cost benchmark declines to form it at all, so every metric that needs it has no timing entry at that scale. The line route has one.

method	index	loss %	Ne parents	max uses	seconds
hill	1.816	0.999	46.796	20.333	0.341
anneal	1.814	0.998	47.014	19.000	0.343
ocs_round	1.789	0.832	45.121	20.000	0.157
tempering	1.689	0.999	56.383	15.333	0.352
greedy	1.500	0.227	54.348	18.000	0.221
de_hybrid	1.446	0.986	57.948	18.667	8.858
de_lines	1.336	0.988	28.925	29.667	6.314
greedy_cap	1.123	0.317	100.756	4.000	0.329
de_hybrid_cap	1.122	0.310	101.266	4.000	9.022
de_lines_cap	1.122	0.310	101.266	4.000	15.041
ocs_round_cap	1.122	0.310	101.266	4.000	0.214
tempering_cap	1.122	0.310	101.266	4.000	0.466

Two things in that table are worth more than the ranking.

The cap binds, the budget does not. Every capped method lands on essentially the same plan, at a diversity loss far inside the 1% allowed. With $n = 200$ over $L = 200$ lines the mean usage is already 2, so a cap of 4 leaves very little to choose; the restriction that is actually deciding the plan is the one nobody wrote a budget for. Check `max_line` and realised `alpha` together before concluding that a diversity constraint is doing any work.

Read down the capped rows only, as the rule above the book-scale table requires, and the ordering inverts. `greedy` ranks 5 of 7 among the uncapped rows and 1 of 5 among the capped ones: it tops them at 1.12252 in 0.329 s, ahead of `tempering_cap` at 1.12233 in 0.466 s and of both capped differential evolutions and of `ocs_round_cap`, all three of which land on the identical plan to the tempering here. The same holds at book scale, ranks 5 uncapped and 1 capped, where `greedy_cap` reaches 1.11220 in 0.008 s against `tempering_cap`'s 1.10972 in 0.286 s. A cap this tight leaves the optimiser nothing to find that a capped greedy sweep does not already reach.

The diagnosis is arithmetic and takes a minute: compare $2n/L$, the mean number of uses per line, against the cap. If the cap is a small multiple of the mean, it is the binding restriction and the diversity budget is decoration. Raising the cap, or enlarging the candidate pool, changes the plan; tightening the budget does not.

The certificate does not scale, and the bound is reported as uncertified. `ocs_bound()` doubles its iteration count until the value stops moving. At book scale it converges; at $N = 10,000$ it does not, within any budget worth spending. The reason is in the step size, $1/(2\lambda \max_i \sum_j f_{ij})$, whose denominator grows with N – so the same iteration count that converges on 625 candidates is nowhere near enough on 10,000. An under-converged relaxation reports $V(\lambda)$ *too small*, which makes the "bound" too small, and it stops bounding anything.

scale	N	bound	certified
book	625	1.5543	TRUE
production	10000	1.8378	FALSE

That is a finding, not a defect, and it is why the function warns instead of returning a number. At production scale you have heuristics that agree with each other and no proof that any of them is close – which is the honest position, and a better one than a gap column computed from a quantity that is not a bound.

17.8 Multi-objective, and why not NSGA-II

`stage2_select()` traces the frontier by sweeping `alpha_max` and running a full optimisation at each point. That is already the epsilon-constraint method, and it is the right one: each point is a plan a committee can approve, expressed in a budget rather than in an exchange rate (Chapter 15.).

The available saving is not a Pareto algorithm. It is that consecutive budgets have nearly identical solutions, so the plan found at α_k is the obvious warm start for α_{k+1} – which the sweep currently throws away. That is a `start =` argument, not a new optimiser.

NSGA-II would return the whole front in one run, at worse quality per point and with a crowding heuristic that has nothing to say about a constraint the breeder has already chosen. For a one-dimensional trade-off already parameterised by an interpretable budget, it is machinery in search of a problem.

17.9 What not to reach for

Reinforcement learning. BreedGym and its successors [84] cast the *breeding programme* as a Markov decision process: how to allocate resources across cycles, when to recycle, how many crosses to make each generation. Those are sequential decisions with delayed reward. Choosing 200 hybrids from a fixed candidate pool, once, with a closed-form objective, is not. The tool is aimed at a different question.

Bayesian optimisation. For expensive black-box objectives with a handful of continuous inputs. Ours costs 5 microseconds and has 200 integer dimensions.

Sampling from a determinantal point process. DPPs are the natural probabilistic model of a diverse subset, and $\log\det(\mathbf{I} + \beta\mathbf{f}_S)$ is genuinely submodular and monotone, so its greedy carries a $1 - 1/e$ guarantee [85]. But *sampling* from a DPP gives diversity in distribution when what is wanted is a single best plan, and the log-determinant lens is not θ – adopting it would quietly change the quantity the programme is constraining. Chapter 11.'s rule applies: one diversity lens, chosen deliberately, reported against a null.

17.10 Which method to use

Situation	Use
Any scale, first thing to run	`sel_greedy()` swept over w, then `sel_truncation_cap()` – Chapter 16.
Production scale, a budget and a per-line cap	`sel_greedy(max_use = cap)` swept over w – highest index of any *capped* route at both scales (1.112 in 0.008 s at book scale, 1.123 in 0.329 s at production); `sel_local_search(max_use = cap, mode = "tempering")` comes close without matching it – 2.5 thousandths of an index unit short at book scale, 0.2 at production – and is the only mode measured under a cap
A restriction the swap cannot test (Ne floor, pool balance)	`sel_de_fast()` – the only route that accepts them; it trails the capped greedy on index (Section 17.3.2.1)
You need to know whether to keep optimising	`ocs_bound()` – a valid bound, but check `converged`; a small gap means stop
You need to know the true optimum	`sel_exact()` on a subsample – an oracle, not a pipeline
Contributions are genuinely continuous	`ocs_quadprog()` – Chapter 15.

As a protocol at production scale:

1. Build `ctx` through `fast_ctx()`, and decide up front whether the $N \times N$ matrix is going to exist, because that decision selects the rest of the protocol (Section 17.7.1). `ctx$fL` and `ctx$parents` are required by every fast route; `f` is required by `null_distribution()`, `sel_greedy()`, `ocs_round()` and `sel_local_search()`'s automatic warm start. At $8N^2$ bytes it fits at $N = 10,000$ and the benchmark above forms it. If it does not fit, steps 2-4 change as noted, and the `f`-free subset is what you have.
2. Get `gd_ref` from a resampling at the target `n_sel`, and set $\alpha_{\max}$ below the attainable ceiling (Chapter 15.). With no `f`, `null_distribution()` is unavailable and the resampling has to be `mean(replicate(B, 1 - fast_theta(sample.int(ctx$N, n_sel), ctx)))`, which is `fL`-only and returns the same `gd_ref` at the same seed (Section 17.7.1).
3. Run the sweeps that cost milliseconds – `sel_truncation_cap()` and, when `f` exists, `sel_greedy()` over a w grid spanning your data's crossover, passing `max_use` if a cap applies – and record what they achieve. They are the baseline every later number is judged against, and under a cap they are also, at both scales measured here, the winner (the table above).
4. Run `sel_local_search()` for as many seconds as you are willing to spend, with the cap passed as `max_use` rather than enforced afterwards. With `f` present, leave `start = NULL` and let it build the warm start; with no `f`, pass `start = sel_truncation_cap(...)` explicitly, which is the only configuration of this route that runs without the matrix. The mode is the least consequential choice in this list: on the benchmark above `"hill"` and `"anneal"` are 0.2 thousandths of an index unit apart at book scale and 2.4 at production, with the sign of the difference changing between them, while `"tempering"` trails at both. Take the simplest one unless your own data says otherwise – but note that those three are the *uncapped* rows, and the only mode benchmarked under a cap is `"tempering"`.
5. Compute `ocs_bound()` and check its `converged` attribute. Certified and the gap small: stop. Certified and the gap large: keep going. Uncertified: report no gap at all, and judge the plan by agreement between independent methods instead.
6. Validate the returned plan on the lens the constraint does not pin – `F_drift` and allelic richness – and on the pool decomposition, before it is used (Chapter 25.).

The honest summary is that one change matters more than the rest put together, and it is not an algorithm and not an encoding either. The problem was always L-dimensional in its *state* – θ is a function of the line-usage vector and of nothing else – and that is what buys the $O(L)$ swap, the 0.3 MiB matrix and the 200-variable contributions programme. What it does not buy is a better parameter vector for a population method: `sel_de()` at $n_{sel} = 200$ and `sel_de_fast()` at $L = 200$ search boxes of the same width, and the measured difference between them is small and runs the other way. Everything else in this chapter – the guarantees, the corrected bound, the oracle – is there to tell you when you are done, which turns out to be much earlier than the size of the candidate set suggests.

> Name the structure before choosing the algorithm. The difficulty in this problem was in the state, not in the optimiser – and a claim about an encoding is only as good as the two things it was actually measured between.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **10b-advanced-selection.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

VI Mating and testing design

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18. How few hybrids are enough? Mating designs for a two-pool programme

Every chapter before this one took the hybrids as given. Chapter 9. made a commercial cross at the end of a reciprocal scheme, Chapter 6. derived populations from crosses already chosen, and the selection problems of the Optimisation part all start from a list of hybrids with predicted values. None of them asks where that list came from.

It comes from a crossing plan, and the crossing plan is the most constrained decision a hybrid programme makes. Two pools of 200 candidate lines each define a factorial of 40,000 single crosses. A field holds 1,000 to 3,000 plots. Every hybrid programme is therefore choosing a **sample** of a factorial whose cells are overwhelmingly empty, and the classical tester – every candidate crossed to one or two lines of the opposite pool – is one sample among many. This chapter treats the choice of sample as the design problem it is, and defends three results:

1. **At equal field size, a connected sparse factorial among the candidates estimates general combining ability better than a tester design**, at every budget studied, by 0.08 to 0.13 correlation points.
2. **The analysis matters more than the design.** Analysed by least squares, the sparsest factorials are the worst designs in the study; analysed by BLUP, they climb out of the bottom, $c = 3$ into the top third and $c = 2$ to mid-table (at 2,000 plots, circulant $c = 3$ moves from rank 23 to rank 7 of 24 designs, $c = 2$ from 24 to 14). The penalty for the wrong estimator is the largest single effect measured.
3. **Genomic information buys inference about lines that were never crossed, not better estimates for lines that were.** Where every candidate is in the field, genomic kernels did not raise GCA accuracy; where only a quarter of them were, chosen by CDmean, they did.

The running example throughout is one simulated maize programme: two heterotic pools, 200 doubled-haploid candidates per pool, a field of 1,000 to 3,000 hybrid plots, and a winter nursery that must physically produce the seed of every cross that enters the field.

> **i** Where the numbers come from
>
> Two sources, and the chapter keeps them apart. **Live** results are computed at render time with the base-R design functions of `R/16_mating_design.R` – design generators, the connectivity diagnostic, least-squares and BLUP estimators with known variance components, and the cost model. **Cached** results come from a separate study (`sparsex`) that founded the pools in AlphaSimR, estimated variance components by REML, fitted genomic kernels and swept 24 designs x 3 plot budgets x 30 replicates x 3 models. That sweep needs AlphaSimR and an external REML check against `sommer`, and is not reproducible from this repository; its tables are in `book/data/mating_*.csv` and its figures in `book/figs/mating_*.png`. The phenotypic core of it *is* reproduced in-repo (`Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R mating`), and the two are compared in Section 18.10.

18.1 Why the crossing plan is the binding decision

The crossing plan, not the statistical model and not the marker platform, sets the ceiling on what a hybrid programme can learn in a cycle. Which lines can be ranked, whether specific combining ability is estimable at all, how many plots each hybrid can occupy, whether untested combinations can be predicted – every one of these is fixed the moment the nursery plan is written. A mixed model fitted afterwards can only extract what the plan put there.

The arithmetic is unforgiving. A 200 x 200 factorial against 1,000 to 3,000 plots is a sampling fraction of 2.5 to 7.5 % at one plot per hybrid, and below 2 % once replication is required. Three decisions are usually conflated inside "the testing plan", and it pays to separate them:

- **which lines** enter the field at all – every candidate, or a subset chosen by some criterion;
- **which crosses** among those lines are made – to a common tester, to each other in a sparse pattern, or in complete blocks;
- **how many plots** each cross receives – replicates and locations.

The organising question of the chapter follows: *for a fixed budget, which sample of the factorial maximises the accuracy of combining-ability estimates and the selection response they support?* And one constraint is stated now, because it is the one most often forgotten: **a crossing plan is not a matrix, it is a nursery.** Each filled cell is a pollination that must yield enough seed for its plots.

The three canonical samples drawn over the same grid make the difference visible before any statistics. The plans below are produced by the package's generators, at 40 x 40 so that individual cells can be seen:

```
set.seed(3)
grids <- list("Tester, k = 2"     = design_tester(40, 40, k = 2),
              "Circulant, c = 4"  = design_circulant(40, 40, c = 4),
              "NC II, 10 x 10 sets" = design_nc2(40, 40, 10, 10))
op <- par(mfrow = c(1, 3), mar = c(1, 1, 2.2, 1))
for (nm in names(grids)) {
  M <- matrix(0, 40, 40)
  M[cbind(grids[[nm]]$parent1, grids[[nm]]$parent2)] <- 1
  image(t(M[40:1, ]), col = c("grey96", "#1f5f8b"), axes = FALSE,
        main = sprintf("%s  (%d crosses)", nm, nrow(grids[[nm]])), cex.main = 0.9)
  box(col = "grey60")
}
par(op)
```

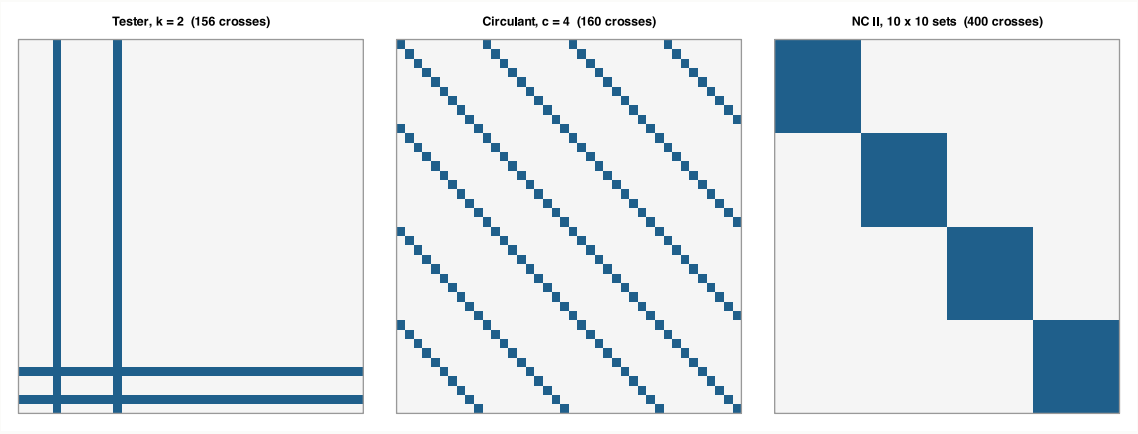

Figure 18.1: Three samples of the same 40 x 40 factorial, drawn by the package's own generators. Rows are pool-A lines, columns pool-B lines, a filled cell is a cross that goes to the field. Left: two testers per pool (156 crosses). Centre: a circulant sparse factorial with four crosses per line (160 crosses). Right: North Carolina Design II as four disconnected 10 x 10 blocks (400 crosses).

The tester fills two full columns and two full rows: every line meets the same partners, so lines are compared on a common background but the background is narrow. The circulant design spreads the same number of crosses as thin diagonals: every line meets different partners, every line is crossed exactly four times, and – the property that the next section shows to matter – every line is linked to every other through a chain of shared partners. NC II fills more cells than either and still cannot compare a line in the first block with a line in the second.

18.2 Combining ability as an estimation problem

General and specific combining ability are properties of a *reference population of crosses*, and a design estimates them only to the extent that it samples that population. G. F. Sprague and L. A. Tatum [2] defined them; B. Griffing [4] drew the distinction between fixed-effect inference about a specific set of parents and random-effect inference about the population they were drawn from; R. E. Comstock and H.

F. Robinson [3] designed the North Carolina layouts to separate their variances, and R. E. Comstock, H. F. Robinson, and P. H. Harvey [7] built reciprocal recurrent selection on them – the direct ancestor of the two-pool programme.

18.2.1 The model

At the level of a cross mean, the two-pool model is

$$\bar{y}_{ij} = \mu + g_i^A + g_j^B + s_{ij} + \bar{e}_{ij}, \qquad \mathrm{Var}(\bar{e}_{ij}) = \sigma_e^2 / r_{ij}, \tag{18.1}$$

with g^A, g^B the GCA of the pool-A and pool-B parent (variance σ_g^2 within the pool whose lines are being ranked), s_{ij} the SCA of the pair (variance σ_s^2), σ_e^2 the plot error, and r_{ij} the plots the cross received; n_A and n_B are the candidate lines per pool, and n'_A, n'_B those that receive at least one cross. In Chapter 19. and Chapter 20. the pool-A line is the female and the pool-B line the male. Section 5.11 derived exactly this decomposition from allele frequencies, for the heterosis part of the hybrid value, and showed that a pool-A line's GCA is an average effect *evaluated at pool B's frequencies*. With an additive effect a_k added to the dominance deviation d_k, the general combining ability of pool-A line i is

$$g_i^A = \sum_k \left[\, a_k + d_k(1 - 2p_{Bk}) \right] \delta u_{ik}, \tag{18.2}$$

with $\delta u_{ik} = u_{ik} - p_{Ak}$ the centred genotype (0/1) of the inbred line at locus k and p_{Ak}, p_{Bk} the pool frequencies: the classical structure of C. W. Stuber and C. C. Cockerham [86] for a cross between two populations. The additive part adds a term and changes nothing else, which is quick to confirm: the row effects of a complete factorial of genotypic values equal `cU %*% a` plus the `gca_A` of `heterosis_gca_sca()`, with no second implementation.

```
set.seed(7)
m  <- 300
pA <- runif(m, 0.1, 0.9); pB <- runif(m, 0.1, 0.9)
U  <- matrix(rbinom(30 * m, 1, rep(pA, each = 30)), 30)   # 30 inbred lines, pool A
V  <- matrix(rbinom(25 * m, 1, rep(pB, each = 25)), 25)   # 25 inbred lines, pool B
a  <- rnorm(m, 0, 0.3); d <- rnorm(m, 0.2, 0.2)
# Genotypic value of every single cross: a(u + v - 1) + d * heterozygosity
G  <- outer(seq_len(30), seq_len(25), Vectorize(function(i, j)
       sum(a * (U[i, ] + V[j, ] - 1) + d * (U[i, ] + V[j, ] - 2 * U[i, ] * V[j, ]))))
cs <- heterosis_gca_sca(U, V, d)
gcaA_formula <- drop(sweep(U, 2, colMeans(U)) %*% a) + cs$gca_A
c(max_abs_diff = max(abs((rowMeans(G) - mean(G)) - gcaA_formula)))
#> max_abs_diff
#>  2.04281e-14
```

Result. The row effects of the complete factorial and the closed form agree to machine precision. Interpretation. "True GCA" in this chapter is always this quantity – the row and column effects a breeder would estimate by growing every hybrid without error – and every accuracy reported is a correlation with it, over **all** candidates of a pool, crossed or not.

18.2.2 Four quantities that control a design

Table 18.1: The four quantities of a two-pool mating design, their closed forms and what controls them.

Quantity	Closed form	Controlled by
Rank of the GCA design matrix $[\mathbf{1} \mid Z_A \mid Z_B]$	$n'_A + n'_B -$ (connected components)	which crosses are made: the bipartite graph
Residual df for SCA at cross-mean level	$n_{\text{crosses}} -$ rank	crosses per line; zero for one tester per pool
LS sampling error of a GCA estimate, c crosses per line	$\sigma_s^2/c + \sigma_e^2/(c\,r)$	c buys down both terms, r only the second
LS accuracy of a GCA estimate	$\rho = \sqrt{\sigma_g^2/(\sigma_g^2 + \sigma_s^2/c + \sigma_e^2/(c\,r))}$	the same, as a correlation

The third row is the quantitative form of the argument of G. F. Sprague and L. A. Tatum [2] for using more than one tester, and the fourth is its square root as an accuracy: the square root of the heritability of a testcross mean [51]. Both describe **least squares**. A shrinkage estimator on a connected design borrows information across lines and exceeds them, which is why Section 18.5 exists.

The cached run validated the third and fourth rows against simulation in the complete 200 x 200 factorial, for $k = 1, 2, 4, 8$ testers and $r = 1, 2$ plots:

```
v4 <- subset(val, grepl("^V4", check))
fmt(data.frame(design = sub("cor\\(ghat_LS, GCA\\), ", "", v4$quantity),
               simulated = v4$observed, closed_form = v4$expected,
               rel_error_pct = 100 * v4$rel_error), 3)
```

Table 18.2: Least-squares GCA accuracy in a k-tester design: simulated (30-replicate mean, testers resampled) against the closed form. Cached from the `sparsex` validation suite, check V4.

design	simulated	closed_form	rel_error_pct
k=1 r=1	0.394	0.391	0.826
k=1 r=2	0.499	0.503	−0.840
k=2 r=1	0.509	0.515	−1.094
k=2 r=2	0.639	0.635	0.534
k=3 r=1	0.593	0.592	0.108
k=3 r=2	0.713	0.710	0.500
k=4 r=1	0.646	0.647	−0.119
k=4 r=2	0.758	0.758	−0.065
k=8 r=1	0.772	0.768	0.520
k=8 r=2	0.855	0.855	0.075

The largest relative error is 1.1 %. The expression is a reliable description of least squares on a tester design, and the cost optimiser of Section 18.7 uses it for that reason – knowing it is conservative for anything shrunk.

18.2.3 Connectivity, in one paragraph

> **!** The rank rule
>
> A mating design is a bipartite graph: pool-A lines on one side, pool-B lines on the other, an edge for every cross. GCA contrasts are estimable **within** a connected component of that graph and **not between** components, so the rank of the GCA design matrix is $n'_A + n'_B - (\text{components})$, one lost constraint per component. That is the formal content of what breeders call "ties between sets", and it was settled long ago: D. L. Weeks and D. R. Williams [87] gave the criterion for an N-way classification and R. Fernando, D. Gianola, and M. Grossman [88] an algorithm for the connected subsets of a two-way one.

`design_diagnostics()` computes both sides of the rule independently – the numerical rank by QR, the components by union-find over the graph – so a disagreement would be a bug, not a modelling choice:

```
set.seed(2026)
plans <- list("tester k=1"        = design_tester(n, n, 1),
              "tester k=2"        = design_tester(n, n, 2),
              "random sparse c=2" = design_random_sparse(n, n, 2),
              "circulant c=2"     = design_circulant(n, n, 2),
              "circulant c=5"     = design_circulant(n, n, 5),
              "NC II 10x10 sets"  = design_nc2(n, n, 10, 10))
diag_tab <- do.call(rbind, lapply(names(plans), function(nm) {
  d <- design_diagnostics(plans[[nm]], n, n)
```

```
  data.frame(design = nm, crosses = d$n_crosses,
             untested = 2 * n - d$lines_A - d$lines_B,
             components = d$components, rank_gca = d$rank_gca,
             rank_expected = d$rank_expected, df_sca = d$df_sca)
}))
stopifnot(all(diag_tab$rank_gca == diag_tab$rank_expected))
diag_tab
```

Table 18.3: Connectivity and estimability of six designs on the 200 x 200 running example. `rank_gca` is the numerical rank of the GCA design matrix; `rank_expected` is the graph prediction; `df_sca` is what is left at cross-mean level to separate SCA from error.

design	crosses	untested	components	rank_gca	rank_expected	df_sca
tester k=1	399	0	1	399	399	0
tester k=2	796	0	1	399	399	397
random sparse c=2	400	53	11	336	336	64
circulant c=2	400	0	1	399	399	1
circulant c=5	1000	0	1	399	399	601
NC II 10x10 sets	2000	0	20	380	380	1620

Result. The rank equals the graph prediction in every row. The NC II layout – twenty disconnected 10 x 10 blocks – has rank 380, not 399: twenty components, twenty lost constraints. The random sparse design at two crosses per line leaves 53 candidates with no cross at all and splits the rest into 11 components; the circulant design with the same number of crosses is a single component with every line crossed exactly twice. One tester per pool is connected and has **zero** residual df: $n_A + n_B - 1$ crosses for $n_A + n_B - 1$ GCA parameters. The GCA model is saturated and SCA is not merely imprecise, it is not identifiable.

What "not estimable" means is checked directly. A contrast between two lines of the same NC II block lies in the row space of the design matrix; a contrast between lines of different blocks does not:

```
nc <- plans[["NC II 10x10 sets"]]
l_within  <- c(0, 1, -1, rep(0, 2 * n - 2))           # A1 - A2, same block
l_between <- c(0, 1, rep(0, 9), -1, rep(0, 2 * n - 11)) # A1 - A11, next block
rbind(within  = unlist(design_estimable(nc, n, n, l_within)),
      between = unlist(design_estimable(nc, n, n, l_between)))
#>         estimable rel_residual
#> within          1 3.831056e-16
#> between         0 2.236068e-01
```

The within-block residual is rounding error; the between-block residual is 0.224, a contrast nowhere near the row space. Any least-squares ranking that crosses block boundaries in this design is a statement about the analyst's centring convention, not about the lines.

BLUP does rank across blocks, and in the simulations below NC II scores well on all-lines accuracy. It can, because a random-effects model supplies the missing constraint from its prior: every block's lines are assumed drawn from the same pool distribution, so every block mean is shrunk to the same value. That assumption is exactly true in a simulation that assigns lines to blocks at random, and exactly what fails when blocks are families, years or breeders' sub-programmes with real mean differences. Disconnection is not repaired by the estimator; it is replaced by an assumption, and the assumption should be stated.

18.2.4 SCA and the cross-level residual are the same thing in cross means

One more property of the model must be stated before any variance component is reported. Each cross has its own SCA, so in cross-mean data s_{ij} and $\bar{e}_{ij}$ occupy exactly the same position: only their sum $\sigma^2_s + \sigma^2_e/r$ is identified. The cached study separated them by fixing σ^2_e from the within-cross plot variance of stage 1 and estimating σ^2_s; an independent REML implementation (`sommer`) estimated a residual scale instead and put σ^2_s at zero, and the two agreed on the **sum** to 2e-06 relative error. A reported σ^2_{SCA} from cross means is only as good as the external plot-error estimate it was separated with. `fit_gca()` in this package sidesteps the question by taking the components as known, and weights each cross mean by $1/(\sigma^2_s + \sigma^2_e/r)$ for exactly this reason.

18.3 The classical tester approach

The tester design answers the sampling problem by collapsing one margin of the table. Each candidate is crossed to k testers of the opposite pool, and in the usual reciprocal arrangement each pool's candidates are tested against the other's testers, giving $k(n_A + n_B) - k^2$ crosses. The topcross method goes back to M. T. Jenkins and A. M. Brunson [89], the argument for general versus specific combining ability to G. F. Sprague and L. A. Tatum [2] and F. H. Hull [6], and the modern treatment of tester choice is A. R. Hallauer, M. J. Carena, and J. B. Miranda Filho [51].

18.3.1 What a tester is for, and what it trades

A tester is a **deliberate variance trade**. It buys cheap seed production and perfect connectivity – every line tied to every other through the common testers – at the price of confounding a line's GCA with its SCA *to the testers used*, and of a training set that covers the relationship space of the opposite pool very thinly. The testcross mean of line i estimates g_i^A plus the mean of k SCA deviations, so its error variance carries σ_s^2/k and $\sigma_e^2/(kr)$. Adding testers buys down both terms; adding replicates buys down only one. That is why the allocation literature treats tester number as a decision variable jointly with lines, locations and stages [90], and why it is not interchangeable with replication.

The closed form and its least-squares simulation on the running example, with the truth redrawn in every replicate so that tester SCA is resampled as the theory assumes:

```
set.seed(42)
tester_mc <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(1, 2, 3, 4, 8), function(k) {
  do.call(rbind, lapply(1:2, function(r) {
    acc <- replicate(12, {
      tr <- simulate_factorial(n, n, vc$A, vc$B, vc$S)
      p  <- design_tester(n, n, k)
      p$reps <- r
      p  <- simulate_cross_means(p, tr, s2e)
      f  <- fit_gca(p, n, n, vc$A, vc$B, vc$S, s2e, "ls")
      mean(c(cor(f$gA, tr$gA), cor(f$gB, tr$gB)))
    })
    data.frame(k = k, r = r, acc = mean(acc), se = sd(acc) / sqrt(length(acc)))
  }))
}))
kk <- seq(1, 8, by = 0.1)
plot(NA, xlim = c(1, 8), ylim = c(0.3, 0.9), xlab = "testers per pool, k",
     ylab = "GCA accuracy (all 200 lines)", las = 1)
cols <- c("#1f5f8b", "#b2182b")
for (r in 1:2) {
  lines(kk, gca_accuracy_theory(kk, r, (vc$A + vc$B) / 2, vc$S, s2e),
        col = cols[r], lwd = 2)
  d <- tester_mc[tester_mc$r == r, ]
  arrows(d$k, d$acc - 2 * d$se, d$k, d$acc + 2 * d$se, angle = 90,
         code = 3, length = 0.03, col = cols[r])
  points(d$k, d$acc, pch = 19, col = cols[r])
}
legend("bottomright", c("1 plot per testcross", "2 plots per testcross"),
       col = cols, lwd = 2, pch = 19, bty = "n")
```

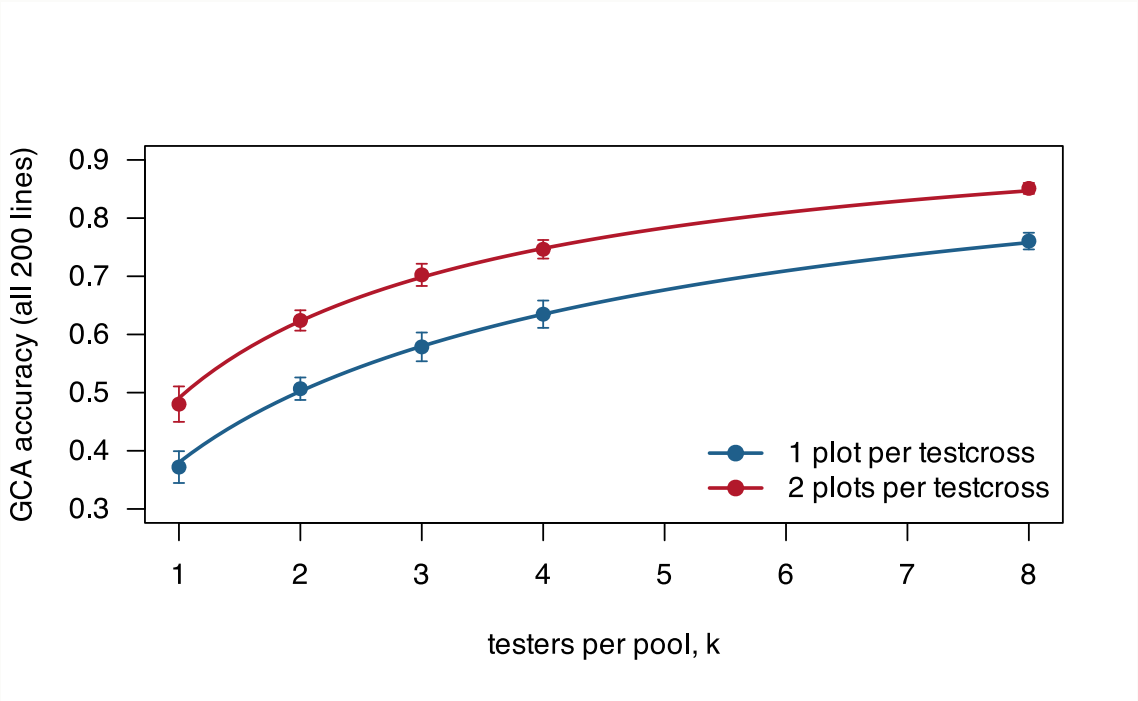

Figure 18.2: GCA accuracy of a k-tester design against the number of testers, at one and two plots per testcross. Lines: the closed form of Table 18.1. Points: least-squares estimates from `fit_gca()` on the 200 x 200 running example, mean of 12 replicates with the truth redrawn each time; bars are two standard errors.

Result. The simulated least-squares accuracies sit on the closed form at every k and both replication levels, which is the in-repo counterpart of the cached check V4. The returns to testers diminish fast: going from one to two testers at one plot raises accuracy from 0.38 to 0.5; going from four to eight adds 0.12. Interpretation. Here the plot error, $\sigma^2_e \approx 42.6$ at a single-plot heritability of 0.3, dwarfs $\sigma^2_s = 2.899$, so testers and replicates are nearly interchangeable *in this simulation*. In material where SCA is 20 to 30 % of the genetic variance [91], [92] the σ^2_s/k term is no longer negligible and testers buy strictly more than replicates. Section 5.13.6 gives the finite-population version of the same curve, with k testers drawn without replacement from the n_B available.

18.3.2 Choice of tester

The long-standing debate is between broad-base testers, elite inbreds and elite single crosses. The theoretical argument against a high-performing tester is O. S. Smith [93]'s: for many loci with substantial dominance, favourable dominant alleles carried by a good tester *mask* the candidate's alleles, reducing the variance among testcrosses and with it the correlation between testcross and line value. A good tester discriminates less. The counter-argument is operational: an elite tester produces hybrids that are themselves candidate products, so the testcross trial doubles as a product trial in the background where the line will actually be sold [51]. Programmes have resolved the tension by staging – discriminating testers early, elite testers late, single-cross evaluation last – and the number of testers per stage turns out to be among the highest-leverage parameters of the whole scheme: replacing a 4-1-1 tester plan with a 2-2-1 plan, with doubled haploids and higher selection intensity, raised gain per dollar by 43.1 % and cut the cost of a unit of gain by 28.5 % in a simulated African maize programme [94].

18.3.3 What testers cannot deliver

Three limitations recur, and the simulation adds numbers to two of them.

No SCA in the reference population. With $k = 1$ the GCA model is saturated and σ^2_{SCA} is not identifiable at all (`df_sca` = 0 in Table 18.3). With $k \geq 2$ it is identified, but the cached REML estimates of the SCA:GCA ratio at 2,000 plots were inflated by +14.8 % at $k = 2$ and +12.8 % at $k = 4$, against +0.3 % for a circulant factorial with three crosses per line. A tester design estimates SCA *with the testers*, not in the population of crosses the programme will sell.

Testcross ranking is not single-cross ranking. Comparing testcross progeny tests with randomly paired single-cross tests, B. Burdo, N. de Leon, and S. M. Kaeppler [95] found that the top 25 lines on testcross yield and on single-cross yield coincided for only 48 % of lines in the Stiff Stalk pool and 11 % in the Iowa Dent pool – almost disjoint selections – rising to 56 % in both with genomic prediction.

A thin training set. All hybrids of a candidate share one or two partners, so the design explores a narrow slice of the hybrid relationship space. Testcross was the worst of the designs compared as a training set for predicting the single crosses of a full diallel [96], and simulation agrees that the deficit grows with the SCA share [97].

18.3.4 When the tester is still right

None of this makes testers obsolete. They remain the right answer when seed production rather than plot capacity binds – a tester cross is made in bulk in an isolation block or on a male-sterile female, a sparse factorial needs many small hand pollinations (Section 18.7) – when the candidate set is so large that the first screen must be cheap per line, in programmes that cannot fit a mixed model (Section 18.5), and in the first cycle of a new pool, where there is no relationship information to exploit. D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98] make the case for a hybrid of the two logics: three to five testers allocated *sparsely* across families rather than every tester crossed to every line.

18.4 Sparse and incomplete factorials

Once candidates are crossed to *each other* rather than to a common tester, the design becomes a sparse bipartite graph, and two things matter: how many crosses each line gets, c, and whether the graph is connected. Which particular partners are drawn matters much less.

18.4.1 The design family

The classical theory is the partial diallel of O. Kempthorne and R. N. Curnow [99]: each parent crossed to a fixed number s of others, with the sampling variances of the genetic components derived as functions of s. Its two-pool analogue is the incomplete factorial, each pool-A line crossed to c of the n_B pool-B lines. The members studied here:

- **random sparse** – $c \cdot n_A$ cells drawn at random. Lines receive a Binomial number of crosses, some none; the graph may be disconnected.
- **circulant (round-robin)** – pool-A line i crossed to pool-B lines $(i - 1 + o) \bmod n_B + 1$ for c offsets o. With $n_A = n_B$ every line in both pools has exactly c crosses, and choosing offsets with $\gcd(n_B, \Delta o) = 1$ guarantees one component. `design_circulant()` nudges the last offset until that holds.
- **NC II in sets** – complete $a \times b$ factorials on disjoint line sets [3]; deliberately disconnected.
- **criterion-optimised** – greedy exchange towards A-optimality, D-optimality or CDmean [100]; **relationship-guided** – partners chosen to minimise genomic similarity between parents. Both appear in the cached sweep only.

18.4.2 How sparse is sparse enough – the published evidence

Remarkably sparse, provided the design is structured and analysed well. The most informative single data point is operational rather than simulated: a commercial winter oilseed rape programme ran 4,000 hybrids over 61 unreplicated trials covering **1.67 % of all mother x father combinations**, and a GCA + SCA model still reached accuracies of 0.63, 0.84 and 0.80 for yield, oil and protein after a further 50 % of the observations were artificially removed [101]. Across maize, wheat and rice, training sets of 2 to 13 % of the hybrid set sufficed for genomic prediction [102]. A 363-hybrid dent x flint factorial predicted an independent 951-hybrid factorial as well as or better than tester designs at equal numbers of hybrids and lines [103]; NC II was the best and testcross the worst training set for predicting a full diallel [96]; and in simulation the factorial's advantage grew with the SCA share [97].

The design principle that emerges is to **spend the hybrid budget on parents, not on depth per parent** – up to the point where c is so small that connectivity and within-line precision fail. Where that point lies depends on heritability and SCA share. For hybrids with both parents untested at $c = 1$, A. Melchinger, R. Fernando, C. Stricker, C. Schön, and H. Auinger [104] reported attainable accuracies of 0.50 to 0.65 at $h^2 = 0.4$ and 0.70 to 0.85 at $h^2 = 0.8$, the low end belonging to the high-SCA scenario, and found raising c from 1 to 4 helped most exactly there.

18.4.3 Sparse versus tester, at equal plot budget

The cached sweep puts every design at the same three plot budgets and scores GCA accuracy over all 200 candidates per pool, analysed by phenotypic BLUP:

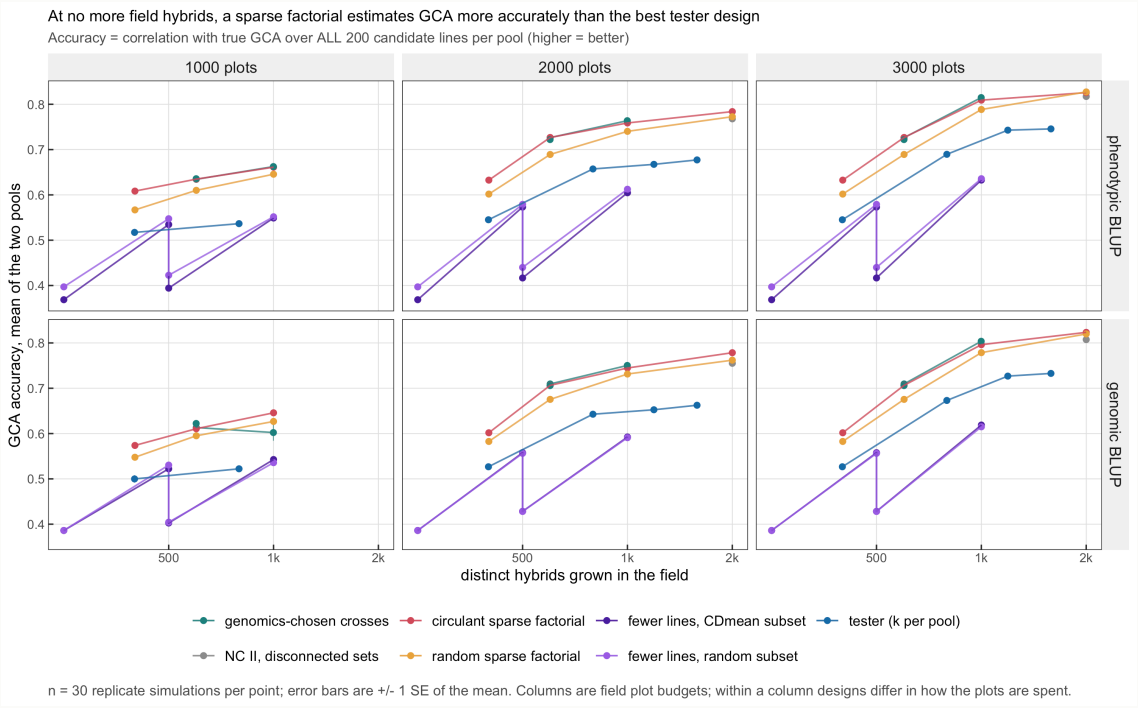

Figure 18.3: GCA accuracy against the number of distinct hybrids in the field, one line per design family, panelled by plot budget. Cached from the `sparsex` sweep: 30 replicates per cell, phenotypic BLUP, accuracy over all 200 candidates per pool.

```
sparse_fam <- c("sparse_circulant", "sparse_random")
h2h <- do.call(rbind, lapply(split(bl, bl$budget_plots), function(d) {
  t <- subset(d, family == "tester");       t <- t[which.max(t$acc_gca_all), ]
  s <- subset(d, family %in% sparse_fam);   s <- s[which.max(s$acc_gca_all), ]
  data.frame(plots = d$budget_plots[1],
             best_tester = t$scenario, tester_hybrids = round(t$n_crosses),
             tester_acc = t$acc_gca_all,
             best_sparse = s$scenario, sparse_hybrids = round(s$n_crosses),
             sparse_acc = s$acc_gca_all,
             difference = s$acc_gca_all - t$acc_gca_all,
             z = (s$acc_gca_all - t$acc_gca_all) /
                 sqrt(s$se_acc_gca_all^2 + t$se_acc_gca_all^2))
}))
fmt(h2h, 3)
```

Table 18.4: Best tester against best sparse factorial (circulant or random) at each plot budget, phenotypic BLUP. `z` is the difference in standard errors of the difference; anything above 3 is resolved by 30 replicates.

plots	best_tester	tester_hybrids	tester_acc	best_sparse	sparse_hybrids	sparse_acc	difference	z
1000	tester k=2	796	0.537	circulant c=5	1000	0.661	0.125	16.970
2000	tester k=4	1584	0.677	circulant c=10	2000	0.784	0.107	22.457
3000	tester k=4	1584	0.746	random sparse c=10	2000	0.827	0.082	21.904

Result. The sparse factorial wins at every budget, by 0.125, 0.107 and 0.082, each more than 16 standard errors. At 1,000 plots the relationship-guided design with five crosses per line is marginally ahead of the circulant one (0.662, a difference well inside the noise); it is excluded from the table only so that the comparison is between designs that need no markers. Interpretation. Two features of the table are mechanical and worth naming. The best tester never uses more than 1,584 crosses because $k = 4$ is the largest tester set swept, and at 3,000 plots it can only add replication, which buys down σ_e^2 but not σ_s^2. And the sparse winner at 3,000 plots is random rather than circulant because at $c = 10$ connectivity is no longer in question and the layouts converge.

The smallest fields that reach a given accuracy:

```
fewest <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c(0.60, 0.65, 0.70, 0.75, 0.80), function(tg) {
  d <- subset(bl, acc_gca_all >= tg)
  d <- d[order(d$n_crosses, d$budget_plots), ][1, ]   # ties: the smaller field
  data.frame(target = tg, design = d$scenario, plots = d$budget_plots,
             hybrids = round(d$n_crosses), pct_factorial = 100 * d$n_crosses / n^2,
             accuracy = d$acc_gca_all, se = d$se_acc_gca_all,
             cost = round(d$cost_total))
}))
fmt(fewest, 3)
```

Table 18.5: Fewest distinct field hybrids, over all designs and budgets, whose phenotypic-BLUP GCA accuracy reaches each target. Costs use the placeholder levels of Section 18.7.

target	design	plots	hybrids	pct_factorial	accuracy	se	cost
0.60	circulant c=2	1000	400	1.000	0.608	0.003	67800
0.65	relationship-guided c=3	2000	600	1.499	0.722	0.004	93261
0.70	relationship-guided c=3	2000	600	1.499	0.722	0.004	93261
0.75	relationship-guided c=5	2000	999	2.497	0.764	0.004	102292
0.80	relationship-guided c=5	3000	999	2.497	0.815	0.002	132193

Result. Four hundred hybrids – 1 % of the factorial – reach 0.608; about 600 (1.5 %) reach 0.722; about 1,000 (2.5 %) reach 0.815. Interpretation. This confirms the order of magnitude of the operational and published sampling fractions [101], [102] and adds the part they leave implicit: the fraction is set by the accuracy target, not by a universal threshold.

18.4.4 Crosses per line, and structure versus randomness

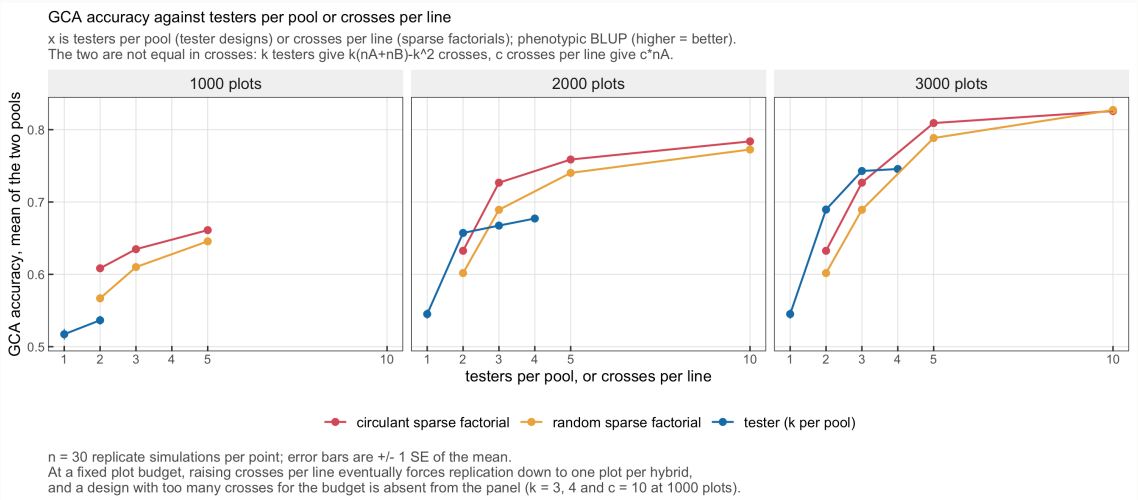

Figure 18.4: GCA accuracy against crosses per line c, separating circulant (structured) from random sparse layouts. Cached from the `sparsex` sweep.

The literature leaves one comparison open: structured against random layouts at matched c [D. L. Weeks and D. R. Williams [87] and R. Fernando, D. Gianola, and M. Grossman [88] supply the tools; no retrieved design paper reports the connectivity of the layout it used]. The sweep closes it at 2,000 plots:

```
mc <- subset(bl, budget_plots == 2000 & family %in% sparse_fam)
mc <- merge(subset(mc, family == "sparse_circulant")[, c("x_axis", "acc_gca_all",
"se_acc_gca_all")],
               subset(mc, family == "sparse_random")[, c("x_axis", "acc_gca_all",
"se_acc_gca_all")],
            by = "x_axis", suffixes = c("_circ", "_rand"))
mc <- data.frame(c = mc$x_axis, circulant = mc$acc_gca_all_circ,
                 random = mc$acc_gca_all_rand,
                 difference = mc$acc_gca_all_circ - mc$acc_gca_all_rand,
                 z = (mc$acc_gca_all_circ - mc$acc_gca_all_rand) /
                     sqrt(mc$se_acc_gca_all_circ^2 + mc$se_acc_gca_all_rand^2))
fmt(mc, 3)
```

Table 18.6: Circulant against random sparse at matched crosses per line, 2,000 plots, phenotypic BLUP.

c	circulant	random	difference	z
2	0.633	0.602	0.031	6.392
3	0.727	0.689	0.037	8.706
5	0.759	0.740	0.018	4.120
10	0.784	0.773	0.011	3.155

Result. The circulant layout is ahead at every c; the gap is 0.031 at $c = 2$, largest at $c = 3$ (0.037) and shrinks to 0.011 at $c = 10$; all four gaps exceed three standard errors of the difference.

Interpretation. This is what Table 18.3 predicts: at $c = 2$ the random layout leaves lines uncrossed and splits the rest into many components, so its advantage is pure connectivity, and connectivity stops being binding once every line has enough partners. **A sparse factorial should be built, not sampled.**

18.4.5 What is lost

SCA is weakly estimated at low c. The circulant design with $c = 2$ has exactly 1 residual degree of freedom at cross-mean level (Table 18.3) – enough to fit a model and not enough to estimate a variance component – and the cached REML recovered the SCA:GCA ratio there with a +34.4 % error, the largest at 2,000 plots among designs in which SCA is identifiable. The recommendation therefore splits by objective: $c = 2$ to rank lines, $c \geq 3$ before any statement about SCA variance.

Sparsity in crosses also interacts with sparsity in environments. A parallel literature, mostly from CIMMYT, allocates entries to subsets of environments and predicts the unobserved line-by-environment cells [105], [106], [107], [108]. When the genetic correlation between managements is as low as 0.37 [106], a line observed only in one is weakly informative about the other. A design observing 2 % of the hybrid factorial and 30 % of the environment cells within that observes well under 1 % of the information space, and the two sparsities have not been studied together for hybrids (Section 18.9). Chapter 19. takes the environment axis on its own and Chapter 20. the two together.

18.5 The analysis is part of the design

A sparse factorial is only a good design if it is analysed with a shrinkage estimator. This section exists because the single largest effect in the study is not a design effect at all.

The demonstration is live: one replicate of the running example at 2,000 plots, the same data analysed both ways.

```
set.seed(99)
ls_blup <- do.call(rbind, lapply(c("tester k=2", "circulant c=2", "circulant c=5"),
  function(nm) {
```

```
    tr <- simulate_factorial(n, n, vc$A, vc$B, vc$S)
    p  <- simulate_cross_means(design_reps(plans[[nm]], 2000), tr, s2e)
    acc <- sapply(c("ls", "blup"), function(meth) {
      f <- fit_gca(p, n, n, vc$A, vc$B, vc$S, s2e, meth)
      mean(c(cor(f$gA, tr$gA), cor(f$gB, tr$gB)))
    })
    data.frame(design = nm, crosses = nrow(p), plots_per_cross = mean(p$reps),
               least_squares = acc[["ls"]], blup = acc[["blup"]],
               blup_advantage = acc[["blup"]] - acc[["ls"]])
  }))
fmt(ls_blup, 3)
```

Table 18.7: One replicate of the 200 x 200 running example at 2,000 plots: the same phenotypes analysed by least squares and by BLUP with known variance components.

design	crosses	plots_per_cross	least_squares	blup	blup_advantage
tester k=2	796	2.513	0.649	0.658	0.008
circulant c=2	400	3.000	0.186	0.627	0.441
circulant c=5	1000	2.000	0.590	0.757	0.166

Result. On the tester design the two estimators agree to within 0.008. On the circulant design with two crosses per line, least squares collapses to 0.19 while BLUP reaches 0.63 on the same data. The cached sweep, averaged over 30 replicates, reproduces the pattern across all 24 designs:

```
lsb <- merge(subset(sm, model == "LS"    & budget_plots == 2000)[, c("scenario",
"n_crosses", "acc_gca_all")],
             subset(sm, model == "BLUP" & budget_plots == 2000)[, c("scenario",
"acc_gca_all")],
             by = "scenario", suffixes = c("_ls", "_blup"))
lsb$advantage <- lsb$acc_gca_all_blup - lsb$acc_gca_all_ls
lsb <- lsb[order(-lsb$advantage), ]
names(lsb) <- c("design", "hybrids", "least_squares", "blup", "advantage")
lsb$hybrids <- round(lsb$hybrids)
rownames(lsb) <- NULL
fmt(lsb, 3)
```

Table 18.8: BLUP advantage over least squares by design, 2,000 plots, ordered by size. Cached `sparsex` sweep, 30 replicates per cell.

design	hybrids	least_squares	blup	advantage
circulant c=2	400	0.134	0.633	0.498
circulant c=3	600	0.255	0.727	0.472
circulant c=5	1000	0.541	0.759	0.218
random sparse c=2	400	0.417	0.602	0.185
random sparse c=3	600	0.587	0.689	0.102
A-optimal c=3	600	0.626	0.726	0.100
100 lines/pool c=5 (random)	500	0.484	0.579	0.095
relationship-guided c=3	600	0.635	0.722	0.087
100 lines/pool c=5 (cdmean)	500	0.490	0.573	0.084
circulant c=10	2000	0.707	0.784	0.077
random sparse c=5	1000	0.689	0.740	0.051
NC II 10x10 sets	2000	0.737	0.768	0.031
50 lines/pool c=5 (random)	250	0.373	0.397	0.024
relationship-guided c=5	999	0.740	0.764	0.023
50 lines/pool c=5 (cdmean)	250	0.350	0.369	0.018
random sparse c=10	2000	0.756	0.773	0.016
100 lines/pool c=10 (random)	1000	0.598	0.612	0.015
100 lines/pool c=10 (cdmean)	1000	0.593	0.605	0.012
tester k=4	1584	0.670	0.677	0.007
tester k=3	1191	0.663	0.667	0.005
tester k=2	796	0.653	0.657	0.004
50 lines/pool c=10 (random)	500	0.437	0.440	0.003
50 lines/pool c=10 (cdmean)	500	0.414	0.417	0.002
tester k=1	399	0.544	0.545	0.001

Result. The penalty for least squares is 0.498 correlation points at circulant $c = 2$ and 0.472 at $c = 3$; for the four tester designs it is 0.001 to 0.007. Testers are robust to a naive analysis; sparse factorials are not.

Interpretation. At low c each GCA estimate rests on two or three cross means, each carrying a full $\sigma^2_s + \sigma^2_e/r$ of noise, and the unshrunken estimate is dominated by it. BLUP borrows strength across the connected graph: a line's partners are themselves estimated from *their* partners, and the shrinkage towards zero is proportional to how little each line was observed. That the circulant design loses more to least squares than the random one at the same c is not a contradiction of the previous section. The circulant design's partners are each other's partners in long chains, which is exactly what BLUP exploits and least squares cannot.

The practical consequence is unconditional: **a programme that cannot or will not fit a mixed model should not move to a sparse factorial** – the design's advantage is entirely conditional on the estimator. The literature that motivated BLUP of single crosses [109], [110] and the allocation tools that assume it [111], [112] take this for granted; the design literature, in the review behind this chapter, never states it.

18.6 Genomic information for deciding which crosses to make

Genomic information changes the question from *how well can I estimate the lines I crossed?* to *which crosses should I make, and what can I say about the ones I did not?* Its value is in extrapolation and in the choice of what to field, not in improving estimates for lines that are already there.

18.6.1 From relatedness to hybrid prediction

The idea that untested single crosses can be predicted from tested ones through marker relatedness is R. Bernardo [109]'s: random subsets of 10 to 30 hybrids from a 54-hybrid factorial, and RFLP relationships recovering single-cross performance. R. Bernardo [110] scaled it to operational data, with correlations of 0.43 to 0.76 for yield in heterotic patterns with more than 100 tested crosses. The modern version models hybrid value as pool-specific additive kernels for GCA plus a dominance or product kernel for SCA [35], [113], [114]; 3 is where this book fits those models, and Section 14.4 where it validates them by masking hybrids.

The kernel the cached sweep used for SCA follows from the algebra of Section 18.2: $s_{ij} = -2\sum_k d_k\,\delta u_{ik}\,\delta v_{jk}$ is linear in the *elementwise product* of the two parents' centred genotypes, so the natural SCA kernel is the linear kernel on that product. It is **not** the Hadamard product of the two pool kernels, which adds cross-locus terms the model does not contain.

18.6.2 The T0 / T1 / T2 hierarchy

The standard currency for comparing designs is the split of untested hybrids by how many of their parents appear in the training set: both (T2), one (T1), neither (T0). Grain-yield accuracies of 0.91, 0.85 and 0.77 with 300 training hybrids [35], 0.92, 0.88 and 0.80 under a GCA model on the Hohenheim series [115], and 0.28 to 0.77 with the ordering T2 > T1-female > T1-male > T0 [116]. The hierarchy also explains why a tester is a poor training set: it generates only T1-type information for new lines, because the tester is always a tested parent and the candidate never is.

These figures share a property that must be stated: they come from material with strong family structure, where an untested line has close relatives in the training set. F. Technow [117] found the advantage of a better training-set composition shrank from 0.15 correlation points for well-connected hybrids to 0.06 for T0 under a divergent heterotic structure. **Published T0 accuracies are not programme-independent**, and the simulated counter-example below makes the point concrete.

18.6.3 The negative result

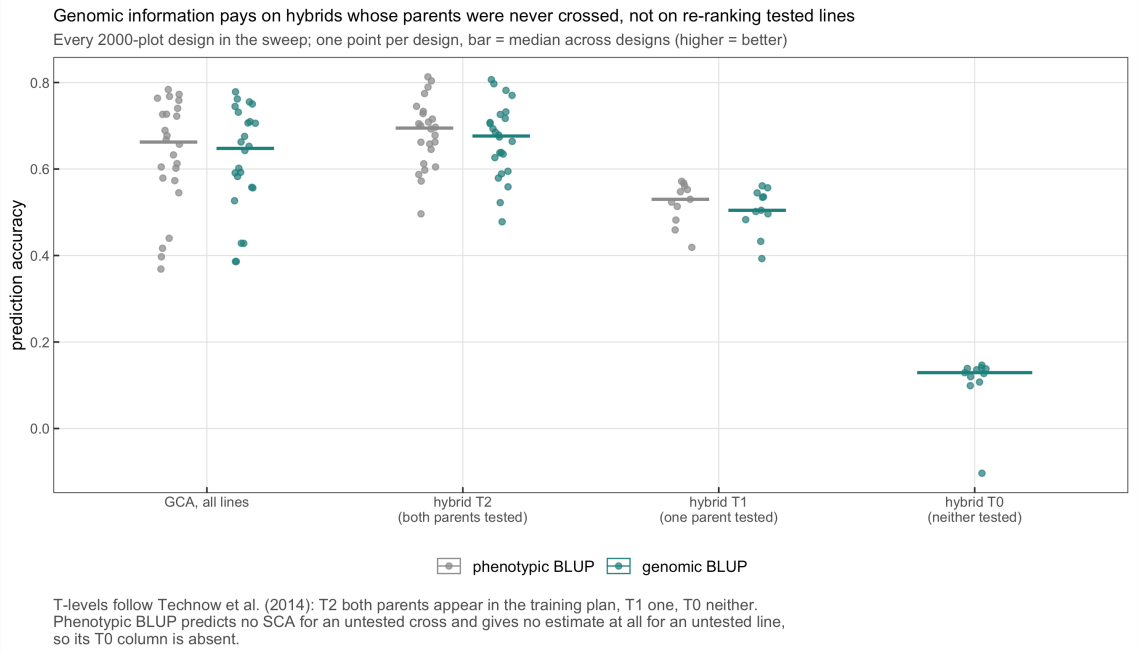

Figure 18.5: Genomic against phenotypic BLUP by design (left) and the genomic accuracy for hybrids whose parents were never crossed (right). Cached from the `sparsex` sweep, 2,000 plots.

```
gb <- merge(subset(sm, model == "GBLUP" & budget_plots == 2000)[, c("scenario",
"n_linesA_tested", "acc_gca_all", "se_acc_gca_all", "acc_T0")],
```

```
              subset(sm, model == "BLUP"  & budget_plots == 2000)[, c("scenario",
"acc_gca_all", "se_acc_gca_all")],
            by = "scenario", suffixes = c("_g", "_p"))
gb <- data.frame(design = gb$scenario, lines_tested = gb$n_linesA_tested,
                 phenotypic = gb$acc_gca_all_p, genomic = gb$acc_gca_all_g,
                 difference = gb$acc_gca_all_g - gb$acc_gca_all_p,
                 z = (gb$acc_gca_all_g - gb$acc_gca_all_p) /
                     sqrt(gb$se_acc_gca_all_g^2 + gb$se_acc_gca_all_p^2),
                 T0 = gb$acc_T0)
gb <- gb[order(-gb$difference), ]
rownames(gb) <- NULL
gb_oth <- gb[gb$difference < 0, ]      # the designs where genomics did not gain
fmt(head(gb, 6), 3)
```

Table 18.9: Genomic (GBLUP) against phenotypic BLUP on all-lines GCA accuracy, 2,000 plots, the six largest differences. `z` in standard errors of the difference. `T0` is genomic accuracy for hybrids with neither parent crossed, defined only where some lines were left out.

design	lines_tested	phenotypic	genomic	difference	z	T0
50 lines/pool c=5 (cdmean)	50.0	0.369	0.386	0.017	4.524	0.136
50 lines/pool c=10 (cdmean)	50.0	0.417	0.428	0.012	4.248	0.146
circulant c=10	200.0	0.784	0.778	−0.005	−1.457	NA
random sparse c=5	198.9	0.740	0.731	−0.009	−1.719	−0.103
random sparse c=10	200.0	0.773	0.762	−0.011	−3.045	NA
50 lines/pool c=5 (random)	50.0	0.397	0.386	−0.011	−1.110	0.099

Result. At 2,000 plots genomic kernels raised all-lines GCA accuracy in 2 of 24 designs, both of them reduced line sets of 50 per pool chosen by CDmean (+0.017 and +0.012, each beyond 3 standard errors); the same two designs, and no others, gained at 1,000 and 3,000 plots (2 of 19 and 2 of 24). In every other design – all 200 candidates fielded, 50 per pool drawn at random, or 100 per pool by either rule – the genomic model was level with or below the phenotypic one, by 0.005 to 0.031: below by more than three standard errors in 10 of 22, between two and three in 6 (relationship-guided c=5, tester k=4, tester k=3, relationship-guided c=3, 100 lines/pool c=10 (random), 100 lines/pool c=5 (random)), which this chapter's three-standard-error rule does not count as resolved, and within two in 6 (circulant c=10, random sparse c=5, 50 lines/pool c=5 (random), 50 lines/pool c=10 (random), tester k=2, tester k=1), unresolved at 30 replicates. Genomic T0 accuracy, where it is defined on more than a handful of lines, was 0.1 to 0.15; the negative value in the random sparse rows is computed over the few lines the random draw happened to leave uncrossed and means nothing.

Interpretation. Two separate statements. First, when every candidate is phenotyped in a connected design, the marker kernel has little to add to what the crosses already say, and a misspecified SCA kernel (equal d^2 at every locus) costs a little. Second, the T0 accuracies are an order of magnitude below the published 0.77 to 0.80, because the simulated candidates are **unrelated doubled haploids from two pools diverged for 100 generations**, with no family structure to carry information from a tested line to an untested sibling. That is the condition under which genomics transfers least, and it is the condition of a programme sampling new, unrelated material. The genomic model earns its place where the phenotypic model has nothing to say at all – lines outside the field – and where the field holds only a fraction of the candidates, by deciding **which** lines go in: CDmean selection of the line set is where the gain appeared.

18.6.4 Which hybrids to phenotype, and which crosses to make

Once prediction is in place the design question becomes which cells to observe to calibrate it. CDmean [100] beat random sampling and PEVmean for inbred calibration sets because it accounts for the redundancy among related individuals; for hybrids, sets built by clustering, network analysis and mating-scheme considerations beat both [102], which suggests that the structure that matters for a hybrid training set is bipartite. A genomics-guided pre-selection that discarded 70 % of candidate single crosses retained 85 to 95 % of the top 5 % in a tropical maize programme [118].

A different question is which crosses to *make* to produce the next generation of lines. The usefulness criterion adds the within-cross selection differential to the predicted mean, and selecting on it added 0.14 genetic standard deviations of gain at 1 % selected per cross [119]; within-cross variance is usable for ranking but the marker model's estimate was biased downward by 28 to 60 % [120]. At the portfolio level, optimal cross selection chooses a *set* of crosses under a constraint on diversity: 15 to 78 % more long-term gain than truncation selection in G. Gorjanc, R. C. Gaynor, and J. M. Hickey [121], and more again once within-family variance enters the objective [122]. Constrained mate allocation with a mating permission matrix [123] is what makes optimising a crossing list over a 200 x 200 candidate space, subject to nursery constraints, computationally routine.

The long-term caution is this book's own: cross selection controls inbreeding and the divergence of the pools, and a design chosen once should not be held fixed across cycles. A. Lorenzi *et al.* [92] observed the SCA share move between 0 and 30 % from one selection cycle to the next, so the variance structure every design calculation in this chapter assumes is not stationary.

18.6.5 What the simulation adds to the literature

Table 18.10: Where the simulated programme confirms, refines or contradicts the published expectation.

Published expectation	Simulated result	Verdict
Sparse factorials beat testers as training sets [96], [97], [103]	Sparse beats tester on GCA accuracy over all candidates at every budget, by 0.08 to 0.13 (Table 18.4)	Confirms, and extends beyond the training-set role
Spend on parents, c = 2 to 4 [104]	Supported for ranking; $c = 2$ leaves 1 residual df and inflates SCA:GCA by +34 %; the optimiser picks c = 3 to 5	Refines: $c = 2$ to rank, $c \geq 3$ to estimate variances
Small sampling fractions suffice: 1.67 % of combinations operationally [101]; training sets of 2 to 13 % across maize, wheat and rice [102]	1 % gives 0.61, 1.5 % gives 0.72, 2.5 % gives 0.82 (Table 18.5)	Confirms the order of magnitude; the fraction follows the accuracy target
T0 penalty ~0.1 to 0.15 below T2 [35], [115]	Genomic T0 accuracy 0.10 to 0.15 *in absolute terms*	Tension: published values rest on family structure
Genomic kernels improve hybrid evaluation	Gain only in 2 of 24 designs at 2,000 plots, both reduced CDmean line sets, and in the same two at 1,000 and 3,000 (Table 18.9)	Refines: the gain is extrapolation and line choice
Structured vs random layouts at matched c not compared	Circulant ahead at every c, all four gaps resolved (Table 18.6)	Closes the gap
Testers lose SCA information [51], [95]	$k = 1$: SCA not identifiable; k = 2, 4 inflate SCA:GCA by +15 %, +13 %	Confirms and quantifies
Not in the retrieved literature	Least squares instead of BLUP costs 0.50 at $c = 2$, under 0.01 for testers (Table 18.8)	New, and the largest effect in the study

18.7 Seed production and the cost of a crossing plan

The crossing plan has to be made in a nursery. Treating hybrid seed production as a scalar cost term – as the published cost models do [124], [125] – hides the constraint that actually binds sparse designs: the seed quantity per cross limits how many plots and locations each hybrid can occupy.

18.7.1 Three cost centres

A mating design has three cost centres that scale differently. **Making** the crosses – pollinations, ears, nursery rows, isolation blocks – scales with the number of distinct crosses. **Testing** them scales with crosses x locations x replicates. **Genotyping** scales with the number of lines, not crosses, which is the structural reason genomics favours designs with many lines and few crosses each. A tester design makes few crosses with much seed each; a sparse factorial makes many crosses with little seed each. The two can occupy the same plots and need completely different nurseries.

`cross_cost()` writes the accounting chain from plots back to the nursery: seed needed per cross is plots x seed per plot; ears are that over seed per ear, never fewer than an insurance minimum; pollinations are ears over pollination success; female rows follow from the pollinations each pool-A parent carries, male rows from the pollinations each pool-B parent serves, several per plant. Four designs at the same 2,000 plots:

```
set.seed(8)
cost_plans <- list("tester k=4"       = design_tester(n, n, 4),
                   "circulant c=5"    = design_circulant(n, n, 5),
                   "circulant c=10"   = design_circulant(n, n, 10),
                   "NC II 10x10 sets" = design_nc2(n, n, 10, 10))
cost_tab <- do.call(rbind, lapply(names(cost_plans), function(nm) {
  cc <- cross_cost(design_reps(cost_plans[[nm]], 2000), n, n)
  data.frame(design = nm, t(cc[c("crosses", "plots", "pollinations",
                                 "nursery_rows", "genotyped", "total")]))
}))
cost_tab
```

Table 18.11: The cost vector of four designs at an equal budget of 2,000 plots. **Every monetary and biological level is an illustrative placeholder** (`cross_cost_par()`); the structure is the contribution, the numbers are not.

design	crosses	plots	pollinations	nursery_rows	genotyped	total
tester k=4	1584	2000	4752	552	400	108504
circulant c=5	1000	2000	3000	400	400	102300
circulant c=10	2000	2000	6000	600	400	112200
NC II 10x10 sets	2000	2000	6000	600	400	112200

Result. Under this accounting the four plans cost within 10 % of each other. The cheapest is the circulant design with five crosses per line, because it makes the fewest distinct crosses (1000) and spends the rest of the plots on replicates, which need more seed per cross but no more pollinations: the two-ear insurance minimum already produces enough seed for two plots. The ten-cross designs make twice as many crosses and need 6000 pollinations against 3000.

Interpretation. The tester is **not** cheaper here, and that is a property of the model, not of testers. `cross_cost()` charges every cross as hand pollinations, so it cannot credit the bulk production – an isolation block, a male-sterile female – that makes a tester cross cheap in practice, and the tester's 1,584 crosses each pay the insurance minimum. That missing term is gap 1 of Section 18.9, and it is the term a real programme must add before comparing designs on cost. The column that matters for a sparse factorial is the other one: seed per cross caps replication, so a plan at one ear per cross has no seed for a second plot. Operational sparse designs such as L. Thomsen *et al.* [101] are unreplicated for exactly this reason.

> ⚠ The cost levels are placeholders
>
> Every monetary and biological level in `cross_cost_par()` – seed per plot, seed per ear, pollination success, pollen uses per male plant, the price of a plot, a row, a pollination and a genotype – is an order of magnitude for a public maize programme, not a costed figure. The *structure* – which quantity multiplies which, which capacity binds – is what this section offers. Re-parameterise before any number below means anything for a real programme.

18.7.2 Budget-constrained optimisation

The cached optimiser searched over lines tested per pool, design family, k or c, plots per cross and whether to genotype every candidate, subject to field, nursery and money constraints, and maximised expected response $R = i\,\rho\,\sigma_{GCA}$ – not accuracy. That distinction is the trade-off: raising c raises ρ but, at fixed budget, lowers the number of lines tested and with it the selection intensity i. It scores ρ with the least-squares closed form, so it is conservative for sparse designs.

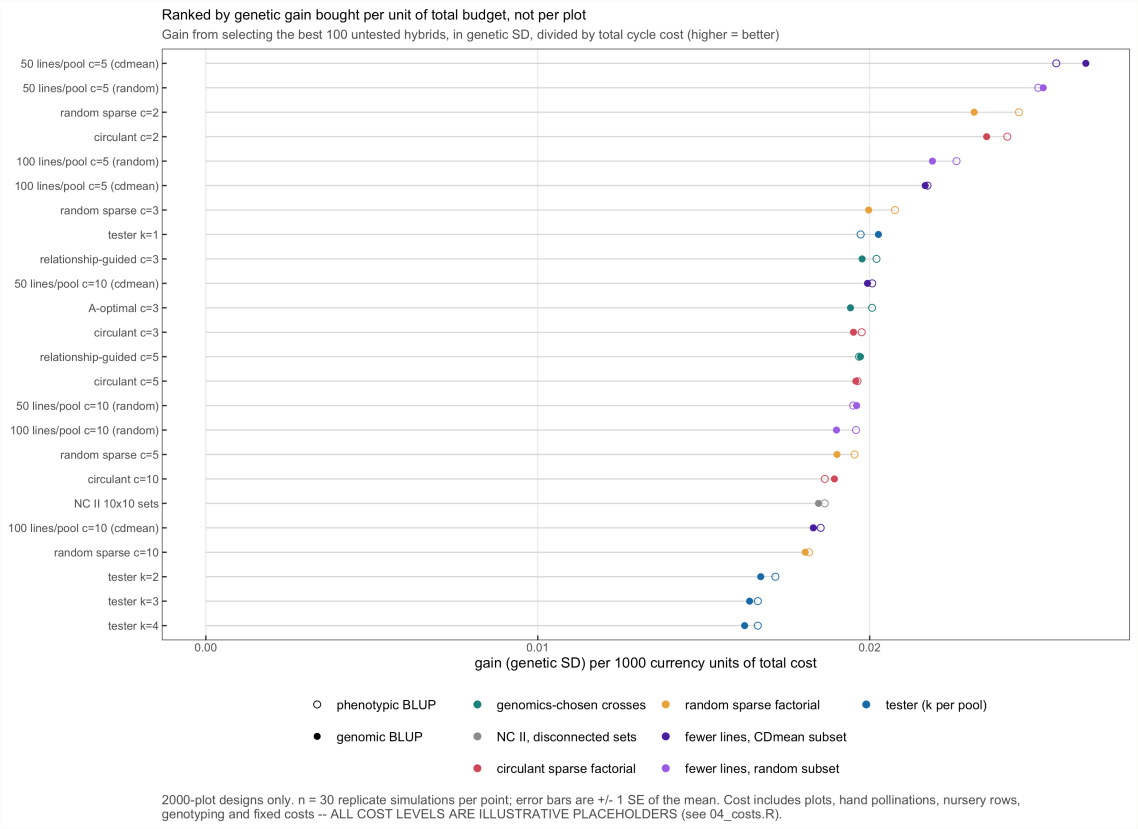

Figure 18.6: Left: expected response per unit cost by design. Right: the best feasible configuration at each total budget. Cached from the `sparsex` optimiser; cost levels are placeholders.

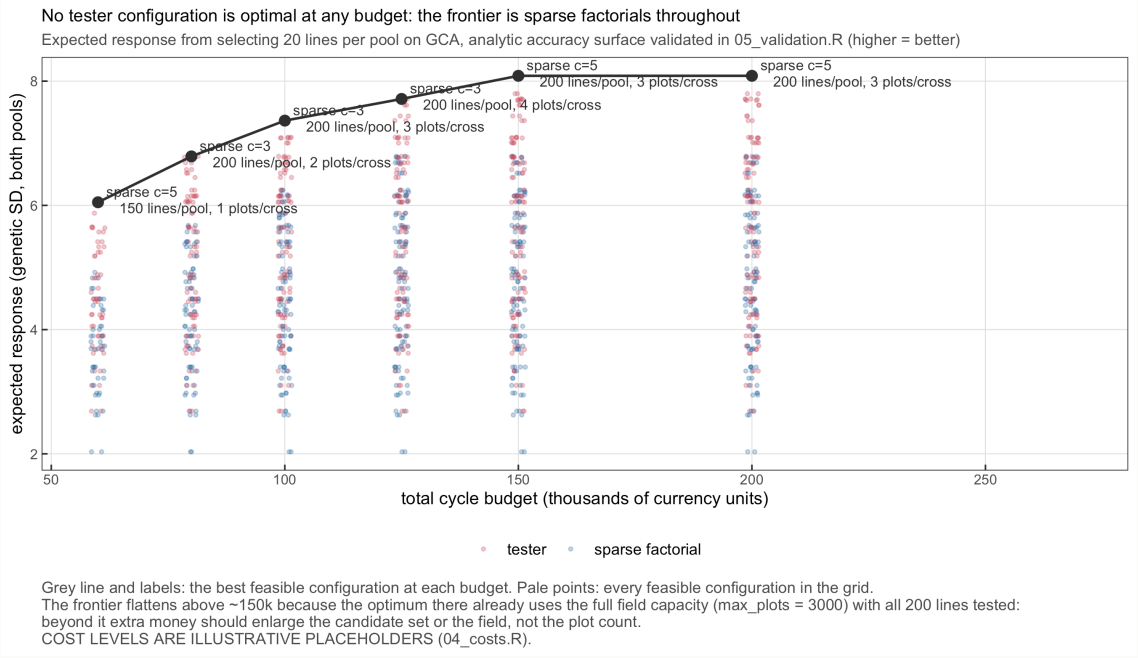

Figure 18.7: The optimiser's budget frontier. Cached from the `sparsex` optimiser.

```
ff <- subset(front, feasible)
best <- do.call(rbind, lapply(split(ff, ff$budget), function(d)
d[which.max(d$resp), ]))
best <- best[, c("budget", "design", "n_test", "c_or_k", "reps", "n_crosses",
                 "n_plots", "cost_total", "resp", "resp_per_1000")]
rownames(best) <- NULL
fmt(best, 3)
```

Table 18.12: The best feasible configuration at each total budget. Response in genetic units of GCA, summed over the two pools. Placeholder cost levels.

budget	design	n_test	c_or_k	reps	n_crosses	n_plots	cost_total	resp	resp_per_1000
60000	sparse	150	5	1	750	750	59225	6.050	0.102
80000	sparse	200	3	2	600	1200	75300	6.789	0.090
100000	sparse	200	3	3	600	1800	93300	7.365	0.079
125000	sparse	200	3	4	600	2400	111300	7.714	0.069
150000	sparse	200	5	3	1000	3000	132300	8.086	0.061
200000	sparse	200	5	3	1000	3000	132300	8.086	0.061

Result. A sparse factorial is on the frontier at every budget, and no tester configuration is optimal anywhere in the grid. The optimum moves from 150 lines per pool at $c = 5$ and one plot per cross at the smallest budget to all 200 lines at $c = 5$ and 3 plots per cross at the largest, where the 3,000-plot field cap binds and further money buys nothing. Response per 1,000 currency units falls from 0.102 to 0.061. Interpretation. Once the field is full, the next unit of money belongs in a larger candidate set – more lines to select among – not in more plots per cross.

The published allocation results agree in direction. A training population of 500 at one replicate was only 4 % more accurate than 125 at four, and a second replicate added 0.09 correlation points [126]; selection gain levels off quickly with budget, so additional money is better spent on more populations than on deeper testing [127]; and the optimum number of testers, locations and stages is a joint decision [90], [112], [124], [128].

18.8 A decision framework

The chapter collapses into a procedure a breeder can apply in a planning meeting.

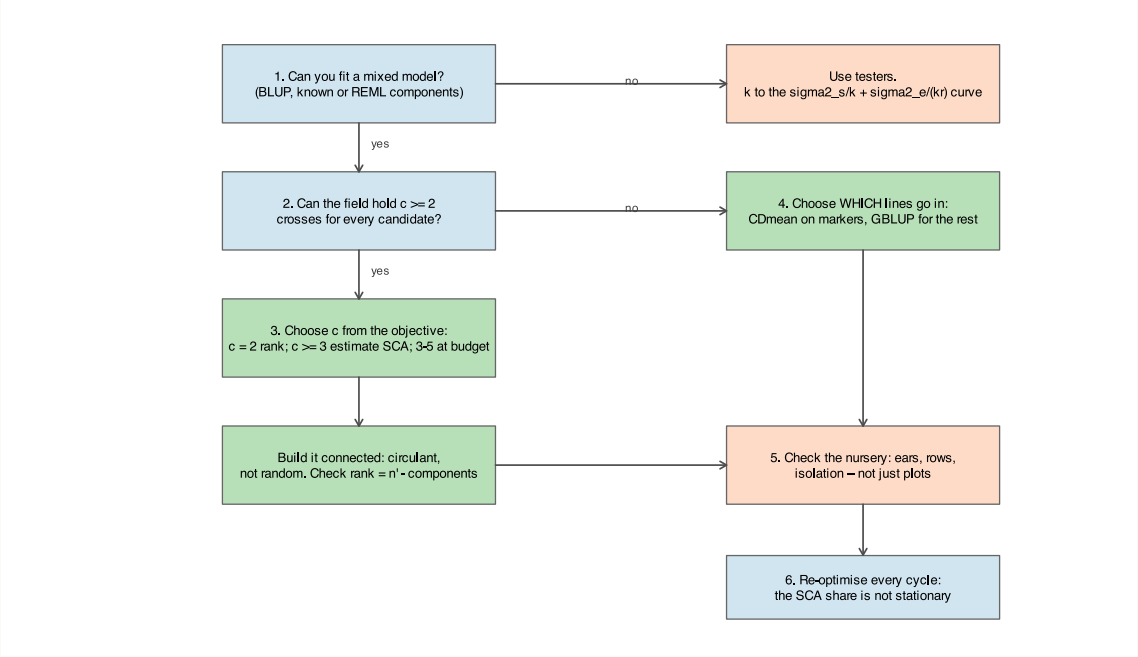

Figure 18.8: A decision procedure for the crossing plan of a two-pool programme. Each question is answered by a section of this chapter.

1. **Can you fit a mixed model?** If not, use testers: they are the only design robust to least squares (Table 18.8). Choose k from the curve of

   4. Markers are not needed at this step; they enter at step 4.
2. **How many candidates must be ranked, and can the field hold a cross for each?** If it can hold $c \geq 2$ crosses per candidate, prefer a connected sparse factorial (Table 18.4).
3. **Choose c from the objective.** $c = 2$ ranks lines; $c \geq 3$ is required before any statement about SCA variance; c = 3 to 5 is where the optimiser sits across the budgets of Table 18.12. Build the layout, do not sample it, and confirm with `design_diagnostics()` that it is one component.
4. **Choose the line set, not just the crosses.** When the field cannot hold every candidate, CDmean-type selection of which lines to field is where genomic information paid, and GBLUP is the only route to the lines left out (Table 18.9).
5. **Check the nursery before committing:** ears, rows and isolation blocks, not just plots (Table 18.11).
6. **Re-optimise every cycle.** The variance structure moves [92], and so does the diversity of the pools (Section 18.11).

18.9 Open problems

Five gaps remain, each defined by the evidence that would close it.

1. **Seed production as an explicit constraint.** No retrieved study models seed yield per pollination, isolation capacity or seed per plot inside the optimisation of a mating design; cost models carry hybrid-seed production as a scalar [124], [125]. `cross_cost()` gives the structure; the levels are missing.
2. **Joint sparsity in crosses and environments.** The cross-sparsity literature [103], [104] holds the environment design fixed; the environment-sparsity literature [105], [107], [108] works with line or testcross entries. L. Thomsen *et al.* [101] is the closest to a joint treatment, and it is observational. Chapter 20. takes this gap up.
3. **Connectivity reported, structured layouts compared.** The tools are seventy years old [87], [88]; design papers rarely report the connectivity of the layouts they use. Table 18.6 closes the matched-c comparison in simulation only.
4. **Tropical maize.** Under-represented relative to its share of breeding effort; R. Fritsche-Neto *et al.* [118] and D. Chaingeni *et al.* [94] are the main exceptions.

5. **Multi-cycle validation.** The long-term consequences of genomics-driven cross selection for pool divergence are modelled [121], [122], [129] but not validated over real cycles, and the non-stationary SCA share of A. Lorenzi *et al.* [92] is the warning case.

18.10 Reproducibility and assumptions

What runs live. Every table and figure above built from `design_*()`, `design_diagnostics()`, `fit_gca()`, `cross_cost()` or `gca_accuracy_theory()` is computed at render, from base R, at the full 200 x 200 scale. The package's tests (`tests/testthat/test-mating.R`) assert the rank rule for every design family, the NC II estimability result, the $k = 1$ saturation, the Sprague-Tatum error variance by Monte Carlo, and that BLUP converges to least squares as the GCA variance grows.

What is cached. The 24-design x 3-budget sweep, the REML variance components, the genomic results and the optimiser frontier come from the external `sparsex` study, whose validation suite of 37 checks (closed form against AlphaSimR's own genotypic values to 6×10^{-14}; the sampling-variance and accuracy expressions to 1.5 %; in-house REML against `sommer` to 10^{-5}; the rank rule for every family) all passed. The phenotypic core of that sweep is re-run in-repo by `Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R mating`, with the package's i.i.d. model and the variance components held at their true values:

```
cr <- subset(core, budget_plots == 2000)
cr <- reshape(cr[, c("scenario", "method", "acc_mean")], idvar = "scenario",
              timevar = "method", direction = "wide")
ca <- merge(subset(sm, budget_plots == 2000 & model == "LS")[, c("scenario",
"acc_gca_all")],
             subset(sm, budget_plots == 2000 & model == "BLUP")[, c("scenario",
"acc_gca_all")],
            by = "scenario", suffixes = c("_ls", "_blup"))
rep_tab <- merge(cr, ca, by = "scenario")
rep_tab <- data.frame(design = rep_tab$scenario,
                ls_inrepo = rep_tab$acc_mean.ls, ls_cached = rep_tab$acc_gca_all_ls,
                              blup_inrepo = rep_tab$acc_mean.blup, blup_cached
= rep_tab$acc_gca_all_blup)
fmt(rep_tab[order(rep_tab$blup_inrepo), ], 3)
```

Table 18.13: The in-repo reproduction (`mating_core_sweep.csv`: i.i.d. model, known components, 30 replicates) against the cached `sparsex` sweep (AlphaSimR founders, REML components), at 2,000 plots.

	design	ls_inrepo	ls_cached	blup_inrepo	blup_cached
9	tester k=1	0.550	0.544	0.551	0.545
7	random sparse c=2	0.420	0.417	0.600	0.602
2	circulant c=2	0.145	0.134	0.637	0.633
10	tester k=2	0.654	0.653	0.658	0.657
11	tester k=4	0.671	0.670	0.677	0.677
3	circulant c=3	0.219	0.255	0.710	0.727
8	random sparse c=5	0.697	0.689	0.749	0.740
4	circulant c=5	0.506	0.541	0.757	0.759
6	random sparse c=10	0.760	0.756	0.775	0.773
1	circulant c=10	0.615	0.707	0.776	0.784
5	NC II 10x10 sets	0.756	0.737	0.780	0.768

Result. The two agree on every qualitative claim of the chapter: sparse ahead of tester at equal plots, circulant ahead of random at low c, and a least-squares penalty that is large at low c and negligible for testers. They are not expected to agree to the third decimal: the cached run founded its pools in a coalescent simulation with linkage and finite QTL, estimated its components by REML, and scored against the realised factorial; the in-repo run draws i.i.d. effects and gives the estimator the true components.

Assumptions, stated in the chapter rather than a footnote.

- **Thirty replicates per cell.** The median standard error of a cell mean was about 0.004, so differences below about 0.018 correlation points are inside the noise; every comparison quoted above clears three standard errors of the difference unless it says otherwise.
- **One trait, one marker density** (1,000 markers), no epistasis, no selection during line development, no spatial trend, no missing plots.
- **Genotype x location is folded into plot error.** An extra location and an extra replicate are treated as equivalent, which is exact under that assumption and optimistic when G x L variance is large. Chapter 19. did not compare a location with a replicate. With G x L in the model, its result 2 (Section 19.11.3) held two plots per hybrid fixed and found that spreading them over more trial locations, 2 to 10, raised accuracy: once G x L exists, the number of environments a trial samples matters, which this assumption cannot represent.
- **Unrelated candidate panel.** The DH lines come from two pools diverged for 100 generations, with no family structure, which is why genomic T0 accuracy is low.
- **Placeholder costs.** Every level in `cross_cost_par()`.
- **Integer budgets.** Replication is `floor(plots / crosses)` capped at three, with the remainder spread at random, so "budget" is not a continuous axis: a one-tester design with 399 crosses stops at 1,197 plots.

18.11 Where this connects

This chapter settled which crosses to make with the field held fixed: a connected sparse factorial, analysed by BLUP, with c chosen by the objective. It left the field itself – how many locations each cross is planted in, and which – to Chapter 19., and the trade between crosses and locations under one budget to Chapter 20..

The crossing plan decides **which lines are seen**, and that makes it a diversity decision before it is a statistical one. A design that fields 50 lines per pool selected by CDmean ranks those 50 and predicts the other 150 at a T0 accuracy of about 0.14 – so the next cycle's parents will in practice come from the 50, and the loss of gene diversity that Chapter 13. tracks across the pipeline starts in the nursery plan, not at selection. A sparse factorial that crosses every candidate is the design that keeps the whole candidate set in contention.

Section 5.11 is where the GCA and SCA estimated here were derived from allele frequencies, and Section 5.13.6 is the finite-tester version of 4; both show that the SCA:GCA ratio driving every design choice in this chapter falls as the pools diverge, so the number of testers and the crosses per line a programme needs are not constants of the crop. 3 fits the hybrid prediction models this chapter's genomic results rest on. Chapter 16. and Chapter 17. take the hybrids a crossing plan produced and select among them under the diversity constraint; Chapter 15. is the same optimal-contribution machinery that, applied to crosses rather than hybrids, becomes the optimal cross selection of G. Gorjanc, R. C. Gaynor, and J. M. Hickey [121]. And Chapter 23. is where the consequence of holding a design fixed while the pools drift is played out over many cycles.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **04e-mating-design.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

19. Sparse testing: which hybrids go to which locations

A hybrid programme's first field stage concentrates most of its selection pressure where it has the least information. It typically has thousands of testcrosses, seed for one or two plots of each, a handful of locations, and almost no replication. Chapter 18. settled **which crosses** to make from two pools – a connected sparse factorial, analysed by BLUP – but held the field fixed and folded genotype x location into plot error. This chapter takes the crosses as given and asks the next question: **which locations should each one be planted in?**

Sparse testing is the answer the literature has converged on. Not every hybrid is grown at every location. Different subsets go to different environments, and the missing hybrid x environment cells are *predicted*, not discarded, with a relationship matrix connecting what the field left unconnected. In Chapter 18. the sparsity was in the female x male grid. Here it is in the hybrid x environment grid. Real programmes face both at once, the joint problem Section 18.9 lists as its second gap.

The chapter covers the quantitative basis, the history and a taxonomy of the designs, the validation schemes used to judge them, and the empirical record across crops, including its main controversy. It then measures the question with a simulation that the primary literature had not run. The results it defends:

1. **The cutting margin is wide, and wider at higher heritability.** A sparse allocation reaches within 5 % of the accuracy of the complete design at a fraction of its plots; at $h^2 = 0.2$ it needs more of them.
2. **At a fixed number of plots, spreading them over more locations beats concentrating them.** Spreading two plots per hybrid over ten locations instead of two raises accuracy by 0.06 to 0.09, with no extra plots.
3. **The choice among sparse layouts matters little, except at extreme sparsity.** At that point, a layout that puts *both pools in every location* helps the hybrids that were never tested.
4. **What connects a sparse trial is parent coverage, not shared hybrids.** With a relationship matrix in the model, the best layouts share *no* hybrid between some location pairs. This suggests one way to reconcile the contradictory published advice on overlap between environments.
5. **Prediction survives sparsity better than estimation.** Where REML converged, the BLUP showed no systematic dispersion bias, and with known components it stayed undispersed down to one location per hybrid. Variance components stop being reportable earlier: at one location per hybrid REML rarely converges, and the SCA variance is biased upward even in the complete design.
6. **In two stages, test every candidate sparsely rather than a subset densely.** At a fixed budget, covering all candidates in stage 1 gave the larger realised gain.

The numbering is that of Section 19.11.3, which the rest of the book cites.

i Where the numbers come from

There are three sources, kept apart throughout.

- **Live** results are computed at render time with `R/17_sparse_testing.R`:
  - allocation generators;
  - connectivity diagnostics;
  - a base-R mixed-model solve with **known** variance components, checked against a literal GLS oracle (`ref_sparse_blup()`).
- **Cached** results come from a separate study and are not reproducible from this repository. That study estimated components by REML with `sommer` on 2,630 fits, ran a two-stage scenario, and added an AlphaSimR genomic layer. Its tables are in `book/data/sparse_*.csv`.
- **In-repo** results come from `Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R sparse`, which reruns the phenotypic core with known components (`sparse_core_sweep.csv`). That sweep also adds an experiment the cached study did not run (Section 19.6). The two are compared in

  5.

The literature numbers are from six primary papers: Y. Li *et al.* [130], S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107], C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131], N. Lubanga, B. E. Ifie, R. Persa, I. Dieng, I. Y. Rabbi, and D. Jarquin [132], D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98] and A. Hild Aono and A. Chawade [133]. Each one was read in full. **C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131] is a preprint that has not been peer reviewed.**

19.1 The allocation problem of stage 1

19.1.1 The economics of the first stage

Stage 1 is where a plot costs least and a decision is worth most. In CGIAR programmes most of the selection pressure is applied on a few research stations, often as visual selection in unreplicated nurseries [131], [134]. Two shifts have changed this stage:

- **Genotyping is no longer the bottleneck. Phenotyping is.** The cost of a marker has fallen steadily for two decades, while the cost of a yield plot has not [126].
- **Doubled haploids reversed the constraint.** A programme now makes more candidates than it can evaluate [128]. Allocating plots, not creating variation, has become the limiting factor.

What is left is the classical trade-off. More genotypes at fewer locations buys selection intensity and costs accuracy. Fewer genotypes at more locations does the opposite. At stage 1 the scarce resource is the plot, so the question is not *how much to test* but *how to spread what can already be tested* [130].

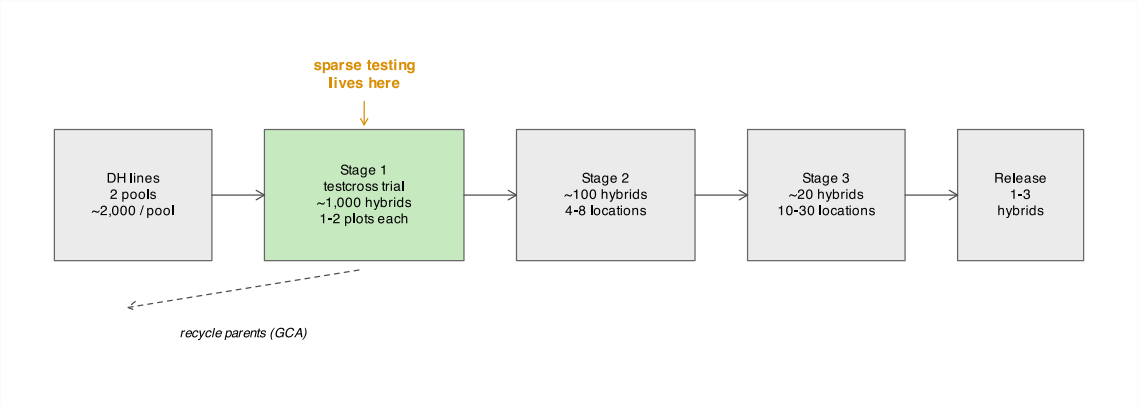

Figure 19.1: A two-pool hybrid pipeline. Population improvement (left) feeds product development (right). Candidate numbers fall by an order of magnitude per stage while plots per candidate rise. Sparse testing applies where the plots per candidate are fewest: the first testcross trial.

19.1.2 The breeder's equation as the decision criterion

The gain per unit time,

$$\Delta G_t = \frac{i\,\rho\,\sigma_A}{t}, \tag{19.1}$$

has four terms. ρ is the accuracy of the selection criterion – the r of Chapter 4.; this Part keeps r for plots, as Chapter 18. does. A trial design moves at least three of them together:

- **intensity** i, through the number of candidates;
- **accuracy** ρ, through plots, locations, and how well the locations sample the target population of environments (TPE);
- **cycle length** t, when parents can be recycled from stage 1.

What a gain measured on a research station is worth depends on the genetic correlation between the selection environment and the TPE [135], [136]. No design is better in the abstract. A design is better according to whichever term limits that programme [127], [137].

Box 1 – Where each term of the breeder's equation meets the trial design

Term	Design decision that moves it
i (intensity)	number of candidates tested at a fixed plot budget
ρ (accuracy)	plots per candidate, locations per candidate, use of a relationship matrix
ρ (relevance)	how well the chosen locations sample the TPE
σ_A	indirectly: which parents are recycled, and how related they are (Chapter 15.)
t	whether stage-1 GCA predictions are good enough to recycle parents immediately

19.2 Foundations

19.2.1 The hybrid model: GCA, SCA, and what sparsity threatens

The value of the single cross between female i and male j – a pool-A and a pool-B line in the notation of Chapter 18. – splits as

$$g_{ij} = \mathrm{GCA}_i^{f} + \mathrm{GCA}_j^{m} + \mathrm{SCA}_{ij} \tag{19.2}$$

[2]. Section 5.11 derives this split from allele frequencies. Its consequence for this chapter is that a line's GCA includes dominance effects weighted by the *opposite* pool's frequencies. A GCA is therefore specific to the tester pool, not a property of the line alone [115], [138]. The ratio $\sigma^2_{SCA}/\sigma^2_{GCA}$ is a design parameter. It grows with the mean degree of dominance and with how close the pools are. In simulated maize it was 0.05, 0.23 and 0.50 for mean dominance degrees of 0.1, 0.5 and 0.9 [98].

GCA survives sparsity better than SCA because it is mostly additive and more stable across environments. Y. Li *et al.* [130] recovered GCA from a prediction-completed 50 % trial with correlations of 0.94 to 0.97 against the complete data. Over the same scenarios, phenotypic prediction accuracy was 0.43 to 0.59. **What stage 1 needs to estimate is GCA, and GCA is the part of the model most robust to missing cells.** That is the underlying reason sparse testing works in hybrids.

Quick glossary

- **GCA**: a line's average performance in crosses with the opposite pool.
- **SCA**: the deviation of a particular cross from the sum of its parents' GCAs.
- **Mid-parent heterosis**: the hybrid's advantage over the mean of its parents (Chapter 5.).
- **Heterotic pool**: a group of lines bred to cross well with another group.
- **Tester**: a line of the opposite pool used to evaluate candidates.
- **TPE**: the target population of environments the product is sold into.

19.2.2 Hybrid relationship matrices

With female and male relationship matrices $\mathbf{A}_f$ and $\mathbf{A}_m$, the three hybrid terms are distributed as

$$\mathrm{GCA}^f \sim N(\mathbf{0}, \mathbf{A}_f\sigma_f^2), \quad \mathrm{GCA}^m \sim N(\mathbf{0}, \mathbf{A}_m\sigma_m^2), \quad \mathrm{SCA} \sim N(\mathbf{0}, (\mathbf{A}_f \otimes \mathbf{A}_m)\sigma_s^2) \tag{19.3}$$

[109], [110], [113]. Here σ_f^2 and σ_m^2 are the GCA variances of the female (pool-A) and male (pool-B) lines, which Chapter 18. writes as a single σ_g^2 within the pool being ranked; σ_s^2 is the SCA variance, with the same symbol as in Chapter 18., and is also written σ_{SCA}^2 in this chapter. The practical point is that **the hybrid itself never needs genotyping**: its covariance is a Kronecker product of the parental matrices. Replacing pedigree $\mathbf{A}$ by marker $\mathbf{G}$ [18] gives the genomic version (3). There are two ways to write the additive and dominance effects: the "biological" form and the "statistical" form, which is orthogonal at the population's frequencies. Pool-specific marker effects are a third option [115], [139]. All of them lead to the same covariance structure.

The relationship matrix is what makes a sparse design analysable. It is the only link between cells that the field did not link. A hybrid with no plot gets a BLUP only because its parents are related to parents that do have plots. Without it, a sparse design yields comparisons that are not fair.

19.2.3 Multi-environment trials and mixed models

How many parameters the between-environment covariance spends ranges widely:

- identity, diagonal, or compound symmetry;
- heterogeneous AR(1);
- unstructured;
- factor-analytic [140], [141], [142], [143].

Factor-analytic models carry most of the information of the unstructured matrix at a fraction of its parameters, and extend directly to genomic relationships [66], [144], [145]. Reaction-norm and marker x environment models are cheaper alternatives [146], [147]. Only *crossover* G x E changes selection decisions. A scale effect does not.

In a sparse design the between-environment covariance stops being a statistical detail and becomes part of the design. It decides how much one environment can tell us about another. Two-stage analyses that carry the first-stage error forward are now as efficient as one-stage ones [148], [149]. Unreplicated trials still need spatial correction and checks [150], [151].

Box 2 – Which heritability to report in a sparse trial

Quantity	Formula	What it answers	Behaviour under sparsity
Plot-level h^2	$\sigma^2_G/(\sigma^2_G + \sigma^2_{GE} + \sigma^2_e)$	how informative one plot is	design-independent; it is what the simulations below fix
Entry-mean H^2	$\sigma^2_G/(\sigma^2_G + \sigma^2_{GE}/L + \sigma^2_e/(rL))$	how informative an entry mean is, if every entry had L locations and r reps	undefined when entries have different L, i.e. in every sparse design
Generalised (Cullis) H^2	$1 - \overline{\mathrm{PEV}}/(2\sigma^2_G)$ for pairwise differences [151], [152]	how well the analysed design ranks entries	the right one: it uses the actual PEVs

The entry-mean formula silently assumes balance. In a sparse trial, report Cullis'.

19.3 What sparse testing is, and where it came from

19.3.1 Definition and genealogy

Definition. A trial is sparse when not every genotype is evaluated in every environment *and* the missing cells are predicted rather than discarded. The literature's *environment* is a location in a year; the simulations of this Part have one season, so their environments are *locations*, and the two words are used in those two senses. The idea developed in four steps:

1. **Incomplete blocks and lattices.** These already accepted partial evaluation *within* a location.
2. **Partially replicated designs (p-rep) and augmented p-rep.** These replaced replication of each entry with replicated checks and partial replication [151], [153].
3. **The genomic relationship replacing replication** [111]. With markers, the replicated unit is no longer the genotype but the haplotype, shared among relatives.
4. **Genomic sparse testing across environments, formalised** [105]. The design was later framed explicitly as a balanced incomplete block design in which the block is the environment [108].

Farm-as-incomplete-block is the limiting case. Each farmer's field is an incomplete block holding a handful of entries, and the TPE is sampled through hundreds of them [131], [136], [137].

Sparse testing is not a new method. It is incomplete-block design applied at the scale of many environments, made workable by genomic relationships acting as the connecting mechanism. The classical theory of incomplete blocks therefore carries over.

Figure 19.2: The genealogy of sparse testing, drawn as genotype (rows) x environment (columns) matrices; dark = observed. From the complete trial, to incomplete blocks within locations, to p-rep (a few entries and checks replicated), to genomic sparse testing (each entry in a subset of environments, connected through relationships), to farm-as-incomplete-block (many environments, very few entries each).

19.3.2 A taxonomy of sparse designs

The designs can be classified along three independent axes.

Axis of sparsity.

- *Environments*: the classical case.
- *Testers*: sparse testcrossing (Section 19.8).
- *Female x male combinations*: the incomplete factorials of Section 18.4.
- Any combination of these.

Overlap structure.

- full overlap, with a common core in every environment;
- no overlap;
- partial overlap, with a fixed core plus entries unique to each environment;
- unrestricted random allocation;
- restricted random allocation, for example keeping full-sibs out of the same location [131];
- allocation optimised against a formal criterion [154], [155].

Replicated unit. Genotype, family, or haplotype.

```
set.seed(5)
core6 <- function(n_core) {               # a common core + unique entries
  M <- matrix(0L, 32, 6); M[seq_len(n_core), ] <- 1L
  rest <- setdiff(1:32, seq_len(n_core))
  M[cbind(rest, rep_len(1:6, length(rest)))] <- 1L; M
}
tax <- list("Complete"          = sparse_alloc(8, 4, 6, strategy = "complete"),
            "Full overlap core" = { M <- matrix(0L, 32, 6); M[1:10, ] <- 1L; M },
            "Core + unique"     = core6(5),
            "No overlap"        = core6(0),
            "Random, k = 2"     = sparse_alloc(8, 4, 6, 2, "random"),
            "Parentage, k = 2"  = sparse_alloc(8, 4, 6, 2, "parentage"))
op <- par(mfrow = c(1, 6), mar = c(1, 0.5, 2.2, 0.5))
for (nm in names(tax)) {
  image(t(tax[[nm]][32:1, ]), col = c("grey95", "#1f5f8b"), zlim = c(0, 1), axes
= FALSE,
        main = sprintf("%s\n(%d plots)", nm, sum(tax[[nm]])), cex.main = 0.8)
  box(col = "grey60")
}
par(op)
```

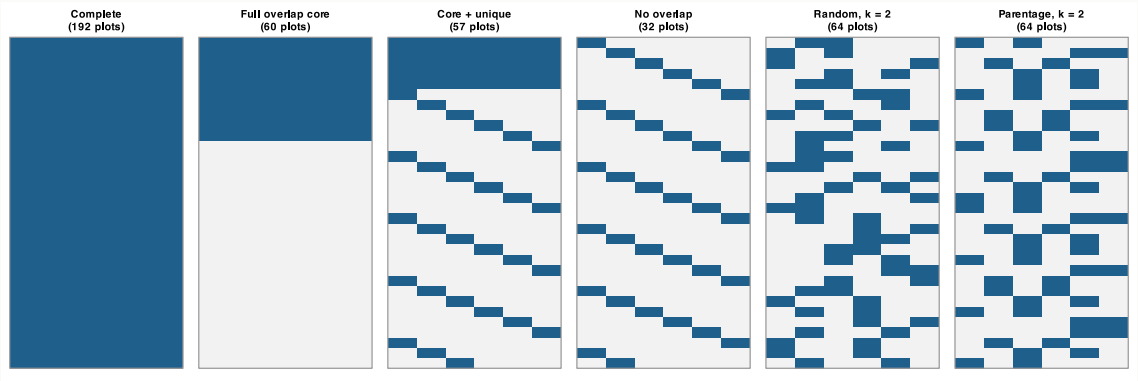

Figure 19.3: Six allocations of the same 8 x 4 factorial (32 hybrids, rows; male index fastest) to six locations (columns), each with the same number of plots except 'complete'. The last three are generated by the package's `sparse_alloc()`. 'Parentage' puts every female and every male in every location.

Table 19.1: The taxonomy mapped onto the designs in the literature. Different names often describe the same structure.

Design	Sparsity axis	Overlap	Example	Reference
Full overlap (common core only)	environments	full	Li et al. "CV1" allocation	Y. Li *et al.* [130]
Random cells, ≥ 1 per genotype	environments	random	Li et al. "CV2"; Jarquin's allocation schemes	Y. Li *et al.* [130]; D. Jarquin *et al.* [105]
Balanced by genotype (one environment each)	environments	none	Li et al. "CV3"; Lubanga NOL	Y. Li *et al.* [130]; N. Lubanga, B. E. Ifie, R. Persa, I. Dieng, I. Y. Rabbi, and D. Jarquin [132]
Core + unique entries	environments	partial	Li et al. "CV5"; Atanda overlap series	Y. Li *et al.* [130]; S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107]
Restricted random, full-sibs apart	environments	random	farm-as-incomplete-block	C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131]
One tester per line, sibs across testers	testers	none at line level	sparse testcrossing	D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98]
Incomplete factorial	female x male	partial	sparse factorials	A. Seye, C. Bauland, A. Charcosset, and L. Moreau [97]; A. Lorenzi *et al.* [103]

⚠ A naming collision to watch for

Y. Li *et al.* [130] use **"CV1" to "CV5" as names of allocation strategies**, not of the classical validation schemes of Section 19.4. Their "CV1" is the full-overlap *design*. It is not the "new genotype" *validation* of J. Burgueño, G. de los Campos, K. Weigel, and J. Crossa [66]. Reading the two literatures together without noticing this produces wrong comparisons.

A second collision is inside this book. Section 14.4 uses CV2 / CV1 / CV0 for hybrids with both / one / neither parent seen in training – the T2 / T1 / T0 of Section 18.6. Here, as in J. Burgueño, G. de los Campos, K. Weigel, and J. Crossa [66], the labels classify genotype x environment cells. A CV1 hybrid of this chapter, never planted but with both parents planted in other crosses, is a T2 hybrid in Chapter 18.'s terms.

19.4 Validation schemes: what each one answers

The classical schemes are defined by two questions. Has the genotype been observed anywhere? Has the environment been observed for anyone? [66], [105]

- **CV2**: the genotype is observed in some environments and missing in others. The task is to *complete the table.*
- **CV1**: the genotype is new, never observed anywhere. The task is to *predict an unseen candidate.*

- **CV0**: the environment is new (next year, say) and the genotypes are known. The task is to *extrapolate to an untested environment.*
- **CV00**: both the genotype and the environment are new. This is the hardest case, and the most realistic for long-run decisions.

CV2 will always look better than CV1. Comparing accuracies across papers that use different schemes is therefore a common and serious error [130], [156]. The correlation is not the only metric:

- top-x % coincidence: top 20 % by a Smith-Hazel index in S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107], top 50 % in Y. Li *et al.* [130];
- mean squared error [132];
- Kendall's τ [133];
- PEV and reliability, and the dispersion slope b_1 of truth on prediction.

At stage 1 the operationally relevant number is the **rate of wrongly discarded superior candidates**. The correlation is only a proxy for it.

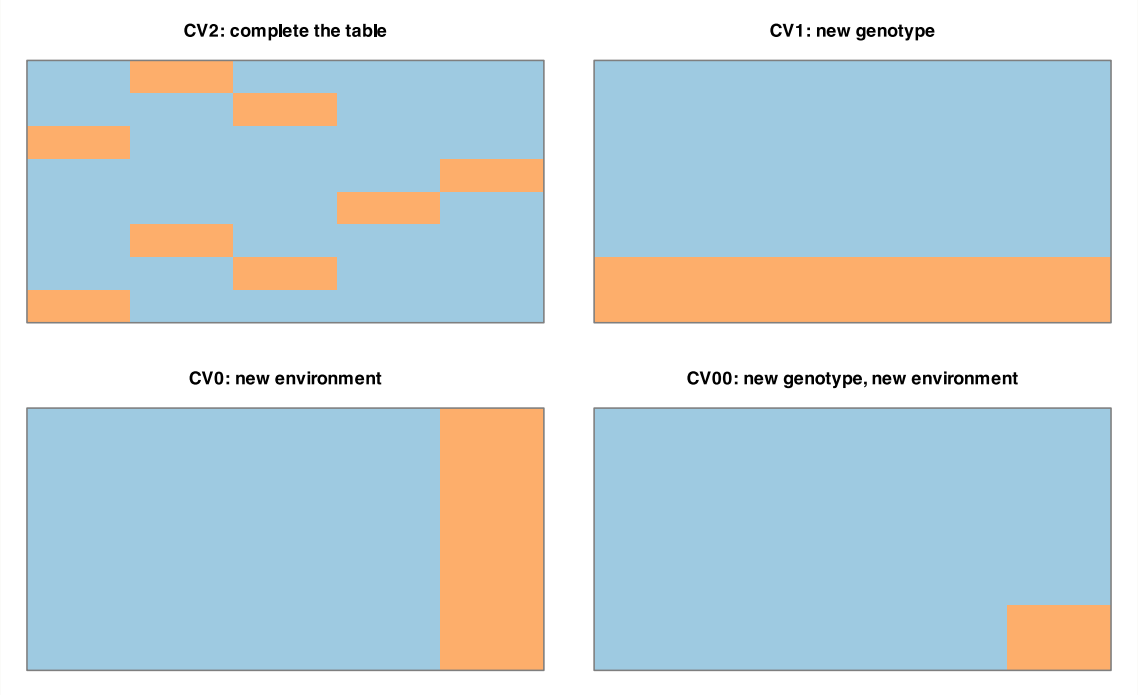

Figure 19.4: The four validation schemes as a 2 x 2 by whether the genotype (rows) and the environment (columns) were observed. Blue: training cells. Orange: the cells to be predicted.

Box 3 – CV0, CV1, CV2 and CV00

	Environment observed	Environment new
Genotype observed	**CV2**: fill a missing cell. *"How does hybrid H do at location L, where it was not planted?"*	**CV0**: *"How will the known hybrids do next year?"*
Genotype new	**CV1**: *"How good is a hybrid that was never planted?"* In this chapter's simulation, 20 % of hybrids per replicate	**CV00**: *"How good will an untested hybrid be next year?"*

In the simulation below, `acc_cv1` and `acc_cv2` are measured exactly in this sense.

19.5 The empirical record across crops

Table 19.2 puts the six primary studies side by side. There are two maize studies, one of which is a simulation of reciprocal recurrent selection. The others cover wheat, cassava and potato, and one simulates a self-pollinated crop. Supporting studies cover wheat [157], [158], sugarcane [159], soybean [160], tropical maize [106] and potato [161].

```
knitr::kable(ps[, c("study", "crop", "genotypes", "environments", "observed",
                    "model", "accuracy", "conclusion")],
             col.names = c("Study", "Crop", "Genotypes", "Environments", "Observed",
                           "Model", "Accuracy", "Conclusion"))
```

Table 19.2: The six primary studies. 'Observed' is the share of genotype x environment cells (or the equivalent) with data.

Study	Crop	Genotypes	Environments	Observed	Model	Accuracy	Conclusion
Li et al. 2026	maize	264	6 locations x 1 year	16.7-83.3%	multi-environment GBLUP (reaction norm best)	0.418 (full overlap) vs 0.479-0.504	Diminishing returns past ~50% of cells; full overlap is the worst allocation
Atanda et al. 2022	spring wheat	280	6 selection environments	16.4-58.9% per environment	GBLUP / PBLUP, XFA G x E, AR1 x AR1 spatial	+42% to +989% from 0 to 50% overlap	Substantial overlap of lines between environments recommended
Werner et al. 2025 (preprint)	simulated wheat	2000	1-440 locations	p-rep 0.1 on 2,200 plots	GBLUP with GRM, restricted randomisation	sparse 4.32-4.48 vs conventional 2.84-3.67	Every sparse scheme beat every conventional one; most of the gain by 5 locations
Lubanga et al. 2025	cassava	435	5 location-years	10.8-20.0% per environment	reaction norm, E + L + G + G x E	max 0.53 (dry matter) / 0.47 (yield)	More overlap HURT at fixed training size; 20% of records suffice
Gonzalez-Dieguez et al. 2026	maize hybrids, simulated RRS	1200 per pool	1-1200 testers	1 testcross per line	pool-specific additive + dominance RRBLUP	+3/11/23% GCA accuracy with 10 testers (low/mid/high dominance)	Plateau at 5-10 testers; 3-5 recommended
Hild Aono & Chawade 2026	potato	256	3 location-years	10-66%	BGLR with genomic and image-derived environment kernels	0.995-0.997 (image kernel) vs 0.612-0.798 (genomic), pairs at 50%	Image kernel wins from ~30% completeness; possible information leakage

The anchor numbers are as follows.

- **Maize** [130]. Mean accuracy was 0.418 under full overlap and 0.479 to 0.504 under every other allocation. Returns diminish beyond about 50 % coverage: going from 50 % to 67 % cost 33 % more phenotyping and returned 3.5 to 5.4 % accuracy. Top-50 % coincidence was above 61.9 % in all 25 strategies.
- **Wheat** [107]. Going from 0 to 50 % common lines raised predictive ability by 42 % to 989 %, depending on the environment. Plot h^2 was 0.18 in the worst environment. Genetic correlations between environments in the same year ranged from -0.04 to 0.67.
- **Cassava** [132]. With 20 % of records per environment, predictive ability was moderate (maxima of 0.53 for dry matter and 0.47 for fresh root yield). Phenotyping cost could be cut by up to 80 %.

- **Potato** [133]. For pairs of environments at 50 % completeness, r^2 was 0.995 to 0.997 with an image-derived environment kernel, against 0.612 to 0.798 with the genomic kernel. Section Section 19.10 covers the caveat.

The common denominator is the **genetic correlation between environments, and the size and diversity of the training set**. Together they explain most of the spread. In S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107], the environment with low heritability and weak correlations stayed poorly predicted under every design. In Y. Li *et al.* [130], plant height was the trait with the strongest between-environment correlations (0.36 to 0.67) and the best predicted. Grain yield had no strong correlations and was predicted worst. Modelling G x E explicitly helped in every study that tested it [130], [132]. **Cutting phenotyping by 50 to 80 % without losing accuracy is feasible. The exact cut depends on the programme's own between-environment correlations, and does not transfer between programmes.**

19.6 The minimum-overlap controversy

The literature disagrees openly on how much overlap is needed:

- S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107] conclude that "a substantial overlap of lines between environments" is needed.
- L. Crespo-Herrera *et al.* [157] suggest 30 to 50 common lines.
- R. Persa *et al.* [160] report a gain with as few as 10.
- N. Lubanga, B. E. Ifie, R. Persa, I. Dieng, I. Y. Rabbi, and D. Jarquin [132] find that **more overlap made prediction worse**: predictive ability fell and MSE rose monotonically with the number of overlapping genotypes, and the fully non-overlapping design was the best.
- Y. Li *et al.* [130] sit in between. Full overlap was the worst design, and the four partial or non-overlapping designs tied.
- C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131] and D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98] do without overlap altogether. All of their connectivity comes from relationships.

A proposed reconciliation, offered here as a hypothesis. The designs are not comparable because they confound overlap with the size and diversity of the training set:

- In N. Lubanga, B. E. Ifie, R. Persa, I. Dieng, I. Y. Rabbi, and D. Jarquin [132] the training set per environment is fixed in size. More overlap therefore means *fewer distinct genotypes observed.*
- In S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107] more overlap means a *larger* calibration set per environment, growing from 46-47 lines to as many as 165.

A second factor is family structure. Families of 1 to 9 individuals [107] give the relationship matrix little to work with, so physical overlap has to carry the connection. Families of 20 to 50 [98], [131] let the relationship matrix carry all of it.

The first half of the hypothesis is testable directly with the package. The experiment uses four locations and a training set **fixed at 80 hybrids per location** out of 400. A fraction of the 80 is a core common to all four locations, and the rest are unique to each location. Family size runs from unrelated lines to half-sib families of 10 (`regenerate.R sparse`, part c; 30 replicates per point; known components; plot $h^2 = 0.4$).

```
ov <- subset(core, part == "overlap")
fs <- sort(unique(ov$family_size))
cols <- c("grey40", "#1b9e77", "#d95f02")[seq_along(fs)]
op <- par(mar = c(4.2, 4.2, 3.2, 1))
plot(NA, xlim = c(0, 1), ylim = range(ov$acc_all - 2 * ov$acc_all_se, ov$acc_all +
2 * ov$acc_all_se),
     xlab = "Overlap: fraction of each location's plots in the common core",
     ylab = "Accuracy, all hybrids")
for (i in seq_along(fs)) {
  d <- ov[ov$family_size == fs[i], ]; d <- d[order(d$overlap), ]
  lines(d$overlap, d$acc_all, type = "b", pch = 19, col = cols[i])
   arrows(d$overlap, d$acc_all - 2 * d$acc_all_se, d$overlap, d$acc_all + 2 *
d$acc_all_se,
```

```
        angle = 90, code = 3, length = 0.03, col = cols[i])
}
d0 <- ov[ov$family_size == fs[1], ]; d0 <- d0[order(d0$overlap), ]
axis(3, at = d0$overlap, labels = d0$n_distinct, cex.axis = 0.8)
mtext("distinct hybrids observed", 3, line = 2, cex = 0.8)
legend("bottomleft", bty = "n", lwd = 2, col = cols,
       legend = ifelse(fs == 1, "unrelated lines", paste("half-sib families of", fs)))
par(op)
```

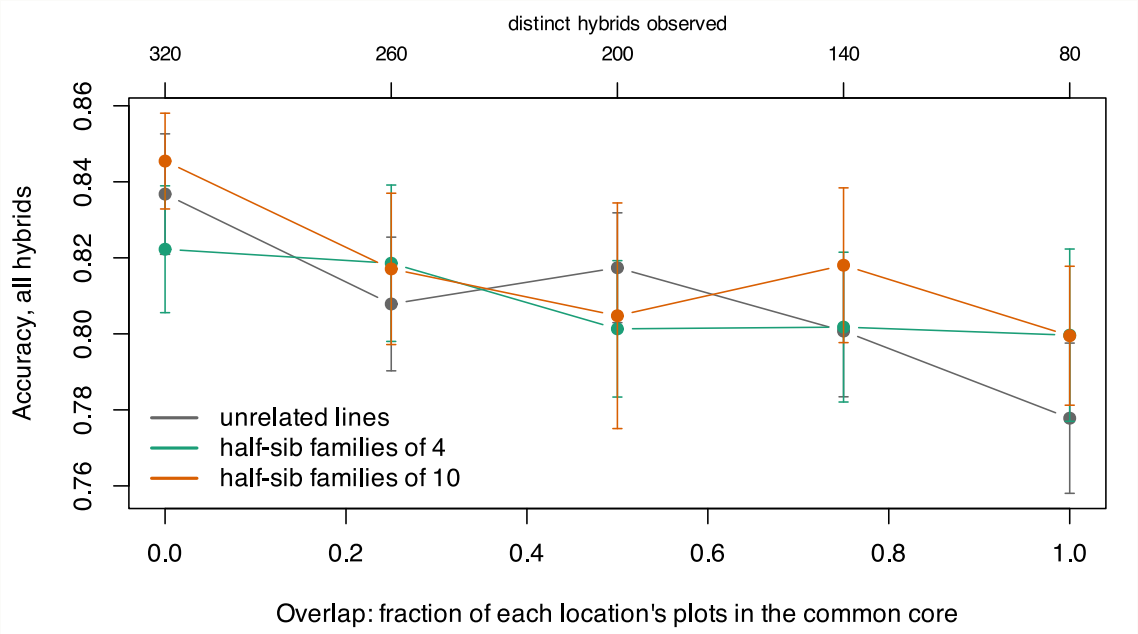

Figure 19.5: Accuracy over all 400 hybrids against the fraction of each location's 80 plots taken by a core common to all four locations, by half-sib family size. The training size is held fixed, so more overlap means fewer distinct hybrids observed (top axis). Bars are two standard errors over 30 replicates. In-repo sweep, known variance components.

With the training size held fixed, accuracy falls as overlap rises: it is 0.023 to 0.059 lower under full overlap than under none, 1.6 to 4.7 standard errors of the difference depending on family size. The drop is resolved for unrelated lines and for families of 10, and not for families of 4 (1.6 standard errors), whose curve has the same direction. The cause is the confound, not overlap as such. Every hybrid moved into the common core is one fewer distinct hybrid observed (top axis). This is the N. Lubanga, B. E. Ifie, R. Persa, I. Dieng, I. Y. Rabbi, and D. Jarquin [132] pattern, reproduced with the mechanism exposed.

The second half of the hypothesis is **not** supported at this scale. The family-size curves cross, and they differ by at most 2.2 standard errors at any one overlap: of the 15 pairs compared (every pair of family sizes at every overlap, with no correction for multiple comparisons), 1 exceeded two standard errors and 0 exceeded three. In hindsight the reason is structural. In a female x male factorial every line is already the parent of 20 hybrids, so the factorial carries much of the connectivity before any relationship *among lines* is added. Half-sib families add relatively little on top of that. In a line-breeding programme like S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107], each entry is its own genotype and no parent links them, so family structure should matter far more. This experiment cannot test that case. The experiment also holds the training size fixed, so it does not reproduce S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107]'s design, in which more overlap also meant a larger calibration set and the two effects pull in opposite directions.

What to do with this. The right question is not "how many common genotypes?". It is "how much *effective* connectivity does the design have, counting both physical overlap and relationships?". The experiment above suggests that physical overlap and relationships between the lines of different environments are partial substitutes, and S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107] found both the genetic correlation between environments and the genomic relationship of lines

across them among the drivers of sparse-testing accuracy. In a hybrid factorial, shared parents already supply much of the relationship side.

19.7 Connectivity and checks

Connectivity is not the same as overlap. Two designs with the same number of common genotypes can be connected very differently, depending on *how* those genotypes are distributed. Hybrids add a dimension. There is female x male connectivity, the subject of Section 18.2.3. There is genotype x location connectivity. And there is **female x male x location**, for which no metric is agreed (Section 19.13); Section 20.4 gives a necessary screen and a counter-example to sufficiency, and leaves the metric open. The available tools are:

- the rank of the incidence matrix;
- the PEV of pairwise contrasts, and the reliability derived from it;
- the connected components of the genotype-environment graph.

Checks do three jobs:

- anchor connectivity;
- estimate within-environment error in unreplicated trials, as in the augmented design of Y. Li *et al.* [130];
- control spatial trend [151], [153].

Restricted randomisation is a cheap connectivity tool. C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131] kept full-sibs apart within a location, but did not measure the restriction against unrestricted randomisation. Section 19.11.3 does measure a structured layout against unrestricted randomisation.

Connectivity can be checked before planting. Compute it at the planning stage, rather than finding out from a model that does not converge.

Box 4 – Computing the connectivity of a design before planting it

1. Build the genotype x environment incidence matrix.
2. Check the connected components of the bipartite graph. Every location should share hybrids, or at least parents, with every other.
3. Compute the mean PEV of the target values under the intended model, with provisional variance components.
4. Convert it to reliability, $1 - \overline{\mathrm{PEV}}/\sigma^2_G$.
5. Compare candidate designs on the same metric.

```
set.seed(8)
nF <- 20; nM <- 20; L <- 6
Af <- relmat_halfsib(nF, 5); Am <- relmat_halfsib(nM, 5)
vc <- sparse_vc(0.3)
recipe <- function(M) {
  cn  <- sparse_connectivity(M, nF, nM)                       # steps 1–2
  # PEV does not depend on y, so any phenotype vector will do (steps 3–4).
  cells <- which(M == 1L, arr.ind = TRUE)
  ph  <- data.frame(y = 0, hyb = cells[, 1], loc = cells[, 2])
  pev <- sparse_blup(ph, nF, nM, L, vc, Af, Am)$pev
    c(plots  =  sum(M),  fem_cover  =  cn$fem_cover,  disconnected_pairs  =
cn$frac_disconn,
    reliability = 1 - mean(pev) / vc$Vg)
}
fmt(rbind(complete_2loc = recipe(sparse_alloc(nF, nM, 2, strategy = "complete")),
          random_k2     = recipe(sparse_alloc(nF, nM, L, 2, "random")),
          parentage_k2  = recipe(sparse_alloc(nF, nM, L, 2, "parentage"))), 3)
```

	plots	fem_cover	disconnected_pairs	reliability
complete_2loc	800	1	0	0.625
random_k2	800	1	0	0.703
parentage_k2	800	1	0	0.705

All three designs cost 800 plots. Spreading them over six locations raises reliability *before a single plot is sown*. The PEV depends only on the design and the components, not on the data. That makes it a design tool and not only an evaluation metric.

19.8 Sparse testcrossing and the number of testers

The central idea of D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98] is to treat the tester as an "environment". Each line is crossed to **one** tester, but full-sibs go to *different* testers. What gets evaluated against several testers is therefore the haplotype, not the genotype. This removes a real logistical constraint. The more accurate alternative, an incomplete factorial among candidates (Section 18.4), needs hand pollination at scale and synchronised flowering between pools.

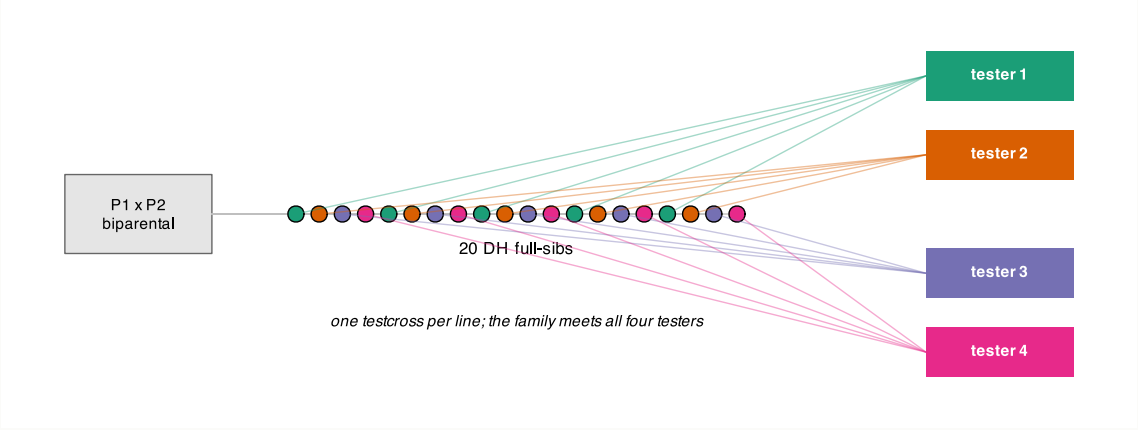

Figure 19.6: Sparse testcrossing. A biparental cross yields 20 DH lines; each line is crossed to one of four testers, so the family – not the line – meets every tester. The relationship matrix connects the full-sibs, and through them the four testers.

Table 19.3: Sparse testcrossing in D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98]: accuracy and gain against a single tester at an equal number of testcrosses. Every sparse layout beat the single tester, and gains plateau at 5 to 10 testers; 3 to 5 is the practical recommendation.

Testers (1,200 testcrosses per pool)	Gain in GCA accuracy over 1 tester	Gain in hybrid genetic gain, cycle 15
2, medium dominance	+5.3 %	–
10, low / medium / high dominance	+3 % / +11 % / +23 %	+3 % / +6 % / +11 %
2 to 10, medium dominance	+0.7 % on top of the 2-tester gain	–

The advantage is largest in early cycles, while the pools are still close. That does **not** confine the method to emerging programmes. Real commercial pools sit at a minimum Nei distance of 0.17 [138] and an F_{ST} of 0.223 [5], which corresponds to cycles 2 to 4 of the simulation.

A useful side effect is that sparse testcrossing *slowed the erosion of within-pool variance.* It stops selection from piling onto closely related lines that happen to nick with one tester. The authors recommend combining it with optimum contribution selection (Chapter 15.; N. Santantonio and K. Robbins [162]).

The deterministic tradition reaches the same order of magnitude by another route [90]. The advocates of incomplete factorials [92], [97], [103], [129] reach a different conclusion. In D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98], an approximate incomplete factorial matched 3 to 5 testers, with much heavier logistics. Two costs were not modelled. Five testers need ten isolation blocks. And in many public programmes hand pollination is already routine, which lowers the extra cost of the factorial.

Box 5 – Choosing testers: theory against practice

The classical recommendation is a *low-performing* tester, or one carrying recessive alleles at the loci of interest. Such a tester discriminates among candidates best [6], [163]. Commercial practice uses *elite* testers, chosen for seed production and *per se* performance, because the testcross may itself become a product. The consequence follows from Section 5.11: GCA is measured *against the tester's allele frequencies.* An elite tester carries the favourable allele at many loci and shrinks the visible differences there, so a few elite testers sample the opposite pool's frequencies poorly. Several testers spread across the pool, the sparse-testcross recipe, sample them better [90], [164].

19.9 What sparsity does to variance components and to the BLUP

Two questions are often merged in the literature, and they should be kept separate:

1. Do the predictions stay accurate?

2. Do the variance-component estimates stay unbiased?

The second is barely covered. **None of the six primary studies reports bias in σ^2_{GCA}, σ^2_{SCA} or σ^2_{GE} under sparsity.** The indirect evidence is thin:

- In A. Hild Aono and A. Chawade [133] the G x E term *degraded* prediction under high sparsity, because there were too few individuals to estimate it. The authors recommend dropping it in that regime.
- In Y. Li *et al.* [130] propagating prediction uncertainty barely changed the GCA estimates (correlation 0.9974 to 0.9998 with the point estimates). That is a sensitivity of GCA, not of the variance components.

Two diagnostics separate the questions.

- **The dispersion slope b_1**, from regressing truth on prediction. $b_1 = 1$ means no scale bias. $b_1 < 1$ means the predictions are too spread out, and $b_1 > 1$ means they are over-shrunk.
- **PEV and reliability.** These can be computed *before* any data exist (Box 4), so they serve as design tools.

Accuracy and estimation quality do not degrade at the same rate. **A design can rank candidates well and still estimate the SCA and G x E variances badly** [143], [145], [151], [152]. The simulation of Section 19.11.3 measures this directly. That is the gap in the primary literature it was designed to fill.

19.10 Sparse testing with phenomics

Phenomic data pose a specific problem. Markers can be read from a seedling whatever happens in the field. Sensor data exist only for plots that were actually grown, so they cannot serve as a covariate for an individual that was never observed. There are three ways out:

- multi-trait models with image indices as secondary traits;
- kernel regression on the indices;
- the proposal of A. Hild Aono and A. Chawade [133]: use the images to build an **environment** kernel.

The environment kernel is built in three steps. A PCA of the image traits is run *within each environment*. The first-component eigenvector of each environment is extracted. The kernel entries are the correlations between those eigenvectors.

The image kernel matched or beat the genomic kernel from about 30 to 33 % completeness, reaching $r^2 = 0.997$ on pairs of environments. Below about 20 % the genomic kernel was preferable again. **The authors warn of possible information leakage**, because the kernel came from the same trial that supplied training and validation. The result should be reported with that caveat.

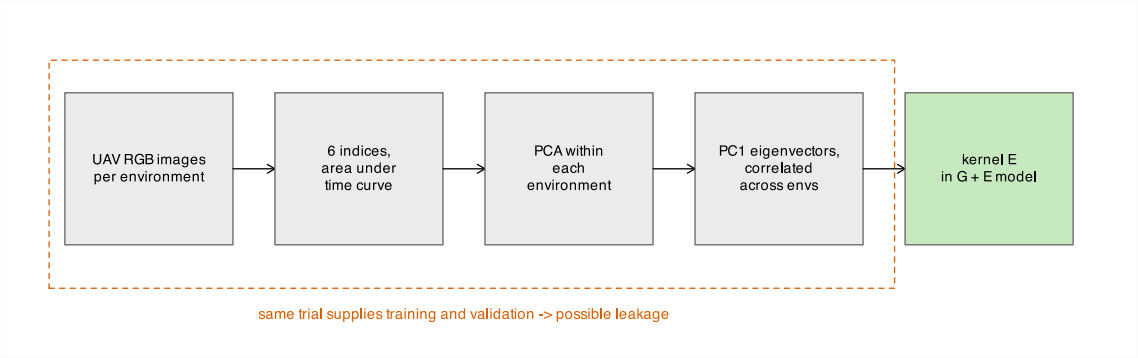

Figure 19.7: Building an environment kernel from images, after Hild Aono and Chawade (2026). The dashed box marks where training and validation share information – the leakage the authors flag.

The approach is attractive for programmes without routine genotyping. It is also promising for maize, where sensor phenotyping exists but has not been tested in this arrangement with hybrids. It connects to envirotyping. When locations are close together, coarse-grid weather covariates discriminate poorly, and images capture differences that the weather data miss [165], [166], [167]. NIRS-based phenomic prediction in maize points the same way, in a non-sparse setting [168].

Sensor data enter sparse testing as descriptors of environments, not of genotypes. This inversion solves the availability problem. In programmes that genotype little, it can partly replace the genomic matrix.

19.11 Simulation as a sizing tool

19.11.1 Why simulate before designing

None of the published numbers transfers directly to another programme. Each one depends on the between-environment correlations, the family structure, the $\sigma^2_{SCA}/\sigma^2_{GCA}$ ratio and the heritability of the programme that produced it, and the authors say so themselves [98], [131]. A simulation can do three things an experiment cannot:

- it knows the true values;
- it can rerun the programme a hundred times;
- it can isolate one factor at a time.

The tools exist. AlphaSimR covers the genetics , Chapter 9., FieldSimR covers plots and G x E [169], and `sommer` or BGLR fit the models [170]. Staged-allocation theory provides the deterministic cross-check [112], [128]. **Simulation does not replace the experiment. It replaces guessing at the design of the experiment.**

19.11.2 Realistic parameters: what the literature supplies

```
knitr::kable(lp[, c("parameter", "value", "source", "derived")],
             col.names = c("Parameter", "Value", "Source", "Derived"))
```

Table 19.4: Reference parameters from the six primary studies. 'Derived' marks a value computed from reported components rather than reported directly.

Parameter	Value	Source	Derived
Plot heritability	0.10 (founder population)	Werner et al. 2025 (simulation)	no
Plot heritability (worst environment)	0.18	Atanda et al. 2022 (wheat)	no
Broad-sense H2 over all hybrids	0.30	Gonzalez-Dieguez et al. 2026 (simulation)	no
Entry-mean H2	0.76-0.87	Li et al. 2026 (maize)	no
Entry-mean H2	0.61-0.87	Lubanga et al. 2025 (cassava)	no
Broad-sense H2 (maximum)	~0.67	Hild Aono & Chawade 2026 (potato)	no
s2SCA / s2GCA at cycle 1	0.05 / 0.23 / 0.50 for mean dominance 0.1 / 0.5 / 0.9	Gonzalez-Dieguez et al. 2026	no
s2GxE / (s2G + s2GxE)	0.56	Werner et al. 2025	no
Crossover share of G x E variance	0.53	Werner et al. 2025	no
Mean genetic correlation between TPE locations	0.60	Werner et al. 2025	no
Genetic correlation between locations (plant height)	0.36-0.67	Li et al. 2026 (maize)	no
Genetic correlation between environments (grain yield)	none strong detected	Li et al. 2026 (maize)	no
Genetic correlation between environments (same year)	−0.04 to 0.67	Atanda et al. 2022 (wheat)	no
s2_env / s2_g (grain yield)	8.1	Li et al. 2026 (maize; 1.13 / 0.14)	yes
Genotypes tested	264-2000	all six studies	no
Locations	2-440	all six studies	no
Testers	1-1200	Gonzalez-Dieguez et al. 2026	no
Cells observed	10-83%	all six studies	no

Two features of real data a simulation must respect:

1. **Environmental variance exceeds genetic variance by an order of magnitude.** For maize grain yield, $\sigma^2_{env}/\sigma^2_g \approx 8.1$ [130].
2. **Between-environment correlations for yield are often weak.** Scenarios should be anchored on measured parameters, not chosen for numerical convenience.

19.11.3 What the simulation finds

The model. The study simulated a female x male factorial of single crosses, tested with **one plot per hybrid x location cell**. The phenotype is

$$y = \mu + \text{loc} + \text{GCA}^f + \text{GCA}^m + \text{SCA} + \text{GCA}^f \times \text{loc} + \text{GCA}^m \times \text{loc} + \text{SCA} \times \text{loc} + e. \quad (19.4)$$

The target is the value in the TPE, $\text{GCA}^f + \text{GCA}^m + \text{SCA}$. In every replicate, **20 % of the hybrids get no plot at all.** These are the CV1 hybrids, predicted only through relationships.

The calibration is `sparse_vc()`:

- $\sigma^2_f = \sigma^2_m = 1$ and $\sigma^2_{SCA} = 0.25$;
- every interaction with location is half its main effect;
- plot h^2 of 0.20 or 0.40.

In `sparse_vc()` the components are `s2f`, `s2m`, `s2s` (σ^2_{SCA}), `s2fl`, `s2ml` (the two GCA x location variances), `s2sl` ($\sigma^2_{SCA\times L}$, written $\sigma^2_{s\ell}$ in Section 20.2) and `s2e`.

These choices imply a genetic correlation between locations of $V_G/(V_G + V_{GE}) = 0.667$. That sits inside the 0.36 to 0.67 measured in maize [130] and close to the 0.60 of C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131]. The SCA:GCA ratio of 0.25 lies among the values in D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98], and the two heritabilities bracket C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131]'s 0.10 and the 0.30 of D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98].

The four strategies, all at the same cost of k locations per hybrid out of L in the trial (k is not the testers per pool of Chapter 18.):

- *complete*;
- *random*: each hybrid goes to k locations drawn at random;
- *optimised blocks*: an exchange algorithm on the mixed-model coefficient matrix, with replicated checks;
- *parentage*: the factorial is cut into cyclic groups, each holding every female and every male, and groups are dealt to locations so that **every location receives both whole pools**.

The last is `sparse_alloc(strategy = "parentage")`.

Validation of the estimator. Before any comparison, the estimator was checked on the complete design, where REML must recover the true components (Table 19.5).

```
v <- val; v$component <- sub("s2", "s2_", v$component)
knitr::kable(fmt(v[, c("h2_plot", "component", "true", "mean_est", "relbias_pct",
"se_relbias_pct", "t")], 3),
             col.names = c("Plot h2", "Component", "True", "Mean estimate", "Rel.
bias %", "SE %", "t"))
```

Table 19.5: Component recovery by REML in the COMPLETE design (20 x 20 hybrids, 6 locations, 30 replicates per heritability; cached). The residual target is $\sigma^2_{SCA\times L} + \sigma^2_e$, because with one plot per cell the analysis model absorbs SCA x location into the residual.

Plot h2	Component	True	Mean estimate	Rel. bias %	SE %	t
0.2	s2_f	1.000	1.026	2.63	7.88	0.33
0.2	s2_m	1.000	0.964	−3.57	6.70	−0.53
0.2	s2_s	0.250	0.350	39.94	18.50	2.16
0.2	s2_fl	0.500	0.540	7.97	6.13	1.30
0.2	s2_ml	0.500	0.499	−0.13	6.04	−0.02
0.2	s2_res	8.000	7.962	−0.48	0.53	−0.90
0.4	s2_f	1.000	0.979	−2.15	6.07	−0.35
0.4	s2_m	1.000	1.008	0.79	6.77	0.12
0.4	s2_s	0.250	0.303	21.31	20.91	1.02
0.4	s2_fl	0.500	0.488	−2.31	3.16	−0.73
0.4	s2_ml	0.500	0.496	−0.70	3.77	−0.19
0.4	s2_res	2.375	2.364	−0.44	0.73	−0.61

Every component except SCA is recovered without detectable bias ($|t| \leq 1.3$). σ^2_{SCA} is biased upward even here, by +39.9 % and +21.3 %. That is the expected direction for a small component (11 % of V_G) estimated by a procedure bounded below at zero. **The bias is a baseline, not an effect of sparsity.** Every later SCA number has to be read against it.

The grid has 2,630 fits:

- 100 and 400 hybrids;
- 2, 4, 6 and 10 locations;
- nominal sparsity from 20 % to 100 %;
- two heritabilities;
- 15 replicates per cell at 400 hybrids, 9 to 15 at 100.

19.11.3.1 1. The cutting margin is wide, and wider at higher heritability

```
op <- par(mfrow = c(1, 2), mar = c(4.2, 4.2, 2, 1))
d <- subset(s4, h2_plot == 0.4 & strategy %in% c("parentage", "complete"))
Ls <- sort(unique(d$nLoc)); lc <- hcl.colors(length(Ls), "Dark 3")
plot(NA, xlim = range(d$n_plots_mean), ylim = range(d$acc_all_mean),
     xlab = "Plots", ylab = "Accuracy, all hybrids", main = "Cost-accuracy, h2 =
0.4", cex.main = 0.9)
for (i in seq_along(Ls)) {
  e <- d[d$nLoc == Ls[i], ]; e <- e[order(e$n_plots_mean), ]
   lines(e$n_plots_mean, e$acc_all_mean, type = "b", pch = ifelse(e$strategy ==
"complete", 1, 19), col = lc[i])
}
legend("bottomright", bty = "n", col = lc, lwd = 2, legend = paste(Ls, "locations"),
cex = 0.8)
sp <- subset(s4, k == 2 & strategy %in% c("complete", "random"))
plot(NA, xlim = c(2, 10), ylim = range(sp$acc_all_mean), xlab = "Locations sharing
the 2 plots per hybrid",
    ylab = "Accuracy, all hybrids", main = sprintf("Same %.0f plots, spread wider",
mean(sp$n_plots_mean)), cex.main = 0.9)
for (h in c(0.2, 0.4)) {
  e <- sp[sp$h2_plot == h, ]; e <- e[order(e$nLoc), ]
  lines(e$nLoc, e$acc_all_mean, type = "b", pch = 19, lty = ifelse(h == 0.2, 2, 1))
}
legend("bottomright", bty = "n", lty = c(1, 2), pch = 19, legend = c("plot h2 =
0.4", "plot h2 = 0.2"), cex = 0.8)
par(op)
```

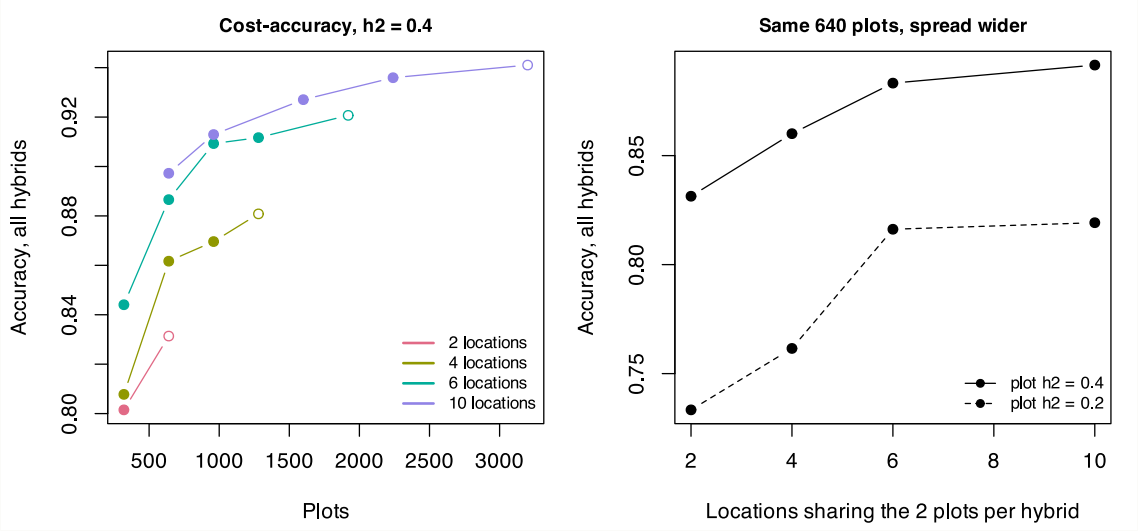

Figure 19.8: Left: accuracy against plots for 400 hybrids at plot h2 = 0.4, one curve per number of locations (parentage and complete designs; complete marked with an open circle). Right: accuracy at a FIXED cost of two plots per hybrid, spread over 2 to 10 locations, random allocation, both heritabilities. Cached study, REML components, 15 replicates.

Take 400 hybrids at $h^2 = 0.4$. The complete design over ten locations (3,200 plots) reaches an accuracy of 0.941. The **cheapest allocation within 5 % of that** is the parentage design with 2 locations per hybrid. It uses 640 plots, 20 % of the budget, and reaches 0.897, which is 95.3 % of the reference. Coincidence with the true top 5 % falls only from 70.0 % to 65.7 %. At $h^2 = 0.2$ the requirement rises to half the cells. Table 19.6 lists every scenario.

```
m <- mn; m$within <- ifelse(m$minimal_5, "5 %", "10 %")
m <- m[order(m$nHyb, m$h2_plot, m$sca_level, m$nLoc, m$within), ]
knitr::kable(fmt(m[, c("nHyb", "h2_plot", "sca_level", "nLoc", "within", "strategy",
"k",
                       "n_plots_mean", "acc_all_mean", "acc_rel", "cost_rel")], 3),
             row.names = FALSE,
                col.names = c("Hybrids", "Plot h2", "SCA", "Locations", "Within",
"Strategy", "k",
                              "Plots", "Accuracy", "Rel. accuracy", "Rel. cost"))
```

Table 19.6: Cheapest allocation within 5 % and within 10 % of the accuracy of the complete design at the largest number of locations in each scenario. Cached study.

Hybrids	Plot h2	SCA	Locations	Within	Strategy	k	Plots	Accuracy	Rel. accuracy	Rel. cost
100	0.2	low	4	10 %	parentage	3	240.000	0.779	0.903	0.3
100	0.2	low	4	5 %	complete	4	320.000	0.825	0.958	0.4
100	0.4	low	6	5 %	random	4	320.000	0.887	0.951	0.4
100	0.4	low	10	10 %	parentage	2	160.000	0.856	0.917	0.2
400	0.2	low	6	10 %	random	2	640.000	0.816	0.904	0.2
400	0.2	low	10	5 %	random	5	1600.000	0.874	0.967	0.5
400	0.4	high	10	10 %	random	2	640.000	0.825	0.901	0.2
400	0.4	high	10	5 %	optimised_blocks	5	1599.867	0.884	0.966	0.5
400	0.4	low	4	10 %	optimised_blocks	2	639.667	0.859	0.912	0.2
400	0.4	low	10	5 %	parentage	2	640.000	0.897	0.953	0.2

19.11.3.2 2. At fixed cost, spreading plots over locations beats concentrating them

This is the most actionable result (Figure 19.8, right). Each planted hybrid keeps **two plots** (the 80 % of the factorial that is planted, so 640 plots in every design of the panel), the cost of a two-location trial of those hybrids. At $h^2 = 0.4$, accuracy rises from 0.831 with both plots in the same two locations to 0.860, 0.883 and 0.892 as those plots are spread across 4, 6 and 10 locations. At $h^2 = 0.2$ it rises from 0.733 to 0.819. Not one extra plot is spent, and no planted hybrid gains a location: each is still in two. What grows is the number of environments the trial samples, and with it the number of locations over which each parent's crosses, and so its GCA, are spread. The gain saturates between six and ten locations. This slice never varied the locations per hybrid and never traded a location against a replicate, so it measures only the value of sampling more trial sites at a fixed number of plots – the "broader sampling of trial sites" of C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131] – not a trade against replication.

19.11.3.3 3. Among sparse designs the choice matters little, except at extreme sparsity

```
cc <- ct[ct$metric %in% c("acc_all", "acc_cv1", "acc_cv2") & ct$subset %in% c("all",
"k<=2"), ]
knitr::kable(fmt(cc[, c("layer", "contrast", "metric", "subset", "n", "diff", "se",
"p")], 4),
             row.names = FALSE,
           col.names = c("Layer", "Contrast", "Metric", "Subset", "n", "Difference",
"SE", "p"))
```

Table 19.7: Contrasts against random allocation. Paired by replicate in the fast layer (791 pairs; 385 with k <= 2) and in the genomic layer (32 pairs). acc_cv1: hybrids never tested; acc_cv2: missing cells of tested hybrids. Cached study.

Layer	Contrast	Metric	Subset	n	Difference	SE	p
fast	parentage - random	acc_all	all	791	0.0051	0.0029	0.0773
fast	optimised_blocks - random	acc_all	all	791	0.0011	0.0028	0.7018
fast	parentage - random	acc_cv1	all	791	0.0086	0.0039	0.0260
fast	optimised_blocks - random	acc_cv1	all	791	0.0018	0.0043	0.6698
fast	parentage - random	acc_cv2	all	791	0.0077	0.0026	0.0031
fast	optimised_blocks - random	acc_cv2	all	791	0.0060	0.0023	0.0103
genomic	parentage - random	acc_all	all	32	0.0226	0.0086	0.0137
genomic	optimised_blocks - random	acc_all	all	32	0.0152	0.0098	0.1296
genomic	parentage - random	acc_cv1	all	32	0.0139	0.0092	0.1410
genomic	optimised_blocks - random	acc_cv1	all	32	0.0111	0.0135	0.4197
fast	parentage - random	acc_cv1	k<=2	385	0.0187	0.0069	0.0070
fast	optimised_blocks - random	acc_cv1	k<=2	385	−0.0012	0.0079	0.8810

Over the whole grid, the parentage design beats random allocation on untested hybrids by +0.0086 ± 0.0039 (p = 0.026). That is real and small. Restricted to $k \leq 2$ locations per hybrid, the advantage roughly doubles, to +0.0187 ± 0.0069 (p = 0.007). The optimised blocks show nothing there (-0.0012 ± 0.0079). In the genomic layer, with marker relationships and real dominance, the parentage advantage on overall accuracy is +0.023 ± 0.009 (p = 0.014).

None of the six primary studies compared a structured allocation with a random one. Y. Li *et al.* [130] found their structured schemes tied with each other. C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131] used restricted randomisation without a random control. This result answers that open question for the hybrid case. The structure matters when plots are scarce, and only for the hybrids the field never saw.

```
a <- aggregate(acc_all ~ strategy + nLoc + p_real, gl, mean)
op <- par(mar = c(4.2, 4.2, 1, 1))
plot(NA, xlim = range(a$p_real), ylim = range(a$acc_all), xlab = "Share of cells
```

```
observed",
     ylab = "Accuracy, all hybrids")
for (s in names(strat_col)) for (L in unique(a$nLoc)) {
  e <- a[a$strategy == s & a$nLoc == L, ]; e <- e[order(e$p_real), ]
  if (nrow(e)) lines(e$p_real, e$acc_all, type = "b", pch = ifelse(L == 4, 19, 17),
                     lty = ifelse(L == 4, 1, 2), col = strat_col[s])
}
legend("bottomright", bty = "n", cex = 0.8, col = c(strat_col, "black", "black"),
       lty = c(1, 1, 1, 1, 1, 2), pch = c(NA, NA, NA, NA, 19, 17),
       legend = c(names(strat_col), "4 locations", "8 locations"))
par(op)
```

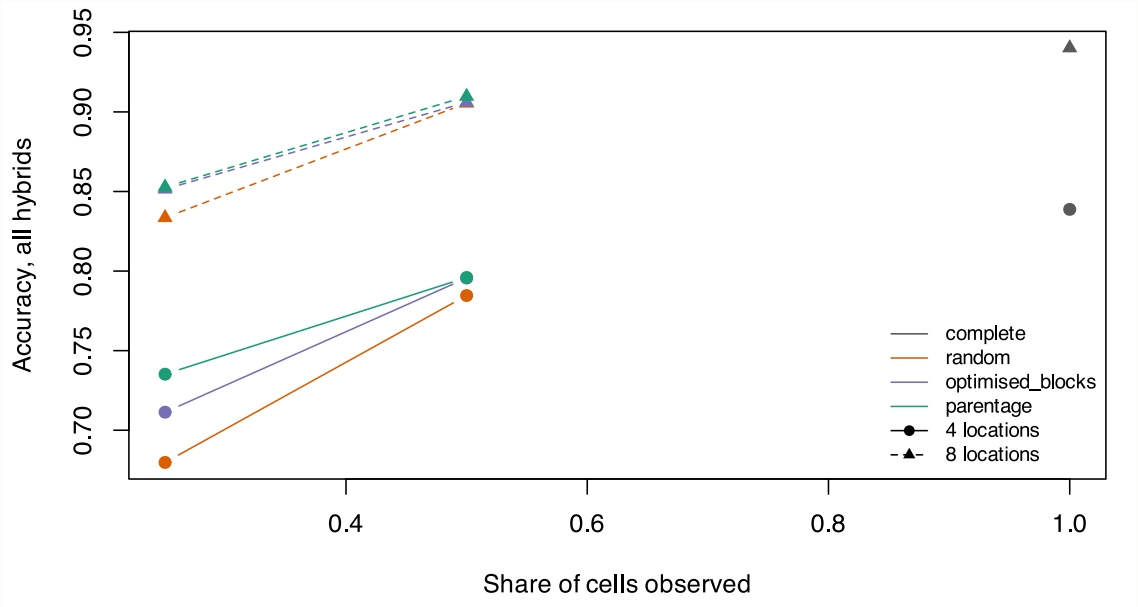

Figure 19.9: Genomic layer (AlphaSimR genomes, marker relationships, 8 replicates): accuracy against the share of cells observed, by strategy and number of locations. Cached study.

19.11.3.4 4. Parent coverage, not shared hybrids, carries the connectivity

Consider ten locations with two per hybrid at $h^2 = 0.4$. The best design there is the parentage design, with accuracy 0.897. Its harmonic-mean concurrence, the number of hybrids a pair of locations shares, is **0.000**: some pairs of locations share no hybrid at all. This is structural. Twenty groups at two locations each touch at most 20 of the 45 location pairs. Random allocation shares hybrids between almost every pair (harmonic mean 5.466) and is less accurate. What the parentage design keeps is **parent coverage**. The mean fraction of females present per location is 0.999, against 0.965 for random allocation.

Once a relationship matrix is in the model, what carries connectivity is representing both pools in every location, not repeating the same hybrids across locations. Put this together with Section 19.6 and it reads as one account of the S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107] versus N. Lubanga, B. E. Ifie, R. Persa, I. Dieng, I. Y. Rabbi, and D. Jarquin [132] disagreement. Shared hybrids are one way to connect environments. Shared parents are another, cheaper one, and in a hybrid factorial the shared parents come for free.

19.11.3.5 5. Dispersion is small where REML converges; the SCA variance is not recoverable

```
med <- aggregate(cbind(relbias_s2f_mean, relbias_s2fl_mean, relbias_s2s_mean,
relbias_h2_mean) ~ k, sc, median)
op <- par(mfrow = c(1, 2), mar = c(4.2, 4.2, 1, 1))
matplot(med$k, 100 * med[, -1], type = "b", pch = 19, lty = 1,
```

```
        col = c("#1b9e77", "#7570b3", "#d95f02", "grey30"),
        xlab = "Locations per hybrid, k", ylab = "Median relative bias (%)")
abline(h = 0, lty = 3)
legend("topright", bty = "n", cex = 0.8, pch = 19, col = c("#1b9e77", "#7570b3",
"#d95f02", "grey30"),
       legend = c("GCA (female)", "GCA x location", "SCA", "plot h2"))
plot(jitter(sc$k, 0.4), pmin(pmax(sc$bias_all_mean, 0.5), 1.5), pch = 19, cex = 0.6,
     col = adjustcolor(ifelse(sc$frac_conv < 1, "#d95f02", "grey30"), 0.7),
    xlab = "Locations per hybrid, k", ylab = "Dispersion slope b1", ylim = c(0.5, 1.5))
abline(h = 1, lty = 2)
legend("topright", bty = "n", cex = 0.8, pch = 19, col = c("grey30", "#d95f02"),
       legend = c("all fits converged", "some fits did not"))
par(op)
```

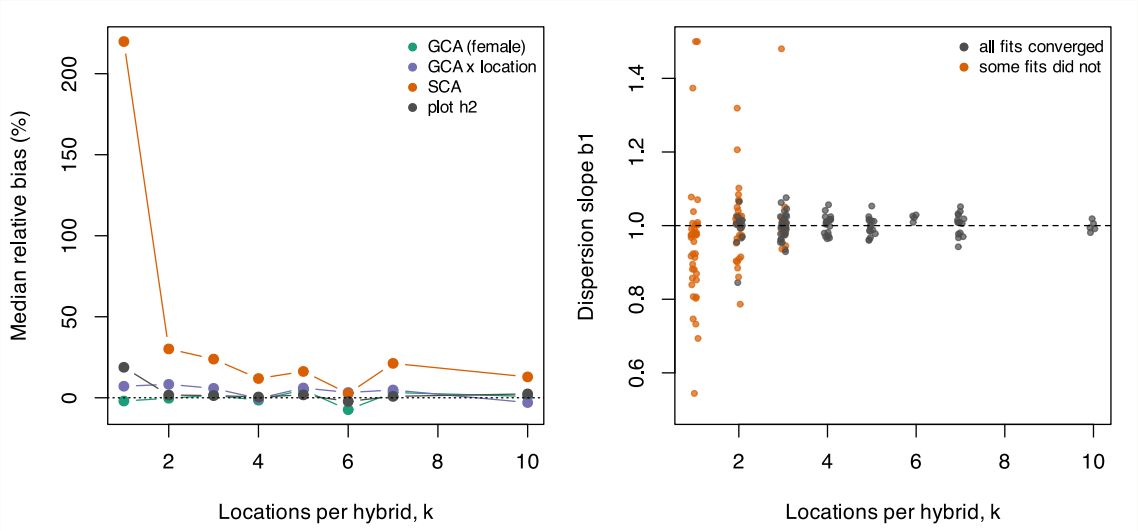

Figure 19.10: Left: median relative bias of REML components and of plot h2 by locations per hybrid k, over all cached scenarios. Right: the dispersion slope b1 (truth on BLUP), one point per scenario; the dashed line is no dispersion bias. Scenarios with k = 1 and incomplete REML convergence produce the outliers (axis clipped at 0.5-1.5).

Prediction holds up where the components are estimable. In the scenarios where every REML fit converged – all with $k \geq 2$ – the dispersion slope lies between 0.845 and 1.076, on both sides of 1 (median 1.005). With $k \geq 4$ it lies between 0.942 and 1.057. At $k = 1$ no scenario had every fit converge; the median slope there is 0.968, with outliers far from 1 (Figure 19.10, right). Sparsity therefore costs accuracy without a *systematic* dispersion bias at $k \geq 2$, with individual scenarios off by up to 15 %; at $k = 1$ the REML evidence does not settle the question, and the known-component sweep of 5, whose slopes sit near 1 at $k = 1$, shows only that the estimator is undispersed when the components are right. The GCA variance, the GCA x location variance and plot h^2 have median biases near zero at every k.

σ^2_{SCA} is the exception. Its median relative bias is +12 % at $k = 4$, +30 % at $k = 2$, and +220 % at $k = 1$. Much of this is present in the complete design too (Table 19.5), so it is mainly a problem of identifying a small component, and sparsity makes it worse. A programme that needs a reliable SCA is in product development, not population improvement. It cannot fix the problem by adding coverage to a stage-1 trial.

The hidden cost is convergence. REML converged in 100.0 % of fits with four locations per hybrid, 97.0 % with three, 88.5 % with two, and only **42.6 % with one**. That is 411 non-convergences in 2630 fits.

! Box – Why REML does not converge when each hybrid sees one location

With $k = 1$ each hybrid contributes a single plot in a single location. The data then carry no within-hybrid information to separate a hybrid's GCA from its GCA x location deviation. The likelihood is flat along that ridge. The algorithm walks to the boundary of the parameter space and stops without meeting its criterion. The BLUPs from those fits are still usable. They come from solving the mixed-model equations at the current components, which is exactly what `sparse_blup()` does with known ones. **The variance estimates are not usable, and should not be reported.** Predicting well and estimating well are different achievements. At $k = 1$ a trial can still do the first.

19.11.3.6 6. Two stages: test every candidate sparsely rather than a subset densely

The two-stage scenario works as follows:

- A pool of 400 candidate hybrids is available.
- Stage 1 tests N_1 of them sparsely and keeps the top q by BLUP.
- Stage 2 tests the survivors densely in new locations.
- The final analysis is joint.

The metric is the realised gain: the mean *true* value of the ten hybrids finally chosen, in genetic standard deviations. Under 700 total plots, the gain is 1.358 when stage 1 tests 100 candidates, 1.778 for 200, and 2.148 for all 400. Across all budgets, efficiency relative to an oracle that selects on the truth rises from 0.585 to 0.935. The share of the true top 5 % captured rises from 19.8 % to 72.1 %.

```
a <- aggregate(cbind(gain_sd_units, gain_max_sd_units) ~ N1 + plots_total, ts, mean)
cl <- c("100" = "#d95f02", "200" = "#7570b3", "400" = "#1b9e77")
op <- par(mar = c(4.2, 4.2, 1, 1))
plot(NA, xlim = range(a$plots_total), ylim = c(0, max(a$gain_max_sd_units)), log
= "x",
     xlab = "Total plots (log scale)", ylab = "Realised gain (genetic SD)")
o <- aggregate(gain_max_sd_units ~ plots_total, a, mean); o <-
o[order(o$plots_total), ]
lines(o$plots_total, o$gain_max_sd_units, col = "grey60", lwd = 3)
for (n in names(cl)) {
  e <- a[a$N1 == as.numeric(n), ]; e <- e[order(e$plots_total), ]
  lines(e$plots_total, e$gain_sd_units, type = "b", pch = 19, col = cl[n])
}
legend("bottomright", bty = "n", col = c(cl, "grey60"), lwd = c(1, 1, 1, 3), pch =
c(19, 19, 19, NA),
       legend = c(paste("N1 =", names(cl)), "oracle"), cex = 0.85)
par(op)
```

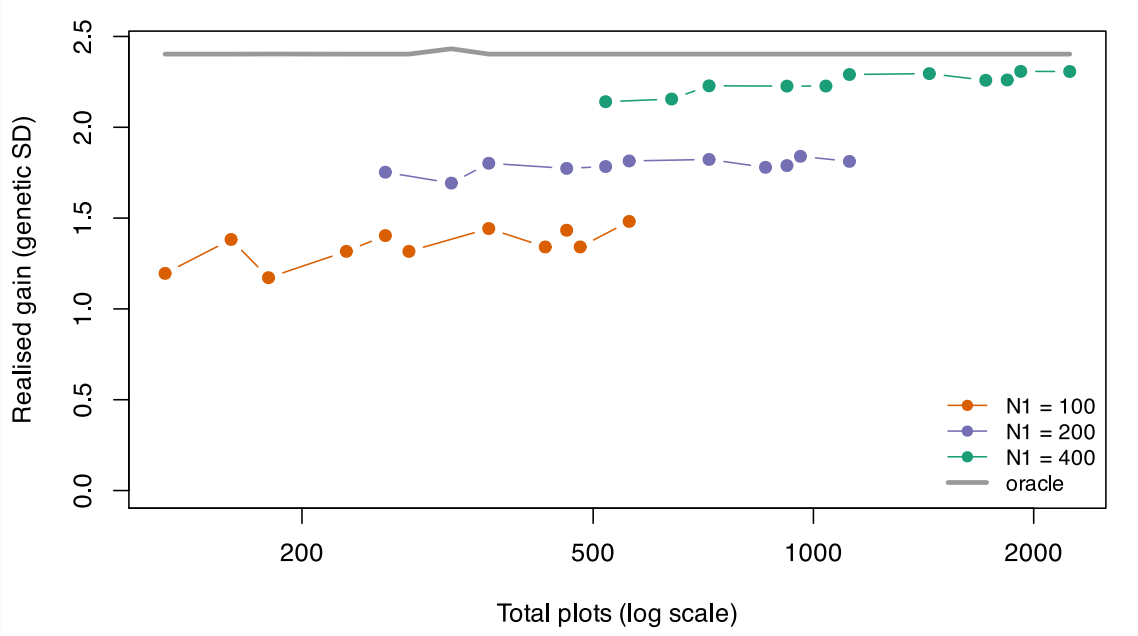

Figure 19.11: Realised gain (true value of the 10 hybrids finally selected, genetic SD units) against total plots, by the number of candidates tested in stage 1; mean over replicates and stage-2 settings at each budget. The grey line is the oracle that selects on the truth. Cached study.

With a fixed budget, **stage 1 should cover every candidate with few plots each, not a subset with many.** The best combinations among the cached settings used four stage-1 locations at 50 % sparsity, eight stage-2 locations, and kept the top 10 to 20 %.

19.11.3.7 Limitations of the simulation

The simulation has six limitations.

1. **One plot per cell.** SCA x location then has the same incidence as plot error, and the analysis model absorbs it into an i.i.d. residual that estimates $\sigma^2_{SCA\times L} + \sigma^2_e$. Equal incidence alone does not make the two inseparable: drawn with the kernel $\mathbf{A}_f \otimes \mathbf{A}_m$, as `sparse_simulate()` draws it, SCA x location is correlated between related crosses in one location and could be carried as a structured term; Section 20.2 measures what that buys in one configuration. Within-location replication was not simulated.
2. **G x E is full-rank and symmetric in the fast layer, and rank one in the genomic layer.** Neither layer has the factor-analytic structure of real trials or a crossover/non-crossover split [66], [131].
3. **The pools are symmetric and unselected.** There are no cycles of reciprocal recurrent selection, so the simulation says nothing about long-run pool trajectories (Chapter 23.) or about unbalanced pools.
4. **Cost is counted in plots, not money.** Opening a location costs more than adding plots to an existing one. The advice to spread plots assumes the marginal location is moderately priced (Section 18.7 has the cost structure).
5. **The grid is reduced.** It has at most 15 replicates per cell, no 200-hybrid level, and the high-SCA block run separately. The two-stage layer has 4 replicates and the genomic layer 8.
6. **Components are checked by mean bias only.** No per-replicate confidence intervals were computed.

19.12 Practical recommendations by stage

Stage 1 (first agronomic testcross trial).

- Give priority to the number of candidates and the number of locations in the trial. At fixed plots per hybrid, spread them over more locations, up to about six (result 2).
- Use 3 to 5 testers in sparse testcrossing, with full-sibs spread across testers.
- Use low partial replication (p-rep of 0.1 to 0.2), with checks replicated in every block.

- When plots per hybrid fall to one or two, use a layout that puts both pools in every location (results 3 and 4).
- The estimation target is GCA. Do not expect a reliable SCA at this stage (result 5).

Stage 2 (pre-commercial hybrids).

- Test fewer candidates, and raise replication and environmental coverage.
- Keep a common core large enough to estimate the between-environment genetic correlations.
- The estimation target is now specific performance and stability, so SCA and G x E matter.

Decisions that span both stages.

- Genotype the parents, not the hybrids.
- Check connectivity before planting (Box 4).
- Match the between-environment covariance to the amount of data. Do not force an unstructured matrix on a very sparse design.
- Advance on GBLUP rather than BLUE when heritability is low to moderate and locations are few [107], [111].

What not to do.

- Put everything in one location, however many candidates that allows. It gave the most variable gain in C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131], with replicates of negative gain.
- Use one tester at stage 1 when there is infrastructure for three.
- Transfer a sparsity percentage from another crop or programme without your own simulation.
- Fit a G x E term under extreme sparsity [133].

The right sparse design changes from stage to stage because the parameter of interest changes: GCA in stage 1, specific performance and stability in stage 2.

Box 6 – A checklist for designing a sparse trial

1. Define the TPE and the market segment.
2. Estimate the genetic correlations between candidate locations from historical data.
3. Fix the budget in plots.
4. Choose the axis of sparsity: environments, testers, or both.
5. Fix the number of testers.
6. Fix the partial-replication rate.
7. Choose the checks and how often they appear.
8. Generate the allocation by restricted randomisation or a formal criterion. Where plots per hybrid are fewest, keep both pools in every location.
9. Compute connectivity and the expected PEV before planting (Box 4).
10. Simulate the design with the programme's own parameters (`sparse_vc()`, `sparse_simulate()`, `sparse_blup()`).
11. Fix the analysis model and the covariance structure *a priori*.
12. Fix the decision metric and the cut-off *a priori*.

19.13 Limitations of the evidence, and perspectives

The authors of the primary studies declare their own limitations:

- Y. Li *et al.* [130]: a narrow genetic base and a single year.
- S. A. Atanda, V. Govindan, R. Singh, K. R. Robbins, J. Crossa, and A. R. Bentley [107]: no way to identify the optimal overlap, and families of 1 to 9.
- C. R. Werner, G. Covarrubias-Pazaran, D. Gonzalez-Dieguez, D. C. Gemenet, H. Gandhi, and G. N. Atlin [131]: no cost model, and no hybrid structure.
- N. Lubanga, B. E. Ifie, R. Persa, I. Dieng, I. Y. Rabbi, and D. Jarquin [132]: a training set that was not optimised.
- D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98]: no G x E, no epistasis, no diversity management, and the logistic cost ignored.
- A. Hild Aono and A. Chawade [133]: possible information leakage, and very similar environments.

As a research agenda, the open gaps are these.

- **SCA estimation, and prediction of specific hybrids, under sparsity.** This chapter's simulation shows the variance component is not recoverable at stage
  1. The accuracy of specific unseen crosses is still unmeasured.
- **A three-dimensional connectivity metric**, female x male x location. It would join Section 18.2.3 to Box 4. Section 20.4 defines a pair of counts for it.
- **The long-run effect on pool divergence and within-pool variance**, in interaction with optimum contribution selection (Chapter 23.; Chapter 15.; N. Santantonio and K. Robbins [162]).
- **Phenomics-assisted sparse testing in maize hybrids.**
- **Pools unequal in size and breeding level**, which is the usual commercial case.
- **Cost-accuracy frontiers in money**, including isolation blocks and hand pollination.
- **The rate of wrongly discarded candidates** as the evaluation metric, in place of the correlation.
- **Prospective empirical validation.** Almost all the evidence for sparse testing comes from resampling complete data or from simulation, not from trials designed sparse from the start [171], [172].

Sparse testing changes the stage-1 question. It is no longer "which genotypes can I evaluate well?". It becomes "which haplotypes can I evaluate well, and against what sample of the opposite pool?". The evidence is sufficient to adopt sparse designs at stage 1 with confidence. It is not sufficient to prescribe a universal sparsity level. That decision remains specific to each programme, and should be sized by the programme's own simulation.

19.14 Reproducibility and assumptions

`regenerate.R sparse` reruns the phenotypic core of the cached study with `R/17_sparse_testing.R`. The scale and calibration are the same: 20 x 20 hybrids, half-sib families of four, and 20 % of hybrids untested. There are two differences:

- the variance components are **known**, not estimated by REML;
- the parentage allocation's exchange search minimises the number of disconnected location pairs before the harmonic concurrence. The cached study's criterion returned $-\infty$ for any disconnected start, which left its search no gradient.

```
cr <- subset(core, part %in% c("spread", "k1"))
cr$cached <- mapply(function(L, k, s, h) {
  x <- s4$acc_all_mean[s4$nLoc == L & s4$k == k & s4$strategy == s & s4$h2_plot == h]
  if (length(x)) x[1] else NA
}, cr$nLoc, cr$k, cr$strategy, cr$h2_plot)
cr$cached_se <- mapply(function(L, k, s, h) {
  x <- s4$acc_all_se[s4$nLoc == L & s4$k == k & s4$strategy == s & s4$h2_plot == h]
  if (length(x)) x[1] else NA
}, cr$nLoc, cr$k, cr$strategy, cr$h2_plot)
cr$z <- (cr$acc_all - cr$cached) / sqrt(cr$acc_all_se^2 + cr$cached_se^2)
cr <- cr[order(cr$h2_plot, cr$k, cr$nLoc, cr$strategy), ]
knitr::kable(fmt(cr[, c("h2_plot", "nLoc", "k", "strategy", "acc_all", "cached",
"z", "b1")], 3),
             row.names = FALSE,
             col.names = c("Plot h2", "Locations", "k", "Strategy", "In-repo acc.",
"Cached acc.",
                           "z", "In-repo b1"))
dk <- tapply(cr$acc_all - cr$cached, cr$k, mean, na.rm = TRUE)
```

Table 19.8: In-repo sweep (known components, 30 replicates) against the cached study (REML, 15 replicates), on overall accuracy for 400 hybrids. z is the difference in standard errors of the difference.

Plot h2	Locations	k	Strategy	In-repo acc.	Cached acc.	z	In-repo b1
0.2	4	1	parentage	0.711	0.692	0.690	0.957
0.2	4	1	random	0.726	0.702	1.075	0.962
0.2	6	1	parentage	0.760	0.720	1.911	1.031
0.2	6	1	random	0.728	0.727	0.036	0.976
0.2	10	1	parentage	0.749	NA	NA	0.953
0.2	10	1	random	0.742	NA	NA	0.990
0.2	2	2	complete	0.773	0.733	1.741	1.019
0.2	4	2	parentage	0.814	0.781	1.821	1.015
0.2	4	2	random	0.822	0.762	4.064	1.009
0.2	6	2	parentage	0.816	0.811	0.297	0.999
0.2	6	2	random	0.807	0.816	−0.592	1.006
0.2	10	2	parentage	0.823	0.820	0.221	0.982
0.2	10	2	random	0.810	0.819	−0.473	1.004
0.4	4	1	parentage	0.845	0.808	2.189	1.032
0.4	4	1	random	0.830	0.817	0.603	0.999
0.4	6	1	parentage	0.841	0.844	−0.256	0.976
0.4	6	1	random	0.845	0.836	0.627	0.994
0.4	10	1	parentage	0.858	NA	NA	1.023
0.4	10	1	random	0.865	NA	NA	0.986
0.4	2	2	complete	0.818	0.831	−1.229	1.003
0.4	4	2	parentage	0.870	0.862	0.744	1.027
0.4	4	2	random	0.872	0.860	0.959	1.014
0.4	6	2	parentage	0.866	0.887	−1.997	1.005
0.4	6	2	random	0.864	0.883	−1.827	0.990
0.4	10	2	parentage	0.891	0.897	−0.801	1.021
0.4	10	2	random	0.887	0.892	−0.558	0.999

At $k = 2$ the mean difference is +0.006, and 1 of the 14 cells differs by more than two standard errors (the largest, 4.1); the gain from spreading the same plots over more locations reproduces. At $k = 1$ the known-component values are higher by +0.017 on average. That is the cost of estimating the components where REML mostly fails to converge (result 5). The in-repo dispersion slopes all sit near 1. The in-repo sweep does **not** resolve the parentage-versus-random difference at $k = 1$: its 30 unpaired replicates per cell have standard errors near 0.01, the same size as the effect. The paired contrast of Table 19.7, on 385 pairs, is the evidence for result 3.

The live functions are verified in `tests/testthat/test-sparse.R`:

- `sparse_blup()` equals the literal GLS form of `ref_sparse_blup()` to 10^{-8}, including untested hybrids, and so do its PEVs.
- Every allocation puts each hybrid in exactly k locations.
- The parentage design covers both pools in every location.
- The dispersion slope of the known-component BLUP averages 1.

The cached numbers carry the assumptions listed in the limitations of the simulation (Section 19.11.3). Treat them as reproducible findings of that configuration, not as constants.

19.15 Where this connects

- Chapter 18. chose *which crosses* to make. This chapter chose *where to plant them*, mostly with the whole factorial taken as given. Result 6 traded locations per candidate against a smaller stage-1 factorial at

equal plots; what it leaves is the version in which every line stays in the data and the unmade crosses are predicted, so that an extra location per hybrid costs a cross rather than a parent. Result 2 never varied the locations per hybrid; it held two plots per hybrid and widened the trial. The joint problem, Section 18.9′s second gap, is Chapter 20..

- The GCA/SCA decomposition and the tester-frequency argument behind Box 5 are derived in Section 5.11.
- The relationship matrices that make sparse designs analysable are those of

  3.
- The staged-trial trade-off of Chapter 22. is the line-breeding version of result 6.
- Spreading testers and parents to slow within-pool erosion is the same concern as Chapter 15. and Chapter 23.. Sparse testcrossing does by design what a diversity constraint does by optimisation.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **04f-sparse-testing.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

20. Which crosses, at which locations? Joint sparse allocation

Chapter 18. chose **which crosses** to make from two pools, with the field design held fixed. Chapter 19. chose **which locations** each hybrid goes to, with the whole factorial taken as given. A programme makes both decisions out of one budget, in the same season, and each changes what the other can do: a cross that is not made cannot be planted anywhere, and a cross planted in one location says nothing about the others except through its parents. This chapter treats the two as one decision.

The search reported in Section 20.3 found strong methods for each half but none that chooses the crosses and their locations together for a two-pool hybrid programme – an absence of evidence from one search, not a proof of absence. The nearest treatments optimise the crosses and leave the environments to the trial manager [173], [174], or optimise the environments for a fixed entry list [175], [176]. This is the second gap of Section 18.9, and it needs the female x male x location connectivity metric Section 19.13 asked for.

The results this chapter defends:

1. **At a fixed budget, distinct crosses beat locations per cross for predicting all hybrids.** Spending 160 plots as 160 crosses at one location each beat 80 at two, which beat 40 at four, in direction in every scenario simulated, by a margin that grows with the specific combining ability (SCA) variance; not every step is resolved (Section 20.5). For the crosses that were made the order of the extremes reverses (40 crosses at four locations against 160 at one), but not in every step: at $h^2 = 0.2$ and high SCA, 80 crosses at two locations do not beat 160 at one. The split of the budget is a statement about what will be selected.
2. **Allocation strategy is a second-order decision.** With the plan and the locations per cross fixed, a placement that keeps as much of both pools as possible in each location raises parent coverage substantially; its accuracy gain over random placement of the same plan, +0.006 correlation points on the point estimate, is not detected.
3. **The PEV criterion ranks plans, not placements.** The mean prediction error variance (PEV) of general combining ability (GCA), computable before planting, orders the budget splits much as accuracy does (Figure 20.2). An exchange search on it, stopped at 600 proposals before convergence, lowered PEV by a fraction of a percent and bought no detected accuracy pooled over all plans; within the tester family alone its gain passed two standard errors but not three, on four cells with one optimised design each.

> **i** Where the numbers come from
>
> Everything here is reproducible from this repository.
>
> - **Live** results run at render time with `R/18_joint_allocation.R`, which builds the allocation matrix of `R/17_sparse_testing.R` with zero rows for crosses that are not made, so the R/17 simulator, mixed-model solve and connectivity diagnostics take it unchanged.
> - **In-repo** results come from `Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R joint` (`joint_core_sweep.csv`, `joint_contrasts.csv`, `joint_optimiser.csv`; about 30 minutes of CPU in one unrecorded timing): 20 x 20 pools in half-sib families of four, eight locations, **known** variance components, 30 replicates per cell. Strategy comparisons are **paired**: within a replicate the designs share the plan and the true values.
>
> There is no cached external study behind this chapter, unlike Chapter 18. and Chapter 19..

20.1 Why the two decisions are one

Write n_F and n_M for the female and male lines – the pool-A and pool-B candidates, n_A and n_B, of Chapter 18. – n_c for the number of distinct crosses made, L for the locations, k for the number of locations each cross is planted in (as in Chapter 19.; not the testers per pool of Chapter 18., which appear in this chapter only in the label `tester k=2` of Figure 20.1), and r for plots per cross per location. The field budget is

$$B = n_c\, k\, r. \tag{20.1}$$

Chapter 18. varied n_c (through the crosses per line c, $n_c = c\, n_F$ for a circulant plan) at fixed k; Chapter 19. varied k and the layout at fixed $n_c = n_F n_M$. At $r = 1$, which is the stage-1 norm, fixing B ties the two together: halving the crosses doubles the locations each one can see. The nearest earlier look at this trade is result 6 of Section 19.11.3, which at equal plots compared testing every candidate at few locations against a smaller factorial at more, and found the first better. There the excluded candidates are a smaller factorial, so their parents leave the data, and a second stage with selection follows. Here every line stays in the data, the unmade crosses are predicted from it, and the comparison is of stage-1 accuracy alone. Result 1 (Section 20.5.1) points the same way as result 6.

The two terms buy different things. More crosses sample more of the factorial (in the circulant plans every line is in the data at every split; in the random sparse plans of Section 20.5 it is not, Section 20.4), which is what predicts the crosses never made (Section 18.6; A. Melchinger, R. Fernando, C. Stricker, C. Schön, and H. Auinger [104]). More locations per cross average that cross's genotype x location deviations, $(g^f\ell)$, $(g^m\ell)$ and $(s\ell)$ in Equation (20.2), over more environments, which is what sharpens the estimate of a cross that was made. That is the expectation under the model of Section 20.2, not a result of Chapter 19.: its result 2 held the locations per hybrid fixed while widening the trial (the difference from raising k is drawn in Section 20.5), and its result 6 measured selection after two stages, not the estimate of each made cross. A parent's GCA is averaged over the locations of all its crosses, which an allocation can widen without adding locations per cross. Which term matters more depends on the SCA:GCA variance ratio, the genotype x location share of the genetic variance and how well the relationship matrix links lines across families – the quantities a programme knows least about at stage 1.

20.2 The joint model

The model is Chapter 19.'s, unchanged:

$$y_{ijl} = \mu + \ell_l + g^f_i + g^m_j + s_{ij} + (g^f\ell)_{il} + (g^m\ell)_{jl} + (s\ell)_{ijl} + e_{ijl}, \tag{20.2}$$

where g^f_i, g^m_j and s_{ij} are the GCA^f_i, GCA^m_j and SCA_{ij} of Section 19.2 (the g^A_i, g^B_j and s_{ij} of Chapter 18., with the female pool as A; 2), ℓ_l is the fixed effect of location l, $g^f \sim N(\mathbf{0}, \mathbf{A}_f\sigma^2_f)$, $g^m \sim N(\mathbf{0}, \mathbf{A}_m\sigma^2_m)$, $s \sim N(\mathbf{0}, (\mathbf{A}_f \otimes \mathbf{A}_m)\sigma^2_s)$, and the three interactions with location carry the same kernels crossed with the identity $\mathbf{I}_L$ over locations: $(g^f\ell) \sim N(\mathbf{0}, (\mathbf{A}_f \otimes \mathbf{I}_L)\sigma^2_{f\ell})$, $(g^m\ell) \sim N(\mathbf{0}, (\mathbf{A}_m \otimes \mathbf{I}_L)\sigma^2_{m\ell})$, $(s\ell) \sim N(\mathbf{0}, (\mathbf{A}_f \otimes \mathbf{A}_m \otimes \mathbf{I}_L)\sigma^2_{s\ell})$, and $e_{ijl} \sim N(0, \sigma^2_e)$ i.i.d. In `sparse_vc()` these are `s2f`, `s2m`, `s2s`, `s2fl`, `s2ml`, `s2sl` and `s2e`. The target is the value in the target population of environments, $g^f_i + g^m_j + s_{ij}$.

One simplification is inherited from Chapter 19.. With one plot per cross per location, $(s\ell)_{ijl}$ and e_{ijl} have the same incidence, but the simulator draws $(s\ell)$ with the kernel of Equation (20.2), correlated between related crosses in one location, so a model could carry it as a structured term. The analysis model does not: it absorbs it into an i.i.d. residual of variance $\sigma^2_{s\ell} + \sigma^2_e$ (`vc$s2res`). The best linear unbiased prediction (BLUP) and every PEV below are therefore exact for the *analysis* model, not for the generating one. With known components the cost is measured directly, by a literal generalised least squares (GLS) solve that carries the structured kernel, in the configuration of Table 20.5 (Table 20.1).

```
# Literal GLS BLUP of the target g^f + g^m + s, with (s l) given the kernel
# Ksl over the hybrids within a location: A_f x A_m as simulated, or I as
# analysed. Circulant c = 4, 20 x 20 half-sib pools, 8 locations, k = 2,
# plot h2 = 0.4; 30 paired replicates per SCA level.
ms <- local({
  n <- 20; nLoc <- 8; A <- relmat_halfsib(n, 5); AA <- kronecker(A, A)
  pf <- rep(seq_len(n), each = n); pm <- rep(seq_len(n), n)    # male fastest
```

```
  set.seed(41)
  M <- joint_alloc(design_circulant(n, n, c = 4), n, n, nLoc, k = 2,
                   strategy = "coverage")
  gls <- function(ph, vc, Ksl) {
    f <- pf[ph$hyb]; m <- pm[ph$hyb]; h <- ph$hyb
    same <- outer(ph$loc, ph$loc, "==")
    V <- vc$s2f * A[f, f] + vc$s2m * A[m, m] + vc$s2s * AA[h, h] +
      same * (vc$s2fl * A[f, f] + vc$s2ml * A[m, m] + vc$s2sl * Ksl[h, h]) +
      diag(vc$s2e, nrow(ph))
    X <- model.matrix(~ factor(ph$loc)); Vi <- solve(V)
    b <- solve(crossprod(X, Vi %*% X), crossprod(X, Vi %*% ph$y))
    C <- vc$s2f * A[pf, f] + vc$s2m * A[pm, m] + vc$s2s * AA[, h]
    drop(C %*% Vi %*% (ph$y - X %*% b))
  }
  vapply(c(low = "low", high = "high"), function(sca) {
    vc <- sparse_vc(0.4, sca)
    set.seed(42)
    d <- vapply(seq_len(30), function(r) {
      s <- sparse_simulate(M, n, n, vc, A, A)
      mis <- gls(s$pheno, vc, diag(n * n))
      # The I-kernel GLS is the analysis model: it must equal sparse_blup().
      if (r == 1) stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(mis,
        sparse_blup(s$pheno, n, n, nLoc, vc, A, A)$blup, tolerance = 1e-8)))
      cor(gls(s$pheno, vc, AA), s$g_target) - cor(mis, s$g_target)
    }, 0)
    c(diff = mean(d), se = sd(d) / sqrt(length(d)))
  }, c(diff = 0, se = 0))
})
knitr::kable(data.frame(SCA = colnames(ms), fmt(t(ms), 6), row.names = NULL),
             col.names = c("SCA level", "Mean difference", "SE"))
```

Table 20.1: Accuracy over all 400 hybrids of the literal GLS BLUP with the simulated kernel $\mathbf{A}_f \otimes \mathbf{A}_m$ on $(s\ell)$ minus the same BLUP with the analysed kernel $\mathbf{I}$: mean paired difference in correlation between predicted and true genetic value, and its standard error, over 30 replicates. Circulant plan, 4 crosses per line, 20 x 20 pools in half-sib families of four, 8 locations, 2 locations per cross, coverage allocation, plot $h^2 = 0.4$, known components. Live.

SCA level	Mean difference	SE
low	−1.8e-05	1.9e-05
high	−5.7e-05	5.0e-05

Carrying the structured kernel changes accuracy over all hybrids by −0.00002 (SE 0.00002) at low SCA and −0.00006 (SE 0.00005) at high SCA: nothing detectable, because $\sigma^2_{s\ell}$ is a small share of the residual (5 % and 14 %) and half-sib relationships of 0.25 give the kernel off-diagonals of at most 0.25. The check covers one plan at $h^2 = 0.4$; stronger relationships or a larger $\sigma^2_{s\ell}$ would need it repeated.

What is new is only the incidence. A crossing plan $P \subset \{1..n_F\} \times \{1..n_M\}$ and an allocation give a 0/1 matrix M of size $n_F n_M \times L$ whose row is zero when $(i, j) \notin P$ and sums to k otherwise. The R/17 functions take such an M directly; unmade crosses are predicted through $\mathbf{A}_f$, $\mathbf{A}_m$ and the GCA they share with made crosses – the CV1 prediction of Section 19.4 (T2 of Section 18.6 when both parents are in made crosses), produced by the plan rather than by a mask.

```
p <- design_circulant(6, 6, c = 2)            # 12 of 36 possible crosses
set.seed(21)
M <- joint_alloc(p, 6, 6, nLoc = 3, k = 1, strategy = "coverage")
stopifnot(sum(M) == nrow(p) * 1, all(rowSums(M) %in% c(0, 1)))  # N_P = n_c k
c(crosses_made = sum(rowSums(M) > 0), plots = sum(M), per_location = colSums(M))
#>  crosses_made         plots per_location1 per_location2 per_location3
#>            12            12             4             4             4
```

20.3 What the literature offers

Two searches were run: in October 2026 the Consensus index (Semantic Scholar, OpenAlex, PubMed), Crossref and a general web search, reaching bioRxiv and the Crop Science / Plant Genome literature; on 20 October 2026, PubMed directly. Terms combined *sparse testing*, *multi-environment trial*, *allocation of genotypes / hybrids to environments*, *incomplete factorial*, *mating design*, *training set optimisation*, *CDmean*, *A-optimality* and *genetic relatedness*, with and without *hybrid* and *maize*, then genotype-based allocation (*stratified* or *representative* allocation, *population structure* in training-set and trial design, *anticlustering*). Nine families emerge (Table 20.2); none was built for the joint problem and each supplies a piece. The training-set optimisation tools of D. Akdemir, S. Rio, and J. Isidro y Sánchez [79] and J. Isidro y Sanchez and D. Akdemir [154] could in principle select genotype-environment pairs, but none of the papers found does so for a crossing plan.

```
lit <- data.frame(
  Approach = c("Model-based design with relatedness",
               "CD / PEV criteria for multi-environment trials",
               "Choosing hybrids to create and phenotype",
               "Entries against replication, with markers",
               "Allocation by incomplete-block principle",
               "Environment structure in allocation",
               "Sparse factorials and sparse testcrossing",
               "Representing structure in a training set",
               "Representing structure in every environment"),
   Optimises = c("Entry placement in plots and environments (A-optimality on the
mixed-model equations)",
                "Multi-environment design, forecast under a G x E model",
                "Which single crosses to make and phenotype",
                   "Progeny phenotyped against plots per progeny in a preliminary
yield trial",
                "Which lines go to which environment",
                   "Which environments to sample; replication and sparsity across
mega-environments",
                "Crosses per line, testers per family",
                  "Which candidates to phenotype: every subgroup or region of the
genetic space sampled, or the set targeted at a given test set",
               "Which members of each family go to each environment; partition into
equivalent groups"),
  `Held fixed` = c("The entry list", "The entry list", "The environments",
                   "The family", "The entry list", "The entry list",
                   "The environments", "The candidate set and the environments",
                   "The entry list"),
  Borrowed = c("The criterion (PEV of GCA)", "Reliability forecast before planting",
                "Search over a binary design of crosses; genotype-based choice of
training hybrids",
               "The budget split", "Balance of location loads",
               "Locations are not exchangeable", "Parent coverage, connectivity",
               "Stratified and uniform sampling of structure; targeting the set to
be predicted",
               "Equal subgroup shares and allele frequencies per location"),
  Refs = c("@butler2014; @cullis2020; @lisle2021", "@rio2022",
           "@heslot2020; @kadam2021; @guo2019", "@endelman2014",
         "@montesinoslopez2022ibd; @montesinoslopez2023; @montesinoslopez2023genes;
@montesinoslopez2024; @lell2021; @mothukuri2025",
           "@rincent2017; @gonzalezbarrios2019; @hoefler2026",
           "@seye2020; @lorenzi2022; @melchinger2023; @gonzalezdieguez2026",
              "@isidro2015; @bustoskorts2016; @berro2019; @ou2019; @akdemir2019;
@debeukelaer2018",
           "@atanda2021; @papenberg2021"),
  check.names = FALSE)
knitr::kable(lit, row.names = FALSE,
```

```
                col.names = c("Approach", "Optimises", "Held fixed", "Borrowed",
"References"))
```

Table 20.2: Current approaches, what each optimises, and what each holds fixed. The last column is the piece the joint problem borrows.

Approach	Optimises	Held fixed	Borrowed	References
Model-based design with relatedness	Entry placement in plots and environments (A-optimality on the mixed-model equations)	The entry list	The criterion (PEV of GCA)	D. G. Butler, A. B. Smith, and B. R. Cullis [177]; B. R. Cullis, A. B. Smith, N. A. Cocks, and D. G. Butler [175]; C. Lisle, A. B. Smith, C. Birrell, and B. R. Cullis [178]
CD / PEV criteria for multi-environment trials	Multi-environment design, forecast under a G x E model	The entry list	Reliability forecast before planting	S. Rio, D. Akdemir, T. Carvalho, and J. Isidro y Sánchez [179]
Choosing hybrids to create and phenotype	Which single crosses to make and phenotype	The environments	Search over a binary design of crosses; genotype-based choice of training hybrids	N. Heslot and V. Feoktistov [173]; D. C. Kadam, O. R. Rodriguez, and A. J. Lorenz [174]; T. Guo *et al.* [102]
Entries against replication, with markers	Progeny phenotyped against plots per progeny in a preliminary yield trial	The family	The budget split	J. B. Endelman *et al.* [111]
Allocation by incomplete-block principle	Which lines go to which environment	The entry list	Balance of location loads	O. A. Montesinos-López, A. Montesinos-López, R. Acosta, R. K. Varshney, A. Bentley, and J. Crossa [176]; O. A. Montesinos-López, B. A. Mosqueda-González, J. Salinas-Ruiz, A. Montesinos-López, and J. Crossa [108]; O. A. Montesinos-López *et al.* [180]; O. A. Montesinos-López *et al.* [181]; M. Lell, J. C. Reif, and Y. Zhao [182]; S. R. Mothukuri, Y. Beyene, M. Gültas, J. Burgueño, and S. Griebel [183]
Environment structure in allocation	Which environments to sample; replication and sparsity across mega-environments	The entry list	Locations are not exchangeable	R. Rincent *et al.* [167]; P. González-Barrios, L. Díaz-García, and L. Gutiérrez [184]; R. Hoefler and L. Gutierrez [185]
Sparse factorials and sparse testcrossing	Crosses per line, testers per family	The environments	Parent coverage, connectivity	A. Seye, C. Bauland, A. Charcosset, and L. Moreau [97]; A. Lorenzi *et al.* [103]; A. Melchinger, R. Fernando, C. Stricker, C. Schön, and H. Auinger [104]; D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98]
Representing structure in a training set	Which candidates to phenotype: every subgroup or region of the genetic space sampled, or the set targeted at a given test set	The candidate set and the environments	Stratified and uniform sampling of structure; targeting the set to be predicted	J. Isidro, J.-L. Jannink, D. Akdemir, J. Poland, N. Heslot, and M. E. Sorrells [186]; D. Bustos-Korts, M. Malosetti, S. Chapman, B. Biddulph, and F. van Eeuwijk [187]; I. Berro, B. Lado, R. S. Nalin, M. Quincke, and L. Gutiérrez [188]; J.-H. Ou and C.-T. Liao [189]; D. Akdemir and J. Isidro-Sánchez [190]; H. De Beukelaer, G. F. Davenport, and V. Fack [62]
Representing structure in every	Which members of each family go to each environment; partition into equivalent groups	The entry list	Equal subgroup shares and allele frequencies per location	S. A. Atanda *et al.* [106]; M. Papenberg and G. W. Klau [191]

Optimising the field for a given entry list (rows 1, 2, 5, 6) supplies the criterion. D. G. Butler, A. B. Smith, and B. R. Cullis [177] and B. R. Cullis, A. B. Smith, N. A. Cocks, and D. G. Butler [175] optimise the A-optimality of the predicted genetic effects under the mixed model that will analyse the trial, relationship matrix included, and beat designs built for unrelated entries in silico; C. Lisle, A. B. Smith, C. Birrell, and B. R. Cullis [178] diagnose whether a multi-environment design can estimate its variance parameters at all; S. Rio, D. Akdemir, T. Carvalho, and J. Isidro y Sánchez [179] extend CDmean, the mean coefficient of determination [100], to genotype x environment (G x E) models, so reliability can be forecast before planting. The criterion of this chapter is that framework restricted to GCA. Incomplete-block allocation of lines to locations beat random allocation by 1.4 to 26.5 % in mean squared error [176] and was best with random close behind [108]; two of four allocation methods were slightly better, with accuracy barely lower at a 15:85 training-testing split [180]; and at equal environments per line incomplete blocks performed better than random and were *less variable* [181] – the second a worst-case property a mean accuracy does not show. M. Lell, J. C. Reif, and Y. Zhao [182] (1,604 wheat hybrids) found equal subgroups in overlapping subsets of environments one promising design, with high accuracy and low variability; S. R. Mothukuri, Y. Beyene, M. Gültas, J. Burgueño, and S. Griebel [183] guided the split by relatedness to fully tested maize lines, with a weak correlation (0.20 to 0.31) between relatedness and accuracy. The overlap question is Section 19.6′s [105], [107], [132], [157]. Which environments to sample is a further choice: sets chosen with a crop-growth-model criterion estimated wheat phenology parameters better than random sets twice as large [167], a moderate mega-environmental allocation could potentially raise selection response by up to 43 % for the same resources [184], and R. Hoefler and L. Gutierrez [185] optimise its replication and sparsity by simulation. The locations here are exchangeable, which a real target population of environments is not.

Choosing entries and crosses for given environments (rows 3, 4, 7) supplies the search and the coverage logic. D. C. Kadam, O. R. Rodriguez, and A. J. Lorenz [174] report that optimising PEV or CDmean over *all possible* single crosses, not only those made, raised the *expected* prediction accuracy of the training set (a model forecast, not a realised accuracy) and conclude that it may be worthwhile; N. Heslot and V. Feoktistov [173], the closest methodological precedent, choose which maize hybrids to create and phenotype by mixed binary-integer differential evolution, extended to designing a connected population before crossing; T. Guo *et al.* [102] chose maize, wheat and rice hybrid training sets from the parents' genotypes, beating random and PEV- or CD-optimised sets with 2 to 13 % of the hybrids. J. B. Endelman *et al.* [111] asked the budget question within fixed biparental barley and maize families, choosing no cross: an unbalanced design over several locations predicted better than every entry in one, and up to 250 yield-plot equivalents per family the optimum did not genotype more progeny than were phenotyped (its relation to result 1 is in Section 20.5.1). Sparse factorials train hybrid prediction at least as well as tester designs, and fewer crosses per line favours the lines never crossed [97], [103], [104]. D. González-Diéguez, G. Atlin, Y. Beyene, D. Wegary, D. Gemenet, and C. Werner [98] instead spread three to five testers sparsely among full-sibs (sparse testcrossing), which beat a single tester at an equal number of testcrosses and was matched, not beaten, by an approximate incomplete factorial (Section 19.8). L. Thomsen *et al.* [101] is observational: sparse, unreplicated multi-environment data from a commercial winter oilseed rape hybrid programme, covering 1.67 % of mother x father combinations, which a GCA + SCA model still predicted (Section 18.4). D. L. Schoemaker, D. C. Lima, N. de Leon, and S. M. Kaeppler [192], trading testers against environments in maize, found three to five well-chosen environments match ten random ones – the closest empirical look at one corner of the joint budget.

Representing genetic structure (rows 8, 9) supplies the balancing objective. For training sets, stratified sampling suited strong structure (rice) and CDmean, or CDmean within subpopulations, mild structure [wheat, all traits but test weight and heading date; J. Isidro, J.-L. Jannink, D. Akdemir, J. Poland, N. Heslot, and M. E. Sorrells [186]]; uniform sampling of the genetic space beat stratified and random sampling and matched maximising CD in maize and wheat, with all methods alike in strongly structured rice [187]; and stratified sampling with a marker-effect-weighted relationship matrix was best for forward prediction [188]. J.-H. Ou and C.-T. Liao [189] derived a new optimality criterion from Pearson's correlation between the genomic estimated breeding values and the phenotypic values of a test set, under a ridge-regression whole-genome model, applicable to data with varying degrees of population structure; they illustrate it on rice (strong structure) and wheat (mild structure), implement it in the R package TSDFGS, and report it advantageous over existing methods. D. Akdemir and J. Isidro-Sánchez [190] compared targeted training sets, optimised using the genotypes of the test set, with untargeted ones, and found the targeted sets gave the highest accuracies. Core Hunter [62] selects subsets on allele-frequency and distance criteria. All of these choose which candidates to phenotype.

Representation *per environment* has one precedent. S. A. Atanda *et al.* [106] chose by CDmean which members of each full-sib family go to each environment, so that every biparental population is represented

everywhere (their CV2), against predicting new populations tested in some environments only (CV1). Accuracy was similar. Their case for CV2 is about the data (every family phenotyped everywhere, a complete historical record), and their gain from grouping environments by growing and management conditions is a finding about the environments. Nor is CV1 against CV2 a controlled test of representation: the two differ in what is predicted (new populations against the unphenotyped half of phenotyped families) as well as in how families are spread. The formal object behind balancing is k-means anticlustering [191], partitioning a set into groups of prescribed size that are as alike as possible.

Why balance at all is therefore this chapter's own inference, with no direct empirical test in either direction. Genomic prediction across a maize hybrid diversity panel came mostly from differences in mean between breeding populations [predicting each from the others gave 0.12 for grain yield; V. S. Windhausen *et al.* [193]], so subgroup means are much of what is predicted. Under the model of Section 20.2, with fixed location effects and a connected design, concentrating one subgroup's crosses in a few locations does not bias the BLUP of its mean; it inflates the PEV of contrasts between subgroups, which pass through the effects of locations they do not share. Bias needs a systematic subgroup x location interaction the analysis model does not carry: the GCA x location terms, correlated within a family through A_f, carry a *random* family x location interaction with mean zero, not a systematic one. Against the presumption, J. Fernandez-Gonzalez, D. Akdemir, and J. Isidro y Sanchez [155] found in a benchmark of training-set optimisers that a diverse training set made prediction robust to structure and clustering information was less effective. None of these papers allocates a crossing plan.

The gap is therefore precise. The criteria (PEV and CD with relatedness) and the search methods (exchange algorithms, differential evolution) exist, and each half has been optimised separately. Missing is the object that holds the crossing plan and the allocation under one budget, and evidence on how to split it.

20.4 Design criteria computable before planting

Two quantities can be read off M before a seed is sown.

The mean PEV of GCA. The left-hand side of the mixed-model equations depends on the design alone, so the prediction error variance of every GCA effect is known before any phenotype exists. `joint_pev()` returns its mean over the $n_F + n_M$ GCA effects, the trace of the GCA block of the inverted coefficient matrix divided by its order, exact for the analysis model of Section 20.2 with known components. It is an A-type criterion on the effects themselves, not the mean PEV of pairwise differences between effects used as the A-value in model-based design [177]; the two differ by the covariance terms and need not rank designs identically. Table 20.4 shows it ranking allocations of one plan. It is blind to SCA and to the difference between predicting made and unmade crosses.

Two component counts. A single graph with females, males and locations as nodes is the obvious female x male x location metric, and it is wrong: a location node joins every parent planted there, so at one location it reports one component for any plan, two disconnected North Carolina design II (NC II) blocks included. A shared location links only *sums* of GCA. `joint_connectivity()` therefore returns two counts alongside the R/17 diagnostics:

- `n_comp_cross`, the components of the female x male graph of the crosses that receive a plot, pooled over locations. At one location it is exactly the bipartite count of Section 18.2.3.
- `n_comp_loc`, the components of the location graph in which two locations are joined when they share a parent.

Both equal to 1 is *necessary* for GCA and location contrasts to be linked by data, and the pair is not two independent conditions: if every location receives a plot, `n_comp_cross = 1` implies `n_comp_loc = 1`. Locations split into two sets sharing no parent would put each planted cross wholly in one set, disconnecting the cross graph. So `n_comp_loc` adds information only when `n_comp_cross > 1` or a location is empty. Neither count is sufficient, and the pair does not detect confounding of GCA with location. With 2 x 2 pools, two locations and $k = 1$, the crosses (1,1) and (1,2) at location 1 and (2,1) and (2,2) at location 2 give `n_comp_cross = 1` and `n_comp_loc = 1`, yet the female contrast is the location contrast: the fixed-effects matrix of location, female and male is rank-deficient by one (Table 20.3). A check that would detect this is the rank of that matrix over the planted plots; `joint_connectivity()` does not compute it. The two counts are therefore a screen, not the female x male x location metric Section 19.13 asked for, which remains open.

```
pix <- list(f = rep(1:2, each = 2), m = rep(1:2, 2))  # male fastest, as in R/17
Ma <- cbind(loc1 = as.integer(pix$f == 1), loc2 = as.integer(pix$f == 2))
cn <- joint_connectivity(Ma, 2, 2)
cells <- which(Ma == 1L, arr.ind = TRUE)
Xa <- model.matrix(~ loc + f + m,
                   data.frame(loc = factor(cells[, 2]), f = factor(pix$f[cells[, 1]]),
                              m = factor(pix$m[cells[, 1]])))
rk <- qr(Xa)$rank
stopifnot(cn[["n_comp_cross"]] == 1, cn[["n_comp_loc"]] == 1, rk == ncol(Xa) - 1)
knitr::kable(data.frame(female = pix$f, male = pix$m, Ma), row.names = FALSE,
             col.names = c("Female", "Male", "Location 1", "Location 2"))
```

Table 20.3: Connected by both counts, yet the female GCA contrast is aliased with the location contrast. 2 x 2 pools, two locations, one location per cross. Live.

Female	Male	Location 1	Location 2
1	1	1	0
1	2	1	0
2	1	0	1
2	2	0	1

The chunk asserts both counts equal to 1 and a rank of 3 for 4 columns.

```
# Share of random sparse plans (20 x 20) with at least one uncrossed line.
uncrossed <- function(p, n) {
  any(tabulate(p[["parent1"]], n) == 0 | tabulate(p[["parent2"]], n) == 0)
}
n_unc <- 20000
unc <- c(c4 = NA, c8 = NA)
set.seed(21)
unc[["c4"]] <- mean(replicate(n_unc, uncrossed(design_random_sparse(20, 20, c = 4),
20)))
set.seed(22)
unc[["c8"]] <- mean(replicate(n_unc, uncrossed(design_random_sparse(20, 20, c = 8),
20)))
# A c = 4 plan with an uncrossed line passes both counts.
set.seed(23)
repeat {
  pu <- design_random_sparse(20, 20, c = 4)
  du <- design_diagnostics(pu, 20, 20)
  if (uncrossed(pu, 20) && du[["components"]] == 1) break
}
cn_u <- joint_connectivity(joint_alloc(pu, 20, 20, nLoc = 8, k = 2, strategy =
"coverage"),
                           20, 20)
stopifnot(cn_u[["n_comp_cross"]]    ==    1,    cn_u[["n_comp_loc"]]    ==    1,    !
du[["connected"]])
```

Neither count sees a line that receives no cross. `design_random_sparse()` draws round$(c\,n_F)$ cells of the factorial without a per-line guarantee, so a line can go uncrossed; `design_components()` labels it unused and both counts are taken over the lines in use. In 2^{4} random sparse plans on the 20 x 20 pools of Section 20.5, the share with at least one uncrossed line was 0.348 at 4 crosses per line and 0.001 at 8. One c = 4 plan with an uncrossed line, allocated by coverage to eight locations at two per cross, returns `n_comp_cross` = 1 and `n_comp_loc` = 1. `design_diagnostics()` flags it (`connected` is `FALSE` because `lines_A` or `lines_B` falls short of the pool). Within the random family, therefore, moving from 8 to 4 crosses per line changes the number of lines in the data as well as the split, and the two random configurations of Section 20.5 do not isolate the split; the circulant plans, which cross every line c times, do.

```
set.seed(11)
vc <- sparse_vc(0.3); A <- relmat_halfsib(10, 2)
p <- design_circulant(10, 10, c = 3)
live <- do.call(rbind, lapply(names(strat_col), function(s) {
  M <- joint_alloc(p, 10, 10, nLoc = 4, k = 2, strategy = s, vc = vc,
                   Af = A, Am = A, n_iter = 100)
  cn <- joint_connectivity(M, 10, 10)
  data.frame(strategy = s, plots = sum(M), pev_gca = joint_pev(M, 10, 10, vc, A, A),
             fem_cover = cn$fem_cover, male_cover = cn$male_cover,
             n_comp_cross = cn$n_comp_cross, n_comp_loc = cn$n_comp_loc)
}))
knitr::kable(fmt(live, 4), row.names = FALSE,
             col.names = c("Strategy", "Plots", "Mean PEV of GCA", "Female coverage",
                           "Male coverage", "`n_comp_cross`", "`n_comp_loc`"))
```

Table 20.4: One crossing plan (circulant, 3 crosses per line, 10 x 10 pools in half-sib families of five), three allocations over 4 locations at 2 locations per cross; plot $h^2 = 0.3$, low SCA, known components, one allocation per strategy. Mean PEV of GCA (lower is better), share of each pool present per location, and the two component counts. Live.

Strategy	Plots	Mean PEV of GCA	Female coverage	Male coverage	n_comp_cross	n_comp_loc
random	60	0.6405	0.85	0.8	1	1
coverage	60	0.6341	1.00	1.0	1	1
opti-mised	60	0.6325	1.00	1.0	1	1

20.4.1 Allele frequencies per location

Neither criterion of Section 20.4 reads a genotype. A plan can be connected and low in PEV and still send most crosses of one subgroup to a few locations, which costs precision in subgroup contrasts, or bias under a subgroup x location interaction the model omits (Section 20.3 gives the argument and the evidence on both sides). The quantity that sees the imbalance is computed from the hybrids' marker genotypes, and its algebra is exact.

The decomposition. Let $\mathbf{X}_P$ be the hybrid marker matrix of the planted plots: one row $\mathbf{x}_u$ per plot u (a cross planted at k locations appears k times) and N_{SNP} markers coded 0/0.5/1 as everywhere in this book (the symbol of Section 10.3.2, since m marks the male pool). It has $N_P = n_c k r$ rows, the budget in plots. Write n_l for the plots at location l, $\bar{\mathbf{p}}_l$ for their allele frequencies (column means) and $\bar{\mathbf{p}}$ for those of all planted plots. Summing the one-way analysis-of-variance identity over markers,

$$\sum_u \|\mathbf{x}_u - \bar{\mathbf{p}}\|^2 = \sum_l \sum_{u \in l} \|\mathbf{x}_u - \bar{\mathbf{p}}_l\|^2 + SS_B, \qquad SS_B = \sum_l n_l \|\bar{\mathbf{p}}_l - \bar{\mathbf{p}}\|^2, \tag{20.3}$$

with SS_B the between-location sum of squares, summed over markers.

The plan and k fix the rows of $\mathbf{X}_P$, hence the left-hand side; an allocation only decides which location each row goes to. Minimising SS_B is therefore maximising the within-location sum, the k-means objective, which is what M. Papenberg and G. W. Klau [191] call k-means anticlustering: groups of prescribed size (which carries the loads n_l) made as alike as possible. What their formulation does not carry is the item structure: here each cross enters as exactly k copies that must go to k different locations, whereas anticlustering assigns every item once and independently.

On $\mathbf{X}_P$, $SS_B/(N_P N_{SNP})$ is the plot-weighted mean squared deviation of a location's allele frequencies from the pooled ones. On a 0/1 matrix $\mathbf{Z}$ with one column per subgroup (a family, a heterotic subgroup, a female-family x male-family class) the column means are subgroup shares, and minimising SS_B equalises them. The two objectives differ; Table 20.5 measures both.

The diversity lens. The gene diversity of location l's plots, $GD_l = 1 - \theta_l$ over the molecular coancestry of Section 2.3, is $\frac{1}{N_{SNP}} \sum_v 2\bar{p}_{lv}(1 - \bar{p}_{lv})$ over markers v, Nei's gene diversity at the location's frequencies (Section 11.2; M. Nei [9]). Because $2p(1-p)$ is quadratic in p, the decomposition carries over exactly:

$$\sum_l \frac{n_l}{N_P} GD_l = GD_P - \frac{2\,SS_B}{N_P\,N_{SNP}}, \tag{20.4}$$

with GD_P the gene diversity of all planted plots. Take the locations as the subpopulations of Chapter 3. and weight them, as that chapter weights the subpopulations of A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10], by their share $N_i/N_T = n_l/N_P$ of the plots. Then GD_P is $GD_T = 1 - \bar{f}$, the left-hand side is $GD_{WS} = 1 - \tilde{f}$, and

$$\frac{2\,SS_B}{N_P\,N_{SNP}} = GD_{BS} = \tilde{f} - \bar{f} \tag{20.5}$$

exactly, for any loads; it is also the $\bar{D}$ in Chapter 3.'s F_{ST}, and Nei's $D_{ST} = H_T - H_S$ [9] with H_S the plot-weighted mean of the location diversities (the plain mean under equal loads). SS_B differs from all of these only by the factor $N_P N_{SNP}/2$. Between heterotic pools this component is the heterosis engine, to be preserved; between the locations of one trial it is a nuisance, to be minimised.

The base. SS_B is centred on $\bar{\mathbf{p}}$, the planted set's own frequencies, not on a frozen base $\mathbf{p}_0$ (Section 10.7.1). Against $\mathbf{p}_0$ – here the frequencies of the complete factorial of candidate lines –

$$\sum_l n_l \|\bar{\mathbf{p}}_l - \mathbf{p}_0\|^2 = SS_B + N_P \|\bar{\mathbf{p}} - \mathbf{p}_0\|^2, \tag{20.6}$$

and the second term is fixed by the crossing plan, so with the plan fixed the two bases rank allocations identically. That term is the plan's departure from the pool in the *drift* lens: $\|\bar{\mathbf{p}} - \mathbf{p}_0\|^2$ is the numerator of F_{drift} (Section 10.7.2; T. H. E. Meuwissen, A. K. Sonesson, G. Gebregiwergis, and J. A. Woolliams [15]) before each marker is standardised by $p_0(1-p_0)$, with the planted set in the place of cycle t. It is not a loss of gene diversity, which the book keeps in the other lens: per marker $GD(p_0) - GD(\bar{p}) = 2(p_0 - \bar{p})(1 - p_0 - \bar{p})$, whose sign depends on which side of $1/2$ the two frequencies sit. SS_B belongs to the allocation, the drift term to the crossing plan (Section 18.11).

Table 20.5 computes all of this for one plan at the scale of the sweep of Section 20.5, under four allocations: random; coverage; an exchange search that swaps two plots between locations when SS_B falls (loads and k unchanged); and the same search on $[\mathbf{X}_P, w\mathbf{Z}]$, the markers with the female-family x male-family indicators appended and w set so that both blocks carry the same total sum of squares over the planted plots. Rows: `between_pct`, $100\,SS_B$ over the marker sum of squares; `rms_dp`, $\sqrt{SS_B/(N_P N_{SNP})}$; `gd_short_pct`, the shortfall of the plot-weighted mean GD_l from GD_P, in % of GD_P; `groups_between_pct`, `between_pct` on $\mathbf{Z}$; `families` and `family_pairs`, the share of each pool's parent families, and of the plan's family classes, present per location; `fem_cover` and `pev_gca` as in Table 20.4. The chunk asserts the decomposition (Equation (20.3)), the GD identity (Equation (20.4)) on $\mathbf{f}$ and $GD_{BS} = 2\,SS_B/(N_P N_{SNP})$ (Equation (20.5)) for every allocation, and the change of base (Equation (20.6)), which has power only on the random sparse plan checked after the table (a circulant plan uses every line equally often, so its drift term is zero). No accuracy is computed.

```
nF <- 20; nM <- 20; nLoc <- 8; nfam <- 5; n_snp <- 500
fam <- rep(seq_len(nfam), each = nF / nfam)
# A DH line carries its family's common parent at each marker with probability
# 1/2, else an unrelated gamete; a hybrid is the mean of its two parents (0/0.5/1).
dh_pool <- function(q) {
  par <- matrix(rbinom(nfam * n_snp, 1, rep(q, each = nfam)), nfam)
  ifelse(matrix(runif(nF * n_snp) < 0.5, nF), par[fam, ],
         matrix(rbinom(nF * n_snp, 1, rep(q, each = nF)), nF))
}
set.seed(31)
U <- dh_pool(runif(n_snp, 0.1, 0.9)); V <- dh_pool(runif(n_snp, 0.1, 0.9))
pix <- list(f = rep(seq_len(nF), each = nM), m = rep(seq_len(nM), nF))  # male fastest
Xh <- (U[pix$f, ] + V[pix$m, ]) / 2
p0 <- colMeans(Xh)                          # frozen base: the complete factorial
pl <- design_circulant(nF, nM, c = 4)
A <- relmat_halfsib(nF, nfam); vc <- sparse_vc(0.3)
ss <- function(Z) sum(sweep(Z, 2, colMeans(Z))^2)
between <- function(Z, g) {           # SS_B for the rows of Z grouped by location g
  n <- tabulate(g, nLoc)
```

```
  sum(n * rowSums(sweep(rowsum(Z, g) / n, 2, colMeans(Z))^2))
}
freq_terms <- function(M) {
  cl <- which(M == 1L, arr.ind = TRUE); X <- Xh[cl[, 1], ]; g <- cl[, 2]
  n <- tabulate(g, nLoc); NP <- nrow(X); SSB <- between(X, g)
  W <- sum(vapply(split(seq_len(NP), g), function(r) ss(X[r, , drop = FALSE]), 0))
  stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(ss(X), W + SSB, tolerance = 1e-12)))
  # Plot-weighted mean GD_l = GD_P - 2 SS_B / (N_P N_SNP), computed on f itself.
  f <- molecular_coancestry(X)
  fll <- vapply(seq_len(nLoc), function(l) vapply(seq_len(nLoc), function(j)
   mean(f[g == l, g == j]), 0), numeric(nLoc))   # mean coancestry between locations
  gd_l <- 1 - diag(fll); gd_P <- 1 - mean(f); w <- n / NP
  stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(sum(w * gd_l), gd_P - 2 * SSB / (NP * n_snp))))
  # Caballero & Toro (2002) with weights N_i / N_T = n_l / N_P: GD_BS = f_til -
  # f_bar = D_bar (mean Nei distance) = 2 SS_B / (N_P N_SNP), for any loads.
  Dij <- outer(diag(fll), diag(fll), "+") / 2 - fll
  stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(sum(w * diag(fll)) - mean(f), 2 * SSB / (NP * n_snp))),
            isTRUE(all.equal(drop(w %*% Dij %*% w), 2 * SSB / (NP * n_snp))))
  # Change of base to p0: the extra term depends on the plan, not the allocation.
  SSB0 <- sum(n * rowSums(sweep(rowsum(X, g) / n, 2, p0)^2))
  stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(SSB0, SSB + NP * sum((colMeans(X) - p0)^2))))
  gp <- paste(fam[pix$f[cl[, 1]]], fam[pix$m[cl[, 1]]])
  nu <- function(z) mean(tapply(z, g, function(v) length(unique(v))))
  c(between_pct = 100 * SSB / ss(X), rms_dp = sqrt(SSB / (NP * n_snp)),
    gd_short_pct = 100 * 2 * SSB / (NP * n_snp) / gd_P,
    groups_between_pct = 100 * between(model.matrix(~ gp - 1), g) /
      ss(model.matrix(~ gp - 1)),
    families = (nu(fam[pix$f[cl[, 1]]]) + nu(fam[pix$m[cl[, 1]]])) / (2 * nfam),
    family_pairs = nu(gp) / length(unique(gp)),
    fem_cover = joint_connectivity(M, nF, nM)$fem_cover,
    pev_gca = joint_pev(M, nF, nM, vc, A, A))
}
# Swap the locations of two plots when SS_B of Y falls: loads and k fixed.
# Y has one row per hybrid, as Xh; Y = Xh balances marker frequencies.
freq_balance <- function(M, Y, n_iter = 5000) {
  cl <- which(M == 1L, arr.ind = TRUE)
  S <- rowsum(Y[cl[, 1], , drop = FALSE], cl[, 2]); n <- colSums(M)
  for (it in seq_len(n_iter)) {
    i <- sample.int(nrow(cl), 2); x <- cl[i[1], 1]; y <- cl[i[2], 1]
    a <- cl[i[1], 2]; b <- cl[i[2], 2]
    if (a == b || M[x, b] == 1L || M[y, a] == 1L) next
    d <- Y[y, ] - Y[x, ]
     if (sum((S[a, ] + d)^2 - S[a, ]^2) / n[a] + sum((S[b, ] - d)^2 - S[b, ]^2) /
n[b] < 0) {
      S[a, ] <- S[a, ] + d; S[b, ] <- S[b, ] - d
      M[x, c(a, b)] <- c(0L, 1L); M[y, c(b, a)] <- c(0L, 1L)
      cl[i, 2] <- c(b, a)
    }
  }
  M
}
# Family-class indicators Z (one column per female-family x male-family class),
# weighted so that Z and the markers carry the same total SS over the planted
# plots (fixed by the plan and k, whatever the allocation).
Zh <- model.matrix(~ factor(paste(fam[pix$f], fam[pix$m])) - 1)
rP <- rep((pl$parent1 - 1) * nM + pl$parent2, 2)        # planted rows, k = 2
wZ <- sqrt(ss(Xh[rP, ]) / ss(Zh[rP, ]))
set.seed(32)
fr_a <- replicate(5, {
  Mc <- joint_alloc(pl, nF, nM, nLoc, k = 2, strategy = "coverage")
  stopifnot(sum(Mc) == 2 * nrow(pl))                # N_P = n_c k, used as NP below
```

```
  sapply(list(random = joint_alloc(pl, nF, nM, nLoc, k = 2, strategy = "random"),
              coverage = Mc, freq_balanced = freq_balance(Mc, Xh),
              freq_family_balanced = freq_balance(Mc, cbind(Xh, wZ * Zh))),
         freq_terms)
})
fr <- data.frame(strategy = dimnames(fr_a)[[2]], t(apply(fr_a, 1:2, mean)), row.names
= NULL)
knitr::kable(fmt(apply(fr_a, 1:2, mean), 4))   # = t(fr): metrics as rows
```

Table 20.5: Allele-frequency balance across locations for one crossing plan (circulant, 4 crosses per line, 20 x 20 pools in half-sib families of four, 8 locations, 2 locations per cross, 160 plots, 500 markers) under four allocations (columns). Rows are defined in Section 20.4.1. Mean of five allocations, one simulated marker set. Live.

	random	coverage	freq_balanced	freq_family_balanced
between_pct	3.9747	1.0758	0.5469	1.2609
rms_dp	0.0598	0.0311	0.0222	0.0337
gd_short_pct	1.6565	0.4484	0.2279	0.5255
groups_between_pct	4.1175	3.6476	3.9739	0.9462
families	0.9850	1.0000	1.0000	1.0000
family_pairs	0.5720	0.6050	0.5840	0.7900
fem_cover	0.6850	0.8912	0.9400	0.8600
pev_gca	0.5039	0.4938	0.4921	0.4950

Result. Over five allocations of the same plan, the between-location share of the marker sum of squares is 3.97 % (SD 0.30) under random placement, 1.08 % (SD 0.10) under the coverage rule, 0.55 % (SD 0.04) after the exchange search on markers and 1.26 % after the search on markers and family classes ($w = 6.86$); a random partition of the same plots into eight locations, ignoring that the copies of a cross must be apart, gives $(L-1)/(N_P-1) = 4.40$ % in expectation. The mean location falls short of GD_P by 1.66 %, 0.45 %, 0.23 % and 0.53 %. The share of each pool's parent families present per location is 0.985 to 1.000 under every strategy. Female-family x male-family classes are present at 0.57 to 0.60 per location under the first three strategies, with a between-location share (`groups_between_pct`) of 3.6 to 4.1 %, and at 0.79, share 0.9 %, under the fourth, against a ceiling of 0.80 (20 plots per location for 25 classes). Female coverage is 0.891 under the coverage rule and 0.860 under the fourth strategy; mean PEV of GCA is 0.504, 0.494, 0.492 and 0.495. On a random sparse plan with the same mean of four crosses per line, whose lines enter 1 to 8 crosses, the drift term $N_P\|\bar{\mathbf{p}} - \mathbf{p}_0\|^2$ is 23.6 % of the $\mathbf{p}_0$-centred sum, F_{drift} of the planted set is 0.0043, the change of base holds, and the planted set's gene diversity is above that of $\mathbf{p}_0$ at 42 % of markers and below it at the rest.

Interpretation. Balancing parents per location balances their alleles: the coverage rule removes most of the frequency imbalance, and the marker search a further 49 % of what remains, at no cost in PEV of GCA here. Marker balance harmonises allele frequencies but not subgroup shares: under it the family classes stay at the level of random placement. Putting the class indicators into the criterion raises class presence from 0.60 at its coverage start to 0.79, close to the 0.80 ceiling, and pays for it in the marker term (1.26 % against 0.55 % for the marker-only search), in female coverage and a little in PEV – a trade-off set by w, which was fixed by the equal-sum-of-squares rule, not tuned. Family presence barely separates the strategies, because half-sib families reach nearly every location under any of them. The limits, which hold wherever this section is used later: the search is first-improvement over 5,000 random pair swaps with no convergence test, so its rows bound what 5,000 proposals buy, not the minimum of SS_B; one plan at one scale was examined; and no accuracy was computed, so whether a smaller SS_B on either block improves prediction, or protects subgroup contrasts against a subgroup x location interaction, is untested (Section 20.7).

The share needs no package function. For a 0/1 plan `M` (one row per hybrid, one column per location, as `joint_alloc()` returns) and a hybrid marker matrix `X` in the same row order it is three lines of base R; with `X` replaced by 0/1 subgroup indicators it gives `groups_between_pct`. On the random sparse plan above, checked against the chunk's own `between()`:

```
M <- M_r; X <- Xh
cl <- which(M == 1L, arr.ind = TRUE); XP <- X[cl[, 1], , drop = FALSE]; g <- cl[, 2]
SSB <- sum(table(g) * rowSums(sweep(rowsum(XP, g) / c(table(g)), 2, colMeans(XP))^2))
100 * SSB / sum(sweep(XP, 2, colMeans(XP))^2)   # between-location share, %
#> [1] 3.332507
stopifnot(isTRUE(all.equal(SSB, between(XP, g))))
```

20.5 What the simulation finds

The sweep crosses six configurations that all spend 160 plots (the tester design 152) – circulant plans with 8, 4 and 2 crosses per line at 1, 2 and 4 locations per cross, random sparse plans with 8 and 4, and a two-tester design at two locations – with the allocation strategies, two plot heritabilities and two SCA levels (`sparse_vc()`: SCA a quarter of, or equal to, a GCA variance; genotype x location half of each main effect, so a genetic correlation of 2/3 between locations). Pools are 20 x 20 in half-sib families of four; eight locations; 30 replicates per cell (Figure 20.1).

Comparisons between strategies are paired; those between configurations are not. Within one configuration and scenario each replicate draws one plan, `random` and `coverage` allocate it, and both are simulated from the same seed, so they share the true genetic values (`sparse_simulate()` draws every effect before it looks at the allocation). Each configuration draws its own seeds, so the budget-split comparisons of result 1 are between independent cells, with both cells' standard errors combined. The exchange search is too slow to repeat per replicate: per cell one plan gets a coverage allocation (`start`) and a search from it, and those two fixed designs are simulated in every replicate with the same seed, pairing `optimised` with its own start.

The evidence bar. A difference is *detected* past two standard errors of the difference. Chapter 18. calls a difference resolved only past three; a quantity between two and three is flagged where it appears.

20.5.1 1. The budget split: crosses against locations

```
lev <- c("circulant c=8, 1 loc", "circulant c=4, 2 loc", "circulant c=2, 4 loc",
         "random c=8, 1 loc", "random c=4, 2 loc", "tester k=2, 2 loc")
op <- par(mfrow = c(2, 2), mar = c(7.5, 4, 2, 0.5), mgp = c(2.4, 0.7, 0))
for (sc in c("low", "high")) for (h in c(0.2, 0.4)) {
  d <- js[js$sca == sc & js$h2_plot == h, ]
  plot(NA, xlim = c(0.5, length(lev) + 0.5),
       ylim = range(js$acc_all - 2 * js$acc_all_se, js$acc_all + 2 * js$acc_all_se),
       xaxt = "n", xlab = "", ylab = "Accuracy, all hybrids",
       main = bquote(italic(h)^2 == .(h) * ", " * .(sc) ~ "SCA"), cex.main = 0.95,
       font.main = 1)
  axis(1, at = seq_along(lev), labels = lev, las = 2, cex.axis = 0.75)
  title(xlab = "Configuration", line = 6.3)
  for (j in seq_along(strat_col)) {
    e <- d[d$strategy == names(strat_col)[j], ]
    x <- match(e$label, lev) + (j - 2) * 0.2
    arrows(x, e$acc_all - 2 * e$acc_all_se, x, e$acc_all + 2 * e$acc_all_se,
           angle = 90, code = 3, length = 0.02, col = strat_col[j])
    points(x, e$acc_all, pch = 19, col = strat_col[j])
  }
  if (sc == "high" && h == 0.2)
    legend("topright", legend = names(strat_col), col = strat_col, pch = 19,
           bty = "n", cex = 0.8)
}
par(op)
```

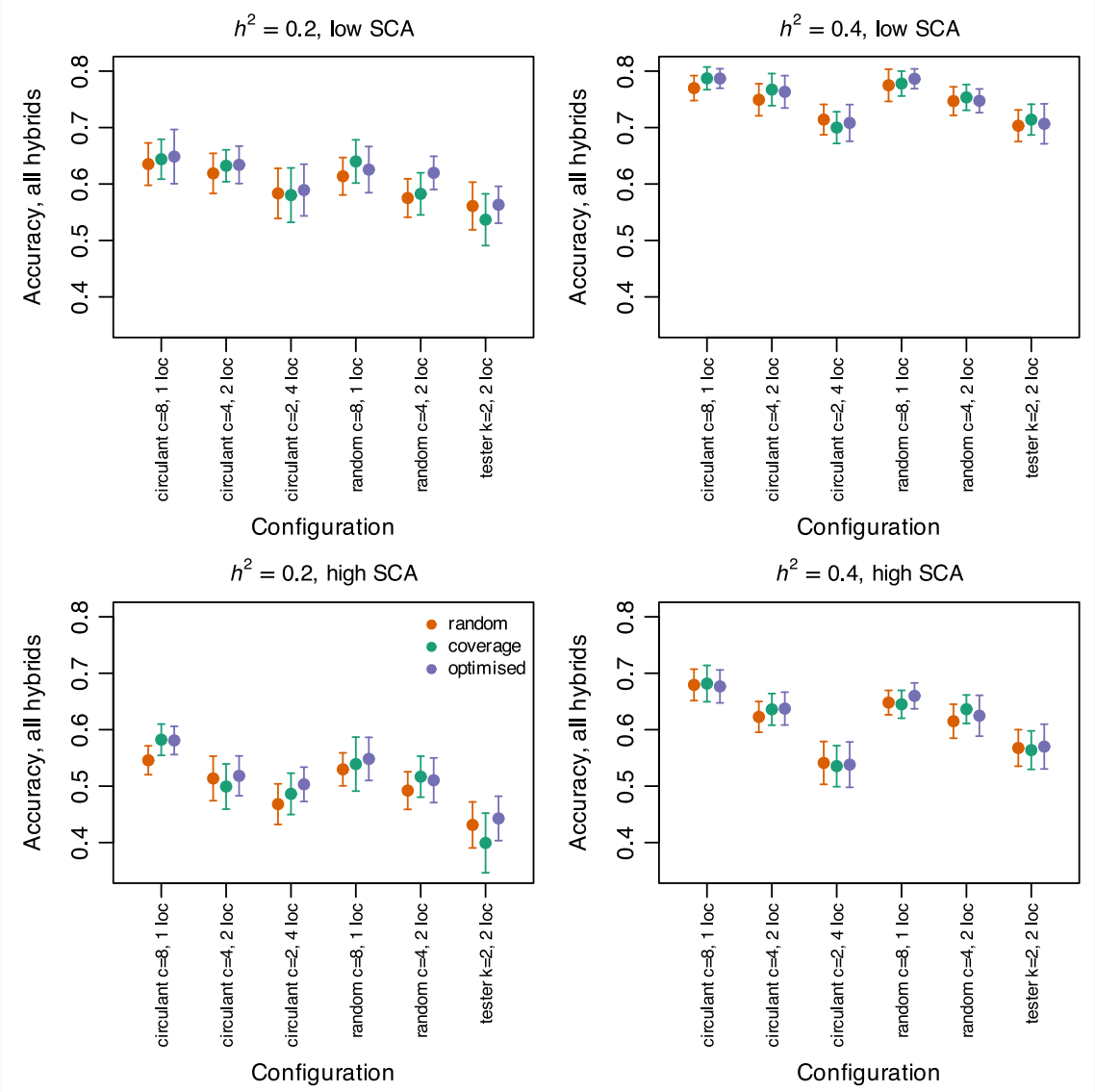

Figure 20.1: Accuracy (correlation between predicted and true genetic value) over all 400 possible hybrids at a budget of 160 plots (tester design 152), by configuration (plan, crosses per line c, locations per cross) and allocation strategy; one panel per plot heritability h^2 and SCA level. Points are cell means over 30 replicates, error bars span plus or minus two standard errors. `optimised` is one fixed design per cell. 20 x 20 pools in half-sib families of four, eight locations, known variance components; in-repo sweep (`regenerate.R joint`).

Figure 20.1 reads left to right along the budget identity (Equation (20.1)). Within the circulant family, with the coverage allocation, 160 crosses at one location each reach 0.787 at $h^2 = 0.4$ and low SCA, 80 crosses at two locations 0.767, and 40 at four 0.700. With high SCA the steps are larger – 0.682, 0.636, 0.535. The order holds in all four scenarios, unevenly: the step from 80 to 160 crosses is 0.5 to 3.4 standard errors of the difference, the step from 40 to 80 0.5 to 4.4. Of the 8 steps, 4 – 160 versus 80 at $h^2 = 0.2$, low SCA; 160 versus 80 at $h^2 = 0.4$, low SCA; 80 versus 40 at $h^2 = 0.2$, low SCA; 80 versus 40 at $h^2 = 0.2$, high SCA – are under two standard errors, and 160 versus 80 at $h^2 = 0.4$, high SCA, at 2.14, is under Chapter 18.'s three; only their direction agrees with the rest. The two-tester design, with 76 crosses at two locations, sits below the circulant plan with 80 crosses at two locations in every scenario and strategy, at nearly the same budget (152 against 160 plots).

For the crosses that were made the comparison reverses (Table 20.6). Forty crosses at four locations estimate *those* crosses at 0.845, against 0.807 for 160 crosses at one location ($h^2 = 0.4$, low SCA; z = 2.67, under Chapter 18.'s three), because each is seen in four locations rather than one. Across scenarios this difference is 1.2 to 6.0 standard errors; the smallest, 1.2 at $h^2 = 0.2$ and low SCA, is not resolved. Nor is the reversal visibly monotone: at $h^2 = 0.2$ and high SCA, 80 crosses at two locations reach 0.610 against 0.618

for 160 at one (z = −0.32, not resolved). A programme that picks parents on GCA, or will choose among all possible single crosses with a prediction model, should spend the budget on distinct crosses. One that will advance only crosses it has made estimates them better from more locations, but then chooses among 40 candidates instead of 160, and the response to selection depends on that intensity as well as on accuracy, which this chapter does not model.

```
tb <- cc[order(cc$sca, cc$h2_plot, -cc$c), ]
tb$crosses <- tb$c * 20
knitr::kable(fmt(tb[, c("sca", "h2_plot", "crosses", "k", "acc_all", "acc_all_se",
                        "acc_made", "acc_made_se", "acc_unmade")], 3),
             row.names = FALSE,
             col.names = c("SCA", "Plot $h^2$", "Crosses", "Loc./cross", "All", "SE",
                           "Made", "SE", "Not made"))
```

Table 20.6: The circulant trade-off at 160 plots, coverage allocation: accuracy over all hybrids, over the crosses made, and over those not made, with standard errors of the cell means. Accuracy is the correlation between predicted and true genetic value; 20 x 20 pools, eight locations, known components, 30 replicates per cell; in-repo sweep.

SCA	Plot h^2	Crosses	Loc./cross	All	SE	Made	SE	Not made
high	0.2	160	1	0.582	0.014	0.618	0.014	0.558
high	0.2	80	2	0.499	0.020	0.610	0.018	0.467
high	0.2	40	4	0.486	0.018	0.709	0.018	0.455
high	0.4	160	1	0.682	0.016	0.742	0.012	0.637
high	0.4	80	2	0.636	0.014	0.783	0.009	0.595
high	0.4	40	4	0.535	0.018	0.837	0.010	0.490
low	0.2	160	1	0.644	0.018	0.669	0.017	0.627
low	0.2	80	2	0.632	0.014	0.693	0.013	0.616
low	0.2	40	4	0.580	0.024	0.704	0.023	0.565
low	0.4	160	1	0.787	0.010	0.807	0.010	0.775
low	0.4	80	2	0.767	0.014	0.824	0.011	0.753
low	0.4	40	4	0.700	0.014	0.845	0.011	0.683

This does not contradict result 2 of Section 19.11.3, which varied something else: there $k = 2$, one plot per cell and the planted 80 % of the factorial were held fixed and the trial was widened from 2 to 10 locations, so the plots per hybrid stayed the same and only the environments sampled grew. Here $L = 8$ is fixed and k rises, so each location added per cross is one more plot for that cross, paid for with a cross. J. B. Endelman *et al.* [111] is the line-breeding analogue of the first operation (entries and plots fixed, spread over more locations). Widening the trial at fixed plots per entry raised accuracy in both; adding locations per cross at a fixed budget lowered all-hybrid accuracy here. That was measured at one genetic correlation between locations, 2/3; a lower one makes each location say less about the others and would be expected to move the optimum toward more locations per cross, which this sweep did not test.

20.5.2 2. Allocation strategy, with the plan fixed

With the plan and k fixed, the strategies are close (Figure 20.1). The paired contrasts (Table 20.7) resolve what the cell means cannot. Coverage does what it is built to do: in the factorial plans the share of females present per location rises from 0.676 under random placement to 0.874. Paired against random placement of the same plan, the accuracy difference over all hybrids, averaged over the 24 cells, is +0.0057 ± 0.0033 (z = 1.7; 16 of 24 cells positive). That is below the two-standard-error bar, so the gain is **not detected** overall. Within the random sparse plans alone it is +0.0119 ± 0.0052 (z = 2.29, past two standard errors but not Chapter 18.'s three), one of three families tested, with no correction for that. Only 2 of the 24 cells differ by more than two standard errors on their own (z = 2.32 and 2.68, all under three), about what chance gives. The tester design is the exception in the other direction: there coverage moves the share of females present per location only from 0.494 to 0.549, within 0.001 of the ceiling: a non-tester female has two crosses, so at two locations per cross it reaches at most four of the eight locations, and with the two

female testers present everywhere the mean is at most $(18 \times 4/8 + 2)/20 = 0.55$. Over the 4 tester cells the paired difference is -0.012 ± 0.011, not detected.

```
st <- rbind(cbind(contrast = "coverage - random",
                  rbind(pc_plan, pc_all)),
            cbind(contrast = "optimised - start",
                  rbind(pooled("optimised - start", by = "plan"), po_all)))
knitr::kable(fmt(st, 4), row.names = FALSE,
          col.names = c("Contrast", "Plan family", "Cells", "Mean difference", "SE",
                        "Positive cells"))
```

Table 20.7: Paired contrasts in accuracy over all hybrids, pooled over the four variance scenarios within each plan family (and over everything in the last row of each block). Mean difference is the mean paired difference in correlation, SE its standard error, Positive cells the number of cells with a positive difference; 30 paired replicates per cell, in-repo sweep. The tester rows rest on four cells, one plan configuration in four scenarios.

Contrast	Plan family	Cells	Mean difference	SE	Positive cells
coverage - random	circulant	12	0.0075	0.0042	8
coverage - random	random	8	0.0119	0.0052	7
coverage - random	tester	4	−0.0123	0.0108	1
coverage - random	all	24	0.0057	0.0033	16
optimised - start	circulant	12	0.0023	0.0030	8
optimised - start	random	8	−0.0050	0.0035	5
optimised - start	tester	4	0.0189	0.0070	4
optimised - start	all	24	0.0027	0.0022	17

The pooled contrast is not detected and one family of three passes two standard errors. We read this as consistent with the finding of Chapter 19. that structured layouts matter little except at extreme sparsity, not as a replication of it, and as sitting with the mixed record of incomplete-block allocation (O. A. Montesinos-López, A. Montesinos-López, R. Acosta, R. K. Varshney, A. Bentley, and J. Crossa [176] and O. A. Montesinos-López *et al.* [181] better than random, O. A. Montesinos-López, B. A. Mosqueda-González, J. Salinas-Ruiz, A. Montesinos-López, and J. Crossa [108] close). When every line appears in several crosses spread over eight locations, random placement already puts most parents in most locations; whatever coverage adds – about +0.006 correlation points overall on the point estimate, at most +0.012 within a plan family – is small next to the budget split.

20.5.3 3. What the criterion can and cannot see

```
jp <- js[js$strategy %in% names(strat_col), ]
op <- par(mar = c(4.2, 4.2, 1, 1))
plot(jp$pev_gca, jp$acc_all, pch = 19, col = strat_col[jp$strategy],
     xlab = "Mean PEV of GCA (before planting)", ylab = "Accuracy, all hybrids")
legend("topright", legend = names(strat_col), col = strat_col, pch = 19, bty = "n",
cex = 0.8)
par(op)
r_pev <- cor(jp$pev_gca, jp$acc_all)
# Rank agreement between PEV and accuracy over the six configurations, per scenario.
cvr <- js[js$strategy == "coverage", ]
rho <- sapply(split(cvr, paste(cvr$h2_plot, cvr$sca)),
              function(d) cor(d$pev_gca, d$acc_all, method = "spearman"))
rho_made <- sapply(split(cvr, paste(cvr$h2_plot, cvr$sca)),
                   function(d) cor(d$pev_gca, d$acc_made, method = "spearman"))
# Exact two-sided permutation p of Spearman's rho at n = 6 (all 720 orders).
stopifnot(all(table(paste(cvr$h2_plot, cvr$sca)) == 6),
          !anyDuplicated(paste(cvr$h2_plot, cvr$sca, cvr$pev_gca)))
pm <- as.matrix(expand.grid(rep(list(seq_len(6)), 6)))
pm <- pm[apply(pm, 1, anyDuplicated) == 0, ]
```

```
rho0 <- 1 - 6 * rowSums((pm - col(pm))^2) / (6 * (6^2 - 1))
p_rho <- function(r) mean(abs(rho0) >= abs(r) - 1e-9)
rho_crit <- min(abs(rho0)[vapply(abs(rho0), p_rho, 0) <= 0.05])
p_all <- vapply(rho, p_rho, 0); p_made <- vapply(rho_made, p_rho, 0)
g300 <- median(1 - jo$pev_300 / jo$pev_start)
g600 <- median(1 - jo$pev_600 / jo$pev_start)
spread <- sapply(split(jp, paste(jp$label, jp$h2_plot, jp$sca)),
                 function(d) diff(range(d$pev_gca)) / min(d$pev_gca))
second <- (jo$pev_300 - jo$pev_600) / (jo$pev_start - jo$pev_300)
pot <- pooled("optimised - start", by = "plan")
pot <- pot[pot$group == "tester", ]
```

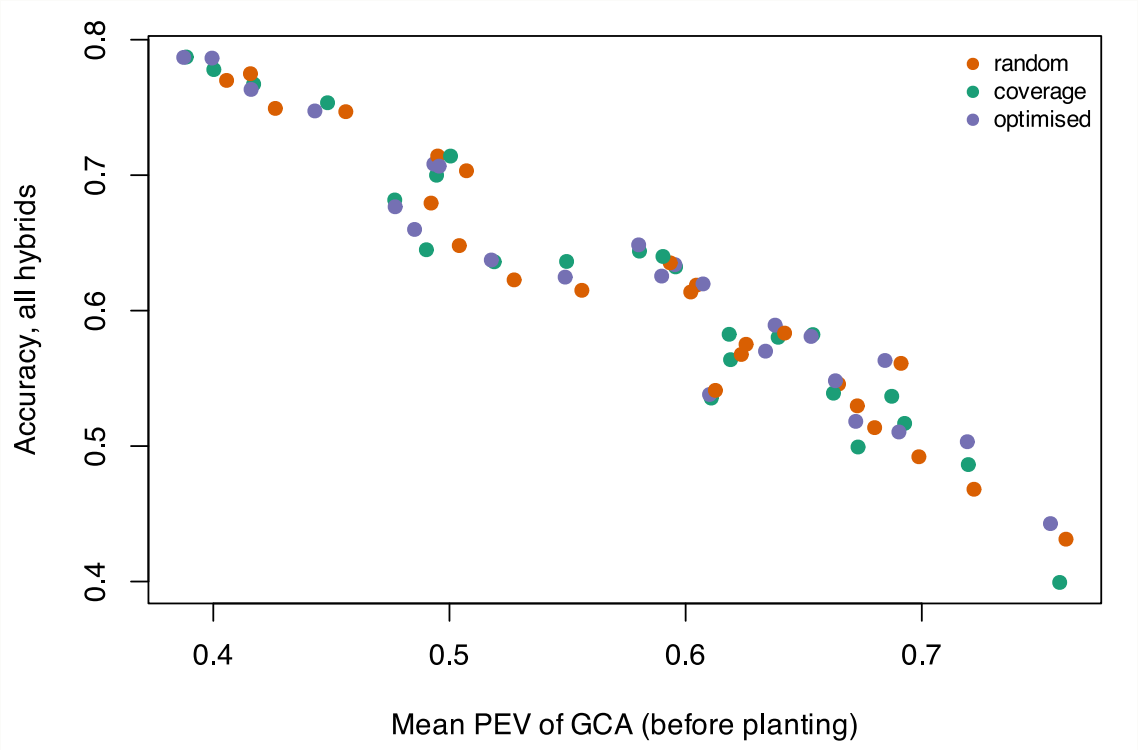

Figure 20.2: Mean PEV of GCA, computed from the design before planting, against realised accuracy (correlation between predicted and true genetic value) over all 400 hybrids. One point per configuration x allocation strategy x variance scenario, each the mean of 30 replicates; colour is the strategy. 20 x 20 pools, eight locations, 160 plots (tester design 152), known variance components; in-repo sweep (`regenerate.R joint`).

Across all cells the mean PEV of GCA correlates with accuracy over all hybrids at −0.96 (Figure 20.2; lower PEV, higher accuracy). Almost all of that comes from the plan and the scenario: the clusters are configurations, and within a cluster the strategies differ by 0.3 to 4.7 % in PEV (median 1.8 %). Over the six configurations of one scenario, the rank correlation between PEV and all-hybrid accuracy is −1.00 to −0.89 (exact permutation p 0.003 to 0.033; at $n = 6$ a two-sided $p \leq 0.05$ needs $|\rho| \geq 0.89$). The criterion is therefore a usable screen for *which plan and how many locations per cross* – it can be computed for every split of a budget in seconds – but only for that objective. Against accuracy on the crosses that were made its rank correlation is 0.20 to 0.66, positive (higher PEV, higher made-cross accuracy) in all four scenarios but with p 0.17 to 0.71: there is no evidence that the PEV ranking agrees with made-cross accuracy, and weak, non-significant evidence that it runs opposite.

As a guide to fine placement it is weak, and the exchange search shows it from the other side (Table 20.8). From the coverage start, 300 proposals lowered PEV by a median 0.10 % and 600 by 0.15 %, at about 47 seconds per design against a millisecond for the greedy start. Paired against its own start the optimised design changed accuracy by +0.0027 ± 0.0022 overall. The one family that stands out is the tester design, +0.019 ± 0.007 (z = 2.71, under Chapter 18.'s three) with 4 of 4 cells positive, where the search also found the largest PEV reductions. It is tentative: each cell is one optimised design from one plan, in one of three

plan families, with no correction for that. The search, first improvement with no convergence test, had not converged: the second 300 proposals added a median 40 % of what the first 300 achieved, and in 8 of 24 cells 65 % or more. These results say what 600 proposals buy, not what a converged placement optimiser would buy. The optimised-block design of the external study behind Chapter 19. showed the same absence of gain on untested hybrids.

```
ot <- jo[order(jo$sca, jo$h2_plot, jo$plan, -jo$c), ]
ot$sec_600 <- ifelse(ot$sec_600 > 600, NA, round(ot$sec_600))
knitr::kable(fmt(ot[, c("plan", "c", "k", "h2_plot", "sca", "pev_start", "pev_300",
                        "pev_600", "sec_600")], 4), row.names = FALSE,
             col.names = c("Plan", "$c$", "Loc./cross", "Plot $h^2$", "SCA",
"PEV start",
                           "PEV 300", "PEV 600", "Seconds"))
```

Table 20.8: The exchange search on mean PEV of GCA, one design per cell (20 x 20 pools, eight locations, 160 plots, tester design 152): PEV of the coverage start and after 300 and 600 proposals. Seconds are wall time; cells that logged more than 600 s, far outside the rest, are omitted, and the cause of those times was not recorded.

Plan	c	Loc./cross	Plot h^2	SCA	PEV start	PEV 300	PEV 600	Seconds
circulant	8	1	0.2	high	0.6538	0.6534	0.6531	47
circulant	4	2	0.2	high	0.6726	0.6721	0.6720	47
circulant	2	4	0.2	high	0.7198	0.7195	0.7193	48
random	8	1	0.2	high	0.6642	0.6638	0.6634	47
random	4	2	0.2	high	0.6907	0.6903	0.6903	47
tester	2	2	0.2	high	0.7560	0.7548	0.7545	46
circulant	8	1	0.4	high	0.4774	0.4773	0.4770	48
circulant	4	2	0.4	high	0.5184	0.5179	0.5177	47
circulant	2	4	0.4	high	0.6107	0.6103	0.6101	47
random	8	1	0.4	high	0.4860	0.4855	0.4852	NA
random	4	2	0.4	high	0.5504	0.5496	0.5490	NA
tester	2	2	0.4	high	0.6355	0.6340	0.6338	NA
circulant	8	1	0.2	low	0.5801	0.5801	0.5801	47
circulant	4	2	0.2	low	0.5963	0.5956	0.5954	49
circulant	2	4	0.2	low	0.6385	0.6381	0.6379	48
random	8	1	0.2	low	0.5909	0.5902	0.5898	47
random	4	2	0.2	low	0.6082	0.6076	0.6073	47
tester	2	2	0.2	low	0.6869	0.6850	0.6844	46
circulant	8	1	0.4	low	0.3885	0.3877	0.3875	47
circulant	4	2	0.4	low	0.4172	0.4162	0.4160	47
circulant	2	4	0.4	low	0.4947	0.4937	0.4934	47
random	8	1	0.4	low	0.4006	0.3999	0.3994	47
random	4	2	0.4	low	0.4450	0.4439	0.4430	48
tester	2	2	0.4	low	0.4983	0.4962	0.4956	48

The component counts were 1 in almost every replicate. The exception is informative: the draw split the factorial into two components in 2 of the 120 random sparse plans with 4 crosses per line (in 2 scenarios, appearing under both strategies that share the plan) – a defect of the plan that no allocation can repair, visible before a seed is sown. Location connectivity (`n_comp_loc`) was 1 throughout: with several crosses per line over eight locations, locations always shared parents.

20.5.4 Limitations of the simulation

- **Known variance components.** The criterion and the BLUP use the true values; restricted maximum likelihood (REML) on a sparse trial is the weak point of Section 19.11.3 (result 5).

- **A misspecified analysis model**: $(s\ell)$ is absorbed into an i.i.d. residual, checked for one plan only (Section 20.2).
- **Exchangeable locations**, genetic correlation 2/3 between every pair. Mega-environment structure [184], [185] would favour allocations that sample each mega-environment, which the coverage rule does not see.
- **Half-sib relationships, one plot per cell**, no markers, spatial trend or replicated checks in the sweep; the marker term of Section 20.4.1 comes from a separate live simulation, not scored for accuracy.
- **One budget, one scale**: 160 plots, 20 x 20 pools, eight locations.
- **Accuracy, not response.** Selection intensity differs between 40 and 160 candidates and is not modelled.

20.6 Practical recommendations

A checklist for a joint crossing and testing plan

1. **Fix the budget in plots, $B = n_c k r$**, and the locations available.
2. **Decide what will be selected.** Parents on GCA, or any single cross by prediction: favour distinct crosses (result 1, Section 20.5.1). Only crosses already made: more locations per cross estimate them better, at a cost in selection intensity.
3. **Screen candidate splits with the mean PEV of GCA** (`joint_pev()`), using the previous cycle's relationship matrix and components, for the GCA / all-hybrid objective only.
4. **Treat one location per cross with caution.** It was best with known components; REML has little to work with at one plot per cross (Section 19.11.3, result 5), so two locations per cross is the safer floor.
5. **Place crosses with the coverage rule** (`joint_alloc(strategy = "coverage")`): it costs nothing and raises parent coverage, though its accuracy gain was not detected (result 2, Section 20.5.2). With known subgroups, read the between-location shares of markers and subgroup indicators before planting, and balance on the indicators if subgroup shares must be equal; neither marker nor indicator balancing has been shown to raise accuracy (Section 20.4.1, including its limits).
6. **Check `n_comp_cross == 1` and `n_comp_loc == 1`** before planting. A disconnected plan needs a new plan, not a new allocation. Passing is necessary, not sufficient: it does not exclude GCA aliased with location (Section 20.4).
7. **Reserve exchange optimisation of the placement for tester designs**, as provisional (result 3, Section 20.5.3), and run it well beyond 600 proposals. The evidence is four cells with one optimised design each, past two standard errors but not three, and its standard error carries no design-to-design variance.

20.7 Open problems

- **A joint optimiser over the plan itself.** Here the plan family was enumerated and only the placement optimised. Searching crosses and locations in one binary space is the problem N. Heslot and V. Feoktistov [173] solved for crosses alone.
- **A criterion that sees SCA and the selection objective**: one on the target values of the candidates that will actually be selected among, with intensity.
- **Non-exchangeable environments.** Joining mega-environments [184] or a choice of environments [167] to a crossing plan, and finding the genetic correlation between locations at which the optimum moves toward more locations per cross.
- **Estimated components.** How much of the budget split survives REML, and whether the PEV screen should use a prior or the previous cycle's estimates [178].
- **Seed as a constraint.** A cross planted at k locations needs k plots of seed; `cross_cost()` (Section 18.7) has not been joined to the allocation.
- **Frequency-balanced allocation and accuracy.** A test of Section 20.4.1's criterion [191] needs pools whose subgroups differ in mean, as the breeding populations of V. S. Windhausen *et al.* [193] did, and in genotype x location; an analysis model without that interaction; estimated components; a sweep over w; and a paired comparison against the coverage rule. Why the answer should not be presumed is in Section 20.3.

- **Prospective validation.** No trial has been designed jointly sparse from the start and compared against a conventional plan.

20.8 Reproducibility and assumptions

`Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R joint` writes `joint_core_sweep.csv` (cell means and standard errors), `joint_contrasts.csv` (paired contrasts) and `joint_optimiser.csv` (the exchange-search trace) to `book/data` in about 30 minutes of CPU (one timing, not recorded in any file; the exchange searches of the cells whose times are kept in Table 20.8 sum to 16.4 minutes), and keeps the per-replicate results in `report/joint_raw.rds` (gitignored). Table 20.4, Table 20.5 and the misspecification check of Section 20.2 run at render time and assert their identities. `tests/testthat/test-joint.R` checks that:

- every made cross gets exactly k plots and every unmade cross none;
- the coverage rule balances loads and covers more of each pool than random placement;
- `joint_pev()` equals the GCA block of the explicitly inverted coefficient matrix of `sparse_blup()`;
- the optimised allocation never scores worse than its start, whether the start is implicit or passed in;
- `n_comp_cross` is two for NC II blocks at one location, in separate locations and in shared locations, and equals the bipartite count of `design_components()`; `n_comp_loc` is two only when the blocks are grown apart.

The numbers are findings of this configuration, not constants: they move with the budget, the pool sizes, the genetic correlation between locations and the SCA share.

20.9 Where this connects

- Chapter 18. chose the crosses with the field fixed and Chapter 19. the field with the crosses fixed; under one budget the crossing plan is the larger lever.
- The coverage rule is result 4 of Section 19.11.3 – parent coverage, not shared hybrids, carries connectivity – turned into an allocation rule.
- In plans where a line could go uncrossed, distinct crosses would also keep more lines in the data, the diversity argument of Section 18.11: a line never crossed is one the next cycle will in practice not use (Chapter 13.; Chapter 23.). The circulant comparison of result 1 holds every line in the data at every split, so it does not measure this effect.
- The PEV screen is the mixed-model machinery of 3, read before planting instead of after harvest.
- The frequency term of Section 20.4.1 is the partition of Chapter 3. with locations in place of pools.

This closes the Part. The crossing plan and its field decide which hybrids, and which lines, are seen at all; the Evidence and practice part that follows sets these tools against what the applied literature establishes, starting with Chapter 21..

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **04g-joint-allocation.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

VII Evidence and practice

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21. What the plant literature establishes

Chapter 12. derived a recommendation. This one asks what the applied literature actually does, where it agrees, and – more usefully – where it is silent.

The corpus behind this chapter is 687 screened plant-breeding records (2017-2026), of which 158 are directly relevant and 197 concern maize, plus 324 animal-breeding records over the same period. Appendix D. describes both and how to query them.

21.1 The headline qualification

Chapter 12. recommended economising to a minimal non-redundant set: θ and $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ as constraints, allelic richness at validation. That recommendation stands on its own evidence. **But it is not what plant breeding practice does, and the gap is worth stating plainly.**

metric	records	of which maize	% of 687
Population structure (STRUCTURE/PCA/admixture)	303	87	44.1
Fst / differentiation	117	36	17.0
Expected heterozygosity (He / gene diversity)	101	23	14.7
PIC (polymorphic information content)	97	29	14.1
Modified Rogers / genetic distance	83	36	12.1
Allelic richness / rare alleles	46	6	6.7
Marker coancestry / kinship / relatedness	46	22	6.7
Observed heterozygosity (Ho)	38	5	5.5
Haplotype / pan-genome diversity	37	7	5.4
Shannon / Simpson index	34	3	4.9
Inbreeding coefficient / ROH	22	5	3.2
Effective population size / status number	17	4	2.5

Three observations follow directly.

Applied plant work stacks metrics rather than economising. A representative sub-Saharan maize panel of 376 elite inbreds reports PIC = 0.39, gene diversity = 0.37, MAF = 0.29, Shannon = 6.86, Simpson = 949.09, allelic richness = 787.70 and mean Rogers distance = 0.303 – all in one analysis, presented as a reporting package rather than as competing alternatives. Roughly 20% of relevant records report three or more distinct metric families together.

The metrics recommended here are among the least used. Marker coancestry appears in 6.7% of records, allelic richness in 6.7%, and effective size or status number in 2.5%. Population structure analysis appears in 44% and F_{ST} in 17%. The applied field is oriented toward *describing* structure, not toward *constraining* a loss.

Nothing in the retrieved set computes θ or N_s on a maize hybrid-usage vector. The specific formalism of Section 12.1 is not established in the retrieved set. That is a gap this work fills rather than a contradiction – but it means the approach has **no published plant-breeding baseline to be validated against**, which is a real limitation and should be read as one.

> **i** These are different jobs, not a conflict
>
> For **monitoring and description**, plant practice deliberately reports many metrics because different audiences need different views. For **constraining an optimiser**, redundancy is a cost rather than a virtue.
>
> Report the wide package to collaborators and in publications; constrain the optimiser on the narrow set.

21.2 Why plant practice differs from animal breeding

Three structural facts separate the two literatures, and they explain nearly every divergence in metric choice.

Lines are homozygous. Observed heterozygosity in an inbred panel is a purity control, not a diversity descriptor – pearl millet parental lines report $H_o = 0.031$ against $H_e = 0.334$, and the gap is diagnostic of complete inbreeding rather than informative about the pool. Animal coancestry theory assumes a randomly mating heterozygous population; the plant analogue computes θ directly on fixed line genotypes, which is exactly the setting where the line-level collapse applies.

The product is the F1, not the line. Diversity is tracked separately for each parental pool and for cross-pool complementarity – a structure with no livestock analogue. GWAS models are now built to partition additive and dominance effects by *heterotic group of origin*.

Diversity is managed as two objects, not one. Within-pool and between-pool diversity trend in opposite directions under selection and require opposite management, which no single pool-wide statistic can express – the argument of Chapter 3., arrived at from the applied side.

21.2.1 Distance measures, and the absence of a standard

Modified Rogers distance dominates in maize (36 of 83 distance-reporting records), used chiefly for heterotic assignment and tester choice rather than for diversity monitoring. A recent methods paper works explicitly to unify similarity and distance measures for inbred comparison – the field still treats the choice as open. Recall from Chapter 13. that MRD and coancestry are the same statistic: $f_{ij} = 1 - \mathrm{MRD}_{ij}^2$.

One result is worth carrying into practice: in 298 African highland maize inbreds, **91% of line pairs differ at 30-36% of scored alleles, yet only 32% of pairs have kinship below 0.05.** The authors read the gap as allelic redundancy from repeated use of narrow source germplasm.

> A pool can look diverse by marker counts while being genealogically shallow. That is a direct argument for a coancestry-based constraint over a distance-based one.

Other calibration benchmarks: North American ex-PVP dent inbreds resolve into 8 admixture subgroups aligned with company of origin; China summer maize (490 inbreds, 525,141 SNPs) shows 66.05% of pairwise kinship values near zero; sweet corn shows systematically lower diversity, PIC and MAF than field corn across 514 versus 181 lines.

21.3 Heterotic groups

21.3.1 Assignment is not a solved problem

GCA-based, SCA-based, combined (HSGCA) and SNP-distance classification are compared repeatedly with no consistent winner. Several studies report HSGCA as most consistent with testcross performance; others find SNP-based and testcross-based classification **disagree**. Notably, SSR markers linked to yield QTL give **no advantage** over random SSRs for grouping – against the intuition that linked markers should be more predictive.

This matters for the pipeline: the line-level collapse assumes pool structure is given. Group assignment is itself contested, so the pool-balance constraint inherits whatever uncertainty the assignment method carries. Treat it as an uncertain input, not a fixed given.

21.3.2 The empirical trend that justifies the constraint

The single most load-bearing empirical result in this corpus: in a commercial European dent maize programme, **differentiation between Stiff Stalk and Non-Stiff Stalk groups increased significantly over time while genetic diversity within both groups declined** [5]. This is longitudinal commercial data, not simulation.

It confirms the constraint is doing necessary work rather than solving a hypothetical problem, and it confirms the two-object framing: what erodes is within-pool diversity; what must be protected from erosion *and* from excessive inflation is between-pool divergence. That is exactly the panel `s1_monitor()` logs in Chapter 13..

Why divergence should be maintained rather than maximised now has a mechanistic basis: additive and dominance QTL effects for hybrid performance are **background-specific**, depending on allelic ancestry. Divergence pays through complementarity at specific loci, not through generic distance – so pushing it further does not add hybrid value and risks removing shared favourable alleles. That is Trap 3 of Chapter 13., with a mechanism attached.

The complication worth knowing: deliberate crossing *across* the heterotic boundary for germplasm enhancement generated substantial usable variation, with **10.8% of hybrids from one sub-population exceeding a high-yielding check.** The boundary is maintained for commercial hybrid-parent pools while being selectively porous for pre-breeding.

21.4 Selecting within the pool

21.4.1 The constraint alone is not sufficient

Optimal contribution and optimal cross selection are established across crops. But a load-bearing qualifier appears repeatedly: diversity depletion in closed elite programmes is described as **"ineluctable"** at realistic population sizes even under active management, with bridging populations argued as the necessary remedy.

A θ constraint on the existing pool cannot indefinitely substitute for new germplasm. Plan periodic external injections rather than treating the line pool as closed.

21.4.2 Cycle length, and what goes unreported

Rapid cycling delivers large gain-rate benefits: 12-88% relative gain advantage for oligogenic architectures at 2-3 cycles per year versus one; cycle time cut from 2-5 years to 1 year in intermediate wheatgrass with an explicit diversity-preserving sampling step. A maize two-cycle genomewide selection scheme reports larger gains at equal cost and time but **no diversity metric at all.**

The diversity cost per unit of cycle-time reduction is not established in the retrieved set. Since shortening cycles is the single most common current intervention in commercial programmes, that is a conspicuous hole.

Simulation work on hybrid rice reciprocal recurrent selection reports that larger population sizes give higher gain *and* less depletion of genetic variance – and that diversity is managed at the parental-pool level that feeds hybrids, which is exactly the line-usage level this book constrains.

21.4.3 What is hybrid-specific, and what is not

This distinction decides which literature transfers. **Every usefulness-criterion and progeny-variance study retrieved operates upstream, at the inbred-line development stage** – cross potential selection, UCPC for multi-parental crosses, barley validation against realised populations, soybean family mean and variance prediction, wheat progeny-variance formulas. None operates on F1 hybrids of fixed inbreds.

That confirms rather than challenges the decision to drop the progeny-variance term: the term is real and actively predicted *before* fixation, and vanishes after it. It is why `usefulness_criterion()` belongs at S2 and nowhere else.

One caution that is genuinely hybrid-specific: hybrid **mean** prediction benefits materially from additive-plus-dominance models, since dominance and SCA change predicted performance versus additive-only GEBVs. That is a separate axis from the diversity constraint – it does not reopen the variance term, but it means line-usage optimisation on θ should not be conflated with mean-performance ranking of the same crosses.

21.5 Genebanks, core collections and introgression

Core-subset construction converges on a shared objective – maximise retained diversity at minimum accession count – but diverges on method: GenoCore selecting 310 from 3,300+ sorghum accessions; distance-based optimisation on cassava; rice cores of 247 and 30 from 2,242 accessions; a lettuce core of 268 from 811 capturing 99.4% of total variation.

The quantitatively strongest result: **marker-based core extraction captures 3-78-fold more haplotypic diversity than geography- or environment-based surrogate sampling** across Arabidopsis, Populus and sorghum panels. If cores are being assembled, assemble them on markers.

Maize-specific core-collection algorithm choice is **not established in the retrieved set** – maize genetic-resource work is oriented toward bridging and targeted introgression instead:

- DNA-pool genotyping of 156 landraces (2,340 individuals) against 327 elite lines spanning the 20th century produced two indicators of a landrace's genomic contribution to elite germplasm, used to rank donors rather than introduce material blind.
- Haplotype mining in ~1,000 landrace-derived doubled haploids found landrace haplotypes **outperforming elite alternatives at the same loci**, stable across populations and environments.
- Rapid-cycling genomic selection *within* a landrace population (899 DH lines, 600K array) improves donor material before it contacts the elite pool.
- For capturing landrace variation, the **doubled-haploid route beats gamete capture** – higher prediction accuracy, and no masking of landrace variation behind a capture parent's background.

A θ- or N_s-based accounting of introgression cost against a same-size resampling baseline is not established in the retrieved set.

21.6 The animal-breeding corpus: which matrix to manage

On the animal side there is broad convergence that some form of optimal contribution or optimal cross selection on a **marker-based** coancestry matrix is the right optimisation *framework*. There is **no consensus on which specific genomic matrix** to place inside it, and multiple post-2018 papers report that the choice changes allele-frequency trajectories and diversity outcomes:

- IBD versus homozygosity- versus drift-based matrices give substantially different results unless management is IBD-based (Chapter 10.).
- A deviation-based coancestry matrix retained more genetic variability, while VanRaden's kept allele frequencies closer to the base – a genuine trade-off between "more heterozygosity" and "less frequency drift".
- A linkage-and-pedigree-informed matrix had the highest correlation with true IBD, the most accurate ΔF, and was the only scheme keeping frequency drift down while meeting the inbreeding target.
- ROH-based genomic relationship outperformed SNP-based relationship for limiting inbreeding accumulation at equal gain, in pigs.

The consensus, such as it is: molecular or IBD-flavoured coancestry outperforms simple VanRaden-style relationship for diversity management, but the field has not converged on a single preferred matrix. As Chapter 12. notes, the line-level collapse holds for **any** symmetric $\mathbf{f}^L$, so this open question does not destabilise the computational results.

On allelic richness the post-2018 work sharpens rather than contradicts the recommendation: allelic variation is far more sensitive to bottlenecks than heterozygosity, there is a linear relationship between census-size reduction and reduction in expected number of alleles at drift-mutation equilibrium, and standard N_e corrections do **not** predict allelic loss well. One paper explicitly recommends expanding the $N_e > 500$ conservation guideline to include an allelic-variation criterion.

And on effective size, two cautions beyond $N_s = 1/(2\theta)$: under *active* optimal molecular management, rate-based N_e is numerically pathological – negative in early generations, with no long-term asymptote – and N_e however estimated is informative about heterozygosity loss but not about allelic loss. Both reinforce reporting only a static status-number descriptor under active management.

21.7 Optimisation machinery reported in plants

This is where the corpus is thinnest, and it confirms the computational gap.

- **Optimal contribution methods** are applied across crops, but no abstract states solver type, runtime, or complexity class.
- **Core-subset search** is greedy or distance-based heuristic; only input and output set sizes are reported, never runtime.

- **Evolutionary algorithms** appear mainly *outside* plants. Within plants the closest analogue is a black-box numerical optimiser for progeny allocation, with no named algorithm, problem size, or convergence statistic.
- Problem sizes are reported as candidate-cross counts (330,078 possible barley parent combinations) or collection sizes, never as optimiser performance.

No retrieved plant study applies differential evolution – or any metaheuristic – to an OCS-type hybrid selection problem, and none reports a runtime or complexity comparison against quadratic-programming OCS solvers.

On the animal side, AlphaMate remains the most cited applied tool. The most directly relevant comparison benchmarked genetic algorithms, differential evolution, particle swarm and simulated annealing for parent selection in a 583-line wheat dataset: GA gave the best convergence speed and fitness; **DE was robust but required longer runtime and careful tuning**. That is consistent with Chapter 12.'s finding that the encoding, not the algorithm, is what decides the outcome.

21.8 What remains unestablished

Stated strictly, from the screened abstracts. These are the honest boundaries of what this book can claim support for. The distinction that matters here is between *unestablished in the literature* and *unaddressed in this book*: two of these items now have a simulated answer in Chapter 5. and Chapter 23., which narrows what the book leaves open without changing what the corpus establishes. A simulation under stated assumptions is not evidence from an operating programme, and the items below are still the honest boundary of the second.

- Application of DE or any metaheuristic to a θ-constrained line-usage selection problem in maize.
- Runtime or complexity comparison between OCS quadratic solvers and metaheuristics for any plant breeding problem.
- Empirical proportional diversity loss measured against a same-size resampling baseline in an operating maize hybrid programme. (Chapter 23. simulates the multi-cycle consequence and finds a gain crossover; no published maize programme reports the measurement itself.)
- Longitudinal joint reporting of allelic richness alongside θ or N_s for the same hybrid maize programme.
- Hybrid-genome-level (rather than parental-pool-level) coancestry optimisation for F1 maize.
- Whether a dominance-informed term would change optimal-cross outcomes relative to the mean-only approach. (Chapter 5. derives the term and shows expected heterosis is invariant to F_{ST} under neutral divergence, so a dominance-informed ranking must differ from a frequency-based one. Whether it changes *realised* outcomes in a programme is untested either way.)
- Quantitative diversity cost per unit of cycle-time reduction under rapid-cycling hybrid maize.
- ROH-based diversity metrics applied to maize hybrid pools (22 records use ROH, only 5 in maize, none for hybrid diversity management).
- Per-evaluation computational cost of diversity metrics, as a function of population size or metric type, anywhere in either corpus.
- Diversity metrics defined on hybrids rather than on lines or parents.
- Combinatorial equal-contribution (0/1) selection compared directly against continuous-contribution designs.

21.9 Consequences for the pipeline

1. Keep the narrow metric set inside the optimiser and report the wide package outside it.
2. Plan for periodic germplasm injection. A closed elite pool depletes regardless of how well the within-pool constraint is managed.
3. Prefer bridging over direct introduction for exotic material, and rank donors by their genomic contribution to the elite pool rather than by raw diversity.
4. Treat heterotic-group assignment as an uncertain input – the pool-balance constraint is only as good as the assignment behind it.
5. Constrain between-pool divergence within a band rather than maximising it.
6. Do not conflate the diversity constraint with mean prediction. Hybrid means need additive-plus-dominance models; the diversity constraint needs neither.
7. Report the diversity cost per cycle explicitly when shortening cycles.
8. If assembling a core or donor set, do it on markers rather than passport data.

9. Watch for allelic redundancy: high marker-based distance can coexist with shallow genealogy, so a coancestry constraint is safer than a distance-based one.
10. Validate on real genotypes before treating the redundancy result as settled.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **11-plant-literature.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

22. A complete plant breeding programme, and what it costs in diversity

The seventh consequence for the pipeline drawn in Chapter 21. is to report the diversity cost per cycle explicitly whenever cycles are shortened. This chapter measures that cost in a whole programme.

Chapter 9., built back in the Simulation part, assembled AlphaSimR's primitives into a *hybrid* scheme: two heterotic pools, reciprocal testers, a commercial cross at the end. This chapter assembles the same primitives into the other kind of programme – an **inbred-line** pipeline, where the product is a variety rather than a hybrid, and where the organising problem is not which cross to sell but how many genotypes to carry through how many stages of field testing.

The scheme is the wheat programme of R. C. Gaynor *et al.* [194], reduced in scale. It is worth building because it is the shape most public and many commercial line-breeding programmes actually have, and because it exposes something the hybrid chapter cannot: **the trade between the number of genotypes tested and the precision with which each is measured.** A breeder has a fixed number of plots. Spending them on more entries at one location or fewer entries at eight locations is the same budget spent two ways, and the staged trial is the standard compromise.

Then the chapter does what the course this scheme comes from does not: it puts the book's diversity machinery over the result, and asks what the faster programme spends to be faster.

22.1 The scheme

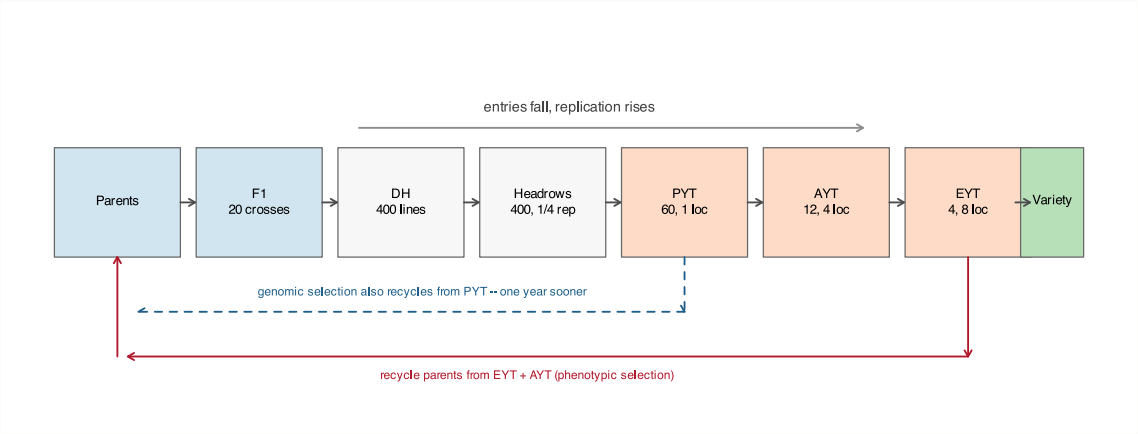

Figure 22.1: The staged inbred-line programme. Entries fall by roughly an order of magnitude at each stage while replication – the number of locations each entry is scored in – rises. Parents for the next cycle are recycled from the late trials (solid) or, under genomic selection, from the preliminary trial as well (dashed).

Seven stages, and the logic connecting them is a single idea: **at every step, entries fall and replication rises.** Four hundred doubled-haploid lines are scored once, cheaply, in unreplicated headrows; sixty survive into a preliminary yield trial at one location; twelve into an advanced trial at four; four into an elite trial at eight. Selection accuracy at the last stage is high because the error variance has been divided by eight locations – not because the trait became more heritable.

That is what `reps` does in `setPheno()`, and it is the argument Chapter 9.'s Step 2 flagged as the plant idiom. The configuration:

```
sch <- list(
  n_founders = 40, n_chr = 10, n_qtl = 60,   # founder genomes
  n_crosses  = 20, n_dh = 20, fam_max = 5,   # crossing and DH production
```

```
  n_pyt = 60, n_ayt = 12, n_eyt = 4,         # entries per yield trial
  rep_hdrw = 1/4, rep_pyt = 1, rep_ayt = 4, rep_eyt = 8,   # locations per stage
  var_e = 0.4, gs_boost = 3, n_burn = 7, n_years = 15
)
```

`rep_hdrw = 1/4` is the course's device for a stage *less* precise than a single plot: headrows are scored visually on a short row, which carries less information than one replicated plot, so the error variance is multiplied by four. `fam_max` caps how many DH lines any one cross may contribute to the preliminary trial – `selectWithinFam()` from Chapter 9.'s Step 6, holding the genetic base open against a truncation that would otherwise take the whole trial from the two best crosses.

22.2 Why a breeding programme needs a burn-in

The loop below advances every stage by one year, simultaneously. That only means something if all seven stages are already *occupied*, by cohorts of different ages: this year's elite trial entered the programme six years ago, this year's headrows entered last year. Starting the loop from an empty programme would compare a year-1 elite trial that does not exist against a year-1 headrow that does.

The fix is the staggered fill in the course's vignette, and it is the most confusing seven lines in it:

```
for (year in 1:7) {
  F1 <- randCross(Parents, n_crosses)
  if (year < 7) DH   <- makeDH(F1, n_dh)
  if (year < 6) HDRW <- setPheno(DH, reps = rep_hdrw)
  if (year < 5) PYT  <- ...
  if (year < 4) AYT  <- ...
  if (year < 3) EYT  <- ...
}
```

Read it as a triangle rather than a loop. On the first pass every stage runs, so every stage holds a cohort. On the second pass the elite trial is skipped, so the cohort sitting in it is a year older than the one behind it. By the seventh pass only the crossing block still runs. What comes out is a programme in which each stage holds a cohort of the right age relative to its neighbours – a *steady state*, which is the only state in which a per-year genetic gain is a meaningful number.

22.3 One programme, fifteen years

The whole scheme is one function. It is written out rather than packaged because the loop is the thing being taught, and because a reader adapting it to their own programme will edit the loop, not call it.

```
gd_of <- function(pop, SP)
  1 - mean(molecular_coancestry(pullSegSiteGeno(pop, simParam = SP) / 2))

run_programme <- function(cfg, seed, genomic = FALSE, gs_from = 1) {
  set.seed(seed)
  fg <- quickHaplo(nInd = cfg$n_founders, nChr = cfg$n_chr,
                   segSites = cfg$n_qtl, inbred = TRUE)
  SP <- SimParam$new(fg)
  SP$addTraitAG(nQtlPerChr = cfg$n_qtl, mean = 4, var = 0.1, varGxE = 0.2)
  ph <- function(p, r) setPheno(p, varE = cfg$var_e, reps = r, simParam = SP)

  # --- burn-in: fill every stage with a cohort of the right age ---
  Parents <- newPop(fg, simParam = SP)
  for (year in 1:cfg$n_burn) {
    F1 <- randCross(Parents, cfg$n_crosses, simParam = SP)
    if (year < 7) DH   <- makeDH(F1, cfg$n_dh, simParam = SP)
    if (year < 6) HDRW <- ph(DH, cfg$rep_hdrw)
    if (year < 5) {
      PYT <- selectWithinFam(HDRW, nInd = cfg$fam_max, use = "pheno", simParam = SP)
```

```
      PYT <- ph(selectInd(PYT, nInd = cfg$n_pyt, use = "pheno", simParam = SP),
                cfg$rep_pyt)
    }
    if (year < 4)
      AYT <- ph(selectInd(PYT, nInd = cfg$n_ayt, use = "pheno", simParam = SP),
                cfg$rep_ayt)
    if (year < 3)
      EYT <- ph(selectInd(AYT, nInd = cfg$n_eyt, use = "pheno", simParam = SP),
                cfg$rep_eyt)
  }

  # --- advancing years, last stage first so each reads the previous cohort ---
  out <- data.frame(year = 1:cfg$n_years, meanG = NA_real_, varG = NA_real_,
                    acc_pyt = NA_real_, gd_pyt = NA_real_, gd_parents = NA_real_)
  for (year in 1:cfg$n_years) {
    gs <- genomic && year >= gs_from

    Variety <- selectInd(EYT, nInd = 1, use = "pheno", simParam = SP)
    EYT <- ph(selectInd(AYT, nInd = cfg$n_eyt, use = "pheno", simParam = SP),
              cfg$rep_eyt)

    if (gs) {            # lever 1: a more accurate criterion at the PYT stage
      PYT@ebv <- setPheno(PYT, varE = cfg$var_e,
                          reps = cfg$rep_pyt * cfg$gs_boost,
                          onlyPheno = TRUE, simParam = SP)
      AYT <- ph(selectInd(PYT, nInd = cfg$n_ayt, use = "ebv", simParam = SP),
                cfg$rep_ayt)
    } else {
      AYT <- ph(selectInd(PYT, nInd = cfg$n_ayt, use = "pheno", simParam = SP),
                cfg$rep_ayt)
    }

    PYT <- selectWithinFam(HDRW, nInd = cfg$fam_max, use = "pheno", simParam = SP)
    PYT <- ph(selectInd(PYT, nInd = cfg$n_pyt, use = "pheno", simParam = SP),
              cfg$rep_pyt)
    HDRW <- ph(DH, cfg$rep_hdrw)
    DH   <- makeDH(F1, cfg$n_dh, simParam = SP)

    if (gs) {            # lever 2: recycle parents a year earlier, from the PYT
      PYT@ebv <- setPheno(PYT, varE = cfg$var_e,
                          reps = cfg$rep_pyt * cfg$gs_boost,
                          onlyPheno = TRUE, simParam = SP)
      EYT@ebv <- pheno(EYT); AYT@ebv <- pheno(AYT)
      Parents <- selectInd(c(EYT, AYT, PYT), nInd = cfg$n_eyt + cfg$n_ayt,
                           use = "ebv", simParam = SP)
    } else {
      Parents <- c(EYT, AYT)
    }
    F1 <- randCross(Parents, cfg$n_crosses, simParam = SP)

    out$meanG[year]      <- meanG(PYT)
    out$varG[year]       <- varG(PYT)
    out$acc_pyt[year]    <- stats::cor(PYT@gv[, 1], PYT@pheno[, 1])
    out$gd_pyt[year]     <- gd_of(PYT, SP)
    out$gd_parents[year] <- gd_of(Parents, SP)
  }
  out
}
```

Two details are worth pausing on.

The advancing loop runs backwards. The elite trial is filled *before* the advanced trial is refilled, which is before the preliminary trial is refilled. Written in the other order, `EYT` would be selected from

an AYT that had already been overwritten with this year's cohort, and the programme would advance two stages per year without anyone noticing. Ordering is the whole correctness argument of a staged simulation.

Progress is reported at the PYT. It is the first stage with a yield phenotype and the last with enough entries for a variance to mean anything – meanG on four elite lines is noise. This is the course's choice and it is the right one.

```
ps <- run_programme(sch, seed = 1, genomic = FALSE)
fmt(ps[c(1, 5, 10, 15), ])
```

	year	meanG	varG	acc_pyt	gd_pyt	gd_parents
1	1	4.1209	0.1227	0.4863	0.4647	0.4353
5	5	4.6397	0.0868	0.1795	0.3985	0.4018
10	10	4.9367	0.0772	0.4830	0.3899	0.3644
15	15	5.0549	0.1296	0.4062	0.3778	0.3524

Genetic mean rises, genetic variance falls, and gene diversity of the preliminary trial falls with it. Nothing here is surprising; what matters is that all three are now being measured on the same run.

> **i** These numbers are reproducible
>
> The founders come from quickHaplo(), which is seeded by set.seed(), so run_programme(sch, seed = 1) returns the same data frame every time – unlike Chapter 9.'s Step 8, whose runMacs2() founders are not reproducible. That is what makes the paired comparison below legitimate: the phenotypic and genomic arms are run from the *same* seed, so they share founders, and every difference between them is attributable to the scheme.

22.4 Genomic selection: two levers, not one

Genomic selection is usually described as buying accuracy. It buys two things, and the second is normally the larger (R. C. Gaynor *et al.* [194]; T. H. E. Meuwissen, B. J. Hayes, and M. E. Goddard [69]):

1. **Accuracy earlier in the cycle.** A prediction is available on a line that has been genotyped but barely phenotyped, so the advance from preliminary to advanced trial can be made on better information than one location's yield.
2. **A shorter generation interval.** Parents can be recycled from the preliminary trial instead of waiting for the elite trial – and the breeder's equation of Chapter 4. is a rate *per unit time*, so cutting years off the cycle raises gain per year even at unchanged accuracy per selection.

This chapter mimics the prediction rather than fitting one: ebv is filled with a phenotype simulated at gs_boost times the replication, which is a stand-in for a genomic prediction of the corresponding accuracy. 3 is where the book actually fits prediction models and measures what accuracy is attainable; the honest statement here is that this chapter *assumes* an accuracy and studies its consequences, rather than earning it.

```
gs <- run_programme(sch, seed = 1, genomic = TRUE, gs_from = 6)
fmt(gs[c(1, 5, 10, 15), ])
```

	year	meanG	varG	acc_pyt	gd_pyt	gd_parents
1	1	4.1209	0.1227	0.4863	0.4647	0.4353
5	5	4.6397	0.0868	0.1795	0.3985	0.4018
10	10	4.9378	0.0663	0.3026	0.3969	0.3517
15	15	5.5676	0.0686	0.4497	0.3148	0.3038

Years 1 to 5 are identical to the phenotypic arm, digit for digit, because genomic selection only switches on in year 6. That is a matched control in the sense Chapter 24. uses the term: the two arms share a history, so the comparison is paired rather than between two independent runs.

22.5 The comparison, replicated

One run of one seed is an anecdote. Both arms are cheap enough to replicate.

```
seeds <- 1:24
reps <- do.call(rbind, lapply(seeds, function(s) {
  a <- run_programme(sch, s, genomic = FALSE)
  b <- run_programme(sch, s, genomic = TRUE, gs_from = 6)
  rate <- function(d) stats::coef(stats::lm(meanG ~ year,
                                            data = d[d$year >= 6, ]))[2]
  data.frame(seed = s,
             gain_ps = rate(a),      gain_gs = rate(b),
             gd_ps   = a$gd_pyt[nrow(a)], gd_gs = b$gd_pyt[nrow(b)],
             end_ps  = a$meanG[nrow(a)],  end_gs = b$meanG[nrow(b)])
}))

paired <- function(x, y) {
  d <- y - x
  c(mean_difference = mean(d), t = mean(d) / (stats::sd(d) / sqrt(length(d))))
}
fmt(rbind(`gain per year`      = paired(reps$gain_ps, reps$gain_gs),
          `gene diversity, yr 15` = paired(reps$gd_ps, reps$gd_gs),
          `genetic mean, yr 15`   = paired(reps$end_ps, reps$end_gs)))
```

	mean_difference	t
gain per year	0.0285	8.0851
gene diversity, yr 15	−0.0280	−2.8310
genetic mean, yr 15	0.2771	6.0496

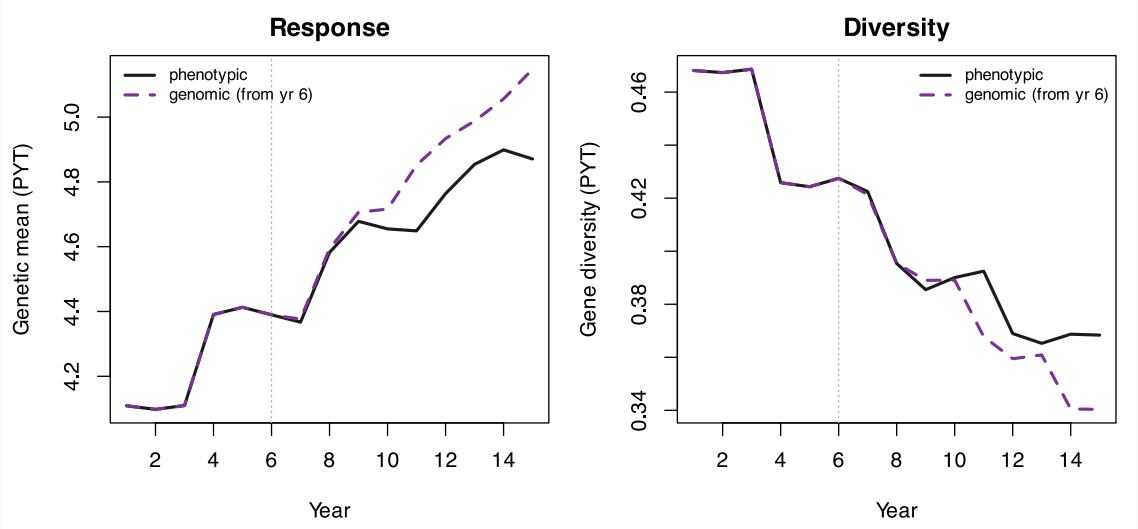

Figure 22.2: Twenty-four paired runs, genomic selection switched on in year 6. Left: genetic mean of the preliminary yield trial. Right: gene diversity of the same population. The faster programme is also the one spending diversity faster.

Genomic selection raises the rate of gain by roughly half, and the paired `t`-statistic leaves no doubt about the sign. That is the result R. C. Gaynor *et al.* [194] reports and the reason two-part strategies were adopted.

The second row is the one this book exists for. **Gene diversity in the preliminary trial is significantly lower under genomic selection at year 15**, and it is lower for a reason that is structural rather than incidental: recycling parents from the preliminary trial means recycling them a year before the trial data could have distinguished full sibs, so the parents chosen are more closely related than the

ones the phenotypic arm would have chosen. A shorter generation interval is a higher rate of coancestry accumulation per unit time, not merely per cycle.

22.6 The diversity ledger

The measurement above used gene diversity of the preliminary trial. The parent set is the population that actually transmits, and it is the one an optimal contribution scheme would act on:

```
ledger <- data.frame(
  year       = yr,
  gd_pyt_ps  = avg("ps", "gd_pyt"),  gd_pyt_gs  = avg("gs", "gd_pyt"),
  gd_par_ps  = avg("ps", "gd_parents"), gd_par_gs = avg("gs", "gd_parents"))
fmt(ledger[c(1, 5, 10, 15), ])
```

	year	gd_pyt_ps	gd_pyt_gs	gd_par_ps	gd_par_gs
1	1	0.4681	0.4681	0.4418	0.4418
5	5	0.4243	0.4243	0.4158	0.4158
10	10	0.3901	0.3891	0.3812	0.3758
15	15	0.3684	0.3404	0.3628	0.3327

```
loss <- function(v) (ledger[[v]][1] - ledger[[v]][nrow(ledger)]) / ledger[[v]][1]
fmt(c(`PYT, phenotypic`   = loss("gd_pyt_ps"), `PYT, genomic`   = loss("gd_pyt_gs"),
      `parents, phenotypic` = loss("gd_par_ps"), `parents, genomic` =
loss("gd_par_gs")))
#>     PYT, phenotypic        PYT, genomic parents, phenotypic    parents, genomic
#>              0.2131               0.2729              0.1788              0.2470
```

Those four numbers are exactly the quantity this book calls `alpha`: the proportional loss of gene diversity, here measured against the programme's own starting point rather than against a random-selection baseline of the same size (Section 11.9 is where that distinction is made, and it matters – a same-size random baseline would attribute part of this loss to drift rather than to selection).

> **i** Status number, and why it is not the headline here
>
> `status_number()` on a set of fully inbred lines returns a value near or below 1, because a homozygous line has self-coancestry `f_ii = 1` and the diagonal dominates the mean. That is the same arithmetic Chapter 7. explains for a biparental cross, and it is correct rather than broken – but it makes `N_s` an unhelpful headline for a line-breeding programme. Gene diversity is the metric that stays interpretable across both inbred and outbred populations, which is why the ledger is written in it.

What would an `alpha` budget mean here? Not a constraint on which hybrids to sell, as in Chapter 16., but a constraint on **which parents to recycle**: the same optimal-contribution problem of Chapter 15., applied to the `c(EYT, AYT, PYT)` candidate set that the genomic arm selects from. The candidate set is small, the coancestry matrix is cheap, and the choice being constrained is annual. Chapter 23. is the argument for why that constraint pays back, and Chapter 24. is where the payback is predicted rather than observed.

22.7 Assumptions

What this models. Staged testing with replication rising across stages, genotype-by-environment interaction as a variance component (`SP$addTraitAG(varGxE = )`), doubled-haploid line development, within-family caps, a steady-state programme reached through a burn-in, and two distinct genomic-selection levers separated so their effects can be told apart.

What it does not. Genomic prediction is *mimicked* by adding replication, not fitted – so the accuracy is assumed rather than earned, and the training population, its size, and its relationship to the selection candidates play no role (3 is where they do). There is one trait, so the index questions of Chapter 9.'s Step 7 do not arise. Locations differ only through a variance component: there is no correlated environment

structure, no year effect, and no location-by-year term, so a "location" here is an independent draw rather than a place. Doubled-haploid production is instantaneous and never fails. Founders come from `quickHaplo()`, so they carry no linkage disequilibrium – Chapter 9.'s Step 1 measures what that costs and argues it is the right trade for a chapter about response rather than about marker-QTL association.

Scale. 40 founders, 600 loci, 15 years, 24 paired seeds, all live at render. R. C. Gaynor *et al.* [194]'s programme is an order of magnitude larger in every dimension; the qualitative results here are the ones that survive the reduction, and the absolute rates are not comparable to a real wheat programme.

22.8 Where this connects

Chapter 9. supplies every primitive this chapter uses and builds them into the hybrid scheme instead; the two chapters are the same toolkit pointed at the two kinds of programme. Chapter 4. is where the breeder's equation says why a shorter generation interval raises gain per year. 3 is where the accuracy this chapter assumes is actually measured, and Chapter 10. is where marker-versus-QTL, the reason that accuracy is finite, is taken seriously.

The diversity result belongs to the book's spine. Chapter 23. shows the same tension – faster response, faster erosion – with the package's own simulator over a longer horizon; Chapter 24. explains why the erosion is what bounds the programme and when it can be predicted; Chapter 15. is the machinery for spending the budget deliberately rather than discovering afterwards what was spent.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **04d-breeding-programme.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

23. Diversity across cycles

Chapter 25. will end with a list of things its numbers cannot tell you, and the last item on it is the one that matters most: *one cycle, not a trajectory. A one-cycle constraint is not a multi-cycle policy.*

Every result on hybrid selection under the α budget has so far been a single round. Trajectories have appeared before – the recurrent-selection cycles of Chapter 9. (Step 8) and the whole programme of Chapter 22. – but not with the diversity constraint applied cycle after cycle. Nobody pays an index cost for diversity in order to have more diversity. They pay it because of what next cycle can do with it, and that argument has so far been taken on faith. This chapter runs the constrained selection forward and checks.

23.1 The cycle

Selection happens at the hybrid level, on $A \times B$ crosses. Recycling happens *within* pool. That asymmetry is the whole design, and getting it backwards would quietly destroy the thing Chapter 5. says the programme is selling: a doubled haploid derived from an $A \times B$ hybrid is a blend of both pools, and a programme that recycled hybrids would merge its heterotic groups within a few cycles.

What crosses the pool boundary is *information* – which lines proved themselves in hybrid combination – and never germplasm.

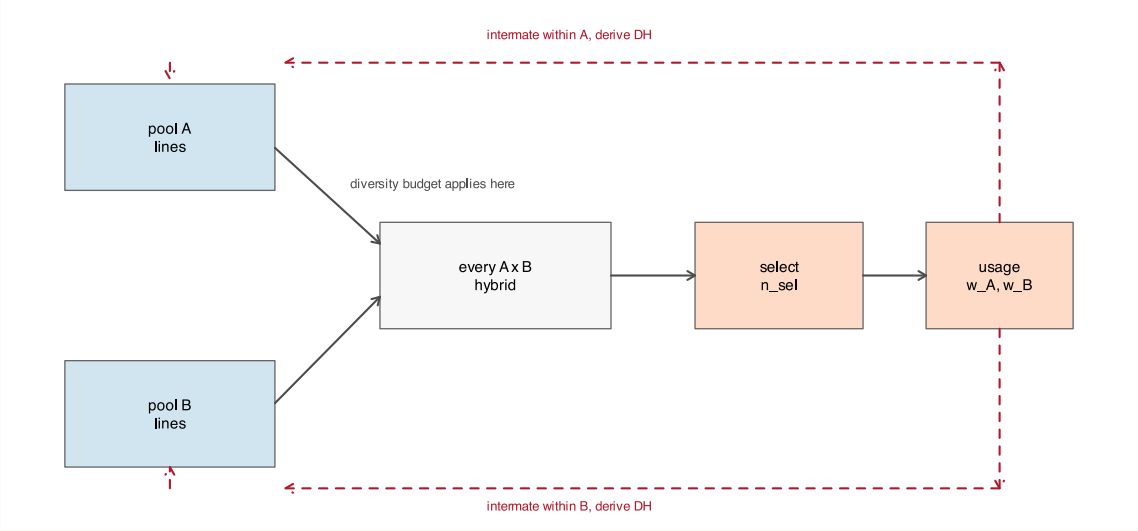

Figure 23.1: One cycle. Hybrids are evaluated across the pool boundary; lines are recycled inside it. The usage weights are the only channel between the two, and they are what `line_weights()` returns.

`run_cycles()` is the loop. The assumptions it runs under, stated once:

C1. Loci are unlinked. Every marker segregates independently, so no linkage disequilibrium builds up and there is no Bulmer effect on the genic side. This is the same abstraction Chapter 6. already makes; Chapter 7. is where linkage is modelled properly, and `build_map()`/`meiosis()` are there if this ever has to change.

C2. Recycling is by doubled haploid. Two parents are drawn within pool with probability proportional to usage, and one DH is derived per pair. Because the lines are inbred, `(GL[i, ] + GL[j, ]) / 2` lies in $\{0, 0.5, 1\}$ and a single Bernoulli draw per locus is an *exact* gamete, not an approximation.

C3. Pool sizes are constant. 25 lines per pool, every cycle. A real programme varies this, and the variation is itself a diversity decision.

C4. Marker effects are fixed. The same β throughout, so the index is comparable across cycles and gain accumulates on the founding cycle's scale. No new mutation, no changing selection target, no genotype-by-environment.

C5. The base p_0 is frozen at cycle 0 and carried forward. This is the subject of the next section.

C6. The pool is closed unless a germplasm injection is scheduled.

C7. The index is known without error. Chapter 12. Finding 5 measures what relaxing this does within a cycle; the effect compounds across cycles and is not modelled here. Every gain figure below is therefore an optimistic ceiling, for all budgets equally.

C8. Selection is on the hybrid only. No per-se line selection, no stage structure. Chapter 13. is where the multi-stage version lives.

23.2 Freezing p_0, and what happens if you do not

`build_ctx()` sets `p0 <- colMeans(X)` on every call. Run it fresh each cycle and the drift lens is re-anchored to the population it is supposed to be measuring drift *away from*, which reports approximately zero loss forever while the pool erodes underneath.

The demonstration needs two generations and nothing else:

```
sim <- simulate_pools(n_A = 25, n_B = 25, m = 2000, seed = 1)
p0  <- colMeans(sim$X)                       # the founding base, frozen here
GL5 <- sim$GL
set.seed(7)
for (t in 1:5) {                              # five generations of drift
  GL5 <- rbind(next_pool(GL5[1:25, ], rep(1, 25), 25),
               next_pool(GL5[26:50, ], rep(1, 25), 25))
}
ped5 <- expand.grid(a = 1:25, b = 25 + 1:25)
X5   <- (GL5[ped5$a, ] + GL5[ped5$b, ]) / 2

drift <- function(X, base) {
  p <- colMeans(X); k <- base > 1e-6 & base < 1 - 1e-6
  mean((p[k] - base[k])^2 / (base[k] * (1 - base[k])))
}
c(frozen_p0   = drift(X5, p0),
  reanchored  = drift(X5, colMeans(X5)))
#>  frozen_p0 reanchored
#> 0.08693168 0.00000000
```

The second number is zero by construction: a population is never drifted from itself. Five generations of real drift have been reported as none.

> ! This is the most common way to get a multi-cycle report wrong
>
> Chapter 10. named it as the single most frequent error in applying `F_hom` and `F_drift`, and Chapter 25. repeats it in the operational checklist. `run_cycles()` therefore takes `p0` once and overwrites it on every rebuilt context. It is one assignment, and every drift number in this chapter depends on it.

23.3 The trajectory

Three budgets, fifteen cycles, five seeds each. `alpha_max = Inf` is the unconstrained programme: it takes the best hybrids it can find and accepts whatever that costs.

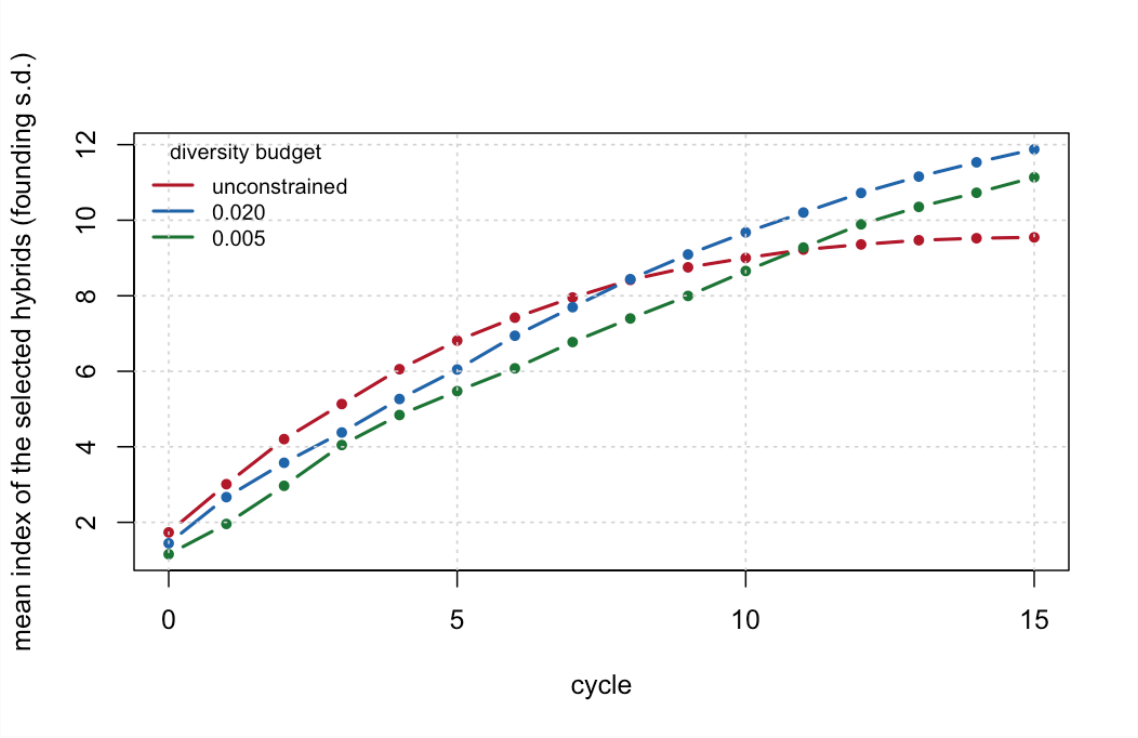

Figure 23.2: Mean index of the selected hybrids, in founding-cycle standard deviations, averaged over five seeds. The unconstrained programme leads for eight cycles and then stops climbing. Neither constrained programme has stopped by cycle 15.

cycle	alpha <= 0.005	alpha <= 0.02	unconstrained
0	1.16	1.45	1.73
3	4.05	4.38	5.13
5	5.47	6.05	6.81
8	7.40	8.44	8.42
10	8.66	9.68	9.00
12	9.89	10.72	9.36
15	11.14	11.88	9.55

The unconstrained run wins the first eight cycles and loses every cycle after that. By cycle 15 the $\alpha \leq 0.02$ programme is 2.33 standard deviations ahead – 24% more gain, from a programme that gave up 17% of its gain in year one.

The mechanism is visible in the diversity panel:

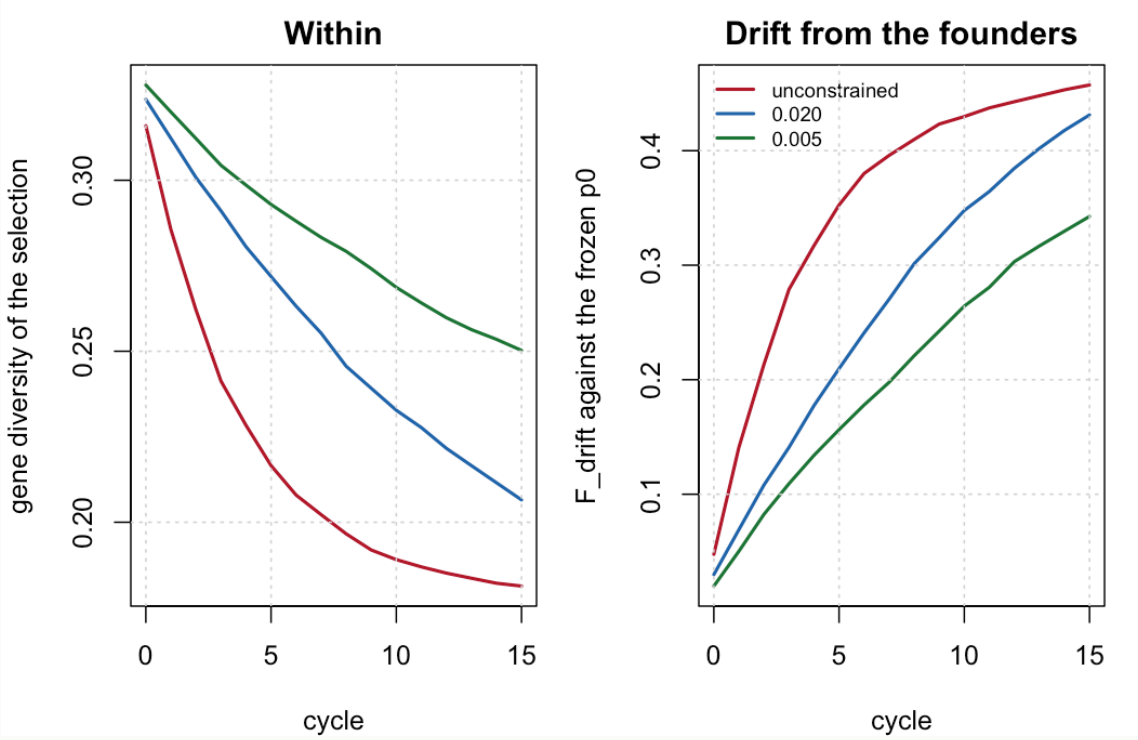

Figure 23.3: Left: gene diversity of the selection. Right: F_drift against the frozen founding base. The unconstrained programme spends nearly its whole diversity endowment by cycle 8 and has little left to convert afterwards.

The unconstrained programme is not out-selected. It is out of material. Its F_{drift} reaches 0.41 by cycle 8 and only 0.457 by cycle 15 – it has converted almost everything it had into gain, early, and then has nothing to convert.

23.3.1 It is not an artefact of the cheap selector

The trajectories above use a greedy sweep, which is what makes fifteen cycles by five seeds by three budgets affordable. Chapter 16.'s differential evolution finds slightly better plans per cycle. Re-running one seed with it:

cycle	0.020 de	0.020 greedy	unconstrained de	unconstrained greedy
0	1.39	1.37	1.53	1.53
4	5.53	5.98	5.22	6.60
8	8.44	9.56	7.40	9.08
12	10.47	11.73	7.99	9.84

The crossover reproduces. Under DE the constrained programme is ahead by 2.48 at cycle 12, against 1.89 under greedy. The cheap selector understates the case rather than manufacturing it.

There is a second thing in that table worth not glossing over: DE reaches a *lower* absolute index than greedy by cycle 12 in both columns, despite finding a better plan in every individual cycle. It uses more of the budget each time – $\alpha = 0.0200$ against greedy's 0.0177 at cycle 0 – and spends the difference out of the next cycle's inheritance. **Per-cycle optimality is not multi-cycle optimality.** This is one seed and should be read as a flag rather than a result, but it is the same trade the whole chapter is about, one level up.

23.4 The rate of inbreeding, and what N_s is not

Chapter 25.'s checklist says to regress $\log(1 - F)$ on cycle and check that it is linear, because curvature means a non-constant rate. Doing it:

```r
rate <- do.call(rbind, lapply(unique(traj$budget), function(b) {
  d <- aggregate(F_drift ~ cycle, traj[traj$budget == b, ], mean)
  f <- lm(log(1 - F_drift) ~ cycle, d[-1, ])
  data.frame(budget = b, dF_per_cycle = -coef(f)[["cycle"]],
             Ne = 1 / (-2 * coef(f)[["cycle"]]), R2 = summary(f)$r.squared)
}))
fmt(rate, 4)
```

budget	dF_per_cycle	Ne	R2
unconstrained	0.0292	17.1146	0.8534
0.020	0.0358	13.9841	0.9931
0.005	0.0265	18.8898	0.9976

The diagnostic fires, and it fires on the unconstrained run: $R^2 = 0.853$ against 0.998 for the tightest budget. The unconstrained rate is not constant because it is decelerating – there is progressively less left to lose. Read naively its fitted ΔF is the *lowest* of the three, which is exactly backwards; the fit is meaningless for a saturating series, and the R^2 column is what says so.

> ⚠ **N_s does not project this**
>
> Section 11.3 insists that the status number is a static descriptor and not a drift projection. Here is the size of the discrepancy: N_s computed on the selected hybrids averages 0.67 across all of these runs, while the realised effective size implied by the drift they actually accumulated is between 14 and 19.
>
> They are not the same quantity and are not off by a constant. Report N_s as a descriptor of a plan, and measure ΔF from the trajectory.

23.5 Choosing a budget for a horizon

Every seed crosses over, and the cycle at which it happens is the useful number:

seed	alpha <= 0.02	alpha <= 0.005
1	8	11
2	12	15
3	10	12
4	7	10
5	5	9

The tighter budget always crosses later and always ends higher. That is the whole trade, and it makes the choice of $\alpha_{\max}$ a function of the planning horizon rather than a matter of taste:

Planning horizon	Budget	Why
3 cycles or fewer	do not constrain	the crossover has not happened yet; the constraint is pure cost
about 5 to 8 cycles	alpha ~ 0.02	the looser budget has crossed and the tighter one has not
10 cycles or more	alpha ~ 0.005 to 0.02	both have crossed; the tighter budget is still climbing
indefinite	constrain, and inject	no closed budget holds forever – see below

The caveat matters more than the numbers. `n_sel = 60` out of 625 candidates from 25 + 25 lines is a small, intensely selected programme, and the crossover arrives sooner the harder the selection is. What transfers is the shape: an unconstrained programme leads early, saturates, and is passed.

23.6 The per-line cap, at last measurable

Chapter 16. carries `max_use` through every selector, defaulting to `NULL` everywhere, because within a single cycle a usage cap only costs index. Across cycles it is buying something, and this is where it can be seen. Same budget ($\alpha \leq 0.02$), same seeds, three caps:

max_use	cycle	index	GD	F_drift	max_line
3	0	0.491	0.329	0.005	3.0
6	0	1.305	0.323	0.025	6.0
none	0	1.446	0.324	0.030	12.4
3	5	2.423	0.296	0.104	3.0
6	5	5.788	0.270	0.194	6.0
none	5	6.047	0.272	0.210	15.4
3	10	4.058	0.268	0.185	3.0
6	10	9.216	0.233	0.316	6.0
none	10	9.677	0.233	0.348	15.4
3	15	5.532	0.247	0.250	3.0
6	15	11.268	0.210	0.395	6.0
none	15	11.877	0.207	0.431	16.4

`max_use = 6` costs 5% of cycle-15 gain and holds F_{drift} to 0.395 against 0.431, while the uncapped programme leans on one line 16 times in its final cycle. `max_use = 3` is too tight: it halves the gain and is not compensated.

Note *which* lens the cap moves. Gene diversity at cycle 15 is essentially the same with the cap and without it (0.21 against 0.207), because α is already pinning that. The difference shows up in F_{drift}, which is the lens Chapter 10. established the constraint does *not* pin. The cap is a handle on the uncontrolled lens, which is exactly why it is worth having in addition to the budget and not instead of it.

This changes no default. `max_use` remains `NULL` throughout the package.

23.7 Injection, and what it costs

No closed budget holds indefinitely: all three trajectories are still losing diversity at cycle 15, only at different rates. Chapter 21. and Chapter 25. both prescribe periodic germplasm injection, and Chapter 8. is the machinery that performs it – introgression is how new material enters an elite pool without dragging the rest of the genome with it.

Replacing six of the twenty-five lines in each pool with founding-generation material at cycle 8:

regime	cycle	index	GD	F_drift
closed	7	7.697	0.255	0.270
injected	7	7.697	0.255	0.270
closed	8	8.440	0.246	0.301
injected	8	6.469	0.283	0.182
closed	10	9.677	0.233	0.348
injected	10	7.865	0.270	0.233
closed	12	10.722	0.222	0.385
injected	12	9.391	0.254	0.291
closed	15	11.877	0.207	0.431
injected	15	11.283	0.234	0.364

The cost is immediate and the return is slow. Gene diversity jumps from 0.246 to 0.283 and F_{drift} falls by 40%, but the index drops 1.97 standard deviations on the spot, and **has not repaid by cycle 15** (11.28 against 11.88).

That is the honest result and it should not be dressed up. Within this horizon injection buys a restored resource and not more gain; it is the same trade as the diversity budget itself, at a longer wavelength and a steeper entry price. The run that would repay it is longer than fifteen cycles, and the founders used here are the programme's own – unadapted material from a genebank would cost considerably more.

23.8 What the corpus supports

Appendix D.'s screened corpora hold 687 plant and 324 animal records, of which a substantial block concerns recurrent selection and long-term gain: two-part and rapid-cycling programme designs, optimal

cross selection evaluated over cycles rather than within one, and simulation studies of the long-term effects of genomic selection on both gain and variance.

The qualitative shape found here – early advantage to unconstrained selection, saturation, then a crossover – is the standard finding in that literature. G. Gorjanc, R. C. Gaynor, and J. M. Hickey [121] optimise cross selection explicitly for long-term gain in two-part programmes and report the same tension between per-cycle and multi-cycle optimality that the DE comparison above ran into. A. Allier, C. Lehermeier, A. Charcosset, L. Moreau, and S. Teyssèdre [122] separate the short-term and long-term components directly. Y. C. J. Wientjes, P. Bijma, M. P. L. Calus, B. J. Zwaan, Z. G. Vitezica, and J. van den Heuvel [195] track what genomic selection does to additive variance over many generations, which is the mechanism behind the saturation seen here, and A.-C. Doublet, P. Croiseau, S. Fritz, A. Michenet, C. Hozé, and C. Danchin-Burge [196] measure the diversity cost in three dairy cattle breeds where the cycles have actually been run. J. E. Rutkoski [197] is the counterpart caution: realised rates of gain are harder to estimate from an operating programme than a simulation makes them look. D. Müller, P. Schopp, and A. E. Melchinger [198] is the closest thing in the corpus to the selection criterion used here, chosen for its effect on later cycles rather than the current one. What Chapter 21. listed as unestablished was something narrower and remains so: nobody has published the crossover *for a θ-constrained hybrid maize programme measured against a same-size resampling baseline*. This chapter demonstrates it in simulation, under C1-C8, which is not the same as establishing it in an operating programme.

23.9 Where this connects

Chapter 5. argued that what builds a heterotic pattern is divergence aligned with dominance, and that selection on cross performance is the only process in the programme that searches for it. This chapter is that process running. The GD_{BS} column of `cycles_trajectory.csv` rises in every run – the pools do separate under reciprocal selection, as they should – while GD within them falls, which is the trade Chapter 11.'s partition was built to expose.

Chapter 25. is the single cycle, in operational detail. Read it as cycle 0 of this chapter, and read its final checklist – freeze p_0, keep the per-stage ledger, check $\log(1 - F)$ for curvature, plan germplasm injection – as the four things this chapter has now shown the consequences of skipping.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **11b-diversity-across-cycles.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

24. The limit, and what the metrics cannot see

Chapter 23. ran the programme forward and found the crossover: a constrained programme trails an unconstrained one for about eight cycles and leads thereafter. That is a measurement. This chapter asks the two questions a measurement leaves open – could it have been *predicted*, and is the quantity being managed the quantity that actually matters.

The answers are yes-with-a-condition, and no-not-entirely.

24.1 Robertson's limit

Chapter 4. wrote down the response to one cycle of selection. Robertson (1960) wrote down the sum of all of them. Selection fixes alleles; a finite population fixes some of the favourable ones in the wrong direction; and the total advance before everything is fixed is approximately

$$R_{\text{total}} \approx 2N_e R_1 \tag{24.1}$$

with a half-life of about $1.4N_e$ generations. The result is the theoretical ancestor of every optimal-contribution scheme in this book: it is *why* N_e is the thing to manage, and it says exactly what a unit of N_e is worth in units of cumulative gain.

Both inputs are already in Chapter 23.' trajectory. R_1 is the first cycle's response, and N_e comes from the rate of inbreeding, exactly as Chapter 23. computed it:

```
rob <- do.call(rbind, lapply(unique(traj$budget), function(b) {
  d  <- aggregate(cbind(index, F_drift) ~ cycle, traj[traj$budget == b, ], mean)
  f  <- lm(log(1 - F_drift) ~ cycle, d[-1, ])
  Ne <- 1 / (-2 * coef(f)[["cycle"]])
  R1 <- d$index[2] - d$index[1]
  data.frame(budget = b, R2 = summary(f)$r.squared, Ne = Ne, R1 = R1,
             limit = 2 * Ne * R1, half_life = 1.4 * Ne,
             observed_15 = d$index[16] - d$index[1],
             predicted_15 = 2 * Ne * R1 * (1 - (1 - 1 / (2 * Ne))^15))
}))
fmt(rob, 3)
```

budget	R2	Ne	R1	limit	half_life	observed_15	predicted_15
unconstrained	0.853	17.115	1.277	43.697	23.960	7.812	15.688
0.020	0.993	13.984	1.222	34.167	19.578	10.431	14.378
0.005	0.998	18.890	0.802	30.281	26.446	9.980	10.032

Read the last two columns against each other, and then read both against the first.

24.2 The R^2 column decides whether the theory applies

For the tightest budget the prediction is 10.03 and the observation is 9.98. Robertson's theory, published in 1960 and derived for a single locus under idealised drift, predicts fifteen cycles of a genomic hybrid programme to better than one percent.

For the unconstrained programme it predicts 15.69 against an observed 7.81 – too high by about half.

The theory did not fail arbitrarily, and Chapter 23. already said why. Robertson assumes a *constant* rate of inbreeding, and the regression of $\log(1 - F)$ on cycle is where that assumption is testable. Its R^2 is 0.998 for the tightest budget and 0.853 for the unconstrained run, whose drift decelerates because there is

progressively less left to lose. That low R^2 is not a nuisance. It is the theory declining to apply, in advance, and in a column you can read before you trust the number.

> ! Do not quote a Robertson limit without its R^2
>
> N_e here is a *fitted* quantity, and Chapter 23. showed the fit is meaningless for a saturating series – its fitted ΔF comes out lowest for the run that is actually losing diversity fastest, which is backwards. Feeding that N_e into $2N_eR_1$ propagates the error into a number that looks like a long-term plan.
>
> Report the R^2 next to every limit, and treat a limit computed from a fit below about 0.99 as an illustration rather than a projection.

That yields an argument for the constraint that this book did not previously have. Chapter 23. justified α by where the trajectories cross. The table above adds: the constrained programme is the one whose future can be *computed*. An unconstrained programme is not merely worse after cycle 8, it is unforecastable, because the theory that would forecast it needs a constant ΔF that it does not have.

24.3 What the metrics cannot see

Now the second question. Every diversity metric in this book – θ, GD, N_s, allelic richness, `F_hom`, `F_drift` – is a function of allele frequencies **one locus at a time**. Chapter 4. showed that additive variance is not:

$$\mathrm{Var}(\mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\beta}) = V_{\mathrm{genic}} + 2\sum_{k<l}\beta_k\beta_l\ \mathrm{Cov}(x_k, x_l) \tag{24.2}$$

Directional selection drives that covariance term negative (Bulmer (1971)): it couples loci with like effects in repulsion, hiding genic variance from the next generation without moving a single allele frequency. No metric in the catalogue can detect it.

Chapter 23. assumed the effect away, in assumption **C1**: *loci are unlinked, so no linkage disequilibrium builds up and there is no Bulmer effect on the genic side.* That is worth testing rather than assuming, because Bulmer's 1971 treatment covers unlinked loci explicitly – free recombination halves the disequilibrium each generation, but selection regenerates it every generation, and the equilibrium is not zero.

24.3.1 The experiment

The gap $\mathrm{Var}(\mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\beta}) - V_{\mathrm{genic}}$ is **not** on its own a measure of the Bulmer effect. A finite founder base leaves disequilibrium in the very first cycle, and two divergent pools add more. So the comparison is against a control: an arm identical in every respect – same founders, same seeds, same recycling, same population sizes – in which the hybrids are chosen at random instead of on the index.

```
gapc <- aggregate(gap ~ regime + cycle, vr, mean)
w <- reshape(gapc, idvar = "cycle", timevar = "regime", direction = "wide")
names(w) <- sub("gap.", "", names(w))
w$selection_effect <- w$unconstrained - w$random
fmt(head(w[, c("cycle", "random", "unconstrained", "constrained",
               "selection_effect")], 7), 4)
```

	cycle	random	unconstrained	constrained	selection_effect
1	0	−0.0261	−0.0261	−0.0261	0.0000
4	1	−0.0716	−0.2686	−0.1984	−0.1970
7	2	−0.0328	−0.2167	−0.1930	−0.1839
10	3	−0.0320	−0.2616	−0.0264	−0.2296
13	4	0.0935	−0.0931	−0.0976	−0.1866
16	5	−0.0453	−0.1069	−0.1171	−0.0615
19	6	0.0512	−0.0711	−0.1130	−0.1223

Cycle 0 is identical across all three arms, to the digit. Nothing has been selected yet, so the control is doing its job.

From cycle 1 the arms separate. Paired within seed and cycle:

```
p  <- reshape(aggregate(gap ~ regime + seed + cycle, vr, mean),
              idvar = c("seed", "cycle"), timevar = "regime", direction = "wide")
p  <- p[p$cycle > 0, ]
dd <- p$gap.unconstrained - p$gap.random
c(mean_effect = mean(dd), se = sd(dd) / sqrt(length(dd)),
  t = mean(dd) / (sd(dd) / sqrt(length(dd))), n_pairs = length(dd))
#> mean_effect          se           t     n_pairs
#> -0.08568088  0.02108980 -4.06266819 96.00000000
```

⚠ Assumption C1 of Chapter 23. is too strong, and is restated here

Selection builds negative disequilibrium among **unlinked** loci, at $t = -4.06$ over 96 paired observations. Unlinked loci do not prevent the Bulmer effect; they make it decay fast.

What C1 should say is that with free recombination the disequilibrium is halved every generation, so it reaches a low equilibrium and does not accumulate across cycles the way frequency change does. That is what makes Chapter 23.' *frequency* trajectories trustworthy, and it is the correct reason – not the absence of the effect.

The effect is largest in the early cycles and decays toward zero late, which is the expected shape: it is proportional to the genic variance still available to be hidden, and by cycle 12 there is much less of it.

24.3.2 With real linkage

The same question with real meiosis behind it. Chapter 9.'s reciprocal recurrent selection runs on a coalescent founder history with a genetic map, and AlphaSimR reports `varA` (which carries the disequilibrium) and `genicVarA` (which does not), so this arm needs no variance code of its own.

```
lk$rel <- ((lk$varA_A - lk$genicVarA_A) + (lk$varA_B - lk$genicVarA_B)) /
          (lk$genicVarA_A + lk$genicVarA_B)
pl  <- reshape(lk[, c("regime", "seed", "cycle", "rel")],
               idvar = c("seed", "cycle"), timevar = "regime", direction = "wide")
pl  <- pl[pl$cycle > 0, ]
ddl <- pl$rel.selected - pl$rel.random
c(mean_effect = mean(ddl), se = sd(ddl) / sqrt(length(ddl)),
  t = mean(ddl) / (sd(ddl) / sqrt(length(ddl))), n_pairs = length(ddl))
#> mean_effect          se           t     n_pairs
#> -0.16493928  0.04672916 -3.52968674 32.00000000
```

Same sign, larger in magnitude, and measured with fewer replicates so the evidence is weaker. Linkage does what linkage should: it slows the decay, so the disequilibrium selection creates persists longer than it does under free recombination.

ℹ A reproducibility trap in the linked arm

`alphasimr_founder_pools()` is **not** reproducible from `cfg$seed`. `AlphaSimR::runMacs2()` hands the coalescent to MaCS, which seeds itself outside R's RNG, so two calls with the same configuration return different founder haplotypes. Everything downstream of the founders is seeded normally.

The consequence for an experiment like this one is severe: founding the pools separately for each arm would have compared two different base populations and charged the difference to selection. `book/scripts/regenerate.R` founds once per replicate and branches both arms off that single result, which is why cycle 0 of the table above matches exactly.

24.4 The two costs of selection

The chapter's result stated once.

Selection pays for gain twice. It builds negative covariance between loci, which is a real loss of usable variance, and **recombination repays it** – halved every generation under free recombination, more slowly

under linkage. And it changes allele frequencies, moving them toward fixation, and **nothing repays that** short of mutation or migration.

The first cost is invisible to every metric in this book and is largely self-correcting. The second is what every metric in this book measures, and is permanent.

That is the justification for constraining the second and ignoring the first, and it is a stronger statement than "the constraint is what we can compute". It is worth being explicit that this ordering is a *consequence* of the two decay rates, not an assumption: if the disequilibrium did not decay – tight linkage, few chromosomes, short cycle times – the ranking would change, and a constraint written on allele frequencies would be managing the smaller of the two bills.

24.5 Where this connects

Chapter 4. supplies the variance decomposition and the breeder's equation this chapter runs forward. Chapter 23. supplies the trajectories, and has one assumption restated as a result of the test above. Chapter 9. supplies the linked arm, which is the only place in the book where a genetic map, rather than an assumption about one, decides how fast disequilibrium decays.

Chapter 25.'s checklist gains one line from this chapter: report the R^2 of the $\log(1 - F)$ regression next to any projection built on N_e, and treat a projection from a poor fit as an illustration.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **11c-limits.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

25. End to end, and the operational checklist

Everything the book has built, run once, on one dataset, in the order a programme would run it. Then the checklist.

25.1 The whole pipeline in one script

```
st1 <- stage1_simulate(book_cfg)
c(hybrids = nrow(st1$X), markers = ncol(st1$X),
  f_min = min(st1$f), f_max = max(st1$f))
#>    hybrids    markers      f_min      f_max
#>  625.00000 2000.00000    0.64475    0.83175
```

```
n_sel <- round(0.10 * nrow(st1$X))
res <- suppressWarnings(stage2_select(
  X = st1$X, f = st1$f, hybrids = st1$hybrids,
  n_sel   = n_sel,
  alphas  = NULL,     # NULL = automatic grid, 0 to the attainable ceiling
  weights = NULL,     # NULL = equal weight across traits
  fL      = st1$fL,   # optional: enables theta_A / theta_B / theta_AB
  B_null = 500, B_full = 80, NP = 100, itermax = 200, verbose = FALSE))
```

> **i** The same pipeline as a script
>
> This chapter runs at the book's reduced scale so it renders in seconds. The identical pipeline at the **production** scale of `sim_config`, writing its tables to `report/`, is `inst/scripts/run_all.R`:
>
> ```
> Rscript inst/scripts/run_all.R          # ~4 min
> Rscript inst/scripts/run_benchmark.R    # ~6 min; the numbers quoted in README.md
> ```

With real data only the first line changes:

```
st1 <- stage1_build(X = my_hybrid_matrix, ped = my_pedigree,
                    traits = my_predicted_traits, fL = my_line_coancestry)
```

25.1.1 The reference values

```
unlist(res$ref)
#>          gd_ref           gd_se       alpha_max           n_sel population_bias
#>    3.259845e-01    3.556567e-05    3.938109e-02    6.200000e+01    6.467346e-03
```

`alpha_max` is the attainable ceiling from Section 11.9: the loss pure truncation would incur. Any requested budget above it constrains nothing, and `stage2_select()` says so rather than returning a solution that merely looks constrained.

25.1.2 Metrics per scenario

```
fmt(res$metrics[, c("scenario", "alpha", "index", "Ns", "Ne_parents",
                    "Ne_lines_A", "Ne_lines_B", "max_line", "alleles_lost")], 4)
```

scenario	alpha	index	Ns	Ne_parents	Ne_lines_A	Ne_lines_B	max_line	alleles_lost
DE_alpha_0.00	0.0000	1.1004	0.7418	27.4571	12.4805	15.2540	10	63
DE_alpha_0.98	0.0098	1.4141	0.7383	22.3488	9.1962	14.2370	14	81
DE_alpha_1.97	0.0195	1.6767	0.7349	18.0894	7.3359	11.7914	16	106
DE_alpha_2.95	0.0295	1.8523	0.7314	15.8843	5.9505	11.9379	20	116
DE_alpha_3.94	0.0357	1.9600	0.7292	14.3701	5.2948	11.1744	21	125
ref_truncation	0.0394	1.9701	0.7280	13.4877	4.6878	12.0125	23	124
ref_trunc_cap	0.0028	0.7769	0.7408	31.6379	15.7541	15.8843	4	47
ref_max_div	−0.0131	0.1100	0.7465	36.9615	18.6602	18.3048	5	36
ref_random	0.0011	0.0682	0.7414	37.3204	17.9626	19.4141	6	31

Read the `index` column against `alpha`. That is the price list: what each percentage point of diversity costs in index units, on this dataset, at this selection intensity.

Now read `Ne_parents` against `Ns` in the same rows. This is the diagnostic Chapter 10. called for, and the reason `Ne_parents` is a second constraint rather than a report line:

```
d <- res$metrics
fmt(data.frame(scenario = d$scenario,
               Ns = d$Ns,
               Ne_parents = d$Ne_parents,
               Ns_relative = d$Ns / max(d$Ns),
               Ne_par_relative = d$Ne_parents / max(d$Ne_parents)), 3)
```

scenario	Ns	Ne_parents	Ns_relative	Ne_par_relative
DE_alpha_0.00	0.742	27.457	0.994	0.736
DE_alpha_0.98	0.738	22.349	0.989	0.599
DE_alpha_1.97	0.735	18.089	0.984	0.485
DE_alpha_2.95	0.731	15.884	0.980	0.426
DE_alpha_3.94	0.729	14.370	0.977	0.385
ref_truncation	0.728	13.488	0.975	0.361
ref_trunc_cap	0.741	31.638	0.992	0.848
ref_max_div	0.747	36.962	1.000	0.990
ref_random	0.741	37.320	0.993	1.000

The status number barely moves across scenarios while the effective number of parents collapses. A programme reporting only N_s would see a healthy pool and a shrinking parent base it never measured.

25.1.3 Both lenses, and the pool partition

```
fmt(res$metrics[, c("scenario", "alpha", "F_hom", "F_drift", "cov_diag",
                    "rare_retained", "GD_WI_hyb", "GD_BS", "F_ST")], 4)
```

scenario	alpha	F_hom	F_drift	cov_diag	rare_retained	GD_WI_hyb	GD_BS	F_ST
DE_alpha_0.00	0.0000	0.0038	0.0161	−0.0123	0.8636	0.1834	0.0393	0.1205
DE_alpha_0.98	0.0098	0.0132	0.0248	−0.0116	0.8312	0.1829	0.0417	0.1293
DE_alpha_1.97	0.0195	0.0224	0.0348	−0.0124	0.7727	0.1828	0.0452	0.1414
DE_alpha_2.95	0.0295	0.0352	0.0422	−0.0069	0.7143	0.1818	0.0471	0.1490
DE_alpha_3.94	0.0357	0.0377	0.0490	−0.0113	0.7143	0.1821	0.0499	0.1586
ref_truncation	0.0394	0.0412	0.0534	−0.0121	0.7338	0.1822	0.0514	0.1640

scenario	alpha	F_hom	F_drift	cov_diag	rare_retained	GD_WI_hyb	GD_BS	F_ST
ref_trunc_cap	0.0028	0.0154	0.0114	0.0039	0.7273	0.1816	0.0370	0.1138
ref_max_div	−0.0131	−0.0124	0.0063	−0.0187	0.9481	0.1853	0.0362	0.1096
ref_random	0.0011	0.0081	0.0066	0.0015	0.9481	0.1805	0.0357	0.1097

`alpha` constrains the first lens only. `F_drift` is the unmonitored bill, and `cov_diag` is exactly the gap between them – verify it:

```
c(max_deviation_from_Eq3 =
    max(abs(d$cov_diag - (d$F_hom - d$F_drift)), na.rm = TRUE))
#> max_deviation_from_Eq3
#>           6.678685e-17
```

`GD_BS` rising across scenarios is selection concentrating on the most complementary line pairs, which pushes the pools further apart. That is not automatically bad – it is heterosis – but Chapter 13. is the reason to watch it rather than celebrate it.

25.1.4 Distance from the random null

```
fmt(res$z_scores[, c("scenario", "z_GD", "z_Ne_parents", "z_F_drift",
                     "z_rare_retained", "z_GD_BS", "z_ANE")], 2)
```

scenario	z_GD	z_Ne_parents	z_F_drift	z_rare_retained	z_GD_BS	z_ANE
DE_alpha_0.00	0.00	−5.63	7.71	−4.27	6.57	6.96
DE_alpha_0.98	−5.20	−8.56	14.78	−5.69	11.05	9.97
DE_alpha_1.97	−10.35	−11.00	22.79	−8.24	17.33	19.86
DE_alpha_2.95	−15.63	−12.26	28.76	−10.80	20.87	17.76
DE_alpha_3.94	−18.88	−13.13	34.27	−10.80	25.81	16.12
ref_truncation	−20.85	−13.64	37.81	−9.94	28.51	9.80
ref_trunc_cap	−1.47	−3.23	3.95	−10.23	2.44	17.27
ref_max_div	6.91	−0.18	−0.16	−0.57	0.96	5.91
ref_random	−0.59	0.03	0.08	−0.57	0.12	−0.43

Every metric in standard deviations from a random selection of the same size. A metric near zero is not distinguishing this plan from chance, and cannot be serving as a constraint.

25.1.5 The selection table

```
scn <- setdiff(names(res$selection), c(names(st1$hybrids), "n_scenarios"))
head(res$selection[order(-res$selection$n_scenarios),
                   c("hybrid", "line_A", "line_B", scn, "n_scenarios")], 8)
```

hybrid	line_A	line_B	DE_alpha_0.00	DE_alpha_0.98	DE_alpha_1.97	DE_alpha_2.95	DE_alpha_3.94	ref_truncation	ref_trunc_cap	ref_max_div	ref_random	n_scenarios
35	35	10	27	1	1	1	1	1	1	1	0	8
23	23	7	35	1	1	1	1	1	1	1	0	8
66	66	6	50	1	1	1	1	1	1	1	0	8
31	31	6	27	0	1	1	1	1	1	1	0	7
32	32	7	27	1	1	1	1	1	1	0	0	7
57	57	7	28	1	0	1	1	1	1	0	1	7
82	82	7	29	1	1	1	1	1	1	1	0	0	7
90	90	15	29	0	1	1	1	1	1	1	0	1	7

```
de_cols <- grep("^DE_", scn, value = TRUE)
c(scenarios          = length(scn),
```

```
  chosen_in_all_DE   = sum(rowSums(res$selection[, de_cols, drop = FALSE]) ==
                           length(de_cols)),
  never_chosen       = sum(res$selection$n_scenarios == 0),
  total_candidates   = nrow(res$selection))
#>        scenarios chosen_in_all_DE     never_chosen total_candidates
#>                9              18              386              625
```

`n_scenarios` is the most directly useful column in the whole output. Hybrids chosen under **every** diversity budget are robust to the choice of α – they are the plan's backbone, and the argument for them does not depend on a policy number nobody wants to defend. Hybrids that appear only at the loosest budget are the ones being bought with diversity.

25.2 Reading the frontier

```
plot(d$alpha * 100, d$index, type = "b", pch = 19, col = "#b2182b", lwd = 2,
     xlab = "gene diversity loss, alpha (%)", ylab = "mean index (s.d.)")
text(d$alpha * 100, d$index, d$scenario, pos = 4, cex = 0.65, col = "grey30")
abline(v = 0, lty = 3)
grid()
```

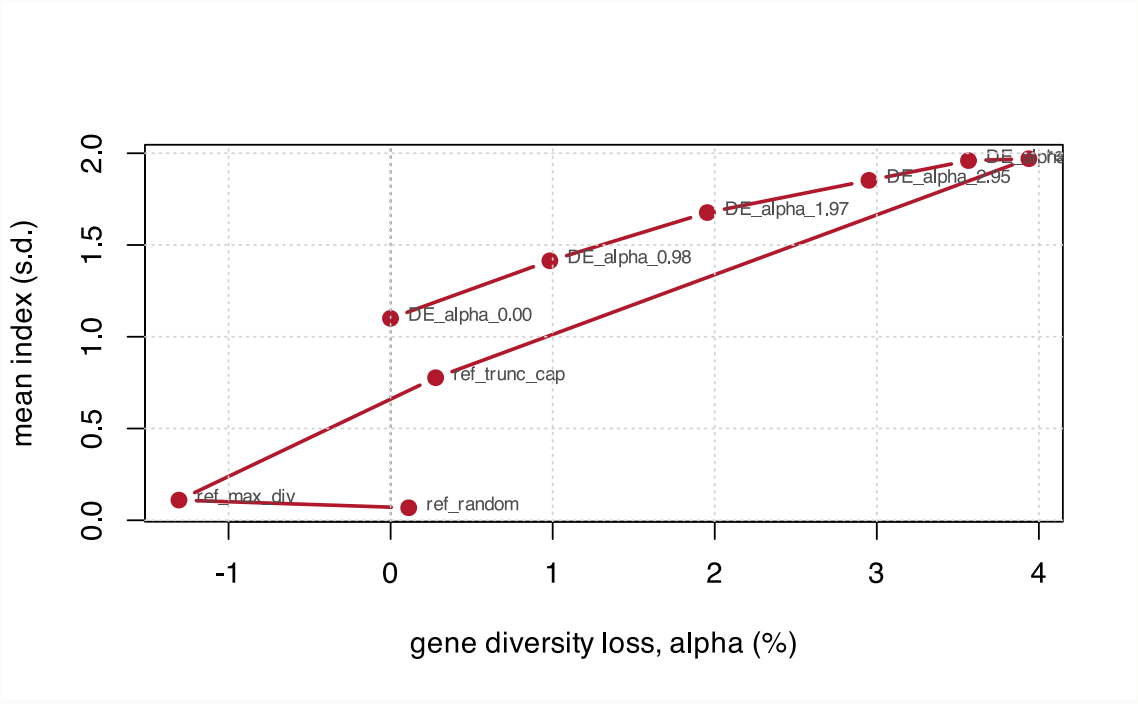

Figure 25.1: The price list. Each point is one diversity budget; the curve is what index it buys.

Choose the knee, not the endpoint. Past the knee, each additional unit of index costs disproportionately more diversity, and the diversity is not recoverable next cycle while the index gain is realised once.

25.3 What this simulation cannot tell you

Stated plainly, because the numbers above are precise and precision invites more confidence than the model supports.

The GEBVs carry no prediction error. The traits are built from *known* marker effects (Chapter 6.). Chapter 12. Finding 5 measures what happens when they do not: the reported index is biased upward, and error *correlated with relatedness* costs several times the diversity that independent error of the same size does. The plans below should be read as an optimistic ceiling.

The model is additive. An additive $\mathbf{G}$ misses heterosis and specific combining ability, which is precisely what a hybrid programme sells. The diversity constraint does not need a dominance model; the *mean-performance ranking* does (Chapter 5.). Do not conflate them, and do not use these `index` values as performance predictions.

The pools are symmetric by construction. Both are simulated from the same ancestral frequencies at the same F_{ST}. Real heterotic pools differ in size, history and internal structure, and a real programme will find one pool eroding faster than the other – which is why `ne_lines_pool()` is reported per pool.

N_s is not a drift projection. It is a static descriptor (Section 11.3). Do not extrapolate it forward.

One cycle, not a trajectory. Every result here is a single round of hybrid selection. Chapter 13. showed that a constraint applied at one stage buys stage-level diversity, not end-of-pipeline richness – and the same logic applies across cycles. A one-cycle constraint is not a multi-cycle policy: Chapter 23. runs fifteen of them and finds the unconstrained programme ahead for eight cycles and behind for the rest.

p_0 must be frozen. In this book it is set once in `build_ctx()`. In a real multi-cycle programme it must be the founder cycle's frequencies, propagated forward – the single most common error in applying `F_hom` and `F_drift` (Chapter 10.). Chapter 23. shows the failure directly: re-anchored, five generations of real drift are reported as exactly none.

25.4 The operational checklist

25.4.1 Setting up

- The base p_0 is frozen at the founding cycle and documented.
- Diversity is computed on molecular coancestry `f`, never on a centered `G`. Check `sum(G) == 0` once, to see why.
- The marker panel's MAF spectrum is known – it decides how severely the two lenses diverge.
- Heterotic-group assignment is recorded, with the method that produced it, and treated as uncertain.

25.4.2 Choosing the budget

- The attainable α ceiling is computed *before* choosing $\alpha_{\max}$. A budget above the ceiling constrains nothing.
- Loss is measured against a **same-size resampling baseline**, never against the full pool.
- The constraint is applied at the target set size, not incrementally.
- The frontier is traced and the knee chosen, rather than a round number.

25.4.3 Running the optimiser

- The search is encoded on **line weights**, not hybrid keys.
- The differential evolution is **warm-started** from greedy solutions.
- $N_{e,\mathrm{par}}$ is a second constraint, not a report line.
- The per-line usage cap is enforced in the decoder, not by penalty.
- The result is checked against the continuous relaxation. A large gap means the optimiser has not converged; a slack constraint means the search never reached the boundary.

25.4.4 Validating the plan

- `F_hom` and `F_drift` are computed **separately** and reported together, with `cov_diag` as the diagnostic.
- Allelic richness is computed on the returned plan – it is the one metric carrying information θ does not.
- The within/between pool decomposition confirms diversity was not preserved by degrading pool separation.
- The number of selected parent lines is biologically plausible.
- N_s is reported; a rate-based N_e is **not**, under active management.
- Every metric is reported against the random null, in standard deviations.

25.4.5 Across cycles

- The per-stage loss ledger is kept. DH induction, not hybrid mining, is usually where the diversity goes.
- The regression of $\log(1 - F)$ on cycle is checked for linearity. Curvature means a non-constant rate.

- Periodic germplasm injection is planned. A closed elite pool depletes however well the constraint is managed.
- The diversity cost per cycle is reported when cycle time is shortened.

25.5 Where to go next

Three extensions the material here supports but does not cover, each needing new work rather than new derivation:

Real data ingestion. `load_data()` is the single swap point and is currently a stub. A worked path from a VCF to the `X`/`f`/`hybrids` contract is what most readers will need first, and it is the one extension here that is pure engineering rather than new derivation.

Estimating the dominance deviations. Chapter 5. shows that expected heterosis depends on the alignment between divergence and d, and that no frequency-based statistic can see d. Everything downstream of that – ranking crosses on more than the mean, putting a number on the λ of Chapter 11. – waits on an estimate of d the book does not attempt.

Prediction error compounded across cycles. Chapter 12. Finding 5 measures it within one cycle and Chapter 23. assumes it away (C7). The two have not been run together, and the interaction is not obviously benign: correlated error concentrates the selection, and Chapter 23. shows concentration is what erodes the programme's future.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **12-case-study.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

Appendices

A. Notation and glossary

A.1 Symbols

The population-genetic quantities below are introduced together in Section 1.2; the tables give each one's symbol and the function that computes it.

Symbol	Meaning	In the code
N	candidate hybrids in the pool	`ctx$N`
n, n_{sel}	hybrids selected	`n_sel`
L	parent lines	`ctx$n_lines`
m	markers	`ctx$m`
x_{ik}	within-individual reference-allele frequency of individual i at marker k, in 0/0.5/1	`ctx$X[i, k]`
$\mathbf{X}$	hybrid marker matrix, N x m	`ctx$X`
$\mathbf{M}^H$	hybrid dosage matrix, N x m, 0/1/2; $\mathbf{X} = \mathbf{M}^H/2$	-
$\mathbf{M}^L$	line genotype matrix, L x m, reference-allele dosage coded 0/2	`simulate_lines()`
$\mathbf{G}^L$	line genotype matrix, L x m, coded 0/1; $\mathbf{G}^L = \mathbf{M}^L/2$	`ctx$GL`, `simulate_pools()$GL`
p_k, $\bar{p}_k$	allele frequency; the bar denotes a group mean	-
$p_{0,k}$	**frozen** candidate-pool allele frequency: the base	`ctx$p0`

A.1.1 Matrices

Symbol	Meaning	Note
$\mathbf{f}$	molecular coancestry of the **hybrids**, N x N, in [0, 1]	the diversity kernel; never centered
$\mathbf{f}^L$	molecular coancestry **between lines**, L x L	the sufficient statistic in disguise – see the collapse
$\mathbf{G}$	VanRaden genomic relationship, centered – prediction only	sum of all elements is exactly 0; unusable for diversity
$\mathbf{A}$	pedigree relationship	expectation of IBD, no markers
$\mathbf{G}_{0.5}$	VanRaden with the centering frequency fixed at 0.5	$4\mathbf{f} - 2\mathbf{J}$: an affine function of f, not f; orders selections as f does only when $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{c} = 1$
$\mathbf{Z}$	centered dosage $\mathbf{M}^H - \mathbf{1}\,2\mathbf{p}'$, N x m	builds $\mathbf{G}$; also the marker design matrix of $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{Z}\boldsymbol{\beta}$ (genomic prediction); not the subgroup indicator $\mathbf{Z}$ of joint allocation
$\mathbf{Z}_h$	hybrid marker matrix centred at 0.5, $\mathbf{X} - \frac{1}{2}\mathbf{J}_{N\times m}$, N x m	$\mathbf{G}_{0.5} = 8\mathbf{Z}_h\mathbf{Z}_h'/m$ (Section 10.7.7)
$\mathbf{J}$	matrix of ones $\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}'$, N x N; $\mathbf{J}_{r\times c}$ when rectangular	-
$\mathbf{B}$	parent-usage incidence, N x L: a 1 in the two columns of each hybrid's parents; $\mathbf{X} = \frac{1}{2}\mathbf{B}\mathbf{G}^L$	rank bounds that of $\mathbf{f}$ (Equation (10.6)); not the field budget B

A.1.2 Coancestry and diversity

Symbol	Definition	Function
θ_S	$n^{-2}\sum_i\sum_j f_{ij}$, diagonal **included**; the $\bar{f}$ of the partition below, with census weights (Chapter 3.)	`theta_group()`, `fast_theta()`

Symbol	Definition	Function
GD, H_e	$1-\theta$; these are the same quantity	`gene_diversity()`, `he_nei()`
N_s	$1/(2\theta)$	`status_number()`
$N_{e,\text{par}}$	$1/\sum_i p_i^2$ over parent-line usage	`ne_parents()`
f_{ii}	coancestry within subpopulation i; $1-f_{ii}=H_{e,i}$. For a single individual, the diagonal of $\mathbf{f}$, which is s_i	`ct_partition()`
s_i	self-coancestry; $F_i=2s_i-1$; for a single individual $s_i=f_{ii}$	`ct_partition()`
$\tilde{x}$	weighted mean **within** subpopulations	-
$\bar{x}$	mean over **all pairs**, between-subpopulation pairs included	-
H_o	observed heterozygosity: fraction of heterozygous loci, averaged over the individuals of the set; 0 for inbred lines, GD_T+GD_{BS} over the full hybrid factorial (Section 1.2)	-
n_{gam}	allele copies sampled per generation under drift (Equation (1.4))	-
ΔF	per-generation rate of inbreeding, $1/n_{gam}$ (Equation (1.4))	-
N_e	effective size, $1/(2\Delta F)$ (Equation (1.4)); not the asymptotic metapopulation N_e of the subdivided table below	-
$\bar{f}_d$, $\bar{f}_o$	mean of the diagonal (self-coancestries) and mean of the off-diagonal elements of $\mathbf{f}$ over a set; $\theta_S=\bar{f}_d/n+(n-1)\bar{f}_o/n$ (Chapter 11.)	-
$F_{(ab)}$	molecular inbreeding coefficient of the single cross $a\times b$, the fraction of markers at which it is homozygous; equals f_{ab}^L for inbred parents (Section 1.2)	`rowMeans(ctx$X != 0.5)`
η_{ij}	distance $1-f_{ij}$ used by E-NE and A-NE (Equation (11.8)); not D_{ij}, $\bar{d}_{ij}$ or MRD_{ij}	-
E-NE, A-NE	entry-to-nearest-entry and accession-to-nearest-entry distances (Equation (11.8))	`ene()`, `ane()`
MAF, A_{lost}	minor allele frequency; A_{lost} the markers with MAF ≥ 0.05 in the population and < 0.05 in the selection (Equation (11.7))	`alleles_lost()`
D_{eff}, γ_i	participation ratio $(\sum_i \gamma_i)^2/\sum_i \gamma_i^2$ over the eigenvalues γ_i of the double-centered $\mathbf{f}_S$ (Equation (11.9))	`eff_dim()`

Always $\bar{f}\leq\tilde{f}\leq\tilde{s}$. The differences between those three numbers *are* the partition of diversity.

A.1.3 The partition

Component	Definition	Meaning	In hybrid breeding
GD_T	$1-\bar{f}$	total	the pool's diversity
GD_{WI}	$1-\tilde{s}$	within individuals	0 for inbred lines; use `GD_WI_hyb` for the F1s
GD_{BI}	$\tilde{s}-\tilde{f}$	between individuals, within subpopulation	segregating variation available to selection
GD_{WS}	$1-\tilde{f}$	within subpopulations	within-pool diversity; equals GD_{BI} with inbred lines, the term recurrent selection erodes (Table 3.6)
GD_{BS}	$\tilde{f}-\bar{f}$	between subpopulations	the heterosis engine – **maintain**, do not maximise (Chapter 5.)

with $GD_T=GD_{WI}+GD_{BI}+GD_{BS}$ and $F_{ST}=GD_{BS}/GD_T$.

That F_{ST} is a statistic computed on a set of genotypes. The Balding-Nichols parameter of the simulations, `fst` in the code and written F_{BN} here, is a different quantity: it is the variance of a pool's allele frequency around the ancestral one, in units of $p(1-p)$ (see Terms). Chapter 5., Chapter 12., Chapter 13., Chapter 21., Chapter 25. and Appendix C. write that parameter as F_{ST} wherever it is a simulation setting or a Balding-Nichols expectation; read it there as F_{BN}. With two pools of unbounded size the expected GD_{BS} per locus is $F_{BN}\,p(1-p)$ and the expected GD_T is $(2-F_{BN})\,p(1-p)$, so the statistic estimates approximately $F_{BN}/(2-F_{BN})$ (a ratio of expectations), not F_{BN}: at F_{BN} = 0.15 that is 0.081, against 0.081 computed from simulated frequencies. On finite pools the statistic is larger again, because $\tilde{f}$ includes each line's self-coancestry: on the 25 + 25 lines that `simulate_pools()` draws at `fst` = 0.15 (seed 1), the F_{ST} of Chapter 3. is 0.102, and 0.084 once the diagonal is dropped from both $\tilde{f}$ and $\bar{f}$.

A.1.4 Subdivided population

Symbol	Meaning	Function
n, N_i, N_T	subpopulations; size of subpopulation i; $\sum_i N_i$ – **not** the hybrids selected and candidates above	`ct_partition()$by_subpop$N`
$p_{k,l,i}$	frequency of allele k within individual l of subpopulation i; for the reference allele of a biallelic marker, the within-individual frequency x above (whose second index is a marker, not an allele)	inside `ct_partition()`
F_i	molecular inbreeding, $2s_i - 1$, against a base with all alleles distinct	`ct_partition()$by_subpop$F_i`
$H_{o,i}$	observed heterozygosity of subpopulation i; $2(1 - s_i)$	-
α_i	$(F_i - f_{ii})/(1 - f_{ii})$, the F_{IS} analogue – **not** the diversity-loss constraint α	`ct_partition()$by_subpop$alp`
G_i, G	$(s_i - f_{ii})/(1 - f_{ii}) = (1 + \alpha_i)/2$; G the same with $\tilde{s}$, $\tilde{f}$ – **not** a relationship matrix $\mathbf{G}$	`ct_partition()$by_subpop$G_i`
D_{ij}, $\bar{D}$	Nei's minimum distance $(f_{ii} + f_{jj})/2 - f_{ij}$, an element of $\mathbf{D}$; $\bar{D} = \tilde{f} - \bar{f}$	`ct_partition()$D_nei`
$\bar{d}_{ij}$	mean distance between individuals of i and j, $(s_i + s_j)/2 - f_{ij}$; $\bar{d}_{ii} \neq 0$	-
N_e	asymptotic effective size of the metapopulation	-
V_W, V_B	variances of long-term contributions within / between subpopulations	-

These are the symbols of Chapter 3., which follow A. Caballero and M. A. Toro [10].

A.1.5 Heterosis and cycles

Symbol	Meaning	Function
d_k	dominance deviation at locus k	argument to `heterosis_value()`
a_k	additive effect at locus k; enters the GCA, not the SCA (Section 18.2)	-
δu_{ik}, δv_{jk}	centred 0/1 genotype of pool-A line i / pool-B line j at locus k: $u_{ik} - p_{Ak}$, $v_{jk} - p_{Bk}$	inside `heterosis_gca_sca()`
H_i	mid-parent heterosis of hybrid i; $\sum_k d_k$ over its heterozygous loci	`heterosis_value()`
$\bar{p}_k$	$(p_{Ak} + p_{Bk})/2$, the merged-pool frequency	inside `heterosis_partition()`
y_k	$p_{Ak} - p_{Bk}$, the divergence at locus k	`pool_complementarity()$mean_sc` is $\overline{y^2}$
g_i^A, g_j^B	general combining ability for heterosis; weighted by the **opposite** pool's frequencies	`heterosis_gca_sca()$gca_A`
s_{ij}	specific combining ability; $-2\sum_k d_k\, \delta u_{ik}\, \delta v_{jk}$	`heterosis_gca_sca()$sca`
σ^2_{SCA}	$4\sum_k d_k^2 p_{Ak} q_{Ak} p_{Bk} q_{Bk}$; its Balding-Nichols expectation falls as $(1 - F_{BN})^2$	closed form; see Section 5.12
λ	weight on within- against between-pool diversity – **not** the OCS penalty λ of the selection table	not implemented; see Chapter 11.
t	cycle index	`run_cycles()`
$p_0^{(0)}$	base frequencies, frozen at the founding cycle	`ctx$p0`, set once
M	one-locus population mean under random mating, $a(p - q) + 2pqd$	-
$G(\mathbf{x})$	genotypic value of an individual with marker row $\mathbf{x}$ (0/0.5/1); not the VanRaden $\mathbf{G}$	-
h_i	heterozygous fraction of hybrid i; its self-coancestry is $1 - h_i/2$	`rowMeans(ctx$X == 0.5)`
$GD_{WI\text{ - }hyb}$	within-individual gene diversity of the F1s, half their mean heterozygosity	`gd_partition()$GD_WI_hyb`
θ_A, θ_B, θ_{AB}	coancestry within pool A, within pool B, and between them, $\mathbf{w}'_A \mathbf{f}^L \mathbf{w}_B$ with $\mathbf{w}_A$ the pool-A block of $\mathbf{w}$ rescaled to sum to 1 within pool A (and $\mathbf{w}_B$ likewise), as `line_weights()` returns; the unrescaled block gives $\theta_{AB}/4$	`theta_pools()`
$p_{A,w}$	pool-A allele frequency at the within-pool weights $\mathbf{w}_A$ (summing to 1 over pool A), $\sum_i w_{A,i} u_{ik}$	-

Symbol	Meaning	Function
MRD_{ij}	modified Rogers distance between lines i and j; $\mathrm{MRD}_{ij}^2 = 1 - f_{ij}^L$ for inbred lines	`mrd_matrix()`
μ	grand mean of H_{ij} over the complete factorial (in the UC of the selection table, a population mean)	`heterosis_gca_sca()$mu`
$\mathrm{DC}(\cdot)$	double centring over the $A \times B$ block: minus row and column means, plus the grand mean	-
$\sigma^2_{GCA_A}$, $\sigma^2_{GCA_B}$	variance of g_i^A, g_j^B over the factorial; $\sum_k d_k^2(1-2p_{Bk})^2 p_{Ak}q_{Ak}$ and symmetrically	closed form; see Section 5.12
$F_k^\star$	divergence F_{ST} (Balding-Nichols expectation) at which locus k's GCA variance turns over; $\bar{F}^\star$ is their $d_k^2(p_kq_k)^2$-weighted mean, where the summed GCA variance turns over	-
ρ_k	the ρ of the mating-design table with k random testers from a finite pool	see Section 5.13.6
H_T, H_S, D_G	total, within- and between-subpopulation gene diversity, $H_T = H_S + D_G$ [9]; per locus $H_{T,k}$, $H_{S,k}$, $D_{G,k}$; with two pools $H_T = GD_T$, $D_G = GD_{BS}$ (Chapter 11.)	`gd_partition()`
A_T, A_S, D_A	the allelic-diversity analogue, $A_T = A_S + D_A$ (Equation (11.11))	-
λ_d, $\bar{d}_H$, $\bar{d}_D$	the λ fixed by expected heterosis, $\bar{d}_H/(2\bar{d}_D)$, with $\bar{d}_H$, $\bar{d}_D$ the H_S- and D_G-weighted means of d_k (Equation (11.13))	-

Expected heterosis splits as $\sum_k d_k[\,2\bar{p}_k(1-\bar{p}_k) + y_k^2/2\,]$, whose two halves are GD_T and GD_{BS} when $d_k \equiv 1$, and whose sum is $1 - \theta_{AB}$ (Chapter 5.). Over a complete factorial the realised values split orthogonally as $H_{ij} = \mu + g_i^A + g_j^B + s_{ij}$.

A.1.6 Inbreeding, the three lenses

Symbol	Lens	Definition	Function
F_{hom}	homozygosity	$1 - \overline{H_t/H_0}$; **can be negative**	`freq_metrics()`
F_{drift}	drift	$\overline{\delta p^2/[p_0(1-p_0)]}$; never negative	`freq_metrics()`
F_{IBD}	identity by descent	segments inherited from a defined base	requires pedigree + linkage
F_{ROH}	hybrid	genome fraction in runs of homozygosity	not implemented
cov	-	$2\,\mathrm{cov}(\delta p/s, (p_0 - \frac{1}{2})/s) = F_{hom} - F_{drift}$	`freq_metrics()$cov_diag`
κ	-	panel statistic $\overline{(p_0 - \frac{1}{2})^2/[p_0(1-p_0)]}$ (Chapter 10.); not the aggregate genotype W	-

A.1.7 Selection and optimisation

Symbol	Meaning	Function
u_i	multi-trait index of hybrid i	`ctx$index`
α	$(GD_{\mathrm{ref}} - GD_S)/GD_{\mathrm{ref}}$; negative means more diverse than chance	`alpha_loss()`
$\alpha_{\max}$	the diversity budget – a policy decision	argument to `stage2_select()`
$\mathbf{c}$	continuous contributions, summing to 1	`ocs_quadprog()`
$\mathbf{w}$	line-usage weights, $w_a = k_a/(2n)$	`line_weights()`, `line_usage_freq()`
k_a	times line a is used as a parent	`line_counts()`
λ	weight on the coancestry penalty in continuous OCS – **not** the within/between weight of the heterosis table	`ocs_relaxation()`
σ^2_{DH}	progeny variance of a DH family	`sigma2_dh()`
UC	usefulness criterion, $\mu + ih\sigma$	`usefulness_criterion()`

Symbol	Meaning	Function
$GD_{\text{random}(n)}$	mean GD of random subsets of size n, the reference of α; the same quantity as GD_{ref} (Equation (11.15))	`null_distribution()$gd_ref`
ω	index weight of the greedy score $\omega\, u_i - \theta$ (written w in Chapter 16.); not the line-usage weights $\mathbf{w}$	argument `w` of `sel_greedy()`

A.1.8 Genomic prediction

Symbol	Meaning	Note
$\mathbf{u}$, $\hat{\mathbf{u}}$	breeding values; the BLUP of them	defined over **all** individuals, not just the phenotyped ones
β	marker effects; $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{Z}\beta$	the same fit, two parametrisations – exactly (3)
σ^2_u, σ^2_e	genetic and residual variance	supplied here, never estimated; REML in practice
λ	σ^2_e/σ^2_u – **not** the OCS penalty above	a variance ratio, not a tuning knob
h^2	$\sigma^2_u/(\sigma^2_u + \sigma^2_e)$	the one number the whole fit is conditioned on
r	accuracy: $\text{cor}(\hat{u}, g)$, needs the truth	meaningless without its CV scheme (Section 14.4)
r^2_i	reliability: $1 - \text{PEV}_i/(\sigma^2_u \mathbf{G}^*_{ii})$, does not	the early warning: it collapses before the accuracy does
PEV_i	prediction error variance, from the inverse of the MME	$\sigma^2_e[\mathbf{C}^{uu}]_{ii}$
π	prior probability a marker has no effect (BayesB)	BayesCπ estimates it; at book scale, badly
ν, S	degrees of freedom and scale of the χ^{-2} prior; `df`, `R2`	hyperparameters, not fitted
M_e	effective number of independent chromosome segments	unlinked markers here, so M_e is the marker count

CV0, CV1, CV2 name what the training set had already seen of a candidate hybrid's *parents*: neither, one, or both. In a factorial between two pools these are three different questions, and only CV2 is easy – see Section 14.4.

A.1.9 Population sizing

Symbol	Meaning	Function
N	F2 plants, equal to the number of F4 lines under SSD	`run_scheme(n_F2 =)`
n	selfed F1 plants	`f1_sizing(n_F1 =)`
p	frequency of P1 ancestry at a marker in the panel	`panel_freq()`
H	panel heterozygosity; 0.125 in an F4	`panel_het()`
H_t	heterozygosity of the parent whose meiosis produces generation t + 1	-
D	diversity retained, $\overline{2p(1-p)}/0.5$; $\text{E}[D] = 1 - (1-H)/N$ without distortion (Equation (7.1))	`diversity_retained()`
N_{eq}	$(1-H)/(1-D)$ – a communication device, **not** a Wright Ne	`n_equivalent()`
L (Morgans)	total map length	`map$total_cM / 100`
A_t	junctions per haplotype at generation t	`expected_junctions()`
d	distance between adjacent markers, cM	`build_map(spacing_cM =)`
r	recombination fraction, Haldane	`build_map()`

Sym-bol	Meaning	Function
g	random-mating generations after the F2 (map expansion)	-
z_i	share of plant i's genome from P1	-
w_i	seed contribution of plant i in the bulk, $e^{\beta(z_i-\bar{z})}$	`bulk_weights()`
β	bulk selection intensity on P1 ancestry (scalar)	`f2_opt$beta_bulk`
N_{90}	smallest grid N reaching 90% of the gain from the smallest to the largest grid N	-
k	unlinked loci at which a P2 homozygote is to be recovered	`multilocus_recovery(k =)`
P	probability that at least one F4 line is P2P2 at all k loci	`multilocus_recovery()`
$N_{95}(k)$	plants giving $P \geq 0.95$ without distortion (Equation (7.2))	-
h_{res}	fraction of loci still heterozygous in each parent	`f1_sizing(h_res =)`
n_{loc}	independent loci polymorphic between the parents	`f1_sizing(n_loci_eff =)`

These symbols are local to Chapter 7.. There N and n count F2 and F1 plants, not candidate and selected hybrids; L is a map length in Morgans, not a number of parent lines; k counts loci, not a marker index or testers; β is a scalar selection intensity, not the marker-effect vector $\boldsymbol{\beta}$; p is P1-ancestry frequency within one cross, not a reference-allele frequency on the frozen base p_0.

A.1.10 Backcrossing

Symbol	Meaning	Function
k	target genes introgressed from one donor, coupling phase, unlinked to each other	`target_indices(k =)`
s	fraction of the genome donor and elite share by descent	`make_shared_ibd(s =)`, `run_bc_program(s =)`
D	donor dosage of a plant; $(1/2)^{t+1}$ in expectation after t backcrosses without selection	`expected_donor()`
IBD_E	identity by descent with the elite, $1-(1-s)D$ in expectation (Equation (8.2))	`expected_ibd()`
d	interval length, cM	`build_map(spacing_cM =)`
r	recombination fraction, Haldane (Equation (8.1))	`haldane_r()`
L	distance between two targets in Morgans, $d/100$ – not a total map length	-
P_{same}	probability that two donor-derived targets sit in one donor segment (Equation (8.3))	`p_same_segment()`
q	per-plant probability of the wanted genotype at all k targets	`sizing_table()`
n	plants genotyped in one generation or step	`n_for_count()`
N	plants per backcross generation in a uniform schedule	`run_bc_program(n_sched =)`
P	probability required of a sizing criterion (0.95)	`n_for_count(P =)`
ν	shape of the gamma renewal model of crossover interference; not modelled	-

These symbols are local to Chapter 8.. s carries no subscript there and is not the self-coancestry s_i or the specific combining ability s_{ij}; D is donor dosage, not the diversity retained D of Chapter 7.; N and n count plants, not candidate and selected hybrids; L is an interval between two targets, not the total map length of Chapter 7.; ν is a gamma shape, not the degrees of freedom of the χ^{-2} prior in the genomic-prediction block; k counts target genes as it counts loci in Chapter 7..

A.1.11 Mating design

Symbol	Meaning	In the code
g_i^A, g_j^B	general combining ability of a pool-A / pool-B line	`fit_gca()$gA`, `$gB`
s_{ij}	specific combining ability of the cross	`simulate_factorial()$S`
k	testers per pool	`design_tester(k =)`
c	crosses per line in a sparse factorial	`design_circulant(c =)`
r	plots per cross	`design_reps()`
ρ	least-squares GCA accuracy, $\sqrt{\sigma_g^2/(\sigma_g^2 + \sigma_s^2/c + \sigma_e^2/(cr))}$	`gca_accuracy_theory()`
T0 / T1 / T2	untested hybrids with neither / one / both parents in the training set	-

r here is plots per cross; in the genomic-prediction table above and the response table below it is the accuracy of a selection criterion. Chapter 18. keeps ρ for accuracy to avoid the clash.

A.1.12 Sparse testing

Symbol	Meaning	In the code
L	locations in the trial	`nLoc`
k	locations per hybrid (plots per hybrid, one plot per cell)	`sparse_alloc(k =)`
p	share of hybrid x location cells observed, k/L	`p_real`
CV1 / CV2 / CV0 / CV00	new genotype / missing cell of a tested genotype / new environment / both new	`acc_cv1`, `acc_cv2`
PEV	prediction error variance of a hybrid's target value	`sparse_blup()$pev`
b_1	slope of truth on prediction; 1 = no dispersion bias	`b1`
σ^2_{res}	residual of the analysis model, $\sigma^2_{SCA\times L} + \sigma^2_e$ under one plot per cell	`sparse_vc()$s2res`

Here k counts locations per hybrid; in Chapter 18. it counts testers per pool.

A.1.13 Joint allocation

Symbol	Meaning	In the code
g_i^f, g_j^m	GCA of a female (pool-A) / male (pool-B) line: the g_i^A, g_j^B above	-
n_F, n_M	female / male lines (the n_A, n_B of Chapter 18.)	`nF`, `nM`
n_c	distinct crosses made	`nrow(plan)`
B	field budget in plots, $n_c kr$	-
N_P	planted plots, $n_c kr$ (rows of $\mathbf{X}_P$)	`sum(M)`
N_{SNP}	markers; replaces m, which marks the male pool	`n_snp`
n_l	plots at location l	`colSums(M)`
$\mathbf{X}_P$	hybrid marker matrix of the planted plots, one row per plot, 0/0.5/1	-
SS_B	between-location sum of squares of $\mathbf{X}_P$, summed over markers	-
GD_l, GD_P	gene diversity $1-\theta$ of location l's plots / of all planted plots	-
$\mathbf{Z}$, w	0/1 subgroup indicators per plot / weight equating their total SS to the markers'	`wZ * Zh`
$\mathbf{A}_f$, $\mathbf{A}_m$	relationship matrices of the female / male lines	`A`
$\sigma^2_{f\ell}$, $\sigma^2_{m\ell}$, $\sigma^2_{s\ell}$	variances of GCA x location (female, male) and SCA x location	`sparse_vc()$s2fl`, `$s2ml`, `$s2sl`

A.1.14 Response to selection

Symbol	Meaning	In the code
R	response to one cycle of selection	-
i	selection intensity, $\varphi(z)/(n/N)$ for an infinite normal population	`sel_intensity()`
z, φ	standard-normal truncation point leaving a fraction n/N above it; standard-normal density	-
r	accuracy of the selection criterion	-
b	regression of genetic value on the index (scalar)	-
S_I	selection differential on the index	-
σ_A	additive standard deviation	-
V_{genic}	variance if the loci were independent; the realised variance minus this is the disequilibrium term	`genic_var()`
β_k	marker effect at locus k	`sim$beta`
p_{Ak}, p_{Bk}; $q = 1-p$	frequency of the allele coded 1 at locus k among pool-A / pool-B lines; their mean is $\bar{p}_k$ of the heterosis table. In Chapter 6., the Balding-Nichols draws of Equation (6.1)	-
p_k^*	ancestral frequency of the allele coded 1 at locus k, drawn uniform on $[0.05, 0.95]$; the expectation of p_{Ak} and of p_{Bk} under Equation (6.1) (Chapter 6.)	inside `simulate_lines()` (`p_anc`)
u_k, v_k	0/1 allele carried at locus k by the pool-A / pool-B parent of a hybrid; the u_{ik}, v_{jk} of Section 5.11 without the line index	rows of `sim$GL` (`U`, `V`)
d_k	dominance deviation at locus k	`d`
ID	inbreeding depression, $2F\sum d_k p_k q_k$; a **constant** with fully inbred parents	`inbreeding_depression()`
W	aggregate genotype (breeding objective), $\mathbf{a}'\mathbf{g}$	-
$\mathbf{g}$; $\hat{\mathbf{g}}$	vector of the traits' genetic values, one entry per trait (not over individuals); its predictor. Distinct from the GCA g_i^A, g_j^B	-; `traits` of `build_ctx()`
$\mathbf{\Sigma}_P$, $\mathbf{\Sigma}_G$	phenotypic and genetic covariance matrices of the traits – **not** the relationship matrix $\mathbf{G}$	`P`, `G`
$\mathbf{b}$	selection index weights	`index_smith_hazel()`
$\boldsymbol{\xi}$	vector of selection criteria the index $\mathbf{b}'\boldsymbol{\xi}$ is built on ($\hat{\mathbf{g}}$ or the records $\mathbf{y}$) – **not** the contributions $\mathbf{c}$	-
$\mathbf{a}$	economic weights on the aggregate genotype	-
$\mathbf{R}$	restriction matrix ($n_t \times n_r$): directions held at zero expected gain	`index_restricted()`
n_t, n_r	number of traits; number of restrictions	-
$\mathbf{C}$	$\mathbf{\Sigma}_G\mathbf{R}$ in the restricted index – **not** the MME inverse $\mathbf{C}^{uu}$	-
$2N_eR_1$	Robertson's limit; half-life $1.4N_e$	-

$R = i\,r\,\sigma_A$ is the infinite-population, bivariate-normal result. In a structured hybrid population at the teaching scale, Chapter 4. finds the replicated mean gap between predicted and realised response within two standard errors of zero; a single seed can over- or underpredict.

H in Chapter 4. is the heterosis value H_i of the heterosis table above, not the aggregate genotype, which is W.

A.1.15 AlphaSimR pipeline

Symbol	Meaning
x_{ik}	0/1/2 dosage of individual i at QTL k, an entry of $\mathbf{M}^H$ – **not** the 0/0.5/1 entry of $\mathbf{X}$
G_i, G_{ij}	genetic value of individual i under AlphaSimR's `TraitAD` (the $G(\mathbf{x})$ above on the 0/1/2 dosage); of the F1 between inbred lines i and j – **not** the Caballero-Toro G_i
μ_0	intercept of that genetic value
δ_k	dominance degree \$d_k / |a_k|\$, drawn from $N($`meanDD`, `varDD`$)$
M_{HW}, M_{F_t}	population mean under Hardy-Weinberg proportions; mean of selfed generation F_t
$\bar{H}$	mean of H_{ij} over the A x B factorial: the μ of the heterosis table, renamed because μ_0 is the intercept there

Symbol	Meaning
α_k, $\alpha_k^{(B)}$	average effect of a gene substitution, $a_k + d_k(q_k - p_k)$; the same at pool-B frequencies, $a_k + d_k(1 - 2p_{Bk})$ – **not** the diversity-loss budget α nor the Caballero-Toro α_i
$\hat{g}_i^A$	testcross estimate of the GCA g_i^A
t, r, $\rho(t, r)$	testers, locations, and the first-order accuracy of $\hat{g}_i^A$: the k, r, ρ of the mating-design table, k renamed because it indexes QTL there
v_g, v_s, v_e	sample variance of g_i^A over the candidates, and the SCA and error terms of $\rho(t, r)$
n_A, n_B	candidate pool-A lines; pool-B lines the testers are drawn from

These symbols are local to Chapter 9..

A.2 Conventions

Coancestry always includes the diagonal. Group coancestry in the sense of Cockerham. That is what makes $1 - \theta$ exactly Nei's H_e and makes the algebra close. Drop the diagonal and none of the identities hold.

Everything is computed per locus and then averaged over loci. Never average frequencies first.

Marker coding. Lines are 0/1 (or 0/2) because they are homozygous. Hybrids are 0/1/2 as dosage, rescaled to 0/0.5/1 as within-individual frequency. `stage1_build()` auto-detects and rescales.

`f` is never centered, `G` always is. A negative coancestry is a symptom of the wrong matrix.

Loss is always relative to a same-size random baseline. Never to the full pool.

A.3 Terms

Balding-Nichols model. A Beta distribution with mean p and variance $F_{BN}\, p(1 - p)$, used to draw pool-specific allele frequencies from an ancestral frequency p. F_{BN} (`fst`) is the expected divergence of each pool from the ancestral population; it is not the F_{ST} statistic of Chapter 3. computed on the pools (see the partition above).

Group coancestry. The probability that two alleles sampled at random from a whole set are identical in state, including the case of sampling the same individual twice.

Heterotic group / pool. A set of lines maintained as a breeding unit, crossed to lines of a complementary group to produce hybrids. Divergence between groups is where heterosis comes from – but only the divergence that coincides with dominance. Divergence produced by drift alone generates none, because it is paid for exactly out of the within-pool term. See Chapter 5..

Mid-parent heterosis. The F1′s value minus the mean of its two parents. With inbred parents the additive contributions cancel exactly, leaving only the dominance deviations at the F1′s heterozygous loci.

General and specific combining ability (GCA, SCA). The two halves of a hybrid's value that a two-way layout separates: what a line contributes to every cross it enters, and what depends on which two lines met. For heterosis both are exact functions of d and the pool frequencies, with GCA weighted by the *opposite* pool's frequencies – so combining ability is a property of a line against a tester pool, never of the line alone. See Section 5.11.

Reciprocal recurrent selection. Selecting on performance *in cross* and recycling the winners within their own pool. Selection information crosses the pool boundary; germplasm does not. See Chapter 23..

Identity by state (IBS) vs by descent (IBD). IBS is what markers observe: two alleles are the same allele. IBD adds the requirement of common ancestry from a defined base. The gap between them is where Chapter 10.'s whole argument lives.

Line-level collapse. The exact identity $\theta_S = \mathbf{w}'\mathbf{f}^L\mathbf{w}$ for F1 hybrids of homozygous lines, which removes the need for the $N \times N$ hybrid matrix. See Section 12.1.

Status number. $N_s = 1/(2\theta)$. A head count of unrelated non-inbred individuals only on coancestry measured against a base population; on molecular $\mathbf{f}$, $N_s \in [1/2, 1]$ and is a monotone rescaling of θ (Section 11.3). A static descriptor.

Truncation selection. Take the top n by index, ignore everything else. The ceiling on gain and the floor on diversity.

Warm start. Seeding an optimiser's initial population with heuristic solutions. Not optional here: without it the differential evolution finishes below a plain greedy.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **90-notation.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

B. The `hybdiv` package

Every function used in this book lives in one package, whose source is the `R/` directory of this repository. This appendix is the index.

```
#> exported_objects
#>              216
```

B.1 Installation

```
install.packages(c("DEoptim", "quadprog"))
devtools::install(".")        # from the repository root
library(hybdiv)
```

Only `DEoptim` is a hard dependency, used solely by `sel_de()`. `quadprog` is suggested and needed only for `optimal_contributions()` and `ocs_quadprog()`. Everything else, including every plot, is base R.

B.2 File map

File	Role	Chapter
`R/00_data.R`	simulation, the two matrices, the `ctx` builder	Chapter 6.
`R/01_metrics.R`	the diversity metrics, all `f(idx, ctx) -> scalar`	Chapter 11.
`R/02_benchmark.R`	null distribution, discriminatory power, cost, plots	Chapter 11.
`R/03_de_select.R`	selection strategies: truncation, greedy, DE, OCS relaxation	Chapter 16.
`R/04_fast_metrics.R`	the line-level fast route – no N x N matrix	Chapter 12.
`R/05_pipeline_metrics.R`	stage-specific metrics for S1 to S4	Chapter 13.
`R/06_f2size.R`	F1 to F4 population sizing simulator	Chapter 7.
`R/07_caballero_toro.R`	Caballero & Toro subdivided-population analysis	Chapter 3.
`R/08_mabc.R`	marker-assisted backcrossing: drag, the selection index, sizing	Chapter 8.
`R/09_reference.R`	slow literal oracles, for verification	Appendix C.
`R/10_stage1.R`	stage 1: lines to the X / f / hybrids contract	Chapter 6.
`R/11_stage2.R`	stage 2: constrained selection across an alpha grid	Chapter 25.
`R/12_search.R`	structure-aware search: local search, the bound, the exact oracle	Chapter 17.
`R/13_dominance.R`	heterosis under a dominance model, and its link to the partition	Chapter 5.
`R/14_cycles.R`	recurrent selection across cycles	Chapter 23.
`R/15_response.R`	genic variance, and the Smith-Hazel and restricted indices	Chapter 4.
`R/16_mating_design.R`	mating designs: generators, connectivity, LS/BLUP GCA, seed cost	Chapter 18.
`R/17_sparse_testing.R`	sparse testing: allocation, connectivity, MME BLUP/PEV	Chapter 19.

Files are numbered because the package has no `Collate` field and sourcing order is alphabetical.

B.3 The two-stage contract

Everything downstream of stage 1 talks only through three objects. This is the seam for swapping in real data.

```
st1 <- stage1_simulate()                # or stage1_build(X, ped, traits, fL)
#   $X        N x m hybrid markers, 0/0.5/1
#   $f        N x N molecular coancestry
#   $hybrids  N x (3 + n_traits): id, line_A, line_B, traits
#   $fL       L x L line coancestry (optional)

res <- stage2_select(st1$X, st1$f, st1$hybrids, n_sel = 100, fL = st1$fL)
#   $selection  0/1 column per scenario, plus n_scenarios
#   $metrics    one row per scenario
#   $z_scores   each metric in s.d. from the random null
#   $ref        gd_ref, its Monte Carlo s.e., alpha_max, n_sel
```

B.4 Function index

B.4.1 Simulation and context

Function	Does
`sim_config`	simulation scale: lines per pool, markers, traits, divergence
`simulate_lines()`	Balding-Nichols line genotypes in two divergent pools
`simulate_data()`	lines, all A x B crosses, both matrices, predicted traits
`simulate_pools()`	lighter simulator returning raw pieces, with `GL` in 0/1
`build_ctx()`	assemble the context; freezes `p0` and the index
`build_ctx_from_stage1()`	same, from the stage-1 contract
`ctx_from_pools()`	context from `simulate_pools()`, carrying `parents` and `GL`
`load_data()`	the single swap point for real data
`stage1_simulate()` / `stage1_build()`	produce the stage-1 contract
`stage2_select()`	the whole constrained selection pipeline

B.4.2 The two matrices

Function	Does
`molecular_coancestry()`	**the diversity kernel**; one `tcrossprod`, stays in [0, 1]
`vanraden_G()`	**prediction only**; `sum(G) == 0` by construction
`mrd_matrix()` / `coancestry_from_mrd()`	modified Rogers distance, the same statistic

B.4.3 Diversity metrics – all `f(idx, ctx) -> scalar`

Function	Does
`theta_group()`	group coancestry, diagonal included
`gene_diversity()` / `he_nei()`	`1 - theta`; the same quantity, two routes
`theta_from_freq()`	theta via allele frequencies – validation only, ~100x slower
`status_number()`	`Ns = 1/(2 theta)`; a static descriptor
`ne_parents()`	effective number of parent lines; independent of `f`
`ne_lines_pool()`	the same, per pool; needs only the pedigree
`alleles_lost()`	markers polymorphic in the pool, rare in the selection
`freq_metrics()`	**one marker sweep**: He, F_hom, F_drift, cov_diag, rare_retained
`line_weights()` / `theta_pools()`	per-pool usage weights and coancestries
`gd_partition()`	the Caballero & Toro partition over the heterotic pools
`ene()` / `ane()`	Core Hunter entry- and accession-to-nearest-entry

Function	Does
`eff_dim()`	effective dimensionality, on the **double-centered** submatrix
`gst()`	Nei's Gst, selected against non-selected
`mean_offdiag()`	the common production metric, kept for comparison
`metrics_cheap()` / `metrics_full()`	the inner-loop panel and the post-hoc panel

B.4.4 The fast line route

Function	Does
`fast_ctx()`	add `parents`, `GL` and the packed bitset to a context
`line_counts()` / `line_usage_freq()`	the sufficient statistic
`fast_theta()` / `fast_gene_div()` / `fast_status_num()`	`theta = w' fL w`; no N x N matrix
`make_theta_fun()`	precompiled closure for ~1e6 evaluations
`theta_state()` / `theta_swap()`	O(L) incremental update per swap
`fast_ne_parents()` / `ne_parents_from_counts()`	free once the counts exist
`fast_pbar()` / `fast_he_nei()` / `fast_alleles_lost()`	frequencies from the line matrix
`pack_lines()` / `popcount32()` / `alleles_retained_fast()`	bitset allelic richness
`fast_theta_pools()`	pool decomposition from the same counts
`decode_rank()` / `decode_lines()`	the two encodings; **use `decode_lines()`**
`make_fitness_fast()`	DE fitness with several simultaneous restrictions

B.4.5 Selection strategies

Function	Does
`sel_random()`	the null strategy
`sel_truncation()`	ceiling on gain, floor on diversity
`sel_truncation_cap()`	per-line cap; no matrix needed, usually most of the benefit
`sel_greedy()`	incremental greedy; `w = 0` is max diversity
`decode()` / `make_fitness()` / `sel_de()`	differential evolution, warm-started by default
`project_capped_simplex()` / `ocs_relaxation()`	the continuous upper bound
`optimal_contributions()` / `ocs_quadprog()`	quadratic-programming OCS

B.4.6 Benchmarking

Function	Does
`null_distribution()`	**the correct baseline**: random subsets of the same size
`alpha_loss()`	proportional diversity loss against that baseline
`evaluate()` / `discriminatory_power()`	metric panel and its z-scores
`cost_per_eval()`	microseconds per metric; decides what goes inside the loop
`plot_null()` / `plot_correlation()` / `plot_frontier()`	base-R diagnostics; run by `inst/scripts/run_benchmark.R`, not by the book

B.5 Runnable scripts

The book runs everything at a reduced scale so it renders quickly. Three scripts ship with the package and run the same work at the production scale of `sim_config`, writing their tables and plots to `report/`:

```
Rscript inst/scripts/run_all.R          # the two-stage pipeline, ~4 min
Rscript inst/scripts/run_benchmark.R    # the metrics benchmark, ~6 min
Rscript inst/scripts/run_mabc.R         # the MABC scans, ~3 min
```

`run_benchmark.R` is the source of the numeric results quoted in `README.md`, and the only place the three `plot_*` helpers above are exercised. From an installed copy of the package:

```
source(system.file("scripts", "run_all.R", package = "hybdiv"))
```

B.5.1 Pipeline stages S1-S4

Function	Does
`theta_decompose()` / `gst_nei()`	**both** F_ST definitions, and Nei's Gst
`pool_freqs()`	allele frequencies per pool, one row each
`pool_complementarity()` / `s1_monitor()`	the S1 cycle panel; `mean_sq_delta_p` is the exact one
`dh_sib_coancestry()` / `dh_cross_coancestry()` / `dh_pool_theta()`	the three DH identities
`sigma2_dh()` / `sigma_dh_crosses()`	progeny variance from marker effects
`usefulness_criterion()` / `sel_intensity()`	UC – applies at S2, not S4
`s3_theta()` / `alleles_retained()`	line-level metrics
`loss_vs_resampling()` / `theta_ceiling()`	calibrate against a same-size baseline
`select_lines_constrained()`	truncate-then-repair; the incremental greedy fails
`hybrid_theta_from_usage()` / `line_usage()` / `pool_balance()`	S4 on the line route
`loss_ledger()`	loss per stage, on one scale

B.5.2 Heterosis and cycles

Function	Does
`heterosis_value()`	mid-parent heterosis of each hybrid, from `d` alone
`heterosis_expected()`	the same, expected over a pool pair
`heterosis_partition()`	shared and divergence terms – `GD_T` and `GD_BS`
`run_cycles()`	recurrent selection, one row per cycle
`next_pool()`	one generation of a pool: weighted intermating, DH derivation
`sel_greedy_budget()`	greedy sweep returning the best plan inside a budget

B.5.3 Mating design

Function	Does
`design_tester()` / `design_random_sparse()` / `design_circulant()` / `design_nc2()`	crossing plans over the two-pool factorial
`design_reps()`	spread a plot budget over the crosses
`design_diagnostics()` / `design_estimable()`	connectivity, rank = n' - components, df for SCA
`gca_accuracy_theory()`	least-squares GCA accuracy in closed form

Function	Does
`simulate_factorial()` / `simulate_cross_means()`	true GCA/SCA and the cross means a plan produces
`fit_gca()`	least squares or BLUP with known components
`cross_cost_par()` / `cross_cost()`	seed production and cost; **placeholder** levels

B.5.4 Sparse testing

Function	Does
`sparse_alloc()`	hybrid x location allocation: complete, random, parentage
`sparse_connectivity()`	parent coverage per location, concurrence, disconnected pairs
`sparse_vc()` / `relmat_halfsib()`	calibrated variance components; half-sib relationships
`sparse_simulate()`	true values and plot phenotypes for an allocation
`sparse_blup()`	mixed-model BLUP and PEV with known components
`ref_sparse_blup()`	the literal GLS oracle of `sparse_blup()`

B.5.5 Caballero & Toro

Function	Does
`ct_partition()`	subpopulation coancestries, F statistics, the GD partition
`ct_loss_gain()`	loss **or gain** from removing each subpopulation

B.5.6 Population sizing

Function	Does
`maize_chr_len` / `f2_distorters` / `f2_opt`	defaults; **replace the distorters** with your data
`build_map()` / `marker_index()`	Haldane map on a regular grid
`meiosis()` / `meiosis_sel()` / `cross_indices()` / `make_F1()`	the vectorised engine
`make_distortion()` / `zyg_fitness()`	gametophytic and zygotic distortion, by exact rejection
`run_scheme()` / `reps_for_N()` / `bulk_weights()`	SSD, bulk, Syn schemes
`panel_freq()` / `panel_het()` / `diversity_retained()`	panel metrics
`min_minor_freq()` / `fixed_fraction()` / `skew_fraction()`	worst-region metrics
`n_equivalent()`	equivalent N – a communication device, **not** a Wright Ne
`block_lengths()` / `junctions_per_hap()` / `expected_junctions()`	map expansion
`multilocus_recovery()` / `f1_sizing()`	the objectives that keep paying for larger N
`f2_run_experiment()`	the full grid; minutes

B.5.7 Reference oracles

Function	Does
`ref_theta()`, `ref_gene_div()`, `ref_theta_freq()`, `ref_he_nei()`	literal transcriptions
`ref_status_num()`, `ref_ne_parents()`, `ref_alleles_lost()`, `ref_alleles_fixed()`	-
`ref_ene()`, `ref_ane()`, `ref_eff_dim()`, `ref_theta_pools()`	-

B.6 Full export list

alleles_lost	f1_sizing	marker_index	relmat_halfsib
alleles_retained	f2_distorters	marker_weights	reps_for_N
alleles_retained_fast	f2_opt	max_line_use	rrs_config
alpha_loss	f2_run_experiment	mean_index	run_bc_program
alphasimr_founder_pools	fast_alleles_lost	mean_offdiag	run_cycles
alphasimr_gd	fast_ctx	meiosis	run_scheme
alphasimr_make_hybrids	fast_gene_div	meiosis_sel	s1_monitor
alphasimr_pipeline	fast_he_nei	metrics_cheap	s3_status_num
alphasimr_rrs_cycle	fast_ne_parents	metrics_full	s3_theta
alphasimr_to_stage1	fast_pbar	min_minor_freq	sel_de
ane	fast_status_num	molecular_coancestry	sel_de_fast
backcross	fast_theta	mrd_matrix	sel_exact
BITS_PER_WORD	fast_theta_pools	multilocus_recovery	sel_greedy
block_lengths	fit_gca	n_equivalent	sel_greedy_budget
build_ctx	fixed_fraction	n_for_count	sel_intensity
build_ctx_from_stage1	foreground_ok	ne_lines_pool	sel_local_search
build_map	freq_metrics	ne_parents	sel_random
bulk_weights	gca_accuracy_theory	ne_parents_from_counts	sel_truncation
coancestry_from_mrd	gd_partition	next_pool	sel_truncation_cap
col_cumsum	gene_diversity	null_distribution	select_lines_constrained
cost_per_eval	genic_var	ocs_bound	select_parent
cp_hi	gst	ocs_quadprog	selfing_step
cp_lo	gst_nei	ocs_relaxation	sigma_dh_crosses
cross_cost	haldane_r	ocs_round	sigma2_dh
cross_cost_par	he_nei	optimal_contributions	sim_config
cross_indices	heterosis_expected	p_het	simulate_cross_means
ct_loss_gain	heterosis_gca_sca	p_same_segment	simulate_data
ct_partition	heterosis_partition	pack_lines	simulate_factorial
ctx_from_pools	heterosis_value	panel_freq	simulate_lines
decode	hybrid_theta_from_usage	panel_het	simulate_pools
decode_lines	ibd_elite	plot_correlation	sizing_table
decode_rank	inbreeding_depression	plot_frontier	skew_fraction
design_circulant	index_restricted	plot_null	sparse_alloc
design_diagnostics	index_smith_hazel	pool_balance	sparse_blup
design_estimable	joint_alloc	pool_complementarity	sparse_connectivity
design_nc2	joint_connectivity	pool_freqs	sparse_simulate
design_random_sparse	joint_pev	popcount32	sparse_vc
design_reps	junctions_per_hap	project_capped_simplex	stage1_build
design_tester	line_counts	ref_alleles_fixed	stage1_simulate
dh_cross_coancestry	line_usage	ref_alleles_lost	stage2_select
dh_pool_theta	line_usage_freq	ref_ane	status_number
dh_sib_coancestry	line_weights	ref_eff_dim	strat_rec_until
discriminatory_power	load_data	ref_ene	summarise_reps
diversity_retained	loss_ledger	ref_gene_div	target_indices
donor_dosage	loss_vs_resampling	ref_genic_var	theta_ceiling
donor_specific	mabc_opt	ref_he_nei	theta_decompose
drag_total	maize_chr_len	ref_heterosis	theta_from_freq

eff_dim	maize_targets	ref_inbreeding_depression	theta_group
ene	make_distortion	ref_ne_parents	theta_pools
evaluate	make_F1	ref_sparse_blup	theta_state
expected_donor	make_fitness	ref_status_num	theta_swap
expected_drag	make_fitness_fast	ref_theta	usefulness_criterion
expected_ibd	make_shared_ibd	ref_theta_freq	vanraden_G
expected_junctions	make_theta_fun	ref_theta_pools	zyg_fitness

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **91-package.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

C. Verification

A derivation the reader cannot re-run against a naive implementation is a claim, not a verification. This appendix says how each result in the book was checked, and how to re-run the checks.

C.1 The method: slow oracles

Every fast route in the package has a **deliberately slow, literal** counterpart in `R/09_reference.R` that transcribes the definition with no algebraic shortcut. The fast route must match it to machine precision.

```
ref_theta
#> function (idx, ctx)
#> mean(ctx[["f"]][idx, idx])
#> <bytecode: 0x776345a270>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
theta_group
#> function (idx, ctx)
#> {
#>     f <- ctx[["f"]]
#>     if (!is.matrix(f))
#>         stop("ctx[[\"f\"]] (hybrid coancestry) is missing")
#>     mean(f[idx, idx])
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x7763499658>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
fast_theta
#> function (idx, ctx)
#> {
#>     cnt <- line_counts(idx, ctx)
#>     u <- which(cnt > 0L)
#>     cu <- cnt[u]
#>     s <- sum(cu)
#>     as.numeric(crossprod(cu, ctx$fL[u, u, drop = FALSE] %*% cu))/(s *
#>         s)
#> }
#> <bytecode: 0x77634cad60>
#> <environment: namespace:hybdiv>
```

Three implementations of one quantity: a literal mean over the submatrix, the packaged version, and the line-route collapse that never forms the submatrix at all. They must agree.

```
sim  <- simulate_pools(n_A = 20, n_B = 20, m = 1500, seed = 7)
ctxp <- ctx_from_pools(sim)
set.seed(3); sel <- sample.int(ctxp$N, 50)

c(oracle     = ref_theta(sel, ctxp),
  packaged   = theta_group(sel, ctxp),
  line_route = fast_theta(sel, ctxp),
  max_dev    = max(abs(c(theta_group(sel, ctxp), fast_theta(sel, ctxp)) -
                       ref_theta(sel, ctxp))))
#>       oracle     packaged   line_route      max_dev
#> 6.708316e-01 6.708316e-01 6.708316e-01 1.110223e-16
```

The oracles exist so that this comparison is possible for a reader who does not trust the derivation – which is the correct posture.

```
fmt(rbind(
  he_nei       = c(oracle = ref_he_nei(sel, ctxp), packaged = he_nei(sel, ctxp)),
  theta_freq   = c(ref_theta_freq(sel, ctxp), theta_from_freq(sel, ctxp)),
  status_num   = c(ref_status_num(sel, ctxp), status_number(sel, ctxp)),
  ne_parents   = c(ref_ne_parents(sel, ctxp), ne_parents(sel, ctxp)),
  alleles_lost = c(ref_alleles_lost(sel, ctxp), alleles_lost(sel, ctxp)),
  ENE          = c(ref_ene(sel, ctxp), ene(sel, ctxp)),
  ANE          = c(ref_ane(sel, ctxp), ane(sel, ctxp))), 10)
```

	oracle	packaged
he_nei	0.3291684	0.3291684
theta_freq	0.6708316	0.6708316
status_num	0.7453435	0.7453435
ne_parents	26.4550265	26.4550265
alleles_lost	43.0000000	43.0000000
ENE	0.2581333	0.2581333
ANE	0.2503233	0.2503233

C.2 The identity sweep

The line-level collapse was checked across $F_{ST} \in \{0.05, 0.15, 0.35\}$, two seeds and two selection sizes, thirty replicate selections each.

	Identity	Worst deviation over the sweep
max_pairwise_f	pairwise f: hybrid vs line formula	1.1e-16
max_theta_sub_vs_line	theta: line route vs f submatrix	2.2e-16
max_theta_sub_vs_freq	theta: line route vs allele-frequency route	1.1e-16
max_pbar	selection allele frequencies	0 (exact)
max_He	Nei He	0 (exact)
max_Neparents	effective number of parents	2.1e-14
max_alleles_lost	allele loss at MAF threshold	0 (exact)
max_theta_pools	pool decomposition	1.2e-15
max_swap_update	incremental swap vs full recompute	4.4e-16
bitset_vs_literal	bitset allelic richness vs literal count	0 (exact)

C.3 The test suite

The suite is `tests/testthat/`, run with `devtools::test()`. It takes about a minute. What it asserts, and why each check earns its place:

Check	If it fails
theta via submatrix == theta via allele frequencies	**f is wrong**: centered, rescaled, or the wrong marker coding
1 - theta == Nei's He	the identity underpinning every 'loss of X%' statement is broken
f is bounded to [0, 1]	a centered matrix is being used as coancestry
sum(VanRaden G) == 0	the demonstration in Section 2.2 no longer holds on this data
theta and Ns analytical edge cases	the diagonal is being dropped somewhere
greedy < random < truncation on theta	there is no trade-off to optimise; the whole benchmark is pointless
decode() is unique, in range, deterministic	the DE fitness is noisy and cannot converge
fast line route == hybrid-matrix route	**the collapse is broken**; production scale becomes infeasible
incremental swap == full recomputation	any local search built on the state vector is wrong

Check	If it fails
popcount32 == naive bit count	allelic richness counts are wrong
F_hom and F_drift are 0 when the selection is the base	the base p0 is not frozen, or is being recomputed
cov_diag == F_hom - F_drift	one of the three lens formulas is wrong
max-diversity drives F_hom negative, F_drift positive	the two-lens argument of Chapter 10. does not reproduce
freq_metrics reproduces he_nei and alleles_lost	the consolidated marker sweep changed an existing number
the Caballero & Toro partition closes	the Eq. 8 algebra is broken
GD_WI == 0 for inbred lines, GD_WI_hyb large for their F1s	lines are not actually inbred, or the hybrid diagonal is wrong
eff_dim in (0, n - 1]	the double-centering was dropped and eff_dim re-measures theta
the two-stage output contract	downstream code reading `$selection` or `$metrics` will break
stage 2 runs without fL	the optional-fL path is broken
stage1_build accepts both marker codings	real data in the other coding would give different answers
genic_var == its literal oracle	the genic-variance route diverged from its definition
realised minus genic variance == the disequilibrium term	the disequilibrium decomposition of Chapter 4. is wrong
inbreeding depression == the shared term of the heterosis partition	Falconer's symmetry is broken, or `d` is being applied inconsistently
inbreeding depression == simulated genotypes (Monte Carlo)	the closed form does not describe genotypes anyone could actually draw
the restricted index moves the restricted trait exactly zero	**the restriction is a penalty**, and the Chapter 15. analogy is wrong
no restriction reduces the restricted index to Smith-Hazel	the degenerate case silently returns something other than Smith-Hazel
MRD and coancestry are one statistic	Trap 1 of Chapter 13. no longer holds
Gst < Fst always, and Gst matches the classical route	Trap 2 is wrong, or the two definitions were conflated
the DH identities	the S2 algebra is wrong and crossing plans cannot be pre-evaluated
hybrid theta from usage == the hybrid matrix	Trap 5′s repair route is broken
constrained line selection meets its ceiling	the constrained selection silently returns an infeasible plan
the oracles agree with the packaged metrics	a fast route diverged from its definition
map length and Haldane spacing	the sizing chapter's map is not the map it claims
heterozygosity halves per selfing	the simulator is not doing what selfing does
D == 1 - (1 - H)/N under neutrality	the identity every sizing number rests on is broken
n_equivalent inverts diversity_retained	N_eq is not the inverse it is described as
a Syn cycle adds half a map length of junctions	the intercrossing budget in Chapter 7. is wrong by 2x
distortion shifts ancestry away from 0.5	the distortion mechanism is inactive
f1_sizing halves the loss probability per plant	the F1 sizing argument is wrong
heterosis_value matches the literal oracle	the fast heterosis route diverged from its definition
additive effects cancel from the mid-parent difference	the derivation of Chapter 5. is wrong, or the parents are not inbred
shared and divergence == GD_T and GD_BS	**the central identity of Chapter 5. is broken**
2 * GD_WI_hyb == GD_T + GD_BS	the hybrid-level and line-level partitions have come apart
neutral divergence leaves expected heterosis unchanged	Chapter 5.'s correction is wrong and F_ST would predict heterosis
alignment between d and divergence is what moves heterosis	the alignment result, and the argument for Chapter 23. with it, is wrong
GCA + SCA reconstruct heterosis exactly and are mean-zero	**the combining-ability decomposition of Chapter 5. is not a decomposition**

Check	If it fails
SCA is the interaction residual of the two-way additive fit	SCA is a proxy for the interaction, not the interaction – the section overclaims
the closed-form GCA and SCA variance components match	the variance-component result of Section 5.12 rests on a wrong closed form
uniform-d heterosis is the coancestry kernel, exactly	genetic distance no longer predicts heterosis under flat dominance
GD_T + GD_BS == 1 - theta_AB	the between-pool coancestry reading of the identity is wrong
pool_freqs reproduces what its callers computed inline	a pool frequency route diverged after the refactor
the DH draw is an unbiased gamete; selfing an inbred returns it	recycling fabricates or destroys diversity; every trajectory is wrong
p0 is frozen, not re-anchored, across cycles	**both inbreeding lenses report no loss forever** – the trap of Chapter 23.
a closed programme loses diversity and gains index	the cycle loop is not selecting, or not recycling what it selected
the budget is respected; alpha_max = Inf is truncation	the budget is not binding across cycles
injection raises diversity relative to a closed run	injection is not actually introducing founder material
GCA rank == n' - components for every design family	**the connectivity argument of Chapter 18. is wrong**, or a generator is
NC II: between-set GCA contrast not estimable	the estimability check accepts what it should reject
k = 1 tester leaves zero df for SCA	the tester saturation claim of Section 18.3 is wrong
LS GCA error == s2s/k + s2e/(k r)	the Sprague-Tatum closed form no longer describes `fit_gca()`
sparse_blup == literal GLS oracle (BLUP and PEV)	**every live number of Chapter 19. is wrong**: the MME are assembled incorrectly
each hybrid in exactly k locations; parentage covers both pools everywhere	the allocation comparison of Section 19.11.3 compares different budgets
known-component BLUP has dispersion slope ~ 1	the BLUP is mis-scaled; the dispersion claims of Section 19.9 fail

```
Rscript -e 'devtools::test()'
```

C.4 Provenance of every figure and table

The book runs light examples live and reads heavy results from cache. This is the complete accounting.

C.4.1 Computed live at render

Chapter	Runs live
Chapter 1.	the GCA-against-tester example, the observed-against-expected heterozygosity identities, the IBS-against-IBD example, a hybrid's molecular inbreeding against its parents' coancestry, the drift decay of a crossing block against a DH-derived pool
Chapter 2.	both matrices, the sum(G) demonstration, the f diagonal
Chapter 3.	the whole worked example, reproduced against the published tables
Chapter 4.	the breeder's equation against the realised response and its decomposition, the genic-variance oracle check, the GCA/SCA variance identity, both selection indices
Chapter 5.	the heterosis oracle check, the additive cancellation, the shared/divergence identity, the coancestry-kernel identity, the fst sweep and its Balding-Nichols prediction, the alignment scenarios and their stratified control, the GCA/SCA decomposition and its variance components, the SCA/GCA relocation sweep

Chapter	Runs live
Chapter 6.	the simulation, the fst sweep, the contract, the sampling-bias histogram
Chapter 7.	the theoretical identities, heterozygosity halving, map expansion, f1_sizing
Chapter 9.	the founder-engine reproducibility and LD comparison, the varA-against-genicVarA trajectory, the zero F1 variance of inbred parents, the selfing-versus-DH homozygosity trajectory, the breeder's equation over a selected-fraction sweep, sel_intensity against AlphaSimR selInt, Smith-Hazel against a numerical optimum, the RRS trajectory and the stage-2 metrics
Chapter 10.	the Eq. 3 identity, the four-strategy lens panel
Chapter 11.	every metric, the sampling-bias formula, the null distribution
Chapter 12.	the collapse, the swap update, cost at book scale, the fixed-theta band, the prediction-error sweep
Chapter 13.	all five traps, the S1 panel, the DH identities, the S4 collapse
3	GBLUP and its reliabilities, the singularity of the hybrid G and the ridge blend, the CV2-against-parent-held-out split, BayesA/BayesB on an oligogenic trait, the GBLUP-against-ridge verification, BayesCpi, the hand-off to stage1_build()
Chapter 15.	the OCS relaxation, the convergence check, the greedy frontier, the marker-panel sensitivity
Chapter 16.	all baselines, the encodings, the DE, the warm-start comparison
Chapter 17.	the Gram identity and PSD check, the submatrix-sum identity, the three local-search modes, the invalid-versus-Lagrangian bound comparison, ocs_round
Chapter 18.	the design grids, the GCA-from-frequencies identity, the connectivity table and estimability check, the tester accuracy curve against its closed form, one LS-versus-BLUP replicate, the cost table, the decision tree
Chapter 19.	the allocation taxonomy panel, the pre-planting connectivity and reliability recipe
Chapter 20.	the incidence example, the uncrossed-line frequency of random sparse plans, one crossing plan under three allocations, the across-location frequency balance
Chapter 22.	the staged programme in both arms, the paired phenotypic-versus-genomic comparison over 24 seeds, the gene-diversity ledger
Chapter 23.	the frozen-p0 demonstration, the delta-F regression
Chapter 24.	Robertson's limit against the observed trajectory, the paired selected-versus-random variance test in both the unlinked and the linked arm
Chapter 25.	the full two-stage pipeline
Appendix C.	the oracle comparisons

C.4.2 Read from cache

File	Why
`data/theta_identity_check.csv`	the full identity sweep, 12 configurations
`data/cost_per_eval.csv`	production scale: L = 300, N = 22500, m = 10000
`data/metric_redundancy.csv`	621 selections x 17 metrics
`data/de_constraints.csv`	9 DE runs at 60,000 evaluations each
`data/fst_definitions.csv`	the divergence sweep
`data/dist_vs_variance.csv`	600 candidate crosses with simulated DH

File	Why
`data/pipeline_loss_ledger.csv`	8 founder pools, four stages, two strategies
`data/plant_metric_usage.csv`	687 screened plant records
`data/bibliography_*.csv`	the screened corpora themselves
`data/f2_results.csv`	5 schemes x 20 sizes, adaptive replication
`data/f2_multilocus.csv`	multilocus recovery across the grid
`data/mabc_*.csv`	six MABC tables, from inst/scripts/run_mabc.R or its predecessor (per-table provenance in Section 8.8): the uniform scan (rec_bg at s = 0.5/0.6/0.7, the other 3 policies at s = 0.6; 4 gene numbers x 11 sizes; 90-300 reps by N), the allocation grid (rec_bg), BCnF2, analytical sizing, and the two paired index tables (target −only=index_comparison,allocation_recheck, 1000 reps per cell)
`figs/mabc_sizing.png`	analytical sizing by stage
`figs/mabc_policies.png`	the four recombinant-selection policies
`figs/cost_scaling.png`	cost scaling at production scale
`figs/de_convergence.png`	DE convergence under four restrictions
`figs/metric_redundancy.png`	the redundancy panels
`figs/pipeline_loss.png`	the loss ledger
`figs/metric_pitfalls.png`	Traps 4 and 2 on the full simulation
`data/search_benchmark.csv`	8 methods x 2 scales x 3 seeds, production scale N = 10000
`data/search_scaling.csv`	per-evaluation cost from N = 400 to N = 22500
`data/search_exact_gap.csv`	the outer-approximation oracle, proven small and time-limited large (target `search_exact`)
`figs/search_anytime.png`	anytime curves at equal wall-clock
`figs/search_scaling.png`	the encoding scaling wall
`data/cycles_trajectory.csv`	3 budgets x 16 cycles x 5 seeds (target `cycles`)
`data/cycles_crossover.csv`	the crossover cycle, per budget per seed
`data/cycles_maxuse.csv`	3 caps x 16 cycles x 5 seeds
`data/cycles_injection.csv`	closed against one injection at cycle 8, 5 seeds
`data/cycles_selector.csv`	greedy against DE, 2 budgets x 13 cycles, seed 1
`figs/cycles_gain.png`	cumulative gain by budget
`figs/cycles_diversity.png`	gene diversity and F_drift by budget
`data/mating_core_sweep.csv`	11 designs x 3 budgets x 30 reps, LS and BLUP (target `mating`)
`data/mating_scenarios_summary.csv`, `data/mating_optimizer_frontier.csv`, `data/mating_validation.csv`, `figs/mating_*.png`	**not regenerable here**: the external `sparsex` study (AlphaSimR founders, AlphaREML, GBLUP, CDmean), 24 designs x 3 budgets x 30 reps x 3 models; its phenotypic core is the row above
`data/sparse_core_sweep.csv`	spreading, k = 1 strategies, and overlap x family size; 30 reps, known components (target `sparse`)
`data/sparse_scenarios.csv`, `data/sparse_min_allocation.csv`, `data/sparse_contrasts.csv`, `data/sparse_two_stage.csv`, `data/`	**not regenerable here**: an external study (REML by `sommer`, 2,630 fits; two-stage layer; AlphaSimR genomic layer); its phenotypic core is the row above

File	Why
`sparse_genomic_layer.csv`, `data/sparse_validation.csv`	hand-extracted from the six primary papers of Chapter 19.
`data/sparse_primary_studies.csv`, `data/sparse_literature_parameters.csv`	

Nothing is read from `report/` or `data/` at the repository root: both are gitignored, so a clean clone would fail to render. Everything cached lives in `book/data` and `book/figs`, which are tracked.

C.5 Regenerating the cached results

```
Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R          # everything; hours
Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R f2size   # one target
Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R search   # the advanced-selection benchmark
Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R search_exact  # just the exact oracle
Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R cycles   # the recurrent-selection trajectories
Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R mating   # the mating-design core sweep (~6 min)
Rscript book/scripts/regenerate.R sparse   # the sparse-testing core sweep (~5 min)
```

The script is the single place where the expensive computations live. It is never invoked by `quarto render`.

C.6 Reproducing the book

```
Rscript -e 'devtools::document(); devtools::load_all()'
Rscript -e 'devtools::test()'
Rscript -e 'devtools::check()'
quarto render book
```

Quarto's `freeze: auto` means a chapter re-runs only when its source changes. To force a full recomputation, delete `book/_freeze/`.

C.7 Known limitations of the verification

Stated so they are not mistaken for oversights.

The oracles share the author's understanding. They check that the fast route computes what the slow route computes. They cannot check that the slow route implements the right definition. That is what the reproduction of the published Caballero & Toro tables in Chapter 3. is for – an external check against numbers this project did not produce.

Monte Carlo checks have Monte Carlo error. Where a test asserts agreement with a simulated expectation rather than an algebraic identity, the tolerance is loose by necessity, and a genuinely small bias would pass.

Everything is verified on simulated data. The identities are algebraic and will hold on real genotypes. The *empirical* results – which metrics are redundant, how much index a constraint costs – were derived at $F_{ST} = 0.15$ with simulated markers, and Chapter 12. says explicitly that they should be re-derived on real genotypes before being treated as settled.

One chapter's headline results come from outside this repository. The mating-design sweep of Chapter 18. (`mating_scenarios_summary.csv` and its siblings) was produced by an external study whose code needs AlphaSimR and `sommer`; it shipped with its own 37-check validation report, summarised in that chapter, but it is not re-run by anything here. What is re-run is its phenotypic core (`regenerate.R mating`), and Section 18.10 compares the two.

The sparse-testing chapter (Chapter 19.) has the same structure. Its REML grid, two-stage scenario and genomic layer are cached from an external study, which validated its own estimator on the complete design (Table 19.5). The in-repo `regenerate.R sparse` re-runs the known-component core, and 5 compares the two.

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **92-verification.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

D. The bibliographic corpora

Chapter 21. draws on two screened corpora. This appendix describes them so the claims there can be checked, extended, or disagreed with.

D.1 What they are

Corpus	Records	Years	Focus
`bibliography_animal.csv`	324	2018-2026	optimal contribution, coancestry matrix choice, effective size, allelic richness
`bibliography_plant.csv`	687	2017-2026	diversity quantification, heterotic structure, genetic resources, optimisation

Both are annotated screens, not exhaustive searches. The plant corpus came from 2004 records across 29 plant-breeding queries on Crossref and Europe PMC, of which 687 were scored relevant.

D.2 Structure

```
names(pl)
#>  [1] "doi"              "year"             "authors"          "title"
#>  [5] "journal"          "citations"        "relevance"        "crop"
#>  [9] "metric_used"      "selection_method" "contribution"     "url"
```

Column	Meaning
`relevance`	3 = directly relevant, 2 = related background
`crop`	plant corpus only
`metric_used` / `metric_advocated`	the diversity metrics the record reports
`selection_method`	plant corpus only
`theme`	animal corpus only; multi-valued, semicolon-separated
`contribution` / `relevance_note`	a one-line note on what the record adds

D.3 Relevance and coverage

```
table(plant = pl$relevance)
#> plant
#>   2   3
#> 529 158
table(animal = ani$relevance)
#> animal
#>   2   3
#> 235  89
```

crop	records
maize	54
wheat	11
multi-crop	10
rice	9
none	7

crop	records
sorghum	5
barley	4
none (general crop)	4
potato	3
soybean	3

Maize dominates, which is the intended bias – but it also means every claim in Chapter 21. about crops other than maize rests on a handful of records.

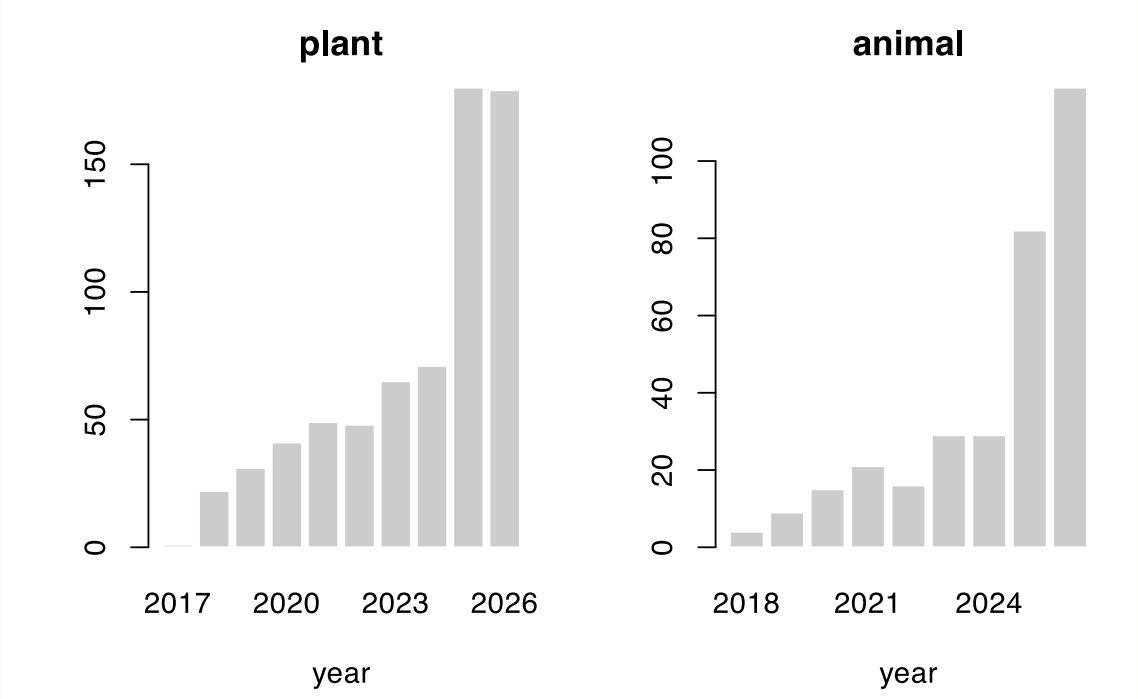

Figure D.1: Publication year of the screened records. Both corpora are deliberately post-2017.

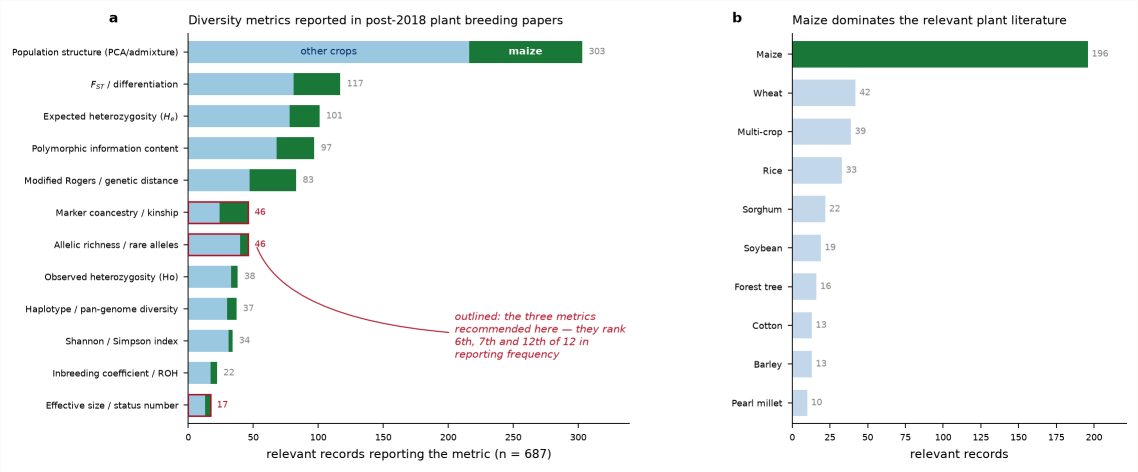

Figure D.2: Which diversity metrics the plant literature actually reports.

D.4 Themes in the animal corpus

The `theme` column is multi-valued. Splitting it:

```
th <- unlist(strsplit(ani$theme[ani$relevance == 3], ";\\s*"))
th <- trimws(th); th <- th[nzchar(th)]
sort(table(th), decreasing = TRUE)
#> th
#>         OCS / contribution optimisation Coancestry / relationship matrix choice
#>                                      68                                      61
#>          Optimisation algorithms / cost         Allelic richness / rare alleles
#>                                      27                                      20
#>                            Effective size         Heterozygosity / gene diversity
#>                                      18                                      15
#>      Core collection / subset selection
#>                                       9
```

D.5 Querying them

The corpora are ordinary CSVs, so the claims in Chapter 21. are checkable in one line each.

```
# records that report a coancestry or kinship metric
sum(grepl("coancestry|kinship|relatedness", pl$metric_used, ignore.case = TRUE))
#> [1] 12

# records using ROH, and how many of those are maize
roh <- grepl("ROH", pl$metric_used, ignore.case = TRUE)
c(roh_total = sum(roh), roh_maize = sum(roh & grepl("maize", pl$crop, ignore.case
= TRUE)))
#> roh_total roh_maize
#>         1         0

# the most-cited directly relevant maize records
mz <- pl[pl$relevance == 3 & grepl("maize", pl$crop, ignore.case = TRUE), ]
head(mz[order(-mz$citations), c("year", "title", "citations")], 6)
```

year	title	citations
2020	Diversity and heterotic patterns in North American proprietary dent maize germplasm	58
2020	Discovery of beneficial haplotypes for complex traits in maize landraces.	46
2021	Genetic diversity and selection signatures in maize landraces compared across 50 years of in situ and ex situ conservation	44
2021	Application of Genomic Selection at the Early Stage of Breeding Pipeline in Tropical Maize.	38
2020	Efficiencies of Heterotic Grouping Methods for Classifying Early Maturing Maize Inbred Lines	26
2021	Genetic variation and population structure in China summer maize germplasm.	25

```
# the animal-side records on matrix choice
mc <- ani[grepl("Coancestry / relationship matrix choice", ani$theme), ]
head(mc[order(-mc$citations), c("year", "title", "citations")], 6)
```

year	title	citations
2018	Optimal cross selection for long-term genetic gain in two-part programs with rapid recurrent genomic selection	156
2019	The impact of genomic selection on genetic diversity and genetic gain in three French dairy cattle breeds	100
2020	Management of Genetic Diversity in the Era of Genomics.	72
2019	Genomic Tools for Effective Conservation of Livestock Breed Diversity	71
2020	Molecular genetic analysis of spring wheat core collection using genetic diversity, population structure, and linkage disequilibrium	65

year	title	citations
2019	Improving Short- and Long-Term Genetic Gain by Accounting for Within-Family Variance in Optimal Cross-Selection.	59

D.6 Limitations

These are abstract screens. Relevance and the metric annotations were scored from titles and abstracts, not from full texts. A paper that computes a metric without naming it in the abstract is invisible to this table – which almost certainly understates how often coancestry is computed as an intermediate step.

The queries shaped the answer. 29 plant-breeding queries were run; a different query set would return a different landscape. The strong maize skew is by design, and the counts for other crops are too small to support a claim about those crops.

"Not established in the retrieved set" means exactly that. Every such statement in Chapter 21. is a claim about *this corpus*, not about the literature as a whole. It is a prompt to look further before assuming novelty, not a proof of it.

Citation counts are a snapshot at screening time and are already stale.

D.7 Classical references

The corpora are deliberately post-2017. The classical results the book rests on are cited from the source literature, and collected in `book/references.bib`:

Result	Source
group coancestry	Cockerham (1967)
molecular / IBS coancestry	Nejati-Javaremi et al. (1997)
gene diversity, Gst	Nei (1973)
the subdivided-population partition	Caballero & Toro (2000, 2002)
status number	Lindgren & Mullin (1997, 1998)
optimal contribution selection	Meuwissen (1997)
genomic relationship matrix	VanRaden (2008)
modified Rogers distance	Wright (1978)
usefulness criterion	Schnell & Utz (1975)
differential evolution	Storn & Price (1997)

Reproduce this chapter

All the code of this chapter, in order and with the explanation kept as comments, is one script: **93-corpora.R**. Download it, install `hybdiv`, and run it top to bottom in an empty directory; cached results are fetched on first use.

References

Bibliography

[1] D. S. Falconer and T. F. C. Mackay, *Introduction to Quantitative Genetics*, 4th ed. Harlow: Longman, 1996.

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